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RITA COPELAND

Emotion and the History of Rhetoric in the Middle Ages

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OXFORD STUDIES IN MEDIEVAL LITERATURE AND CULTURE

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The monograph series *Oxford Studies in Medieval Literature and Culture* showcases the plurilingual and multicultural quality of medieval literature and actively seeks to promote research that not only focuses on the array of subjects medievalists now pursue—in literature, theology, and philosophy, in social, political, jurisprudential, and intellectual history, the history of art, and the history of science—but also that combines these subjects productively. It offers innovative studies on topics that may include, but are not limited to, manuscript and book history; languages and literatures of the global Middle Ages; race and the post-colonial; the digital humanities, media and performance; music; medicine; the history of affect and the emotions; the literature and practices of devotion; the theory and history of gender and sexuality, ecocriticism and the environment; theories of aesthetics; medievalism.

For David, Evelyn, and Beryl, immeasurable love

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Micha Lazarus, eds., *Poetics Before Modernity* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, forthcoming).

This book emerged out of a commitment to *longue durée* history. Its direction was set by an encounter with a manuscript nearly two decades ago as I was pursuing questions about rhetoric that I had been asking for a much longer time. The book was written during a period of tremendous upheaval in the world culminating in a pandemic whose future effects on societies, economies, and academic institutions I cannot at this moment know. I hope at least that we will continue to reflect on those long histories of thought that have shaped our public discourse as well as the ways we articulate our private experience.

Philadelphia, January, 2021

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List of Abbreviations

AL	Aristoteles latinus
BRUO	A. B. Emden, <i>Biographical Register of the University of Oxford</i> . 3 vols. Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1957–9.
CBMLC	Corpus of British Medieval Library Catalogues
CCCM	Corpus Christianorum continuatio medievalis
CCSG	Corpus Christianorum series graeca
CCSL	Corpus Christianorum series latina
CIMAGL	<i>Cahiers de l’Institut du Moyen-Âge grec et latin</i>
CSEL	Corpus scriptorum ecclesiasticorum latinorum
EETS	Early English Text Society
MGH	Monumenta Germaniae Historica
ODNB	<i>Oxford Dictionary of National Biography</i> . Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2004, https://www.oxforddnb.com
PL	Patrologia latina, ed. J.-P. Migne (Paris, 1844–64)
RLM	<i>Rhetores latini minores</i> , ed. Karl Halm (Leipzig: Teubner, 1863; rpt. Frankfurt: Minerva, 1964)
SATF	Société des anciens textes français

Martin Camargo’s complete edition of the *Tria sunt* (Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 2019) was published when this book was all but finished. I have incorporated it into the notes where possible.

Translations from Latin and other languages are my own unless otherwise noted.

Introduction

Why study the emotions through rhetoric? Rhetoric is an engine of social discourse and the art charged with generating and swaying emotion. The history of rhetoric provides a continuous structure by which we can measure how emotions were understood, articulated, and mobilized under various historical circumstances and social contracts. The long tradition of rhetoric is a layered repository of cultural thought about the mimetic and affectively generative powers of language. Rhetorical treatises, whether modern or from the deep past, are aimed at the immediate needs of communication. Their principles are operative across the written records of persuasive contact—from imaginative poetry to the literature of statecraft, from moral and religious writing to legal, ceremonial, and bureaucratic arguments. If the art of rhetoric has always taught how to move minds, its past teachings also reveal how subjective experience was imagined as something to be knowable, harnessed, and expressed. But the challenge is to understand exactly how the rhetoricians imagined the impact of language on audiences, and exactly what roles they conceived emotion to play in persuasion.

This book is about how rhetoric in the West, from late antiquity to the later Middle Ages, represented the role of emotion in shaping persuasions. But the discourses and practices—whether philosophical, spiritual, political, or artistic—that have recorded emotional experience are historically specific. Over the millennium of the Middle Ages the place of emotion within rhetorical theory was to change significantly, according to the variables of textual transmission and conditions of rhetorical teaching. This book traces those changes. It is not a history of feeling per se. My aim is not to understand what people may have felt, but rather how writers and teachers understood the force of emotion when they sought to recruit it in persuasive discourse. In this study I am concerned more with production than with consumption of emotive content: that is, how authors were trained

by theory and practical precept to move audiences through texts and speeches. Thus I approach emotion here as the object of rhetorical interest.

As a system of thought and practice, rhetoric has a traceable history that can provide a kind of diachronic “exoskeleton” of subjective experience, a way of formally apprehending emotion in time. Rhetoric is a conceptual system that works in and through history, giving formal expression to social and political thought. Other fields, including notably the histories of philosophy and theology, have mapped out formal narratives for the study of past emotions, and indeed there has been no lack of such work for the Middle Ages. Research on emotions in ancient and medieval philosophy—from the perspectives of both moral philosophy and cognitive theory—is particularly well advanced.¹ But one of the explicit tasks of rhetoric is to deal with the spectrum of emotions that color judgment, to explain how the passions are best captured and opinions swayed. Thus in its overt and dedicated purpose, rhetoric is closer to the contingencies of experience than virtually any other field. Because of its pragmatic focus on communication, rhetoric obligates itself to different and often deeper levels of belief and practice than philosophy, theology, and other fields can afford. Rhetoric does not give us an unmediated access to the subjective feelings of the past, but its affordance is pragmatism rather than ideal conditions.

But emotion does not figure the same way across all rhetorical doctrine. This issue, the different roles that emotion plays in rhetorical thought, has never been treated comprehensively from antiquity all the way through the Middle Ages. Research on rhetoric in antiquity, the early modern period, and up into contemporary studies, has yielded impressive understandings of the emotions and persuasion.² Classical theory stands out for its rich, dedicated explorations of the political and ethical roles of emotion in persuasion: Aristotle’s *Rhetoric*, Cicero’s *De oratore*, Quintilian’s *Institutio oratoria*, and from Christian late antiquity, Augustine’s *De doctrina christiana*. But even in the fullest historical accounts of rhetoric and emotion, the Middle Ages occupies a very small space. This is because the period between about 600 and 1450 has not seemed to have much to bring to the theoretical table of rhetoric and the emotions. Yet rhetoric in the Middle Ages, as in other periods, constituted the gateway training for anyone engaged in emotionally persuasive writing. In order to appreciate what the Middle Ages contributes fundamentally to a rhetorical dynamic that is part of our own modern understanding, it is necessary to sift slowly

and carefully down through the sedimented layers of the centuries. This book seeks to color in what has largely been a blank space between late antiquity and the cusp of early modernity.

* * *

Because this book is about medieval rhetoric and the emotions, not about rhetoric and the emotions at large, its parameters must be what the Middle Ages had available by way of rhetoric, both what it inherited from antiquity and what it produced for itself. Since the history recounted here is a long one, it will help at the start to sketch in the sources that came down to the Western Middle Ages and the order in which they found their ways into medieval dossiers. In this book I observe the chronology of a reception history. Readers familiar with the outline of the history of rhetoric as a whole may be surprised not to find extensive accounts of some of the major treatises of antiquity and their aesthetics and ethical principles. But my concern here is not with the emotional theory of classical rhetoric in general; rather, I focus on the theory that the Middle Ages derived from its limited legacy of classical rhetoric. Most medieval writers did not have *De oratore* or Quintilian's *Institutio*, and it was not until quite late that they had access to Aristotle. They certainly did not have Hellenistic Greek rhetoricians and theorists of style except as these were filtered through some Latin sources. But what moderns might view as a narrow canon was to prove remarkably fruitful for medieval rhetoricians. As we will see, they continually reinvented the rhetorical understanding of emotion for their own purposes, and their teaching was especially responsive when texts previously unknown came on the scene. This book is about the continual transformations of a legacy, the making of new rhetorical perspectives on emotions and the practices that embodied them.

It is well known that the medieval West built its tradition of rhetorical teaching on an essentially Roman textual canon, and moreover on only a small number of those texts that we would now consider central to Roman rhetorical thought. Because of, or perhaps simply in conjunction with, the preferences of late antique commentators for the more technical accounts of the art, the authoritative text dominating curricula for many centuries was Cicero's *De inventione* (c.89 BCE). It is a truncated text, covering only the first canon of rhetoric, invention, in exhaustive technical detail. Yet it was

the mainstay of rhetorical education during the early Middle Ages, the Carolingian period, and right through the late Middle Ages. It survives in slightly over 400 manuscripts (including extracts and incomplete texts, and glossed and unglossed copies), many of these produced over the course of the twelfth century, and thus rivaling Virgil's *Aeneid* as one of the most copied classical texts.³ Its influence stands behind the medieval remaking of classical rhetoric over the course of the twelfth and thirteenth centuries, although superficially the medieval treatises (the arts of poetry and letter-writing) seem to have little in common with the Ciceronian text. Cicero's mature and expansive *De oratore*, appreciated in modern times for its powerful meditation on the orator's own capacity for feeling the emotion that he will generate, had so little circulation in the Middle Ages as to be without significant influence. Cicero's *Orator*, another work of his mature years, had an indirect reception in the Middle Ages through book 4 of Augustine's *De doctrina christiana*, which quotes its doctrine on the levels of style, and later through Hrabanus Maurus' *De institutione clericorum*, which quotes at length from Augustine's *De doctrina*.⁴

Another work contemporary with the *De inventione* was the anonymous *Rhetorica ad Herennium* (c.86–82 BCE), a complete and admirably balanced art of rhetoric which was attributed to Cicero until the fifteenth century. This gained influence only around 1050. It was known to some degree in late antiquity: Martianus Capella seems to rely on the *Ad Herennium* for some of his account of invention (in the rhetoric book of his *De nuptiis Philologiae et Mercurii*), and its comprehensive treatment of style seems to have remained available to authors up through at least the fourth century CE.⁵ But it soon fell out of use. Why the *Ad Herennium* ceased being copied regularly, and all but disappeared from teaching until the second half of the eleventh century, remains a mystery. This is especially curious because once it regained traction over the course of the twelfth century, it outstripped *De inventione* as the preferred classical resource for teaching and commentary, its circulation steadily increasing with an explosion of copying during the fourteenth century. One possible explanation for this late burst of popularity was its appeal to preachers, being at once comprehensive and relatively compact. The *Ad Herennium* survives (complete or incomplete, glossed and unglossed) in over 700 manuscripts, mostly from the twelfth, fourteenth, and fifteenth centuries.⁶ Its account of style became extremely influential for studies of figures and tropes after the eleventh century. Its treatment of

subjects such as pathetic appeals in the peroration overlap with that found in the *De inventione*.

So embedded were *De inventione* and, belatedly, *Rhetorica ad Herennium* that even after the humanist recovery of complete copies of the mature Ciceronian texts and Quintilian's *Institutio oratoria*, renaissance rhetorical teaching continued to find its bearings in the older foundational works.

Horace's *Ars poetica* (c.19 BCE), a work that is not really a rhetorical art but has substantial overlaps with rhetoric, was also a mainstay of the medieval curriculum, copied, routinely glossed, and used continuously through the early and later Middle Ages and beyond. It is extraordinary that a work as elusive in its meaning and diffuse in its advice, a sophisticated poem about poetic decorum aimed at fellow Latin poets, could be a fixture of medieval classrooms, used as a pragmatic guide to composition and style. Whatever its pedagogical deficiencies (which medieval teachers came to recognize and compensate for in their glosses and extended commentaries), it served as an entry to mastering literary Latin. Only in the later twelfth century did it begin to be replaced by poetic treatises that were more suitable for medieval students.⁷ Although it has passing advice about the dramatic poet who must feel the sorrow to be conveyed by the character, its greater contribution to medieval teaching on pathetic appeal is its complementarity with stylistic instruction.

The other great rhetorical art of Roman antiquity, Quintilian's *Institutio oratoria* (finished c.95 CE), had a fitful reception in the Middle Ages. The *Institutio* was known mainly in incomplete copies and extracts, and indirectly through some later summaries of rhetoric, including those by Cassiodorus and Isidore of Seville. It also featured among the sources used in some of the late antique compendia of rhetoric.⁸ It is an overstatement to say that Quintilian was unknown to the Middle Ages, for at least half of the *Institutio* could be read, and in the fourteenth century early Italian humanists showed great interest in the material they had available. But we can point to just four complete texts (made in the ninth, tenth, and eleventh centuries). It was only Poggio Bracciolini's transcription of one of these found at St. Gall that initiated the wide reception of the *Institutio*. Most important for us here is what was missing from the better known partial copies of Quintilian's rhetoric: book 6 and much of books 8 and 9 were gone (along with books 7 and 10). Quintilian's fine expression of emotional

sharing between speaker and audience in book 6 would not be among the influences carried over from antiquity; and the lacuna extended to his explanations of the figures of heightened emotion in books 8 and 9.⁹

Thus for nearly one thousand years, the standard medieval canon of ancient rhetoric consisted of *De inventione*, *Ars poetica*, and only toward the end of that millenium the *Rhetorica ad Herennium*; these were supplemented by late antique manuals and expositions of ancient doctrine, including such famous works as Martianus Capella's *De nuptiis Philologiae et Mercurii*, Cassiodorus' *Institutiones*, and, a little later, Isidore of Seville's *Etymologiae*. But to note the absence of certain classical texts in the medieval dossier is not to apologize for the Middle Ages. Rather, knowing what they did not have makes us appreciate more profoundly what rhetoricians and writers accomplished, and should render us more sensitive to the nuances of medieval rhetorical thought as it took on new forms through the centuries. Medieval rhetoric, in its turn, was no mere repetition of faded classical teaching. In the early centuries and especially in the twelfth and thirteenth centuries, rhetorical theory bounded forward to find new ways to express the pleasure of moving an audience or being moved, to articulate the power of style or the power of emotional reasoning.

Over the course of the thirteenth century, another, much earlier text expanded medieval horizons of ancient rhetoric. Aristotle's *Rhetoric* was translated into Latin at several points during the century, first from Greek, then from Arabic, and then again, and authoritatively, from Greek in about 1269. The last translation, by William of Moerbeke, put the *Rhetoric* into circulation with the corpus of the *Aristoteles latinus*, the works of Aristotle now available to readers in the Latin West. But in manuscripts, Aristotle's rhetoric was usually accompanied by other works of Aristotle (most often the *Ethics* and the *Politics*), not with other works from the Latin rhetorical canon. Although its circulation was vast and its influence far-reaching, its reception was not as a "rhetoric" in the prescriptive tradition of the Roman treatises. Yet despite its positioning as a work associated with Aristotle's moral philosophy, or perhaps because of this, Aristotle's *Rhetoric* changed the debates at the highest levels about the definition, purpose, and function of rhetoric. Its appearance on the Western scene marks a new beginning in the history of rhetoric. While never finding a place in the practical teaching of rhetoric, it helped to reshape conceptions of civic discourse and social interaction in the 150 years after its reappearance in the West. Its impact

was most powerful through an even more influential intermediary: the *De regimine principum* of Giles of Rome, which successfully married the method of Aristotelian moral philosophy to the mirror of princes genre. Giles' *De regimine* circulated widely, not only in Latin but in many vernacular translations.

The tradition of Western rhetoric evolved in parallel with philosophical and theological traditions. At times these tracks also intersected. In the following chapters I offer contextual discussions of philosophical and spiritual systems of emotion as they relate to developments in rhetoric. But rhetorical uses of emotion are often quite different from what we find in philosophy, devotion, theology, and pastoralia. Indeed, the rhetorical history of emotions cannot necessarily (or even for the most part) be explained by reference to dominant discourses of philosophy and theology. As we will see, philosophical treatments of emotion, from antiquity onwards, may be normative, that is, urging a certain emotional disposition in view of mental clarity or physical health, or taxonomical, generating categories and sub-categories of emotions in order to arrive at a full psychological picture of mind or soul. The normative position can serve an ethical purpose, to achieve happiness, most famously instantiated in Aristotle's *Nicomachean Ethics*, which recognizes the natural and cognitive aspects of emotions as part of a good life if they are trained towards the right ends of sound judgment and virtuous habit. But the normative position can also regard powerful emotions as harmful false judgments and irrational motions that should be eradicated in order to achieve *apatheia*, existence in a state of virtuous tranquility that can include sober emotional responses guided by reason. This is the outlook of the ancient Stoics (late fourth century BCE through mid-third century CE). We will see that Cicero's *De inventione* uses this model as a point of departure in *De inventione*, where emotion—*commutatio*—is a topic of invention, an attribute of the person whose actions are being considered. Of course, Cicero's use of it in a rhetorical context must take the problem in a different direction from philosophical argument: its value in the Ciceronian context is not normative but descriptive. On slightly different terms it is also the outlook of Neoplatonism (third through sixth centuries CE), where leaving the emotions behind is part of the process of freeing the soul from contingent attachments so that it can ascend towards a divine perfection. The Stoic but especially the Neoplatonist perspective offers eradication of passions as a therapy.

From antiquity we also see the beginnings of taxonomies of emotion. The Stoics divided emotion into good and bad feelings: pleasure and desire on the one hand, distress and fear on the other. They further divided each emotion into an involuntary occurrence and a voluntary indulgence of a feeling. This system found its way very early into Christian philosophy and into a psychology of sin in Augustine, Nemesius, and John Damascene. But the most finely calibrated taxonomies of the psyche and its emotional temperaments would come later, with Avicenna's *De anima* (translated into Latin in the middle of the twelfth century). Avicenna looked back to Aristotle's own *De anima* and its account of the role of emotions in the senses and the soul, but he elaborates a most complex division of the soul, subdividing the emotions into different powers. Across the thirteenth century in the Latin West, the influence of the Avicennan taxonomy was pervasive: theologians such as Aquinas built upon it to create detailed pictures of the soul and the will. But however subtle, ultimately these are maps, classifications.

As influential as Stoic and Neoplatonist ideas were for Christian philosophy, and as important as psychological taxonomies were to become for theological reflection on the will, rhetorical thought and practice were never entirely answerable to these perspectives, simply because rhetorical persuasion is an engine of emotional arousal. This does not mean that rhetorical practice operated in some kind of intentional defiance of philosophical and theological dicta, but rather that it had different purposes. Certainly some purposes, such as stimulating love of God or penitential sorrow, were complementary with the aims of theological teaching. But most rhetorical practice operated on an axis quite different from those of philosophy and theology, treating communication horizontally, in social terms, rather than on the vertical axes of an individual apprehending a godhead or a philosophical truth.

The legacy of Ciceronian rhetoric (along with its late antique supplements) developed on its own course for well over a thousand years, giving rise to virtual industries of compositional and stylistic treatises, all of which promoted eliciting emotion as a sign of persuasive success. Where they register a theory of emotion, it is not in terms of an ideal of *apatheia* or even of moderation, except in the sense that they attribute to rhetoric the singular power of both arousing heightened feeling and calming it. In the thirteenth century, the appearance of Aristotle's *Rhetoric* in the Latin West

provided yet another way of articulating the function of emotion as a dynamic part of persuasive discourse. Unlike both the therapeutic and taxonomic models, Aristotle's *Rhetoric* book 2 treats the emotions non-normatively, as behavioral phenomena that are the foundation of social and political understanding. The *Rhetoric* showed the political dimension of emotions as part of public life and as an expression of the speaker's political understanding. It was not inevitable that the Aristotelian rhetorical perspective would be absorbed and even compete with philosophical taxonomies and normative therapies of emotion. But its perspectives were absorbed by poets and clerics, mainly through the influence of the political writing that took it on so comprehensively.

* * *

In order to understand what any period of rhetoric's history has to offer to a theory of emotion and persuasion, we must discover what that rhetorical theory had to say about producing emotion. In antiquity there was an extensive and profound understanding of rhetoric as an engine of emotional response. To what extent did the Middle Ages sustain that, or in what ways reinvent it? These are the questions that I pursue here.

Emotion is not the only mode of persuasion in rhetoric, and often it is subordinate to rational argumentation, whether about law, the circumstances of the case, or the welfare of the state. A great deal of rhetorical theory concerns itself with rational argumentation. Thus, to understand how emotion can be important in the art of persuasion, we must begin by asking exactly where emotion resides in teaching of the art. Is it the subject of considered reflection about how to achieve an argument or about the affective quality of language? And what if, as is the case across much of the early and later Middle Ages, rhetorical doctrine appears to have little or nothing to say about the purpose of generating emotion? While no modern reader would doubt the genuinely affective content of medieval writing in any genre or language, how do we get access to the theory that would attend rhetorical practice if the treatises are silent on their assumptions about passionate discourse? Of course, we can work backward from many examples of practice to infer some general ideas. But that does not lead us to a systematic framework. It is precisely the absence of systematic accounts of emotion among medieval rhetorical treatises that has led

modern scholars to assume that there was little or no theory, and thus that the period stretching from Augustine to Bruni and Valla has little to contribute to a history of emotion and rhetoric.

A principal reason why medieval rhetorical thought about emotion has not been recognized as *thought* per se is that it does not always present itself in the expected places or in obvious ways in the treatises. And so what critics of earlier generations saw as asymmetry between rhetorical treatises and rhetorically self-conscious art has persisted as a notion: that somehow the best medieval writing exceeds what are seen as the merely technical interests of medieval precept. But as we will see, emotion occupies different positions in systems of rhetoric. This is one of the most important issues that I consider here. If rhetorical teaching and theory change over time—and indeed can alter radically over relatively short periods—the understanding of how emotion fits into the system of persuasion also changes. Here I anticipate some of the main theoretical concerns and historical arguments of this book in order to provide in advance a thematic structure of the whole.

The classical theory that the Middle Ages inherited considered the production of an oration or text in terms of several competences, most importantly the discovery of the core argument through methods of proof (invention), the ordering of the parts of the argument for greatest impact (arrangement), and the stylistic choices that give the work its outer appearance (style or *elocutio*). The system has a centrifugal momentum driving from inner idea about what will be proven through reasoning, to organization of those proofs, and to outward expression that delivers the proof to an audience. These proficiencies are always claimed to be interdependent, yet even within classical theory the emphasis can shift from focus on proof to focus on the outer surface of stylistic embellishment. Emotion, in turn, is at times treated as part of the process of finding proof, at times as an aspect of the speaker's own shared values with the audience, and at times as a property of style.

Emotion may be treated as one of the functions of finding proof, as in Cicero's *De inventione*, where the conditions of emotion are treated as part of a system of reasoning: invention, or finding strategies of argument. Here, the emotion is not in the audience or even in the speaker, but is a topic of investigation for explaining the character of the defendant, to show that a person may be "affected" by an upheaval or alteration of the mind such as

joy, desire, fear, and distress (*De inventione* 1.25.36). I discuss this passage of *De inventione* at length in [Chapter 1](#). For now, it is important to point out that this particular and crucial positioning of emotion draws upon a common understanding of emotions without involving the affective responses of speaker or audience. Here, emotion is something to think with, a tool for determining what elements of character are relevant to an action that the defendant performed. It helps to shape the orator's argument about that action. Knowing the defendant's emotional state at the time of committing the crime may or may not elicit a reaction from the audience or judges. But the role played by this element, this "attribute of the person," is as a topic of invention, to allow the speaker to generate arguments from certain known qualities (of character) and facts (of actions). In this, emotion is also anchored to what was seen as the innermost core of the rhetorical system, the thought process of invention, where the arguments that prove the case are devised. On the terms of classical rhetoric, invention is the first procedure, the stabilized, ideational point of departure. Here, where emotion is connected with method, it is not hostage to changing circumstances, even if the actual experience of emotion is seen as a fleeting condition, an upheaval.

From another theoretical perspective, emotion as a form of proof may reside in the audience itself, as an ongoing condition of social life. Aristotle's *Rhetoric* presents *pathos* or the passions as a form and site of proof, along with *logos*, the form of arguments in the speech itself, and *ēthos*, or the character that the speaker projects in the oration. On Aristotle's terms, the social nature of human passions is a given that the orator must know and understand, and *pathos* as a form of proof is a system of drawing on that knowledge to recruit emotions for persuasion. Thus, if anger is triggered by feeling slighted (according to Aristotle's account of anger), the orator might arouse public outrage by describing the insolent behavior of enemies. On this model, emotions are an abiding phenomenon of political existence. Indeed, twentieth-century phenomenology was to recognize in Aristotle's analytic a powerful engagement with emotions as drivers of communication. Emotions are contingencies, but for this very reason they are primary forces through which speech apprehends immediate circumstances.¹⁰ As Aristotle presents it in the *Rhetoric*, emotions are the basis of communal life: in this context they are produced by social encounters and in turn they bring about social interaction. Thus, they are a

psychological resource to be tapped by an orator, not generated from nothing. Here, emotions are in one way raw material, but in another way the very matter of proof through the rhetorical device of the enthymeme. In Aristotle's *Rhetoric*, enthymemes are the core of rhetorical reasoning: they serve the same function in rhetoric that the syllogism serves in logic. But the enthymeme is more flexible than the syllogism. Where the premises in a syllogism must meet a high standard of logical validity, the enthymeme is receptive to probabilities and to the beliefs and values of a particular audience, the kinds of people to be persuaded. Where the logical syllogism relies on a chain of reasoning to validate every premise, the enthymeme can simplify that system by assuming agreement on some premises. The enthymeme calls upon the heart, on judgments founded as much on intuitions and emotions as on logical reasoning. It constructs proofs by appealing to beliefs that are conditioned by emotions.¹¹ In this way public emotions constitute a core mechanism of proof, central rather than eccentric to the aims of rhetorical reasoning.

These two models, both making emotion internal to the mechanics of proof, passed to the Middle Ages under different conditions of reception. But emotion may also occupy a powerful position outside of the core methods of proof, when it is a value shared between speaker and audience. Both Cicero (in his mature *De oratore*) and Quintilian develop the idea that the emotion generated in the audience must have an ethical correlative in the orator's own affective response. If the orator wants to arouse passion in an audience, he himself must feel that passion and be able to convey it through his own style (*De oratore* 2.45.189–90; *Institutio oratoria* 6.2). This is of such importance to Quintilian that he offers advice about how the orator can bring himself to feel the intense emotion that he wants to generate in his audience: through the device of *phantasia*, vivid mental imagery through which he will see what he wants his audience to see. Planting emotion in the speaker ensures an investment in, a responsibility for, the emotions generated: it is a way of protecting rhetoric from charges of mere beguiling, of fraudulent manipulation of gullible crowds.

But these ideas from Cicero's *De oratore* and Quintilian did not pass directly to the Middle Ages, where neither of these works were much known. What did pass to the Middle Ages was yet another model in which emotion was bound almost completely to stylistic surface. Style has had a paradoxical value in rhetoric from classical antiquity onwards. On the one

hand, it is represented as external embellishment, the surface that is applied to render the inner core of argument beautiful and emotionally affecting. On the other hand, style can be considered so important to persuasive effect that it should have some constitutive power of meaning. Whatever claims were made for its centrality, however, style was readily separable from the rest of rhetoric and was often the object of the greatest suspicion about the artfulness of eloquence. The Platonic critique of rhetoric, that it appeals to gratification and pleasure (for example, *Gorgias* 462c), has been echoed in various ways from antiquity to modernity, from Cicero's worry that wisdom must accompany eloquence to Adorno's condemnation of the false notes of style.¹² But the actual history of rhetoric, in its passage from late antiquity into the Middle Ages, tells a different and much less defensive story. In the schools of late antiquity, where ceremonial or epideictic rhetoric superseded legal and political oratory and where laudatory speech-making was an aesthetic pursuit, style came to be a subject often taught by itself, a kind of contraction of rhetoric into one of its parts. Under these conditions it was also to style that the bulk of teaching about emotion was consigned. But this teaching did not consist of explicit theorizing about persuasion through the passions. Rather, it taught style, especially the figures and the tropes, as something that could be charged with emotional impact. Examples of figures and tropes conveying heightened emotion were taken from canonical poetry and prose that students would already have encountered in their literary training.

As a property of stylistic effect detached from a teaching of reasoning or from an explicit social understanding of emotion as a form of proof, what can emotion be bound to in ethical terms? In premodern rhetorics, style was often understood as a surface artifice that was not necessarily answerable to the truths of reasoning or ethics. Such bias against stylistic surface has persisted in Western critical thought, and has motivated many critiques of rhetoric as "mere" figuration. In the twenty-first century, critical discussions about "surface reading" have sought to rescue practical engagement with the literary or descriptive surface, to consider what it might mean to describe and explain rather than to theorize away from or beneath the text, or to understand the value for reading of rich sensory engagement.¹³ Prioritizing the encounter with the surface is to find meaning and value in its affective strategies and formal coherence and to resist the force of the surface-depth paradigm that has driven hermeneutics—scriptural

interpretation, theories of the symbol—from antiquity onwards. On these terms, surface reading is already interpretation: the surface is no mere set of symptoms to yield to the pressure of a deep reading that will uncover the repressed and vexatious contradictions lurking beneath a beautifully designed exterior. The affective pleasure of form can entail cognitive as well as ethical lessons.¹⁴ Recent work on medieval aesthetics, in the visual as well as the verbal arts, has also championed a predilection for the experience of richly detailed surfaces, a conception of beauty tied to sensation and apprehension of forms rather than to theological or cosmic truths.¹⁵

The idea of the sensual attractiveness of virtuosic style may well have been a strong imperative for the rhetorical teachers of late antiquity who compiled iterative taxonomies of figures and tropes. As I will argue here, one assumption that seems to drive these late antique style manuals, with their targeted examples of figures used in emotive contexts, is that the speaker (or writer) can elicit emotion at will because audiences respond to the sensory appeal of language. By drawing on canonical examples they were also showing their students how and why their beloved texts moved them so much. But because it was so often seen as mere surface, style could be dismissed as ancillary, mere dressing or pompous finery unfixed to any ethical purpose. From a moral perspective, it would be unsafe to consign emotion to the contingent realm of style. But early Christian rhetoricians, themselves educated in the epideictic rhetoric of the late antique schools, were to confront this by returning to the idea of emotion as a shared value between speaker and audience, or between teacher, text, and student: for Augustine and Cassiodorus especially, the beautifully affective surface of the scriptural text elicits an emotional response in all readers, both the teacher who explains the power of the text and the students who gain new understanding.

From the sixth century to the fifteenth, medieval rhetorical thought was to experiment with all of these models of emotional persuasion. Where the teaching of rhetoric focused on style, emotion was also a property of style, with all of the ethical and intellectual questions that attend this position. Where rhetorical thought placed its focus on proof, emotion took on a different role in persuasion, not necessarily more important in terms of effect, but more explicitly connected with the function of reasoning.

If this book has a plot, it is a double one. It begins before the Middle Ages, with the treatment of emotion in the Ciceronian rhetorics and especially in the handbooks of late antiquity, texts that formed the basis of rhetorical theory in the medieval West. In this, the first tradition to bed itself down, the active teaching of rhetoric as an art tended to give preeminence to style, and the work of eliciting emotion was treated as a stylistic issue. I trace this diachronic history through the later part of the fourteenth century. But the later Middle Ages was also an era that saw the arrival of a radical alternative to earlier rhetorical systems. The “doubling” (or braiding) of this book’s narratives involves the reappearance of Aristotle’s *Rhetoric* through the Latin translation by William of Moerbeke, and the definitive commentary by Giles of Rome. In order to tell this double plot we have to go to antiquity a second time, to tell the separate story of Aristotle’s *Rhetoric* and its fortunes, tracing it through its reception in the medieval West. The *Rhetoric* arrived onto a scene already long committed to the Latin rhetorics of antiquity, especially their teaching of invention and style. It took a generation or two for Aristotle’s *Rhetoric* to gain its medieval audience, and it never supplanted the tradition that was already in place. But it could run in parallel or even co-exist with the earlier tradition, even to the extent of forming a kind of hybrid outlook in the *oeuvre* of one writer. The *Rhetoric* offered the Western Middle Ages what was, for them, an entirely new way of articulating the place and function of emotion in persuasive discourse, as a fund of psychological and political knowledge on the part of the speaker. Over the thousand years of what we call the Middle Ages, rhetoric was not one homogenous block but a dynamic system of different strands. Thus, also the place and value of emotion in the system changed with the different valences of the system.

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The foregoing offers a thematic perspective on this book and a broad view of the history of rhetoric that it narrates. These clarifications should indicate how I approach the question of emotion through the historical framework of rhetoric. This book came into being through studies of rhetoric, beginning with my desire to learn more about the impact of Aristotle’s *Rhetoric* on medieval teaching. It became clear to me that one of its acute contributions to late medieval thought was its phenomenology of emotions. While the

story of the *Rhetoric*'s entrance into the medieval West has been told many times (as the notes in this book will indicate), it has not been told with respect to the reception of Aristotle's idea that emotion itself can form a basis of proof. The *Rhetoric* opened a perspective on emotion as a social phenomenon that was new to medieval readers accustomed to Stoic and Neoplatonist positions on managing the private passions. But understanding the impact of the new requires a picture of how earlier medieval rhetorical traditions and related discourses had treated the emotions. Thus, what I have described as the "double plot" of this book: writing the emotions in medieval rhetoric as a reception history that commences with the Ciceronian rhetorics of antiquity, that develops on a long course, and that, at a later juncture, incorporates the Aristotelian perspective. In this book, Aristotle is not the beginning of a historical tradition of rhetoric, but a new beginning, after the twelve-hundred or so years during which Ciceronian rhetoric had embedded itself in Western thought.

This rhetorical perspective also frames the approach to history of the emotions here. At this point, it will be useful to look at the main currents of that lively field, pointing to convergences with and differences from the present work. The word "emotion" itself has become contested in light of significant work on its modern origins. "Emotion" as a term and category came into common use in English over the nineteenth century in the context of scientific psychology, where it superseded a range of English words, notably "passion," "affection," and "sentiment." These earlier terms in English evoked a more differentiated typology of feeling and cognition than what is now seen as the overly-homogenous category "emotions," especially when viewed as non-reasoning impulses.¹⁶ Recognizing the relative modernity of emotion as a scientific category is important for the future of psychological and sociological analysis (especially in English-language contexts). But for a deep historical excavation of rhetorical thought in Greek, Latin, and early European vernaculars, where we will continually confront the premodern terms—*pathos*, *passio*, *motus*, *commotio*, *commutatio*, *perturbatio*, *affectus*, *affectio*, as well as the variable names of individual feelings—in all of their complexity and ideational specificity, the distinction in English between, say, "emotion" and "passion" seems to me less critical.¹⁷ The nuances of the ancient and medieval terms cannot be precisely rendered in their English cognates because of the coloring that modern words have acquired or the narrowing

of their associations: for example, the wide semantic range of *passio* in medieval Latin (emotion, suffering, Christ's Passion) can hardly be rendered by "passion" in ordinary modern English usage; similarly, *pietas* (and its vernacular cognates) can only be rendered incompletely in English as "compassion," "pity," or "piety." Nevertheless, the English word "emotion" does have the advantage of ordinary usage, not as a scientific category but as a general term to denote a recognizable range of mental, physical, and even moral and social responses. I also take the broadest view of the words "affective" and "affect," since the meaning of the Latin words *affectio/affectus* (a mental or physical state of arousal, a mood or feeling, an emotional disposition) is embedded in the modern words.

Several influential categories have emerged in studies of the history of emotions that have some intersectional value with the history of rhetoric that I present here, to the extent that there is a shared interest in patterns of language use that give expression to feelings. My focus is on systematic and preceptive accounts of persuasion: how rhetoric supplies explanations for the impact of emotional appeals, leading to understanding of how speakers and writers conceived the challenges of communication. Of paramount importance is what medieval literary cultures did with the paradigms of rhetorical teaching about emotion that they inherited and refashioned. A discourse that theorizes and encourages emotional persuasion is also setting certain normative standards of expression for what is felt, and thus has something in common with the social history framework of "emotional styles."¹⁸ A repeated teaching practice that promotes certain channels of expression for feelings to be elicited in an audience may also constitute a certain kind of "emotional community."¹⁹ On these terms, the passage of a set of directives from classroom to classroom over the generations might be seen to produce shared norms about how key emotions find literary expression. In these ways, the history of rhetoric joins the aggregate of fields of emotion history that remain to be mapped out. If rhetoric has an external history of its own developments, that history can also provide a perspective on emotional activity. Similarly, the developments of monasticism and medieval piety, both diachronically traceable subjects unto themselves, can be enlisted in the service of a historical picture of emotional cultures.²⁰ What will make the study of rhetoric different as a method from the study of "emotional styles" and histories of spirituality is that rhetorical theory and teaching are intentionally and continually directed

at communication and emotional persuasion. Historical data from fields such as politics and piety may yield up felicitous information about emotions often enough to produce verifiable patterns for historical analysis (for example, the emotional portraits of Saint Louis).²¹ But emotion per se is a dedicated subject of rhetoric, and rhetoric will supply the historical framework through which we understand how persuasive practices changed over time. Through rhetoric we are not directly concerned with how people managed feelings, but rather with how writers and speakers configured their preceptive sources to accommodate the aim of appealing to emotion.

This does not mean that rhetorical teaching is always explicit about its aims with regard to emotion: often we must draw out the implications of emotional interest by reading contextually, uncovering the assumptions that governed standards of teaching or practice. Here, we can also find common methodological ground with the study of emotional styles and related fields, because we are confronted with a text that reveals its governing protocols only by comparison with earlier precepts for expressing powerful feeling; similarly, the notion of emotional styles looks for changes in forms of expression that may in turn signify different ways of apprehending or even informing emotional experience.

Important work on literary discourse and history has focused on the “emotional script” immanent in representation, the conventions that signpost codes of behavior within the literary tradition: genre, style, voice all contribute to generating an emotionally legible script that pertains to the experience of literature. Audiences have, as it were, a road map of emotional codes, learned through familiarity with the variables of a literary tradition as well as the moral fixtures and performative elements of a culture.²² Active emotional responses such as compassion can also be “learned” from textual resources such as meditations on the Passion, which invite the audience to perform and thus also interiorize a certain emotional protocol.²³ Such models of emotional training invite comparison with the rhetorical and literary pedagogies of reading the classical authors that Marjorie Curry Woods has illuminated: such emotional pedagogies call upon the affective hardwiring of students, reminding them how a poetic passage has moved them in the past, marking and naming the devices that have this effect, or parsing the literary text for the cues that should prompt them to respond affectively. These affective pedagogies also intersect with rhetorical mnemonics in what Jody Enders has called the “virtual

performativity of memory,” where witnessing suffering in the theater cues an emotion memory in the audience.²⁴

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I have used the terms “theory” and “practice” to indicate the frameworks through which we encounter rhetorical assumptions. We may think now of “theory” as some kind of metacritical reflection on texts, systems, and discourses, different from the way these objects of analysis are experienced from within. But what does it mean to speak of rhetorical theory and practice as if they constitute two separate realms? On the one hand, we will find distanced critical speculation in rhetorical treatises, especially in their prologues, where they reflect on the principles of the art, its purpose, its ethical and intellectual values. On the other hand, rhetorical theory is only ever a belated formation looking back on practices of persuasion. Even a theory that claims to be from first principles is responding, at least descriptively, to existing practices. Thus, Aristotle begins his *Rhetoric* with the claim that there has been no scientific account of the art of rhetoric as a whole, only random formularies. But those formularies, compilations of examples, form part of a network of practice. Preceptive arts, by nature aimed at future texts, operate under a kind of fiction that they are the theoretical seedbeds for generating the texts-to-come, as if prescriptive theory must precede practice. Yet rhetorical theory, whatever its domain (legal or political rhetoric, literary composition, preaching) is dependent on the witness of practice. And in this respect also, “theory” is never far from the experience of persuading or being persuaded, or of teaching or being taught.

This question about theory and practice invites another and more searching one: where does the art of rhetoric itself—and thus its field of emotional play—lie? Does it lie in the prescriptions laid out in the numerous arts and manuals, which will constitute a large focus of this study? Does it lie in the practical examples that those arts provide by way of illustration? Does it lie in the lessons that students took away from the teaching and that are registered in countless examples of proficient writing? Does it lie in the effect on audiences (difficult to gauge unless written records tell us how a discourse was received or manuscript circulation attests to wide interest)? Does it lie in the metalanguage that treatises, and

the commentaries on them, sought to articulate when trying to define what rhetoric is (what are the origins of rhetoric, what is its relationship to other arts, what are its limits)? Or does it lie precisely in what rhetorical competence would have us *not* see, the use of a technical armory to produce powerful effects without us noticing the machinery that brings them about? Any attempt to navigate the interplay between theory and practice brings us face to face with this array of problems.

Such provocative questions will drive this study of emotion and the history of rhetoric from later antiquity through the Middle Ages. Theory will not always correspond to practice, in part because rhetorical practices respond to changing historical circumstances on a different schedule, as it were, from more speculative theoretical interests. It could be said that rhetorical *theory* about emotion stays almost static for a millennium; but at the same time, pragmatic precepts and practices were to change under pressure from new social conditions. As we shall see, in order to generalize about practice we must often infer determinative principles—whether a “theory” of form, cognition, or ethics that pertains to emotion—from related works, either the preceptive manuals or the kinds of texts to which they point. [Chapter 1](#) traces the millennial length of a particular theoretical discourse about *affectio* that begins with Cicero’s *De inventione* before turning to a tradition of stylistic teaching that arose in parallel with that speculative rhetorical thought and that was to have much more profound consequences for medieval rhetorical practice. [Chapter 2](#) considers the fortunes of that stylistic teaching in late antique and early Christian literary rhetoric: Augustine’s *De doctrina christiana*, Macrobius’ *Saturnalia*, and Cassiodorus’ psalm commentary. Here, the teaching can explicitly articulate an ethical dimension of style; but when that outlook is merely assumed (rather than overtly stated), as in monastic and clerical rhetorics over the following centuries, the force of that ethical defense of rhetoric diminishes. But alongside the abridging of the ethical defense, style itself becomes an explosive field in the professional rhetorics of the eleventh through thirteenth centuries, the *ars dictaminis* and the *ars poetriae*, as we see in [Chapter 3](#). These new pragmatics of rhetorical theory trace their roots back to the epideictic teaching of late antiquity, where the whole range of emotions is a property of style. The arts of poetry and of letter-writing have proved extremely resistant to modern theoretical probing of their affective and aesthetic principles, because they stress the technical dimension of

composition. But they also see rhetoric as a performance-oriented enterprise, and for them the obvious resource for generating strong emotion lies in style. This apotheosis of style is the most durable medieval tradition of teaching how to respond affectively to texts and to write affectively oneself. It manifests itself with joyful zeal in all quarters, from lowly classroom poetry and exemplary anthologies to Petrarch's commanding high style.

From following this long and varied tradition of stylistic teaching and practice we turn once again, in [Chapter 4](#), to dedicated theory: now the reception of Aristotle's *Rhetoric* and especially its analytic of the emotions from antiquity to the late thirteenth century. Most important in this reception, as [Chapter 5](#) shows, is the translation of the *Rhetoric* from the speculative domain of scholastic philosophy to political philosophy and statecraft in Giles of Rome's *De regimine principum*. Giles was the most influential expositor of the *Rhetoric*. In his early commentary on it he showed little understanding of Aristotle's distinctive phenomenology of emotions, but in his mirror of princes written only a few years later he not only registered but mobilized that active political dimension of emotion that is so important to Aristotelian rhetoric. The impact of the *Rhetoric*, directly through the text itself but more commonly through Giles' influential political treatise, is witnessed in political poetry (exemplified in [Chapter 6](#) through Dante, Chaucer, and Hoccleve) and an "Aristotelian turn" in preaching ([Chapter 7](#)).

Here we encounter another aspect of the tension between theory and practice: does theory change practice? Did Aristotelian rhetorical theory on emotions make writers do anything that they had not done before? While there is much evidence for absorption, both directly and indirectly, of Aristotelian rhetoric, the crucial point here is not that the new rhetoric changed people's habits. Rather, it sharpened their perception of what persuasive writing had always done, and focused their understanding of emotion as a resource of political argument. It gave them a new language in which to register their persuasive activity as writers and speakers, and it named and explained the time-honored device of the enthymeme, which validates emotions and beliefs as grounds of proof. If Aristotle's *Rhetoric* provided a doctrinal "theory," it was by bringing emotions to the surface as a theorizable object, and showing why emotion is a core element of rhetorical proof, not a peripheral stylistic add-on. In the most productive

sense that theory is belated: writers recognized their own practices in the theory that they met in the *Rhetoric*.

But as important for rhetorical thought as Aristotle's *Rhetoric* came to be, it did not completely overturn or displace everything that had gone before. Rather, it provided an alternative way of knowing emotion. As I suggest in the Epilogue, its presence is felt where it often works alongside the long-established models of Ciceronianism and stylistic teaching to produce a "hybrid" rhetoric of the emotions. But that "Aristotelian turn" of later medieval rhetoric looks forward to the rhetorics of the Renaissance and their long process of coming to terms with the emotional teaching of Aristotle and of the other classical sources joining the expanding dossier of rhetoric.

In this book, I study rhetoric—through its theoretical arms and its many precepts and applications—as the vehicle of thought about the relationship of emotion and language, emotion and reasoning. To write a history of how rhetoric processes emotion is thus also to write a new kind of history of rhetoric. Rhetoric is its own "practice" of emotion as both embedded in its systems of thought and expressed through many avenues of teaching, reasoning, and persuasive communication. This is obscured when we read the history of rhetoric merely as a series of technical developments in a discipline that seems remote from the ordinary literary and persuasive practices of any period. But rhetoric continually poses questions about who is speaking, what is the argument and how is it revealed, who are the audiences, and what are their expectations.²⁵ Such fundamental questions necessarily raise emotional appeal to the surface as a theme that links rhetoric's long history together, and that gives a key role to rhetoric's second millennium, the Middle Ages, which otherwise can drop out of view. Whether we approach rhetoric as a system of production or as a framework of textual interpretation, we can turn its history inside out and rewrite it from its innermost and abiding core.

Emotion and the History of Rhetoric in the Middle Ages. Rita Copeland, Oxford University Press. © Rita Copeland 2021. DOI: 10.1093/oso/9780192845122.003.0001

¹ Recent works with an emphasis on philosophy and philosophical theology include: Simo Knuuttila, *Emotions in Ancient and Medieval Philosophy* (Oxford: Clarendon, 2004); Henrik Lagerlund and Mikko Yrjönsuuri, eds., *Emotions and Choice from Boethius to Descartes* (Dordrecht:

Kluwer, 2002); Bernard Besnier, Pierre-François Moreau, and Laurence Renault, eds., *Les passions antiques et médiévales* (Paris: Presses universitaires de France, 2003); Damien Boquet, *L'ordre de l'affect au moyen âge: autour de l'anthropologie affective d'Aelred de Rievaulx* (Caen: Publications du CRAHM, 2005); Giannina Burlando, ed., *De las pasiones en la filosofía medieval* (Santiago: Pontificia Universidad Católica de Chile, Instituto de Filosofía, 2009); Christian Schäfer and Martin Thurner, eds., *Passiones animae: die "Leidenschaften der Seele" in der mittelalterlichen Theologie und Philosophie* (Berlin: Akademie Verlag, 2009).

² On antiquity, see, for example, Jamie Dow, *Passions and Persuasion in Aristotle's Rhetoric* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2015); David Konstan, *The Emotions of the Ancient Greeks: Studies in Aristotle and Classical Literature* (Toronto: University of Toronto Press, 2006); Ruth Webb, *Ekphrasis, Imagination, and Persuasion in Ancient Rhetorical: Theory and Practice* (Aldershot: Ashgate, 2009); Susanna M. Braund and Christopher Gill, eds., *The Passions in Roman Thought and Literature* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1997); Matthew Leigh, "Quintilian on the Emotions (*Institutio oratoria* 6 Preface and 1–2)," *The Journal of Roman Studies* 94 (2004): 122–40. Among many studies on rhetoric and emotion in the Renaissance, see Heinrich F. Plett, *Rhetorik der Affekte. Englische Wirkungsästhetik im Zeitalter der Renaissance* (Tübingen: M. Niemeyer, 1975); Lawrence Green, "Aristotle's *Rhetoric* and Renaissance Views of the Emotions," in Peter Mack, ed., *Renaissance Rhetoric* (New York: St. Martin's Press, 1994), pp. 1–26; Debora K. Shuger, *Sacred Rhetoric: The Christian Grand Style in the English Renaissance* (Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1988); Kathy Eden, *The Renaissance Rediscovery of Intimacy* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2012); Lucía Díaz Marroquín, *La retórica de los afectos* (Kassel: Reichenberger, 2008). Representative of different approaches to rhetoric and emotion in modernity are Daniel M. Gross, *The Secret History of Emotion: From Aristotle's Rhetoric to Modern Brain Science* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2007); Michel Meyer, *Le philosophe et les passions* (Paris: Presses universitaires de France, 2015) (in the tradition of Chaim Perelman); and Robert Perinbanayagam, *The Rhetoric of Emotions: A Dramatistic Exploration* (London: Routledge, 2016) (in the tradition of Kenneth Burke).

³ John O. Ward, *Classical Rhetoric in the Middle Ages: The Medieval Rhetors and Their Art 400–1300, with Manuscript Survey to 1500 CE* (Leiden: Brill, 2019), p. 46.

⁴ On the limited presence of *De oratore* and *Orator* in medieval libraries, see L. D. Reynolds, ed., *Texts and Transmission: A Survey of the Latin Classics* (Oxford: Clarendon, 1983), pp. 102–9; on reasons for their limited influence, see John O. Ward, "Ciceronian Rhetoric and Oratory from St. Augustine to Guarino da Verona," in Nancy van Deusen, ed., *Cicero Refused to Die: Ciceronian Influence Through the Centuries* (Leiden: Brill, 2013), pp. 163–96.

⁵ Gualtiero Calboli, "The Knowledge of the 'Rhetorica ad Herennium' from Later Roman Empire to Early Middle Ages in Northern Italy," *Papers on Rhetoric* 9, ed. Lucia Calboli Montefusco (Rome: Herder, 2008), pp. 33–52.

⁶ Ward, *Classical Rhetoric*, p. 46.

⁷ Rita Copeland, "Horace's *Ars poetica* in the Medieval Classroom and Beyond: The Horizons of Ancient Precept," in Andrew Galloway and Frank Grady, eds., *Answerable Style: The Idea of the Literary in Medieval England* (Columbus: Ohio State University Press, 2013), pp. 15–33 and further references there.

⁸ John O. Ward, *Ciceronian Rhetoric in Treatise, Scholion, and Commentary* (Turnhout: Brepols, 1995); p. 78; John O. Ward "Quintilian and the Rhetorical Revolution of the Middle Ages," *Rhetorica* 13 (1995): 231–84 (at pp. 253–4); on the survival, see "Quintilian," in Reynolds, ed., *Texts and Transmission*, pp. 32–4.

⁹ For a summary of the sections missing in most medieval manuscripts, see Priscilla S. Boskoff, "Quintilian in the Late Middle Ages," *Speculum* 27 (1952): 71–8 (and note 5), and James J. Murphy,

Rhetoric in the Middle Ages (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1974), pp. 124–5. On the usual absence of much of book 9, with its account of the figures, among the (few) medieval exemplars before the fifteenth century, see D. A. Russell, ed. and trans., *Quintilian: The Orator's Education*, 5 vols. (Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 2001), 1: 22. For more detail, see *Institutiones oratoriae libri duodecim*, ed. Michael Winterbottom, 2 vols. (Oxford: Clarendon, 1970), 1: v–x; Michael Winterbottom, *Problems in Quintilian* (London: University of London, Institute of Classical Studies, 1970), esp. pp. 3–5, 22–3.

¹⁰ See Chapter 4, pp. 160, 166–7.

¹¹ See Chapter 4, pp. 165–9. For a short discussion, see also Rita Copeland, “Enthymeme,” *New Literary History* 50 (2019): 369–73.

¹² Cicero, *De inventione*, 1.1.1; Max Horkheimer and Theodor Adorno, “The Culture Industry: Enlightenment as Mass Deception,” in *Dialectic of Enlightenment* (Stanford: Stanford University Press, 2002), pp. 94–136.

¹³ Sharon Marcus and Stephen Best, “Surface Reading,” *Representations* 108 (2009): 1–21; Heather Love, “Close but not Deep: Literary Ethics and the Descriptive Turn,” *New Literary History* 41 (2010): 371–91; Sharon Marcus, Heather Love, and Stephen Best, “Building a Better Description,” *Representations* 135 (2016): 1–21.

¹⁴ See the rich commentary by Marjorie Levinson, “What is the New Formalism”? *PMLA* 122 (2007): 558–69. For decisive readings of the intersection of ethics and form in medieval poetry, see Eleanor Johnson, *Practicing Literary Theory in the Middle Ages: Ethics and the Mixed Form in Chaucer, Gower, Usk, and Hoccleve* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2013), especially pp. 9–15, 19–54.

¹⁵ Mary Carruthers, *The Experience of Beauty in the Middle Ages* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2013), especially chapter 6, “Ordinary Beauty.” On the surface materiality of sculpture as affective and persuasive, see Paul Binski, *Gothic Sculpture* (New Haven and London: Yale University Press, 2019).

¹⁶ Thomas Dixon, *From Passions to Emotions: The Creation of a Secular Psychological Category* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2006).

¹⁷ On the early modern conceptual passage from one to another term, see Amélie Oksenberg Rorty, “From Passions to Emotions and Sentiments,” *Philosophy* 57 (1982): 159–72. A rich methodological resource for premodernity is Barbara H. Rosenwein, “Emotion Words,” in Piroška Nagy and Damien Boquet, eds., *Le sujet des émotions au moyen âge* (Paris: Beauchesne, 2008), pp. 93–106; she expands her lexical studies in her *Generations of Feeling: A History of Emotions, 600–1700* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2016). On the premodern history of the term *affectus*, see the case studies in Juanita Feros Ruys, Michael W. Champion, and Kirk Essary, eds., *Before Emotion: The Language of Feeling, 400–1800* (London: Routledge, 2019).

¹⁸ Peter N. Stearns and Carol Z. Stearns, “Emotionology: Clarifying the History of Emotions and Emotional Standards,” *American Historical Review* 90 (1985): 813–36. Similarly influential, and offering a related kind of external framework that operates in terms of political history is William Reddy’s concept of “emotional regimes”: *The Navigation of Feeling: A Framework for the History of Emotions* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2001). Sara Ahmed, *The Cultural Politics of Emotion* (New York: Routledge, 2004), extends its social analysis to the regime of linguistic figuration, the “histories of association” (p. 12) that direct the public impact of certain figures of speech.

¹⁹ Barbara H. Rosenwein, *Emotional Communities in the Early Middle Ages* (Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 2006), and *Generations of Feeling*.

²⁰ See, notably, Damien Boquet and Piroska Nagy, *Sensible moyen âge: Une histoire des émotions dans l'Occident médiéval* (Paris: Seuil, 2015). Piroska Nagy also traces an interesting “cartography of divine emotions” from the church fathers to later medieval pieties: see “Émotions de Dieu au moyen âge: de la passivité à la compassion,” in Chrystel Bernat and Frédéric Gabriel, eds., *Émotions de Dieu: attributions et appropriations chrétiennes XVIe–XVIIe siècle* (Turnhout: Brepols, 2019), pp. 67–94.

²¹ See Bouquet and Nagy, *Sensible moyen âge*, pp. 235–40.

²² For example, Sif Rikhardsdottir, *Emotion in Old Norse Literature: Translations, Voices, Contexts* (Cambridge: D. S. Brewer, 2017); see also the essays in Mary Flannery, ed., *Emotion and Medieval Textual Media* (Turnhout: Brepols, 2018).

²³ Sarah McNamer, *Affective Meditation and the Invention of Medieval Compassion* (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2010); Jessica Rosenfeld, “Compassionate Conversions: Gower’s *Confessio amantis* and the Problem of Envy,” *Journal of Medieval and Early Modern Studies* 42 (2012): 83–105.

²⁴ Marjorie Curry Woods, *Weeping for Dido: The Classics in the Medieval Classroom* (Princeton: Princeton University Press, 2019); Jody Enders, *The Medieval Theater of Cruelty: Rhetoric, Memory, Violence* (Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 1999), pp. 3, 154–6.

²⁵ See Peter Mack, *Rhetoric’s Questions, Reading and Interpretation* (Cham: Palgrave Macmillan, 2017), pp. 1–6.

1

Before the Middle Ages

Emotion from Invention to Style

The Middle Ages built its rhetorical theory on a narrow band of ancient sources that supplied writers and commentators with fundamental perspectives on the shaping of emotion through language and argument. Emotions can be produced and changed by speech, and rhetorical teaching explained how those effects may be achieved. Although emotion does not depend on rhetoric, rhetoric was seen—in varying ways and to varying degrees—to depend on emotion. Thus, rhetorical doctrine could be tapped for a systematic approach to understanding the role of emotions in speech and writing. Rhetorical doctrines served also to define what an emotion is and under what circumstances it emerges; at times—paradoxically—the sources seem to question the very importance of emotion.

The ancient rhetorical tradition on the emotions did not pass to the Middle Ages as a unified block of theory. The rhetorical materials that the Middle Ages inherited were themselves heterogeneous and were also transformed and reconditioned through many avenues of reception. In this chapter, I will consider the classical Latin materials that the Middle Ages had from the beginning and trace relevant aspects of their progress through medieval responses. Later in this study I will return to antiquity and examine the other critical strand of the ancient inheritance, Aristotle's *Rhetoric*. Since Aristotle's treatment of rhetoric was a very late arrival on the medieval scene, its impact can only be appreciated when we have a clear picture of the traditions of rhetorical theory and practice that had already been in place for more than one thousand years. With Aristotle's

Rhetoric, the story of medieval rhetoric and the emotions can be said to start over again. Before reckoning with that new beginning, I will tell the first part of the story.

Among the classical sources accessible to medieval readers, the only one that gave some considered attention to emotion was Cicero's youthful *De inventione* (c.87 BCE). This is a work that scarcely figures in modern accounts of classical rhetoric because it is not considered a major theoretical statement when compared with the profundity of Cicero's mature *De oratore* or the encyclopedism of Quintilian's *Institutio oratoria*. But it was the treatise continuously and broadly known throughout later antiquity into the later Middle Ages. By the end of the twelfth century, the *De inventione* was among the most copied of classical Latin texts. The *Rhetorica ad Herennium*, a contemporary work (between 86 and 82 BCE), overlaps partially with *De inventione* on emotion, but it had an uneven medieval reception, remaining fairly unknown until the early twelfth century. The accident of the continuous medieval influence of *De inventione* makes it central for our inquiry. The *De inventione* shaped medieval conceptions of rhetoric, and both through what it says and its significant silences, it determined medieval understandings of the role and place of emotion in rhetoric.

Emotion in rhetoric is often associated with style, the stirring of emotions through vivid language or powerful prose rhythms in which a stylistic choice can target an emotional response.¹ This has come to be the most visible face of affective rhetoric, where language seems to have a tangible correlative in the feeling evoked. We will explore this aspect of rhetoric later in this chapter and in the following two chapters. However, in ancient rhetoric style was not the only locus for emotional understanding, and in *De inventione* that aspect plays no part, since this incomplete account of rhetoric provides no teaching on style.² Rather, *De inventione* set out another, and even more fundamental, role for emotion: as both resource for and product of invention, the reasoning about a case that produces proof. The Ciceronian theory that passed to the Middle Ages embedded emotion in the *communes loci*, the techniques of generating arguments through standard topics or "places." Here, emotion was theorized not as a stylistic add-on through vivid language, but as a problem of logic, ethics, and psychology that helped to support the whole of the rhetorical edifice.

The *De inventione* gave rise to two long-lived understandings of emotion that could exist in tandem with each other, although their approaches are wide apart. One is a philosophical orientation that concerns the definition of an emotional state, descending from the basic Stoic thought in Cicero's text and the incorporation of that Stoic material into Neoplatonist commentary in late antiquity. This philosophical understanding of emotion was not directed at audience response, but at the principles of reasoning internal to rhetoric. The second tradition took a more pragmatic interest in the objective of emotional appeal; its point of departure was the Ciceronian teaching on eliciting pity and indignation through strategic use of rhetorical (and logical) reasoning. In this case too, emotion was treated as part of an inventional package that will allow the orator to find the most successful arguments. It is assumed that the arguments discovered through reasoning will be enhanced through affective style and passionate delivery, but the process of finding the arguments—and this is what *De inventione* focuses on—will be a rational one. In both of these approaches, emotion is not primarily found in emotive language, but is a factor of logical reasoning.

1.1 *Affectio* in the Tradition of the *De inventione*: Rhetorical Reasoning and Moral Philosophy

The main definition of *affectio* at *De inventione* 1.25.36 received continuous and sometimes expansive attention by later commentators, in spite of its laconic presentation of a theory of emotions, or perhaps even because of its curiously impacted arguments. The definition comes in the course of a larger theoretical account, the topics of invention for legal oratory. These topics consist of the “attributes” of the person and of the act being tried; out of these topics the orator would develop the part of the speech known as *confirmatio* or proof, the part of the oration that secures the speaker's case whether he is prosecuting or defending.³ The attributes of the person that will serve as topics for arguments are name, nature, manner of life (*victus*), fortune, *habitus*, *affectio*, zeal or effort (*studium*), counsel (*consilium*), achievements, accidents or what befell him, and speeches, or what he said or will say (*orationes*). Cicero defines *affectio* relative to

habitus, on the one hand, and *studium* on the other, because they are all states of mind or body:

Habitu[m] autem [hunc] appellamus animi aut corporis constantem et absolutam aliqua in re perfectionem, ut virtutis aut artis alicuius perceptionem aut quamvis scientiam et item corporis aliquam commoditatem non natura datam, sed studio et industria partam. Affectio est animi aut corporis ex tempore aliqua de causa commutatio, ut laetitia, cupiditas, metus, molestia, morbus, debilitas et alia, quae in eodem genere reperiuntur. Studium est autem animi assidua et vehementer ad aliquam rem adplicata magna cum voluptate occupatio, ut philosophie, poëticae, geometricae, litterarum. (1.25.36)⁴

Habitus is what we call a constant or absolute perfection of mind or body in relation to a particular thing, such as the possession of an ability or an art, or a field of knowledge or a physical advantage not given by nature but acquired by zealous effort and industry. *Affectio* is a temporary upheaval, for some reason, of mind or body, for example joy, desire, fear, distress, illness, weakness, and other things found in the same category. *Studium* [zeal] is assiduous mental effort fervently applied to some object with the keenest pleasure, such as the study of philosophy, poetry, geometry, or letters.

The word that is used to define *affectio* is *commutatio*, an upheaval or alteration. The sequence of “upheavals of mind” (*commutationes animi*)—joy, desire, fear, and distress—further specify the forms that mental disturbance can take. These mental conditions are the four emotions recognized in Stoic philosophy, which classified emotion into good and bad value, and present and future temporal axes. Joy and desire are valued as good, fear and distress as bad; joy and distress are reactions to present circumstances, while desire and fear are reactions to thoughts about the future (whether near or distant). Thus, Cicero is deploying a standard Stoic explanation which he would rehearse (at greater length) toward the end of his life in the *Tusculan Disputations*.⁵ The term *affectio*, here as in other classical usage, applies to any temporary disturbance (“ex tempore”), not only emotion. But the term is broad and even slippery. Cicero uses *affectio* in *De inventione* (here and at 1.27.41 and 2.58.176) to designate a passing state or more specifically an emotion, but in *Tusculan Disputations* (4.13.29–30) he uses the term *perturbatio animi* to signify a passing disorder and *affectio* for a permanent (defective) disposition.⁶

In rhetorical terms, this passage opens a number of fascinating issues. First, it is clear that it is not about audience response but rather the subject of the legal argument, the defendant. While audience response will be important in other ways, it is extrinsic to the reasoning involved in proof. Moreover, the focus here is on judging the effects of an emotional state that

may be past or still ongoing, but over which the orator exerts no control; the orator is judging emotion, not trying to produce it. And perhaps most important, here *affectio* is not something that lies outside the speech; rather, it is a critical element internal to the reasoning that produces the speech. Cicero is laying out what would become the standard resource for a theory of topical invention, the attributes of the person and the act. The attributes are intrinsic to the case: Cicero calls them “*silva materia*” (*De inventione* 1.24.34), the raw matter from which arguments are drawn, that is, what is naturally inherent in the case being argued, which would include the personal attribute of *affectio*. The attributes would form the core of what Boethius would later condense into the system of rhetorical “circumstances.”⁷ Cicero presents emotion, *affectio*, under the impress of Stoic thought, as something that passes through the mind but is by nature impermanent and thus an aberration of reason. Yet at the same time, emotion here is the necessary content of a standard inventional topic. Emotion is not simply to be recognized and thought about in order to isolate and extirpate it, as the Stoic program would require. Here it is also something to think with, as the rhetorical program of invention demands.⁸

De inventione presents a delicate and uneasy balance between two perspectives. In rhetorical terms, *affectio* is productive for reasoning, a resource for generating arguments. Here the topic of *affectio* will yield an argument about the defendant’s propensity for feeling joy, distress, desire, or fear, and as well about the emotion that was felt at the time when the act was committed. But in philosophical terms, *affectio* (both mental and physical) is a disturbance, sharply distinguished from an abiding condition (*habitus*) and concerted attention (*studium*). The delicate balance rests on one important difference: in rhetorical invention, the orator thinks about the defendant’s emotions but remains himself unaffected; in philosophical terms, one seeks to control and eliminate emotions in oneself. Yet that balance is further complicated, because even as rhetoric, like philosophy, defines emotion as fleeting, it locks onto any given emotional state as a reliable *locus* for supplying arguments. Where philosophy seeks to extirpate emotion, rhetoric depends on emotion in order to exploit its argumentative value.

The contradiction that we find in Cicero between philosophical and rhetorical interest in emotion will shadow the rhetorical tradition for one important reason: the definition that philosophy imposes on emotion will

continue to find a place in rhetoric. The Stoic thought that Cicero embraced treated emotion as a transient upheaval, and this idea came to be engrained in the Neoplatonism of the following centuries. But for rhetoric, emotion will be a permanent fixture, something to think with, as both Aristotle and Cicero gave it a central role in proof. While in Cicero's Stoic philosophy emotion is defined as a fleeting experience that does not yield reliable knowledge, in his rhetoric emotion is a stable element of the inventional process, a platform for building an argument. Stoic philosophy provides *De inventione* with a governing framework for understanding emotion as a fleeting upheaval, as a contingent factor; yet it is in its very contingency that emotion serves as a permanent topic of invention.

This complication is reprised in the following chapters of *De inventione* in the discussion of the topics of attributes of the act (*attributa negotiis*), under the topic *modus*, often translated as "manner," and defined by Cicero as a frame of mind in which the action was performed either with or without intention (*prudencia, imprudencia*). Under *imprudencia*, or lack of intention, we find two kinds of legal considerations (1.27.41): exonerating circumstance (*purgatio*), which comprises ignorance, accident, or necessity; and *affectio animi*, defined here specifically as emotions: distress, anger, love. Here Cicero narrows the field of *affectio* slightly to the psychological state in which, or because of which, the act was committed.⁹ Thus the very spontaneity of passion, like the unpredictability of ignorance or accident, is an element of legal reasoning in which the orator can find an argument. Emotion is part of the structural underpinning of topical invention, recurring as a key term across the topical system.¹⁰

We can see these precepts illustrated in Cicero's own speeches, although not all of the speeches conform to the doctrinal rules for arrangement or structure. His earliest criminal case, the successful defense of Sextus Roscius against the charge of parricide, does observe the precepts closely. While *Pro Roscio Amerino* was not one of the Ciceronian speeches known to medieval readers, it lays the ground for his practice elsewhere by giving an interesting variation on the topic *affectio* in the proof section of the speech (the *confirmatio*).¹¹ Cicero asks why the accuser, Erucius, has not been able to prove any motivation or disposition on Roscius' part for such a heinous crime. In the wave of questions posed to the court we see the core of the attributes of the person, especially nature, manner of life, fortune,

habitus, and *affectio*. Sextus Roscius stands accused of murdering his father:

What kind of man is he? a youth corrupted and influenced by wicked men? He is more than forty years old. Evidently he is an experienced assassin, an audacious man and well versed in murder. But you have not even heard this alleged by the accuser. Surely, then, it was luxurious living, the magnitude of debt, and his uncontrolled desires [*indomitae animi cupiditates*] that drove the man to commit this crime. But Erucius negated luxurious living when he said that Roscius hardly took part in any feast. Moreover he owed nothing at any time. And further, what passionate desires could exist in that man who, as the accuser himself objected, has always lived in the country and spent his life in tending his land, a way of life entirely remote from desire and bound up with duty?¹²

Here, the topic *affectio* or *commutatio animi* generates an argument via its opposite, the picture of a placid character not given to strong emotion. Roscius had no ungovernable desires, and for that reason is an unlikely parricide. *Cupiditas* or strong desire is introduced vividly so that its absence in Roscius can underscore the force of contrasting attributes, manner of life (his peaceful agrarian pursuits) and *habitus* (his simple and virtuous rural preferences). Among those of Cicero's speeches that are well attested in medieval copies (unlike *Pro Roscio*), the *Catilines* exemplify how the rules, once laid down, can be broken to extraordinary effect. The occasion for delivery of the *Catilines* and the nature of the argument call for relaxing the rules of *dispositio* or arrangement. But the first Catiline oration carries the inventional force of proof *ex personis* when Cicero exclaims to Catiline:

But it is not to be expected that you should be distressed at your own vices, that you should fear the penalties of laws, or that you should yield to the necessities of the state. Nor, Catiline, are you one whom shame would recall from depravity or fear from danger or reason from madness.¹³

The whole of the speech is essentially a *confirmatio*, since Catiline's actions were already well known. It is for Cicero simply to establish the essential character of Catiline, his steely resolve. As in *Pro Roscio*—although for different reasons—the imperviousness of the subject to strong emotion is a measure of his abiding nature. Catiline's callousness is not *habitus* in the positive sense of "perfecting" a capacity or virtue, but there is a solid, perhaps even studied consistency that makes him insensitive to the triggers of spontaneous emotion. The variations that Cicero is able to work on the argument from *affectio* suggest how engrained were the rules and expectations for this method.

But medieval understandings of the rhetorical topic *affectio* were often filtered through late-antique Neoplatonist commentary, which gave the idea a rather different value from that of Cicero's more dynamic inventional principle. The most influential commentary on the *De inventione* was by the fourth-century rhetorician and Neoplatonist philosopher Marius Victorinus. Victorinus expands on Cicero's terse remarks at 1.25.36, illustrating the Stoic scheme of the four emotions with little narratives. But compared with his other elaborations of the Ciceronian text, his discussion at this point may seem disappointingly short:

ADFFECTIO EST ANIMI AUT CORPORIS EX TEMPORE ALIQUA DE CAUSA COMMUTATIO. Habitum esse diximus sive in animo sive in corpore alicuius rei perfectionem. At contra sive in animo sive in corpore alicuius rei inchoatio adfectio est, quae subito aliqua ratione nascitur mox recessura, ut si quid nobis boni nuntietur et laeti esse incipiamus, si quid videamus et id ipsum concupiscamus, vel aliquid timere incipiamus, si moleste ferre, istae omnes animi sunt adfectiones; deinde corporis, si subito in morbum incidamus, si aliquid in nobis debilitetur, sed ad tempus, post autem sanetur. Hae itaque erunt adfectiones corporis et reliquae eis similes.¹⁴

Affectio is a temporary upheaval, for some reason, of mind or body. We say that *habitus* is the perfection of anything in mind or body. But by contrast, *affectio* is a starting up of anything in mind or in body which arises suddenly for some reason and is soon to pass away. For example if someone brings us good news and we become happy, or if we see something and we desire it, or we become become fearful of something—say, being attacked—all of these are affections. With respect to the body, if we suddenly fall ill or somehow incapacitated, but only for a time, and then return to health, these and other similar things will be the affections of the body.

Victorinus' emphasis here is on the ephemeral nature of emotion (and of corresponding physical "upheaval"), in contrast with the permanence of *habitus*. Not surprisingly, his primary interest lies with *habitus*, for which his commentary is close to tenfold the length of the Ciceronian text. It is because he expands on *habitus* that he needs to say comparatively little on *affectio*. In Cicero's account of inventional topics, *affectio* is useful as an index of the permanence of *habitus*: *affectio* is *ex tempore*, while *habitus* is *perfectio constans et absoluta*. The distinction itself is a *locus* for generating arguments. But from Victorinus' Neoplatonist perspective, the crucial point becomes the very definition of a perfection that is abiding and absolute. Thus Cicero's definition of *habitus* as having a *virtus* takes on new philosophical implications, allowing Victorinus to find a resonance with the discourse on wisdom at the opening of the *De inventione* and his

own elaboration of the subject at the beginning of his commentary.¹⁵ Victorinus had introduced his commentary with an account of *virtus*:

Virtue is a state of the soul, directed towards the order of nature in accordance with reason—that is why it is directed towards the order of nature. For we consist of two things, soul and body. The soul is immortal. If it is immortal, it is descended from the gods. If it is descended from the gods, it is perfect. But however perfect the soul, its keenness is entangled and surrounded by a certain thick covering, the body, and thus it becomes forgetful of itself in a certain way. But when through study and discipline it starts to uncover and lay itself bare, then the state of the soul returns and is called back to its natural order. This is virtue, and Plato sometimes says that it comes into being through art, sometimes that it is born with human beings, sometimes that it is produced by exercise [*exercitatio*], sometimes that it is given by God. In his rhetorical works, Cicero equates this virtue with wisdom...Virtue has four parts, prudence, justice, courage, temperance.¹⁶

His later account of *habitus* expounds further on the permanence of the four cardinal virtues with which he opened his commentary:

Videamus itaque habitum qualem esse dicat; “ut virtutem,” inquit; hic habitus animi. Virtus autem quaduplex, iustitia, temperantia, fortitudo, prudentia. Sed tunc habitus, si virtutem ita teneamus acceptam ut numquam a semel comparata recedamus.¹⁷

Let us understand how he defines *habitus*: he says “such as a virtue,” and this is a *habitus* of mind. Virtue is fourfold: justice, temperance, fortitude, and prudence. Therefore it is *habitus* if we preserve it as a welcome virtue so that never once do we shrink from its hold.

Thus in philosophical terms, *affectio* has become a way of knowing *virtus* by what it is not. If *virtus* is, by definition, permanent, *affectio* is the inverse, impermanence. In other words, virtue is an expression or form of permanence, and its opposite is not vice or simple moral weakness, but impermanence in the form of *affectio*.

This perspective finds an impressive extension in an anonymous treatise of uncertain date, *De attributis personae et negotio*, that circulated with Victorinus’ *Explanationes*, copied as an addendum to that commentary. The treatise may have a claim to being as influential in its own way as Victorinus’ commentary, since it survives in nearly as many copies as the *Explanationes*: of forty-two known manuscripts up to the fifteenth century containing Victorinus’ work, thirty-five also contain *De attributis*. This includes the earliest known copy of Victorinus’ commentary, Cologne, Dombibliothek, MS Coloniensis 166, from the seventh or eighth century. This manuscript contains other materials of the third and fourth centuries, including Fortunatianus’ *Ars rhetorica*, so we might assume a relatively

early date for the composition of this short treatise, before or at least within the seventh century.¹⁸ The appeal of the treatise may have been its extreme brevity, allowing it to get to the point about the *attributa*.

That point, however, is more philosophical than rhetorical. While the treatise assumes the background of *De inventione*, it takes the *attributa personis* out of context from their prescribed roles in the *confirmatio* as sources for topical invention. Thus it does not mention how these personal attributes will be used rhetorically. It also redistributes the emphasis so as to foreground the triad of *habitus*, *affectio*, and *studium*. The treatment of *habitus* takes its motivation from Victorinus' commentary, expanding the moral and spiritual teachings there. Hence, its interest is in using the transitory quality of *affectio* to define the permanency of *habitus*, with *studium* poised somewhere between these polar opposites. Even the basic Stoic classes of emotion that we find in Cicero and Victorinus have receded from relevance. The new purpose is to capture a definition and exemplification of human perfectibility, echoing the themes of asceticism through the discipline of the arts with which, as we saw above, Victorinus had opened his Neoplatonist commentary on *De inventione*. In the short treatise, Ciceronian *affectio* has no specific emotional significance, but has been reduced down, as if by metonymy, to the philosophical significance of emotion, namely a temporary state. In the illustration of this distinction between the temporary and the permanent, the treatise offers as analogy the example of being an orator, which is not a sudden, temporary state; it must be nurtured and perfected to become a permanent condition, a *habitus*, and thus also, if one so chooses, a way of life (*victus*).¹⁹ But the interest is not in what makes an orator, nor indeed in how to express or manage the emotions; rather it is in recognizing *habitus* as the perfected state of a virtue:

Verum has qualitates vel diligentia comparat facitque perfectas, et *habitus* nominatur; aut in has casu quodam ac repentino motu frequenter incidimus, et *adfectio* dicitur; aut in has inclinamur *studio* quodam, quod ipsum studium per se nihil aliud est quam voluntas adplicata in aliquas qualitates...Adfectio est accidens qualitas vel repente vel [studio] mox desitura (nam si permaneat, fit habitus), dicta *adfectio*, quod adficiat qualitate.²⁰

Truly one develops these qualities with diligence and makes them perfected, and this is called *habitus*; or we often fall into these qualities by some chance or sudden disturbance, and this is called *affectio*; or we incline to these qualities by a certain effort, because this very *studium* as such is nothing other than the will applied to certain qualities...*Affectio* is a quality occurring

suddenly and forcefully that quickly dissipates; for if it remained it would be *habitus*. It is called *affectio* because by nature it “afflicts” us.

Here, *affectio* has been detached from its function as a topic of invention, a generator of arguments; it has become a tool of philosophical and moral analysis, a comparandum for *habitus* and *studium*. The capability of rhetoric is invoked only by way of example of the abiding quality of what can become *habitus*: Cicero, who applied himself with care and diligence, learned rhetoric so that it was a permanent quality in him, and thus he attained the *habitus* of rhetoric.²¹

This particular philosophical development is difficult to track in other rhetorical treatises of the late empire, because most did not adhere to the language or structure of Cicero’s *De inventione*. This is because the technical handbooks of the period were designed to fill needs that *De inventione* did not meet: to provide legal-bureaucratic classes with a reasonably complete art of rhetoric in synthetic, compressed form. This is exemplified by the fourth-century treatises of Fortunatianus, Julius Victor, and Sulpitius Victor. Such compendia, stressing technical judicial theory, were probably aimed at use in the law courts.²² For such purposes, the *Rhetorica ad Herennium* provided a good resource, and other works of Cicero (*Orator*, *De optimo genere oratorum*, and *De oratore*), as well as Quintilian’s *Institutio*, might also be consulted. In their emphasis on invention, the technical handbooks certainly reveal the primary influence of *De inventione*, but they intermix its doctrine with other sources and boil down the combined teaching. Thus for example, the *Ars rhetorica* of Fortunatianus, which was widely copied in the Middle Ages, deals quickly with *affectus* under the topic of *persona*, listing happiness, anger, sickness, and disability as illustrations.²³ Similarly Boethius’ account of rhetoric in book 4 of his *De topicis differentiis* follows the model of the compressed technical manuals, and treats the attribute of *affectio* only in passing.²⁴

Where the influence of the late-antique technical rhetorics predominates in later writings, there is little imprint of the philosophical perspective that Victorinus and the *De attributa* brought to the emotions. Alcuin’s *Disputatio de rhetorica et de virtutibus*, from the end of the eighth century, closely follows *De inventione* with much supplementing from the *Ars rhetorica* of Julius Victor.²⁵ Alcuin reiterates the *De inventione* on the attributes of the person (although not verbatim). On *affectio* he stresses the

value of knowing the person's emotional tendencies (he mentions love, anger, and vexation) and the force of such emotions for generating an argument. He is interested in the technical consideration of emotion as an inventional topic, not in emotion as a transitory state by which to measure the perfection of *habitus*. In other words, Alcuin shows no evidence of knowing the Neoplatonist reading of *affectio*, and in its absence he returns to the roots of the Ciceronian rhetorical teaching.

However, where the Neoplatonist readings of the attribute *affectio* are in force, they override all other concerns. Beginning in the later eleventh century, new generations of commentators were to return to the *De inventione* as if with fresh eyes, reading it deeply through the philosophical lens of Victorinus' exposition. The earliest is a commentary by a Menegaldus (Manegaldus, Manegold), whose identity with the canon Manegald of Lautenbach (c.1030–c.1112) has been much debated.²⁶ The name of this master and exegete emerges in the late eleventh century in learned circles of northern France.²⁷ Menegaldus' comments on *De inventione* 1.25.36 develop the notion of *habitus* in a direction predicted by Victorinus' commentary, but with greater emphasis on Cicero's term *perfectio* or completeness:

...habitus est perfectio "in aliqua re"...Et quamvis nulla res sit in humanis perfecta, tamen quia solemus alias perfectas, alias perfectiores, alias perfectissimas appellare, ut ostendat se de perfectissimis secundum usum agere, apponit "absolutam," id est ita dico perfectam, ut sit absoluta, id est ut nihil ei desit.²⁸

Habitus is perfection "in a certain thing"...And although perfection is not to be found in human terms, nevertheless, since we are accustomed to calling some things perfect, others more perfect, and others most perfect—so that one should show that one governs oneself in relation to what is most perfect—he applies the term "absolute," what I call perfection, for it is absolute, that is, it lacks nothing.

Here, the association of *habitus* with permanence is subsumed under what Menegaldus takes to be a higher category, perfection, and it is that higher principle that takes priority in his exposition of the passage. This theme can be said to orient his explanation of *affectio*:

AFFECTIO EST ANIMI AUT CORPORIS. Ac si dicat: illa qualitas vocatur affectio, que est "commutatio" id est que potest commutari, sive in animo sive in corpore; "commutatio" dico "de aliqua causa", id est propter facilem causam aliquam nata, et hoc "ex tempore", id est breviter durans. Et vocatur affectio quia facimus nos, id est applicamus, ad eam habendam, modo sponte, modo non sponte, et inde subdit exempla: "ut letitia, cupiditas" et cetera...

Sumitur autem argumentum ab affectione sic: ‘potuit hic adolescens puellam cito decipere: nam capta erat eius amore’.²⁹

Affectio is a temporary upheaval of mind or body. As if he should say, this quality is called *affectio*, which is a disturbance, that is what can be altered, either in mind or body. I say “disturbance for some reason,” that is, it arises from a simple cause, and this is temporary, that is, of brief duration. And it is called *affectio* because we “effect” ourselves, that is, incline to it, whether freely or not. Thus he offers examples: “for example, joy, desire” etc....Let us exemplify an argument *ab affectione* in this way: the boy was able to deceive the girl easily; for she had been seized by love for him.

There is some attempt here to explain *affectio* almost in terms of an etymology: *affectio* as if from both *applicare* and *facio*. This recalls the anonymous *De attributis personae et negotio*, which had etymologized *affectio* from *adficio*, “making an impression.” Given that the *De attributis* often accompanied Victorinus in manuscripts, it is not unlikely that Menegaldus had this idea to hand. *Affectio* here is almost random: it comes from any ready cause, and it is not necessarily intentional. While we have seen similar themes (temporariness, arbitrariness, non-intentionality), Menegaldus incorporates his definitions in a framing discussion of the nature of perfection. Menegaldus’ example of an argument *ab affectione*, with its Ovidian motif of sexual deceit and emotional vulnerability, drives home the philosophical point of imperfection by staging a scene of immature passion, *affectio* as tempestuous and callow.

This kind of erotic example does not resurface among later commentators, even if they used Menegaldus’ exposition. William of Champeaux, who commented on *De inventione* around 1100 (not long after Menegaldus’ commentary was written), stays close to Victorinus in his explanations of *habitus* and *affectio*, although on *habitus* he does add the sexually suggestive example: “vere non faceret adulterium quia castitas versa est sibi in habitum” (truly she would not commit adultery because chastity turned into a *habitus* for her).³⁰ On *affectio*, William stresses temporariness rather than Menegaldus’ theme of shallowness.³¹

The most ambitious commentary on *De inventione* of the high Middle Ages is also the most intensively philosophical in its treatment of *affectio*. Thierry of Chartres’ comprehensive exposition of Cicero’s text was written between 1130 and 1140 as lectures for the advanced students in the cathedral school of either Chartres or Paris.³² Victorinus’ *Explanationes* figures significantly as a source for Thierry’s commentary. It is also quite

possible that Thierry's copy of Victorinus' commentary, like many others, included *De attributis personae et negotio*.³³ Of *affectio*, Thierry says:

AFFECTIO EST ETC. Diximus habitum esse perfectionem in aliqua re diuturnam ex applicatione natam, AFFECTIO vero ANIMI EST AUT CORPORIS subita mutatio cito recedens, ut si quid boni nobis nuntietur et laeti esse incipiamus, vel si quis in aliquam infirmitatem incidat et cito sanetur. Nam per hoc quod dixit affectionem esse EX TEMPORE, intellixit eam ad tempus non diuturnam.³⁴

Affectio is, etc. We said that *habitus* is an abiding perfection in something produced from application. So *affectio* is a sudden change in mind or body that quickly recedes, as for example if someone announces good news to us and we begin to feel happy, or if someone falls into some infirmity and quickly recovers. Now given that he said that *affectio* is temporary, he understood it as for a time, not abiding.

The second half of this statement derives most obviously from Victorinus, who glosses Cicero's text with the same example of someone who brings us good news and makes us suddenly glad. But the first part of the statement, "we said that *habitus* is an abiding perfection in something born from application," is closer to the spirit of the treatise *De attributis*, with its particular emphasis on differentiating the absolute from the contingent, the permanent from the transitory. This epistemology is very much in keeping with Thierry's concerns elsewhere in this commentary as well as in his other work, with seeking and grasping a perfected state of understanding and knowledge. Thus in his commentary on *De inventione* 1.1, working through Cicero's famous pronouncement about the mutual necessity of wisdom and eloquence ("wisdom without eloquence is of little use to states, while eloquence without wisdom is generally very destructive and is never of use"), and the value therefore of grounding eloquence in the study of *ratio* and *officium*, Thierry takes the occasion to define wisdom on his own terms, as "perfect knowledge" that pertains to all the branches of philosophy:

Studium autem RATIONIS ET OFFICII appellavit studium sapientiae, quod philosophiam nominamus. Est enim sapientia integra cognitio aut RATIONIS, quae pertinet ad speculativam et logicam, aut OFFICII, quod ad ethicam pertinet. Rectissimum autem ad rationem refertur, honestum vero ad officium, quod est congruus actus uniuscuiusque secundum morem patriae.³⁵

Moreover, study of *reasoning and moral duty* is his name for the study of wisdom, which we call philosophy. Wisdom is perfect knowledge, either of reasoning, which pertains to speculative science and logic, or of moral duty, which pertains to ethics. The highest excellence pertains to reason, and honor pertains to moral conduct, which is the suitable behavior of each person in accordance with the custom of the country.

The rhetorical tradition of the *De inventione* supplied and sustained a philosophical discourse about permanence and contingency. This arises from the overtly philosophical language of the *De inventione* itself. The role of emotion as a source of rhetorical reasoning seems to recede as the tradition of commentary develops. The commentary that arises from this critical passage in the *De inventione* finds its real interest in the moral-philosophical triad *habitus–affectio–studium*, which overtakes the topical system of *attributa personae* in which those terms first appeared.³⁶

1.2 Pity and Indignation in the Tradition of *De inventione*

At *De inventione* 1.53.100–1.56.109, Cicero presents a set of rules for the peroration. There are similar rules for the peroration in *Rhetorica ad Herennium* (2.48) under the heading of modes of amplification, although this does not give quite as much detail as in *De inventione*. The peroration has three parts, *enumeratio* or summing up, *indignatio*, where the speaker incites indignation in the audience about the crime, and *conquestio*, which arouses sympathy for the plaintiff's woes or even for the collateral suffering of the speaker who is arguing the case. Thus, where the earlier focus was on emotion producing ideas for invention, here the focus shifts to how configurations of ideas will produce emotion in an audience. Because it is focused on audience, this aspect of rhetorical doctrine on emotion had the potential to attract pragmatic interest and imprint itself on literary composition and study.³⁷

The teaching on indignation and pity does not set out to develop a psychology of emotion: indeed, Cicero seems to take for granted the very nature of indignation and pity. Rather, it presents itself as technical instruction on topical reasoning that will produce certain desired effects. Indignation and pity are generated from specific topics (*loci*), that is, categories of reasoning about something. In *De inventione*, as in the corresponding instruction in *Rhetorica ad Herennium*, it is clear that the emotions themselves are not the topics; the emotions are only the effects or products of topical reasoning. This does not have to be stated, because for the ancient rhetoricians it would be self-evident.

Because the topical teaching is in the foreground, Cicero begins by referring back to the attributes of the person and the act that were given as topics for the *confirmatio* or proof: these can also serve as topics for amplification in the peroration (1.53.100). But there are also more specialized topics from which the speaker can derive the effects of indignation and pity. He lists fifteen topics that arouse indignation (1.53.101–1.54.105): (1) from authority, invoking human or divine law; (2) from persons affected, whether one or many, superiors, equals, or inferiors; (3) from consequence (for example, pointing out that if the wrongdoer gets away with it, everyone will think they can elude justice); (4) from similarity with other crimes from the legal point of view; (5) from the absolute, irremediable wrongness of the deed; (6) from manner (the deed was committed intentionally, which is unpardonable); (7) another argument from manner, expressing outrage at the cruel or nefarious or violent character of the deed; (8) from difference, that is, the extraordinary nature of this crime, a violation of the most profound ties of kinship and loyalty; (9) from comparison with other acts considered criminal, showing how much greater was this offence; (10) by using the device that would later be called *phantasia*, where all the circumstances attending the performance of the deed and its aftermath are brought together to bring the action vividly before the eyes of the judge;³⁸ (11) from the unexpected, as this person was the most unlikely to have committed such a deed; (12) from the unprecedented nature of the crime; (13) from compounding the effect of the crime, where the defendant also insults the court by behaving arrogantly; (14) from empathy, enjoining the judge to imagine such an outrage befalling his family; (15) from the commonplace that even enemies should not be treated as cruelly as the plaintiff has been.

Cicero then turns to the *conquestio*, the arousing of sympathy, for which he lists sixteen commonplaces (1.55.104–1.56.109). For the most part, Cicero does not label the commonplaces in the *indignatio* or the *conquestio*: that is, he does not announce that these are arguments to be drawn from the *communes loci* of consequence, manner, similarity, difference, the whole and the part, and so forth. He probably assumed that his readers would already be familiar with the basic system from Aristotle's *Topics*, and would understand that the commonplaces for arousing indignation and pity are derived from dialectic. His purpose is to elaborate principles for amplifying the peroration, with the topics understood as sources. Such amplification,

for winning belief for the preceding arguments, is something that he says most properly belongs in the peroration (1.51.97).

Yet even though the emotions are not topics and so will not themselves constitute sources of emotional response, Cicero's discussion of the topics for the *indignatio* and *conquestio* rises to a remarkable emotional pitch. The topics are meant to provide a means of proof that will appeal at an emotional level rather than just to the reason. But most interesting here is Cicero's insistence on the orator's own display of emotion as he makes the appeals. The orator will demonstrate his passionate feelings under strategic conditions:

Secundus locus est, per quem, illa res ad quos pertineat, cum amplificatione per indignationem ostenditur, aut ad omnes aut ad maiorem partem, quod atrocissimum est; aut ad superiores... quod indignissimum est; aut ad pares animo, fortuna, corpore, quod iniquissimum est; aut ad inferiores, quod superbissimum est. (1.53.101)³⁹

The second topic is that through which we show—through amplified indignation—to whom that crime pertains; whether it affects all or most, which is most atrocious; or superiors... which is most shameful; or our equals in spirit, fortune, or body, which is most iniquitous; or inferiors, which is most arrogant.

Septimus locus est, per quem indignamur, quod taetrum, crudele, nefarium, tyrannicum factum esse dicamus per vim manum opulentiam, quae res ab legibus et ab aequabili iure remotissima sit. (1.53.102–1.54.103)

With the seventh topic, we grow indignant, saying that a disgraceful, cruel, nefarious, tyrannical deed has been committed through physical violence or the power of wealth, which action is entirely at odds with our laws and with equitable justice.

Decimus locus est, per quem omnia, quae in negotio gerundo acta sunt quaeque post negotium consecuta sunt, cum unius cuiusque indignatione et criminatione colligimus et rem verbis quam maxime ante oculos eius, apud quem dicitur, ponimus, ut id, quod indignum est, proinde illi videatur indignum, ac si ipse interfuerit ac praesens viderit. (1.54.104)

The tenth topic is when we bring together all matters involved in the performance of the crime and coming after it, recounting each one of these with anger and accusations, and by our words we bring the event as forcefully as possible before the eyes of the judge to whom it is recounted, so that what was truly intolerable will seem in the same degree intolerable to him, as if he himself had been in the middle of it and saw it in person.

Similarly, the arousal of pity in the *conquestio* is achieved through the speaker's dramatization of his own feelings about the case: he should reveal his own sense of weakness, helplessness, and isolation so that the audience will take pity not just on the plaintiff but on him, and he will angrily protest the oppressive treatment he suffers (as the plaintiff's representative) at the hands of the defendant (1.55.109). The audience will be aroused when it sees the speaker affected by the very feelings that he intends to produce in

others. These passages on the speaker's own susceptibility to emotion represent a skeletal forecast of the expansive discussion that Cicero would provide about thirty years later in his *De oratore*, a text which exerted little influence in the Middle Ages.

In *De oratore* 2.44.185–2.53.214, Cicero has Antonius reflect, both pragmatically and ethically, on the orator's power to move men's souls and the conviction with which he inspires his audience to feel as he seems to feel. In describing his own courtroom practice, Antonius exemplifies how an orator might put a certain psychological and experiential knowledge of emotions to work in a speech. Here, there is a marked investment of the speaker himself in the emotions he seeks to rouse: in order to inspire emotion in the judge, the speaker must also be stirred by great feeling and must be able to convey his own passion, especially through a reflective style (2.45.189–90). The speaker is fully implicated in the emotional effect that he is producing. Such passionate demonstrations are reserved for the peroration, where they are most appropriate. The advice in *De oratore* is reprised and considerably elaborated in Quintilian's *Institutio oratoria* 6.2. Indeed, Quintilian extends this doctrine to the point where he advises the speaker to conjure for himself a *phantasia* or vivid image of the crime so that he will feel the shock himself.⁴⁰

While the intimate tone and acute personal detail that distinguish the emotional discourses of *De oratore* and of *Institutio oratoria* did not pass into the Middle Ages, the *De inventione* gives a preliminary sketch of the matter in these later, more substantive treatments. That the speaker should bring his own passion to his denunciation of the opposition was therefore a fixed principle of rhetorical theory easily accessible to medieval readers. These ideas also intersect with, and reinforce, the aesthetic precept in another ancient text well known to the Middle Ages, Horace's *Ars poetica*, which enjoins the poet to feel the emotion that he wants to convey through a character: "si vis me flere, dolendum est / primum ipsi tibi" (if you want me to weep, you must first feel sad) [lines 102–3].⁴¹ Horace does not elaborate this point, but moves into broader advice about stylistic decorum, to match sad speech to a character's sadness and angry speech to a character's anger. Because it is framed by issues of decorum, the advice about the poet's need to feel the emotion he wants to arouse in an audience is somewhat muted, but it could still be linked in the minds of medieval readers with rhetorical impact. Thus one twelfth-century commentary on

the *Ars poetica* explains these lines with a story about Demosthenes, “the greatest rhetorician,” who refuses to accept a client who has been attacked and beaten until the client actually weeps and thus is seen to feel the distress that he wanted to convey to Demosthenes.⁴² This aspect of Cicero’s *De inventione* seems to promise a more active reception of rhetoric as an emotional tool. The question is: to what extent does the doctrinal reception history fulfill this promise?

The commentary on *De inventione* by Victorinus gives short shrift to the *indignatio* and *conquestio*, seeing it as an occasion to refer back to the earlier teaching of topical argumentation in the *confirmatio* and betraying no interest in Cicero’s suggestion of the orator’s own emotional displays. But two distinctive late-antique texts known to varying degrees in the Middle Ages gave more developed attention to Cicero’s sketch about producing emotion in the peroration. These are the chapter on rhetoric in Martianus Capella’s influential *De nuptiis Philologiae et Mercurii*, and the section devoted to the *affectiones* in the *Praecepta artis rhetoricae* by Julius Severianus (c.460 CE), a contemporary of Martianus Capella. Both Martianus and Severianus make ample use of Ciceronian speeches, especially the Verrines, to illustrate how Cicero himself would have drawn the appropriate emotion out of a commonplace to sway a judge or audience. In other words, both enlarge the technical treatment of topics in the *De inventione* to include literary examples that students might imitate.

Martianus’ treatment of the emotions occupies only a very few paragraphs (§§503–5) in the chapter on rhetoric. The treatment here differs from *De inventione* in that this is not a section on the peroration. While Martianus indicates that, like the ancients, he regards pity and indignation as especially fit for the peroration (§§503, 565),⁴³ he does not limit his assessment of emotion to what belongs in the conclusion of the oration. Rather, “quibus mentes affectibus incitentur” (the emotions by which souls are moved) is a subject that merits a “general outline” (§503). He lists and then illustrates pity, hatred, envy, fear, hope, and anger, adding that “similes alii permiscentur affectus” (other similar emotions are mixed into the speech §505). Each emotion is associated with its source in a commonplace; for example, audiences are moved by pity “cum calamitates alicuius magno dolore tractamus, cum iniquitatem temporis vel periculi magnitudinem memoramus” (when we treat someone’s misfortune with great sorrow, when we recall the iniquity of the times or the magnitude of

the danger §504). For each of the six emotions listed and the topical device that generates it, there is liberal quotation from Cicero's speeches. Indeed, this section as well as the rest of the rhetoric chapter in Martianus' encyclopedia could supply medieval readers with an already thematized anthology of highlights from the *Verrines*, *Catilines*, and other speeches.

The most important theoretical point that Martianus makes comes at the end of the discussion: emotions so aroused, even though persuasive, are extrinsic to the case ("extra causam tament sunt" §505). Here, he makes more explicit what was only understood in Cicero's treatment of pity and indignation: as functions of amplification, the emotions of the audience are not intrinsic to the matter being argued, unlike the attributes of the person and the act. Audience emotion is secondary to argumentation because it is not an inventional topic but a persuasive effect produced by topical reasoning. This can perhaps explain the limited attention dedicated to the arousing of emotion, both in Martianus' chapter on rhetoric and in the *De inventione* itself. By contrast, as we have seen, Cicero's mature *De oratore* and Quintilian's *Institutio oratoria* elevated the role of emotion and the speaker's own investment in it to highlight this as an ethical dimension of rhetoric, especially in relation to style. In the tradition of the *De inventione*, which Martianus essentially follows on this matter, eliciting emotion from an audience, even with the speaker's exhibition of his own feelings at stake, remains secondary because extrinsic to the argument.⁴⁴

Martianus' *De nuptiis* received extensive commentary among Carolingian scholars, notably John Scotus Eriugena and Remigius of Auxerre; but neither commentator gives particular attention to the section on *affectiones* in book 5, so it is difficult to see how the doctrine there was registered in their teaching.⁴⁵ But as we will see later in this chapter, Martianus' compendium is reflected in twelfth-century teaching.

Julius Severianus' *Praecepta artis rhetoricae* did not have a vast medieval circulation. Up to and including the twelfth century, it is found in only nine copies. But some of these contained important collections of classical and late-antique rhetorical works (Paris, Bnf, MS lat. 7231, s. xi; Paris, Bnf, MS lat. 7696, s.xi; Munich, Staatsbibliothek, Clm 14436, s. x–xii); another, Chartres, Bibliothèque municipale, MS Carnotensis 497 (s. xii, now destroyed), was the first volume of Thierry of Chartres' omnibus *artes* collection, the *Heptateuchon*.⁴⁶ Thus, although not copied frequently, it was accorded prestige among authoritative classical witnesses to the art of

rhetoric.⁴⁷ Severianus' *Praecepta* compresses essential elements of rhetorical theory based upon a range of classical sources, streamlining the art for practical access; it also peppers its teaching with illustrative quotations from Cicero's orations, especially the *Verrines*. Among Severianus' virtues is his ability to clarify the theoretical pressure point of a doctrine, to explain what lies behind a precept.

The penultimate section of the treatise, traditionally marked off in manuscripts with the title *De affectibus*, presents—unusually within the handbook tradition—a treatise within a treatise. It covers the topics for generating emotion, the appropriate placement of emotional appeals within the oration, and stylistic techniques that draw emotion from an audience. The section begins with advice about why emotional appeals should be used sparingly in the body of the oration, because when they appear outside of the peroration they carry a great weight. They can be implicit in the *narratio* without breaking its formal character, and they can be deployed explicitly later (§17).⁴⁸ In other words, the delaying of emotional appeal builds a kind of suspense even as the speaker is describing a vicious crime. There is a clear distinction between the body of argumentation and the emotional effect: the *narratio* is better if it has moral force (laying out the crime itself), but perorations are better if they incite emotions. Of course, this is not a hard and fast rule: he notes that Cicero insinuates emotions throughout his speeches (§18).⁴⁹ He gives a Ciceronian illustration for each of six emotions: anger, hatred, pity, envy, fear, and hope (§§19–20), that is, the same six that Martianus gave.⁵⁰ The implication (by generous illustration) is that Cicero is a master at this kind of suggestive exposition.

Having illustrated each emotion, Severianus now inverts the lesson, turning to the *communes loci* themselves to show how topical reasoning generates emotions. Here, he consolidates a wide range of teaching on the *communes loci*, leaving behind Cicero's intricate precepts about sources particular to the *indignatio* and the *conquestio*.⁵¹ The topics of argumentation themselves rise to the surface, as he gives the appropriate labels to the commonplaces (the labels themselves derived from what had become a standard body of dialectical and rhetorical texts: Aristotle's *Topics*, Cicero's own *Topica* 9-23, *De oratore* 2.162–73):

Affectus ex his trahitur: a re, a persona, a causa, a loco, a tempore, a signis, a facultatibus, a toto ad partes, a partibus ad totum, a contrario, a minori ad maius, a maiori ad minus, a simili,

et a barbaris gentibus et a bestiis et inanimalibus: ducitur et de ceteris locis, unde et argumenta sumuntur. Nec te moveat, quod hinc et argumenta duci supra rettulerim; si quidem illa [ex] omni circumstantia, unde ad convincendum reum argumenta sumuntur, inde etiam, postquam crimen probaveris, adfectus commoventur.⁵²

Emotion is drawn from the following: from act, person, cause, place, time, signs, faculties, from the whole to the parts, from the parts to the whole, from the contrary, from smaller to greater, from greater to smaller, from the similar, and from foreign people, beasts, and inanimate things. Don't worry that I have repeated here topics considered above [i.e., at §13].⁵³ For in fact once you have proved the crime, all of the circumstances that provided arguments for convicting the defendant also serve to stir the emotions.

In the exposition that follows, Severianus pairs the circumstances listed with an appropriate passage from one of Cicero's speeches to illustrate how Cicero would have derived his emotional appeals from topical reasoning: for example,

A contrario Cicero misericordiam movet, cum dicit: "Fortis et animosos et se acriter ipsos morti offerentes servari cupimus, eorumque nos magis miseret, qui nostram misericordiam non requirunt." [Pro Milone 92]⁵⁴

Cicero elicits pity from a contrary when he says: "We desire to save the strong and spirited who fiercely throw themselves at annihilation, and we take more pity on those who do not ask for our pity."

The illustrations may be emotional, but the teaching is about the flexibility of the *communes loci*, that they can serve multiple functions as generators of discourse.

Although the teaching about eliciting emotion in the peroration lends a pragmatic dimension to rhetorical treatment of the passions, the overall direction of the late-antique tradition that descends from *De inventione* is to reinforce theoretical questions about rhetoric: what are the topics, what is their range of application, what is intrinsic and extrinsic to an argument. The causes for this increasingly theoretical and technical interest lie with changes in the uses of rhetoric between the first and the fifth centuries CE. These cultural causes also explain the peculiar advantage of *De inventione* as a model textbook of rhetoric. In other words, it was not *because* the late-antique compendia depended largely on *De inventione* as a source that they subordinated emotion to technical teaching about topical systems; rather, they used *De inventione* because it was especially suitable to the culture of rhetoric and its pedagogy in the later imperial period.⁵⁵ The late-antique teaching of rhetoric reflected contemporary conditions in which judicial

rhetoric found its purpose in categorizing and conducting minor civil law cases. The expansive political thought and the porous relationship between law and politics that underwrite the Ciceronian and even the Quintilianic ethos gave way, in the later empire, to a legal bureaucracy in which status theory, classifying the kinds of cases that came before a judge, occupied the greatest attention of both lawyers and plaintiffs. The jury system had declined in favor of a formulary-inquisitorial procedure, and much (although certainly not all) rhetorical instruction was aimed at a newer breed of legal functionaries who sought compressed technical treatises.⁵⁶ The authors of such compendia of rhetorical doctrine (including Martianus' chapter on rhetoric in *De nuptiis Philologiae et Mercurii*) would have found the strict treatment of technical matters in *De inventione* more sympathetic to their purposes than the generous and profound expositions of *De oratore* and *Institutio oratoria*. The apparent success and popularity of the late-antique technical treatises led to their continued copying and transmission through the earlier and high Middle Ages, where they continued to exert an influence on conceptions of rhetoric as an art. Through this line of transmission, the pragmatics of emotion was subordinated to a more pressing pragmatic, understanding the system of argumentation that makes rhetoric so malleable an intellectual tool for any field of discourse.

We find an intensification of this kind of teaching in the expansion of Ciceronianism in the eleventh and twelfth centuries. Menegaldus' commentary is fairly discursive on the topics of the *indignatio* and the *conquestio*. Like Martianus and Julius Severianus, he intersperses literary examples, although he draws not from Cicero's orations (which he may not have had directly), but from Sallust.⁵⁷ His main commentative source was Victorinus, although the perspective that he draws from Cicero's text is common also to Martianus and especially Julius Severianus: the interest is in reviewing the enumerated topics (attributes of the person and the act) that were learned in the earlier treatment of the *confirmatio*. Because he follows Cicero's text closely and expands his commentary where Victorinus had compressed it, we might expect that he would reflect some of Cicero's remarks on the orator's own performance of emotion. But this is not the case. For example, with the seventh topic of the *indignatio* (quoted above), where the orator is meant to "grow indignant" and show the indignation through savage language, Menegaldus looks instead to the appropriate sub-categories out of which this topic is to be formed: "Quod dicit 'per vim'

materiam habet a modo; quod dicit ‘opulenta manu’ a fortuna; ubi dicit ‘que res a legibus’ et cetera, a consequentibus negotium, scilicet a lege et a consuetudine” (With respect to ‘physical violence’ the matter derives from the topic of manner; with respect to ‘power of wealth’ the matter derives from the topic of fortune; where he says ‘which action is entirely at odds with our laws etc.’ the matter derives from the attribute of consequence [of actions]).⁵⁸

The commentary on *De inventione* by Thierry of Chartres is much less discursive than that of Menegaldus, which Thierry knew.⁵⁹ But its effect is similar, and thus it also bears comparison with the late-antique predecessors. Where Cicero was interested in detailing the amplifications themselves, Thierry, even more than the late-antique compendia, focuses on re-enforcing the teaching on the *communes loci*. Thus at 1.53.100 he drives home the topical instruction:

IN HOC GENERE, etc. Dicit quod ex quibuscumque attributis sive personae sive negotio, de quibus dictum est, possunt auditores commoveri ad amplas indignationes. SED TAMEN, etc. Quamvis de attributis personae aut negotio satis dictum sit, tamen numerum locorum communium, qui indignationis proprii sunt, ostendam. Sciendum vero est quod unusquisque istorum locorum communium ex aliquo attributo sumitur, ut subnotabimus. Notandum etiam quod non format hic communes locos, sed tantummodo numerum eorum tradit et materiam unde fiant.⁶⁰

In considering this topic, etc. He says that any of the attributes of the person or the act, which have been discussed, can be used to move audiences to greater feelings of indignation. *Nevertheless we should consider*, etc. While enough has been said about the attributes of the person and of the act, I will still point out a number of the commonplaces which are proper to *indignatio*. You should know that each one of these commonplaces is drawn from a certain attribute, as we will note below. Note, moreover, that [Cicero] does not form commonplaces here, but rather treats a number of them and the matter out of which they are made.

Emotions should not be confused with commonplaces, warns Thierry. This is the main theoretical point of Martianus’ passage on persuasion through emotions (the emotions of the audience are extrinsic to the case), and the fundamental lesson of Severianus, who lists each topic and then pairs it with an illustrative quotation from Cicero’s speeches to show the *locus* of reasoning from which Cicero derived a particular emotional appeal (for example, the attributes of the person and the act, and the greater to the smaller).

Thierry takes this lesson one step further. His glosses on *indignatio* and *conquestio* have none of the illustrative content that Martianus and

Severianus provide in quoting from Cicero's orations. Instead, the passages in the *De inventione* on the *indignatio* and the *conquestio* become a pedagogical opportunity, an exercise in recognizing and naming *communes loci*:

PRIMUS LOCUS, etc. Iste locus est AB AUCTORITATE, ut ipse ait. Auctoritatem vero dixit gravissimam, quae maximae commovet...SECUNDUS, etc. Iste locus similiter est ab auctoritate sed omnium...TERTIUS est ab eventu. QUARTUS vero ab auctoritate iudicum, vel, sicut quibusdam videtur, a simili. QUINTUS est a disparatis. SEXTUS est a modo facti. SEPTIMUS a facultate...OCTAVUS locus multiplex est, tum a natura, tum a convictu, tum etiam a fortuna. NONUS locus est a comparatione maioris ad minus. DECIMUS ab administratione negotii. UNDECIMUS est a maiori ad minus...DUODECIMUS a casu. TERTIUS DECIMUS a facto vel dicto personae. QUARTUS DECIMUS a simili. QUINTUS DECIMUS a minori ad maius.⁶¹

First commonplace, etc. This commonplace is *from authority*, as he says. He said that the weightiest authority is that which most excites emotion...*Second commonplace* etc. This commonplace is similarly from authority, but [consists of the authority] of all people...*Third commonplace* is from consequence. *Fourth* is from the authority of judges or, as some would put it, from similarity. *Fifth* is from difference. *Sixth* is from the manner of the deed's carrying out. *Seventh* is from the means used...*Eighth* is a multiple commonplace, not only from the person's nature but also from his associations and also from his fortune. *Ninth* is a commonplace from contrasting great with small. *Tenth* is from what is auxiliary to the action. *Eleventh* is arguing from the great to the small...*Twelfth* is arguing from occurrence. *Thirteenth* is from the deed or word of a person. *Fourteenth* is from the similar. *Fifteenth* is arguing from the lesser to the greater.

Teaching the topics takes precedence for Thierry. There is no interest in the ethical or even dramatic dimension of literary exemplification such as even the late-antique compendia manifest. We see a push toward this in Severianus' *Praecepta*, but the technical emphasis is even more pronounced in Thierry's commentary. The possibilities of emotional expression drawn from Cicero's orations, to which either Martianus or Severianus could have directed him, seem to have no role in his expository or pedagogical outlook.

In its reception into the twelfth century, Ciceronian rhetorical thought on *affectio* seems to present less interest in the emotions as such, and much more interest in the discourses that frame discussions of the emotions. There is a continued interest in *affectio* as a foil for the moral-philosophical attributes of *habitus* and *studium*. We also see a progressive narrowing of focus to technical distinctions between intrinsic and extrinsic arguments and the system of topics from which heightened emotional arguments can be produced. The sharpening of these technical perspectives in the commentary of Thierry of Chartres is consonant with the outlook of the

twelfth-century cathedral schools of northern France and the prominence they gave to studying the arts of the trivium, with stress on grammar and dialectic.⁶² The highly theoretical reception of rhetoric, culminating in Thierry's commentary, was largely determined by the dual emphases of late-antique commentary on Cicero, the Neoplatonic interests of Victorinus, and the technical focus on systems of argument that tended to reduce rhetoric to its most teachable dialectical components. Such theoretical tendencies were intensified in the culture of twelfth-century higher education, which made sympathetic use of the late-antique legacy.

1.3 Masters of Style in Late Antiquity

In the tradition of the *De inventione* we have seen how emotion is tied to topical reasoning and thus to some aspect of invention. Either emotion is a topic *a persona* from which to derive arguments about the defendant, or topical reasoning provides the material for an emotional appeal to the audience. The latter, according to Martianus, is extrinsic to the case. Thus we have also seen a movement away from the core of the rhetorical system, where emotion is tied to matters intrinsic to the case itself (the emotional disposition of the defendant), to an auxiliary position, where the emotions produced in the audience are not really part of the argument, even though they can determine the outcome of the case because the affective appeal in the peroration can heighten or even clinch the foregoing arguments. These were the fortunes of the Ciceronian theory that initially placed emotion in a strong position in rhetorical reasoning. In late antiquity, and more so in the commentaries of the eleventh and twelfth centuries, the act of reasoning itself took precedence over consideration of emotion. This is how rhetorical theory—or academic thought about rhetoric—brought Cicero's *De inventione* into the high Middle Ages. Yet teachers, students, speakers, and writers were surely engaged in the most dynamic ways with how to elicit emotion, such as evoking pity for those in distress or sorrow in penitential literature. At the level of theory, the Ciceronian legacy—that is, how the *De inventione* was explained and taught—does not seem to address this. Thus we must look elsewhere.

Beyond the reach of the *De inventione*, there is another ancient tradition of thought on emotional appeal that works at the more fluid edges of rhetorical theory, that is, where the rhetoricians and grammarians shared a terrain: embellished speech and figurative language.⁶³ While in common modern parlance the term “rhetoric” can be virtually interchangeable with “style,” the ancient teaching of rhetoric relegated style or verbal ornament to a somewhat subsidiary position. For Roman rhetoricians it was the third canon, after invention (discovering the argument) and disposition (arranging or structuring the argument that has been “found” through topical reasoning). Style was considered the visible surface, a kind of garment, effective and thus necessary in its own way, but outside the central rational activity of invention where the ideas themselves were to be found. Once the argument was discovered and the order of its exposition determined, that is, once the mental processes were completed, the orator would consider how language could be deployed to give eloquent expression to the ideas. All the rhetoricians agree that eloquence is essential but hard to learn properly and there is also ambivalence about the power of eloquence as both necessary and dangerous.⁶⁴ While, it is claimed, matter and style should not be separate, they inevitably are treated separately in the teaching of rhetoric, as Cicero recognized (for example, *De oratore* 3.5.19). Although the speech as performed is an integrated system in which all the parts of rhetoric contribute to its effect, the teaching of rhetoric proceeds in a linear fashion from inner to outer, beginning with the first process, invention, and arriving at style only when the theories of finding and ordering the arguments have been laid out. This is the structure of the anonymous *Rhetorica ad Herennium*, which considers the *genera dicendi* (levels of style) and the figures and tropes at the end of the treatise, book 4. Thus in reality (despite claims to the contrary), the teaching of style or *elocutio* occupied something of a separate sphere.⁶⁵

Later historical circumstances reinforced this. In the teaching of rhetoric in the fourth and fifth centuries, the influence of *De inventione*, as well as of the Hellenistic emphasis on invention, is reflected not only in the grand commentary by Victorinus, but also in the technical orientation of the manuals and compendia that come down to us from that period. In the manuals of Fortunatianus, Sulpitius Victor, the pseudo-Augustine, and Julius Severianus, the focus is on invention, the discovery and structuring of argument about the civil question, and the other components of rhetoric,

including style, are either not mentioned or given relatively brief scope. The third book of Fortunatianus' treatise covers *dispositio*, *elocutio*, *memoria*, and *pronuntiatio* (delivery), and under *elocutio* gives less attention to the figures than to the levels of style, including accent and prose rhythm, issues that come under "composition" or word arrangement.⁶⁶ The *Ars rhetorica* of Julius Victor is interesting for its coverage of the whole of the art and its synthesis of a variety of ancient sources including Quintilian. Julius Victor includes sections at the end on *elocutio* and on figurative language, although these are brief in comparison to the extensive treatment of invention. The same is true of Martianus Capella's chapter on rhetoric, which also summarizes the whole of the art and includes teaching on style. But more generally, style is under-represented in the fourth- and fifth-century compendia of rhetoric. This tendency was reinforced in the early sixth century by the exclusive treatment of rhetorical invention in Boethius' *De topicis differentiis* book 4. While Boethius' purpose was not to produce a handbook on rhetoric but to examine the topics of rhetorical invention in comparison with those of dialectic, *De topicis differentiis* 4 was used in later centuries as an authoritative representation of the art of rhetoric, thus joining the handbooks in relaying what came to be seen as the essential matter of rhetoric. Likewise, the chapter on rhetoric in Cassiodorus' *Institutiones* 2 focuses almost entirely on invention, especially on status theory, reflecting its immediate sources among the imperial rhetorics, including Fortunatianus, along with Victorinus' commentary on *De inventione*.

The vacuum in stylistic teaching in the technical compendia seems to have made room for a concurrent industry of independent treatises devoted exclusively to *elocutio* in the form of the figures (*schemata*). These treatises also filled a critical need. While the technical compendia that focused on the judicial aspects of invention were relevant to members of a civil service responsible for legal cases, the teaching of style remained fundamental to any oratorical training. This was especially the case in a culture that saw the continual decline of political and judicial oratory in favor of epideictic oratory or panegyric, that is, speeches composed and delivered for special public occasions such as the arrival of a dignitary.⁶⁷ We can infer from the textbooks surviving from the late imperial period that the teaching of style was important enough to warrant dedicated manuals; we might also infer that the handbooks of figures served a different purpose than the technical

compendia.⁶⁸ They were aimed at literary composition and oratorical performance rather than at the evaluation of legal procedures. It is also clear that in approaching the figures as a subject of separate teaching (even if by default, to fill in the gaps left by most of the technical compendia) the handbooks of figures were able to elaborate a distinctive understanding of the link between style and the emotions.

The treatises dedicated to style and the figures provide the evidence of intensive interest in pathetic appeal through language. They show that the greatest part of the theoretical attention to generating emotion in an audience devolved to the figures. Thus style came to carry the largest burden of teaching emotional suasion. These handbooks were also key conduits for the reception and consolidation of the stylistic teaching in works of Hellenistic and later Greek and Latin origin.⁶⁹ Indeed, some of these texts are directly indebted to Quintilian's expansive account of the figures and represent a bridge between ancient texts generally lost to the Middle Ages and medieval teaching. In terms of the format for teaching of the figures, the rhetorical handbooks are very similar to grammatical texts, notably Donatus' contemporary grammar, the *Ars maior*, the third book of which contains a section on the *schemata* and the tropes. The long tradition in which rhetorical and grammatical texts shared the teaching of figures and tropes means that information from either kind of text could supply later writers, such as Isidore of Seville and Bede, with definitions.

Thus also, the rhetorical handbooks engage a distinction that had long been common territory between the rhetoricians and the grammarians, both Greek and Latin: the figures of speech and the figures of thought (*schemata lexeos* and *schemata dianoeas*, or in Latin, *figurae elocutionis/dictionis* and *figurae sententiarum*).⁷⁰ This distinction was present already in the *Rhetorica ad Herennium*, which reflects earlier Greek sources. *Schemata lexeos* and *schemata dianoeas* both occur in combinations of words, but the former works on the level of expression and voice, such as repetition, where the latter changes the thought or the meaning, as in the case of irony.⁷¹ The figures of speech or diction and figures of thought should not be confused with tropes, which were a third category treated apart.⁷² The *Rhetorica ad Herennium* lists the tropes separately from the other figures of diction, although it does not assign the name "trope" (4.31.42–4.34.46). By Quintilian's time, a trope was clearly differentiated from *schema* by the

notion of transference, that is, taking a word out of its normal context of meaning.

Before turning to the treatment of emotion in the late imperial treatises on style, we should look back at the figural teaching in the *Rhetorica ad Herennium*, the classical forerunner. Because its impact was so long delayed, it did not shape medieval thought so much as its later influence was shaped by the traditions that intervened, especially the teaching on the figures that descends from the late-antique handbooks. The *Ad Herennium* is certainly interested in the emotional power that figurative language can wield, and this emerges in the vivid and often emotive examples it supplies to accompany the explanations of the figures. Of course, this practice draws from Hellenistic precedent, where vibrant and memorable illustrations from the oratorical canon show how figures are used effectively. Occasionally the *Ad Herennium* describes a figure as the source of “pungency” or “vigor” (*acrimonia*; e.g., 4.13.19; 4.37.49), or indignation and pity (4.39.51), or as linked particularly with grief (*exclamatio*, 4.15.22) or a high emotional pitch (*exsuscitatio*, 4.43.55). But the key concepts and terms overall are *gravitas* (grandeur), *ornamentum*, *exornatio*, *concinnitas* (elegance or charm, 4.15.22), or *delectatio* (pleasure, charm, 4.51.65), that is, the Hellenistic tradition of the *genera dicendi* or levels of style. Thus the weight of its explicit interest falls on the formal effect to be appreciated, recognizing that emotional impact can be a product of formal virtues.

By contrast, the late imperial treatises zero in on the emotional value of the figures, distinguishing the figures as much for their emotional value as for their elegance. In this they are closer to the perspective that Quintilian had brought to the study of the figures. The treatise by Aquila Romanus, *De figuris sententiarum et elocutionis* (based upon a Greek treatise by Alexander Numenius) opens by insisting on the figures as the primary engine of powerful feeling:

ad permovendos quidem animos auditoris aut iudicis nihil aequale est. Quod sic facillime intellegitur, si, quae sunt figurate enuntiata apud magnos oratores detractis figuris eloqui velis; invenientur enim nequaquam dignitatem aut vim eandem retinentia.⁷³

There is nothing equal [to the figures] for moving the minds of hearers and judges. This is easily understood: if you choose to express what was said figuratively by the great orators with the figures removed, their speeches would be found to retain none of their dignity or force.

It is to the “great orators”—Demosthenes and especially Cicero—that these texts look for their inspiring models of dignity and force. And they carry forward the essence of Quintilian’s teaching in *Institutio oratoria* that figures are not themselves the emotions, but offer a resource in situations where provoking or heightening a particular emotion is required. On Quintilian’s terms:

Ante omnia igitur illi qui totidem figuras putant quot adfectus, repudiandi, non quia adfectus non sit quaedam qualitas mentis, sed quia figura...non sit simplex rei cuiuscumque enuntiatio. Quapropter in dicendo irasci, dolere, misereri, timere, confidere, contemnere non sunt figurae, non magis quam suadere, minari, rogare, excusare...Sed aliud est admittere figuram, aliud figuram esse...Quare dabunt mihi aliquam in irascente, deprecante, miserante figuram, scio, sed non ideo irasci, misereri, deprecari figura erit. Cicero quidem omnia orationis lumina in hunc locum congerit, mediam quandam, ut arbitror, secutus viam: ut neque omnis sermo schema iudicaretur neque ea sola, quae haberent aliquam remotam ab usu communi fictionem, sed quae essent clarissima et ad movendum auditorem valerent plurimum.⁷⁴

Before everything, therefore, we must reject the claims of those who think that there are as many figures as there are emotions, not because emotion is not a certain quality of mind, but because a figure...is not the simple expression of any specific thing. For which reason, to be angry, sorrowful, pitying, fearful, confident, or scornful in speaking is not a figure, no more than to persuade, to threaten, to beg, or to excuse...It is one thing to allow a figure, another thing to be a figure...They [i.e., those being refuted] will educe for me some figure used in anger, entreaty, or pity. I know, but the figure is not the same as being angry, showing mercy, or entreating. Cicero collects all the bright colors of oratory in this category, following, I believe, the middle way: that neither every form of speaking was to be considered a figure, nor only those which entailed some uncommon construction, but rather those that were most distinctive and most effective for moving the audience.

Not all speech is figurative, but figurative language has the particular value of inciting or intensifying emotion. But figures are devices: the emotion that they provoke may be natural, but the figures themselves are an artifice to be mastered, a technique to be deployed. From antiquity through the Middle Ages, the tradition never confuses the emotion that language can produce for emotion itself. This holds true even where Cicero and later Quintilian insist that the speaker feel the emotion he wants to produce in his audience.

The enumerations of figures in these handbooks can seem a disappointingly dry and tedious lesson.⁷⁵ But the handbooks reflect an understanding of what elsewhere, notably in Quintilian, was made theoretically explicit. While style can trigger emotion, emotion is not inherent in language. But style is a powerful mimetic instrument, and like all mimeses it both represents and shapes the reality of its subject. In rhetorical terms, style can conjure the reality of any emotion into existence

in the responses of a malleable audience. The handbooks thus also use literary representations to convey their “theory” of emotional response, that is, they rely openly on literary and oratorical quotations to illustrate the most effective techniques for capturing, coercing, and even making emotion. Here the handbooks operate knowingly in a zone of literary artifice, concerned with the transference of technique from illustrious and remembered model to the new text. The *Rhetorica ad Herennium* had argued exactly the opposite, against the virtue of using established examples and in favor of supplying new ones (4.1.1–4.7.10), although in fact it uses many borrowed examples without naming its sources. But the lessons the imperial treatises offer are precisely about reading the classical *auctores* rhetorically, understanding how they have made their impact on generations of imitators who have striven after the same effects. We could say that they “reverse the tape” of emotional response: to understand why a passage of poetry or oratory has been effective in the past, why it resonates with readers (including the students reading the treatise on style), one must learn the technical devices that produced those effects, and give those devices names. Those illustrious and powerful texts are lodged in the student’s memory along with the emotional experience of reading them.⁷⁶ The immediate focus of the treatises is not on producing real moods in a real audience, even if that may be an ultimate goal, but on reiteration of approved literary practice valued for its emotional appeal. Thus there are few if any references to what the prospective orator may feel at a given moment, or to what his audience may be feeling. Behind these texts lies a theory of the highest order: but it is a theory of representation, verbal configuration, and technique, that is, of the literary artifice that can exert force on the emotions. In other words, it is not in itself a theory of emotion or psychology.

The aesthetic in these handbooks bears comparison with that of the Hellenistic treatise *Peri hypsous* (On the Sublime) attributed to Longinus. Longinus is explicit about the mimetic theory that is usually only implicit in the Latin manuals: the orator produces the most powerful emotion by artfully masking the artifice, by creating the illusion that the emotion rises of its own accord rather than through the mechanics of figuration (XVII). But emotion does not lie in the figure; rather, the figure conjures the experience of emotion. The imperial Latin manuals have reduced to a mere

sketch an aesthetic that was richly expounded in their Hellenistic sources.⁷⁷ But for this reason, all the more do they repay close reading.

Throughout these handbooks, the figures are not necessarily described in emotional terms (as they are, for example, in Longinus' *Peri hypsous*), but the illustrations of each figure drawn from the orators and poets are chosen for the most striking emotional effects. One of the figures listed in *De figuris sententiarum et elocutionis* by Julius Rufinianus is *pathopoiía*, a term only attested in Rufinianus, but which he defines in such a way as to sum up the capacity of poetic language to produce violent passion:

Pathopoiía. Hac vel odium vel iracundia vel misericordia commovetur.⁷⁸

[*Exciting emotion.*] In this way, hatred, or anger, or pity is aroused.

He does not explain this as a specific kind of device; its meaning is best traced back to the general category of style that Cicero and Quintilian consider under the purpose of moving the emotions (Cicero, *Orator* 69; Quintilian, *Institutio oratoria* 12.10.59).⁷⁹ But Rufinianus' illustrations are well chosen from Virgil and Cicero to suggest what is meant by this. From *Aeneid* 2 he quotes a famous line whose descriptive immediacy is geared to shock and elicit a mixture of fear and pity: "But within, the house is confounded with shrieking and pitiful tumult" (486). This is the poetic style of tragedy. From Cicero's *Verrines* he quotes similarly descriptive passages detailing Verres' assault on the house of Philodamus, the uproar during the attack, and the destructive anger of the crowds who tried to visit revenge on Verres (2.1.67, 69). These passages do not exemplify complex figures of thought or even tropes, that is, transformations of meaning or "unnatural" uses of words. But on the terms that Quintilian understood, their very effectiveness in creating an emotional charge endows them with the character of a striking style. *Pathopoiía*, then, is a category for style that produces emotion without calling attention to itself as embellished language or "style."

In the handbooks, other more conventional figures that can be associated with heightened feeling may be marked explicitly for their effects. Aquila Romanus presents the impact of the figure of speech *palilogia* (*iteratio*) in simple terms:

Haec figura, repetitio eodem verbo aut nomine, non diversa vult intelligi, sed id quod significatur efficere vehementius. Cuius modi est hoc: “Ferro, ferro inquit, et hoc in iudicio dicit, te reieci atque proterrui” [*Pro Caecina*, 24]. Repetitum enim hoc ferro indignitatem rei atque audaciam eius, in quem dicitur, impensius significat.⁸⁰

This figure, the repetition of the same word or name, does not indicate a different meaning,⁸¹ but rather wants to convey more vehemently what is signified. A form of this is: “By the sword, by the sword he says—and he says this in court—I drove you back and scared you away.” Here the repetition “by the sword” conveys with greater force the indignity of the deed and the audacity of the one who spoke this.

For the figure *erotema* (*interrogatio*), Aquila Romanus marks its force (“we use it where, to bring on aggravation, we question someone and intensify hatred of him”), and then invents a plausible model that alludes to Ciceronian oratory: “Fuistine illo in loco? dixistine, haec ita gesta esse? renuntiastine ea, quibus decepti sumus?” (were you not in that place? did you not announce that these things were accomplished? did you not report that news which misled us?).⁸² But marking the effect is not necessary if the example is unmistakable. The *Carmen de figuris vel schematibus* simply describes the figure *synathroesmos* (*frequentatio*, the “heaping figure”) as a “gathering together by accumulating elements.” There is no need to explain the emotional value of *synathroesmos* because the example, drawing loosely on classical sources including Sallust’s *Catilina*, perfectly performs the intense passion associated with the figure:

Multa hortantur me: res, aetas, tempus, amici,
concilium tantae plebis, praenuntia vatū.⁸³
Many things urge me on: the cause, the times, the hour, friends,
the will of the people, the predictions of oracles.

Many of the figures listed in these texts have parallels in Quintilian’s *Institutio oratoria* books 8 and especially 9; many of the figures of speech and their explanations also correspond with those in one of Quintilian’s own sources, the *Schemata lexeos* of Rutilius Lupus (first century BCE). In turn, the lists of figures and their explanations in the handbooks are reflected in the short treatment of figures in Martianus’ chapter on rhetoric, and especially in Cassiodorus’ treatment of figures in his *Expositio psalmorum* and Isidore of Seville’s chapter on rhetoric in the *Etymologiae*. The handbooks themselves did not have a broad medieval circulation, but they form a critical junction in the transmission of ancient rhetorical knowledge

to the early Middle Ages, because their information on the figures was taken up in the influential works of Cassiodorus and Isidore.

What was most imprinted on medieval rhetorical approaches to the emotions was the principle, already well developed in the late-antique handbooks in Greek and Latin, that emotional effect is primarily the property of style and is engineered through the self-reflecting artifice of embellished speech. The link between teaching figurative language and persuading through emotional impact was to become deeply engrained, as we will see, in the medieval tradition of both rhetorical composition and rhetorical reading. As such, the understanding of emotions and the suasory function of capturing them was increasingly entrusted to the contingent realm of *elocutio*, style. Within the rhetorical system, this was not inherently a strong structural or ethical position for emotional content. In structural terms, Cicero's *De inventione* had given emotional knowledge a more powerful role as an element of invention. There it was a part of reasoning, whether this involves what the speaker knows about the inclinations of the actors in the legal drama or how he can produce pity and indignation in the audience by developing certain kinds of arguments. While stylistic effects will augment a proof, they are not the reasoning itself. In ethical terms, Cicero's rhetoric points up the paradox of emotion: by definition, *affectio* is fleeting, but its causes and its effects are knowable, giving the rhetorician a basis for reasoning about the very contingency of human feeling. But as we saw, these critical dimensions of Ciceronian rhetoric later retreated into the background, being absorbed into more philosophical interest in the notion of *habitus*, or taken up as a supplementary lesson in logic (as in Thierry of Chartres' commentary, a high-water mark of medieval intellectual interest in Ciceronian rhetoric), or being eclipsed altogether by the doctrinal streamlining of the technical rhetorics of late antiquity.

Thus in broad terms, the realm that was left for emotion was style. What consigning emotion largely to stylistic teaching meant for the medieval inheritors of late imperial rhetoric leaves us a significant problem to investigate: was it possible to strengthen the ethical claims of style so as to anchor emotion in a more stable footing in rhetorical teaching, or was emotion always to be associated with the shifting, refractory, glittering surface of discourse? Was *elocutio* a category strong enough to accommodate the ethical burden of understanding and producing emotion?

The historical trajectory of rhetorical theory that I have traced here should not be mistaken for the greater body of classical rhetorical lore. Rather, this is the segment of the classical tradition that was to form ancient theory as the Middle Ages would know it, constituting the basis of medieval teaching until the late thirteenth century. How this material was transformed by early Christian theorists, and what the later Middle Ages was to do with it, are the subjects of the chapters to follow.

Emotion and the History of Rhetoric in the Middle Ages. Rita Copeland, Oxford University Press. © Rita Copeland 2021. DOI: 10.1093/oso/9780192845122.003.0002

¹ On classical rhetoric, see Ruth Webb, “Imagination and the Arousal of the Emotions in Greco-Roman Rhetoric,” in Braund and Gill, eds., *The Passions in Roman Thought and Literature*, pp. 112–27.

² At *De oratore* 1.2.5, Cicero refers to the rhetorical books of his youth as “inchoata,” and the final sentence of *De inventione* suggests that there was meant to be more matter to follow the long treatment of invention.

³ For background, see Michael Leff, “The Topics of Argumentative Invention in Latin Rhetorical Theory from Cicero to Boethius,” *Rhetorica* 1 (1983): 23–44; Daniel E. Mortensen, “The *Loci* of Cicero,” *Rhetorica* 26 (2008): 31–56.

⁴ Cicero, *De inventione*, ed. E. Stroebe (Leipzig: Teubner, 1915).

⁵ *Tusculan Disputations* 4.6.11–14. On this text, see A. E. Douglas, “Form and Content in the *Tusculan Disputations*,” in Jonathan G. F. Powell, ed., *Cicero the Philosopher: Twelve Papers* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1995), pp. 197–218 and Yelena Barasz, *A Written Republic: Cicero’s Philosophical Politics* (Princeton: Princeton University Press, 2012), pp. 140–9. On Stoic conceptions of emotions see also Chapter 4, pp. 173–4. The distinction between *habitus*, *affectio*, and *studium* descends from Aristotle’s *Categories* 8b25–10a10; in Aristotle, the emotions are not the prime example of *affectio* (*diathesis*), although they appear briefly under the definition of aberrations (10a5–10).

⁶ On the Stoic vocabulary of *affectio* (state of mind) and *affectus* (πάθος) and the influence in the Latin tradition of Seneca’s use of the latter term, see Duncan Cloud, “The Stoic πάθος, ‘affectus’ and the Roman Jurists,” *Zeitschrift der Savigny-Stiftung für Rechtsgeschichte. Romanistische Abteilung* 123 (2006): 19–48.

⁷ *De topicis differentiis* book 4, PL 64: 1205C; Boethius’s *De topicis differentiis*, trans. Eleonor Stump (Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 1978), p. 79. Boethius compresses the attributes of the person and the act into one short list of seven questions: who, what, where, when, why, how, and by what means.

⁸ In *Partitiones oratoriae* 2.5, on the aims of invention, Cicero assumes that influencing the minds or feelings of the audience is concomitant with persuasion.

⁹ See Heinrich Lausberg, *Handbook of Literary Rhetoric*, trans. Matthew T. Bliss et al., ed. David E. Orton and R. Dean Anderson (Leiden: Brill, 1998), §390, *a modo*.

¹⁰ Cf., *De inventione* 2.58.176: “Affectio est quaedam ex tempore aut ex negotiorum eventu aut administratione aut hominum studio commutatio rerum, ut non tales, quales ante habitae sint aut plerumque haberi soleant, habendae videantur esse” (*Affectio* is a certain upheaval of things due to time, or the outcome or managing of affairs, or the interests of men, such that things should not be seen as they were before or as they were generally considered). Note again, even outside the context of emotion, how *affectio* (now just referring to a change of perspective) is judged against general conditions or assumptions.

¹¹ On the limited knowledge of *Pro Roscio Amerino* in the Middle Ages, see Reynolds, ed., *Texts and Transmission*, pp. 54–98 on Cicero’s speeches (esp. pp. 56, 88–91); Birger Munk Olsen, *L’étude des auteurs classiques latins aux XIe et XIIe siècles*, 4 vols. (Paris: CNRS, 1982–2014), 1: 324 (#303). It was among the Ciceronian texts recovered by Poggio Bracciolini from a single early exemplar.

¹² *Oratio pro Sex. Roscio Amerino*, ed. Alfred Klotz (Leipzig: Teubner, 1949), 14.39.

¹³ *In Catilinam* 1, 22–3, *Orationes in L. Catilinam quattuor*, ed. Tadeusz Maslowski (Munich and Leipzig: K. G. Saur, 2003).

¹⁴ Marius Victorinus, *Explanationes in Ciceronis Rhetoricam*, ed. A. Ippolito, CCL 132 (Turnhout: Brepols, 2006), p. 115. I have also consulted the Teubner edition, *Commenta in Ciceronis Rhetorica; accedit incerti auctoris tractatus De attributis personae et negotio*, ed. Thomas Riesenweber (Berlin: De Gruyter, 2013).

¹⁵ Pierre Hadot, *Marius Victorinus: Recherches sur sa vie et ses oeuvres* (Paris: Études Augustiniennes, 1971), pp. 82–7. See also *De inventione* 1.1.1–1.4.5; Victorinus, *Explanationes*, ed. Ippolito, pp. 5–33.

¹⁶ Victorinus, *Explanationes*, ed. Ippolito, preface, p. 6, translation from Rita Copeland and Ineke Sluiter, eds., *Medieval Grammar and Rhetoric: Language Arts and Literary Theory AD 300–1475* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2009), pp. 107–8.

¹⁷ Victorinus, *Explanationes*, ed. Ippolito, p. 114.

¹⁸ See Ippolito’s introduction to the edition of Victorinus, pp. xxv–xxxii; five of the seven manuscripts without *De attributis* are from the eleventh century. The copying of Victorinus’ commentary declined notably in the twelfth century, probably because of the emergence of new commentaries on Cicero’s text that were more popular (Ippolito, p. xx). But the interest in Victorinus and the *De attributis* later resumed, and from the fourteenth and fifteenth centuries we have many witnesses of these works.

¹⁹ *Commenta in Ciceronis Rhetorica*, ed. Riesenweber, pp. 213, 215 (probably recalling a similar analogy in Victorinus’ commentary, ed. Ippolito, p. 114, lines 74–82).

²⁰ *Commenta in Ciceronis Rhetorica*, ed. Riesenweber, pp. 213–14.

²¹ *Commenta in Ciceronis Rhetorica*, ed. Riesenweber, p. 215, lines 7–9.

²² See Ward, *Ciceronian Rhetoric in Treatise, Scholion, and Commentary*, p. 80.

²³ Fortunatianus, *Ars rhetorica*, ed. Lucia Calboli Montefusco (Bologna: Pàtron, 1979), p. 108, line 12.

²⁴ PL 64 1212 D.

²⁵ Alcuin, *Disputatio de rhetorica et de virtutibus*, in Karl Halm, ed., *Rhetores latini minores* (Leipzig: Teubner, 1863, rpt. Frankfurt: Minerva, 1964), p. 537. See also Matthew Kempshall, “The Virtues of Rhetoric: Alcuin’s *Disputatio de rhetorica et de uirtutibus*,” *Anglo-Saxon England* 37 (2008): 7–30. Given the extremely limited medieval circulation of Julius Victor’s *Ars rhetorica* (extant now in only one manuscript of the twelfth century and in two Carolingian fragments) it is

noteworthy that Alcuin had access to it. See C. Julius Victor, *Ars rhetorica*, eds. R. Giomini and M. S. Celentano (Leipzig: Teubner, 1980), p. xxiv.

²⁶ On “Magister Menegaldus,” whose commentary on *Rhetorica ad Herennium* is also the earliest of this period, see Ward, *Ciceronian Rhetoric in Treatise, Scholion, and Commentary*, pp. 136, 144–6, 233. The debates on identification are summarized by Karin Margareta Fredborg, “The *De inventione* Commentary by Manegold (of Lautenbach?) and its Place in Twelfth-Century Rhetoric,” in Georgiana Donavin and Denise Stodola, eds., *Public Declamations: Essays on Medieval Rhetoric, Education, and Letters in Honour of Martin Camargo* (Turnhout: Brepols, 2015), pp. 45–64 (at pp. 45–7).

²⁷ For the arts commentaries ascribed to him, see *Menegaldi in Ciceronis rhetorica glose*, ed. Filippo Bognini (Florence: SISMEL—Edizioni del Galluzzo, 2015), pp. xxvii–xix.

²⁸ *Menegaldi in Ciceronis rhetorica glose*, ed. Bognini, p. 77.

²⁹ *Menegaldi in Ciceronis rhetorica glose*, ed. Bognini, p. 78.

³⁰ William of Champeaux, *In primis*, eds. Juanita Ruys, John Scott, and John O. Ward (Turnhout: Brepols, forthcoming). I am grateful to Juanita Ruys for supplying me with their transcription of the commentary at 1.25.36 from York Minster, MS XVI.M.7.

³¹ In commenting on Boethius’ *De topicis differentiis*, Abelard seems to follow William of Champeaux on this. In a digression on the attributes of the person and the act, Abelard includes a mention of *affectio*: it is a quality that comes “through inclination and is easily changed, such as happiness, fear, distress” (“per applicationem et facile mobilis, ut laetitia, metus, molestia”). See Karin Margareta Fredborg, “Abelard on Rhetoric,” in Constant J. Mews, Cary J. Nederman, and Rodney M. Thomson, eds., *Rhetoric and Renewal in the Latin West 1100–1540: Essays in Honour of John O. Ward* (Turnhout: Brepols, 2003), pp. 55–80 (text p. 64 and note 58).

³² On Thierry’s teaching career at the cathedral schools, see Nikolaus Häring, “Chartres and Paris Revisited,” in J. R. O’Donnell, ed., *Essays in Honour of Anton Charles Pegis* (Toronto: Pontifical Institute of Mediaeval Studies, 1974), pp. 268–329 (at pp. 279–94).

³³ An intriguing possibility for a manuscript that Thierry might have used is Chartres, Bibliothèque municipale, MS Carnotensis 99 (s. x–xi), destroyed by bombing in 1944, which contained Victorinus’ commentary with *De inventione* in the margins, followed by *De attributis*. The place of origin and medieval provenance remain uncertain, although the manuscript was at Chartres Cathedral by at least the sixteenth century. See Colette Jeudy and Yves-François Riou, *Les manuscrits classiques latins des bibliothèques publiques de France 1* (Paris: CNRS, 1989), p. 435, and Victorinus, *Explanationes*, ed. Ippolito, p. xxvii.

³⁴ *The Latin Rhetorical Commentaries by Thierry of Chartres*, ed. Karin M. Fredborg (Toronto: Pontifical Institute of Mediaeval Studies, 1988), p. 134.

³⁵ *The Latin Rhetorical Commentaries by Thierry of Chartres*, ed. Fredborg, p. 59. Cf., the expressly Platonic definition of wisdom in his commentary on Boethius’ *De trinitate*, “the comprehension of the truth of the things that abide, that is, of immutables,” *Commentaries on Boethius by Thierry of Chartres and his School*, ed. Nikolaus Häring (Toronto: Pontifical Institute of Mediaeval Studies, 1971), p. 68.

³⁶ Matthew of Vendôme incorporates the Ciceronian triad *habitus, affectio, studium* in his *Ars versificatoria* (c.1175). See Chapter 3, pp. 120–3.

³⁷ For example, see Marjorie Curry Woods, “Performing Dido,” in Donavin and Stodola, eds., *Public Declamations*, pp. 253–65. The Ciceronian teaching on the peroration will also figure in the literary discussions in Macrobius’ *Saturnalia*; see Chapter 2, pp. 69–74.

³⁸ This is related to the figure *descriptio*, or vivid description.

- ³⁹ *De inventione*, ed. Stroebel.
- ⁴⁰ On these sections of *De oratore* and *Institutio oratoria*, see Leigh, “Quintilian on the Emotions (*Institutio oratoria* 6 Preface and 1–2)”; see also the acute remarks on *De oratore* in Enders, *Medieval Theater of Cruelty*, p. 96.
- ⁴¹ *Horatius opera*, ed. D. R. Shackleton Bailey (Stuttgart: Teubner, 1985).
- ⁴² Karsten Friis-Jensen, ed., “The *Ars poetica* in Twelfth-Century France: The Horace of Matthew of Vendôme, Geoffrey of Vinsauf, and John of Garland,” *CIMAGL* 60 (1990): 319–88, at p. 351.
- ⁴³ Martianus Capella, *De nuptiis Philologiae et Mercurii*, ed. James Willis (Leipzig: Teubner, 1983). Further paragraph references are to this edition.
- ⁴⁴ Martianus draws some detail from *De oratore*, notably in his expansion of the emotions to be evoked from the pity and indignation of *De inventione* to a longer list of six (*De oratore* 2.206 lists nine emotions, the six listed by Martianus and love, joy, and vexation); but his overall treatment of them as extrinsic to the case better reflects the presentation in *De inventione*.
- ⁴⁵ *Iohannis Scotti, Annotationes in Martianum*, ed. Cora Lutz (Cambridge, MA: The Medieval Academy of America, 1939), p. 124; Remigius of Auxerre, *Commentum in Martianum Capellam*, ed. Cora Lutz, 2 vols. (Leiden: Brill, 1962–5), 2: 96–7.
- ⁴⁶ See the conspectus in Julius Severianus, *Praecepta artis rhetoricae*, ed. Remo Giomini (Rome: Herder, 1992), p. 47. Giomini also lists six fifteenth-century copies and two early sixteenth-century manuscripts. On the materials that Thierry collected for the *Heptateuchon*, which also contained Martianus’ book on rhetoric and both *De inventione* and *Rhetorica ad Herennium*, see Rita Copeland, “Thierry of Chartres and the Causes of Rhetoric: From the *Heptateuchon* to Teaching the *Ars rhetorica*,” in Juanita Feros Ruys, John O. Ward, and Melanie Heyworth, eds., *The Classics in the Medieval and Renaissance Classroom* (Turnhout: Brepols, 2013), pp. 81–102.
- ⁴⁷ Thomas Bestul, “The *Saturnalia* of Macrobius and the *Praecepta Artis Rhetoricae* of Julius Severianus,” *The Classical Journal* 70 (1975): 10–16, considers the possible rhetorical and literary influence of Severianus’ *Praecepta*, especially its treatment of the emotions, in the later Middle Ages.
- ⁴⁸ *Praecepta artis rhetoricae*, ed. Giomini, p. 84, lines 1–6. The text of Severianus has also been edited, with an Italian translation, by Anna Luisa Castelli Montanari, *Iulii Severiani, Praecepta artis rhetoricae*, Edizioni e saggi universitari di filologia classica, 53 (Bologna: Pàtron, 1995). While I have relied mainly on Giomini’s edition, I have also found Castelli Montanari’s edition useful.
- ⁴⁹ *Praecepta artis rhetoricae*, ed. Giomini, p. 87, lines 7–10.
- ⁵⁰ *Praecepta artis rhetoricae*, ed. Giomini, pp. 88, line 1; 92, line 3.
- ⁵¹ On sources and analogues for Severianus’ treatment of the commonplaces, see *Praecepta artis rhetoricae*, ed. Giomini, p. 92, note.
- ⁵² *Praecepta artis rhetoricae*, ed. Giomini, §21, pp. 92–3.
- ⁵³ *Praecepta artis rhetoricae*, ed. Giomini, §13, pp. 73–4.
- ⁵⁴ *Praecepta artis rhetoricae*, ed. Giomini, §21, pp. 94–5.
- ⁵⁵ On this, see George A. Kennedy, *A New History of Classical Rhetoric* (Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1994), pp. 275–7.
- ⁵⁶ Ward, *Ciceronian Rhetoric*, p. 78; H.-I. Marrou, *Histoire de l’éducation dans l’antiquité*, 6th ed. (Paris: Seuil, 1965), pp. 412–50; Michael C. Leff, “The Material of the Art in the Latin

Handbooks of the Fourth Century A.D.,” in Brian Vickers, ed., *Rhetoric Revalued* (Binghamton, NY: Center for Medieval and Early Renaissance Studies, 1982), pp. 71–8.

⁵⁷ On his knowledge of Sallust along with Terence, Virgil, Lucan, and Horace, see, *Menegaldi in Ciceronis rhetorica glose*, ed. Bognini, pp. xxvi–xxvii.

⁵⁸ *Menegaldi in Ciceronis rhetorica glose*, ed. Bognini, pp. 148–9. On the attribute of the action known as “consequence” (*consecutio*), see *De inventione* 1.28.43.

⁵⁹ *Menegaldi in Ciceronis rhetorica glose*, ed. Bognini (pp. lxxviii–lxxix) lists some precise parallels between Thierry’s commentary and that of Menegaldus, although not for this section of the text.

⁶⁰ *The Latin Rhetorical Commentaries by Thierry of Chartres*, ed. Fredborg, p. 170.

⁶¹ *The Latin Rhetorical Commentaries by Thierry of Chartres*, ed. Fredborg, pp. 170–1.

⁶² On the largely theoretical orientation of the twelfth-century commentators on ancient rhetoric, see John O. Ward, “Master Manegold (of Lautenbach?) and Master William of Champeaux, Master Commentators on the Pseudo-Ciceronian *Rhetorica ad Herennium*?,” in Donavin and Stodola, eds., *Public Declamations*, pp. 25–39.

⁶³ On the shared teaching of the figures and tropes, see Louis Holtz, “Grammairiens et rhéteurs romains en concurrence pour l’enseignement des figures de rhétorique,” in Raymond Chevallier, ed., *Colloque sur la rhétorique* (Paris: Les Belles Lettres, 1979), pp. 207–20.

⁶⁴ See, e.g., Cicero, *De oratore* 3.5.19–20; Quintilian, *Institutio oratoria* 8. pr. 14–22; Cicero, *De inventione* 1.1.1.

⁶⁵ In Latin grammars of the imperial period, the figural teaching is also relegated to a separate section where the figures and tropes are correlated with faults (*vitia*) of usage. See M. Baratin and F. Desbordes, “La ‘troisième partie’ de l’*ars grammatica*,” *Historiographia linguistica* 13 (1986): 215–40.

⁶⁶ On the Hellenistic and Ciceronian influences, see Leff, “The Material of the Art in the Latin Handbooks of the Fourth Century A.D.” On the influence of the *De inventione* on the structure of the late-antique rhetorics, see also Jacques Fontaine, *Isidore de Seville et la culture classique dans l’Espagne visigothique*, 3 vols. (Paris: Études augustiniennes, 1959–83), 1: 223. On sources used by the late imperial rhetorics and correspondences among them, see Fortunatianus, *Ars rhetorica*, ed. Calboli Montefusco, pp. 21–8. For the pseudo-Augustine’s *De rhetorica*, see the edition by Remo Giomini, “Aurelius Augustinus *De rhetorica*,” *Studi latini e italiani* 4 (1990): 7–82; the *Institutiones oratoriae* of Sulpitius Victor is edited in Halm, *RLM*, pp. 311–52. The standard overview of the theory of the *genera dicendi* is Franz Quadlbauer, *Die antike Theorie der genera dicendi im lateinischen Mittelalter* (Vienna: Hermann Böhlau, 1962), and more recently, see Gualtiero Calboli, “Genera dicendi”, in *Brill’s New Pauly, Encyclopedia of the Ancient World: Antiquity* (Leiden and Boston: Brill, 2004), vol. 4. On “composition,” see Quintilian, *Institutio oratoria* 9.4.

⁶⁷ George Kennedy, *The Art of Rhetoric in the Roman World, 300 BC–AD 300* (Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1972), pp. 20–1, 302, 430–46; Ahn Jaewon, “*Anonymi Christiani tractatus de figuris sententiarum et verborum (nota marginalis in Paris 1741)*,” *Bulletin of the Institute of Classical Studies* 54 (2011): 89–113. On epideictic rhetoric, see also Chapter 3, pp. 105–7.

⁶⁸ For an introduction to these handbooks, see Michael C. Leff, “The Latin Stylistic Rhetorics of Antiquity,” *Speech Monographs* 40 (1973): 273–9. There are five Latin handbooks on the figures that survive from the imperial period. These texts are items 2–4 in Halm’s *Rhetores latini minores*. The known authors are Aquila Romanus (item 2) and Julius Rufinianus (item 3). Two further fragmentary handbooks (grouped under item 3) were spuriously attributed to Rufinianus in the manuscript

⁸⁰ Halm, ed., *RLM*, p. 31, lines 12–16.

⁸¹ As opposed to the punning figure of *copulatio*, immediately preceding this definition, where different things are signified by the same word.

⁸² Halm, ed., *RLM*, p. 25, lines 19–22.

⁸³ *De figuris vel schematibus: Introduzione, testo critico, traduzione, e commento*, ed. Marisa Squillante (Rome: Gruppo Editoriale Internazionale, 1993), p. 89, lines 140–1; cf., Sallust, *Catilina*, 20.15.

2

Christian and Literary Rhetorics of the Early Middle Ages

Emotion as the Property of Style

Latin rhetoric from Cicero to Quintilian gave considerable scope to emotion across the canons of rhetoric. As we saw in [Chapter 1](#), even the truncated *De inventione* treated emotion as a topic of invention: discovering an argument about the emotion of a defendant when he committed the deed, or finding emotive topics for the peroration to elicit pity and indignation and thus seal the argument with the audience. Emotion in inventional reasoning, the core work of fashioning an argument, had sufficient medieval representation too, in summaries of *De inventione* and commentaries on it. But here the role of emotion as a part of invention tended to be received as a philosophical problem or a didactic opportunity. On the other hand, in the rhetorical teaching of the later empire, the inventional role of emotion was to be overshadowed by its function in stylistic theory. Retrospectively this may seem an inevitable development, with the disappearance of the venues for the political and legal rhetoric that called on a strong inventional theory. But leaving the cultivation of emotion almost entirely to *elocutio* would have seemed to a classical rhetorician an unrecognizable distortion of the system and its practice. How, then, did early medieval rhetorics and rhetorical analyses enlarge the capacities of style to carry the burden of passionate appeal, especially about the salvation of the soul? In this chapter we will trace that reevaluation of style in Augustine, Macrobius, Cassiodorus, Isidore, and Bede; we end with a treatise from the early

twelfth-century cathedral schools, Onulf of Speyer's *Rethorici colores*, that turns a surprisingly adversarial eye on the affective power of style.

Emotion is not in language; nevertheless, the ancient teachers of rhetoric knew that language shapes perceptions of emotion and generates it in audiences. But is not emotional thought and persuasion too important to be relegated to stylistic teaching, especially when style is detached and taught separately from the core of rhetorical theory? Producing emotion without an ethical investment from the speaker—that the speaker, too, should feel pity, fear, or indignation—was always a risky enterprise for rhetoricians, for it would invite accusations of sophistic manipulation and dishonesty. Yet among the technical rhetorics of antiquity transmitted to the Middle Ages, there is no obvious teaching about such ethical investment. That is, the Middle Ages had no significant knowledge of the great ancient texts, *De oratore* and *Institutio oratoria*, that defended against such suspicion by grounding emotive style in the feelings of the orator, which are shared with those he generates in the audience. Without such models, where was an ethical understanding of emotion as a property of style to be found? Certainly not in the imperial rhetorics of late antiquity, even as they carry forward an essential knowledge of *elocutio* and its emotive capacities. It would have to be rediscovered from first principles.

As we will see, the rhetorics of the early Christian era were to discover that ethical component anew, not in relation to oratory, but to reading: they were to imagine an emotional reading of a beloved or sacred text that could capture an affection for the text shared between interpreter and student. For Augustine and Cassiodorus this is obviously the scriptural text; for Macrobius (although he was likely a Christian) the text in question is the poetry of Virgil. What links them is that they all teach an ethics of reading by showing how the text moves us: how the interpreter feels is how he believes that the reader will feel. That bond of textual affection that levels the hierarchy between interpreter and reader, or teacher and student, is the paramount lesson.

In this chapter, I carve a chronological path through the theories of emotional discourse that developed in late antique and early medieval rhetorical thought. This is a territory that is large and sometimes confusing. The existence of a doctrine that promotes one line of thought does not, of course, preclude a multitude of practices that exhibit many aspects of rhetoric. But to attempt to define a theoretical history by looking at a

multitude of literary instantiations of “emotional discourse” risks a certain randomness of samples, and does not yield as clear a history of thought as a study of the influential theoretical models. Thus my interest lies with what writers and readers had to hand when they thought about the role of emotion in discourse. The existence of theory did not imply dogmatically observant literary practice in the early Middle Ages, any more than it does now. Rather, theory tells us what rose to the surface to be articulated, thus to be available as a conceptualization of practice.

2.1 Augustine's *De doctrina christiana* Book 4

The linking of style and emotion in Augustine's *De doctrina christiana* book 4 has long been seen as the new beginning for the theory and practice of passionate suasion in the Christian Middle Ages. As the definitive Christian appropriation and synthesis of ancient rhetoric, *De doctrina christiana* (written between c.395 and c.425) is a turning point in the history of the art.¹ But we can also view *De doctrina christiana* 4 as a continuation of what emerges in the late imperial rhetorics, the incorporation of emotion into the field of style. From this vantage point, *De doctrina christiana* is not only a new departure, a watershed, but also an authoritative reinforcement of the late antique development, paving its way to be the dominant rhetorical perspective through the Middle Ages.

There are good reasons to view *De doctrina christiana* 4 in terms of the immediate field of rhetorical handbooks written and used by the teachers of the fourth and fifth centuries. Yet looking at it through the lens of those contemporary handbooks is undoubtedly provocative. Scholarship on Augustinian rhetoric overwhelmingly identifies *De doctrina christiana* 4 with the classical theory of the *genera dicendi* that it propounds and with the major Ciceronian texts that it uses. The *De doctrina* marks its relationship with classical tradition, especially in its radical reformulation of the central theory of levels of style and subject matter in Cicero's *Orator*.² It is natural and even inevitable that modern scholarship would seek to match Augustine's rhetorical theory with classical sources. A number of factors promote this view. First, there is the assumption that, as a major figure in the history of rhetoric, Augustine merits comparison with the other major figures, that is, with Aristotle, Cicero, and Quintilian. Second, there are the tastes of modern scholarship, which has largely dismissed the imperial rhetorical compendia as the meager and dry remains of a vibrant classical outlook and accordingly relegates these works to specialists in the language sciences of late antiquity. Third, and probably most important, is Augustine's own harsh repudiation of contemporary rhetorical practices and values, especially when compared with his respectful quotations of Cicero.³

Thus reading *De doctrina christiana* alongside, say, Fortunatianus or Aquila Romanus may seem perverse, especially in terms of the text's generative afterlife and its own explicit claims. But recognizing its affinities with its contemporary environment allows us to see how, in its own powerful influence, it also helped to ensure the survival of the preeminent tendencies of late antique rhetoric. Those affinities become clear when we come to it from a close engagement with the rhetorical handbooks. In its entirety, *De doctrina christiana* recapitulates the structure and subject matter of a classical rhetorical treatise, even deploying the familiar oratorical lexicon for investigating, treating, or "handling" a subject (*tractare, tractatio*).⁴ In books 1–3, he treats invention, the *modus inveniendi*, and in book 4 he considers presentation, the *modus proferendi*. In modern scholarship, the favored comparanda for the rhetorical framework of *De doctrina christiana* are the major Latin treatises of the republic and early empire, that is, *Rhetorica ad Herennium*, Cicero's middle and mature treatises, and Quintilian's *Institutio*.⁵ Indeed, the classical texts had a large claim on Augustine's attention, and modern emphasis on them is not misplaced.⁶ But just as relevant to the structure that Augustine's treatise took on are the imperial handbooks. The technical compendia, like those of Fortunatianus, Julius Victor, and Martianus Capella, give overwhelming priority to invention, corresponding to the matter of *De doctrina christiana* books 1–3. The supplementary treatments of style, either abbreviated in the compendia or expounded in the dedicated handbooks by Aquila Romanus, Rufinianus, and the anonymous treatises, correspond to book 4.⁷ Thus the structure of *De doctrina christiana* is as much akin to that of the streamlined handbooks, some of which Augustine would have known during his years as a teacher of rhetoric, as to the more replete classical rhetorics, even as those are also weighted toward inventional theory.

But *De doctrina christiana* 4 particularly invites comparison with the late imperial handbooks of style. The likeness lies not in its doctrine, which, as we will see, opens new categories of thought, but in its method of exposition. At the beginning of book 4, Augustine recapitulates the division of his material into *modus inveniendi* and *modus proferendi* in order to introduce the latter division as the subject of the present book. He goes on to state, as if unequivocally,

Primo itaque expectationem legentium, qui forte me putant rhetorica daturum esse praecepta quae in scholis saecularibus et didici et docui, ista praelocutione cohibeo atque ut a me non expectentur admoneo; non quod nihil habeant utilitatis, sed quod si quid habent seorsum discendum est...non autem a me vel in hoc opere vel in aliquo alio requirendum. (book 4, 1.2.3)

At the outset I must curb the expectations of any readers who perhaps think that I am going to present the rhetorical precepts that I learnt and taught in secular schools, and warn them in this preamble not to expect that sort of thing from me. This is not because the rules have no practical use, but because such practical uses as they do have must be learnt separately...and not sought from me either in this or any other work.⁸

This anticipates that some readers might well expect the final book of a *tractatio* divided into the *modi inveniendi* and *proferendi* to provide the teaching commonly encountered under “presentation,” including instruction on style. Augustine follows with a critique—already conventional among early Christians suspicious of the oratorical culture of the Second Sophistic—of contemporary rhetoric for its capacity to produce conviction about falsehoods (“res falsas persuadere”), its winning charm, and the power of speakers to terrify, sadden, gladden, and ardently exhort (“terreant contristent exhilarant exhortentur ardentur,” 2.3.4). This critique, which reprises an earlier critique in book 2 (36.54.132) and similar ones in the *Confessions*, is accompanied here by an advocacy of rhetoric as a necessary tool of Christian instruction and evangelizing, so that orthodox Christian speakers can compete effectively with eloquent adversaries. The gesture of turning away from the handbooks, the “precepts which I learned and taught in the secular schools,” renders them at once invisible and undeniably present in Augustine’s discourse.

The handbooks announce their presence in the expositions of exemplary texts. The texts are taken from Scripture in order to answer the question whether the inspired sacred authors truly married wisdom with eloquence (book 4, 6.9.25), that is, in what does Scripture’s grandeur consist? Romans 5:3–5 provides the first example:

Gloriamur in tribulationibus, scientes quia tribulatio patientiam operatur, patientia autem probationem, probatio vero spem, spes autem non confundit, quia caritas dei diffusa est in cordibus nostris per spiritum sanctum qui datus est nobis... agnoscitur hic figura quae **climax** graece, latine vero a quibusdam est appellata **gradatio**, quoniam scalam dicere noluerunt, **cum verba vel sensa conectuntur alterum ex altero**; sicut hic ex tribulatione patientiam, ex patientia probationem, ex probatione spem conexam videmus. Agnoscitur et aliud decus, quoniam post aliqua pronuntiationis voce singula finita, quae nostri **membra et caesa**, Graeci autem **cola et commata** vocant, sequitur ambitus sive circuitus, quem **periodon** illi appellant, cuius membra suspenduntur voce dicentis donec ultimo finiatur. Nam eorum quae praecedunt

circuitum, membrum illud est primum *quoniam tribulatio patientiam operatur*, secundum *patientia autem probationem*, tertium *probatio vero spes*. Deinde subiungitur ipse circuitus, qui tribus peragitur membris, quorum primum est *spes autem non confundit*, secundum *quoniam caritas dei diffusa est in cordibus nostris*, tertium *per spiritum sanctum qui datus est nobis*. At haec atque huiusmodi in elocutionis arte traduntur. Sicut ergo apostolum praecepta eloquentiae secutum fuisse non dicimus, ita quod eius sapientiam secuta sit eloquentia non negamus. (book 4, 7.11.31–3)

*We glory also in tribulations, knowing that tribulation produces endurance, and endurance trial, and trial hope, and hope confounds not: because the charity of God is poured forth in our hearts by the Holy Spirit, who is given to us...*we recognize here the figure generally designated by the Greek word **climax**—though some people, not wishing to speak of a “ladder,” prefer the Latin word **gradatio**—**whereby words or ideas are linked one with another**. So here we see “tribulation” linked with “endurance,” “endurance” linked with “trial,” “trial” linked with “hope.” Another ornament, too, may be recognized, whereby after certain sections, each articulated in a single phrase—which we call **membra and caesa**, but which the Greeks call **cola and commata**—there follows an ambit or circuit, which the Greeks call **periodon**, in which the parts are left hanging by the speaker’s voice until the period is completed by the last clause. The first of the cola that precede the period is that “tribulation produces endurance,” the second is “and endurance trial,” and the third “and trial hope.” Then comes the period itself, formed of three cola of which the first is “and hope confounds not,” the second “because the charity of God is poured forth in our hearts,” and the third “by the Holy Spirit, who is given to us.” But these and other such things are handed down in the art of eloquence. We do not say that the Apostle followed the precepts of eloquence; but we do not deny that his wisdom was attended by eloquence.⁹

Augustine did not randomly choose this passage or the following examples (from 2 Corinthians and from the prophet Amos): all were selected to illustrate stylistic strategies of passionate persuasion, and thus all rise to high pitches of sorrow (to generate pity), exhortation (to generate fear), or invective (to produce anger). Here, as elsewhere, the main formal difference between Augustine’s teaching and that of the handbooks (apart from length) is that Augustine puts the illustrative text first and then follows with analysis of the precepts that it contains. This order reinforces the notion that the precepts of eloquence serve Scripture, rather than the other way around, lest the teaching of the rules of eloquence seem to determine and take precedence over the purpose of discovering Scripture itself.

But once we observe these differences, we can also appreciate how comparable Augustine’s rhetorical teaching is to that of the handbooks. He comments on the figure *climax* or *gradatio*, which is used in Romans 5 to particular emotional effect, as it joins suffering to patience, patience to testing, and testing to hope, thus moving from the sorrows of the present to expectations of happiness in the future. Augustine notes the figure, giving it in both its Greek and Latin forms, as does Aquila Romanus, and then gives

it a terse definition such as in the anonymous *Schemata lexeos*.¹⁰ This does not exclude *Rhetorica ad Herennium* 4.25.34 and Quintilian's *Institutio* 9.3.54–7 as possible sources, but sources contemporary with Augustine are equally likely.

In this passage from Paul, as well as in the following example that he quotes at length, 2 Corinthians 11:16–30, Augustine gives primary attention to punctuation or phrasing, often called *compositio*, that is, the figures of speech *caesum* (*comma*), *membrum* (*colon*), and *circuitus* (*periodos*), respectively an incomplete clause, a complete clause, and a full stop.¹¹ At the start of book 3, Augustine had considered how punctuation can be used to resolve ambiguities in the literal sense of the scriptural text (book 3, 3.2.2–6). Augustine had left *De doctrina christiana* unfinished in 396–7, and thirty years later, in 426, returned to finish the work, adding the conclusion of book 3 and the whole of book 4.¹² Perhaps the discussion of the figures of *compositio* (that is, punctuation and phrasing) in book 4 suggested itself in the process of reviewing the previous parts of the work. The figures of *compositio* are also a common topic in the classical arts, including Cicero's *Orator* (62.211–67.226) on which Augustine deliberately modeled his treatment of the levels of style in book 4.

But these figures are also standard items in the imperial handbooks. Augustine's Latin term for *comma* is not that of Cicero (*Orator* 62.211) and Quintilian (9.4.22), who both use *incisum*, nor of the *Rhetorica ad Herennium* (4.9.26), which uses *articulus*, but *caesum*, the word used by Aquila Romanus and Fortunatianus.¹³ Thus, importantly, the language that Augustine uses points to his immersion in the contemporary field of handbooks and compendia. Whether or not Aquila Romanus or Fortunatianus was his immediate source for the discussion of *compositio*, he was deploying a late-imperial lexicon, not a classical one, linking him with the contemporary teaching of such matters.

The brevity of exposition in Fortunatianus also has the virtue of being able to link the artistic purpose of *compositio* with the artistic effects of the *genera dicendi*: following quickly on the introduction of *compositio* is the question, “when do we use the grand style?” and the answer, “when there is a matter inciting some indignation or great pity.”¹⁴ Augustine's own analysis of Pauline style underscores its emotional impact. He takes apart the long passage from 2 Corinthians, in which Paul fulminates against

Jewish adversaries and describes his suffering at their hands, to see how it builds its effect through *caesa*, *membra*, and periods. The passage “pleases” and is most gracefully (*decentissime*) designed, but then the *caesa* pour forth with appropriate force (“*decentissimo impetu profluunt*”), the discourse rises to impetuous heights, and then recedes, “calming” the audience with inexpressible beauty and artistic pleasure (book 4, 7.12.36–13.43).

Thus in his analysis of style as the locus of emotional understanding, Augustine emerges as a product of his own rhetorical moment. He confirms this with a resounding negation of his profession:

Longum est cetera persequi vel in aliis sanctarum scripturarum locis ista monstrare. Quid si etiam figuras locutionis quae illa arte traduntur in his saltem quae de apostoli eloquio commemoravi ostendere voluissem? Nonne facilius graves homines me nimium quam quisquam studiosorum sibi sufficientem putaret? Haec omnia quando a magistris docentur pro magno habentur, magno emuntur, magna iactatione venduntur. (book 4, 7.14.44–5)

It would be tedious to pursue further aspects of style or to point them out in other passages of the holy scriptures. What if I had decided to demonstrate the figures of speech, as transmitted in this art, that occur at least in these passages which I quoted to illustrate the Apostle’s eloquence: would not serious-minded men quickly think I had gone too far when one of that zealous sect [of rhetoric teachers] would think I hadn’t gone far enough? All of these things, when taught by schoolmasters, are held as something great, they are bought at great price, and are sold with great bluster.¹⁵

Even as Augustine calls to mind contemporary teaching in order to reject its claims, that teaching manifests its hold on him, as he packs the last sentence with easily recognizable figures of speech: *similiter desinens* or *homoeoteleuton* (the similar endings of the verbs *docentur*, *habentur*, *emuntur*, *venduntur*); *paronomasia* (the same word or root repeated in different forms and slightly different meanings, here *pro magno*, *magno*, *magna*), and even the Gorgianic figure of parallelism or *isocolon*. These aural and visual devices are intended to win us over, to arouse our indignation at the overweening of the rhetoricians. But it still remains the case for him, as for the contemporary rhetoricians, that emotion is to be registered in and through style. When he gives an analysis of Amos 6:1–6, his comments on the last phrase in particular underscore the emotional power of the prophet’s eloquence:

sicut David putaverunt se habere vasa cantici, bibentes in phialis vinum, et optimo unguento delibuti, et nihil patiebantur super contritione Ioseph. (Amos 6:6) Iam vero quod his omnibus adicitur: et nihil patiebantur super contritione Ioseph, sive continuatim dicatur ut unum sit

membrum, sive decentius suspendatur *et nihil patiebantur*, et post hanc distinctionem inferatur: *super contritione Ioseph*, atque sit bimembris circuitus, miro decore non dictum est, “nihil patiebantur super contritione fratris,” sed positus est pro fratre “Ioseph,” ut quicumque frater proprio significaretur eius nomine, cuius ex fratribus fama praeclara est, vel in malis quae pendit vel in bonis quae rependit. Iste certe tropus, ubi Ioseph quemcumque fratrem facit intellegi, nescio utrum illa quam didicimus et docuimus arte tradatur. Quam sit tamen pulcher et quemadmodum **afficiat** legentes atque intellegentes, non opus est cuiquam dici si ipse non sentit. (book 4, 7.20.57–8)

*They have thought themselves to have instruments of music like David; that drink wine in bowls, and anoint themselves with the best ointments: and they suffered not for the affliction of Joseph.*¹⁶ Now for the phrase which is added to all this: “and they suffered not for the affliction of Joseph.” Whether it is spoken continuously, as one colon, or, more tastefully, by lowering the voice after “and they suffered not,” and by adding the words “for the affliction of Joseph” after a pause, creating a bipartite period, it is a sign of remarkable taste that he does not say “they suffered not over the affliction of their brother,” but puts “Joseph” instead of “brother,” so that any brother is signified by the proper name of the particular brother whose fame, whether because of the injuries he suffered or the kindnesses with which he repaid them, overshadowed that of his brothers. I am not sure if the trope by which “Joseph” is made to stand for “any brother” is specified in the art which I learnt and taught, but there is no need to point out to anyone—if he does not realize it for himself— how attractive it is and how much it **affects** those who read and understand.¹⁷

Affective (emotional) power lies in the embellished language, here especially in the trope for which he has no name, which “affects” (*afficiat*) the feelings of those who understand.¹⁸

With the weight that he places on emotional resonance in preaching, how does Augustine strengthen the category of style to enable it to carry so large an ethical burden?

If, for Augustine, as for his rhetorical contemporaries, emotion has been left to the province of style, how does he differentiate his understanding of style itself? For the late imperial rhetoricians, as noted earlier, the truly practical uses of rhetoric had shrunk to bureaucratic analysis of legal briefs, on the one hand (thus leading to an emphasis on invention and especially status theory in the compendia of rhetoric), or to epideictic declamation, on the other hand. No longer were the courts and the fora sites of lively forensic and deliberative arguments.¹⁹ Thus the Ciceronian principle, that emotion is part of the core of rhetorical thought about discovery or finding one’s argument, diminishes in force over the course of the centuries. For Cicero and the other classical Latin authorities, emotion was to be grasped as one among various contingencies: by definition, emotion was seen as an unstable condition that provided material for a strong technical system of topical invention. One could discover one’s argument in the traces of a

fleeting psychic “disturbance” if one was equipped with a reliable and powerful technical framework to create a plausible argument (for example, a *perturbatio animi* can be shown plausibly to drive someone to violence or theft). It was that framework that Cicero (along with the *Rhetorica ad Herennium* and later Quintilian) sought to provide.

Augustine also seeks to provide a robust and durable framework for discovering one’s argument (*modus inveniendi*). However, the strength of this framework does not lie in its technical infallibility, but in the very nature of what is to be discovered. Invention, for Augustine, is the discovery of truth in Scripture, not the strong manipulation of contingencies (see, for example, book 1, 1.1.1–3, and 5.5.10–12). Since the stable foundation is not technique but a revealed truth that is immutable, everything that devolves from what is properly invented or discovered is equally necessary and true. Thus in Augustine’s rhetorical terms, emotion is no longer a *perturbatio animi* to be assessed or manipulated, but a true response to the recognition of an incontrovertible truth and a sign of the orator’s success in communicating that truth. So Augustine’s redefinition of emotion is predicated on the redefinition of invention: the *intelligentes*, those who understand, will be affected by a style that reflects a truthful content.

Thus the grand style is not necessarily ornamented, but it is emotionally effective: “Grande autem dicendi genus hoc maxime distat ab isto genere temperato, quod non tam verborum ornatibus comptum est quam violentum animi affectibus” (What especially differentiates the grand style from the mixed style is that it is not so much embellished with verbal ornament as inflamed by heartfelt emotion) [book 4, 20.42.118].²⁰ Describing his own practice in a sermon delivered to a rough audience at Caesarea of Mauretania in 418, he notes that they responded with applause when he gave instruction (in the plain style) and produced delight (in the middle style); but it was only their tears—in response to the grand style—that made him see that he had truly moved them to desist from brutal strife (book 4, 24.53.140).²¹ The grand style finds its emotional coordinates not in what the speaker feels (as in Cicero’s *De oratore* and Quintilian), but in what he intends:

ita flectitur si amet quod polliceris, timeat quod minaris, oderit quod arguis, quod commendas amplectatur, quod dolendum exaggeras doleat, cum quid laetandum praedicat gaudeat,

misereatur eorum quos miserandos ante oculos dicendo constituis, fugiat eos quos cavendos terrendo proponis. (book 4, 12.27.75)

(The hearer) is moved if he values what you promise, fears what you threaten, hates what you condemn, embraces what you commend, and rues the things which you insist he must regret; and if he rejoices at the joy that you preach, pities those whom by your words you present to his mind's eye as miserable, and shuns those whom with terrifying language you urge him to avoid.²²

This is a far cry from the manipulative ornamentation of the imperial handbooks, where expediency prompts the use of a particular figure (we apply certain devices when the speech calls for certain kinds of emotion).²³ The simplicity of the grand style delivers a direct and powerful emotional message. But even in this qualitative difference from the imperial handbooks, Augustine is still treating emotion as a function of style. In this way the *De doctrina christiana* guarantees the transmission to the Christian Middle Ages of that norm of the imperial rhetorics, endowing it with a new authority for a culture that will value rhetoric not only for speaking well on theological and moral matters, but also for reading Scripture with a sensitive appreciation of its methods of passionate suasion.

Augustine takes us naturally to Cassiodorus' psalm commentaries, and leads both directly and indirectly to Isidore and Bede. But before we leave behind the late classical moment of Augustine in the early fifth century (when *De doctrina christiana* was finished), I want to pause over Macrobius, whose *Saturnalia* was composed just after the completion of Augustine's work, sometime around 430. The *Saturnalia* looks back to the fourth century (the period of its fictional setting), but the world of classical learning that it conjures up also looks forward to the sixth century of Cassiodorus, who was one of the last products of late antique classicism. There is another way in which Macrobius looks forward to Cassiodorus: that is in the appropriation of rhetoric, including the emotive capacities of style, as a framework for critical reading and understanding, not simply (or primarily) for composition. The potential for this shift was already implicit in the late-antique manuals of style, which typically substitute choice literary illustrations for explanation of precept, as if the engrained habit of critical reading will teach the uses of a device as well as the theory behind it. But in book 4 of the *Saturnalia*, and in Cassiodorus' commentary on the psalms, we see a turn away from teaching style for the sake of composition to teaching love of the poetic text for itself. They give instruction in how to

read rhetorically. If the intended audience of the compositional handbooks will learn how to incite emotion in their audiences, the reader of the *Saturnalia* and the *Expositio psalmorum* will learn and map their own emotional responses to Virgil and to the psalms.

This is another reason why the outlook of Augustine's text is closer to that of the stylistic handbooks of late antiquity, with their focus on composing an oration. While Augustine explains powerfully how a scriptural passage can deploy stylistic devices to excite emotion, his aim is to teach new preachers how to use Scripture as an ethical and stylistic model. In Macrobius and Cassiodorus, that compositional aim has been all but replaced by a new purpose, to demonstrate the affective rhetoric of Virgil and the psalms, and thereby inculcate reverence and love for the master texts.

2.2 Macrobius' *Saturnalia*: Inculcating Love for Virgil

In an important respect, Macrobius is exceptional to the overall shift towards style that I have described. Style plays only one part in his appreciation of affective rhetoric; he belongs as much with the Ciceronian tradition (described in [Chapter 1](#)), where emotion is a product of the topical reasoning of rhetoric. If Macrobius is locating his dialogue in the later fourth century (about a generation before his writing), it is from that perspective that he looks back even further to the integrated rhetorics of the mature Cicero and Quintilian.²⁴ In book 4 he has the Greek orator Eusebius give a compressed lesson on the emotive dimensions of rhetorical argumentation as a whole, explaining how Virgil's poetry exploits the affective power of the topics of invention. Taking emotion itself as a category, he uses it to negotiate the entire system of rhetorical reasoning: through attributes, language and the figures, causality, and other sources of argument. Yet it is important to stress that, even in the voice of an authoritative orator, Macrobius is not teaching rhetoric as composition, but rather rhetoric as literary study. It is the inspiring literary power of Virgil, exemplified through an encyclopedic survey of the knowledge contained in his poetry, that is the guiding principle of the *Saturnalia* as a whole. In this way, the *Saturnalia* could be an authoritative resource on poetics in late

antiquity.²⁵ Unlike the tradition that grows out of Cicero's *De inventione*, Macrobius does not use the discussion of topics in the peroration to teach an abstracted theory of invention; rather, he uses the topics to call attention to poetic texture.

Thus, for example, he discovers emotion generated by arguments *a persona*:

Nunc dicamus ex habitu pathos, quod est vel in aetate vel in debilitate et ceteris quae sequuntur. eleganter hoc servavit ut ex omni aetate pathos misericordiae moveret:

ab infantia (*Aeneid* 6.427),

“infantumque animae flentes in limine primo”

a pueritia (*Aeneid* 1.475),

“infelix puer atque impar congressus Achilli”²⁶

et (*Aeneid* 2.674)

“parvumque patri tendebat Iulum,”

ut non minus miserabile sit periculum in parvo quam in filio, et (*Aeneid* 2.597–8)

“...superet coniuxne Creusa

Ascaniusque puer?”

et alibi (*Aeneid* 2.563),

...et parvi casus Iuli” (4.3.1-3)

Now let's talk about emotion based on a person's condition, which is a function of age or weakness or any other qualities that follow from them. He hit this off so neatly that he could wring compassion from every stage of life:

infancy

“...and souls of infants weeping at the very threshold of life”

childhood

“...unhappy boy, unequal contest with Achilles”

and

“he was holding little Iulus out to his father”

making the peril equally pitiable because he was small and because he was his son—and

“...whether your wife, Creusa, still lives,

and the boy Ascanius?”

and elsewhere

“...and the lot of little Iulus”²⁷

Habitus is used here, in an unmarked way, to signify a bodily condition or stage of life (with the contingencies attendant upon it, most importantly biological impermanence or physical circumstance) rather than an acquired

and abiding ethical state.²⁸ Moreover, while the notion of *habitus* in Cicero characterizes the agent's own motivations and intentions in a legal context, for Macrobius *habitus* designates more simply a literary characterization that is meant to draw emotional response from the reader. Thus Macrobius' choice of examples—"infelix puer atque impar congressus Achilli," "et parvi casus Iuli"—find their pathetic charge not only in the topic *a persona* itself, in these cases the attribute of childhood, but most poignantly in the affective touches of style: "little Iulus," and the parallelism of "unhappy boy" and "unequal encounter" with Achilles (a form of *aetiologia*, providing a reason for a claim).²⁹ It is style that brings the topic *a persona* to life.

But he also devotes direct attention to stylistic devices. In introducing the subject of the "tenor of speech," Macrobius begins with the precepts of the "rhetorical art," the arousing of indignation and pity, using for examples what had become standard literary models for declamation—Juno's speech in book 1, Dido's speeches in book 4, and Priam's speech to Pyrrhus in book 2.³⁰ Showing first how each speech opens abruptly in a grand passionate style, he turns to the stylistic elements of a whole speech, Juno's angry complaint in book 7, using it to illustrate the emotional effects of the figures exclamation, *interrogatio* (*erotema*), hyperbole, and irony (figures of thought), and *dissolutio* or asyndeton (figure of diction):

nec initium solum tale esse debet, sed omnis si fieri potest oratio videri pathetica et brevibus sententiis et crebris figurarum mutationibus debet velut inter aestus iracundiae fluctuare. una ergo nobis Vergiliana oratio pro exemplo sit:

"Heu stirpem invisam..." (*Aeneid* 7.293)

initium ab ecphonesi, deinde sequuntur breves interrogatiunculae:

"...num Sigeis occumbere campis

num capti potuere capi? num incensa cremavit

Troia viros?" (7.294–6)

deinde sequitur hyperbole:

"...medias acies mediosque per ignes

invenere viam..." (7.296–7)

deinde ironia:

"...at credo mea numina tandem

fessa iacent, odiis aut exsaturata quievi." (7.297–8)

deinde ausus suos inefficaces queritur:

"...per undas

ausa sequi et profugis toto me opponere ponto.” (7.299–300)

secunda post haec hyperbole:

“absumptae in Teucros vires caelique marisque.” (7.301)

inde dispersae querelae:

“quid Syrtes aut Scylla mihi, quid vasta Charybdis

profuit?” (7.302–3)

(4.2.3–4.2.6)

Not only should the speech start that way, but the whole of it should (if possible) appear the product of strong emotion, with the thought expressed in a clipped fashion with frequent shifts in the figures used, as though tossed by seething waves of anger. Let’s take, then, a single speech of Virgil’s as an example:

“Ah, that hated race...”

starting with an exclamation, then two short questions follow:

“...Couldn’t they fall on the fields of Sigeum,

couldn’t they stay captive once captured? Couldn’t Troy in flames

have consumed her heroes?”

Then an overstatement follows:

“...through the midst of battle and the midst of the flames

they found a way...”

then irony:

“...No doubt my godhead at last lies prostrate,

exhausted, no doubt I’ve found peace, my hatred slaked”

Then she complains that her own bold moves were foiled:

“...over the waves I dared pursue them

and put myself in the refugees’ way all across the sea.”

After this, another overstatement:

“The resources of sky and sea spent against the Trojans”

Then fragmented complaints:

“What good for me did Syrtes or Scylla do, what good

awful Charybdis?”

Toward the end of book 4, after surveying the topics that Virgil uses for stirring the emotions, including manner, means, cause, and the various extrinsic topics that produce pity and anger, Macrobius returns to the *schemata* at greater length. He adduces Virgilian examples of *pathos* derived from *apostrophe* (4.6.10), *addubitatio* or *aporia* (expressing doubt, 4.6.11), *phantasia* or *enargeia* (4.6.13), hyperbole (4.6.15), *exclamatio* (4.6.17), *aposiōpēsis* or falling silent (4.6.20), *repetitio* (4.6.23), and

obiurgatio or *epitimēsis* (reproach, 4.6.24). Some of these, together with irony (exemplified earlier, at 4.2.4), are among the figures that Quintilian distinguishes as especially associated with intensifying emotion (*Institutio oratoria* 9.2.26–9). In the Servian tradition of stylistic commentary, his coverage is broad; but unlike Servius' commentary it is directed toward the precise objective of rhetorical teaching, and thus more selective than a grammatical commentary.

With such literary exemplification, Macrobius supplies the kind of information on emotion and the figures that was largely missing to the Middle Ages in the mutilated copies of Quintilian's rhetoric. But in attending expressly to the emotional impact of stylistic devices in Virgil, he also develops the implications of the style handbooks, and in that way reinforces their more contemporary teaching. Beyond what the handbooks teach, however, he engages the classical text at a level of moral instruction: the aesthetic principles that govern Virgilian style affirm the value of literature as a moral compass. Virgil is not so much to be imitated in future compositions as appreciated for his persuasive power to stir emotions in response to the greatest affairs of human history.

Macrobius takes rhetoric decidedly in the direction of literary appreciation. How influential this aspect of the *Saturnalia* was to be in the Middle Ages is hard to gauge, because we do not see substantial survival of the work before the twelfth and thirteenth centuries, and copies from the earlier periods are often missing books 4–6. On the other hand, the text received a surge of copying between the twelfth and the fifteenth centuries.³¹ But whether or not we can say that the new availability of the text in the High Middle Ages is reflected in rhetorical teaching, there were other works of continuous influence that present a similar line of approach and whose impact is readily traceable.

2.3 Cassiodorus' *Expositio psalorum*: Shared Affection for the Psalms

The most important of these is Cassiodorus' *Expositio psalorum*. This had a robust medieval afterlife, surviving in 155 known manuscripts from the eighth to the fifteenth centuries; most of these, unsurprisingly, come from

the period spanning the ninth to the twelfth centuries.³² Cassiodorus undertook this commentary during the later 540s, while he was in Constantinople and after his public career under the Ostrogothic rulers in Ravenna had come to an end. Turning his attention from secular to spiritual writings, he conceived his commentary on the psalms, his only sustained work of exegesis, as a response to the difficulties he encountered in understanding and appreciating the psalter. Having sought recourse to Augustine's *Enarrationes in psalmos*, he tells us in his preface, he presumed—"mindful of my weakness"—to "abbreviate" Augustine's vast and intricate commentary. But his exposition is hardly a summary of Augustine's *Enarrationes*, even if Cassiodorus claims inspiration from the older magisterial work. Surely with a view to real pedagogical applications—in the preceding decade he had tried to establish a school of Christian higher learning in Rome (*Institutiones* 1, *Praef.* 1), and in the following decade he was to retire to Vivarium, his monastic foundation at Squillace in southern Italy—he set about to teach the psalms using as a compass the system of the liberal arts.³³

Cassiodorus prepared marginal orthographical symbols, or *notae*, to mark the recurring topics, illustrated in the psalter, that his commentary would explore. There are thirteen such symbols, representing the following subjects: the idioms that are proper to Scripture; theological dogma to be recognized; definitions (of moral, theological, or historical concepts); *schemata*; etymology; interpretation of names; the art of rhetoric; topics (of dialectic); syllogisms; arithmetic; geometry; music; astronomy. Most of these subjects pertain to the trivium and quadrivium. Taken together, the symbols signify the aims of a complete sacred knowledge and the secular disciplinary instruments necessary to discovering that knowledge in Scripture. The secular disciplines are important for understanding Scripture on its own terms (as Augustine had taught in books 2 and 3 of *De doctrina christiana*). But even more, as Cassiodorus insists, Scripture is the source for achieving that knowledge, because, invoking an old theological premise that has its roots in Hellenistic Judaism and early Christianity, those sciences had their origin in Scripture (*Exp. ps. Praef.* 15).³⁴ In this way, the *Expositio* is a proleptic fulfillment of the encyclopedic outline of the secular arts in Cassiodorus' *Institutiones*, which was actually written later, around 562, after he had retired to Vivarium. Scripture is not a textbook of the

sciences, but a restoration of them to their sacred purpose, which is to provide the knowledge for salvation.³⁵

Yet while his purpose was not to teach the secular sciences but rather Scripture's illumination of all redemptive knowledge, the *Expositio* was to make a profound contribution to Christian understanding of the arts, especially when taken together with the schematic summaries that he provided in the *Institutiones*. Nowhere is this contribution more decisive than in the validation and preservation of rhetoric. Rhetoric was not simply to be found in the psalms: for Cassiodorus it became the navigational map through which he could grasp the meaning and power of the psalter. Cassiodorus came to the psalter formed by the professional rhetorical culture of the sixth century. Much as Augustine, in the fourth and fifth centuries, had brought a familiar rhetorical paradigm to his treatment of scriptural understanding in *De doctrina christiana*, Cassiodorus used a rhetorical map to traverse the psalter and chart its aesthetic techniques.

At the macro-level of form and function, Cassiodorus reads the psalms as oratory and classifies some of them explicitly according to the genres of oratorical production.³⁶ Depending on what he sees as a psalm's aim and subject matter, he often categorizes it as forensic, deliberative (arguing for a particular course of action), or epideictic. For Cassiodorus, the career rhetorician, this would have been an instinctive way of reading and judging the intention of a discourse. Among the psalms he notes the epideictic genre most frequently, mentioning it on eleven different occasions. It is not surprising that he mostly finds epideictic, the genre of praise and blame: the psalms themselves are overwhelmingly expressions of praise. Moreover, Cassiodorus himself had been a panegyrist, and thus especially sensitive to the literary character of public praise. In his preface he offers what is in essence a panegyric of *Ecclesia* by which he hopes to "enflame" the desire of his "listeners" for the mysteries of the psalms which will be unfolded (*Exp. ps. Praef.* 17, ed. Adriaen, 1: 22–4), as if he imagines himself a speaker addressing a live audience.

As such a large formal template suggests, Cassiodorus has a holistic approach to rhetoric. Through the psalms he engages a complete system of rhetorical understanding, from generic classification to legal and argumentative strategies as they can apply to the penitent who puts his case before a merciful God,³⁷ to the "division" of the psalm, which he sometimes likens to the parts of an oration, and from there to *elocutio* or

stylistic embellishment. Thus his teaching on style is part of, and determined by, a larger ethical enterprise, to teach a salvific understanding of Scripture by revealing its persuasive underpinnings. In turning rhetoric into an instrument of sacred teaching, Cassiodorus' purpose follows on that of Augustine.

But even with such an integrated vision, he gives his most continuous rhetorical attention to style, that is, to elucidating the figures and tropes of the psalms. Style is a preoccupation, surely, because the psalter's language is the first point of contact with its affective power. He presents and defines 105 different rhetorical figures, comprising tropes, figures of speech, and figures of thought, and finding multiple examples of most. The orthographical symbol that he devised for signaling the presence of figurative language, SCHE, occurs regularly in the margins throughout the text. Because the *notae* were transmitted with many of the manuscripts, later readers who were fortunate to have a notated copy could easily peruse the margins of the text to come upon *loci* for definitions and scriptural examples, rendering the *Expositio* an unusually valuable resource for studying the figures.³⁸ The *Expositio* also provided an authoritative synthesis of late classical learning on the figures. In the *Institutiones*, Cassiodorus notes that figurative language was a field shared between the grammarians and the rhetoricians, and in the *Expositio* his sources for this material come from both kinds of textbooks: from grammar, Donatus' *Ars maior* book 3; and from rhetoric, Quintilian (or a recension), the treatise on figures by Julius Rufinianus, and probably a Greek handbook on the figures such as some version of Alexander Numenius.³⁹ Thus the *Expositio* was also a conduit for much of what was less directly available to medieval readers, especially Quintilian's treatment of the figures in *Institutio oratoria* book 9. The influence of the *Expositio* as a handbook of rhetorical figures stretched across the Middle Ages, its impact registered in exegesis as well as school texts; only in the twelfth century did its figural teaching decline in importance as other teaching methods and new grammatical texts took its place.⁴⁰ Among the work's beneficiaries, Bede was to make ample use of it as a source for his own contribution to the field, *De schematibus et tropis*, availing himself of the clarity and authority of the exposition.⁴¹ The extensive treatment of style in the *Expositio* complements the exclusive focus on invention in the rhetoric chapter of the *Institutiones*, written about a decade after the *Expositio*. In this respect, Cassiodorus' teaching of

rhetoric follows the paradigm established by the imperial rhetorics, in which coverage of the figures was by and large the business of separate treatises dedicated to that subject. In the *Institutiones*, Cassiodorus does not explain the absence of any teaching on style in the chapter on rhetoric; but he had already dealt with that material generously in the *Expositio*.

In its internal character, the teaching on style resonates with that of the figural rhetorics. Obviously, some of these were familiar resources to him. But this is a teaching also informed by Augustine, who redirected it to appreciating the passionate suasion of the scriptural text. It is the same motive, to inculcate love for Scripture by explaining how its rhetoric moves the human heart, that drives Cassiodorus' approach to the style of the psalter. In the general preface to the *Expositio*, he describes the special eloquence of Scripture: it uses the resources of the language sciences to speak of what is meaningful to heart and spirit, where its affective mysteries take root:

Eloquentia legis divinae humanis non est formata sermonibus, neque confusis incerta fertur ambagibus...[S]ed cordi, non corporalibus auribus loquens, magna veritate, magna praescientiae firmitate cuncta diiudicans, auctoris sui veritate consistit...Nam et pater Augustinus in libro tertio de doctrina christiana [3.29.40] ita professus est: *Sciant autem litterati modis omnium locutionum, quos grammatici graeco nomine tropos vocant, auctores nostros usos fuisse...*Sed dicit aliquis: nec partes ipsae syllogismorum, nec nomina schematum, nec vocabula disciplinarum, nec alia huiuscemodi ullatenus inveniuntur in psalmis. Inveniuntur plane in virtute sensuum, non in effatione verborum: sic enim vina in vitibus, messem in semine, frondes in radicibus, fructus in ramis, arbores ipsas sensu contemplamur in nucleis...Merito ergo esse dicimus, quae inesse nihilominus virtute sentimus. (*Praef.* 15)⁴²

The eloquence of the divine law was not formed by [ordinary] speech, nor is it received with confusion or uncertainty or ambiguities...Rather, speaking to the heart, not to bodily ears, and discerning all things with complete truth and great certainty of foreknowledge, it takes its existence from the truth of its author...Now, in book 3 of his *De doctrina christiana* father Augustine declared, "The learned should know that our scriptural authors used all those forms of expression that grammarians call (according to the Greek name) 'tropes.'"...But someone objects, "No actual parts of syllogisms, nor the names of figures, nor the vocabulary of the disciplines, nor any other such things at all are to be found in the psalms." In fact they are plainly found by virtue of being felt, not in the mere utterance of words; for in the same way, by sensory feeling, we behold wine in the grape, harvest in the seed, foliage in the roots, fruit in the branches, and the very trees in acorns...Thus justly do we assert the presence of those techniques whose force we feel is present there.

While the exposition can operate at a fairly high theoretical level, one of its pedagogical virtues is that Cassiodorus assumes little technical knowledge on the part of his prospective readers. At almost every point he supplies

basic teaching and explanations of the sort that a reader of his own professional class would never need. Early on, realizing that he must furnish a general definition of “figure,” he offers a guiding affective principle:

Figura est, sicut nomine ipso datur intellegi, quaedam conformatio dictionis a communione remota, quae interioribus oculis velut aliquid vultuosum semper offertur, quam traditione maiorum ostentationem et habitum possumus nuncupare. (*Exp. ps.* 2, ed. Adriaen, 1: 41)

A “figure,” as can be understood from the term itself, is a configuration of a phrase beyond common use that is always presented, like any facial expression, to the inner eye. Following the tradition of our forbears we can call it a (self-) presentation or demeanor.

All readers will experience the psalms as if in a living encounter between speaker and listener. The technical definition, “a configuration of a phrase beyond common use,” is the same as Quintilian’s (*Institutio oratoria* 9.1.4). But the remainder is Cassiodorus’ own, and his explanation of “figure” involves figures, the simile “like a certain facial expression,” and the metaphor (or catachresis) “inner eye.” Here, the text on the page is a proxy for human speech, and the figure itself is the textual counterpart of direct emotional expression between speaker and hearer, when a human face “reads” another face. The phrase *quae interioribus oculis... offertur* echoes his definition elsewhere within the *Expositio* of the figure *enargeia* or *imaginatio*, “quae actum rei incorporeis oculis subministrat” (which presents the performance of something to the incorporeal eyes).⁴³ There, the figure *enargeia* is defined through a use of *enargeia*, a “making vivid” to the “mind’s eye” of the imaginative process by which pictures are conjured through words. The *schemata* identified and explained throughout the *Expositio* constitute a repository of vivid experience: they are the means through which the psalms make themselves real to audiences as living speech and the medium of that direct speaking.

In his explanations of the figures, Cassiodorus relies on the method of the imperial handbooks, although necessarily he inverts the process: instead of choosing illustrations that will accentuate the emotional potential of a particular figure (as the handbooks do), he will often select for commentary a particularly emotive verse in the psalter and then explain its effect by way of a lesson on the figure it uses. Cassiodorus shows little interest in the finer distinctions between figures of speech, figures of thought, and tropes: such differences matter less than the totality of aesthetic impact. In Psalm 2:14, for example, he treats metaphor simply as a *schema*:

Cum exarserit in brevi ira eius. Metaphora ab incendio facta, quod tunc magis inardescit, quando pabulum consumptionis acceperit. (*Exp. ps.* ed. Adriaen 1: 48)

When his wrath shall be kindled in a short time. The metaphor is taken from fire, which burns more when it finds fuel for consumption.

The explanation draws out the emotional force of this verse, with its exhortative ferocity in the face of God's explosive anger.

Like the imperial manuals, he sometimes marks the effect of a figure, as in the case of *synathroesmos* in Psalm 11:

Salvum me fac, Domine, quoniam defecit sanctus, quoniam diminutae sunt veritates a filiis hominum. Studiose discutiamus hoc principium psalmi, quoniam magnorum schematum decore formatum est. Exclamat enim ad Dominum subito propheta, ut de ipsa formidine appareat periculi magnitudo. Deinde per figuram *synathroesmos*, usque ad divisionem congregat multa, quae timuit. Quod schema inter violentissimas figuras accipitur, quando plurimae res in unum et multa crimina colliguntur. (*Exp. ps.*, ed. Adriaen 1: 117)

Save me, O Lord, for there is now no saint: truths are decayed from among the children of men. Let us earnestly investigate the opening of this psalm, for it is fashioned with the grace of noble figures. The prophet suddenly calls out to God, so that the magnitude of danger is apparent from his veery alarm. Then through the figure *synathroesmos* he collects together the many things that he fears, up to the division [of the psalm]. This figure is considered one of the most violent, because many things and many crimes are heaped together.

The characterization of this figure as “one of the most violent,” in which “many things and many crimes are heaped into one,” seems to be Cassiodorus’ own addition to the traditional description of an “accumulation” of elements.⁴⁴ So powerful is the idea of the “violence” of *synathroesmos* that this very description reappears in a figural manual written after Cassiodorus’ *Expositio* and very much dependent on it, the *Scemata dianoetas quae ad rhetores pertinent*. This anonymous treatise has the hallmarks of the imperial manuals of the previous centuries, especially its scouring of classical Latin sources to exemplify the figures. But it almost certainly postdates Cassiodorus, from whom the author derives nearly fifty figural definitions, substituting classical for scriptural examples.⁴⁵ In the manner of the handbooks, the *Scemata dianoetas* gives first a definition of *synathroesmos* (taken from Cassiodorus) and then illustrates it by invoking a passage from Cicero’s *Pro Milone*, which is a distressing litany of crimes committed by the wicked Clodius, now dead by Milo’s hand:

Synathroesmos. hoc scema inter violentissimas figuras accipitur, ubi et multa crimina in unum contrahimus, ut Cicero in Miloniana, “occidi non Spurium Maelium [...] sed eum cuius nefarium stuprum in pulvinaribus sanctissimis compertum est [...]”⁴⁶

Synathroesmos. This is considered to be among the most violent figures, where we heap up many crimes in one place, for example Cicero in *Pro Milone* [72]: “I have killed not a Spurius Maelius [...] but him whose heinous fornication on the most sacred couches was discovered [...]”

The passage in *Pro Milone* goes on to heap up crime after crime committed by Clodius, characterized as wanton and thuggish. The mountain of criminal detritus in Cicero’s text forms a spectacular illustration of *synathroesmos*. Cassiodorus’ original example of *synathroesmos* from Psalm 11, with only four complaints (the disappearance of the saintly man, the decay of truth, the vanities on the lips of men, and their evil hypocrisies) seems pale by comparison with the extravagant heaping up in the passage from *Pro Milone*. Yet the power that Cassiodorus perceived in the psalm was the effect of impacted expression. Those four grievances encompass the entirety of evil, the evacuation of truth, and its supplanting by empty lies. The abbreviated figure of *synathroesmos* here suggests that the psalm could continue into full-blown violence, but that it does not need to: the magnitude of what has been expressed and the potential of what remains unexpressed are enough to arouse indignation and fear.

But *synathroesmos* can have more obvious applications, as in Psalm 57, in which the Psalmist’s reproof of the wicked is taken by Cassiodorus (as by Augustine before him),⁴⁷ as Christ’s reproof of the Jews:

Furor illis secundum similitudinem serpentis, sicut aspidis surdae et obturantis aures suas. Quae non exaudiet vocem incantantium et venefici incantatis sapienter. Deus contervit dentes eorum in ore ipsorum; molas leonum confringit Dominus. Ad nihilum devenient tanquam aqua decurrens; intendit arcum suum donec infirmentur. (Psalm 57:5–8)

Their madness is according to the likeness of a serpent: like the deaf asp that stoppeth her ears: which will not hear the voice of the charmers; nor of the wizard that charmeth wisely. God has broken their teeth in their mouth: the Lord has broken the grinders of the lions. They shall come to nothing, like water running down; he hath bent his bow till they be weakened.

On these violent verses, driving home the typology of Christ as the fulfillment of David, Cassiodorus ratchets up the theological impact of the psalm’s already terrifying imagery:

Dixit *aspides*, dixit *leones*: nunc venit ad torrentes, qui hiemalibus imbribus concitati, subita inundatione descendunt. In hoc terribiles, quia improvisi; in hoc periculosi, quia praecipites. Sed mox ut impetu transeunte, quasi atrocia colla posuerint, sereno caelo deficiunt, qui nubibus compluentibus intumescunt. Quae figura dicitur *synathroismos*, id est congregatio, ubi multas res et crimina sub aliqua narratione colligimus. O inaudita saevitia Iudaeorum!

Comparantur illis tot ingentia mala, unde immania novimus venire pericula. (*Exp. ps.*, ed. Adriaen, 1: 516)

He has mentioned “asps,” he has mentioned “lions”; now he comes to the torrents which, hurled down from wintry storms, descend in a sudden flood. They are frightful because unforeseen, dangerous because precipitate. But later when the violence passes, the ridges swollen with raining clouds will have set aside, as it were, their savagery and they subside with the brightening sky. This figure is called *synathroesmos*, that is, *congregatio*, where we gather together many actions and crimes under one narrative. O the unthinkable savagery of the Jews. To them are likened such terrible forces from which come monstrous dangers, as we know.

The typological reading and the execration of the Jews are such commonplaces in the *Expositio* that they have already become exegetically self-evident. The passage is therefore an easy candidate for commentary on style as a stimulus to fear.

Of course, not every instance of a figure noted is expressly emotional. Many of the comments on figures simply elucidate uncommon syntax or a potentially confusing meaning. But even in cases like these, the explanation can attend a verse whose very construction can be interpreted as a fearful warning, as in the following example of polysyndeton (Psalm 82:7–9):

Tabernacula Idumaeorum et Ismahelitem. Moab et Agareni, Gebal et Ammon et Amalec; et alienigenae cum habitantibus Tyrum. Etenim Assur simul venit cum illis: facti sunt in susceptionem filiis Lot. Enumeratio istorum nominum quam hi tres versus amplectuntur, Christi declarat inimicos, quorum significationes aperiamus, ut omnia temporibus Antichristi congruere videantur...Haec enim turba perditorum quae sub Antichristo congreganda est, allusione talium nominum evidenter expressa est, ut merito tot malorum vocabula in illa intellegeres plebe congesta. Meminisse autem debemus hos versus per figuram polysyntheton fuisse decursos; quos si sollicite relegas, reperies eos multis coniunctionibus esse copulatos. (*Exp. ps.*, ed. Adriaen 2: 764)

The tabernacles of the Edomites and the Ismahelites. Moab and the Agarens, Gebal and Ammon and Amalec: and foreigners with the inhabitants of Tyre. Yea, and the Assyrian also is joined with them: they are come to the support of the sons of Lot. The enumeration of the names included in these three verses makes known the enemies of Christ. Let us explain their meanings, so that they may all be shown to correspond with the times of the Antichrist...The multitude of the lost which is to congregate under the Antichrist is clearly expressed by allusion to names such as these, so that you might see the names for such a number of sinners rightly amassed in that crowd. We should recall that these verses have been melded together by means of the figure polysyndeton; if you reread them carefully you will find that they are connected by many conjunctions.

The organization of syntax through polysyndeton, a figure of diction, is charged with dreadful force: for as Cassiodorus implies, the copulatives impose control on the enumeration of the names of Christ’s enemies even as the list grows to terrifying proportions. There are similar effects to be

extracted from forms of repetition (*anaphora*, *epembasis*, *epanalepsis*) and from the frequently cited *exclamatio*.⁴⁸

In their totality, the psalms are revealed as persuasive oratory, not because they affect us (that is assumed), but because we are shown why those effects take hold. While the psalms engage the range of emotions, from anger, fear, sorrow, and hate to joy and pity, the greatest intensity of passionate response is centered in love—love ultimately, of course, for Christ, but in an immediate way, love for the psalms themselves as agents of spiritual teaching. Through the patient and minute disclosing of their rhetorical secrets, especially of the affective dimension of their style, they become objects of a certain aesthetic devotion. This devotion will be more than the literary appreciation for Virgil that Macrobius seeks to inculcate in his readers because its goal is spiritual redemption; but it shares the same platform with Macrobius' *Saturnalia* in taking the text itself as an object of love.

What can Augustine, Macrobius, and Cassiodorus, taken together, tell us about the ethical recalculation of style as an engine of emotional knowledge in rhetoric? Most obviously, all of them show how to read a text for love of it: that is, in unveiling the text's rhetorical secrets, they teach love of the text. This is an ethics of emotional reading. True, Augustine's *De doctrina christiana* book 4 gives a prescriptive rhetoric in a way that neither Macrobius nor Cassiodorus attempt. In Augustine's rhetoric, the scriptural text will be a stylistic model for new oratorical production. In this it has something in common with the figural rhetorics of the late empire, which invoke Cicero's speeches as models for potential imitation. But for Augustine, before Scripture is a stylistic model for new evangelists, it is the very ground of readerly response, that which in itself, without any instrumental purpose, evokes wonder and passion in its readers. Thus Augustine's rhetorical reading of Scripture also recalls the literariness of the figural rhetorics, which conserve appreciation for classical texts by reminding students of their stylistic power. This, I have suggested, is a striking feature of the figural manuals. But in Augustine's rhetoric the dynamic is much more acute: he places enormous value on the preacher's own response to the affective force of Scripture. Scripture will move readers at a level that is almost unteachable, although the linguistic devices that carry this intensity can be explained. He also conveys this conception of affective reading to Cassiodorus and from thence to the monastic culture

of the psalter that was the legacy of Cassiodorus' *Expositio*. In terms of their classical literary subject matter, the connection between Macrobius and the imperial rhetorics is direct. But the completeness of the ethical lesson that Macrobius teaches about emotion and rhetoric, especially style, places him in the line of development from Augustine to Cassiodorus.

Augustine, Macrobius, and Cassiodorus all recover and reinterpret a teaching that had been essential to classical rhetorical thought, but that had become less audible through the centuries as the influence of Cicero's *De oratore* and Quintilian's *Institutio oratoria* had declined in favor of more streamlined manuals: the speaker's own investment in the emotions that he wishes to convey to his audience. Toward the beginning of book 6 of *Institutio oratoria*, Quintilian had expressed this with the greatest urgency: "it is as if the very soul and life of this profession is in the emotions...in terms of arousing emotions, the essence, in my opinion, is that we ourselves are moved" (6.2.7, 6.2.26, cf. Cicero, *De oratore*, 2.45.189). Quintilian's pronouncement follows upon his famous proem to book 6 in which he recounts his grief upon the death of his beloved son, to whom he had hoped to pass on his expertise in rhetoric and whose loss has thrown him into a state of despair, delaying his labors on his treatise. His elaboration of a theory of emotion develops out of his treatment of the peroration (6.1), where the orator must move a judge to believe what he, the orator, believes, and it leads into a discussion of the means through which the orator can feel the emotions that he must stir in a judge, through the natural imaginative capacity of *phantasia* or *enargeia*, that is, "visualizing" (6.2.29–36).

In their teaching of affective reading, Augustine, Macrobius, and Cassiodorus resurrect this classical principle. But it appears under a new guise. They offer, not a speaker who feels the emotion that he produces in his audience, but an interpreter who shares in the emotion of the text with his readers.⁴⁹ Where classical theory could take for granted the rhetorical situation of speaker–discourse–audience, the post-classical exegetical context transforms this into a new communicative model, interpreter–text–reader. Rhetorical commentary on canonical texts, whether Scripture or Virgil, restores the ethical conditions of emotional response, but also reshapes those conditions: now the interpreter (teacher) and his reader (student) are imagined as sharing the emotional truth of the text in an equal way, whether through desire for salvation (Augustine, Cassiodorus) or valuing of aesthetic and moral effect (Macrobius). Even if the mundane

hierarchy of teacher–student remains in force, interpreter and reader are equals in their affective responses to the salvific or aesthetic text. Thus, for example, Augustine’s response to the emotive power of scriptural style is universalized: it is not a response that he imposes on readers, although by elucidating the technical rhetorical craft that achieves such effects he can teach readers why both he and they are moved by the text.

The principle of shared emotional response between interpreter and reader, whether toward spiritual or aesthetic ends, could restore the ethical claims of style as the rhetorical agent of affective impact. In this domain, style is not a contingent, merely refractive or ornamental function, but as strong a foundation as any within the rhetorical system because it leads to the apprehension of a truth.

Our question then must be: how far and where does this reach in the future progression of rhetorical thought? Augustine and Cassiodorus surely conferred a Christian authority on rhetorical study and advanced the principle that emotion is the property of style. But even as their rhetorical teachings had a long influence, the extent to which the accompanying ethical sensibilities took hold with later writers is not easy to determine. On the surface, the procedures used by Augustine and Cassiodorus also look a great deal like that of the imperial rhetorics (for good reason—they were products of it). Thus their stylistic teaching could simply be absorbed into the larger technical tradition of which they were also a part. The ethical premise that explicitly informed their rhetorical understanding and differentiated them from their technographic sources, the idea that style inculcates affection for the text, was not necessarily the lesson that later writers derived from their teaching or considered it necessary to reiterate.

2.4 From Isidore to Bede: Regression and Internalization

There is no better example of this tendency in the medieval reception of late classical rhetoric than Isidore of Seville’s extremely influential compendium of the figures. Isidore’s treatment of style reverts entirely to the technographic character of the imperial handbooks. His treatment of figures in books 1 and 2 of the *Etymologiae* (c.625), that is, first under grammar and then under rhetoric, recapitulates the enumerative structures

of many of his sources. His summary of the figures of speech and the tropes in book 1 on grammar is closely linked with the corresponding material in Donatus' *Ars maior* 3; the chapter covering both figures of speech and figures of thought in book 2 on rhetoric has diverse sources, especially Quintilian's *Institutio oratoria* (or an intermediary of it) and the figural handbooks, but also Servius' commentary on Virgil and related grammatical scholia.⁵⁰ His account of the inventional system of rhetoric in book 2 depends at times word for word on the rhetoric chapter in Cassiodorus' *Institutiones*.⁵¹ But it is telling that when Isidore needed to supplement the material of Cassiodorus with information on the figures (which Cassiodorus did not treat in the *Institutiones*), he turned to the formats established in the imperial handbooks.

Isidore has internalized the program of the imperial handbooks, so much so that his survey of the figures of thought in book 2 can look like it belongs to that earlier period. He explains the favorite figures of the rhetoricians—including *synathroesmos* (21.40), *parrhesia* or speaking candidly (21.31), and *epanalepsis* or a form of repetition (21.36)—in terms of the emotional states they convey and often illustrates them with choice passages (mainly from Virgil). The main function of his grammatical figures of thought is to represent different emotional pitches: these are characterized through their grammatical roles, such as to make a declaration, to utter an imperative, to express surprise, to make a comparison, to pronounce superlatives (“quae cum aliquo motu animi et indignatione promuntur,” 2.21.16), or to voice an optative, a dismissal, an exclamation, or an exhortation (2.21.15–26).⁵² This sequence in Isidore can be traced back to Quintilian's discussion of amplification and *sententiae* (8.4–5).

But what we do not have, in Isidore's supremely influential synthesis of the ancient and late antique tradition on the figures, is a visible sense of the ethics of style that Augustine, Macrobius, and Cassiodorus recovered, each in their own ways, from Cicero and Quintilian. That is, there is no shared emotional investment between orator (or interpreter) and audience, no inculcating of affection for the text that illustrates the precept, and no universalizing of affective response to the text.

The reception of the tradition by Bede in his *De schematibus et tropis* (c.710) is more ambiguous than what we find in Isidore. Like Cassiodorus, Bede uses Scripture as a repository of the secular arts that are themselves

propaedeutic to sacred reading and to performing the Divine Office. But the affective beauty of scriptural language, which Cassiodorus was often at pains to observe in the psalms and communicate explicitly to his readers, seems to be just beyond the horizon of what Bede expresses in his account of the figures and tropes. While Cassiodorus furnished him with examples, Bede's method seems closer to that of his recent predecessor Isidore, and even closer to that of his older authority Donatus, who is the ultimate source for most of his definitions of figures. Donatus, in fact, supplies the template for what is covered in *De schematibus et tropis*; Bede follows Donatus in treating only figures of speech and tropes and in the order that he treats them. But the ancestry of *De schematibus* is also complicated by the shadowy late antique tradition of the "Christianized Donatus," an early revision, now lost, of Donatus' *Ars maior* that augmented it with examples from Scripture and Christian authors to illustrate the grammatical precepts. This Christianized *ars grammatica* may be the common ancestor of a number of grammatical works from the sixth through the eighth centuries, including the *De vitiis et figuris* that was at some point ascribed to Julian of Toledo, and especially Bede's *De arte metrica* and *De schematibus et tropis*.⁵³ Thus despite Bede's method, the Christianization of the secular arts links him again with Cassiodorus, who also both draws from Donatus and exchanges Virgil for Scripture to teach figurative language.

Bede's direct knowledge of the *Expositio psalmorum* is securely attested across his writings and especially in *De schematibus et tropis*.⁵⁴ While Bede does not rely exclusively on Cassiodorus for scriptural examples of figures, his indebtedness to the spirit of that source is clear: he seems to take a cue from Cassiodorus that the more emotive the illustration the more commanding the technical teaching. His use of Cassiodorus is concentrated in the section on the figures of speech; his discussion of the tropes tends toward doctrinal questions, and thus here he turns more commonly to Augustine, Jerome, Cassian, and Gregory. Looking closely at his method of expounding the figures of speech tells us a great deal about his process of synthesizing not just information but also assumptions and systems of thought.

One example is the entry for *zeugma*: here he prefers the definition (or wording) found in Cassiodorus' exposition of Psalm 14, then he provides a stirring illustration of the figure from Paul's letter to the Ephesians, and next, as if looping back to the preceptive source, submits as an example the

passage in Psalm 14 which was the locus in Cassiodorus for the definition of *zeugma*:

Zeugma, id est, coniunctio, dicitur figura, quando multa pendentia aut uno verbo aut una sententia concluduntur [cf. Cassiodorus, *Exp. ps.*, ed. Adriaen, 1: 136]. Verbo, ut Apostolus ait: “Omnis amaritudo et ira et indignatio et clamor et blasphemia tollatur a vobis” [Ephesians 4:31]. Sententia autem, ut psalmista praeponens: “Qui ingreditur sine macula et operatur iustitiam; qui loquitur veritatem in corde suo,” et cetera, ad ultimum ita concludit: “Qui facit haec non movebitur in aeternum” [Psalm 14:2–3, 5].⁵⁵

The figure is called *zeugma*, that is, a joining, when many dependent terms are brought to a conclusion with one word or one phrase. By a word, as when the Apostle says, “Let all bitterness, and anger, and indignation, and clamour, and blasphemy be put away from you.” By a phrase, as when the Psalmist begins, “he that walketh without blemish and worketh justice; he that speaketh truth in his heart,” and so forth to the end where he concludes, “He that doth these things shall not be moved for ever [from the tabernacle of the Lord].”

While at Psalm 14:5 Cassiodorus also explains that this example of *zeugma* only applies to its use with a phrase, and promises to call attention at some later point to uses of it with a word, Bede supplies a use with one word (from Ephesians) and then returns to the locus in Cassiodorus’ commentary where it is applied to a *sententia* or phrase. But he also seems to have registered the emotional impact of the figure when it is used in the psalm, because he finds an equally affective example for the occurrence of *zeugma* with a single word, the passage from Ephesians.

Another good example of reliance on Cassiodorus is *homeoptoton*, or similar case endings:

Omoeoptoton est, cum in similes sonos exeunt dicta plurima [cf. Cassiodorus., *Exp. ps.* 97, ed. Adriaen, 2: 878; Donatus, *Ars maior* 3.5], ut: “Cantate, exultate, et psallite” [Psalm 97:4]. Et Hiezechiel: “Quod si genuerit filium latronem, effundentem sanguinem,” et paulo post, “in montibus comedentem, et uxorem proximi sui polluentem, egenum et pauperem contristantem, rapientem rapinas, pignus non reddentem, et ad idola levantem oculos suos, abominationem facientem, ad usuram dantem et amplius accipientem; numquid vivet? Non vivet.”

(Ezekiel 18:10, 11–13; *De schematibus*, ed. Kendall, p. 150)

Homoeoptoton is when many words end in similar sounds, as in “make melody, rejoice, and sing.” And Ezechiel: “And if he beget a son that is a robber, a shedder of blood,” and a bit afterwards, “that eateth upon the mountains, and that defileth his neighbor’s wife; that grieveth the needy and the poor, that taketh away by violence, that restoreth not the pledge, and that lifteth up his eyes to idols, that committeth abomination; that giveth upon usury and that taketh an increase; shall such a one live? He shall not live.”

This is an interesting example because Bede prefers Cassiodorus' explanation, which Cassiodorus took nearly verbatim from Donatus, changing one significant word: where Donatus says "in similes casus exeunt" (they end in like cases), Cassiodorus has substituted "in similes sonos" (in like sounds).⁵⁶ In treating the psalms, of course, Cassiodorus wants to stress the aural quality of this figure, since the singing of the psalms was fundamental to any monastic regime (such as his own foundation at Squillace). And at that point in Psalm 97, a psalm of joy whose music, Cassiodorus says, is meant "to touch" (*mulcere*) the senses of the ear and so "to stir" (*provocare*) the heart of the hearer,⁵⁷ the words "iubilare, cantate et exsultate, et psallite," as heard by the monks singing, will actualize and perform the purpose of this figure. Cassiodorus' substitution of "in similes sonos" for Donatus' "in similes casus" is also apparently original with him: all of the possible sources, whether from grammatical or rhetorical treatises, define *homoeoptoton* according to case endings (*casus*), and none of them mentions sounds. This is because *homoeoptoton* was traditionally distinguished from a similar figure, *homoeoteleuton*, in strictly grammatical terms: *homoeoptoton* concerned the declensions of nouns (similar case endings), while *homoeoteleuton* applied to indeclinable words and verbs.⁵⁸ That Cassiodorus uses *homoeoptoton* loosely to refer to verbs in the imperative form ("iubilare, cantate et exsultate, et psallite,"), when he might have used *homoeoteleuton* here, is less important than the fact that he shifts attention from grammatical form (*casus*) to phonic resonance (*sonus*). And that, I believe, is how Bede comes to prefer the definition offered by Cassiodorus.

There is some irony that Cassiodorus would supply Bede with a revision that so aptly reflects the embedding of song in monastic life. Unlike Cassiodorus, who fiercely embraced monastic retirement late in life after a long and often turbulent public career, Bede was a thorough product of monastic life, and from his from childhood onward the psalms were "at the heart of his life in 'the daily task of singing in the church.'"⁵⁹ But it was Cassiodorus' decisive reconditioning of rhetoric to serve the liturgical culture of his monastic community that served Bede well. Here and elsewhere we see Bede working with the template of the figures of speech provided by Donatus, but scanning the pages of the *Expositio psalmorum* to search out good examples from the psalter, at times co-opting Cassiodorus'

particular wording for the definitions, and often also adding another exemplary passage recalled from elsewhere in Scripture.⁶⁰

How are we to account for Bede's *De schematibus et tropis* in the tradition of teaching style? Bede's approach has the marks of a decisive turning point in the tradition, a critical juncture at which the ethical inheritance of classical and patristic thought about rhetorical style might have been remarked and even elaborated for wider medieval audiences, but at which, instead, what prevailed was the formal appearance of the imperial rhetorics, with their schematic lessons. All the evidence points to Bede's close engagement with the material of Cassiodorus' *Expositio psalmorum*, and even at times (as with *homoeoptoton*, above) to a cognizance of Cassiodorus' intention to foreground the sensory, aesthetic, and thus emotional value of scriptural style. In other words, Bede seems to take note of those pressure points where Cassiodorus shares his feelings about the beauty of the psalter with his readers. This is the ethical dimension of style in Cassiodorus, in Augustine before him, even in Macrobius, and ultimately in Cicero and Quintilian. This is what would save rhetorical style from censure as suspect surface, decorative and charming to the ear but potentially distracting or even deceptive.

But Bede does not enter explicitly into this dimension of Cassiodorus' exposition. Rather, he reverts (as Isidore had done) to the method of the imperial handbooks of style and Donatus' account of the figures: all of these share the method of dry precept plus vivid illustration. Like Donatus and most of the handbooks, Bede offers no explanation of the power of style to inculcate a love for the texts that—in the case of Christian Scripture—is to be shared by a devotional communion. Emotion is certainly not absent from Bede's understanding of style, just as it is not absent from the handbooks, if we read them correctly and recognize how much is implicit there in the choice of illustration from beloved canonical texts. Thus also one has to read Bede correctly, and it is easy to miss in Bede, just as it is in the imperial manuals, the principle that guides the method: that the success of the lesson depends on a prepared emotional field. Readers who have been in the past moved by a canonical text are now being told why they were so moved. As we have seen, this method "reverses the tape": it does not analyze the future production of emotion, but rather names the device deployed to trigger an emotion that has already been felt by generations of readers. Yet we must ask why Bede reverts to this method when he had

Cassiodorus' much more self-reflexive text to hand. Since, like Cassiodorus, Bede has substituted Scripture for Virgil and Cicero, why does he not overtly join style to an ethical imperative?

The reason lies in the very history of rhetorical culture. For Cassiodorus, Scripture had needed direct aesthetic justification. Cassiodorus, "one of the last completely rhetorical men,"⁶¹ had wilfully transferred his aesthetic allegiance from a secular culture of elite letters to the mysterious simplicity of the psalter. He made explicit ethical claims about style, not because his own religious conviction was uncertain, and not because he imagined a readership that would need such justification, but rather because of his own strong rhetorical background and his lifetime immersion in classical rhetorical thought. There may also be more contingent biographical reasons for the aesthetic explanations that Cassiodorus supplies: this was the first religious work he had written and he was conscious of bringing secular models to bear on Christian learning; and at the time of beginning the *Expositio psalmorum* he had not yet been absorbed into the monastic regime for which he and his text were destined. But these are secondary to the historical transition epitomized in Cassiodorus' own career. Embarking on a sacred commentary, he will not only read the psalms through a rhetorical lens, but he will transfer the moral foundations of classical rhetoric to establish a new edifice of affective commonality among those with whom he shares the psalms.

It is when we compare Cassiodorus with his reverent inheritor Bede that we can appreciate how Cassiodorus balanced—or occupied—two worlds at once, a classical world view that he brought with him into a commentary designed for monastic use and instruction. By contrast, the monastic environment in which Bede lived his whole life was imbued with the formal and affective power of Scripture, especially the psalter, and the aesthetic justification of the psalms as a rhetoric of devotion, contrition, and joy was no longer necessary. He can assume that the love for Scripture, and especially affection for the psalter, is already in place. Bede did not have to affirm—for himself or for his readers—the affective beauty of Scripture. In the monastic regime that he served, Scripture was naturally the standard of any education into letters. Bede's mentor Benedict Biscop had introduced the Roman order of chanting and singing the psalms at Wearmouth-Jarrow around 680, just as Bede was entering the monastery as a young boy.⁶² Thus for Bede, these practices were engrained since childhood and in

writing his educational works he was passing on monastic habits of reading, reciting, singing, and understanding Scripture: the product would be what Jean Leclercq has famously described as meditative devotion, a wisdom and knowledge inscribed in the memory, and exegesis through automatic reminiscence.⁶³ As a poetry to be internalized, the psalms offered, on Bede's view, not only moral and doctrinal teaching, but direct emotional application to contemporary life, illuminating "daily experience in Northumbria in his own time...To use the words of the psalms to articulate present terror and grief, as well as joy and wonder, is to discover through the psalms hope beyond hope."⁶⁴ Cassiodorus had insisted on the ethical value of affective style, not because the monastic outlook that he envisioned at Vivarium was qualitatively different from Bede's at Jarrow, but because that was what his classical rhetorical training supported. But Bede did not have that imperial Roman education and does not approach his own task with one foot in the classical world.⁶⁵

Rather, in the *Expositio psalmorum* Bede finds a form of figural exposition readily familiar to him from the basic grammatical equipment of the previous centuries, that is, Donatus and the "Christianized Donatus," and from the summations of those materials in Julian of Toledo and Isidore. And at the same time, he assumes that his contextual environment will add meaning and ethical value. To be sure, the spiritual virtues of intimate emotion associated with the psalms are never in question, and are recognized and appreciated by those who follow Bede, notably Alcuin.⁶⁶ But the particular idea that style itself must carry an ethical import through a shared emotional response between speaker and audience, writer and reader, teacher and student, or preacher and congregation, is never expressed by Bede in *De schematibus et tropis* because it did not need to be expressed: context would supply the values that were left unexpressed.

Thus doctrinally, it is necessary for Bede only to affirm the superiority of scriptural truth to any secular knowledge, and the temporal priority of Scripture to any secular codifications of knowledge. The arts were already in Scripture before their rules were set down by secular teachers. Thus secular arts are useful only because they provide the schematic, technical accounts of what originated in divine writing. As Bede explains in the famous remarks at the opening of the treatise:

Solet aliquoties in scripturis ordo verborum causa decoris aliter quam vulgaris via dicendi habet figuratus inveniri. Quod grammatici graece schema vocant, nos habitum vel formam vel figuram recte nominamus, quia per hoc quodam modo vestitur et ornatur oratio. Solet iterum tropica locutio reperiri, quae fit translata dictione a propria significatione ad non propriam similitudinem necessitatis aut ornatus gratia. Et quidem glorianatur graeci talium se figurarum sive troporum fuisse repertoires. Sed ut cognoscas, dilectissime fili, cognoscant omnes qui haec legere voluerint quia sancta scriptura ceteris omnibus scripturis non solum auctoritate, quia divina est, vel utilitate, quia ad vitam ducit aeternam, sed et antiquitate et ipsa praeeminet positione dicendi, placuit mihi collectis de ipsa exemplis ostendere quia nihil huiusmodi schematum sive troporum valent praetendere saecularis eloquentiae magistri, quod non in illa praecesserit.

(*De schematibus*, ed. Kendall, pp. 142–3)

We often find that the order of words in the Scriptures is, for the sake of embellishment, arranged differently from what is found in common usage. What the Greek grammarians call *schema* we rightly call a “presentation” [*habitus*], or a “formal character” [*forma*], or a “figure,” because in this way speech is (as it were) clothed and adorned. It is also common to find language that uses tropes, when a word is transferred from its proper signification to a likeness that is not proper to it, either out of necessity or for the sake of ornamentation. The Greeks certainly pride themselves on having been the inventors of such figures and tropes. But, my beloved son, so that you and all who desire to read these words may know that holy Scripture surpasses all other writings, not only for its authority, because it is divine, or for its utility, because it leads to eternal life, but also for its antiquity and its very deployment of language, I have resolved to demonstrate, by means of examples gathered from that source itself, that the masters of secular eloquence are not able to offer up any kind of figure or trope which was not already there in Scripture.

This may draw its ideas about Scripture as the original locus of all knowledge from Cassiodorus and Augustine (and the patristic writers themselves had borrowed this idea from Hellenistic Jewish sources). But in terms of its teaching about style, Bede essentially rehearses the standard precepts from Donatus and other grammatical sources: the figures and tropes are for decoration.⁶⁷ This is also the idea found in most of the rhetorical handbooks of figures.⁶⁸ Bede gives us nothing comparable to Cassiodorus’ remarkable simile comparing a rhetorical figure with a human face that shares its reactions with us. Perhaps the ethical lessons of his master have been internalized so profoundly that they seem to need no repeating.

The outcome in terms of the reception history of *De schematibus et tropis*, and the future of stylistic teaching in the Middle Ages, is important. Bede’s handbook, depending as it does on activating an immediate context to add value and meaning to stylistic teaching, presents a formal program that can be hostage to the interests and inattentiveness of any future audiences it reaches. Like the imperial handbooks, *De schematibus et tropis*

passes down information about style without articulating how affective style must be anchored in a mutual emotional investment between speaker and audience, or how style inculcates affection for the text itself. Thus it is not surprising that later readers would use Bede in the same way that they might use Donatus on the figures and tropes or (if available) the imperial handbooks: as epitomized instruction with helpful illustrations drawn from well-known texts. This is certainly how Bede's text reads to modern audiences, who are likely to regard it (however wrongly) as another example of a dry didactic treatise on a subject whose very purpose or intrinsic interest moderns struggle to understand. And we also cannot be surprised if later medieval readers even projected back onto Cassiodorus what they saw in Bede: a useful index of the figures and tropes.

De schematibus et tropis survives in over sixty manuscripts, over half of which are post-Carolingian (from the eleventh to the sixteenth centuries). It had a strong continental presence (and probably an English one too, although only a fraction of what was produced in early English scriptoria survives now), and became one of the staples of the monastic schoolroom. It is thus a distant ancestor of later medieval treatments of figurative language in the arts of letter writing and arts of poetry. But its theoretical influence is difficult to capture, perhaps because its practical usefulness as a Christianized epitome of eloquence overshadowed the assumptions that are latent in it. We do not find it in the places where we might expect to see it, for example, in Hrabanus Maurus' treatment of figurative language in his *De institutione clericorum*. Hrabanus in fact takes his theoretical matter on the figures from Augustine.⁶⁹

But something of the impact of Bede's pared down (or highly internalized) account can be seen in the early twelfth-century encyclopedic history by the Rhineland monk Rupert of Deutz, *De sancte trinitate et operibus eius* (1112–16). In this massive work, the arts of the trivium and quadrivium occupy a very small place. Rupert's only mention of the figures is in the remarkably short section on grammar. Apparently impatient with the long lists of figures, he will give a general definition and then an example of one figure, using *prolepsis*, which comes first in the traditional grammatical lists. He takes all of these, almost word for word, including the choice of scriptural passage, from the opening of Bede's *De schematibus*:

Schemata quoque, quod nomen graecum, nos habitum vel formam vel figuram recte nominamus, quia per haec quodammodo vestitur et ornatur oratio [cf. *De schematibus*, p.

142.4–6], cognoscere licet in sancta Scriptura passim reperiri, ut est illud in psalmo: *Fundamenta eius in montibus sanctis, diligit Dominus portas Sion* [Psalm 86:1; cf. *De schematibus*, p. 143.27]. Hoc schema prolepsis, id est praeoccupatio sive praesumptio dicitur, quando ea quae sequi debent anteponuntur [cf. *De schematibus*, p. 143.25]. Ante anim posuit, *eius*, dicendo: *Fundamenta eius*, et postea cuius, id est Domini [cf. *De schematibus* p. 144.28–9], subiungendo, *diligit Dominus*. Sic et cetera schemata sive schematis species in sancta Scriptura sparsim inveniuntur. Et quidem glorianatur Graeci talium se figurarum sive troporum fuisse repertoires, sed cum sancta Scriptura ceteris scripturis omnibus non solum auctoritate, quia divina est, vel utilitate, quia ad vitam ducit aeternam, sed et antiquitate praemineat, non solum vana, sed et falsa haec eorum gloriatio est [cf. *De schematibus* pp. 142–143.11–19].⁷⁰

Schemes, which is a Greek word, and which we rightly call a “presentation,” or a “formal character,” or a “figure,” because in this way speech is (as it were) clothed and adorned, may properly be found ready for discovery everywhere in Holy Scripture, as for example in the psalm: *Fundamenta eius in montibus sanctis, diligit Dominus portas Sion* [His own buildings in the sacred hills, the Lord loves the gates of Sion]. This figure is called *prolepsis*, that is, *praeoccupatio* or *praesumptio*, when those words which ought to follow are placed in front. He placed the word *eius* [his] in front, saying *fundamenta eius* [his own building], subjoining to it afterwards whose it was, that is God’s, *diligit Dominus* [the Lord loves]. This and other figures or kinds of schemes are found everywhere in Holy Scripture. The Greeks pride themselves so much on having been the inventors of such figures and tropes; but since Holy Scripture surpasses all other writings, not only for its authority, because it is divine, or for its utility, because it leads to eternal life, but also for its antiquity, their pride is not only vain but also false.⁷¹

This is the extent of his account of figures. For the monastic Rupert there is nothing left even of the shadow of affective application that is to be detected in Bede. Bede’s *De schematibus* has become here nothing more than a Christianized Donatus, a convenient epitome that Rupert can further truncate. Cassiodorus’ passionate belief that scriptural eloquence speaks to heart and spirit, something that Bede internalized but did not explain, has receded so far into the background that it is now inaccessible, even to a later participant in that monastic tradition.

Through the long yet often occluded influence of the imperial handbooks of figures, whether rhetorical or grammatical, the teaching of style passed into the Middle Ages as the elementary pedagogy par excellence. The theory of recognizing and producing emotion, gradually detached from the core of rhetorical thought, increasingly attached itself to style. Style as emotional trigger was invested with ethical value in the early Christian period; but that ethical dimension was not explicitly carried through by the transitional figures of the early Middle Ages, who either did not recognize it or for whom it was so self-evident that it hardly needed stating. The dominant pedagogical imperative of providing tools tended to

overshadow the ethically stabilizing contributions of Christian late antiquity. Thus what the Middle Ages was to build on was a pedagogical method inherited ultimately from the fourth-century handbooks, a program that had essentially cut style free from other controls of rhetorical thought.

The rhetorical “theory” of scriptural style, shaped by Augustine and Cassiodorus and mediated most importantly by Bede, is not some kind of petrified doctrine that remains remote from practice. It is absorbed into practices of pious, devotional reading and remembering of Scripture: such “traditions of piety” also become part of the history of rhetoric.⁷² Naturalized in this way, it did not need continuous theorizing or conscientious reference to classical rhetorical doctrine. Moreover, those who transferred the precepts of reading into precepts of composition could do so without an articulated theory of how style produces emotion. Yet at the same time, the appreciation of rhetorical style was vulnerable to pious censure, especially in the absence of the powerful ethical qualifications that Cassiodorus had supplied. If Bede had absorbed those qualifications into his own intuitive, contextual understanding, he did not reiterate and thus reinforce them.

2.5 Ambiguous Impact: Onulf of Speyer

One example of the vulnerability of affective rhetoric when it is restricted to the domain of style is the paradoxical repudiation and embrace of stylistic teaching in the treatise *Rethorici colores* by the cathedral school teacher Onulf of Speyer. The work has been dated in Cornelia Linde’s critical edition to the early twelfth century, sometime after 1114; it survives in only one manuscript from the second quarter of the twelfth century.⁷³ Thus the work is part of the revival of classical Ciceronianism in the cathedral schools during the earliest years of the twelfth century, sharing with the slightly earlier *De ornamentis verborum* by Marbod of Rennes (late eleventh century) a new preference for the *Rhetorica ad Herennium* as an authoritative source on the figures. Onulf’s treatise, like Marbod’s, focuses on the figures of speech and follows the order and definitions found in the *Rhetorica ad Herennium*. Onulf’s *Rethorici colores* is a particularly allusive text, steeped self-consciously in classical learning.⁷⁴ But it is difficult to

determine out of what primary rhetorical context, apart from the *Ad Herennium*, Onulf developed his work. Roughly the first three-quarters of the treatise are in prose, and the remaining portion in verse: in the opening prose section Onulf treats twenty-six figures of speech, and in the unfinished verse section he returns to twenty-four of the figures previously defined to place those now in memorable metrical settings. As a work partly in verse it has something formally in common with one of the imperial rhetorics, the *Carmen de figuris*; it has a similar formal link with Marbod's verse treatise.⁷⁵ Yet Onulf's determinedly negative perspective on the value of style when weighed against salvation is strangely unprecedented: John Ward has described it as an "anti-rhetoric," while Martin Camargo suggests that its subordination of aesthetics to ethics accounts for its failure to find any influence as a preceptive treatise.⁷⁶ Not even Augustine is as grudging as Onulf in his devaluations of worldly rhetoric: for Augustine, as we have seen, rhetorical teaching on style still has a place (albeit not pride of place) in preparation for preaching, because Scripture is itself imprinted with a stylistic knowledge that underwrites its persuasive power and brings readers together in a shared affective response. By contrast, Onulf offers no explicit ethical justification for style, even though he often discovers his language of illustration in sacred sources; rather, he uses the precepts he takes from *Rhetorica ad Herennium* to present worldly rhetoric and its attention to charm as a foil for abiding spiritual values.

Onulf says that he wrote his treatise at the request of a monastic teacher who was responsible for the instruction of young pupils (I.13, II.13) and who had asked to borrow some kind of textbook (*libellus*) (I.24) that would help him teach the fundamentals of style as well as reading of the classical authors. Onulf responds instead with a new treatise that at once rehearses the content and interrogates the ethical value of the kind of teaching found in *Rhetorica ad Herennium* book 4. The prologue already sounds the double-edged teaching:⁷⁷

Certe, quod dignitas oratoria per duas species, verborum videlicet exornationem et sententiarum, distribuitur [cf. *Ad Her.* 4.13.18], sive scias, sive nescias, in tremendo illius ultime, districtionis examine tua nichil interesse cognoscas.⁷⁸

Indeed, insofar as a distinctive style operates through two species, namely embellishment of words and of thoughts, whether you know this difference or you don't, you should know that it makes no difference [for your soul] when you are trembling before the judgment of that ultimate punishment.

The information from *Ad Herennium* concerning figures of speech and figures of thought is logged and even illustrated in a complex of sounds, wordplay, and phrasing; but the teaching is ironized (itself a figure of thought) by its comparison with eschatological knowledge, and even by the echoing of Augustinian language (Augustine, *Soliloquia* 1.2, “sive sciens sive nesciens”).⁷⁹

Some examples from the treatments of individual figures will give a good index of the orientation of the whole. For *repetitio*:

Age, age, Tulliana repetitio cum sit prima species exornationis verborum, tue, saluti quid conferre poterit, que, continenter ab uno atque eodem verbo in diversis orationibus principia sumi facit? [cf. *Rhetorica ad Herennium* 4.13.19] Unam, frater, hac neglecta pete semper a Domino! [Augustine, *Serm.* 65A; Psalm 26:4]⁸⁰ Unam hac contempta repete omni devotionis studio! Unam, in qua continentur omnia, sic consequeris in futuro! Ut enim inhabites in domo Domini [Psalm 26:4] per bone, fidei et iuste, operationis obsequium, [cf. Bede, *In cantica canticorum allegoria expositio* 4.6.8] ut videas voluntatem Domini per sancte, contemplacionis desiderium, ut visites templum ipsius [Psalm 26:4] per adeptę, beatitudinis inviolabile premium, disce pium gemine, dilectionis officium [cf. Bede, *De tabernaculo*, book 3⁸¹], disce partis optime, quam Maria sibi consequenter elegit [cf. Luke 10:42], exercitium, disce beatorum civium in celis inestimabile appetere collegium, hoc, quibus indulcescit, omni dulcedine constat esse dulcius, hoc, quibus illucescit, omni patet iocunditate esse iocundius, hoc, si amare singulariter incipies, usus tibi reddit omni suavitate suavius.⁸²

Well, well, since repetition is Tully's first species of embellished speech, will it add to your salvation that it occurs when one and the same word form successive beginnings for different phrases? One thing, brother, despising this, always ask of God! One thing, scorning this, ask again in all the zeal of prayer! One thing, in which is contained all, that you attain in the future! So that you may live in the house of the Lord through obedience of good faith and just works, so that you may see the will of God through desire of holy contemplation, so that you may visit his temple through the sacrosanct gift of coming to blessedness, learn the pious duty of double love [of God and neighbor]; learn of the best part which Mary chose for herself, spiritual exercise; learn to strive for the invaluable company of the blessed who dwell in heaven: this, to those whom it has filled with sweetness, fixes to be sweeter than any sweetness; this, to those whom it has begun to shine, is known to be more delightful than any delight; this, if you begin to love it uniquely, delivers to you an enjoyment more charming than any charm.

Cassiodorus had described *repetitio* as a figure that “magnifies the force of passion,”⁸³ and it is certainly “passion” that Onulf seeks to generate here in this multifold exemplification of the figure. He enfolds a lucid paraphrase of the definition from *Ad Herennium* into a clever illustration of *repetitio*, a passionate exhortation to his monastic friend urging rejection of such rhetorical vanity in favor of prayer, obedience, and contemplation. Here, as elsewhere, he directs our attention from worldly to sacred rhetoric as well

as from worldly to sacred values, larding his explanation with scriptural quotation and exegetical allusion. Yet even as his content undercuts the rhetorical precept offered, his style makes conspicuous use of it: here the word repetitions of “age,” “unam,” “ut,” “disce,” and “quibus,” the more complex syntactic repetitions, and the synonyms for “sweet” that perform rhetorical *suavitas* even as they appropriate it to spiritual enjoyment. His account of *exclamatio* presents a similar method, even more jarring because it exploits the fear-inducing power of the device. Having provided the standard definition of *exclamatio*, he then enjoins his friend to abjure the crafty device as if it is synonymous with all rhetorical underhandedness, and his denunciation rises to exclamatory heights:

O impudentem attrite, frontis et obstinate, mentis audaciam! [cf. Terence, *Heauton Timorumenos* 313] O irreverentem male sani cordis et perverse, curiositatis pertinaciam! O pestiferam dire, voluntatis et diabolice, persuasionis astuciam! [cf. Greg. *Moral.* 23.21.43] Ille, ille mortifera plenus antique, pravitatis invidia rabido rictu *querens, quem devoret*, [1 Peter 5:8] Christi lustrat ovilia. Hinc odium concitat, illinc iras inflammat, causas discordie, seminat, occasiones litis et contencionis generat, [cf. Greg. *Epist.* 9.67; Augustine, *Serm.* 358.6] facit placere, quod displicuerat, displicere, quod placuerat, [cf. Jerome in Nahum 3:7] modis omnibus dominicum gregem infestat.⁸⁴

O impudent audacity of brazen face and obstinate mind! O irreverent impertinence of both sound mind and perverse curiosity! O vile cunning of evil will and diabolical persuasion! That one [the devil], that one, full of deadly spite of ancient depravity, with rabid maw roams the sheepfold of Christ “seeking whom he would devour.” Here he arouses hatred, there he inflames anger, he sows the causes of discord, he creates the occasions of dispute and contention, he makes pleasing what had displeased, he makes displeasing what had pleased, in every way he infests the Lord’s flock.

Onulf’s verse on *exclamatio* is an equally devastating condemnation of emotive style, and equally showy in its stylistic proficiency:

Exclamare libet, premat exclamatio talem.
Tune movebis eos, quos vita quieta iuvaret?
Tune movebis eos? O seva licencia morum!
O claustris fera perniciēs! O perditus ordo!
Te pereunte perit districtio, regula, leges.
O levis, o facilis, levium tibi credere turbam,
Quod modo detrectas, studiosius ante petisti.⁸⁵

It pleases to exclaim; let exclamation overwhelm in this way:
Will you not stir them, whom a quiet life would have pleased?
Will you not stir them? O ferocious license of morals,
O savage mischief of the cloister! O ruined order!
With your ruin perishes strictness, rule, and law.

O fickle one, O good-natured one, to entrust the crowd of the fickle ones to you
What you disparage now you ardently sought before.

However one reads his aim in such passages, Onulf leaves no doubt that style sways emotion. His teaching against rhetoric (if it is that) mines every capacity of rhetorical style to exhort and terrify, but also perhaps to evoke a certain *aemulatio* in his reader, a desire to possess Onulf's own stylistic proficiency. But as we see here, style is vulnerable to the most severe censure—under any moral regime, whether pagan or Christian—if it is not understood as part of a larger system of value. Onulf poses the question “what good is style?” and he is unable to restore an ethical qualification that has long dropped out of the theoretical foreground. His is the very kind of moral uncertainty that greets the emotive capacities of style when they are not anchored to a particular and reiterated moral principle. When absorbed into monastic practice, the sensitivity to the affective power of style needed no explicit justification, as we saw in Bede's *De schematibus et tropis*. But when encountered outside that framework, and especially without the immediate application to the scriptural text, the emotive properties of style become an easy hostage to accusations of vanity, superfluity and, worst of all, guile and pretense. Onulf warns (or at least voices the worry) that the devices most readily linked with emotional fervor will perturb the devout, calm, monastic atmosphere: *exclamatio* will “arouse” hatred, “inflamm[e]” anger, and stir the brothers into a turbulent mob. Onulf's major rhetorical source is the *Rhetorica ad Herennium*; he is on the leading edge of the medieval revival of interest in the *Ad Herennium*, not long after the revival of that ancient work in Marbod of Rennes' *De ornamentis verborum*, and also within about two decades of the earliest *Ad Herennium* commentaries by “Menegaldus” and William of Champeaux (both originating in the late eleventh century).⁸⁶ While Onulf also shows knowledge of Alcuin's *Disputatio de rhetorica*, it is the *Ad Herennium* that dominates his references. Among the medieval authors whom he cites, Bede is most frequently encountered,⁸⁷ but not *De schematibus et tropis*. If Onulf's knowledge of rhetorical figuration is limited to the *Ad Herennium*, it is truly not surprising that he finds no spiritual justification for style. He does not turn the ancient precept to the Bible so as to inculcate affection for the scriptural text (even though he can quote Scripture effectively), and he implies that while the Christian author may command a grand or ornate style, it is always under the shadow of moral danger. Onulf criticizes the

study of rhetoric even as he passes on the teaching most effectively, rediscovering—as if from first principles—how affective style can work.

Onulf's is an exceptional response, but it is telling. He appears to be seeking an ethical contract that he cannot find in his fashionable new source, the *Rhetorica ad Herennium*. But his contemporaries and those of succeeding generations would be eager to embrace a practical stylistics without worrying about moral justification: if the justification was no longer visible, it was nevertheless proper to focus on style, because that focus was also guaranteed—despite the minority misgivings of an Onulf of Speyer—by a long tradition.

The power of style as the medium of pious emotion certainly does not diminish when the pedagogy behind it no longer makes explicit provision for an ethical component. The idea that emotion can be a legitimate and ethically bound property of style can be realized without a pedagogical theory to explain the connection. We see that clearly, for example, in Bernard of Clairvaux's sermons on the Song of Songs, which can achieve a Cassiodorean ideal of the ethical stakes that bind exegete and reader, speaker and hearer, in a passionate response to artful language.⁸⁸ All that we have been considering especially in Augustine and Cassiodorus is there in Bernard's sermons—affective appreciation and emulation of style—even if the theory that the early Christian rhetorics articulated has receded. But without theoretical articulation, the pursuit of style in the interests of emotional impact was also vulnerable to a range of interpretive appropriations. Such is the worry voiced by Heloise when questioning the sufficiency of a “painted” eloquence, and by Abelard when he declares his preference for a plain style that can directly express ethical imperatives.⁸⁹

* * *

Augustine, and especially Cassiodorus, enlarged the category of style to comprehend an ethical motive whose value they made explicit. The style of Scripture moves teacher and student, preacher and congregant, alike, binding them together in a spiritual enterprise. But by the time of Bede, that ethical principle of style was becoming so naturalized through continual educational practice that it seemed to need no direct theoretical expression. The notion that teaching eloquence can serve a moral purpose did not diminish; as C. Stephen Jaeger reminds us, the schools of the early courts

and cathedrals up through the eleventh century saw in eloquence a way of shaping moral character.⁹⁰ But the theory behind the ethics of appreciating rhetorical style received less and less articulation. This could leave style vulnerable to merely perfunctory coverage, as in Rupert of Deutz's account of grammar, or more perilously, to the replete but adversarial approach we see in Onulf of Speyer, who seems to teach style with a guilty conscience. Even the persistent use of Cassiodorus does not seem to have reinforced that ethical motive as an explicit agenda. Whatever traction the early ethical model achieved in theory becomes increasingly hard to locate. But in any case it was to be supplanted by a new paradigm in the professional rhetorics of the eleventh, twelfth, and thirteenth centuries: a revived Ciceronianism in which the aesthetic value of style is ascendant.

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¹ Among influential statements of this theme, see Richard McKeon, "Rhetoric in the Middle Ages," *Speculum* 17 (1942): 1–32; Shuger, *Sacred Rhetoric*, pp. 41–51; David W. Tracy, "Charity, Obscurity, Clarity: Augustine's Search for a True Rhetoric," in Michael Hyde and Walter Jost, eds., *Rhetoric and Hermeneutics in Our Time* (New Haven: Yale University Press, 1997), pp. 254–74; Brian Stock, *Augustine the Reader* (Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1996), pp. 190–206. For Augustine's stylistic practice as an aesthetic turning point, see C. Stephen Jaeger, "Sermo propheticus: Grand Style in the Medieval Sermon from John the Evangelist to Aelred of Rievaulx," *Mittelalterliches Jahrbuch* 55 (2020): 1–39.

² Augustine famously redefines rhetorical proof (*probare*) as teaching (*docere*), and resists the Ciceronian coordination of style and subject matter on the principle that for a Christian orator all subject matter is the same and the choice of level of style—plain, middle, grand—will be determined by the preacher's intention: whether to teach (requiring the plain style), delight (requiring the middle style), or move (the grand style). For details and references, see Rita Copeland, "The Ciceronian Rhetorical Tradition and Medieval Literary Theory," in Virginia Cox and John O. Ward, eds., *The Rhetoric of Cicero in its Medieval and Renaissance Commentary Tradition* (Leiden: Brill, 2006), pp. 239–65. See also the useful commentary by Luigi F. Pizzolato, "Il quarto libro del *De doctrina christiana*: Del proferire," in *Lectio augustini XI, Settimana agostiniana pavese xxvi* (Rome: 1995), pp. 101–19.

³ However, Augustine does not cite Cicero by name, preferring to refer to him as "quidam eloquens" or "noster iste eloquens" (12.27, 15.32).

⁴ Gerald A. Press, "The Subject and Structure of Augustine's *De doctrina christiana*," *Augustinian Studies* 11 (1980): 99–124 (esp. pp. 107–18).

⁵ This is the principle in such influential studies as H.-I. Marrou, *Saint Augustin et la fin de la culture antique* (Paris: E. De Boccard, 1938), pp. 47–83; Maurice Testard, *Saint Augustin et Cicéron* (Paris: Études augustiniennes, 1958); Harald Hagendahl, *Augustine and the Latin Classics* (Göteborg: Acta Universitatis Gothoburgensis, 1967); and Press, "The Subject and Structure of

Augustine's *De doctrina christiana*". The classical rhetoricians also provide the main comparanda in Thérèse Sullivan, *S. Aureli Augustini Hipponiensis episcopi De Doctrina Christiana, Liber Quartus: A Commentary, with a Revised Text, Introduction and Translation* (Washington, DC: Catholic University of America Press, 1930).

⁶ Augustine's circle at Cassiciacum had a copy of *Rhetorica ad Herennium*, the Romanianus exemplar; see Ward, *Ciceronian Rhetoric*, p. 91.

⁷ Ward, *Ciceronian Rhetoric*, pp. 76, 84–5. Michael Leff draws comparisons between Martianus Capella's chapter on rhetoric and *De doctrina christiana* 4 in terms of their treatments of the marriage of wisdom and eloquence; see "Saint Augustine and Martianus Capella: Continuity and Change in Fifth-Century Latin Rhetorical Theory," *Communications Quarterly* 24 (1976): 2–9.

⁸ Text and translation (slightly modified) from Augustine, *De doctrina christiana*, ed. and trans. R. P. H. Green (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1995). The numbering of passages combines the older numberings (into chapter and subsection) and the newer numbering (in smaller units) used by the 1963 CSEL edition and Green's Oxford edition. Where not otherwise noted, translations of *De doctrina* throughout are from Green's edition.

⁹ I have modified Green's translation, and for the biblical passage have substituted the Douay translation with slight modifications.

¹⁰ *Schemata lexeos* (anon.) ed. Halm, *RLM*, p. 52; Aquila Romanus, ed. Halm, pp. 34–5.

¹¹ On uses of the term *compositio* (also *structura*), see Lausberg, *Handbook of Literary Rhetoric*, §911.

¹² See Charles Kannengiesser, "The Local Setting and Motivation of *De doctrina christiana*," in J. T. Lienhard et al., *Collectanea Augustiniana* (New York: Peter Lang, 1993), pp. 331–9, and Charles Kannengiesser, "The Interrupted *De doctrina christiana*," in Duane W. H. Arnold and Pamela Bright, eds., *De doctrina christiana: A Classic of Western Culture* (Notre Dame: University of Notre Dame Press, 1995), pp. 3–14.

¹³ For Aquila Romanus, see Halm, ed., *RLM*, p. 27, line 31; for Fortunatianus, see *Ars rhetorica*, ed. Calboli Montefusco, p. 152, lines 16–17. Cf., the use of the Greek term *comma* in Julius Victor, *Ars rhetorica*, eds. Giomini and Celentano, p. 94, line 2; and the Latin term *particulus* in *Carmen de figuris*, ed. D'Angelo, lines 4–5.

¹⁴ "Quando utimur structura gravi? cum aut indignatio est aliqua aut nimia miseratio," *Ars rhetorica*, ed. Calboli Montefusco, p. 153, lines 14–15.

¹⁵ My translation.

¹⁶ Douay translation, slightly modified.

¹⁷ I have modified Green's translation.

¹⁸ We would recognize the trope as synecdoche, where the particular (Joseph) stands for the class as a whole (brothers).

¹⁹ In addition to Kennedy, *The Art of Persuasion in the Roman World* (see Chapter 1, note 66), see Elizabeth A. Meyer, *Legitimacy and Law in the Roman World: Tabulae in Roman Belief and Practice* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2004), p. 218; John A. Crook, *Legal Advocacy in the Roman World* (Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 1995), p. 177; Caroline Humfress, *Orthodoxy and the Courts in Late Antiquity* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2007), pp. 9–28, arguing for new forms of creativity in forensic interpretation under the letter of imperial laws.

²⁰ Cf., book 4, 20.44.122; see Shuger, *Sacred Rhetoric*, pp. 30, 43–4. On this theme see more broadly Erich Auerbach, *Literary Language and its Public in Late Latin Antiquity and in the Middle Ages*, trans. Ralph Manheim (New York: Pantheon, 1965), pp. 25–66.

²¹ See G. Bonner, “Augustine’s Visit to Caesarea in 418,” in C. W. Dugmore and C. Duggan, eds., *Studies in Church History* 1 (London: Nelson, 1964), pp. 104–13.

²² I have modified Green’s translation.

²³ Sarah Spence argues that Augustine imagines a participatory rhetoric in which the Christian orator becomes himself part of the audience that he seeks to persuade, undoing the hierarchy in classical rhetoric between a powerful orator and malleable hearers: see *Rhetorics of Reason and Desire: Vergil, Augustine, and the Troubadours* (Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 1988), chapter 1, esp. pp. 76, 82, 92–3, 100–2. See also in this chapter Section 3 on Cassiodorus and the teacher–student/reader ethic.

²⁴ On the dramatic date of the dialogue, see Alan Cameron, “The Date and Identity of Macrobius,” *The Journal of Roman Studies* 56 (1966): 25–38.

²⁵ On invention and *pathos* in the *Saturnalia*, and more generally the literary sensibility of inventive description that it teaches through the analysis of the *Aeneid*, see Douglas Kelly, *The Conspiracy of Allusion* (Leiden: Brill, 1999), esp. pp. 38, 51–5, 60–76.

²⁶ This line is used as an example of the trope *antonomasia* in Donatus, *Ars maior* 3.6.

²⁷ Text and translation from Macrobius, *Saturnalia*, ed. and trans. Robert A. Kaster, Loeb Classical Library, 3 vols. (Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 2011). Translation slightly modified.

²⁸ Cf. the fatigue of Dares cited at 4.2: “Sed et tota Daretis fatigatio habitu depingitur” (The total exhaustion of Dares is described by his demeanor).

²⁹ The statement “infelix puer” is followed by the reason for it, the imbalance with Achilles’ strength. Quintilian, *Institutio oratoria* 9.3.93; cf., Rutilius Lupus, *De figuris sententiarum et elocutionis*, ed. Edward Brooks, Jr. (Leiden: Brill, 1970), II.19 (p. 44); Anonymous Ecksteinii: *Scemata dianoeas*, ed. Schindel, p. 65; Lausberg, *Handbook*, §§867–70.

³⁰ On these standard literary models, see Woods, *Weeping for Dido*, chapters 1 and 3, and especially pp. 117 and 137–9.

³¹ On *Saturnalia* manuscripts in the Middle Ages, see Kelly, *The Conspiracy of Allusion*, pp. 16–25, 33–5; Robert A. Kaster, *Studies on the Text of Macrobius’ Saturnalia* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2010); *Macrobius Ambrosii Theodosii Saturnalia*, ed. Robert A. Kaster, 2 vols. (Oxford: Clarendon, 2011), 1: v–xxx.

³² Cassiodoro: *Expositio psalmorum: tradizione manoscritta, fortuna, edizione critica*, ed. Patrizia Stoppacci (Florence: SISMEL—Edizioni del Galluzzo, 2012 [volume 1 of a projected 3 volumes]), pp. 19–142; a good many more manuscripts contain excerpts, e.g., Stoppacci, ed., pp. 133–9.

³³ For speculation about how early Cassiodorus may have founded Vivarium before his retirement there in 554, see James J. O’Donnell, *Cassiodorus* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1979), pp. 191–3. On the level of student that Cassiodorus had in mind for the *Expositio*, see M. Simonetti, “L’*Expositio psalmorum* di Cassiodoro,” *Cassiodorus* 4 (1998): 125–39.

³⁴ *Magni Aurelii Cassiodori Expositio psalmorum*, ed. Marcus Adriaen, 2 vols. CCSL 97–8 (Turnhout: Brepols, 1958) [hereafter cited as vols. 1 and 2], 1: 19–20. All quotations will be from this complete edition. On this idea in Cassiodorus, see the introduction by Mark Vessey to Cassiodorus, *Institutions of Divine and Secular Learning and On the Soul*, trans. James W. Halporn (Liverpool: Liverpool University Press, 2004), p. 30; O’Donnell, *Cassiodorus*, p. 158.

³⁵ Vessey, “Introduction,” 34–5; Jacques Fontaine, “Cassiodore et Isidore: l’évolution de l’encyclopédisme latin du vi^e au vii^e siècle,” in Sandro Leanza, ed., *Flavio Magno Aurelio*

Cassiodoro. *Cosenza-Squillace 19–24 settembre 1983* (Soveria Mannelli: Rubbetino, 1986), pp. 72–91 (at p. 81); Ann Astell, “Cassiodorus’s *Commentary on the Psalms* as an *Ars rhetorica*,” *Rhetorica* 17 (1999): 37–75 (at p. 41).

³⁶ See Astell, “Cassiodorus’s *Commentary on the Psalms*,” and Rita Copeland, “Cassiodorus’ Hermeneutics: the *Psalms* and the Arts of Language,” in Tarmo Toom, ed., *Patristic Theories of Biblical Interpretation: The Latin Fathers* (New York: Cambridge University Press, 2016), pp. 160–82.

³⁷ Astell, “Cassiodorus’s *Commentary on the Psalms*,” pp. 53–9.

³⁸ These were not transmitted with every copy, although manuscripts containing the symbols are numerous. See the description of manuscripts by Stoppacci, *Cassiodoro: Expositio psalmorum*, pp. 28–132. For example, a complete set of the *Expositio*, London, British Library, MSS Add. 21215, 21216–17 (s. x–xi) all from the same Benedictine abbey in Franconia, in three different hands, shows variation in the transcription of the *notae*. The first volume, containing psalms 1–50, has a full complement of *notae*. The second volume, MS Add. 21216, has fewer *notae* through the second part of the volume: perhaps a later hand added some of the *notae*, or the different hand that copied the second half of the volume put in some *notae*. In MS Add. 21217 (also in multiple hands, including those of 21216) one scribe put some of the *notae* in; here the *nota* SCHE is entered more frequently than others.

³⁹ *Institutiones* 2.1.2; Mauro Agosto, *Impiego e definizione di tropi e schemi retorici nell’Expositio psalmorum di Cassiodoro* (Montella: Accademia Vivarium Novum, 2003), pp. 53–7. For the hypothesis of a Greek source (known from his period in Constantinople), see Grondeux, *À l’école de Cassiodore*, pp. 46–55.

⁴⁰ Anne Grondeux, “Teaching and Learning Lists of Figures in the Middle Ages,” *New Medieval Literatures* 11 (2009): 133–58.

⁴¹ See J. W. Halporn, “Methods of Reference in Cassiodorus,” *The Journal of Library History* 16 (1981): 71–91 (at p. 87) (on the usefulness of the *notae*).

⁴² *Expositio psalmorum*, ed. Adriaen, 1: 18–20.

⁴³ *Expositio psalmorum*. 33, ed. Adriaen, 1: 295. See Agosto, *Impiego e definizione*, pp. 49–50. The image of the “incorporeal eye” is found in Augustine (*Epistulae* 147.23) and Ambrose (*In psalmorum* 8.17), and recalls Quintilian’s definition of *enargeia* and the *oculus mentis*, *Institutio oratoria* 8.3.62.

⁴⁴ “inter violentissimas figuras” does not seem to be traceable to his sources for this figure in Quintilian (*Institutio oratoria* 8.4.27), in Alexander Numenius’ *De figuris sententiarum et verborum*, or in the Latin handbooks (Rutilius Lupus, *Carmen de figuris*). For some attestations, see Guillaume Bady, “Les figures du théologien: les citations de Grégoire de Nazianze dans les manuels byzantins de figures rhétoriques,” in Andrea Schmidt, ed., *Studia Nazianzenica II*, CCSG 73 (Turnhout: Brepols, 2010), pp. 257–322 (at pp. 275–6); on *synathroesmos*, see also Grondeux, *À l’école de Cassiodore*, pp. 53–4.

⁴⁵ Grondeux, *À l’école de Cassiodore*, pp. 55–68; and see Chapter 1, note 68.

⁴⁶ *Anonymous Ecksteinii: Scemata Dianoëas*, ed. Schindel, p. 157, line 122.

⁴⁷ *Enarrationes in psalmos* 57.11.

⁴⁸ e.g., Psalm 52, ed. Adriaen 1: 479; 54, 1: 494; 56, 1: 511; 66, 1: 582; 82, 2: 762.

⁴⁹ This mutuality between exegete and reader is akin to the protreptic or ethically transformative function of literary form that Eleanor Johnson describes: see *Practicing Literary Theory in the Middle Ages*, esp. pp. 9–10, 15, 94–114, 194–201.

⁵⁰ *Isidori Hispalensis episcopi Etymologiarum sive Originum libri XX*, ed. W. M. Lindsay, 2 vols. (Oxford: Clarendon, 1911). On his use of Servius, see Fontaine, *Isidore de Seville* 1: 306–7.

⁵¹ Fontaine, *Isidore de Seville* 1: 231.

⁵² On these figures, see Fontaine, *Isidore de Seville*, 1: 304–8.

⁵³ See Ulrich Schindel, *Die lateinischen Figurenlehren des 5. bis 7. Jahrhunderts und Donats Vergilkommentar* (Göttingen: Vandenhoeck und Ruprecht, 1975), pp. 19–95; Ulrich Schindel, “Die Quellen von Bedas Figurenlehre,” *Classica et Mediaevalia* 29 (1968): 169–86; Louis Holtz, “À l’école de Donat, de saint Augustin à Bède,” *Latomus* 36 (1977): 522–38; *Ars Juliani Toletani episcopi: una gramática latina de la España visigoda. Estudio y edición crítica*, ed. Maria A. H. Maestre Yenes (Toledo: Instituto Provincial de Investigaciones y Estudios, 1973).

⁵⁴ The evidence for Bede’s knowledge and extensive use of the *Expositio psalmorum* is summarized by Richard N. Bailey, “Bede’s Text of Cassiodorus’ Commentary on the Psalms,” *The Journal of Theological Studies* n.s. 34 (1983): 189–93. Although the only extant version of the *Expositio psalmorum* from Bede’s era (and the earliest surviving witness to the transmission of the work) is an epitome of Cassiodorus’ commentary in Durham Cathedral, MS B II 30 (a single leaf from another copy of this epitome survives as Düsseldorf, Universitätsbibliothek, MS K 16: Z 3/1), the range of Bede’s quotation from, and use of, the full text of Cassiodorus’ commentary shows that he relied upon a copy of the whole work. Among Bede’s writings, *De schematibus et tropis* provides particularly rich evidence for close use of Cassiodorus’ commentary (Bailey, “Bede’s Text,” p. 190), although we cannot know with certainty that the copy Bede used contained Cassiodorus’ *notae*. It has been argued that the epitome in the Durham manuscript postdates Bede; see Richard N. Bailey, “The Durham Cassiodorus,” Jarrow Lecture, 1978, rpt. in Michael Lapidge, ed., *Bede and his World 1: The Jarrow Lectures 1958–1978* (Aldershot: Variorum, 1994), pp. 465–90. On Bede’s ignorance of the *Institutiones* and thus also of Cassiodorus’ sponsorship of a monastic community and scriptorium, see Paul Meyvaert, “Bede, Cassiodorus, and the Codex Amiatinus,” *Speculum* 71 (1996): 827–83.

⁵⁵ *De arte metrica et De schematibus et tropis*, eds. C. B. Kendall and M. H. King, in *Bedae Venerabilis opera, pars VI, Opera didascalica* part 1, CCSL 123A (Turnhout: Brepols, 1975), p. 144. All quotations are taken from this edition.

⁵⁶ *Expositio psalmorum*, ed. Adriaen, 2: 878.

⁵⁷ *Expositio psalmorum*, ed. Adriaen, 2: 881.

⁵⁸ Holtz, *Donat et la tradition de l’enseignement grammaticale*, p. 198. Bede does not follow this distinction, as his examples are from verbs as well as nouns. All of the sources and parallels for Donatus’ definition of *homoeoptoton* listed by Holtz (p. 665, apparatus) refer to *casus*. The rhetorical parallels are: *Rhetorica ad Herennium*, Cicero’s *De oratore* and *Orator*, Rutilius Lupus, Quintilian, Aquila Romanus, *Carmen de figuris*, Martianus Capella. The grammatical sources and parallels are: Charisius, Diomedes, Pompeius, Sacerdos, pseudo-Sergius, and Isidore of Seville. Unsurprisingly, given the overwhelming usage in all the other sources, the Remigian gloss on *De schematibus et tropis* restores the word *casus*: “omoeoptoton id est similitudo casuum,” CCSL 123A: 150 (apparatus).

⁵⁹ Benedicta Ward, “Bede and the Psalter,” Jarrow Lecture, 1991, p. 5, quoting from Bede’s *Ecclesiastical History*, 5.24.

⁶⁰ Other examples of Bede’s practice of using Cassiodorus to supply examples include *anadiplosis* (CCSL 123A: 146), *anaphora* (146), *epanalepsis* (147), and *hirmos* (151).

⁶¹ O’Donnell, *Cassiodorus*, p. 180.

⁶² On singing, liturgy, and the psalter in Anglo-Saxon England, see Bruce Holsinger, “The Parable of ‘Caedmon’s Hymn’: Liturgical Convention and Literary Tradition,” *JEGP* 106 (2007):

149–75. On the primacy of the psalter in monastic literacy, see George H. Brown, “The Psalms as the Foundation of Anglo-Saxon Learning,” in Nancy van Deusen, ed., *The Place of the Psalms in the Intellectual Culture of the Middle Ages* (Albany: State University of New York Press, 1999), pp. 1–23; on broader monastic contexts, see Susan Boynton, “Training for the Liturgy as a Form of Monastic Education,” in George Ferzoco and Carolyn Muessig, eds., *Medieval Monastic Education* (London: Leicester University Press, 2000), pp. 7–20.

⁶³ Jean Leclercq, *The Love of Learning and the Desire for God: A Study of Monastic Culture*, trans. Catherine Misrahi (New York: Fordham University Press, 1961), pp. 71–85. On Bede as a monastic educator, see Irina Dumitrescu, *The Experience of Education in Anglo-Saxon Literature* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2018), pp. 17–33. On *De schematibus et tropis* in its monastic context, see Mary Carruthers, *The Craft of Thought: Meditation, Rhetoric, and the Making of Images, 400–1200* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1998), pp. 123–4.

⁶⁴ Ward, “Bede and the Psalter,” pp. 8–9.

⁶⁵ Bede may well have had a substantial acquaintance with classical rhetoric beyond Cassiodorus’ *Expositio* and his obvious knowledge of *De doctrina christiana*: it has been argued that he at least knew the *De inventione* or Victorinus’ commentary on it or both. See Roger Ray, “Bede and Cicero,” *Anglo-Saxon England* 16 (1987): 1–15, and “Bede, Rhetoric, and the Creation of Christian Latin Culture,” Jarrow Lecture 1997, pp. 1, 4–5. But even if he had such knowledge, this was nothing like Cassiodorus’ immersive education and professional expertise in classical rhetoric, which included familiarity with Quintilian’s rhetoric.

⁶⁶ Alcuin’s praise of the psalter is not stylistic, but his commentaries record an intimate responsiveness to language that is paradigmatic for any reader. Of the joyful Psalm 97 he says: “Absque enim prophetiae mysteriis, omnia humanae vitae necessaria, quae in caeteris psalmis latius describuntur, in isto velut in quodam ferculo congesta nobis offeruntur” (Without the mysteries of prophecy, all the things necessary for human life, which in other psalms are described obscurely, in this psalm are presented to us as if on a heaped-up serving platter), *De psalmorum usu liber*, PL 101: 484. See also the *Expositio in psalmos penitenciales* (PL 100: 569–96).

⁶⁷ Compare Isidore on figures, *Etymologiae* 1.36, ed. Lindsay, “Schemata ex Graeco in Latinum eloquium figurae interpretantur, quae fiunt in verbis vel sententiis per varias dictionum formas propter eloquii ornamentum” (*Schemata*, from Greek, are rendered in the Latin language as “figures of speech”; they occur in words and phrases, in various forms of diction, on account of the embellishment of speech); and Donatus on tropes, *Ars maior* 3.6, ed. Holtz, *Donat et la tradition de l’enseignement grammaticale*, p. 667, “Tropus est dictio translata a propria significatione ad non propriam similitudinem ornatus necessitatisve causa” (a trope is a word transferred from its proper signification to a likeness that is not proper either out of necessity or for the sake of ornamentation).

⁶⁸ Aquila Romanus is unique among the handbooks in explaining the emotional impact of figures—see Chapter 1, pp. 52–6; the other surviving handbooks are mute on this point.

⁶⁹ Hrabanus Maurus, *De institutione clericorum libri tres*, ed. Detlev Zimpel (Frankfurt am Main: Peter Lang, 1996), book 3, chapter 18, p. 469, and Zimpel’s notes on the text.

⁷⁰ Rupert of Deutz, *De sancta trinitate et operibus eius*, ed. H. Haacke, CCCM 24 (Turnhout: Brepols, 1972), pp. 2050–1.

⁷¹ Translation based on Copeland and Sluiter, eds., *Medieval Grammar and Rhetoric*, p. 394.

⁷² See Mary Carruthers, “Late Antique Rhetoric, Early Monasticism, and the Revival of School Rhetoric,” in Carol Dana Lanham, ed., *Latin Grammar and Rhetoric: From Classical Theory to Medieval Practice* (London: Continuum, 2002), pp. 239–57 (at p. 252).

⁷³ “Die ‘Rethorici colores’ des Magisters Onulf von Speyer,” ed. J. Cornelia Linde, *Mittellateinisches Jahrbuch* 40 (2005): 333–81 (at 344–7). Before the appearance of Linde’s edition, scholars had depended on an older assessment of Onulf’s career, which put the text in the mid-eleventh century: see Wilhelm Wattenbach, ed., “Magister Onulf von Speier,” *Sitzungsberichte der königlich-preussischen Akademie* 20 (1894): 361–86. Thus as recently as the 1990s, views of Onulf of Speyer were colored by the very early dating of his life and work.

⁷⁴ See Luitpold Wallach, “Onulf of Speyer: A Humanist of the Eleventh Century,” *Medievalia et Humanistica* 6 (1950): 35–56, on the range of classical as well as patristic sources, as well as likely borrowings from Carolingian sources, including Alcuin’s *Disputatio de rhetorica*; see also *Rethorici colores*, ed. Linde, 352–3.

⁷⁵ Martin Camargo, “Latin Composition Textbooks and *Ad Herennium* Glossing: The Missing Link?” in Cox and Ward, eds., *The Rhetoric of Cicero*, pp. 267–88 (at p. 271). Wallach notes no actual verbal parallels between Marbod and Onulf: “Onulf of Speyer,” pp. 44–5.

⁷⁶ Ward, *Ciceronian Rhetoric*, pp. 113–16; Camargo, “Latin Composition Textbooks,” p. 271. C. Stephen Jaeger, taking it as an eleventh-century production (see note 70 above), views it as a transference of rhetorical elegance to the cultivation of manners or the rules of virtuous living, of a piece with what Jaeger describes as the “charismatic teaching” of the early cathedral schools: see *The Envy of Angels: Cathedral Schools and Social Ideals in Medieval Europe, 950–1200* (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 1994), pp. 136–8.

⁷⁷ The opening of the prologue comes down to us mutilated, and in this form the passage resists adequate translation: “[...] arti rethorice, morum elegantiam, compositionem habitus, vite, dignitatem amplectere. Hoc tue, professioni melius competit, hoc apud supernum iudicem cause, tue, potius conducit” (*Rethorici colores*, ed. Linde, 356). The meaning seems to tend towards what is expressed throughout: there is worldly professional capital in rhetorical knowledge that pales in value next to the “case” for your soul that you must argue before the “supernal judge.” Jaeger’s conjectural reconstruction takes a different direction: see *Envy of Angels*, p. 137.

⁷⁸ *Rethorici colores*, ed. Linde, 356.

⁷⁹ *Rethorici colores*, ed. Linde, 356, note.

⁸⁰ Here, and in the following quotations from Onulf, most of the sources and allusions cited are based on the notes in Linde’s edition.

⁸¹ CCSL 119A: 101, line 315.

⁸² *Rethorici colores*, ed. Linde, 356. The phrase “usus tibi reddit omni suavitate suavius” is reminiscent of a phrase Onulf uses elsewhere (II.9.53) for which Linde notes a parallel in Bede’s *In cantica canticorum allegorica expositio* 5.7.13; see Linde, ed., 375, note.

⁸³ *Expositio psalmorum*, ed. Adriaen, 2: 43.

⁸⁴ *Rethorici colores*, ed. Linde, 360.

⁸⁵ *Rethorici colores*, ed. Linde, 374.

⁸⁶ John O. Ward, “The Medieval and Early Renaissance Study of Cicero’s *De inventione* and the *Rhetorica ad Herennium*: Commentaries and Contexts,” in Cox and Ward, eds., *The Rhetoric of Cicero*, pp. 3–75 (at pp. 26–31, 70–1). On Marbod of Rennes, see Chapter 3, pp. 113–6.

⁸⁷ *Rethorici colores*, ed. Linde, 352.

⁸⁸ M. B. Pranger, *Bernard of Clairvaux and the Shape of Monastic Thought: Broken Dreams* (Leiden: Brill, 1994), pp. 47–85; M. B. Pranger, “Bernard the Writer,” in Brian Patrick McGuire, ed., *A Companion to Bernard of Clairvaux* (Leiden: Brill, 2011), pp. 220–48; E. Ann Matter, *The Voice of*

My Beloved: The Song of Songs in Western Medieval Christianity (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 1990), pp. 123–33.

⁸⁹ Juanita Feros Ruys, “*Eloquencie vultum depingere*: Eloquence and *Dictamen* in the Love Letters of Heloise and Abelard,” in Mews et al., eds., *Rhetoric and Renewal in the Latin West*, pp. 99–112 (at pp. 100–1). For the text of Heloise’s letter (from the *Epistolae duorum amantium*), see Constant J. Mews, *The Lost Love Letters of Heloise and Abelard: Perceptions of Dialogue in Twelfth-Century France* (New York: St. Martin’s Press, 1999), p. 228.

⁹⁰ Jaeger, *The Envy of Angels*, esp. chapters 2–4.

3

Emotion in the Rhetorical Arts and Literary Culture c.1070–c.1400

Onulf of Speyer's suspicions of figurative language, even couched in irony, may be a reaction to a decisive shift toward the teaching of style that began in the later years of the eleventh century. The move to revive the teaching of rhetoric as a practical compositional tool is now often seen as heralded by two influential treatises of the late eleventh century, *De coloribus verborum* by Marbod, bishop of Rennes, and *Breviarium de dictamine* by Alberic of the monastery of Montecassino. The pragmatic teaching of rhetoric emerged (or at least began to leave its preceptive records) around the same time as a rising enthusiasm for Ciceronian theory, seen as an intellectual and moral end in itself. We find an early prediction of this in the *Nova rhetorica* by Notker Labeo from the end of the tenth century, which has both practical and intellectual aims.¹ We find the quintessential theoretical interest in the Ciceronianism of the early twelfth-century cathedral schools, with the commentaries by William of Champeaux, Thierry of Chartres, and others on the *De inventione* and *Rhetorica ad Herennium*, and Abelard's rigorous assessment of rhetoric in his commentary on Boethius' *De topicis differentiis*.

But the most successful rhetorical teaching texts bridging the eleventh and thirteenth centuries were not the ones boasting high theoretical ambitions. Rather, they were the texts that foregrounded style, including treatises, such as Marbod's, devoted exclusively to figurative language. These are the treatises that helped to build the distinctively medieval rhetorical genres of *ars dictaminis* and *ars poetriae*, which teach the skills of literary composition transferable to nearly any purpose in institutional,

civic, and even scholarly life. The *artes dictaminis* and *artes poetriae* had a mutually supportive growth, even though each branched off into its own specialized regions. Not all the treatises in these rhetorical genres emphasize style over the other aspects of rhetorical composition and thought. Some treatises, such as Matthew of Vendôme's *Ars versificatoria* (before or c.1175) and Bene da Firenze's *Candelabrum* (between 1220 and 1226) attempt a full picture of rhetorical reasoning as handed down through the Ciceronian tradition. And except for the autonomous manuals of figurative language, all the treatises acknowledge that persuasion is effected through the structures of reasoning as well as through stylistic appeal. But nevertheless, the works that were most successfully disseminated, judging by the number of copies that survive as well as their imitative progeny, devote considerable and at times overwhelming attention to style. This does not mean that the emphasis on style was the direct cause of their success. What brought these treatises such influence was their streamlining and simplification of rhetorical doctrine. Compatible with this process was the shift of attention to style, which was the most accessible way of teaching composition.

Thus emotional appeal also fell largely to the remit of style. We might see this—as in the case of the late antique handbooks of style—as the contracting of rhetorical competence into one canon of the art, *elocutio*, traditionally the most provisional and contingent part of the art at that. But this would be to write the history of rhetoric and emotion in the Middle Ages negatively in post-lapsarian terms, as a fall from a former, idealized “golden age,” whether that golden age is classical rhetoric or the early Christian empowerment of style as an affective bond across a devotional community. Rather, we should want to understand how the Middle Ages enlarged the field of style so that it could carry the burden of emotional suasion as successfully as it did. The pragmatic rhetorics of the High Middle Ages were to achieve this by embracing a fundamentally epideictic conception of the art. In essence they were new embodiments of the epideictic culture of late antiquity, with its elevation of style as the primary vehicle of emotional response. Although ancient anxieties about style as a beguiling “paynted proces” (to quote Chaucer's Criseyde) were never far from hand, the epideictic function in these practical rhetorics subsumed the ethical charge that had sustained classical rhetorical thought.²

I have mentioned the epideictic (demonstrative) genre in earlier chapters, relating it to particular practices within larger conceptions of rhetoric. I return to it now more expansively, because I intend to relate it to a whole rhetorical movement that privileges style for its own sake as the signal achievement of eloquence. As a field or even orientation of rhetoric, epideictic extends beyond merely praise and blame. Under epideictic rhetoric also fall aesthetic values such as pleasing an audience, the moral purposes of instructing, exhorting, advising, and consoling, and the performative work of displaying literary skill.³ As Cicero presents it briefly in *De inventione* 2.4.12 and 2.59.177–8, the epideictic genre is a field for exploring and reinforcing the imperatives of virtue and honor. In *Rhetorica ad Herennium* 3.6.10–15, epideictic draws upon themes of duty, goodwill, and friendship to mount praise, and from opposing qualities to censure someone; these themes are supplemented with considerations of various circumstances, including the subject's physical attributes (beauty, strength, health) and fortunes.⁴ Thus although it does not require a decision about past events or future actions, epideictic calls upon ethical faculties by eliciting an evaluative response: the audience is not meant to remain neutral about either the subject or the discourse itself.⁵

In classical rhetorical theory, the genre of epideictic was subordinate to political and judicial rhetoric: the brief accounts of the genre in *De inventione* and *Ad Herennium* are evidence of that. The elements of epideictic could of course be deployed in either of the other genres.⁶ But by the fourth century, epideictic was the only form of rhetoric to survive with any real public purpose, even if that purpose was the social reinforcement of display and ceremony. Its standard forms, the panegyric and encomium, moved easily from classroom practice (the *progymnasmata* and related exercises) to public performance, as the literature of declamation in the later Roman world amply testifies.⁷ In late antiquity, the significant preceptive contributions to the culture of encomiastic discourse are Greek, products of the Second Sophistic: among these are the treatises ascribed to Menander of Laodicea (Menander *rhetor*), *Diaresis tōn epideiktikōn* and *Peri epideiktikōn*, of the late third century, and from the same period a short treatise on epideictic wrongly attributed to Dionysius of Halicarnassus. The success of the later Greek sophists and of epideictic rhetoric went hand in hand.⁸ While the theory that has come down to us was largely the work of

Greek teachers, the culture of epideictic spread throughout the Latin world. This was the rhetoric practiced by Augustine (*Confessions* 6.6) and the genre upon which Cassiodorus built his secular career as panegyrist and flattering chronicler of the Ostrogothic dynasty. Even though it was a “stepchild” of forensic and deliberative rhetoric in classical antiquity, it proved the most flexible genre.⁹ Epideictic was permeated and sustained by poetic traditions of praise, strategically valuable in the service of aristocratic and imperial masters, and ideally suited to the occasions of urban life. Thus also epideictic most easily made the transition from pagan to Christian rhetorical practice, from praise to preaching, from display to evangelizing and exhortation.¹⁰ Cassiodorus brings this understanding of rhetoric to his religious discipline when he finds the epideictic genre represented more frequently than the others among the psalms.¹¹ Epideictic forms the backbone of early Christian hagiography, and it is the creative engine that drives the consolatory, catechetical, polemical, and doctrinal writings of Christian apologists such as Tertullian. The dazzling artistic display that is part of the tradition of epideictic also resonated with medieval authors, as in the *Rhetorimachia* of Anselm of Besate (mid-eleventh century), which is a bravura exhibition of the author’s stylistic accomplishments, demonstrating Anselm’s claim to rhetorical supremacy over his rival.¹²

As suggested in the treatises by Menander *rhetor*, and in the wealth of panegyric literature, epideictic, more concertedly than the other genres, was to be associated with style as a vehicle for emotional appeal.¹³ This is a feature especially of its late development, during the Second Sophistic, but it is the very model of affective style that was to play an important role in the medieval inheritance. This is reflected in the medieval Christian receptions of late classical rhetoric, where, as we saw in [Chapter 2](#), approaches to Scripture are particularly sensitive to the affective appeal of style. The practical compositional rhetorics that the High Middle Ages reinvented for its own needs were the historical descendants and beneficiaries of the epideictic culture of late antiquity. The art of rhetoric as grounded *praxis*, not as theoretical Ciceronianism, was understood as a public, sometimes ceremonial, and always affective enterprise, whether its medium was verse or prose, imaginative poetry or official correspondence. This is most visible in the attention that the treatises lavish on style as the signature technique of accomplished persuasion.

As new avatars of the emotive genre of epideictic, the applied rhetorics of the Middle Ages approached persuasion in fundamentally emotional terms: to stir the spirit, to spark desire, and even at times to give sensory therapy. The fourteenth-century master Nicolaus Dybinus, who taught the *ars poetriae* in Prague and Vienna, sums up this conception of rhetoric as a kind of emotional healing:

Secundo eciam rethoricalis sciencia dicitur ire et doloris fugativa que consistit in verborum veritate ludicris parita. Ipsa enim docet ornate loqui ioca serie admiscenda...Unde boecius de consolacione phylosophie: Rethorica dulcifluos et mellifluos proferre docet sermones, tempore debito aut oportuno tacere...Tercio sciencia rethoricalis est delectacionis allativa, de quo tulyus primo sue rethorice: Sola rethorica audientem letificat et ad delectacionem adducit animum protervientis. Quilibet enim in auditu pulcri et ornati sermonis ornatur.¹⁴

Second, the science of rhetoric is also said to drive away anger and melancholy, and this function lies in the truth of her words born from play. For rhetoric teaches how to speak ornately, mixing jokes with earnest...Whence Boethius says in *De consolacione philosophiae* [cf. 2. pr. 3] that Rhetoric teaches how to make sweet and mellifluous speeches, but also to be silent at the appropriate time and occasion...Third, the science of rhetoric is a source of delight, which Tully discusses in the first book of his Rhetoric.¹⁵ Only rhetoric gladdens the hearer and leads the violent spirit to delight. Indeed, anyone is pleased on hearing a beautiful and ornate speech.¹⁶

Such an assessment of the purpose of rhetoric seems to have had a general acceptance, even beyond the classroom or the technical manual. Robert Grosseteste's little compendium of the liberal arts defines rhetoric through its power to rouse and quiet emotion:

Estque in eius potestate, affectum animosque torpentes excitare, effrenos modificare, timidos animare, truces mitigare.¹⁷

It has the power to excite emotion and rouse torpid spirits, to control the unruly, to inspire the timid, to soften the savage.

The link between rhetoric and poetics as purveyors of figured discourse that moves the emotions, long recognized through Horace's *Ars poetica*, is tellingly recapitulated in the *accessus* to a fourteenth-century commentary on Horace's *Ars*, known from its incipit as the *Communiter* commentary. The assumptions that govern this commentary on Horace actually reveal how far compositional teaching had edged into the field of poetics, so that the only distinction between rhetoric and poetics was an inherited theoretical one, not one that was felt in practice. Thus the definition given

here of poetics is just as relevant (and perhaps more so) to the medieval pragmatic rhetorics as that given of rhetoric:

Possunt igitur hee quattuor scientie, grammatica, dialectica, rhetorica et poesis, tali modo sub sermone reponi: grammaticus enim per orationem congruam et perfectam perfectum sensum generat in animo auditoris. Dialecticus autem in quantum talis per syllogismum probabilem generat in auditoris animo fidem sive opinionem. Rhetoricus per verisimilium enthymemata movet et inclinat affectum. Poeta vero non solum per idonea verba, sed etiam per gestus et similitudines rerum quas humanis actibus representat, efficaciter movet, trahit et informat affectum. Sic ergo prima constituit cognitionem, secunda iudicium, tertia adsensum sive placentiam, quarta delectationem. Due prime, grammatica et dialectica, principaliter respiciunt intellectum; due secunde, rhetorica et poesis, respiciunt magis affectum.¹⁸

These four sciences, that is grammar, dialectic, rhetoric, and poetics, may be classified under speech as follows: the grammarian generates a completeness of sense in the mind of the hearer through a congruent and [grammatically] complete clause. The dialectician considered as such generates belief or opinion in the mind of the hearer through the probable syllogism. The rhetorician moves and sways emotion through enthymematic arguments [made up of] likenesses to truth. The poet effectively moves, captures, and shapes emotion, not only through suitable words, but also through attitudes and likenesses of things which he presents in human actions. So the first science concerns cognition, the second judgment, the third agreement and satisfaction, and the fourth delight. The first two, grammar and dialectic, principally relate to intellect; the second two, rhetoric and poetry, relate more to emotion.

While on the one hand rhetoric is defined here in ancient terms as a form of reasoning, on the other hand it is said to operate in verisimilitude, a likeness to truth that borders on poetic *similitudines* or figurative likenesses. But the *Communiter* commentary also classes rhetoric with poetics for its appeal to emotion. Moreover, the text being commented here, the *Ars poetica*, governed the emerging field of teaching written discourse: it was a particular, ancient authority behind the new *artes poetriae*, as rhetoric shifted its emphasis toward literary composition. Thus rhetoric, along with poetics, aims at emotional appeal to be achieved through the engine of figuration.

The medieval framework in which rhetoric is seen as close to poetry, because both depend upon “likenesses” to produce emotion, has its counterpart in ancient perspectives on epideictic, which shares with poetry the aim to create an artistic record through affecting stylistic display. Epideictic was closer to poetry than the other branches of oratory because, like poetry, it was directed to producing idealized representations rather than decisions about immediate problems. Its purpose was literary expression (in a broad sense) rather than forensic or deliberative judgment, and to leave behind lasting works for enjoyment or imitation.¹⁹ While

medieval commentators and teachers do not declare their rhetoric to be fundamentally epideictic, their sense of an affiliation between poetry and rhetoric based on affective style is continuous with the artistic perspective of late antique oratory. In the pragmatic rhetorics of the High Middle Ages, the supremacy of style as the mark of artistic power, and the assumption that rhetoric's primary object is the emotions, are the legacies of the epideictic oratory of the Second Sophistic.

In such a context the emotional impact of any discourse was a priority in teaching. But importantly, it was not the role of such practical teaching to *explain* emotional effect. Medieval rhetorics have long baffled modern scholars for their overriding interest in technique and the near absence of psychological, aesthetic, or ethical explanations of how the technique might work on a soul. Most famously, in 1926, J. M. Manley wondered why the attention to formal effects was not balanced by interest in aesthetic or emotional impact, and those comments set the tone for much twentieth-century criticism. More far-reaching in its dismissal was Brian Vickers' *In Defense of Rhetoric* (1988), which condemns the medieval practical arts as both abstracted and indifferent to "feeling."²⁰ Yet these views and puzzled responses are a useful touchstone, because in some ways they are right: in its exclusive attention to formal strategy, medieval rhetorical theory defies modern aesthetic and theoretical expectations.²¹ This is because it finds its rationale in a long tradition, stretching back to late antiquity, of teaching stylistic technique, and it assumes that emotional suasion is already a cultural constant. In a field where persuasion was understood in epideictic terms as primarily emotional, it would have been redundant to theorize emotion or to subject the individual passions to psychological analysis. What needed to be taught were the structural and linguistic techniques that would strategically engage emotion. This instruction had to be overwhelmingly intellectual and formal (just as, for example, a motorcycle manual does not need to explain how to enjoy the motorcycle or why one delights in individual features; it needs to explain how to tune or fix the complicated machine so that it will perform as desired).

Thus the medieval teachers were giving others the skills to produce emotion in readers and at times hearers. As teachers of figurative discourse they shared with the imperial style manuals an understanding of the "literariness" of emotion, the mimetic power of the literary text.²² Christian religious communities of the early centuries had expressed and shared an

affection for Scripture, where the text is seen to render its truths directly through the real emotions that it both contains and produces. In sharp contrast to this, the medieval style manuals recognize the emotions represented in the textual artifact as patently “fictive,” in the sense that they are made up, conjured through technique. The emotion produced in the reader is surely real—that is the aim, after all, of suasion through *pathos*—but it does not carry the power of a truth that can unite a community in a determinate and lasting spiritual purpose. In this respect the *artes poetriae* and *artes dictaminis* are the true inheritors of the late antique figuralists.

But the medieval teachers offer something less than their late antique predecessors in terms of cultivating admiration—or indeed love—for canonical literary models. Although some of the earlier medieval teachers cite their examples from classical sources, the preference grows for newly minted examples (of their own invention or taken from immediate predecessors) that clearly and efficiently illustrate the figure or trope under discussion. Matthew of Vendôme’s *Ars versificatoria*, the earliest of the medieval *artes poetriae*, cites from classical works, while Geoffrey of Vinsauf’s later *Poetria nova*, the most successful of the *artes*, features only Geoffrey’s own poetic examples, something that was one factor in the work’s remarkable influence.²³ In other words, there is an increasing tendency to teach rhetoric itself, rather than rhetorical reading of established literary sources that have already claimed their place in the reader’s affection. Of course, the teaching of classical literary sources would have been taking place in classrooms alongside of the rhetorical teaching. As Marjorie Curry Woods has shown, learning the techniques of rhetoric would lead to close and appreciative reading of the Latin classics, especially where they deliver high emotional impact.²⁴ But the treatises, which are records of compositional teaching, point to a strong penchant for devising fit-for-purpose models to illustrate how to use a technique. The emphasis is on use for new composition rather than—as in the imperial style manuals—on recognition of a figure in a canonical text and now learning the device that had made the work so affecting. The medieval texts do not seem to track the students’ own reading history, their previous encounters with powerful writing. They are less about the student’s own literary experience and more about the student’s potential assessment of an audience. Indeed, if the medieval pragmatic arts have been condemned for “losing sight of the audience,”²⁵ the blindspot belongs to the modern critic who does not

recognize how thoroughly, even instrumentally, audience- and thus impact-focused the teaching has become.

We have moved here from the decisive ethical imperative of the early Christian tradition to a field of rhetoric that makes no specific ethical claims. Of course, literary study of the classical *auctores* often invoked ethics: by the mid-twelfth century it was common to find introductions or *accessus* to literary texts that classified the pagan poets under the category of “ethics,” justifying their place in the curriculum by emphasizing the moral values that poetry contained.²⁶ But the interest of medieval rhetorical teaching does not lie with such ethical rehabilitation of the classical poets. The teachers of pragmatic rhetoric stress the technical dimension of composition, giving little explicit attention to its ethical compass points, such as moral judgment by the audience. This would be left to others to remark. When the objective was to arouse emotion, especially strong emotion, the overwhelming resource was not reasoning, judgment, or argumentative structure (as in Cicero’s treatment of *affectio* as a topic of invention), but style.

3.1 Teaching Emotional Style in the Arts of Poetry and Prose c.1070–c.1215

The eleventh century sees a resurgent interest in the *Rhetorica ad Herennium*, which began appearing in southern Germany and Switzerland from about the year 1000, and in central Italy not long afterward.²⁷ From around the middle of the eleventh century, we have the earliest sustained commentaries on both the *De inventione* and the *Rhetorica ad Herennium*, as well as the practice of copying the texts together, with the ascription of *Rhetorica ad Herennium* to Cicero as his “second rhetoric.” One element that made the *Rhetorica ad Herennium* distinctive as a new resource was its elaborate attention to style in book 4.

Much of this information had long been available through other sources, as we have seen: the imperial handbooks of rhetorical figures (although these mainly contributed the models for early medieval treatises), the summaries of the figures contained in grammatical texts, especially Donatus’ *Ars maior*, the Christianization of this information in Cassiodorus

and Bede, and late antique and early Christian compendia of the trivium arts. Among this last group, Isidore of Seville's *Etymologiae* 1 and 2 in particular did not lose its popularity. But the rising importance of the *Rhetorica ad Herennium* gave new momentum to the study of the figures, perhaps because the pseudo-Ciceronian text offered a more extensive and substantial treatment than the intermediate sources, and perhaps also because it organizes the different kinds of figures—figures of speech, tropes, and figures of thought—into separate subsections.²⁸ Book 4 of the *Rhetorica ad Herennium* achieved pedagogical canonicity as an object of study, glossing, and commentary; but it was also the source for new textbooks that focused largely or exclusively on style.²⁹

We have already encountered the absorption of the text in Onulf of Speyer's *Rethorici colores*, which parades its classicism even as it disavows the benefits of classical rhetoric. But Onulf's text, from the first decades of the twelfth century, is already riding the tide of the pseudo-Cicero's influence (although Onulf's own treatise had virtually no afterlife). We must look to an earlier period, the mid- or late eleventh century, for the first major response to the treatment of style in the *Rhetorica ad Herennium* and for the inauguration of a decisively medieval apprehension of that material. This is the prosimetrum treatise by Marbod, bishop of Rennes (c.1035–1123), *De ornamentis verborum*, composed between 1067 and 1096 while he was *magister* at the cathedral school of Angers. Marbod covers only the figures of speech (treating thirty of the thirty-five in his source), giving an abbreviated paraphrase of the definitions in the *Rhetorica ad Herennium* and then supplying new illustrations in hexameter verses, sometimes taking a cue from the prose examples in the *auctor ad Herennium*. The treatise survives in over fifty copies from the twelfth to the fifteenth centuries (with particular interest from the twelfth century).³⁰

One factor in the continuous influence of Marbod's innovative response to the *Rhetorica ad Herennium* lies in the way that he achieves his aim of translating complex information into an easier form for the elementary students whom he names as his audience: he will allow his verse illustrations to speak virtually for themselves, because "Exemplis...bene res aperitur" (something is explained better through examples). Here the definition of each figure will serve as a secondary "gloss" to its name ("per singula praetitulavi/Nomina cum glossis"), and the student's attention will be drawn to the illustration.³¹ Thus more explicitly than the imperial

handbooks of the figures, Marbod places the burden of understanding on the illustrations. In order to give prominence to his own made-to-order examples, he reduces discursive explanation to a minimum, omitting any theoretical considerations and giving only the barest technical gloss. In his epilogue he restates the elementary goals of the text, and alludes to the harder questions that a writer must address:

Interea, tamquam speculum formamque poetae,
Rerum naturam, qui scribere vultis, habete,
Cuius ad exemplar, veluti qui pingere discit,
Aptet opus proprium quisquis bene fingere gliscit...
Ergo qui laudem sibi vult scribendo parare,
Sexus, aetates, affectus, condiciones,
Sicut sunt in re, studeat distincta referre.

Haec spernens Bavius, haec servans fiet Homerus.³²

Meanwhile, you who want to write, regard the nature of things as a kind of mirror and poetic model, whose pattern anyone who advances to perfect his own composition can adapt, just as one who learns to paint...Therefore he who wants to earn praise for writing must take care to render the distinctions of sex, age, emotion, and condition just as they are in reality. The one who scorns these will be a Bavius, the one who values them a Homer.

As an elementary text, Marbod points out, this has set aside all the more profound questions of reasoning about human nature—sex, age, emotional disposition, condition of life—as topics too advanced for the present purpose, but of critical importance for any future development in the art. As an assessment of what this handbook has set out to accomplish, there is nothing remarkable in this statement.

Remarkable, rather, is the sheer success and authoritative influence of Marbod's text, for what seems to be its very minimalism: it leaves aside all of the difficult questions of emotional psychology, character, and behavior, and concentrates on memorable illustrations of the figures. But even if its minimalism was not the cause of its success, it carried that simplicity, that austerity of presentation, wherever it went. And the import of its simple teaching is that style is assumed to carry the burden of emotional persuasion and that mastering stylistic techniques will produce impact. Marbod's treatise is less evaluative even than the imperial handbooks of style, on which it closely modeled, probably through Isidore of Seville. Without ever suggesting how or why a given device is suitable to an emotional state, and certainly without any other considerations, Marbod offers up examples that are precisely calibrated to link that device with some kind of passionate

upheaval or more simply a mood. This link will remain as a prompt for the student, embedding the technical teaching in both memory and conditioned response. For example, the student will remember the technique of *correctio* because the verses depict violent desire:

Correctio est, quae tollit id quod dictum est et pro eo id quod magis idoneum videtur reponit, hoc modo:

Postquam vidit amans, immo veracius amens,
Hanc attrectari delinirique volentem,
Ceus lupus, aut potius catulis orbata leaena,
Involat os hominis, rapit illam, diripit illam,
Scilicet oblitus decoris, quin immo decoris.³³

Correctio is when one cancels what has been said and replaces it with words that seem more suitable, in this way:

Seeing the girl wanting to be fondled and seduced, the lover, nay, the madman—just as when a wolf, or better, a lioness, deprived of her young, flies at a man's face—grabs her, rips at her, certainly forgetting honor, nay more, beauty.

The overwrought images of the impulsive lover as angry wolf or lioness drive home the lesson of *correctio* while also displaying other devices, including the puns of *transductio* (*decoris...decoris*), the aural punning of *paronomasia* (*amans...amens*), and even the more advanced device of simile.

Marbod's verse examples were quoted wholesale or imitated by the authors of later arts of poetry and *dictamen*, reaching new generations of students through such *artes* as Eberhard the German's *Laborintus*, composed sometime in the mid-thirteenth century. A few more autonomous figural treatises appeared during the following century (among them Onulf's *Rethorici colores*, Geoffrey of Vinsauf's early *Summa de coloribus rethoricis*, and a prosimetrum treatise by Peter Riga, partly based on Marbod's), but none of these works achieved anything like the diffusion of *De ornamentis verborum*.³⁴ The greatest impact of Marbod's innovation would be found in the prominent place given to figural lists in the most successful of the *artes poetriae* and *dictandi*.

The origins of the *ars dictandi* also lie in the late eleventh century. The body of work associated with Alberic of the abbey of Montecassino, dated around 1080, is just about contemporary with Marbod's *De ornamentis verborum*. Alberic also responds significantly to the rising presence of the *Rhetorica ad Herennium*, which was being copied in central Italy as early as the middle of the century because of cultural and institutional contacts between the Benedictine monasteries of southeastern Germany (from where the earliest complete copies of the pseudo-Cicero originated) and Montecassino.³⁵ However, Alberic was most likely producing his important dictaminal work, not in the setting of Montecassino itself, but rather in the papal Curia at Rome during the period of the Investiture Controversy. This lends his teaching of eloquence, and his updated Ciceronianism, a circumstantial urgency.³⁶ Alberic's absorption of the teaching of the *Rhetorica ad Herennium* is not formally comparable to Marbod's: it is of a different order and genre, and it does not have the continually traceable afterlife of Marbod's little treatise, which was to be quoted and pillaged for the following two centuries. But Alberic signals a direction that rhetorical teaching was to take, anticipating what became an overriding interest of the fully developed *ars dictaminis* in the thirteenth century. Alberic recognizes the emotional load that letters—especially institutional letters, with their requests, complaints, exhortations, and political maneuverings—must carry, and he situates that emotional appeal in style. In Alberic this seems to be no longer an accident of textbook production (as it was in the imperial handbooks, which were filling a need not covered in the highly condensed compendia of late antiquity), nor is it the byproduct of a professedly elementary pedagogy (as in Marbod's *De ornamentis*). Rather, it has become a central condition of the understanding of the art of rhetoric.

While not itself an *ars dictaminis* in the later formal sense of the genre, Alberic's *Breviarium* (c.1077–80) is the earliest medieval work to apply traditional rhetorical doctrine to the purpose of letter writing. The *Breviarium* was not transmitted as a cohesive treatise, but comes down in a few manuscripts as a *corpus* related to a course on writing.³⁷ It covers elements of a liberal arts curriculum along with technical matters specific to letters and formularies. Indeed, it was Alberic's incorporation of *dictamen* into a larger curriculum that was to prove less popular as the genre of the *ars dictaminis* grew.³⁸ But the stylistic elements of his teaching persisted into later developments of the genre. Among the topics that he covers, two

stand out for their extravagant stylistic reach: the teaching of praise and blame, and the teaching of *exornationes* or ornamentation. From the amount of attention devoted to forms of praise and vituperation, much of the suasive burden of letters seems to rest on epideictic mastery. Praise and blame, those critical instruments of emotional response, require the medium of a distinctive style:

In laudem vel vituperationem seu alicuius persone seu virtutis seu vitii commodissime verba scemata et ornata aptantur, unde et ad harum utramque et ad laudem quam maxime in dictaminibus nostris frequentius recurrendum est, ut in ea decenter verborum nostrorum gemmas et ornamenta locemus.³⁹

In praise or blame of any person or virtue or vice, we furnish words that are more agreeably figured and ornamented; so toward either of these ends, and especially praise—to which we most frequently have recourse in our letter writing—let us tastefully lay out the jewels and ornaments of our language.

Alberic proceeds to give twenty-five examples of praise and ten different examples of vituperation (adding a further eighteen variations on the final subject, cupidity). In its search for copiousness it is almost Erasmian. Like ancient treatises on epideictic, Alberic's teaching provides different topics for praise and blame; but the emphasis in Alberic's treatise falls on stylistic display that openly flatters and softens (whether the object of the praise is the recipient of the letter or another person for whom the writer wants to evoke admiration and sympathy), or openly conjures contempt and hatred:

Item ad laudem: "Homo totius scientie litteralis fulgore preclarus...longanimitate patiens, miseratione compatiens, christiani cultus occultationis impatiens; frequens in lectione, frequentior in oratione, frequentissimus in exhortatione; abstinentie virtute mirabilis, mansuetudinis lenitate fere inexequabilis, benignitate meracus, lepidus et affabilis, quin immo ineffabilis...pauperibus et egestuosis munificus, adeo ut vix dici, vix scribi, vix dictum, vix scriptum valeat credulitati admitti."⁴⁰

Likewise for praise: "The man is illustrious in the splendor of the whole liberal arts...long-suffering in his patience, compassionate in his pity, intolerant of neglected Christian observance, constant in his teaching, more constant in his preaching, most constant in his exhortation, astonishing in the power of his abstinence, almost unequalled in the mildness of his clemency, undiluted in his benevolence, agreeable and affable to a point beyond words...munificent to the poor and the very poor—to such an extent that it can hardly be said, hardly be written; but having hardly been said, hardly written, let it be believed."

The emotional cues—mildness, generosity, affability or courtesy, sympathy—are wrapped into a demonstration of the rich, ornamented, passionate high style, featuring figures that have particular aural charm: *paronomasia*

and *adnominatio* (*frequens...frequentior...frequentissimus*), *repetitio* (*vix...vix...*), *contentio* (*patiens...compatiens...impatiens*). The chapter on *exornationes* is similar, providing a range of topics for verbal elaboration and focusing on a few key figures that he values as pertinent to *dictamen*: *contentio* (antithesis), *gradatio* (climax), and above all *expolitio* (or *interpretatio*, i.e., elaboration of a point).⁴¹ His definitions and some of his examples show his debt to *Rhetorica ad Herennium*.⁴² Most of the section on ornamentation is dedicated to the figure *expolitio*, where Alberic illustrates how to elaborate such topics as admiration, wonder, fear, rejoicing, and praise.

Another treatise long attributed to Alberic, *Dictaminum radii* (or *Flores rhetorici*), voices very much the same themes, associating a brilliant figurative style with expressing or eliciting strong emotion.⁴³ Alberic's authorship of this treatise has been seriously questioned in recent scholarship, but even without the prestige of Alberic's name and with uncertainty about its date, the *Dictaminum radii* gives an index of the power and extent of the Alberician approach.⁴⁴ Thus whether it is style in the service of emotional excitement or the obverse, emotion in the service of stylistic extravagance, the lesson is clear: emotional appeal is the object and style is the primary tool, and for this twofold reason style dominates the teaching.

The particular social contexts of formal letter writing were the driving forces in teaching such a degree of emotive expression in *dictamen*. In Italy, the teaching was directed to lay notaries who might serve many kinds of officials, secular and religious, aristocratic and common. Thus it took on an overwhelmingly formulary character to enable writers to perform adequately even without a strong liberal arts background.⁴⁵ Notaries might be assigned tasks that required a fluency with minute degrees of social hierarchy, but the teaching had to tap into a common denominator of human behaviors and responses that could suit private as well as public letters. Formal letters themselves were intended for oral delivery to the recipient, so that even essentially private correspondence took on the character of oratorical performance.⁴⁶ In the earlier period, events that played out on the large public stage of political history, notably the Investiture Controversy, could be recruited to exemplify a technique for arousing any kind of passionate response.⁴⁷ Among his many illustrations of the figure *expolitio*,

Alberic can incorporate a scurrilous condemnation of the anti-pope Clement III (adversary of the papal protagonist of the Investiture Controversy, Gregory VII) by placing him alongside a previous anti-pope, Honorius II, and lifting phrases out of a letter that Peter Damian had written in 1063 condemning the latter: “sancte persecutores ecclesie, discipline eversores apostolice, salutis inimici humane...peccati radices, diaboli precones, Antichristi apostoli” (persecutors of the Holy Church, destroyers of apostolic discipline, enemies of human salvation, roots of sin, heralds of the devil, apostles of Antichrist).⁴⁸ The lesson, however, is not in papal politics, but in developing an emotive technique that can be used for any occasion, private or public. The practice of *dictamen* embodies the ancient culture of epideictic now modified to fit a bureaucracy that processes social and political relations through a combination of formulaic writing and demonstrative performance.

Marbod of Rennes and Alberic of Montecassino do not anticipate the mature forms that the pragmatic rhetorics will take. But they lay the ground for the association of style with emotion that will persist into the later phases of the rhetorical arts and that will feature prominently in the most successful of them. It is in the thirteenth century that both the genres of the *ars poetriae* and *ars dictaminis* reach their apogee, with the triumphs of the forms laid down by Geoffrey of Vinsauf and Guido Faba. But looking at a few examples of intermediary efforts from the twelfth century helps to fill in the picture of what became important to medieval readers, teachers, and students: what aspects of the Ciceronian tradition remained valuable and what elements of that tradition were to fall by the wayside, to be replaced by more robust teaching models. I turn briefly here to Matthew of Vendôme’s *Ars versificatoria* and its contemporary context, and the modestly successful *Introductiones dictandi* by Transmundus, a French Cistercian.

The *Ars versificatoria* by Matthew of Vendôme garners considerable attention in modern scholarship as the first true exemplar of the *ars poetriae*. Yet in its complete form it survives in only seven manuscripts, five of them from the thirteenth century and two more from the fourteenth and fifteenth centuries. On the other hand, the verses that Matthew composed to illustrate his precepts proved more popular, many of these circulating independently or often with extracts of the treatise in thirteen further manuscripts.⁴⁹ What might account for the apparently limited value

of Matthew's *Ars versificatoria* in the eyes of medieval students and teachers? One standard answer has been that the arc of Matthew's success was halted by the ascendancy of Geoffrey of Vinsauf's *Poetria nova*, with which nothing could compete. Geoffrey's treatise had many advantages over its predecessor, including its memorable hexameter form. But on its own terms and in its totality, Matthew's treatise tells us more about its inherent drawbacks than form alone.

The *Ars versificatoria*, written no later than 1175, carries forward the identification of style with emotion that is summed up and newly laid out in Marbod of Rennes. In other words, it is fully in tune with the epideictic outlook of medieval pragmatic rhetorics. Its section on *modus dicendi* (manner of expression) treats figures of speech and tropes (although not figures of thought), giving these in the same order as the *Rhetorica ad Herennium* and Marbod's *De ornamentis verborum*. Matthew seems to prefer the definitions of grammarians, relying on Donatus' *Ars maior* 3 and Isidore's *Etymologiae* book 1. As in Marbod's treatise, Matthew's definitions offer no theory. Although earlier in his treatise he makes the tantalizing suggestion that "the property of words ought to conform to the countenances of the persons speaking and to their inner fortunes" (1.45), Matthew hardly attempts to link particular features of speech with particular facial expressions of grief, pity, fear, or joy. Such evocations are left, rather, to the vivid illustrative examples he supplies, some chosen from classical authors and some composed by him. On these terms, Matthew reprises the principles that solidified around Marbod and that were to crystallize even further in Geoffrey of Vinsauf's poetics and in the dictaminal arts of Guido Faba and others.

But Matthew's treatise also takes an innovative direction that was not to find favor with the next generation of *artes*. He recovers an older dimension of rhetorical theory that had dropped out of pragmatic concerns over the centuries of streamlining: the Ciceronian program of the attributes of the person and the act. Within this system, Cicero had erected a philosophical distinction between emotion and habit, *affectio* and *habitus*. We have seen already how the Ciceronian program found increasingly theoretical manifestations up through the twelfth century, culminating in the philosophical commentaries on Cicero by the cathedral school masters.⁵⁰ Perhaps inspired by the contemporary learned interest in Ciceronian rhetoric, Matthew uses the *De inventione* as a template for his own

instruction on staging the ideas that govern a poem. The section of the *Ars versificatoria* in which Matthew presents a theory of *descriptio* (1.74–116) develops a system of topical invention appropriate to the interests of poetic imitation and composition. *Descriptio* is not only “description,” but also a clarification, an opening up, an illumination of a subject by bringing it before the eyes.⁵¹ Matthew grafts his discussion of “topics” of *descriptio* onto Cicero’s account of the attributes of the person and the act (*De inventione* 1.24.34–1.28.43), obviously intending a correspondence with the ancient source. It is a striking decision to link the stylistic techniques of description with the attributes of the person and the act, suggesting that these will supply the reasoning that informs character “description.”

Matthew dilates on each of the eleven attributes of the person and the nine attributes of the action, turning the Ciceronian legal precept about character, behavior, motivation, and circumstances of the action to the purposes of literary composition concerning fictive or mythological persons and deeds. Adhering more or less to the order of the discussion in *De inventione*, he gives poetic illustrations of the uses of each attribute, often choosing from classical sources. His definition of *affectio* elaborates Cicero’s, echoing the language of the late antique treatise *De attributis personae et negotio*:

Affectio est repentina et transitoria animi vel corporis permutatio.⁵²
Unde sic elicitur argumentum.

Ovidius [*Met.* 2.447]:

O quam difficile est crimen non prodere vultu!

Idem alibi [*Met.* 8.677–8]:

...super omnia vultus

Accessere boni

Stacius Achilleidos [*Achilleid* 1.167–8]:

...O quantum gaudia forme

Adiciunt!

Lucanus [*De bello civili*, 5.364–5]:

...tremuit seva sub voce minantis

Vulgus inhers;

similiter poterit dici de virgine timente et puero:

Deflorat gravis ora metus pallorque ruboris
Exulis heredem se sine iure facit;

vel sic:

Est color interpres mentis vultuque propheta
Coniectura patet expositiva mali.

Leticia enim et timor et pallor et habitus superficialis pertinent ad affectionem.⁵³

Affectio is a sudden and temporary mutation of mind or body. From this an argument is drawn. E.g. Ovid: “O how hard it is not to betray guilt in the face!” and Ovid again: “Besides all this there were happy faces...” From Statius’ *Achilleid*: “Ah, how much does happiness augment beauty!” From Lucan: “The feeble mob trembled at the savage threats...” Similarly we can say of a frightened girl and a boy: “Great fear disfigures the face and pallor unlawfully usurps the place of the banished blush”; or this: “color is interpreter of the mind and in the face predicts intention; clearly the signs foretell harm.” For happiness and fear and pallor and the outer demeanor pertain to *affectio*.

This is a bold effort to meld stylistic teaching to an analysis of emotion. While he does not advance on the Ciceronian thought that was already embedded in twelfth-century learning, Matthew attempts to restore from Ciceronian rhetoric a certain psychological understanding of emotion as embodied in a human actor, rather than simply as manufactured through style. Some of Matthew’s method here, that is, letting the literary examples do much of the explanatory work, goes back to Marbod of Rennes and before that to the imperial figuralists, and this will take precedence in the *artes* of the thirteenth century. But the experimental aspects of Matthew’s text—the recovery of inventional thought about emotion and its application to poetic composition—seem to leave few traces in contemporary teaching. No significant *ars poetriae* of the next generation preserves Matthew’s double approach to *descriptio*, as stylistic technique and as a form of topical invention, and none exhibits his commitment to the Ciceronian text, where emotion is treated as an inventional resource. Only in the later fourteenth century, in the extensive and composite *Tria sunt*, do we find the footprint

of Matthew's *Ars versificatoria* and its approach to the attributes of the person and the action.⁵⁴

There is some tantalizing correspondence with a short anonymous treatise on poetry in Saint-Omer, Bibliothèque municipale, MS 115, a monastic collection of Latin verse compiled in the last quarter of the twelfth century.⁵⁵ The "Saint-Omer Art of Poetry" centers on examples of *descriptio personae*, suggesting some kind of link with Matthew's pursuit of *descriptio* as a "super-category" of poetic invention. As in the *Ars versificatoria*, the poetics offered here are topical, and the vocabulary is reminiscent of the Ciceronian attributes of the person:

Affectus tristis dicamus versibus istis
Etatis, studii militis egregii,
Sexus, meroris, fortune, flentis amoris,
Pirate, iuvenis, coniugis atque senis.

(lines 9–12)⁵⁶

Let us set forth in these verses the states of sorrowful age, mighty striving in battle, sex, grief, fortune, tearful love, a pirate, a youth, a wife, and an old man.

But despite the similarity with Matthew's *Ars*, the model of *descriptio personae* in the Saint-Omer "Art" may have deeper roots in Isidore of Seville's treatment of *ethopoeia* (*Etymologiae* 2.14) and in the stylistic precept of *Rhetorica ad Herennium* 4, where the figures *effictio* and *notatio* (*ethopoeia*) involve portraits and character delineations (*Rhetorica ad Herennium* 4.49.63–4.50.63).⁵⁷ In fact, in its brief totality, the Saint-Omer "Art" seems to document the resurgence of the *Rhetorica ad Herennium* and its stylistic teaching rather than the influence of the topical system of invention as revived in Matthew's *Ars versificatoria*. The text ends with an encomium of style itself and of the poet who observes the principles of decorum that Horace's *Ars poetica* teaches. Thus despite the intriguing likenesses with Matthew's *Ars*, and the echo of the Ciceronian sequence *habitus, affectus, studium*, the treatment of emotion in the Saint-Omer "Art" is not really inventional but stylistic.

Where Matthew's experiment in synthesizing style and invention found little traction in the following generation, the impact of the *Rhetorica ad Herennium* and the expanded scope of stylistic teaching continued to grow. The *Introductiones dictandi* of Transmundus, from the last decades of the twelfth century, is an excellent witness to the emergence of style as the

dominant approach. The *Introductiones* is a product of the twelfth-century French dictaminal school, with its belletristic emphasis on elegance and ornamentation, so the focus of Transmundus' text is characteristic, not remarkable.⁵⁸ Transmundus gives pride of place to style in his treatise. Having quickly dispatched arrangement or divisions at the level of the sentence and then at the level of the letter as a whole, he proceeds to something like a *précis* of *Rhetorica ad Herennium* 4: the three levels of style, figures of speech (*colores rhetoricis*), figures of thought (*colores sententiarum*), further *figurae loquendi* and *schemata*, and the tropes. Here, following precedent, the tendency is to associate particular figures with emotional states: *explanatio* is appropriate for indignation or grief, *conduplicatio* is valuable for evoking pity, and other stylistic effects produce amazement, desire, and indignation.⁵⁹

Not all arts of dictamen and poetry over the following generations were to treat style at length as a quasi-independent subject. But the most successful arts are marked by this. One popular work that stands as an exception is Brunetto Latini's *Trésor*, written in the 1260s. The *Trésor*, however, is not mainly a rhetorical treatise—despite the decisive influence of its rhetorical teaching on such later authors as Gower—but an encyclopedia of the sciences.⁶⁰ Brunetto's *Rettorica*, also c.1260, is a partial Tuscan translation of *De inventione*, going only as far as 1.17.24 and thus not extending beyond matters relating to the exordium. It breaks off before Cicero's discussion of *habitus*, *affectio*, and *studium*. And as a version of *De inventione*, it does not include a treatment of style. By contrast, Bono Giamboni's loose translation of the *Ad Herennium* into Italian, also from the 1260s, strongly reflects the trend toward greater stylistic emphasis for which the resurgence of the *Ad Herennium* itself was partly responsible. Giamboni's innovation was to foreground the figures and tropes by transferring book 4 of *Ad Herennium* to the beginning of the vernacular treatise. In various recensions, Giamboni's vernacular paraphrase circulated widely in Italy, probably because there was a natural audience for it in the dictaminal circles of the Italian cities.⁶¹ Yet the importance of the *Ad Herennium* is not always predictive of the success of a new treatise. Jean d'Antioche's complete French translation of both the *De inventione* and the *Ad Herennium*, produced at Acre in 1282, survives only in one manuscript.⁶²

But the most successful treatises of the High Middle Ages, the pedagogical juggernauts by Geoffrey of Vinsauf and Guida Faba, leave us in no doubt about the overwhelming importance of style as the source of affective impact. Their success lay in the streamlined comprehensiveness of their rhetorical teaching, the foregrounding of style as the supreme instrument of rhetorical effect, and the perfected literary exemplification of the figures and tropes. It should be stressed that not all medieval rhetoric is style: the arts of poetry and prose also treat invention and arrangement of arguments. Nor is rhetorical style exclusively concerned with producing emotion. But the burden of demonstrating how to generate emotion fell overwhelmingly to stylistic teaching.

It has been easy to mistake the overt linguistic formalism of the arts of poetry for the totality of their purpose. Geoffrey of Vinsauf's early treatise in prose, the *Summa de coloribus rethoricis*, written during the last decades of the twelfth century, looks very much like some of its predecessors.⁶³ It gives a terse directive connecting emotions to various figures:

Notandum est, quod ex predictis exornationibus quedam quibusdam materiis sunt necessarie; materie vero, que tractatur ex ira, vel indignatione, vel dolore, vel amore, vel odio, vel insania, hee sunt necessarie: repetitio, articulus, exclamatio, conduplicatio, dubitatio, subiectio.⁶⁴

It is to be noted that of the aforementioned ornaments, certain are necessary for certain kinds of subject matter; for matter which treats of anger, or indignation, or sorrow, or love, or hatred, or madness, the following are necessary: *repetitio*, *articulus*, *exclamatio*, *conduplicatio*, *dubitatio*, and *subiectio*.

But the preceding explanations of these devices give no hint of where the therapeutic effect of such poetic language might lie: "*Repetitio* est continuatio in principio diuersarum clausularum quando idem repetitur" (*Repetitio* is repetition at the beginning of different clauses, when the same word is repeated). That information is accessible only through the example, in this case a confected fragment of a line of poetry that would fit a situation of shock or relief at some surprising recognition: "Idem crinis, idem caput, idem vultus in illis" (In these the same hair, the same head, the same face).⁶⁵ The assumption is that students would already have encountered such a device at work in poems which they have read. Thus a student would register that the affective responses that similar passages have drawn from him in the past were actually cued by certain linguistic devices now being explained schematically.

In Geoffrey's mature and accomplished *Poetria nova*, any attempts to link particular emotions with their corresponding figurative devices have all but disappeared. The *Poetria nova* is a masterpiece of technographic instruction, a refined summation of linguistic logic. But compared with the style manuals that preceded it, it does not rely on programmatic definitions of figures, instead giving full rein to tailor-made literary exemplifications. A trope like hyperbole will be engagingly (and here also punningly) demonstrated rather than defined, directing attention to the sensual and psychological effects of the figure:

Curat yperbolicus, sed non discurrat inepte
Sermo: refrenet eum ratio placeatque modestus
Finis, ut excessum nec mens nec abhorreat auris.
Sicut in hac forma vocis: *Transverberat hostes*
Telorum quasi grando pluens; Silvas imitatur
Hastarum confracta strues; Fluit unda cruoris
Aequoris exemplo vexantque cadavera valles.

(lines 1013–19)⁶⁶

Let hyperbole run, but don't let the discourse run amok. Let reason curb it and let its disciplined conclusion be pleasing, so that neither mind nor ear abhor excess. Thus in this form of words: *a rain of javelins strikes the enemy like a hailstorm; the broken pile of spears resembles a forest; a wave of blood flows as if it were an ocean, and the corpses overwhelm the valleys.*

The preceptive advice carries the idea of emotional and sensual responses to language without theorizing that link: the mind and ear should not “abhor” or shudder at excess. But the literary example, composed to illustrate this stylistic precept, is designed to set a memorable scene of horror, calling not only on the powers of hyperbole but of *enargeia* or vivid description.

It is also this demonstrative rather than explanatory mode that generates the force of Geoffrey's most famous set piece, the lament on the death of Richard I, with its melodramatic torrent of apostrophes to England, to the day of Richard's death, to Richard's killer, to death itself, to nature, and finally to God (lines 367–430). This monumental exercise in apostrophe is intended to illustrate the principle of amplification, how to enlarge a subject. In its construction we see how style has subsumed all the other elements of rhetorical reasoning under its own momentum, as each apostrophe (to England, to the day, and so forth) represents an inventional topic, an attribute of the person or of the act or in this case of the event. But these topics now supply the matter of stylistic amplification. The topical

reasoning has been thoroughly subordinated to stylistic effect, and emotion is presented as the property of style:

O Veneris lacrimosa dies! O sidus amarum.
Illa dies tua nox fuit et Venus illa venenum.

(lines 375–6)

O tearful day of Venus! O bitter star!
That day was your night and Venus your venom!

This is the triumphant drive of epideictic rhetoric. Even the most overtly philosophical analysis of language, the account of the mechanisms of the trope that Geoffrey calls *transumptio*, which he defines through categories of logical transference borrowed from theology and philosophy, finds its real purpose in bursts of stylistic melodrama. The sub-categories of *transumptio* include metonymy. Thus to achieve metonymical substitution of abstract for concrete, we convert “the grieving man seeks solace” (“lugens solamen”) to “grief seeks solace” (“solamine luctus”) (lines 967, 969). The emotions illustrate how we disrupt the logic of cause and effect:

Formido pallet; rubet ira; superbia turget.
Dulcescitque magis meliusque saporat in aure
Quando quod effectus sibi vindicat applico causae.

(lines 975–7)

“Terror grows pale, anger grows red, pride swells up.” It sweetens and tastes better in the ear when I apply to the cause [i.e. terror] what the effect [i.e. growing pallid] should win for itself.

(In other words, instead of fear causing pallor, fear becomes pallor itself). All of the overt attention is dedicated to verbal logic; but the material on which the lesson is built and toward which it is aimed is emotional knowledge.

These examples can also suggest how, in the *Poetria nova*, the scope of style has expanded to subsume topical thought. Under the principle of *transumptio*, Geoffrey treats the tropes as if they now function as engines of topical invention. What Ciceronian rhetoric would recognize as strategies or “seats” of inventional reasoning, such as “similarity,” “difference,” “contraries,” “antecedents,” “consequents,” “cause,” “effect,” and “comparison,” are covered in the *Poetria nova* as operations of the major tropes that Geoffrey designates as having *gravitas* or a certain difficulty (line 961).⁶⁷ To metonymy and synecdoche especially fall such powerful

instruments of reasoning as contrariety, cause and effect, and whole and part (lines 966–1037). Thus the emotional valence of the topics, which in Ciceronian rhetoric generated arguments, has now been assumed under the governing category of style.⁶⁸

Geoffrey's account of the *colores* or figures of speech (lines 1098–217) demonstrates the extent to which the tradition of the imperial figural manuals, mediated by such authorities as Marbod of Rennes, has been assimilated but also transformed. In contrast with earlier manuals, there are no definitions of the figures given, but rather a literary set piece on the Fall in which each figure is exemplified in virtually the same order as they are listed in *Rhetorica ad Herennium* and Marbod's *De ornamentis verborum*. Deploying each figure in turn, the exercise in 119 hexameters builds remorselessly to ever higher degrees of passionate appeal:

Res mala! Res pejor aliis! Res pessima rerum! [i.e., repetitio]
O malum! miserum malum! miserabile malum! [i.e., conversio]
Cur tetigit te gustus Adae? Cur unius omnes
Culpam flemus Adae? [i.e., complexio]

(1098–100)

Deed so evil! Deed more evil than other deeds! Deed most evil of deeds! O fruit!
unfortunate fruit! miserable fruit! Why do we all bemoan the fault of one Adam?

Such a demonstrative exercise is not in itself unusual as a teaching tool (as we saw in the case of the “Saint-Omer Art of Poetry”) or a form of display, but in the context of preceptive style manuals Geoffrey's strategy of exemplification alone is innovative. Marjorie Curry Woods notes that the set piece on the figures of speech often attracted the heaviest glossing of the *Poetria nova*, with commentators glossing each example of a figure by its name and often also resupplying the definitions that Geoffrey of Vinsauf had suppressed by absorbing the precept into his continuous literary demonstration.⁶⁹ One fourteenth-century commentator, Reiner von Cappel, a Dominican teacher of Saxony, leaves us a valuable record of the pedagogical reception of the exercise. Reiner numbers the first eight figures, and glosses each of the thirty-five figures used, giving their names and traditional definitions. For example, on the first figure, *repetitio*:

Res mala! Hic ponit primum colorem qui dicitur repetitio, que est cum plures orationes continue subsequentes ab eadem dictione incipiunt.

Deed so evil! Here he puts the first color, which is called *repeticio*, which occurs when several statements following one right after the other begin with the same word.⁷⁰

According to Woods, this layout suggests a classroom practice of reading aloud from the text, followed by the teacher's explanation of each figure as it occurs in the narrative. Thus the sound and emotional tenor of each figure of speech would make an impact on students' senses even before a definition was offered. The sensuous appeal of style would jolt minds and ears before any precepts were offered to reason and memory. This reverses the paradigm handed down from the imperial manuals. Where the students of late antiquity would first learn a precept and then recognize it in a quotation from a familiar passage of poetry or oratory, thus giving a name to the stylistic effect that they knew already, the students encountering the teaching of Geoffrey's *Poetria nova* were first exposed to the stylistic effect, which was then to be explained in the classroom after its impact had landed.

The *Poetria nova* presents not only a technical streamlining of rhetorical doctrine, but a psychological one. In its innovative approach to the teaching of style, it treats students almost like general readers of poetry, subject to the same shocks, passions, and sensuous appeals that would move any audience. Only after they respond to the effects of a passionate style will they absorb the teaching about how to achieve it. While the aim is a formal knowledge of technique, the means to that aim is now directly through the mimetic effects of style. And perhaps most important, the teaching does not necessarily call upon or inculcate a love for the literary canon in order to achieve its aims. Rather, for examples drawn from familiar poetry, it substitutes a custom-made composition that demonstrates each figure in order. If emotion has become the property of style, it can also be the property of a stylistic technique abstracted from canonical literature that can be learned and unleashed as its own powerful dynamic. It is not surprising that at least one other teacher saw the attractiveness of Geoffrey's psychological streamlining. Later in the century, sometime before 1280, another composer of an *ars poetriae*, the grammar teacher Eberhard the German, was to imitate this procedure in his *Laborintus*, substituting a poem for explanations of the figures of speech, along with the proviso: "Ponam, nominibus tacitis, exempla colorum / Carmen depingo sic Ciceronis ope" (I will give examples of the rhetorical colors without their

names; I compose a poem according to Cicero [i.e., according to the order of the *colores* in the *Rhetorica ad Herennium*]).⁷¹

Guido Faba's *Summa dictaminis* (1228–9) takes a less innovative path than Geoffrey's *Poetria nova*, but it rides the epideictic momentum of rhetorical teaching. From its origins, the *ars dictaminis* was the most socially driven of the rhetorical arts, dealing in the minutest calibrations of hierarchy, civic pressures, and political or familial conflicts. The *dictatores* of thirteenth-century Bologna especially managed their careers and their professional rivalries through flamboyant self-promotion: Boncompagno da Signa, notably, claimed that his own works, not Cicero's, should be read and taught for their reform of rhetoric.⁷² This pressurized culture of exuberant self-promotion and ambitious academic competition was an ideal platform for an emotionally charged rhetoric.

Guido goes so far in his earlier *Rota nova* (c.1225) as to offer an emotionally wrought personal testimonial about his professional struggles, a self-hagiography in which he details the sacrifices that he made and the privations he endured to establish his school of *dictamen* and thus restore to Bologna all of her lost glory as the epicenter of rhetorical teaching. In three bodily afflictions that he claims to have suffered, he was struck by turns dumb, lame, and blind:

et sic triplici dolore afflictus revelationem misterii recognovit, et in se reversus plorans humiliter cepit coram omnibus protestari, quod eum hoc trino signo sancta trinitas... revocabat. Demum sic contritus et flagellatus ad male dimissum studium rediit festinanter, de quo magistri Bononie pariter et scholares gaudium habuerunt...⁷³

And so now afflicted with threefold suffering, he recognized the revelation of a mystery, and recovering himself and weeping, he humbly protested before all that with these three signs the Holy Trinity was calling him back... Thus scourged and sorry, he swiftly returned to his former studies which he had wrongly put aside, upon which the masters as well as the students of Bologna rejoiced...⁷⁴

The message that students might take away from such display would be, not that they too must suffer for their art, but rather that the art itself was primarily affective in its aims, and that under Guido's guidance they would themselves master the techniques for engaging the passions. In this vein, Guido's blockbuster art, the *Summa dictaminis*, beckons potential students to enter the master's verdant garden, where their senses will be delighted by the sweet songs (*dulces cantus*) of birds, the sweetness (*suavitas*) of murmuring fountains, the fragrance of spices, and smiling flowers. Here,

emotion is both the means and the object of persuading students to learn under Guido's instruction: the garden promises pleasure and happiness to those who want to learn how to seduce others with such rich pleasures. The students are invited to drink deeply at the fountain of Guido's wisdom.⁷⁵

Despite its claims for distinctiveness, Guido's *Summa dictaminis* is representative of the Bolognese *ars dictaminis* in the early thirteenth century. Like his contemporaries Boncompagno da Signa and Bene da Firenze, Guido offers a profusion of technical material in order to assert completeness.⁷⁶ Guido intended his *Summa* to be an integrated course in the arts of discourse, teaching not only the finer technicalities of letter-writing—including the parts of the letter, the calibrations of the salutation, and the prose rhythms or *cursus* to be observed—but also Latin grammar and syntax, knowledge of words and their “derivations” or roots, and the *colores* of rhetoric, that is, the figures of speech. Thus he wants to bring all relevant teaching about language under the umbrella of *dictamen* to present a complete education in the language arts in one generous package. He presents this as his distinctive contribution to dictaminal instruction: it is into *this* garden, replete with all knowledge of how to make language a sensuous, gratifying experience, that he seductively invites his prospective students so that they might learn to control that medium.

His analyses of the figures of speech are traditionally technical. But they are brought to life through the examples. Every description of a figure is accompanied by an exhortative or directly emotive example either custom-made or drawn from literary and moral commonplaces, prayer, Scripture, and sermon literature. No doubt this is to make the figures easier to remember, but it also situates the doctrine in an emotive framework. For example, *frequentatio*, the “heaping figure,” is illustrated vividly:

Frequentatio est, cum res in causa disperse coguntur in unum locum, hoc modo: “A quo tandem vitio abest iste? Proditor est sue pudicitie, insidiator aliene, cupidus, petulans, superbus, impius in parentes, ingratus in amicos, infestus cognatis, in superiores contumax, in equales fastigosus, in inferiores crudelis, denique in omnes intolerabilis.”⁷⁷

Frequentatio is when matters dispersed across the argument are collected in one place, as in this example: “What vice does this one lack? He is traitor to his modesty, betrayer of another's, selfish, petulant, proud, irreverent to parents, ungrateful to friends, dangerous to family, insubordinate to his betters, haughty among equals, harsh to inferiors: in short, insufferable to all.”

This works from moral reinforcement (the vices to be avoided) to inspire indignation, illustrating how the “heaping figure” orchestrates language to arouse an angry response. To illustrate *similiter desinens* (similar word endings), he offers an example that could hail generically from epic poetry or public oratory:

“Quid facerem in tanto periculo constitutus? Pugnarem? Sed erat hostium multitudo robustior. Discederem? Sed locus munitissimus non sinebat.”⁷⁸

“Placed in such danger, what was I to do? Should I fight? But the enemy force was stronger. Should I withdraw? But the fortification made this impossible.”

Here the precept about language effects is embodied in a melodramatic scene of combat terror, illuminating the field in which such a figure of speech comes to life. Like many of the dictaminal writers, Guido was opportunistic in his search for examples, seizing whatever useful illustrations the tradition handed to him and tailoring them for his own purposes. This example bears some similarity to the illustration that Marbod of Rennes supplies for the figure *subiectio* or questioning, refashioned to fit the purposes of *similiter desinens*; Guido might also have found it in the *Graecismus* of Eberhard of Béthune, who borrowed it from Marbod.⁷⁹ The instruction does not need to theorize the emotion to be generated, because the field of activation is inevitably emotional appeal. Only in one case does Guido explicitly locate emotion in the figure itself, as part of the explanation, in his traditional definition of *exclamatio* as the figure of grief or outrage.⁸⁰

The *Summa dictaminis* survives in over 150 manuscripts, somewhat fewer than the count of *Poetria nova* witnesses, but a remarkable number nevertheless.⁸¹ The success of these particular works, which represent the apogees of their respective genres, lies in their simplified approach to rhetorical teaching: as complete, ambitious, and technically rigorous as they are, they also want to present rhetoric in its most accessible form, and to this end the teaching of style is the strongest suit. The compression of rhetorical thought into the pedagogically practical function of style was not universal, but it emerged as the most influential, and it had long historical roots. Retrospectively it looks like an inevitable development from the rhetorical teaching of late antiquity and the early Middle Ages. The packaging of rhetorical teaching under the charge of style was buoyed along by the epideictic momentum of medieval rhetoric. With these historical

developments, as we have seen, style appropriated to itself the greatest share of emotional persuasion.

The consequence of this was that the tools for generating emotion were the preserve of a highly technical teaching about language effects: how to elicit emotional response through sensuous and often charged sound effects (mainly the figures of speech) and through topical thought lodged in stylistic effects (the tropes). This does not mean that evoking emotion was the only use for the figures or for other devices such as meter and rhythm. The figures are not always associated with emotional effects in this teaching, and a figure could be illustrated with examples that evoke other kinds of aesthetic responses, including the enjoyment of reasoning, the recognition of a pattern, or hearing the echo of another text. But in this variety of rhetorical pedagogy, the only provision for evoking emotion is through style. As Woods has noted, strong emotion is a good didactic tool, as it holds the attention and sticks in the memory.⁸² Thus teachers would have reason to choose striking examples to illustrate figures that do not inherently or automatically produce emotional effects.

It bears repeating that the relationship between language effects and emotional response was never highly theorized and most often remained implicit, just as in the style manuals of late antiquity. Like the imperial manuals, the medieval *artes* recognized that they were teaching how to deploy language as a mimetic instrument that can conjure emotions into reality. But unlike the imperial manuals, most of the medieval *artes* did not deliver their teaching through literary examples culled from canonical authors, and thus they were not inculcating literary or rhetorical appreciation of the authors. Rather than drawing on an emotional appeal that has already resonated with students through their literary curriculum, the medieval *artes* teach techniques as free tools of language, that is, detached from an established literary context. In Geoffrey of Vinsauf's *Poetria nova* (and in his imitator, Eberhard the German), the figures of speech are implanted, without definition, in an emotive illustration composed for the sole purpose of demonstrating the figures. The traces of pedagogical reception, discussed above, suggest that the passage might be read aloud, and once the effect was registered, the master would explain the figure and how it works. The verse illustrations might also be memorized, in which case the students would have a mnemonic of the figures exemplified. Even with these possibilities in view, the teaching does not

directly lead back to a literary corpus, but rather to a technical apprehension of style as an iterable system of language effects.

3.2 Anthologies of Style: Love Letters and Poetry

Yet the authors of the *artes*, or the masters who taught the *artes*, did value literary contextualization. Of course, the *artes* themselves supply examples, notably the long set pieces that contributed to the popularity of the *Poetria nova*. But some of the masters also produced independent works to illustrate their teaching. These can tell us a great deal about how they imagined precept turning into literary practice, and also about how later writers assimilated such rhetorical principles.

In the last decade of the twelfth century, the *dictator* Boncompagno da Signa, an older contemporary of Guido Faba, composed a “model” collection of love letters which he called the *Rota Veneris* or “wheel of Venus,” a set of examples which he claims will be useful to all because, as he says in the opening chapter, “people of whatever sex or condition, who are bound to one another by the chains of love, are turned round and round as if on a wheel” (“quia cuiuscumque sexus vel conditionis homines qui amoris vinculo ad invicem colligantur tamquam rota orbiculariter volvuntur,” lines 15–16).⁸³ Boncompagno’s *Rota Veneris* is a precocious *jeu d’esprit* for consumption within his own learned professional and literary culture, a sly adaptation of the *ars amandi* to dictaminal teaching (with allusions to Andreas Capellanus’ *De amore* and to biblical and Ovidian love poetry).⁸⁴ But as a rhetorical treatise it affirms the primacy of style as the resource of passionate persuasion. Thus the majority of the theoretical advice he gives concerns the power of stylistic ornament to move:

Huiusmodi siquidem proverbia, occulte ratiocinationes et similitudines faciunt plurimum ad usum amandi. Ponantur igitur in talibus iocunde transumptiones et proverbia de quibus possit multiplex intellectus haberi, quia non modicum faciunt amantium animos gratulari. Et non solum milites et domine verum etiam populares iocundis quandoque transumptionibus utuntur et sic sub quodam verborum velamine vigor amoris intenditur et amicabile suscipit incrementum.⁸⁵

Proverbs of this kind, subtle ratiocinations and similitudes, contribute the most to the purposes of the lover. Therefore pleasing transumptions and proverbs from which multiple senses are derived should be used in such letters, since they give no small pleasure to the souls of lovers. Not only knights and ladies, but at times even common people use pleasing transumptions.

Thus beneath a certain veil of words the force of love intensifies and finds a delightful increase.

The early date of the *Rota Veneris* suggests that it anticipates Geoffrey of Vinsauf's *Poetria nova* in designating *transumptio* as a super category for all tropes.⁸⁶ Boncompagno's definition of *transumptio* as the essence of amorous persuasion takes him explicitly into the realm of epideictic rhetoric:

Sed videndum est quid sit transumptio. Transumptio est positio unius dictionis pro altera, que quandoque ad laudem quandoque ad vituperium rei transumpte redundat. Et est notandum quod omnis transumptio est largo modo similitudo, sed non convertitur. Ceterum dictator ita debet esse providus in transumendo ut semper fiat quedam similitudo vocis vel effectus in trasumptione. Nam si mulierem transumeres in quercum, non esset iocunda transumptio; et si diceres "collegi glandes" pro effectu amoris alicuius, turpiter transumeres quoniam glandes sunt cibaria porcorum. Sed si poneres "palmam" pro muliere et "dactilos" pro amoris effectu bene transumeres, quoniam palma est arbor famosa et dactili dulcedinem exhibent per gustum.⁸⁷

But we should clarify what *transumptio* is. A "transumption" is putting one word in place of another, such that it swells either to praising or vilifying the subject transumed. Note that every transumption is broadly speaking a similitude, but not the other way around. But yet a writer ought to be provident in transuming, so that there is always a certain likeness of word or effect in the transumption. For if you call a woman an oak, this is not a pleasing transumption; and if you say "I have gathered acorns" to signify the enjoyment of the woman's love, you would be making a base transumption because acorns are pigfeed. But if you should put "palm tree" for woman and "dates" for the enjoyment of love, you would be making an excellent transumption, because the palm is a distinguished tree and dates yield a sweet taste.

The overt imperative of this teaching may be the intellectual pleasure offered by the "multiple senses" of complex transumptions and proverbs. But behind it lies the assumption that style—often dedicated to effusive praise and chilling insult—is the most effective vehicle for eliciting love and hate. In the *Rota Veneris*, epideictic rhetoric has moved effortlessly from a public, ceremonial function to the realm of private erotic discourse; or conversely, it is because erotic discourse is necessarily charged with emotion that Boncompagno can use a model sequence of love letters to teach the more universal rhetorical lesson of rousing the passions. The "veil of words" gratifies the mind, but that stylistic "veil" gives way to and produces a profound emotional impact, the intensification of desire.

Boncompagno represents the leading edge of the Bolognese *dictatores* who advocated the use of a plain style for composing letters, opposing the highly wrought literary style taught by the French *dictatores* of the twelfth

century. But this plain style was to evolve into a quasi-oratorical or sermon style marked by the use of *colores rhetorici* that conveyed the sense of powerful feeling without calling attention to its difficulty.⁸⁸ As if predicting that later development, Boncompagno's early *Rota Veneris* offers a style that is restrained but not austere. Although he gives explicit theoretical attention to the intellectual pleasure of *transumptio*, his style is replete with easier but effective figures of speech. One of the responses by the "man" to a letter from the "woman" begins:

Si regnum essem adeptus et regali diademate coronatus, non tantum foret gaudium cordi meo innatum quantum de vestrarum litterarum tenore percepi.⁸⁹

Had I attained a kingdom and been crowned with a regal diadem, there would not have been as much joy aroused in my heart as I felt from the tenor of your letter.

The aural play on *regnum* and *regali* gives a nod towards the figure *traductio* (punning repetition), while the sound repetitions of *adeptus* and *coronatus* combine with the force of *zeugma* (*coniunctio*), here a grammatical play on a deponent verb (the active voice of *adeptus sum*) and the passive participle (...*coronatus*), both active and passive held together by the same auxiliary verb *essem*. In another series, a pregnant girl writes to her now indifferent lover:

...et tamen scitur in platheis quod gessimus in absconso; vultus pallet, tumescit venter, reserantur claustra pudoris.⁹⁰

...nevertheless what we did in secret is known in the streets: the face grows pale, the belly swells, the doors of chastity are unlocked.

After the *contrarium* of the public streets and the hidden deed, there is a transumptive series of effect for cause, effect for cause, and cause for effect, all vivid circumlocutions for the girl's condition. In another example, *frequentatio* (*synathroesmos*), that favored figure of high passion, finds illustration in the words of a wife summoning her lover:

Transmisi vobis violas, nunc autem fasciculum destino rosarum quoniam amicitie vestre superlativis laudibus conveniunt flores, fructus et frondes.⁹¹

I sent you violets, but now I send you a bouquet of roses, because flowers, fruits, foliage commingle in the superlative praise of your love.

As much as Boncompagno's model love letters allude to existing literary traditions of love poetry and the *ars amandi*, as much as they are threaded

through with biblical quotations and references, they are still intended, even if only provisionally, to supplant the literary canon.⁹² They represent a teacher's custom-made expression of what is to be learned and applied. While they depend on recognition of the stylistic effects lodged in Ovid or the Song of Songs, they orient that knowledge to the future text that the student will compose out of these newly distilled models. And what is taught here are not the grand ideas of literary form, or of arguments from character, or of precepts for ethical conduct that the sources might argue, but the targeted techniques of arousing the passions through praise and blame.

So embedded was this early stylistic teaching to become that its traces can be found in the high literary culture of the late fourteenth century. In book 2 of *Troilus and Criseyde*, when Troilus writes his love letter to Criseyde, Pandarus advises him to write in a plain style, to avoid writing "scryvenyssh or craftyly" (1026), that is, without clerkly or artificial effects. Of course Chaucer's Pandarus would advise using the *stilus humilis* for a letter, signaling the long influence of the Bolognese dictaminal teaching. But for both Pandarus and Troilus, the simple style is not intended to be unemotional or without ornament. According to Pandarus, the emotional sincerity conveyed through Troilus' straightforward language will find its material counterpart in the traces of the few tears that he will let drop on the ink (1027)—the allusion to advice in Ovid's *Ars amatoria* (1.467–8, 3.479–82) adds a nice literary irony about emotional truthfulness, as Ovid's lover is meant to use tears as a falsifying device, while Chaucer's Troilus is weeping real tears which, "biblotted" on the page, will affirm the truth of his words. On the other hand, while Pandarus says nothing specifically about deploying any *colores rhetorici*, the narrator's report of the letter that Troilus wrote does not eschew mentioning how Troilus addressed Criseyde as "His hertes lif, his lust, his sorwes leche" (1066), exemplifying how efficiently the simple figures of repetition in sound and piling on in syntax (*frequentatio*) can conjure feeling. Troilus' letter captures the spirit of Boncompagno's dictaminal theory, in which style speaks for itself without having to speak about itself.⁹³

Such poetic effects were also embedded directly through the tradition of teaching poetry. Early in the century, following Boncompagno's *Rota Veneris*, sometime after about 1216, an English master or masters put together a collection of materials relating primarily to the *ars poetriae*: six

rhetorical treatises by Matthew of Vendôme, Geoffrey of Vinsauf, and Gervase of Melkley, and fifty poems on miscellaneous subjects. The manuscript in which this collection of materials is found is Glasgow, Hunterian, MS V.8.14 (formerly Hunterian 511). The rhetorical treatises are Matthew of Vendôme's *Ars versificatoria*, Geoffrey of Vinsauf's early *Summa de coloribus rethoricis*, Geoffrey's *Documentum de modo et arte dictandi et versificandi*, Geoffrey's *Poetria nova*, and Gervase of Melkley's *Ars poetica* along with his short *Dictamen prosaicum*. These rhetorical arts are attested in other manuscripts, although only the *Poetria nova* had a vast circulation, the others surviving in considerably fewer copies. But what makes the Hunterian manuscript distinctive, and what commands our attention here, are the short poems that accompany the rhetorical treatises—or more precisely, that are grouped between the various treatises.⁹⁴ Many of the poems survive uniquely in this manuscript, although they were likely copied from lost exemplars. At least one of the poems is thought to be by Matthew and others might be by Geoffrey and Gervase, since they are quoted in Geoffrey's *Documentum* and Gervase's *Ars poetica*. One of the poems in the manuscript, "Pergama flere volo," on the destruction of Troy, was extremely well known, copied in the *Carmina burana* and in other florilegia.⁹⁵

Seven different hands contributed to this small, neat manuscript: the better part of it was copied by one scribe who often filled up a quire with poetic material after another scribe had copied a treatise. This scribe (A) probably oversaw the production of the manuscript as a whole.⁹⁶ We do not know whether he was the master who conceived the collection or was simply in charge of the team of scribes, although the former seems very possible; we also cannot know whether this was a collaboration by a group of teachers or the inspiration of one master who availed himself of the help of various scribes. Edmond Faral, whose account of this manuscript remains influential, described the poems as an "anthology" of works by masters and exercises by students illustrating the most prominent themes of composition teaching: rhythm and phrasing, vocabulary, choice of expression, and use of tropes and figures.⁹⁷

In its totality, then, the manuscript is more striking for its pedagogical coherence than other Latin poetic collections that might be considered "anthologies" associated with the literary teaching of the schools. A notable example would be a late twelfth-century florilegium from the cathedral of

Tours containing the poetry of Marbod of Rennes and Hildebert of Lavardin, as well as many other poems exemplifying various Latin meters.⁹⁸ A florilegium like that of Tours presents the literary core of a school tradition, and here in particular the poetry produced and read in preceding generations.⁹⁹ Unlike the Tours florilegium, the Glasgow manuscript links its poetic readings to the theoretical teachings that are also copied there—or at least these links are strongly implied by contiguity as well as quotation within some of the treatises.

Another difference between the Glasgow manuscript and other poetic florilegia or anthologies lies in the poetry collected. The Tours florilegium takes as its core the verses by two celebrated poets of the late eleventh and early twelfth centuries, Marbod and Hildebert, and surrounds those selections with other materials, including poetry by the tenth-century French monk Letaldus, that may have been at hand when the compilation was made. André Wilmart describes the collection as a monument of the past, essentially anachronistic as a codification of curricular readings, since the metrical forms represented by Marbod and Hildebert were already falling out of fashion by the late twelfth century. But one imperative behind the collection, to the extent that there was a guiding principle, was a sense of recognized or traditional value, works that had been staples in earlier literary teaching.¹⁰⁰ Questions of literary value aside (if such determinations are even possible or matter), the poetry anthologized in the Glasgow manuscript hardly constitutes the core of an established literary curriculum, and the compilation does not cohere around celebrated poets, even if some selections, notably the Troy poem, were widely copied. The principle guiding the Glasgow manuscript is illustrations, typically custom made, of the stylistic theory articulated in the poetic manuals that are also included in the compilation. The poems certainly relate to literary study, and could easily have been used alongside canonical works of classical or medieval vintage; indeed, reading short poems on mythological subjects such as Jupiter's rape of Io, Juno's blinding of Teresias, Arachne, and Myrrha (nos. 15, 16, 20, 21 in Harbert's edition) would have helped a student understand the corresponding passages in the *Metamorphoses*, and the stylistic devices exemplified in the short poems would have aided recognition of similar devices used by Ovid. In terms of the materials it collects, the Glasgow manuscript is very far afield from the most famous florilegia that come down to us from the Middle Ages. Even though many

of its subjects are classical, the Glasgow manuscript has little or nothing in common with a high-end classicizing collection like the *Florilegium gallicum*, despite the association of the latter with the study of the *auctores* in the twelfth-century schools, and despite the latter's incorporation of didactic resources from antiquity on various subjects including grammar and rhetoric.¹⁰¹ But it is not just the comparatively humble status of the Glasgow manuscript that sets it apart from poetic florilegia: it has little in common with examples of the humblest side of the continuum, such as Cambridge, MA, Houghton Library MS Lat. 300, possibly associated with Tours, but apparently less ambitious than the famous Tours collection. The Houghton anthology contains ninety-five poems and one prose piece. The collection as we have it shares some items with other poetic florilegia, and there is evidence that at least part of it was organized around a progression of moral themes emerging from the poems themselves.¹⁰² In this case, as in that of the larger and more famous florilegia, there is a certain literary self-consciousness about defining or conserving a poetic canon that drives the collecting.

The Glasgow manuscript could also be said to have something in common with Saint-Omer, Bibliothèque municipale, MS 115, the late twelfth-century collection that contains the "Saint-Omer Art of Poetry" discussed above. This large florilegium seems also to be a record of reading and teaching poetics in the monastic schools. It contains not only the little art of poetry that we considered above, but also Peter Riga's *Colores verborum* (appended to his *Floridus aspectus*) and Marbod's own *De ornamentis verborum*. But in terms of poetic content, the Saint-Omer florilegium is more like the Tours collection, featuring the works of well-known poets such as Marbod and Hildebert, Peter Riga, Bernard of Cluny, and Serlo of Wilton, as well as older religious verse and an alphabetized selection of lines from classical verse.¹⁰³ In the Saint-Omer collection, the three rhetorical-poetic arts are part of the poetic offerings, and seem to function almost as commentary on the broad array of poetry anthologized within its pages, as a reflection of its value and a reminder of how the schools cultivate and sustain a literary tradition.

With all these comparisons in view, the Glasgow manuscript insistently remains something other than an anthology of poetry supplemented by related materials. Its inner composition tells a different story: it is self-consciously an anthology of new rhetorical theory. It maps out a recent

rhetorical tradition in chronological order that accords with the modern consensus, beginning with Matthew of Vendôme's *Ars versificatoria* of the later twelfth century, moving to Geoffrey of Vinsauf's treatises arranged in probable order of earliest to latest, from the *Summa de coloribus* (c.1190) and the *Documentum* (c.1199) to the *Poetria nova* (c.1208–15), and arriving at Gervase of Melkley's *Ars poetica* of about 1216.¹⁰⁴ Even the selection of poems and their groupings after each treatise seem to recognize some principle of progression from earliest to latest or from easiest to hardest. The longest poems in the collection follow Geoffrey's *Poetria nova* and Gervase's *Ars poetica*. The shorter and simpler mythological exercises are among those placed after Geoffrey's two early works, the *Summa* and the *Documentum* (although this group is not confined to easier Ovidian poems). The long lament for Troy, "Pergama flere volo," follows immediately on the *Poetria nova*, as if in response to the impressive power of the laments that Geoffrey composed to illustrate apostrophe in his work. Among the nineteen poems following Gervase's *Ars poetica* are two composed distinctively in hexameters, both on topics relating to near-contemporary matters: thirty-four lines on the new study of Aristotle (Harbert no. 39), and a long poem in praise of John de Grey, bishop of Norwich from 1200 to 1214 (Harbert no. 40). These give the collection a modern stamp. Other poems that follow Gervase's treatise include more on mythographic topics, longer or more complex than most of those that appear earlier in the volume, with some variations on the same subject (two long poems on Pyramus and Thisbe, three short variations on Apollo and the python, a long poem and then a short one on Deucalion and Pyrrha, two poems on Lycaon, three short variations on Phaethon, and short poems on Jupiter and on Phoebus and Daphne). In other words, there is a sense of arrival at greater difficulty as the volume progresses through the latest treatise. The Glasgow manuscript is an anthology of an innovative turn in rhetorical teaching no more than a generation old. On its own terms, it codifies that new method into a tradition that can be summed up in six treatises and a variety of illustrative poems.

The Glasgow manuscript has been viewed as both handbook and anthology.¹⁰⁵ But what kind of anthology is it? As I have suggested, it is misleading to classify it under poetic anthologies, because this masks its historical and theoretical impetus, its deliberate representation and consolidation of a "modern" method of teaching. At the heart of that

modern method, as I have argued here, is the streamlining of rhetorical doctrine into a system of style, fueled by a culture of epideictic persuasion. From this perspective, the collection in Hunterian V.8.14 is neither simply rhetorical handbook nor poetic anthology, but rather an anthology of style. Across all the preceptive texts in the manuscript, a theory of stylistic technique is delivered along with brief illustrations, and the poems that separately supplement the *artes* give wider scope to the examples already contained in the teaching texts. And according to the terms of the “modern” teaching featured in the Glasgow manuscript, if it is an anthology of style it is also an anthology of what had become the special property of style, emotion.

The master or masters responsible for this “emotional anthology” packaged the teaching deftly. The first poem in the manuscript, immediately following Matthew of Vendôme’s *Ars versificatoria*, is a begging letter, in elegiac distichs, from a Parisian student to his mother, asking her to fulfill her promises and relieve his poverty:

Pollicitum geminare soles mihi, plurima spondens
munera: pollicitum fallit avara manus...

Heu! careo libris, quia sumptus prodiga nostrum
hausit marsupium Parisiensis humus...

Plurima constringunt me debita, cuncta tenentur
pignora: sic careo vestibus, ere, libris.¹⁰⁶

You often double your promise to me, pledging generous funds: the greedy hand cheats the promise...Alas! I lack books, because the prodigal soil of Parisian expense drains my wallet...Vast debts squeeze me, all my possessions are pawned: so I lack clothes, money, books.

The stylistic techniques are obvious and easy: repetition, word play, metonymy, exclamation, antithesis, *articulus* (asyndeton). The poem is found with another copy of the *Ars versificatoria* (Vienna, Nationalbibliothek, MS 246), and may have accompanied it in other manuscripts of the treatise as well.¹⁰⁷ But in its vocabulary and style, especially its punning on Paris, prodigality, and poverty, it is closely related to a series of begging poems that form part of Matthew’s own *Epistule*, his model letters in elegiacs that demonstrate the scope of epideictic persuasion.¹⁰⁸ Like these other epistolary exercises on a range of themes, the begging poem in the Glasgow manuscript is hardly meant to call on

emotion; rather, it exemplifies the stylistic techniques that would be recognized (even by the recipient of such a letter) as appropriate for displaying distress or targeting pity, thus showcasing the writer's skill.

Other poems in the Glasgow manuscript illustrate the extremes of epideictic rhetoric. Among the poems that follow the *Poetria nova* is a complaint by Geoffrey in his own voice (Harbert no. 33), labeled in the manuscript *causa magistri gaufredi vinesauf conqueritur de quodam magistro* (fol. 101r). An incomplete copy is also in a later anthology compiled in England, British Library, MS Cotton Titus A.xx.¹⁰⁹ The poem has been read for the historical data it yields about teachers and schools in twelfth-century England.¹¹⁰ Geoffrey describes how he was teaching in a school in Northampton (in the late 1170s) when a rival teacher ("Robertus" from the north of England) started a quarrel with him and attacked him at night; Robert was injured by a third party but falsely accused Geoffrey, who now complains of the hasty and wrongful judgment made against him by Bishop Adam.¹¹¹ Whether or not all the events described are true, or whether this represents a complaint ever presented to a higher ecclesiastical authority, the poem is a masterpiece of invective and outrage. Geoffrey's rival, Robert, is an arrogant know-nothing who brings misery to the school:

Probris me, terrore meos, erroribus urbem
 movit, et in vetitum pronior usus erat.
Legi, detraxit; tacui, non detulit; ivi,
 invasit; latui, semper ad arma fuit.¹¹²

He provoked me with insults, my pupils with terror, the town with his errors, and he was a habitual contrarian. I taught, he belittled; I was silent, he did not defer; I went away, he encroached; I retreated, he was always up for a fight.

The *zeugma* of the single verb holding together the nouns in the first line, and the contrast with that in the following distich where contrary verbs make up the clauses (*membra*), set the scene with melodramatic tension. The narrative seems designed to exploit easily recognized devices, such as *gradatio* (*frequentatio*, *climax*):

Venit et invenit, invenit et addidit arma,
 addidit, et rabies tota Robertus erat.

(lines 21–2)

He came and he found (me), he found and brought weapons, he brought weapons and Robert was all madness.

Gervase of Melkley cites these lines as an example of *gradatio* in his *Ars poetica*.¹¹³ In the final lines of the poem, the plea itself, the rapid-fire contraries, repeat the earlier effect of contrary verbs, now with adjectives and pronouns:

Mitis ego, ferus hic; simplex ego, turbidus ille;
lesus ego, lesor ille—quis ultor erit?

(lines 43–4)

I was meek, he fierce; I was calm, he unruly; I the injured, he the injurer—who will be the avenger?

Grievance, injury, outrage: the language is stripped down to nothing but the stylistic technique, as if the occasion of the poem was not to seek justice but to illustrate the figures most calculated to win pity and indignation from a judge. These lines recall the peroration of classical forensic oratory, the summing up of an argument where most of the emotional effect was registered; in Geoffrey's poem the effects are not delivered through argument but through sound and acute abbreviation. While Geoffrey does not use the poem elsewhere, its relevance to his rhetorical teaching is obvious.¹¹⁴ By the time that the Glasgow manuscript was compiled, after 1216, the "causa magistri Gaufredi Vinesauf" was no longer topical and was hardly likely to evince real pity or anger. This poem about a trivial quarrel that took place a generation earlier secured its place in the volume as a prime specimen of caustic vituperation, ensuring that one aspect of epideictic rhetoric, blame, would have definitive teaching. It is Geoffrey's voice as master of emotive style, not as injured victim, that the Glasgow collection wants to remember and record.

The other side of epideictic, hyperbolic praise, finds exemplification in more contemporary matters. One of the longest poems in the volume (145 hexameters) is the praise of John de Grey, bishop of Norwich 1200–14.¹¹⁵ In the manuscript, this follows Gervase of Melkley's *Ars poetica*, which quotes from it on numerous occasions.¹¹⁶ The poem lauds the newly consecrated bishop of Norwich, whose elderly predecessor was long in ill health (lines 32–5). Among the exclamations of joy on the accession of the new bishop are sets of antitheses reflecting the demise of the old bishop and the rise of the new one:

O felix infausta dies! que lampadas aufert,

sed Phebum confert, O quam iocunda ruina!...
O iactura placens! letus dolor! utile dampnum!
Patroclus cecidit ut surgat magnus Achilles,
Turnus ut Eneas, ut Phebus luna, Philippus
ut Macedo maior: magno maiora parantur.¹¹⁷

O happy unfortunate day that carries the funeral torches but brings Phoebus! O how pleasant a tragedy!...O gratifying loss, welcome despair, profitable damage! Patroclus died that great Achilles might rise up, Turnus for Aeneas, for the sun the moon, Philip for Alexander of Macedon: the greater are brought forth by the great.

In his *Ars poetica*, Gervase cites line 137 (“O iactura placens!”) to exemplify the device of antithesis by modifying a noun with its adjectival opposite.¹¹⁸ The praise of John de Grey, minister to and confidant of King John, might have remained a usefully topical subject for students and masters in England even after the events of 1205–7 that saw Grey’s election as archbishop of Canterbury overturned by the pope in favor of Stephen Langton (matters not intimated in this poem, suggesting an early date of composition). But like Geoffrey of Vinsauf’s invective against his rival of the 1170s, this poem finds a place in the anthology, not for its historical content, but for its definitive exemplification of the devices that conjure joy rising over sorrow and the extremes of eulogistic passion.

The Glasgow manuscript is an anthology, not of poetry, but of style. It is a metaliterary collection: its *optique* is poetics. Unlike other anthologies such as the *Carmina burana* or the lyrics in the *Cambridge Songs* manuscript, or even monuments to an old literary curriculum such as the Tours florilegium, the Hunterian manuscript announces no literary canonicity to its contents (except in the sense that it includes a few poems known from other sources).¹¹⁹ Rather, it announces the ascendancy of its rhetorical assumptions in which style determines emotional persuasion. In its totality, progressing chronologically through preceptive treatises and accommodating its poetic selections to each stage of methodological development, the volume signals a moment at which late medieval rhetoric becomes aware of itself as a theoretical instrument. That theory has become a principle for thinking outside the treatise and organizing the world of (poetic) discourse under its preceptive regime. The compositions that it puts on display are not strictly exercises applying the rules taught in the treatises (although some of the poems may have originated in the classroom), but neither would the bulk of them have meaning except in relation to a

systematic teaching. The unity of the volume lies in creating the capacity to think about what is literary, whether that is recognizing the occurrence of a device or deploying a newly learned technique.

But such a capacity to reflect on what is literary, to comment on poetic artifice at a critical remove from poetry, is also exactly what we expect of literature itself. If the Glasgow anthology teaches metaliterary reflection on style apart from literary purpose, how might we see its approach manifested in literary contexts? That is, how do literary texts reflect on the deeply established notion of style as the proprietor of emotion? Conversely, what unconscious habits of thought about style condition emotional expression?

3.3 Literary Impact: Chaucer, Petrarch, Chaucer

One of the most obvious literary answers to the meta-stylistic thinking that the Glasgow anthology performs is Chaucer's own anthology of stylistic possibility, the *Nun's Priest's Tale*, an apotheosis of the *ars poetica* and a laboratory of rhetorical teaching.¹²⁰ Its assemblage of the plain and high styles, its abrupt turns from coarse to courtly language, its collocation of low and noble subjects, and its outsized violations of decorum, almost trace the lineaments of the Glasgow anthology by showing how every stylistic device can be linked to a cause and effect. It drags the emotive effects out from any shield of modest restraint to showcase its own contributions to the set-piece genre, especially its evocation of Geoffrey of Vinsauf's lament on Richard I as flamboyant exercise in apostrophe:

O destinee, that mayst nat been eschewed!
Allas, that Chauntecleer fleigh fro the bemes!
Allas, his wyf ne roghte nat of dremes!
And on a Friday fil al this meschaunce...
O Gaufred, deere maister soverayn,
That whan thy worthy kyng Richard was slayn
With shot, compleynedest his deeth so soore,
Why ne hadde I now thy sentence and thy loore,
The Friday for to chide, as diden ye?

(Fragment VII, 3338–41, 3347–51)

When citing Geoffrey's *Poetria nova*, Chaucer is not reaching into his own childhood classroom memories. Despite its continuous continental

circulation, that treatise had only in the 1380s reestablished a presence in English pedagogy among the Benedictines of Oxford, who had begun to produce copies of it to supplement their own intensified teaching of prose composition.¹²¹ This is not pedagogical reflex but mature theoretical reflection on the contingent realm of style to which emotional effect had long been entrusted.

Other literary reflections are not as self-conscious as Chaucer's, revealing deeply naturalized assumptions about style. Perhaps surprisingly, Petrarch dramatizes how engrained and unacknowledged these assumptions can be. Reading Petrarch's famous "regarbing" of *Decameron* 10.10, Boccaccio's story of Griselda, from the perspective of larger historical paradigms of rhetoric allows us to see how stylistic premises, taken for granted, subtend the ethical considerations that occupy the critical foreground.

Towards the end of his *Seniles*, introducing his Latin translation of Boccaccio's tale, Petrarch calls attention to his own style. In his preliminary address to Boccaccio, Petrarch notes that Boccaccio has reserved the story for the end of his work, where the "discipline of rhetoric decrees that we should put whatever is most powerful" ("ubi rethorum disciplina validiora quelibet collocari iubet").¹²² This is a reference to rhetorical advice about the peroration, the closing arguments of an oration (or their equivalents in written discourse), where the speaker is encouraged to make his strongest emotional appeal. This sets the stage for Petrarch's own rhetorical reception of the tale, that "sweet narrative" ("dulcis historia," 17.3.3) that has so pleased him. After quoting Horace's advice against literal rendering of a source, *nec verbum verbo curabis reddere* (*Ars poetica* 133), he promises Boccaccio a version of the story set forth in his own words, "or more precisely," he adds, "with a few words in the narrative occasionally changed or added" ("imo alicubi aut paucis in ipsa narratione mutatis verbis aut additis," 17.3.5). Yet of course, as readers of Petrarch's transformation of *Decameron* 10.10 have always observed, this description proves an understatement, as Petrarch himself seems to recognize in his appeal to Boccaccio's judgment: "Quam quidem an mutata veste deformaverim an fortassis ornaverim, tu iudica" (whether in changing its garb I have deformed or possibly embellished it, you be the judge, 17.3.5).¹²³

The change effected is not just linguistic, from vernacular to Latin: it is a stylistic transformation that seems to respond to the history of dictaminal

prose itself. Boccaccio's limpid, fluid, direct prose, reminiscent of the *stilus humilis* advocated by the Bolognese *dictatores*, a style that can be urgent without calling attention to itself as "stylish," becomes in Petrarch's hands a more "rhetorical" production, more visibly *ornata* (to use Petrarch's term).¹²⁴ Petrarch's stylistic elaborations follow a course of amplification along with strategic abbreviations.¹²⁵ The rich descriptions and digressions that color in scenes and pick out details of characters would be familiar from the advice of the *Poetria nova*. But some of his most memorable additions are small scale, such as the extension of a simple figure of speech. In the first encounter between Griselda and Walter's officer, Boccaccio uses the device of *praecisio*, the breaking off of an utterance, to convey the pathos of the officer's business:

"Madonna, se io non voglio morire, a me conviene far quello che il mio signor mi comanda. Egli m'ha comandato che io prenda questa vostra figliuola e ch'io..." e non disse più (10.10.30)¹²⁶

"My lady, if I do not wish to die, I must do as my lord commands me. He has ordered me to take this daughter of yours, and to..." And he said no more.¹²⁷

Petrarch amplifies the officer's speech so that the words do not simply trail off, but come crashing to a halt when he applies the same device of *praecisio* that Boccaccio used:

"Parce," inquit, "o domina, neque michi imputes quod coactus facio. Scis, sapientissima, quid est esse sub dominis, neque tali ingenio predite quamvis inexperience dura parendi necessitas est ignota. Iussus sum hanc infantulam accipere, atque eam..." Hic, sermone abrupto, quasi crudele ministerium silentio exprimens, subticuit. (17.3.19)

"Pardon, lady," he said, "and do not impute to me what I am constrained to do. You recognize, wisest lady, what it means to be under a master, and furnished with such intelligence, you recognize—though you are untested—that the harsh necessity of submitting is not to be ignored. I have been ordered to take this infant and..." Here, his words breaking off as if his silence expressed his cruel task, he was quiet.

But Petrarch's amplification (with its *zeugma*, the verb "scis" controlling two clauses), carries on further to a new pathetic effect. This is his memorable *conduplicatio*, repeating the word "suspecta" for emphasis (with added internal assonance and alliteration between the clauses) and so magnifying the force of the preceding *praecisio*:

Suspecta viri fama, suspecta facies, suspecta hora, suspecta erat oratio. (17.3.20)

Suspect was the man's reputation, suspect his looks, suspect the hour, suspect his speech.

This sequence of *conduplicatio* is well known from Chaucer's borrowing in the *Clerk's Tale* (IV. 540–3).¹²⁸ These are the kinds of changes to which Petrarch refers when he notes (17.3.38) that he has rewritten this “narrative” (“historia”) “in another style” (“stilo alio”). Here he does not mark this as an ornate style, but he calls attention to its difference in the sense of its amplification of the original. Although he had earlier cited the classical dictum from Horace on avoiding literal translation, his practice has proved closer to the influential recommendations in Geoffrey's *Poetria nova*, where amplification and abbreviation are the key mechanisms for achieving stylistic difference from a source.¹²⁹ Although Petrarch invokes prestigious classical authority on imitation, the closeness of his practice to the advice of the *Poetria nova* should remind us of the sheer ubiquity of the text in continental schoolrooms, where the young Petrarch was sure to have encountered it. Among commentaries on Geoffrey's text, the one by Pace of Ferrara (fl. 1300), who was a teacher at Padua, had a significant influence through the fourteenth century.¹³⁰

In the letter of the *Seniles* that follows the retelling of Griselda, Petrarch reflects upon the power of his version. Here he dramatizes the responses of two of his friends, one from Padua and one from Verona.¹³¹ It is his own text, not simply the story, that draws the passionate responses. The first friend, the Paduan, reacts to the story in a way that Petrarch himself had not responded to Boccaccio's simpler version (if we are to believe Petrarch's account of his reading, 17.3.3). The friend is moved to groans and tears:

Legit eam primum comunis amicus patavinus, vir altissimi ingenii multiplicisque notitie et, cum epystole medium vix transisset, subito fletu preventus substitit; post modicum vero, cum in manus eam resumpsisset, firmato animo perlecturus, ecce, iterum, quasi ad conductum rediens, lecturam gemitus interrupit. (17.4.2)

The first to read it was a mutual friend of ours from Padua, a man of the highest intelligence and of considerable knowledge; when he was scarcely halfway through my letter, he suddenly stopped, overcome by weeping. After a short time, when he again took it up in his hands and was about to read it with an emboldened spirit, behold, once more, a groan interrupted his reading as if returning for an appointment.

While Petrarch had noted his pleasure on reading Boccaccio's version and his desire to memorize it and retell it in conversations, he says nothing of being overcome by it. But the unnamed Paduan friend reacts to the affective style of Petrarch's embellished version in a way that is predictable and paradigmatic. Whether or not we credit this story of a textual reaction as

true, Petrarch reveals the theoretical conditioning that entrusts style with moving the emotions. This is reinforced in a curious way a few sentences later, when Petrarch tells of the response by the friend from Verona:

[L]egit eam totam, nec alicubi substitit, nec frons obductior nec vox fractior nec lacrimae nec singultus intervenere. Et in finem: “Ego etiam,” inquit, “flessem; nam et pie res *et verba rebus accomodata* fletum suadebant. Nec ego duri cordis sum, nisi quod ficta omnia credidi et credo.” (17.4.3, emphasis added)

He read it all, he did not stop at any point, nor was there manifest a darkened brow, a broken voice, a tear, or a sob. At last he said, “I would have wept, for indeed the pitiable subject, *and the words suited to the subject*, invited weeping. It is not that I am hard hearted, but rather that I believed, and still believe, that it is a made up story.”

The Veronese recalls Petrarch’s own words earlier about style: where Petrarch had said that he retold the story “in my own words...with a few words in the narrative occasionally changed or added,” the Veronese friend now affirms the success of Petrarch’s stylistic overhaul: “the pitiable subject, and the words suited to the subject, invited weeping.” Indeed, the subject matter alone, the narrative argument, should induce tears, but Petrarch records no weeping when he read Boccaccio’s stylistically restrained narrative. In voicing the critical response to his version through the persona of the Veronese friend, Petrarch’s emphasis must fall on the “words suited to the subject” that prompt tears. Petrarch himself prefers the response of the Paduan, who was so moved that he could not continue reading: he says of this friend that he was sensitive and humane (17.4.2), marking him as the ideal reader of affective style. The friends from Padua and Verona even function in his letter as a form of *prosopopoeia*, the figure of thought in which absent or even fictive agents are conjured into being to lend emphasis and authority to an argument.

In his deliberate stylistic elaborations of Boccaccio’s prose, Petrarch has in essence “anthologized” the possibilities of style. This does not change the forward-looking trajectory of Petrarch’s idealization of classical style as the ethical signature of humanist letters, nor does it cancel out his repudiation of medieval literary teaching.¹³² But it does, ironically, reveal the medieval patterns of learning that he brought with him on that trajectory. His rewriting of the story and his extra-textual comments provide a kind of syllabus—or practicum—of rhetorical teaching on affective style, even embodying the appropriate responses in the persons of “readers” who recognize the superiority of his affective product. This is the “lesson” that

Petrarch has absorbed from the teaching of the *artes poetriae*; it is the rhetorical equivalent of what Christopher Cannon calls a “durable disposition,” the assumptions internalized from early grammatical training.¹³³ Petrarch seems unaware of the contingency, or from another perspective, the artificiality of enfolding emotion within the domain of style. While that may have been a traditional premise, it was by no means a necessary one on the terms of rhetorical understanding. It had become practical, conventional, and therefore liable to be unquestioned. The pragmatic rhetorics of the High Middle Ages had succeeded in delivering a strong message that was reinforced at an almost industrial level of reproduction epitomized in Petrarch’s *stilus alius*. Indeed, the stylistic teaching of the *artes poetriae* was so forceful that—paradoxically—it could be made to govern even the ethical dimension of literary value, the very field that the arts of poetry characteristically leave untouched. In Petrarch’s *Seniles*, style is now indexical not just of emotional but of ethical impact, a measure of the value of fiction itself. Petrarch’s stylistic revision of what he called Boccaccio’s “sweet narrative” of Griselda produces the appropriate tears in the Paduan friend, revealing his intelligence and sensitivity; and it provokes even the non-demonstrative Veronese reader to render a moral judgment about the truth-value of the story.

Yet within the same era, the stylistic teaching of the *artes poetriae* could be questioned, as we saw in Chaucer’s *Nun’s Priest’s Tale*, which sends up the traditional enfolding of emotion into style with an irony so fine that it hangs irreducibly in the air. More pointedly, Chaucer’s response to Petrarch’s *Seniles* seems to want to decouple emotion from style, as the exchange between the Host and the Clerk reconfigures Petrarch’s own stylistic discourse. The often quoted lines of the Clerk’s *Prologue* take on new meaning when we read them through the long history of rhetoric that has been traced here. The Host enjoins the Clerk to deliver a plain style:

“Telle us som murie thyng of adventures.
Youre termes, youre colours, and youre figures,
Keepe hem in stoor til so be ye endite
Heigh style, as whan that men to kynges write.
Speketh so pleyn at this tyme, we yow preye,
That we may understonde what ye seye.”

(IV. 15–20)

The Clerk responds by adverting to Petrarch's "rethorike sweete" (32) and then to Petrarch's own "heigh stile":

"I seye that first with heigh stile he enditeth,
Er he the body of his tale writeth,
A prohemye, in the which discryveth he
Pemond and of Saluces the contree...
The which a long thyng were to devyse.
And trewely, as to my juggement,
Me thynketh it a thyng impertinent,
Save that he wole conveyen his mateere;
But this his tale, which that ye may heere."

(IV. 41–4, 52–6)

The "heighe stile" mentioned by the Host (18) and repeated by the Clerk (41) seems to be derived from a misreading of Petrarch's "stilo alio" at the very end of *Seniles* 17.3.¹³⁴ Both under the Host's direction and independently, the Clerk seems to distance his telling from the teaching about the power of an amplified style that Petrarch had seemed to take for granted and had accommodated to his own purposes. And if the Clerk's retelling tends in many respects to follow Petrarch's augmented style (directly or as mediated through his parallel French source),¹³⁵ it also seems at times to doubt the very capacities of the "high style" to improve on the affective power of argument itself, of what Petrarch had called the *pia res*. Some of Chaucer's distinctive additions to the text, the narrator's penchant for the emotive figures *interrogatio*, *ratiocinatio*, and *exclamatio*, might be taken as merely gratuitous hand-wringing, shifting focus from the story to the narrator's extradiegetic helplessness in the face of incomprehensible events: "what neded it / Hire for to tempte, and alwey moore and moore / Though som men preise it for a subtil wit?" (IV. 457–9).¹³⁶ On such terms, an affective style that draws attention to itself is little more than an impotent excess.

Chaucer's implicit commentary, raising doubts about entrusting emotion to "high style," provides a critical distance on the epideictic conception of rhetoric that had dominated the technical teaching of the preceding centuries and that had accordingly allowed style to subsume the function of producing emotion. If the Glasgow manuscript had marked a point of theoretical self-awareness in which the teaching steps back from its immediate practical tasks to ask a larger question about what constitutes

literary suasion, Chaucer's doubts, expressed with special urgency in the Clerk's prologue and tale, seem to mark a point of disenchantment with the stylistic regime of rhetoric.

Chaucer seems to raise an ethical misgiving, as if to doubt the emotional efficacy of the "high style" that the rhetorical teaching of the previous three centuries had never truly questioned. Those pragmatic rhetorics of the High Middle Ages, whether arts of poetry and prose or simply lists of *colores*, had succeeded in delivering a strong message that was reinforced at an almost industrial level of reproduction. By no means, of course, was this the whole of rhetoric that could be encountered: the continuous presence of the *De inventione*, the *Rhetorica ad Herennium*, and Boethius' *De topicis differentiis* in the highest levels of education give ample evidence of interest in the larger scope of rhetoric. But in practice, the emotional purpose of rhetoric was not found in that limited classical legacy: it was overwhelmingly the property of the stylistic teaching of *poetria* and *dictamen*.

With Chaucer's implied critiques we come full circle from the explicit anxieties about the regime of style voiced by an earlier master stylist, Onulf of Speyer. Onulf, writing in the first decade of the twelfth century, anticipates the epideictic default mode of the twelfth and thirteenth centuries. Chaucer, himself a product of that successful system, looks back on it as if at another moral turning point. Stylistic teaching assumed that emotion is conjurable by the mimetic effects of language, and that emotional impact need not be answerable to any structure of reasoning beyond the contingencies of style. But as I suggested in earlier contexts here, is not emotion too important to be treated entirely as an aesthetic property?

As we will see, the rhetorical culture of Chaucer's age was already feeling the force of another perspective on emotional persuasion, one that had been growing for about a century. This perspective challenged the Ciceronian tradition of the Middle Ages, including the pragmatic compositional rhetorics, by giving emotion a primary role in rhetorical reasoning as a barometer of ethical, social, and political values. If Chaucer and others express doubt about emotion as an aesthetic confection of style, this new perspective offered a more secure realization of emotion as a force that lies at the heart of a speaker's political understanding, and that gives

emotion a decisive role in shaping a persuasion. This is the medieval tradition of Aristotle's *Rhetoric*, to which we now turn.

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¹ *Die Werke Notkers des Deutschen 7: De kleineren Schriften*, ed. James C. King and Petrus W. Tax (Tübingen: Max Niermeyer, 1996). On Notker's rhetoric as a rare indication of interest in the *Rhetorica ad Herennium* before the eleventh century, see Ward, *Classical Rhetoric in the Middle Ages*, pp. 172–6.

² *Troilus and Criseyde* 2.424. All quotations from Chaucer will be from *The Riverside Chaucer*, ed. Larry Benson (Boston: Houghton Mifflin, 1988).

³ On what was already the expansion of the epideictic genre in the Hellenistic period, see *Menander Rhetor*, eds. and trans. D. A. Russell and N. G. Wilson (Oxford: Clarendon, 1981), pp. xvii–xviii.

⁴ Cf. *De oratore* 2.84.342–8, 2.85.346, 3.27.105; Quintilian, *Institutio oratoria* 3.4.14; Aristotle, *Rhetoric* 1366a 23–1367b 20.

⁵ This is well-explained in Brian Vickers, “Epideictic Rhetoric in Galileo's *Dialogo*,” *Annali dell'istituto e museo di storia della scienza di Firenze* 8 (1983): 69–102).

⁶ *Rhetorica ad Herennium* 3.7.15.

⁷ Laurent Pernot, *Epideictic Rhetoric: Questioning the Stakes of Ancient Praise* (Austin: University of Texas Press, 2015), pp. 1–23, with particular focus on Greek rhetoric; Laurent Pernot, *La rhétorique de l'éloge dans le monde gréco-romain*, 2 vols. (Paris: Institut d'études augustiniennes, 1993), 1: 60–6, 102–11; Sabine G. MacCormack, *Art and Ceremony in Late Antiquity* (Berkeley and Los Angeles: University of California Press, 1981), pp. 1–14.

⁸ Pernot, *Epideictic Rhetoric*, p. 28.

⁹ Brian Vickers, *In Defence of Rhetoric* (Oxford: Clarendon, 1988), p. 54.

¹⁰ The history of this process of genre “conversion” is a constant theme of scholarship on early Christianity: among many sources, see George A. Kennedy, *Greek Rhetoric under Christian Emperors* (Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1983), pp. 180–97; Marrou, *Saint Augustin et la fin de la culture antique*, pp. 505–40; Pernot, *La rhétorique de l'éloge*, 2: 775–91; Laurent Pernot, “Christianisme et sophistique,” in Lucia Calboli Montefusco, ed., *Papers on Rhetoric IV* (Rome: Herder, 2002), pp. 245–62; David Hellholm, “Enthymemic Argumentation in Paul: the Case of Romans 6,” in Troels Engberg-Pedersen, ed., *Paul in his Hellenistic Context* (Edinburgh: T. & T. Clark, 1994), pp. 119–79.

¹¹ See Chapter 2, pp. 75–6.

¹² On Tertullian, see Timothy David Barnes, *Tertullian: A Historical and Literary Study* (Oxford: Clarendon, 1971), pp. 211–32, “The Christian Sophist”; Robert Dick Sider, *Ancient Rhetoric and the Art of Tertullian* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1971), pp. 115–25. Anselm's *Rhetorimachia* is edited by Karl Manitius, *Gunzo, Epistola ad Augienses*; Anselm von Besate, *Rhetorimachia* (Weimar: H. Böhlau, 1958).

¹³ Pernot, *La rhétorique de l'éloge*, 1: 281–99, 333–21.

¹⁴ Samuel P. Jaffe, ed., *Nicolaus Dybinus' Declaracio oracionis de beata Dorothea: Studies and Documents in the History of Late Medieval Rhetoric* (Wiesbaden: Franz Steiner, 1974), p. 118.

¹⁵ This may be a reference to Cicero's myth of the origins of rhetoric as a civilizing force with the power to tame violent spirits, *De inventione* 1.2.2.

¹⁶ Translation from Copeland and Sluiter, *Medieval Grammar and Rhetoric*, p. 826.

¹⁷ Robert Grosseteste, "De artibus liberalibus," in Ludwig Baur, ed., *Die Philosophischen Werke des Robert Grosseteste, Bischofs von Lincoln* (Münster: Aschendorff, 1912), p. 2.

¹⁸ *Esegesi oraziana nel medioevo: il commento "Communiter,"* ed. Lisa Ciccone, (Florence: SISMEL—Edizioni del Galluzzo, 2016), p. 217.

¹⁹ *Menander Rhetor*, eds. and trans. Russell and Wilson, p. xxxii.

²⁰ J. M. Manly, "Chaucer and the Rhetoricians," *Proceedings of the British Academy* 12 (1926): 95–113; Robert Payne responded to this with a sympathetic reading of the focus on form: *The Key of Remembrance: A Study of Chaucer's Poetics* (New Haven: Yale University Press, 1963), p. 102. The critical dilemma with regard to Chaucer is studied by Thomas H. Bestul, "The Man of Law's Tale and the Rhetorical Foundations of Chaucerian Pathos," *The Chaucer Review* 9 (1975): 216–26. For Vickers' criticisms, see the chapter "Medieval Fragmentation," in *In Defence of Rhetoric*, especially pp. 223, 227, 233, and 239. Even Edmond Faral, who first edited the major *artes poetriae* in 1924, regarded them as "superficial" (*Les arts poétiques du XIIe et du XIIIe siècle: recherches et documents sur la technique littéraire du moyen âge* (Paris: Champion, 1924), p. xv).

²¹ Nicolette Zeeman considers the asymmetry between the almost purely technical interests of the preceptive manuals and the impassioned motives of poetic artistry, tracing the latter through long traditions of musical theory and scriptural song. See "The Theory of Passionate Song," in Christopher Cannon and Maura Nolan, eds., *Medieval Latin and Middle English Literature: Essays in Honour of Jill Mann* (Woodbridge, Suffolk: Boydell and Brewer, 2011), pp. 231–51.

²² This circle of technical effects, from literary source to classroom reproduction (and perhaps future literary production) bears comparison with what Ardis Butterfield describes as the "closed system to precipitate formal experimentation" in fourteenth-century lyric: "Afterwords: Forms of Death," *Exemplaria* 27 (2015): 167–82 (at p. 178).

²³ The *Tria sunt*, a synthetic treatise completed before 1400, and overwhelmingly dedicated to style, combines the approach, citing classical poetry as well as what had become "canonized" newer works, including the *Architrenius*, *De planctu Natuare*, Geoffrey of Vinsauf's exemplary poems, and the exemplary poems given in Gervase of Melkley's *ars poetriae*. See *Tria sunt: An Art of Poetry and Prose*, ed. and trans. Martin Camargo (Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 2019).

²⁴ Marjorie Curry Woods, "Experiencing the Classics in Medieval Education," in Rita Copeland, ed., *The Oxford History of Classical Reception in English Literature*, 1, 800–1558 (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2016), pp. 35–51, and *Weeping for Dido*, chapter 1, "Memory, Emotion, and the Death of a Queen."

²⁵ Vickers, *In Defence of Rhetoric*, p. 227.

²⁶ Alastair Minnis, *Medieval Theory of Authorship: Scholastic Literary Attitudes in the Later Middle Ages*, 2nd edn. (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 1988), pp. 19–25; Rita Copeland, "Academic Prologues to the Authors," in Copeland, ed., *The Oxford History of Classical Reception in the Middle Ages*, pp. 151–63; Judson Allen, *The Ethical Poetic of the Middle Ages: A Decorum of Convenient Distinction* (Toronto: University of Toronto Press, 1982).

²⁷ The textual history is summarized in Ward, *Ciceronian Rhetoric in Treatise, Scholion, and Commentary*, pp. 90–3.

²⁸ One tradition of manuscripts, possibly deriving from a lost exemplar of the fourth century, divides book 4 into three books, separating the treatment of levels of style (up through 4.13.18) from the figures of speech and tropes (4.13.19–4.34.46), and from the figures of thought (4.35.47–4.56.69). This format was commonly reproduced in medieval copies. See P. Ruth Taylor, “‘Pre-history’ in the Ninth-Century Manuscripts of the *Ad Herennium*,” *Classica et Medievalia* 44 (1993): 113–42; Ward, *Ciceronian Rhetoric*, p. 91; Camargo, “Latin Composition Textbooks,” p. 269.

²⁹ Camargo, “Latin Composition Textbooks,” pp. 268–77.

³⁰ Marbod of Rennes, *Marbodo di Rennes: De ornamentis verborum; Liber decem capitulorum. Retorica, mitologia e moralità di un vescovo poeta (secc. XI–XII)*, ed. Rosario Leotta (Florence: SISMEL—Edizioni del Galluzzo, 1998), pp. xxxiii–lvi.

³¹ *De ornamentis verborum*, ed. Leotta, prologue, lines 13–15. See also Camargo, “Latin Composition Textbooks,” p. 270.

³² *De ornamentis*, ed. Leotta, epilogue, lines 151–60.

³³ *De ornamentis*, ed. Leotta, lines 101–5.

³⁴ Peter Riga’s *Colores verborum*, appended to early versions of his *Floridus aspectus*, is edited in Charles Fierville, “Notice et extraits des manuscrits de la bibliothèque de Saint-Omer nos. 115 et 710,” *Extraits des notices et extraits des manuscrits* 31.1 (Paris: Imprimerie Nationale, 1883): 1–107 (at pp. 52–64). Three copies of Geoffrey of Vinsauf’s *Summa de coloribus* are now known: see the edition by Carsten Wollin, “Die erste Poetik Galfrids von Vinsauf. Eine vorläufige Edition der *Summa de coloribus rethoricis*,” *Mittelateinisches Jahrbuch* 49 (2014): 393–42. On these texts, see Camargo, “Latin Composition Textbooks,” pp. 271–3. Marbod’s influence on the *Laborintus* is noted in Leotta, ed., pp. xvii, xxi, 78, 82, 85, 88, 121.

³⁵ Herbert Bloch, “Monte Cassino’s Teachers and Library in the High Middle Ages,” *La scuola nell’Occidente latino dell’alto Medioevo: 15–21 aprile 1971*, 2 vols. (Spoleto: Presso la sede del Centro, 1972), 2: 563–605; Gian Carlo Alessio, “Le istituzioni scolastiche e l’insegnamento,” in Claudio Leonardi and Giovanni Orlandi, eds., *Aspetti della letteratura latina nel secolo XII: atti del primo Convegno internazionale di studi dell’Associazione per il Medioevo e l’umanesimo latini (AMUL), Perugia 3–5 ottobre 1983* (Perugia: Regione dell’Umbria; Firenze: “La Nuova Italia,” 1986), pp. 3–28; Ward, *Ciceronian Rhetoric*, p. 93.

³⁶ See Florian Hartmann, “Eloquence and Friendship: Letter-Writing Manuals and the Importance of Being Somebody’s Friend,” in Sita Steckel et al., eds., *Networks of Learning: Perspectives on Scholars in Byzantine East and Latin West, c.1000–1200* (Vienna: GmbH & Co. KG; Berlin: Hopf, 2014), pp. 67–86 (at pp. 73–5).

³⁷ Alberic of Montecassino, *Breviarium de dictamine*, ed. Filippo Bognini (Florence: SISMEL—Edizioni del Galluzzo, 2008), pp. xiii–xviii, lxxxi–clxv; Anne-Marie Turcan-Verkerk, “Répertoire chronologique des théories de l’art d’écrire en prose (milieu du xi^e s.—années 1230),” *Archivum latinitatis medii aevi (Bulletin du Cange)* 64 (2006): 193–39 (at pp. 196–8); Franz Josef Worstbrock, Monika Klaes, and Jutta Lütten, *Repertorium der Artes dictandi des Mittelalters 1, Von den Anfängen bis um 1200* (Munich: Wilhelm Fink, 1992), pp. 7–16.

³⁸ Martin Camargo, *Ars dictaminis, Ars dictandi* (Turnhout: Brepols, 1991), pp. 30–3.

³⁹ *Breviarium de dictamine*, ed. Bognini, p. 20.

⁴⁰ *Breviarium de dictamine*, ed. Bognini, p. 21.

⁴¹ *Breviarium de dictamine*, ed. Bognini, pp. 53–66.

⁴² See *Breviarium de dictamine*, ed. Bognini, p. lii.

⁴³ *Flores rhetorici*, eds. D. Mauro Inguanez and E. Henry M. Willard, *Miscellanea Cassinese* 13 (Montecassino: Badia, 1938), section 5.

⁴⁴ On doubts about its authorship, see Florian Hartmann, “Das *Enchiridion de prosis et rithmis* Alberichs von Montecassino und die *Flores rhetorici*,” *Quellen und Forschungen aus italienischen Archiven und Bibliotheken* 89 (2009): 1–30.

⁴⁵ Hartmann, “Eloquence and Friendship,” p. 75.

⁴⁶ Ronald G. Witt, “The Arts of Letter-Writing,” in Alastair Minnis and Ian Johnson, eds., *The Cambridge History of Literary Criticism 2: The Middle Ages* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2005), pp. 68–83 (at pp. 68–71).

⁴⁷ See Ronald G. Witt, “Rhetoric and Reform During the Eleventh and Twelfth Centuries,” in William Robins, ed., *Textual Cultures of Medieval Italy* (Toronto: University of Toronto Press, 2011), pp. 53–79; and William D. Patt, “The Early ‘Ars Dictaminis’ as a Response to a Changing Society,” *Viator* 9 (1978): 133–55.

⁴⁸ *Breviarium de dictamine*, ed. Bognini, p. 62 and note, p. 154; Peter Damian, letter 99, in *Die Briefe des Petrus Damiani*, ed. Kurt Reindel, 4 vols. (Munich: MGH, 1983–93), 3: 99; see also Hartmann, “Eloquence and Friendship,” p. 73.

⁴⁹ *Ars versificatoria*, in *Mathei Vindocinensis. Opera*, ed. Franco Munari, 3 vols. (Rome: Edizioni di Storia e Letteratura, 1977–88), 3: 38. See also volume 1 for a catalogue of the manuscripts of all of Matthew’s works.

⁵⁰ See Chapter 1.

⁵¹ See the important discussion by Douglas Kelly, “La spécialité dans l’invention des topiques,” in Lucie Brind’Amour and Eugene Vance, eds., *Archéologie du signe* (Toronto: PIMS, 1983), pp. 101–25 (esp. pp. 103–4). See also Douglas Kelly, *The Arts of Poetry and Prose* (Turnhout: Brepols, 1991), pp. 76–7; and “The Scope of the Treatment of Composition in the Twelfth- and Thirteenth-Century Arts of Poetry,” *Speculum* 41 (1966): 261–78.

⁵² Cf., *De attributis*, ed. Riesenweber, *Commenta in Ciceronis Rhetorica...De attributis personae et negotio*, p. 213: “Adfectio est accidens qualitas vel repente vel studio mox desitura.” Possibly Matthew encountered the Ciceronian text in a commentary setting from which he could have derived this wording.

⁵³ *Ars versificatoria*, in *Opera*, ed. Munari, 3: 102–3 (part 1, §87). The last two passages are Matthew’s own verses.

⁵⁴ *Tria sunt*, ed. Camargo, chapter 3 (on letter writing) and especially chapter 12, which is dedicated to the attributes of the person and the action.

⁵⁵ *The Saint-Omer Art of Poetry: A Twelfth Century Anonymous Ars Poetica from a Manuscript at Saint-Omer*, eds. and trans. Henrik Specht and Michael Chesnutt (Odense: University of Southern Denmark Press, 1987); see also Fierville, “Notice et extraits des manuscrits de la bibliothèque de Saint-Omer nos. 115 et 710,” 85–7, supplemented by André Boutemy, “Notes additionnelles à la notice de Ch. Fierville sur le manuscrit 115 de Saint-Omer,” *Revue belge de philologie et d’histoires* 22 (1943): 5–23. On a late twelfth-century date for the text, see Birger Munk Olsen, “Les classiques latins dans les florilèges médiévaux antérieurs au XIII^e siècle,” *Revue d’histoire des textes* 10 (1980): 123–72 (at pp. 156–7).

⁵⁶ *The Saint-Omer Art of Poetry*, Specht and Chesnutt, eds. and trans. I have slightly modified the punctuation; the translation is my own.

⁵⁷ On Isidore as a likely source, and on parallels with the *Rhetorica ad Herennium*, see *The Saint-Omer Art of Poetry*, eds. Specht and Chesnutt, pp. 16–20.

⁵⁸ On the French belletristic style, see Camargo, *Ars dictaminis*, *Ars dictandi*, p. 33.

⁵⁹ Transmundus, *Introductiones dictandi*, ed. and trans. Ann Dalzell (Toronto: PIMS, 1995), pp. 71, 75, 77, 79, 81.

⁶⁰ On Gower's debt to the *Trésor*, see Rita Copeland, *Rhetoric, Hermeneutics, and Translation in the Middle Ages: Academic Traditions and Vernacular Texts* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1991), pp. 208–10.

⁶¹ Bono Giamboni, *Fiore di Rettorica*, ed. Giambattista Speroni, Testi, 1 (Pavia: Dipartimento di Scienza della Letteratura e dell'Arte medioevale e moderna, 1994).

⁶² Jean d'Antioche, *La "Rectorique de Cyceron" tradotta da Jean d'Antioche. Edizione e glossario*, ed. Elisa Guadagnini (Pisa: Edizione della Normale, 2009).

⁶³ On dating, see Martin Camargo, "From *Liber versuum* to *Poetria nova*: The Evolution of Geoffrey of Vinsauf's Masterpiece," *Journal of Medieval Latin* 21 (2011): 1–16.

⁶⁴ Wollin, ed., *Die erste Poetik*, lines 250–3. *Subiectio*, questioning.

⁶⁵ Wollin, ed., *Die erste Poetik*, lines 145–8.

⁶⁶ Faral, ed., *Les arts poétiques*. All quotations of the *Poetria nova* will be from Faral's edition with line numbers after the text.

⁶⁷ See Cicero, *Topica* 3.11; *De inventione* 1.53.100–1.56.109.

⁶⁸ There is a similar movement in Gervase of Melkley's art of poetry although his treatise did not have nearly the influence of Geoffrey's *Poetria nova*. See *Ars poetica*, ed. Hans-Jürgen Gräbener (Münster: Aschendorff, 1965), esp. pp. 155–81 (on contrariety). On the interrelation of style and topical thought in the treatises, see Kelly, *The Arts of Poetry and Prose*, pp. 64–82.

⁶⁹ Marjorie Curry Woods, *Classroom Commentaries: Teaching the Poetria nova across Medieval and Renaissance Europe*, p. 75. Glasgow MS Hunterian V.8.14 exemplifies the simpler act of naming each figure in the margin as it comes up, fols. 85v–86v. These rubricated glosses are tellingly quite worn, some almost indecipherable.

⁷⁰ Ed. and trans. by Woods from Wolfenbüttel, Herzog August Bibliothek, Cod. Guelf. 286 Gud. lat., fol. 19r, *Classroom Commentaries*, p. 76; and on Reiner von Cappel, see pp. 55–60, 68, 72, 84, 87–9, 91–3, 167, 260.

⁷¹ Faral, ed., *Les arts poétiques*, p. 351, lines 441–2.

⁷² *Rhetorica novissima*, ed. A. Gaudenzi, *Bibliotheca Iuridica Medii Aevi* 2 (Bologna, 1892): 249–97 (at pp. 251–2). See also Terence O. Tunberg, "What is Boncompagno's 'Newest Rhetoric'?" *Traditio* 42 (1986): 299–334 (esp. pp. 303–6, 332).

⁷³ Ernst Kantorowicz, "An Autobiography of Guido Faba," *Mediaeval and Renaissance Studies* (London, Warburg Institute) 1 (1941–3): 253–80 (at p. 279). The *Rota nova* is also edited, along with studies of Guido's dictaminal collection in Oxford, New College, MS 255, in *Magistri Guidonis Fabe, "Rota nova," ex codice manuscripto oxoniensi New College 255 nunc primum prodit*, eds. Alphonso P. Campbell and Vergilio Pini (Bologna: Istituto per la storia dell'Università di Bologna, 2000).

⁷⁴ Translation from Copeland and Sluiter, *Medieval Grammar and Rhetoric*, p. 704.

⁷⁵ *Guidonis Fabe Summa Dictaminis*, ed. A. Gaudenzi, *Il Propugnatore* n.s. 3 (1890): 287–338, 345–93 (at pp. 287, 295).

⁷⁶ On the notion of completeness in the thirteenth-century manuals, see Florian Hartmann, *Ars dictaminis: Briefsteller und verbale Kommunikation in den italienischen Stadtkommunen des 11. bis 13. Jahrhunderts* (Ostfildern: Jan Thorbecke, 2013), pp. 137–49.

- ⁷⁷ *Guidonis Fabe Summa Dictaminis*, ed. Gaudenzi, p. 367.
- ⁷⁸ *Guidonis Fabe Summa Dictaminis*, ed. Gaudenzi, p. 359. Cf. [Chapter 2](#), p. 89.
- ⁷⁹ See *De ornamentis verborum*, ed. Leotta, p. 14 and note, p. 79.
- ⁸⁰ *Guidonis Fabe Summa Dictaminis*, ed. Gaudenzi, p. 357.
- ⁸¹ Virgilio Pini, *La tradizione manoscritta di Guido Faba dal XIII al XV secolo*, in Campbell and Pini, eds., *Magistri Guidonis Fabe*, “*Rota nova*,” pp. 249–67.
- ⁸² *Weeping for Dido*, esp. pp. 28–48.
- ⁸³ Quotations of the text are from “*La Rota Veneris* di Boncompagno da Signa. Edizione critica,” ed. Luca Core (PhD thesis, University of Padua, 2015), <http://paduaresearch.cab.unipd.it/8068/1/TESI.pdf>. Other editions of the *Rota Veneris* are by Paolo Garbini (Rome: Salerno, 1996), and Friedrich Baethgen (Rome: W. Regenberg, 1927). Also helpful is Josef Purkart, *Rota Veneris: A Facsimile of the Strassburg Incunabulum with Introduction, Translation, and Notes* (Delmar, NY: Scholars’ Facsimiles and Reprints, 1975).
- ⁸⁴ Jonathan M. Newman, “Dictators of Venus: Clerical Love Letters and Female Subjection in *Troilus and Criseyde* and the *Rota Veneris*,” *Studies in the Age of Chaucer* 36 (2014): 103–38 (at pp. 109–10); Daniela Goldin, *B come Boncompagno. Tradizione e invenzione in Boncompagno da Signa* (Padua: Centro Stampa di Palazzo Maldura, 1988), pp. 25–6, 63, 67, 74–5; cf., Garbini, introduction to his edition, p. 9.
- ⁸⁵ *Rota Veneris*, ed. Core, lines 149–54.
- ⁸⁶ On Boncompagno’s use of the term here and in his later *Rhetorica novissima* (c.1235), see Benoît Grévin, “*Métaphore et vérité: la transumptio, clé de voûte de la rhétorique au XIIIe siècle*,” in Jean-Philippe Genet, ed., *Vérité et crédibilité: construire la vérité dans le système de communication de l’Occident (XIIIe–XIVe siècle)* (Paris: Publications de la Sorbonne, 2015), pp. 149–82; Goldin, *B come Boncompagno*, pp. 102–4. See also Tunberg, “What is Boncompagno’s ‘Newest Rhetoric’?” pp. 316–19.
- ⁸⁷ *Rota Veneris*, ed. Core, lines 161–90. On Boncompagno’s treatment of *transumptio* in this text, see Core’s introduction, pp. xxvi–xxxi; on *transumptio* and similitude, see especially p. xxx.
- ⁸⁸ Hartmann, *Ars dictaminis*, p. 137; see Boncompagno’s *Tractatus virtutum*: “*Virtus enim est privilegia, orationes, rhetoricas, testameta et epistolas incipere ab humili stilo*,” extract ed. in Carl Sutter, *Aus Leben und Schriften des Magisters Boncompagno* (Freiburg and Leipzig: J. C. B. Mohr, 1894), p. 61. The same idea is expressed strongly in Boncompagno’s *Palma*: see Sutter, ed., pp. 113–14. On this development, see Ronald G. Witt, “Boncompagno and the Defense of Rhetoric,” *Journal of Medieval and Renaissance Studies* 16 (1986): 1–31; Witt, “The Arts of Letter-Writing,” pp. 76–7; Camargo, *Ars dictaminis, Ars dictandi*, pp. 33–4.
- ⁸⁹ *Rota Veneris*, ed. Core, lines 175–6 (italics added).
- ⁹⁰ *Rota Veneris*, ed. Core, lines 245–6.
- ⁹¹ *Rota Veneris*, ed. Core, lines 341–2.
- ⁹² Boncompagno finds success in this regard among modern scholars. Peter Dronke remarks on the poetic power of one of the letters that circulated with the *Rota Veneris*, pronouncing it an “astonishing exception” to the stylistic teaching in the *artes dictaminis*. This is the letter, now considered spurious, in which a woman calls back her absent husband or lover (see *Rota Veneris*, ed. Core, p. 61). See also Peter Dronke, *Medieval Latin and the Rise of the European Love Lyric*, 2 vols. (Oxford: Clarendon, 1965–6), 1: 251–3.

⁹³ Pandarus' advice to avoid conspicuous artifice may remind us of the generalized figure *pathopoia* (exciting emotion), attested only once in the fourth-century treatise by Julius Rufinianus. See [Chapter 1](#), pp. 54–5. Peter Mack explores other important devices of emotional arousal in *Troilus*, with special attention to the role of argument in book 4: "Argument and Emotion in *Troilus and Criseyde*," in Scott Troyan, ed., *Medieval Rhetoric: A Casebook* (New York: Routledge, 2004), pp. 109–26.

⁹⁴ The groupings, given here schematically, are Matthew of Vendôme, *Ars versificatoria*, followed by six poems; Geoffrey of Vinsauf, *Summa de coloribus*, followed by one poem; Geoffrey of Vinsauf, *Documentum*, followed by eighteen poems; *Poetria nova*, followed by five poems; Gervase of Melkley's short *ars dictaminis*, followed by one poem with a prose introduction and a model letter; Gervase of Melkley's *Ars poetica*, followed by nineteen poems.

⁹⁵ *Carmina burana* # 101, found in at least sixty-one manuscripts; see André Boutemy, "Le poème 'Pergama flere volo' et ses imitateurs du XII^e siècle," *Latomus* 5 (1946): 233–44; Edmond Faral, "Le manuscrit 511 du 'Hunterian Museum' de Glasgow," *Studi medievali* n.s. 9 (1936): 18–119 (at pp. 48–51).

⁹⁶ Bruce Harbert, ed., *A Thirteenth-Century Anthology of Rhetorical Poems: Glasgow MS Hunterian V.8.14* (Toronto: PIMS, 1975), p. 5.

⁹⁷ Faral, "Le manuscrit 511 du 'Hunterian Museum' de Glasgow," pp. 117–18. Cf., Harbert, ed., *A Thirteenth-Century Anthology*, pp. 1–5; Robert Glendenning, "Pyramus and Thisbe in the Medieval Classroom," *Speculum* 61 (1986): 51–78 (at p. 55).

⁹⁸ André Wilmart, "Le florilège de Saint-Gatien. Contribution à l'étude des poèmes d'Hildebert et de Marbod," *Revue bénédictine* 48 (1936): 3–40, 147–81, 235–58. The manuscript, Tours, Bibliothèque municipale, MS 890, was destroyed when the library of Tours was hit by bombing in 1940. Wilmart's close study of MS 890, undertaken and published just a few years before the destruction of the library, constitutes the best record of this lost manuscript and its contents.

⁹⁹ Wilmart, "Le florilège de Saint-Gatien," pp. 10–11. On such poetic anthologies, see Wim Verbaal, "Authors' Collections and an Author's Book: A Feasible Distinction? The Loire Poets as Case Study," in Patrizia Stoppacci, ed., *Collezioni d'autore nel Medioevo. Problematiche intellettuali, letterarie ed ecdotiche* (Florence: SISMEL—Edizioni del Galluzzo, 2018), pp. 123–37.

¹⁰⁰ Wilmart, "Le florilège de Saint-Gatien," pp. 10–14.

¹⁰¹ Rosemary Burton, *Classical Poets in the "Florilegium Gallicum"* (Frankfurt am Main and Bern: Peter Lang, 1983), esp. pp. 10–15.

¹⁰² The description here relies on Jan Ziolkowski, "A Bouquet of Wisdom and Invective: Houghton MS. Lat 300," *Harvard Library Bulletin*, n.s. 1 (1990): 20–48.

¹⁰³ See Fierville, "Notice et extraits des manuscrits de la bibliothèque de Saint-Omer nos. 115 et 710," pp. 1–97, and for the alphabetical excerpts, Munk Olsen, "Les classiques latins dans les florilèges médiévaux antérieurs au XIII^e siècle," pp. 156–7.

¹⁰⁴ On the dating of Geoffrey's *Summa* and *Documentum*, see Camargo, "From *Liber versuum* to *Poetria nova*." But Alan M. Rosiene has noted that Gervase makes no use of *Poetria nova*, suggesting perhaps an earlier date for his treatise: see "The *Ars versificaria* of Gervase of Melkley: Structure, Hierarchy, Borrowings," in Gian Carlo Alessio and Domenico Losappio, eds., *Le poetriae del medioevo latino Modelli, fortuna, commenti* (Venice: Edizioni Ca' Foscari, 2018), pp. 205–24, https://edizionicafoscari.unive.it/media/pdf/books/978-88-6969-205-5/978-88-6969-205-5_kyJ6iWm.pdf.

¹⁰⁵ As “handbook,” see Harbert, ed., *A Thirteenth-Century Anthology*, p. 4. Rigg treats the manuscript under the rubric of “anthologies”: A. G. Rigg, *A History of Anglo-Latin Literature 1066–1422* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1992), pp. 111, 148–55 (esp. p. 152); A. G. Rigg, “Medieval Latin Poetic Anthologies (I),” *Mediaeval Studies* 39 (1977): 281–30 (at 282–4, his list of important poetic anthologies).

¹⁰⁶ Harbert, ed., *A Thirteenth-Century Anthology*, #2, lines 7–8, 11–12, 15–16.

¹⁰⁷ Faral, “Le manuscrit 511 du ‘Hunterian Museum’ de Glasgow,” 19; Harbert, *A Thirteenth-Century Anthology*, p. 3; and see Hans Walther, ed., *Initia carminum ac versuum medii aevi posterioris latinorum* (Göttingen: Vandenhoeck & Ruprecht, 1959), 16818.

¹⁰⁸ Munari, ed., 2, *Epistule*, 2.4, 2.5, 2.6, 2.8, 2.9, 2.10, 2.11, 2.12, 2.13.

¹⁰⁹ Rigg, “Medieval Latin Poetic Anthologies (I),” 302 (no. 30). On this poem, see Martin Camargo, “Geoffrey of Vinsauf’s Memorial Verses,” *Nottingham Medieval Studies* 56 (2012): 81–119 (at pp. 101–6).

¹¹⁰ H. G. Richardson, “The Schools of Northampton in the Twelfth Century,” *ELH* 56 (1941): 595–605.

¹¹¹ Faral identifies Adam as bishop (1175–81) of St. Asaph in Wales; see *Les arts poétiques*, pp. 17–18; see further Richardson, who points out that since the diocese of Lincoln did not have a consecrated bishop in these years, such legal cases would have been overseen by other bishops: “The Schools of Northampton,” pp. 599–600.

¹¹² Harbert, ed., *A Thirteenth-Century Anthology*, #33, lines 15–18; see also Faral, “Le manuscrit 511 du ‘Hunterian Museum’ de Glasgow,” pp. 56–7.

¹¹³ *Ars poetica*, ed. Gräbener, p. 20.

¹¹⁴ Camargo, “Geoffrey of Vinsauf’s Memorial Verses,” p. 105.

¹¹⁵ For the identification of “Johannes” in line 97, see Faral, “Le manuscrit 511 du ‘Hunterian Museum’ de Glasgow,” p. 112. Grey was also selected by King John as archbishop of Canterbury in 1205, but Pope Innocent III rejected this nomination, installing Stephen Langton instead. See the summary and references in Roy Martin Haines, “Gray, John de (d. 1214),” *ODNB*, <https://doi.org/10.1093/ref:odnb/11541>.

¹¹⁶ *Ars poetica*, ed. Gräbener, pp. 13, 25, 34, 151, 153, 174, 200, and *fontes*, p. 279.

¹¹⁷ Harbert, ed., *A Thirteenth-Century Anthology*, # 40, lines 56–7, 137–40.

¹¹⁸ *Ars poetica*, ed. Gräbener, p. 174. The poem is also quoted (probably from Gervase) in the later *Tria sunt*: Camargo, ed. and trans., *Tria sunt*, 3.23 (pp. 56–7).

¹¹⁹ On the *Cambridge Songs*, see A. G. Rigg and G. R. Wieland, “A Canterbury Classbook of the Mid-Eleventh Century (the ‘Cambridge Songs’ Manuscript),” *Anglo-Saxon England* 4 (1975): 113–30.

¹²⁰ Rita Copeland, “Chaucer and Rhetoric,” in Seth Lerer, ed., *The Yale Companion to Chaucer* (New Haven: Yale University Press, 2005), pp. 122–44; see also Peter W. Travis, *Disseminal Chaucer: Rereading the Nun’s Priest’s Tale* (Notre Dame: University of Notre Dame Press, 2010), esp. chapter 2; Joseph Turner, “Winking at the Nun’s Priest,” *The Chaucer Review* 55 (2020): 298–316.

¹²¹ Martin Camargo, “Chaucer and the Oxford Renaissance of Anglo-Latin Rhetoric,” *Studies in the Age of Chaucer* 34 (2012): 173–207. While Geoffrey’s set piece did circulate apart from the *Poetria nova*, Camargo (202) also shows how Chaucer’s citation incorporates an understanding of

the treatise as a whole and of the place of the lament on Richard in the doctrines of *digressio* and *amplificatio*.

¹²² Petrarch, *Lettres de la vieillesse [Rerum senilium]*, ed. Elvira Nota, 5 vols. (Paris: Les Belles Lettres, 2002–13), 5: 163 (*Rerum senilium* 17.3.4). Further references in the main text are to section number.

¹²³ Among studies commenting on the affective dimension of Petrarch's changes, see Anne Middleton, "The Clerk and His Tale: Some Literary Contexts," *Studies in the Age of Chaucer* 2 (1980): 121–50; Robin Kirkpatrick, "The Griselda Story in Boccaccio, Petrarch and Chaucer," in Piero Boitani, ed., *Chaucer and the Italian Trecento* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1983), pp. 231–48; David Wallace, "Letters of Old Age: Love Between Men, Griselda, and Farewell to Letters," in Victoria Kirkham and Armando Maggi, eds., *Petrarch: A Critical Guide to the Complete Works* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2009), pp. 321–30; Kara Gaston, *Reading Chaucer in Time: Literary Formation in England and Italy* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2020), pp. 84–115.

¹²⁴ On Boccaccio's vernacular prose and its links with dictaminal theory of the thirteenth century, see the suggestive arguments by Robert L. Benson, "Protohumanism and Narrative Technique in Early Thirteenth-Century Italian *Ars dictaminis*," in Marga Cottino-Jones and Edward F. Tuttle, eds., *Boccaccio: Secoli di vita* (Ravenna: Longo, 1977), pp. 31–50.

¹²⁵ Gur Zak calls attention to the philosophical and ethical effect of some of Petrarch's most significant abbreviations, his conspicuous omissions of Boccaccio's descriptions of Griselda's inner turmoil during each of her trials: "Petrarch's Griselda and the Ends of Humanism," *Le tre corone. Rivista internazionale di studi su Dante, Petrarca, Boccaccio* 2 (2015): 173–91.

¹²⁶ Boccaccio, *Tutte le opere di Giovanni Boccaccio*, ed. Vittore Branca, vol. 4, *Decameron* (Milan: Arnoldo Mondadori, 1976), p. 947.

¹²⁷ Translation (slightly altered) from *The Decameron*, trans. G. H. McWilliam (London: Penguin Classics, 2003), p. 788.

¹²⁸ This is among the lines in the *Clerk's Tale* accompanied by Latin glosses derived from Petrarch's text in twelve manuscripts of the *Canterbury Tales*, including Ellesmere and Hengwrt; here the gloss quotes the *conduplicatio* series from Petrarch. See the note in *The Riverside Chaucer*, p. 882, and for all the glosses from Petrarch, see John M. Manley and Edith Rickert, eds., *The Text of the Canterbury Tales, Studied on the Basis of All Known Manuscripts*, 8 vols. (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1940), 3: 505–8. The effect in English could never be the same as in Latin, because in Latin the repetitive effect depends on four feminine nouns of different declensions modified by the feminine form of the adjective *suspectus*.

¹²⁹ Faral, ed., *Les arts poétiques*, lines 203–36. Petrarch's thematizing of imitation is also considered, through the lens of classical translation and imitation theory, by Amy W. Goodwin, "The Griselda Game," *The Chaucer Review* 39 (2004): 41–69.

¹³⁰ See Woods, *Classroom Commentaries*, pp. 107–36.

¹³¹ See Zak, "Petrarch's Griselda and the Ends of Humanism," pp. 186–8 on these responses as "scenes of misreading." On the possible identities of the Paduan and Veronese friends, see the notes in *Lettres de la vieillesse [Rerum senilium]*, ed. Nota, p. 289 and references therein.

¹³² On Petrarch's formal rejection of the instruments of medieval grammatical study, especially the *artes poetriae*, see Ronald G. Witt, "*In the Footsteps of the Ancients*": *The Origins of Humanism from Lovato to Bruni* (Leiden: Brill, 2000), pp. 239–60 (esp. pp. 239–45).

¹³³ Christopher Cannon, *From Literacy to Literature: England 1300–1400* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2016), especially chapters 6 and 7. Cannon considers in depth the outlooks absorbed from grammatical exercises and readings, and their traces in mature poetic production.

¹³⁴ The Latin glosses based on Petrarch's *Seniles* 17.3 that accompany the *Clerk's Tale* in many manuscripts gloss this term at line 41 with the inaccurate—but still meaningful—*stylo alto*. See the note in *The Riverside Chaucer*, p. 880.

¹³⁵ J. Burke Severs, *The Literary Relationships of Chaucer's Clerk's Tale* (New Haven: Yale University Press, 1942), finds on the whole greater reliance on the anonymous French source, although this in its turn did not reflect Petrarch's revisions to *Seniles* 17.3 which Chaucer tended to incorporate: see pp. 177–80, 215–28. The long debate about whether Chaucer knew or relied on Boccaccio's plain style version is summed up and reexamined in Thomas J. Farrell, "Source or Hard Analogue? *Decameron* X.10 and the *Clerk's Tale*," *The Chaucer Review* 37 (2003): 346–64.

¹³⁶ See lines 456–60, *interrogatio* (asking a question) and *ratiocinatio* (reasoning with oneself); 460, *ratiocinatio*; 621, *exclamatio*; 696–700, *prosopopoeia*, *ratiocinatio*, *interrogatio*; 1086, *exclamatio*.

4

Aristotle's *Rhetoric* in the Latin West

The Fortunes of the *Pathē*

Aristotle's *Rhetoric* puts emotion at the center of rhetorical reasoning. For Aristotle, emotion is a form of proof or persuasion (*pistis*), along with persuasion through the character of the speaker, and persuasion through the argumentation itself (*Rhetoric* 1.2.4–6). Here, emotion is not assigned to the contingencies of style. As we have seen over the course of the previous chapters, style can be overwhelmingly effective in its emotional power and yet open to suspicion because it can be volatile, changeable, a slippery surface. By contrast, Aristotle views emotion as a core principle of persuasion in public matters, and for this reason he gives a systematic account—the first of its kind—of what the emotions are, how to know them, and how to marshal them in one's audience. This last element, how to marshal the inclinations of an audience, is especially important, for it brings to the foreground a distinguishing feature of Aristotle's treatment of emotion: emotions are not to be conjured at random in an audience at the moment of speaking, whether through style, or gesture, or delivery, or even strategic topics in the peroration, but are a social resource to be tapped by a knowing orator, providing grounds for the proofs he will make. The emotions are the conditions that already and continually characterize social and psychic life, and thus they must be explained and understood as a reality that pre-exists any attempt at persuasion. Emotions themselves may not be stable, but it is an unshakeable necessity that emotions affect judgment. In other words, as treated in the *Rhetoric* and reflecting broader Greek concerns, emotions are a political reality marking the diversity of

desires and outlooks among people who must also find common purpose.¹ Emotion is not simply a private, subjective motion of the soul. Thus, Aristotle's *Rhetoric* makes emotion an object of scientific inquiry about political and communal life.

But the impact of the *Rhetoric* on the post-classical West was belated. Unfashionable even by the Hellenistic period, and virtually unknown in early medieval Latin circles, its long silence was broken first by Arabic scholarship between the eighth and twelfth centuries, and then in the Latin West over the course of the thirteenth century.² To appreciate what could be at stake in its reception when it was authoritatively rendered in Latin in 1269 by William of Moerbeke and taken up into the fold of Aristotelian studies, we must first consider its nature and contents and those aspects of its post-classical history that pertain to its famous discourse on emotion. The audience that the *Rhetoric* found in Latin scholastic circles in the later thirteenth century would have understood the art of rhetoric along the lines of the Ciceronian tradition that was traced in the preceding chapters of this book: that is, to the extent that they were educated into rhetoric, the earliest readers of Moerbeke's translation would have known some combination of Cicero's *De inventione* or the *Rhetorica ad Herennium* and the treatments of the art that descended from these, including late antique compendia, early Christian encyclopedias covering the art, and one or more of the new professional genres of technical rhetorical teaching that emerged during the eleventh, twelfth, and thirteenth centuries as *artes dictaminis* and *artes poetriae*, as well as *artes praedicandi*.³ The first Western readers of the *Rhetoric* would thus have been unprepared for its actual character. The *Rhetoric* represented a new kind of authority, difficult to understand in its often terse formulations and sometimes confusingly organized. Moreover, the *Rhetoric* is embedded in Athenian legal and political practice, and makes free reference to an immense body of Greek rhetoric and poetry to which medieval readers had no access (and much of which is lost even today). Most important, little in the technical Ciceronian tradition available to them could have disposed readers for Aristotle's emphasis on the cognitive, ethical, and fluid psychological aspects of rhetoric. Under these conditions it would take time to assimilate Aristotle's distinctive treatment of emotion.

4.1 *Pathos and Enthymeme in Aristotle's Rhetoric*

Because Aristotle's *Rhetoric* arrived so late on the Western European scene and because its history is separate from the medieval tradition that descends from Ciceronian and late antique Latin rhetorics, it is necessary now to return to antiquity, beginning further back from where we started in [Chapter 1](#), and move forward again to sketch out the ancient and medieval fortunes of the treatise, at the same time marking the distinctive features of its approach to emotions. Here begins the second strand in what I have called the "double plot" of this book. If we began with the classical and late antique Latin sources, following the effects of their teaching on emotion through to the later Middle Ages, we now return to classical antiquity to chart the routes through which Aristotelian rhetoric found its place in later medieval thought. The trajectory of the present chapter will bring us up to the late thirteenth century, where we will pause to dwell on the way the *Rhetoric* was initially received by its first and most important commentator, Giles of Rome, and its place in scholastic thought in the following generation.

It will be useful at the start to characterize and outline the whole work. Aristotle approaches the subject of rhetoric much less in terms of providing a handbook than in terms of analyzing the system of argumentation in public, practical affairs. In this respect it is a theoretical text, viewing rhetoric as a power or potentiality (a *dynamis*) to see the available means of persuasion about any case (1355b25). It probably represents, or is based on, a course of lectures on rhetoric that he would have given during the 350s, which he wrote up as a treatise during the 330s when he had returned to live in Athens.⁴ Where the teachers contemporary with him would have taught rhetoric in terms of the parts of the speech, delivering instructions about how to construct each section of the oration, Aristotle organizes the material under analytical categories, the functions that motivate any speech: proofs, style, and arrangement. "Proof" is not the domain of one part of the oration, but is a governing capacity of rhetoric, a defining objective that is core to rhetoric.⁵ In his very opening statement he signals his assumption that the art of rhetoric lies, not in producing a particular speech, but in being able to evaluate any discourse: "rhetoric is the counterpart (*antistrophos*) of dialectic" (1354a1), because both are concerned with common knowledge and neither belongs to a specific science.⁶ Thus the work or function

(*ergon*) of rhetoric is not simply to persuade (by observing precepts), but to find out what is persuasive (1355b10). Like dialectic, rhetoric has its form of demonstration (*apodeixis*): where dialectic uses the syllogism as its tool, rhetoric uses the enthymeme, which is also a kind of syllogism, a formal reasoning, and also the strongest mode of persuasion (1355a5–10).⁷ Knowing how an enthymeme should differ from a syllogism and what kinds of materials it is drawn from is critical to the preparation of a speaker. But contemporary practices and teaching of rhetoric ignore this critical element, preferring instead to sway the judges by exclusively emotional appeals (1354a15); according to Aristotle, this is a distortion of the teaching of rhetoric, which should be about finding the methods of proof. After this initial critique of using emotion without anchoring it in method, however, Aristotle will return to the subject to give a definitive account of emotion.

Proofs are of two kinds: those that are “atechnical”—that is, provided at the outset (witnesses, evidence given under torture, written contracts)—and those that are technical (*entechnē*), that is, furnished by the orator’s technical skill (1355b36–9). It is in explaining the techniques of proof, which are the essential motor of rhetoric, that Aristotle elaborates three interconnected means of persuasion, all on a par with each other: through the character (*ēthos*) of the speaker, through the hearers when they are led to feel emotion (*pathos*), and through the argumentation (*logos*) in the speech itself (1356a1–20). In view of all these considerations, rhetoric should be understood as an offshoot both of dialectic and of politics and ethics, because the speaker must be in command of logical reasoning about any subject, but he must also understand human character (which will constitute his own control of *ēthos*) and understand the emotions—their nature, their actual causes in lived reality, and how to excite them. These latter two fields fall under ethics, which is in turn a form of political study (1356a25–7), as it concerns human action within the self and between self and others.

Book 1 of the *Rhetoric* goes on to outline the three genres of rhetoric: political or deliberative, judicial or forensic, and demonstrative or epideictic. It then describes the topics (*topoi*), that is, the “places” or strategies or even forms of argument, that are specific to each. Book 2 represents the earliest account of audience psychology, a comprehensive exploration of *pathos*, emotion: what produces emotions in people, and how a speaker can exploit the emotions present or possible in an audience in

order to effect persuasion by making arguments that draw on emotional disposition. In other words, the speaker does not need to show emotion in order to appeal to emotional attitudes.⁸ Aristotle gives a detailed and concrete typology of fourteen emotions (seven antithetical pairs) relevant to the task of persuading an audience: anger and calmness or satisfaction; friendship or love (*philia*) and enmity or hatred; fear and confidence; shame and shamelessness (here his discussion is focused on the causes of shame, while shamelessness is defined tersely as the opposite of the conditions of shame); favor or kindness and its opposite, unkindliness or ingratitude; pity and indignation; and envy and emulation (*zēlos*). Along with the passions in book 2, Aristotle also classifies character types: young, old, middle-aged, well-born, wealthy, and powerful. The remaining chapters of book 2 give examples of maxims, enthymemes, and common topics, with colorful examples taken from history, drama, and narrative poetry as well as from popular fables and proverbs. Here the enthymeme, the key demonstrative tool of rhetoric, seems to be associated with emotion, as the account of the *pathē* precedes the detailed exemplifications of enthymemes, as if to lay the ground for them.⁹ Book 3 deals with the other two overarching functions of rhetorical speeches, style and arrangement; this is where we find Aristotle's famous discussion of vivid metaphor (1405a–b). Here he also deals with “appropriateness” of language to emotion, character, and subject. Thus the language of anger must be used to speak of outrage, the language of indignation or reserve when speaking of impiety or what is foul, exulting language for glory, the language of humility for things that should evoke pity (1408a10–19).

The account of emotions in book 2 is distinctive in many respects, standing out from other ancient treatments of emotions and also different from the ways Aristotle treats emotions elsewhere in his works. The fundamental but terse definition of emotions at the beginning of book 2 lays out some of Aristotle's key themes: “The emotions (*pathē*) are those things through which, by undergoing change, people come to differ in their judgments and which are accompanied by pain and pleasure, for example, anger, pity, fear, and other such things and their opposites” (1378a21–3). The emotions are those effects through which people change in their judgments. We will say more below about the relationship between cognition and judgment. For now, it is important to consider how Aristotle acknowledges the sensory dimension of emotion. In book 1, he shows how

pleasure and pain, which are at once bodily and psychic reactions, structure desire and motivation. This is necessary to understand in judicial contexts in order to argue why people do certain things (1369b34–1370b1). The very acts of judgment that people make, and the emotions through which they make them, are associated with pleasure and its opposite, as most emotions can be a mixture of both.¹⁰ While the sensations are not themselves emotions, physical pains or pleasures (thirst, sickness, erotic desire) can dispose us to feel certain emotions (1379a15–17).¹¹ Picking up that premise in book 2 where he defines emotion as something “accompanied by pain and pleasure,” Aristotle undertakes a detailed phenomenology of the emotions, promising to describe the state of mind of the one who feels it, to characterize the people who are the objects of the emotion, and to give the cause for each (1378a23–5). He analyzes the movement of emotions from cognitive cause to mental and behavioral effect. This phenomenological approach has since resonated with modern philosophers. Heidegger in particular championed the *Rhetoric*, claiming that there has been no better analysis of the emotions in their social dimension since Aristotle’s account: Aristotle recognized that feelings are not merely “accompanying phenomena” but the very substance of public life, into which and out of which the orator speaks.¹² In the *Rhetoric*, as Heidegger put it in his 1924 lectures on Aristotle, “the *pathē* are not merely an annex of psychical processes, but are rather the ground out of which speaking arises.”¹³ Humans deliberate because of disquiet: in changing us from one disposition to another, the emotions project us into speaking with each other.

One initial impression from book 2 is how very concrete and situational the accounts of each emotion are. For example, in his opening discussion on anger (1378a31–1380a4), he first describes how anger is a desire for retaliation for some perceived slight; it is accompanied by mental or physical distress. It is directed at particular individuals, not at a class of persons. This requires explaining the nature of a slight: it can be divided into contempt, spite, and insult. The motives of those who belittle also need to be understood, because it is what lies behind the belittlement (a sense of superiority, or sheer cruelty) that causes the anger in the recipient of the insult. Both the giver and receiver of an insult are acting on a sense of superiority; but to be angry at an insult one must feel defensive about one’s own superiority. The state of mind of angry persons is distress as they perceive an impediment to a desire (psychic or physical, material or

strategic). Thus, he says, it is easy to see the seasons, times, dispositions, and ages of those stirred to anger, and under what conditions this can happen; Aristotle implies that the orator who knows these things can harness that knowledge. Having demonstrated the conditions for anger, he can now turn to a long exemplification of those who provoke anger: we are angry at those who mock and scorn us, especially at friends who should treat us better, at those who used to treat us properly but now don't, at inferiors who show disrespect, at friends who belittle us, at those who rejoice at our misfortunes (these show enmity), at those who bring bad news and those who seem to relish our grief, at those who belittle us before certain classes of people, and at those who show us other kinds of contempt including forgetting us. The orator will put these variables to use (1380a2–4): “it is clear that it might be needful in speech to put the audience in the state of mind of those who are inclined to anger” (here he refers back to his discussion of the angry state of mind) “and to show one's opponents as responsible for those things that are the causes of anger” (referring here to the initial discussion of causation) “and that they are the sort of people against whom anger is directed” (referring to the final illustrative list of the objects of anger).

Several important conclusions can be drawn from this example. First, the cause and effect of emotions studied here are not determined by the orator's delivery or stylistic choices; as I mentioned at the beginning of this chapter, the emotions are to be approached scientifically as a pre-existing reality, as the elements of social behavior that the orator must study so that he can recognize them. This sets Aristotle apart from some of his predecessors, notably the sophist Gorgias, whose *Encomium of Helen* makes the provocative case that the magnificence of words can conjure the most intense emotions in an audience; and it is a key difference between his approach and the later classical treatments of emotional delivery in the mature Cicero and Quintilian who, as we have seen, maintain that the speaker himself must be charged with the very emotion that he is trying to elicit.

Another important point for us is that in the *Rhetoric* Aristotle focuses on emotions in relation to other people, not in relation to things (in other words, as merely appetitive). As he describes them here, emotions come about through social behavior, through responses to people (thus, for example, he is not interested in tantrums that can be set off by

uncooperative inanimate objects, or the kind of greed that is awakened by food or money in themselves). Related to the priority placed on social behavior is that the very list of emotions he chooses to explain are those that have a specific social cause. Note that in his detailed treatment in book 2 he does not even consider such basic emotions as happiness and sadness, even though he includes one or both of these in his lists of passions in *Nicomachean Ethics* (1105b223) in the course of his discussion of excellence, and in *De anima* (403a16–25) in a discussion of the ways that affections may be shared between soul and body.¹⁴ The emotions at stake here are those that involve other subjectivities who are part of a civic framework, others who represent us to ourselves, rather than emotions that are experienced autonomously, such as sadness.¹⁵

The last point is that, compared with other ancient thought, Aristotle's approach here is surprisingly nonjudgmental. He stresses what beliefs, intentions, and awarenesses actually cause emotions, but he offers no normative schemes against which emotions should be evaluated. In the *Rhetoric* Aristotle is not speaking about how we should strive for goodness and the mean, as in the *Ethics* where, for example, modesty is the mean between bashfulness and shamelessness, or righteous indignation is a mean between envy and spite (1108a31–b10). Thus also, revealingly, in the *Rhetoric* he considers friendliness (*philia*) among the passions, whereas in the *Ethics* he treats it as a kind of virtue or excellence (1155a3).¹⁶ His treatment of emotions in the *Ethics* might also be described as phenomenological, that is, an attempt to understand the causes of emotions and to acknowledge their centrality in human behavior. But only the *Rhetoric* takes a nonnormative, pragmatic approach, describing in the greatest detail what beliefs, interactions, and awarenesses actually cause emotions so that the orator can harness and modify them.¹⁷ By contrast, Plato's treatments of the emotions often render them negatively as obstacles to clear thinking and political decorum. The extreme expression of this is the famous argument from *Republic* 10 criticizing the effects of poetry when it represents anger or grief or other heightened emotional states: poetry "waters and nourishes these feelings, when they ought to be dried up, and it puts them in control of us, when *they* are the things that ought to be controlled if we are to become better and happier people, not worse and more miserable."¹⁸ As we will consider at greater length below, Aristotle's *Rhetoric* is radical within the larger philosophical context of antiquity for its

understanding of emotion as the experiential equipment of civic life rather than as destructive impulses to be overcome.

Cognition and judgment are intimately related in Aristotle's rhetorical account of the emotions. This is also a distinctive feature of his approach. He takes what has been called an "inclusive view" of the emotions, recognizing that they are products of both bodily response (pain or pleasure can be experienced physically as well as mentally) and of thought. On Aristotle's view, as Fortenbaugh has argued, emotions come about through the thought provoked by some action or situation, a thought that is also accompanied or provoked by pleasure or pain.¹⁹ This may be, for example, the thought of retaliation (anger, 1378a30–2), or the thought of doing good for someone (*philia*, love or friendliness, 1380b36–7), or the "visualization" (*phantasia*) of some forthcoming evil (fear, 1382a21–2). These are cognitive shifts; and because cognition or thought is an essential component of emotional response, the emotions are themselves accessible to reasoned argument and, moreover, can be sources of information for decision making. In other words, emotional response is intelligent behavior.²⁰ For Plato too, the emotions can have a cognitive basis, but not with the same decisive outcome that we find in Aristotle. On the one hand, in *Republic* 4, Plato claims that emotions can originate not only from the appetitive part of the soul but also from the spirited part, which can be trained to serve the rational soul, although its interests are more limited (440e–441c). Yet in the *Phaedo* (from the same period as his composition of the *Republic*), he gives a more negative picture of the emotions as bodily impulses that the philosopher should control and repudiate as much as possible (*Phaedo* 66–7). And in the late *Philebus*, Plato says that the pain and pleasure that accompany emotion are related to opinion, but opinions, he goes on to conclude, are liable to be false (42a7–9), and thus form a poor basis for judgment.²¹ Plato's ascetic ideal of philosophical detachment from the passions (however much some emotions may also be seen to ennoble the soul), was to have a strong influence on post-Platonic and post-classical thought.

Closely connected with cognition, emotions bring about a change in people with respect to their judgments. This is the meaning of Aristotle's statement that, "by undergoing change (*metaballontes*)" through the emotions, people "come to differ (*diapherousi*) in their judgments." Judgment (*krisis*) may be said to be the most important element of

Aristotle's analysis, what makes his analysis of emotions specific to rhetorical persuasion, and what makes emotion central to the reasoning function of rhetoric. In the context of persuasion about public matters (and thus public life as a whole), the purpose or *telos* of knowing the emotions is their effect on judgment.²² Thus, "things do not seem the same to those who are friendly and those who are hostile, nor [the same] to the angry and the calm but either altogether different or different in importance" (1377b30–1378a1). On Aristotle's view, what seems to make the emotions different from other kinds of sensations that do not emerge cognitively into emotions is their transformative effect on judgment: appetites or discomforts (hunger, cold) may be allayed without reasoning about them and without involving persuasion (cf., *Eudemian Ethics* 1224b2). Aristotle takes it as a given that emotions alter judgment, and thus maps out the process in precise terms. But the situational descriptions of each of the emotions shows how he traces the process. For example, fear is provoked by the thought that a harm is imminent (1382a25–30); the judgments that arise from fear, the steps taken to seek remedies or assistance, can also bring about fear's opposite, confidence (1383a20–1). To be moved to an emotion involves making a judgment about the cause, and through that judgment either affirming the emotion (seeking retaliation in the case of anger, doing good for someone in the case of *philia*) or passing to another emotion (the calmness achieved in retaliation, the confidence inspired by resolving the cause of fear), or both. It can be said that emotions themselves have aims or *teloι* in that they urge us, through the judgments they involve, toward some kind of resolution.²³

Thus, as many have observed, the dedicated account in the *Rhetoric* hones the *pathē*, placing them before us in all their sensory, psychic, and social complexity. The definitions and qualifications may correspond in various ways with his treatments of them elsewhere in his writings. But his understanding of emotion achieves its phenomenological power here in the framework of rhetoric. The lesson of Aristotle's analytic is that the emotions, as seats of judgment, are inherently political. If rhetoric concerns itself with deliberation on public matters of law and policy, the form of proof that emotion affords is bound up with politics. Knowing and mobilizing the passions of an audience is an expression of the speaker's political understanding. This language of emotion was to give medieval readers in the Latin West a new way of articulating—and indeed theorizing—the function of emotion in persuasive discourse.

But how does rhetoric actually make emotion a form of proof? That is, how does the orator implement the knowledge gained through knowing audience dispositions? The decisive instrument is the enthymeme. With the first mention of enthymeme in book 1 of the *Rhetoric*, Aristotle calls it “the body (*sōma*) of persuasion” (1354a15), as if to suggest that the enthymeme is the organic and mechanical necessity by which everything else in persuasion can operate. In this context he is claiming that other so-called “arts” of rhetoric explain nothing about technical proofs that truly effect persuasion in both forensic and deliberative speaking (1354b20–1355a3). But the technical or “artistic” method is concerned with demonstration (*apodeixis*), and this is achieved through the enthymeme, which he says gives the strongest of the proofs. One who wants to persuade should be able to grasp enthymemes and their distinctive concerns, especially why they are not the syllogisms we would encounter in logic (1355a4–14). Enthymemes are “rhetorical syllogisms”: like syllogisms they work deductively, moving from general premises to a conclusion (as in the syllogism of logic); this is to be distinguished from the “inductive” movement of the *paradeigma* or example (also a rhetorical technique), which points outward from a particular case (1356b1–9).

Defining the enthymeme on Aristotle’s terms is not without controversy among modern scholars.²⁴ Whatever ambiguity surrounds this critical term is probably continuous with the character of rhetoric as Aristotle understands it: a theory of discourse involving the domain of the probable and the contingent cannot be tied rigidly to abstract rules of logic, and persuasion cannot be divorced from the relationship between speaker and audience.²⁵ Understanding the term “enthymeme” itself allows us to evaluate how Aristotle characterizes it. The term “enthymeme” ultimately derives from the word *thymos*, meaning heart, mind, spirit, desire, or soul (as manifested through passions): it signifies the seat of emotions and intuitions, where inferences, judgments, and intentions are made. Thus an *enthymēma* should be an outcome of an action “in the *thymos*.” *Thymos* in turn derives from *thyō*, whose secondary meaning is “to rage,” “to seethe.”²⁶ More specific to the rhetorical situation that Aristotle envisions, the word is also related to *enthymeisthai*, “to consider,” which gives a sense of the judgment involved in rhetorical persuasion. Heidegger illuminates the depth of the connection between the intuitive process of considering and the act of persuasion: “What is meant by *enthymēma*? *Enthymeisthai* is ‘to

take something to heart,’ ‘to weigh something for oneself,’ ‘to think something over’...*Enthymēma* is applied to...a discourse with another about something in which...there is a matter of concern.”²⁷ If emotion can be said to prompt us into speech, it is the enthymeme that is best suited to direct that kind of speaking: it is a kind of junction box between emotion and deliberation. Aristotle imbues the notion of enthymeme with far more meaning and force than it carries in other Greek contexts, literary or rhetorical.²⁸

In Aristotle’s use, the enthymeme is not—as it has come to be understood in modern contexts—a truncated syllogism, that is, a syllogism lacking one premise. It is a device grounded in logical method, but with greater flexibility than the syllogism, drawing from probabilities and signs (1357a32–3, 1359a7–10).²⁹ It can allow at times for some assumptions to be unstated (1357a17–22). It should be designed to abbreviate a long and obscure chain of reasoning, that is, it should avoid offering too many layers of proof before reaching its conclusion, as general audiences are not expected to be “able to see many things all together or to reason from a distant starting point” (1357a3–4).³⁰ Its distinctiveness lies, not in any incompleteness, but in the choice of premises that are apt for the persuasive purpose at hand: these must be premises that can be readily accepted because they rely on the beliefs and values of that particular audience: “one should not speak on the basis of all opinions, but of those held by an identified group (*horismenois*), for example, either the judges or those whom they respect” (1395b31–2).³¹ Thus, its proofs are not as binding or necessary as those of the demonstrative syllogism that dialectic uses. If general validity of statement and showing every step of inference is required for the academic purposes of syllogisms, a rhetorical enthymeme will succeed if the audience adopts the conclusion and concurs with it.³²

While the enthymeme is not the only instrument of proof, Aristotle claims that it is the more acclaimed by audiences (1356b20). This is for a reason beyond its merely technical composition. In its appeal to the beliefs and values of a particular audience, the enthymeme is the tool perfectly equipped to translate emotional conditions into the formal character of proof. It is from the premises or assumptions that it can leave implicit, relying instead on the beliefs, intuitions, and emotional dispositions of the audience, that the enthymeme draws its decisive power as a tool of

persuasion. Such a judgment-making capacity is involved in any process of drawing inferences, whether in logic or in rhetoric. But rhetoric includes emotion as a legitimate seat of judgment, accommodating it in the process of drawing inferences, establishing premises, and stating conclusions.³³ Emotions can simply entail certain judgments, even if these might be contradictory (cf., 1378a1–2). Where a dialectical syllogism would prohibit conflicting judgments, the rhetorical enthymeme can support such contradictions: emotions are at once cognitive and bodily, and the emotions aroused in a speech will be accompanied by feelings of pleasure and pain which do not answer to dispassionate logic but which still affect judgment. In a sense, the practical reasoning of rhetoric is reasoning according to *pathos*.³⁴

Chapters 22–5 of book 2 explain the uses of enthymemes, the topics (or commonplaces) from which they can be derived, apparent but fallacious enthymemes (the orator should be able to recognize the weaknesses in an opponent’s argument), and how to refute an opponent’s enthymemes.³⁵ Aristotle emphasizes that his foregoing accounts of passions and of character-types already provide the materials of specific subjects for enthymemes (1396a29–43). Chapter 23 takes a more technical course, giving a survey of twenty-eight topics (*topoi*, strategies) for enthymemes on any subject. These are basic argumentative structures, for example arguing from the less likely to the more likely (thus, if a man strikes his father, which is almost inconceivable, then it is the more likely that he would strike his neighbor). The sense of contingency that attends such deliberations can be exemplified through one of these topics: when the speaker must urge or discourage courses of action in opposing circumstances, a “damned if you do-damned if you don’t” dilemma, where the consequences of either course of action can be both good and bad. Aristotle employs a story to explain how each choice might produce both favorable and unfavorable results: “a priestess did not allow her son to engage in public debate: ‘For,’ she said, ‘if you say what is just, the people will hate you, but if what is unjust, the gods will.’ [She then continued] ‘You should then engage in public debate, for if you speak what is just, the gods will love you, if what is unjust, the people will’ ” (1399a20–5). Here, what is at stake is not the enigma of the priestess’ double advice to her son, but rather that we do not always deliberate a simple question of good consequences over bad, as either side may produce advantage and disadvantage.³⁶ In Aristotle’s hands, the

enthymeme becomes a sensuous form of reasoning, giving expression to sensations, to doubt and anxiety, to affection and hatred, and to all the emotions that activate social behavior.

4.2 The Fortunes of the *Rhetoric* in Context: Ancient Philosophies of the Passions

The fortunes of Aristotle's *Rhetoric* during the Hellenistic period and later antiquity are obscure, and the lines of much of the Peripatetic influence on rhetoric have had to be reconstructed.³⁷ Aristotle's pupil Theophrastus continued and elaborated the teaching represented in the *Rhetoric*, although Theophrastus' writings on rhetoric do not survive. During this period and afterwards, some of the scrolls of Aristotle's unpublished writings remained in Athens while others were copied for libraries such as the one at Alexandria. The *Rhetoric*, however, does not seem to have been among the texts copied at that time. According to Strabo, and later Plutarch, if their accounts are to be believed in all details, Aristotle's own library (which would have contained his unpublished writings) was in the possession of Theophrastus, but after his death (c.285 BCE) it was removed by his student Neleus to Scepsis in Asia Minor. It was inherited by the family of Neleus, and there the scrolls remained, hidden away and falling into dilapidated condition, until around 100 BCE they were sold to a bibliophile and librarian, Apellicon of Teos, who took them to Athens and produced faulty copies of them for circulation. The original scrolls themselves were then taken to Rome around 83 BCE, where the Greek grammarian Tyrannio edited them, and where Andronicus of Rhodes had them published. This may have been the point at which the *Rhetoric* was arranged into three books, with Aristotle's (possibly separate) lectures on *lexis* or style becoming what is now book 3. Thus, while some of Aristotle's works were known more-or-less continually from his lifetime onward, others, including the *Rhetoric*, were recovered in different stages long after his death.

The inconsistency of this transmission has important implications for the reception of the *Rhetoric*. In the two hundred years that elapsed between the death of Theophrastus in the third century and the edition published by Andronicus in the first century, developments in rhetorical theory would

have made the *Rhetoric* seem outmoded upon its reappearance in Rome, so that it did not join the more modern school texts. First, the techniques of inventional theory had been completely revised during the second century by the teacher Hermagoras of Temnos (whose works do not survive, but whose influence was deeply felt by later theorists). Hermagoras produced a streamlined method of finding the central issue in a case, a system known as “status” or “stasis” theory.³⁸ The *Rhetorica ad Herennium* and Cicero’s *De inventione* are the earliest Roman rhetorics to reflect the impact of Hermagoras, constructing their treatment of invention around the *staseis* or questions to be asked of any dispute. The Hermagorean system remained the building block in Greek and Latin rhetoric through late antiquity and from there into the Middle Ages. Aristotle’s *Rhetoric* has no similarly streamlined approach to invention, and would have seemed antiquated by comparison. Second, in the intervening centuries Stoic grammatical theory had developed a calibrated system for distinguishing between the figures of speech, the figures of thought, and the tropes, and these advances in stylistic theory became an important part of teaching of rhetoric from at least the first century BCE onward (as we saw in [Chapters 1 and 2](#)). Compared to this system, Aristotle’s approach to style in book 3 would have seemed technically outdated.

The truly innovative elements of Aristotle’s rhetorical thought—the enthymeme as argumentative tool, the system of topics as general strategies of persuasion, the three forms of proof through character, emotion, and argument—did not survive intact during the intervening centuries, even though some oral transmission of his teaching may have persisted for a time. In combination with other influences, the theories of the enthymeme and of the topics were altered so much as to become unrecognizable. We might, however, have expected the fundamental notion of the three forms of proof to have retained its value in later avatars of the art. But this seems to have disappeared because Hellenistic rhetoricians at some point abandoned the inclusion of *ēthos* and *pathos*. One hypothesis is that Stoic philosophy, with its suspicion of emotional arousal, was an important factor contributing to the elimination of these elements. Hermagoras was influenced by the Stoics and it was perhaps on the terms of their teaching that he reduced the system of proof to the purely intellectual system of invention through status theory while eliminating character and emotion.³⁹

Knowledge of the *Rhetoric* in Roman oratory and among later Latin compendia is to some degree traceable, as this was among the Aristotelian works made available in Rome around 83 BCE.⁴⁰ But it was decades before the principles of the work were to be digested. The *Rhetorica ad Herennium* and Cicero's *De inventione* are slightly too early to reflect a direct influence of Aristotle. While the *Rhetorica ad Herennium* shows no familiarity with it, Cicero's reports of Aristotle in *De inventione* suggest only second-hand knowledge of the *Rhetoric*. The *De inventione* correctly attributes to Aristotle the idea of three genres of rhetoric (*De inventione* 1.5.7); but at other points in the text (1.35.61, 2.50.156) shows a mistaken understanding of Peripatetic rhetoric.⁴¹ These two treatises from the early or mid-80s BCE were to afford the Latin Middle Ages its chief understanding of classical rhetoric; thus, any real knowledge of Peripatetic rhetoric was not to be conveyed through them. It is only in Cicero's mature works, especially *De oratore*, and in Quintilian's *Institutio oratoria* that the principles of the *Rhetoric* are absorbed to some degree. *De oratore*, written in 55 BCE (thus at least thirty years later than *De inventione*, a long period in which Cicero could reckon with Aristotle's *Rhetoric*) offers a particularly relevant treatment of emotion in book 2 (51.208–52.211). Here, the character Antonius describes the mobility of emotions as social behaviors and the materials of arguments by which the speaker will arouse or calm the emotions, especially in legal disputes. The quality of this short discourse is very like that of Aristotle's much longer analytic. Elsewhere in *De oratore* 2, Antonius claims to have read Aristotle's *Rhetoric* (38.160).⁴² Quintilian's general familiarity with Aristotle's *Rhetoric* is not in doubt, although it was not something that he drew on significantly. In fact, the famous account of emotion in *Institutio oratoria* 6.2 in which Quintilian treats *ēthos* as a weaker form of *pathos* (6.2.8–20) has raised many questions about the Aristotelian and more generally Peripatetic influence on his theory.⁴³ But neither of these texts were directly influential after antiquity, and thus provide no passage of Aristotelian rhetoric into the Middle Ages.

With the effective disappearance of the *Rhetoric* and of works like *De oratore* that carried its clearer imprints, the *rhetorical* psychology of emotion that so distinguishes it also receded. The theoretical link between emotion and proof, so central to Aristotle's system, was substantially weakened, and the function of arousing emotion was relegated to the realm of style. This does not mean that in practice rhetoric minimized the value of

emotion: as we saw in the previous chapters, the arousing of emotion remained a central aim of persuasive writing and speaking. We have seen how medieval rhetoricians creatively reinvented an approach to emotional arousal by accentuating the importance of style. But we have also seen that they did not seek to explain emotion or its role in the program of persuasion. Even the strongest advocates of the emotional power of rhetoric, Augustine and Cassiodorus, treat emotion as an effect of style. What was lost was the theoretical language for treating emotion as a social behavior necessary to persuasion, and for seeing emotions as part of the core political project of rhetoric.

The major impact on Western medieval thought about emotion was to come, not from ancient rhetoric, but from ancient philosophy. We will have more occasions in this and later chapters to consider the philosophical themes that remained a continuous point of reference for medieval readers and writers even after Aristotle's *Rhetoric* became known again. But at this point, before turning to the fortunes of the *Rhetoric* after antiquity, it will be useful to summarize the major ancient philosophical traditions that comprised the inherited dossier of medieval theories of emotion. The *Rhetoric* was to compete with these traditions in a way that the medieval pragmatic rhetorics, descended from Ciceronian theory about eloquence, never had to do. As a work of Aristotle, the *Rhetoric* was not only to change rhetorical expectations; it was also received into the canon of philosophy inherited from antiquity. Thus it would also have to be accommodated somehow to philosophical (and theological) frameworks that had long been in place. We can better judge how startling its effect might be by laying out here, in brief, what was long to inform outlooks on emotion before Aristotle's text was made known to Christian Latin scholars in the thirteenth century. Here, I survey ancient and late antique theories in order to bring the differences with the *Rhetoric* into the foreground. The medieval developments of this tradition will be treated later in this chapter, in relation to the appearance of the *Rhetoric* in the thirteenth century and the commentaries on it.⁴⁴

As already noted, Aristotle's *Rhetoric* is unusual among classical approaches for its "inclusive view" of emotion: as products of both mind and body, emotions contribute to judgment and inform reasoning. Therefore they are to be both understood and mobilized. We have also considered how this differs from the earlier perspective of Plato, who generally regards

emotions as forces that can and must be trained positively even if they cannot be eradicated; this is famously illustrated in the myth of the charioteer and horses in the *Phaedrus* (246a–256e), where the passions of the unruly horse can be harnessed for good.⁴⁵ Later schools of thought, however, equated control of emotions with extirpating them in some form. The Stoic and Neoplatonist traditions, which exerted the dominant influences on medieval Christian philosophy, saw powerful emotions as potentially harmful things to be eradicated in favor of peace of mind.

Stoic philosophers tended to view strong emotion as a symptom of the imperfection of human beings as they live in the world. Human beliefs about the world and what is good and bad in it constitute the first element in an emotion; the second element is an impulse towards or away from what is believed to be good or bad. The Stoics divided the emotions into four general classes: pleasure and distress (directed to good and bad, respectively, and relating to the present) and desire and fear (directed to good and bad, respectively, and relating to the future), a classification that remained influential in later antiquity and in the Middle Ages.⁴⁶ They articulated a difference between the involuntary occurrence of a feeling, what came to be called the “first movement” (*primus motus*) and voluntary indulgence of the feeling, which is the mind’s assent to the initial prompting of a belief followed by willful action. A full expression of this sequence is laid out in Seneca’s *De ira* 2.4.1.⁴⁷ We have also seen how Cicero’s *De inventione* deploys basic Stoic notions of emotion as *animi ex tempore commutatio*, a temporary disturbance of the mind that comes from some outside source, as if to suggest that there is a false belief that has overtaken the mind; its counterpart is *habitus*, an abiding condition that, if good, constitutes a perfection. For the Stoics, therapy is the answer to the sequence of false belief, impulse, and acceding to the impulse; it is not enough simply to check the impulse, for it is the belief that must be changed too. In an ideal as opposed to real sense, the human soul is only rational, as the soul is unitary, and we should identify not with real-world imperfection and spiritual contamination, but rather with the good of unitary reason, the true, monadic condition of the soul: desires must be correct and knowledge untainted by falsehood.⁴⁸ If, for Aristotle, passions are spontaneous and natural responses to the way things appear to us (cf., *Ethics* 1105b19–1106a4), the Stoics maintain that strong emotions arise only from assenting to false beliefs accepted as true.⁴⁹ For these reasons the Stoics advocated

striving for a state of *apatheia*, a state of quietude and virtue wherein one can substitute morally positive emotions, such as sober friendship, for strong, impulsive passions.⁵⁰ This involves extirpating spontaneous passions and retraining the mind to reevaluate mistaken appearances of things, appearances that create the harmful passions in the first place (cf., Cicero, *Tusculan Disputations* 4.14.32–4.17.38). This notion was not without its critics in the ancient world: moderation rather than extirpation was offered as an alternative by some of the Middle Platonists including Alcinous and Plutarch, who recognized the necessity of some temperate emotions; and from a medical perspective Galen also argued for control rather than detachment.⁵¹

In Neoplatonist thought, the principle of *apatheia* or emotional detachment becomes one of making spiritual progress, of training the soul through philosophy so that it has no thoughts, opinions, or concerns that arouse powerful emotions.⁵² For Plotinus, the soul is involved in the affections to the extent that it is partly responsible for them by being susceptible to false images; thus, to perfect itself and become more like God, the soul must seek freedom from the emotions through philosophy (*Enneads* 1.2.6, 3.6.5). Naturally, for Plotinus and his followers not all experience of emotion is harmful. In the ascending path of *homoioōsis* or likening to God, emotions of love, joy, or wonder, all of which can be mixed with pain and pleasure, urge the human soul onward to an apprehension of divine Beauty. But the aim of that ascent of the soul toward its own perfection is a purification and a positive kind of *apatheia*, a freedom from irrational and spontaneous affections.⁵³ These are the philosophical outlooks that were to be inherited in the Middle Ages through early Christian theology and then reinforced through the influence of Arabic philosophy. It is obvious that the non-normative psychology of the *Rhetoric*, its interest in the social causes of emotion, would be an outlier to the dominant philosophical traditions of emotion. Christianity was also to cultivate the idea that emotions can be harnessed towards good forms of feeling—love and desire of God, abhorrence of sin. As I will consider below, the Christian theological perspective has its roots in ancient philosophies of emotion, including ultimately Aristotelian ethics.⁵⁴ But there is a wide margin between this and the pragmatic, political understanding of *pathos* in the *Rhetoric*.

4.3 Al-Farabi, Avicenna, and Averroes on Emotion in the *Rhetoric*

The history of the *Rhetoric* through its Arabic transmission is critical to understanding how the Latin West could prepare for the work, and the preconceptions with which Latin scholars received it when it finally arrived. In this section, I focus on how Arabic commentators, especially Al-Farabi (whose ideas were directly known in the Latin West), considered the *pathē* as both cognitive and moral forces in persuasion. There is considerable work on the Arabic reception of the *Rhetoric* in general, but I pause here to consider an aspect that has received less attention, the Arabic interpreters of the role of emotions in Aristotle's system.

Scholars working in Syriac, Arabic and, ultimately Latin, accepted a taxonomy of Aristotle's works that can be traced back to the early centuries of the Common Era and the Greek scholars of Alexandria. Greek commentators stamped their authority on a classification of Aristotle's writings that placed the *Rhetoric* and the *Poetics* among the logical "tools" of the *Organon*, that is, the works of Aristotle devoted to logical method. The extending of the *Organon* was a transformative episode, as it was to remain part of the European vocabulary of thought in the Middle Ages.⁵⁵ Aspects of the *Rhetoric* would have encouraged its association with logic, as Aristotle is at pains to show that rhetoric most resembles dialectic in having no set subject but rather offering a technique for taking on any material; the *Poetics*, a work tied more closely with the *Rhetoric* than any other, was incorporated into this taxonomy.⁵⁶ This arrangement implies that the *Rhetoric* and the *Poetics* deliver a certain kind of logical teaching along with the other "tools" of the *Organon*. On this system, logic is divided into eight parts, corresponding to eight "logical" works of Aristotle. Each "part" of logic represents techniques or functions rather than content or subject matter: *De interpretatione*, *Categories*, *Prior Analytics*, and *Posterior Analytics* correspond to the purposes of demonstration; the *Topics* corresponds to probable demonstration; *Sophistical Refutations* belongs to deceptive or false demonstration; the *Rhetoric* belongs to persuasion rather than proof of what is demonstrably or probably true (the enthymeme comprises its syllogistic technique); and the *Poetics* corresponds to imaginative representation (through what came to be called the

“imaginative syllogism”). This system provided a fertile ground for Arabic and later Christian philosophical elaboration of the kinds of syllogistic techniques that each text, as its own form of logic, was intended to teach. Classifying rhetoric and poetic under logic also ensured continuous interest in these fields, encouraging and justifying attention to the corresponding Aristotelian texts. Thus, although in this scheme rhetoric occupied one of the lowest rungs in the hierarchy of logic, as the enthymeme would have been understood as a less reliable mechanism of proof compared to demonstration or probability, its place within the *Organon* conferred philosophical importance on it and the *Rhetoric* attracted due interpretation.⁵⁷

Our story of the medieval fortunes of the *Rhetoric* must begin with the known parameters of its entrance into Arabic science. In terms of the materials that have come down to us, this tradition begins with the oldest and only surviving medieval Arabic translation of the *Rhetoric*, which was made most likely in the early ninth century, though a somewhat earlier date has also been proposed. The unique copy is contained in Paris, Bnf, MS arabe 2346, a compilation of the texts of the extended *Organon* copied at different periods. Other Arabic translations of the *Rhetoric* were made, but they appear to be lost, along with what may have been a much earlier Syriac version.⁵⁸ The translation in MS arabe 2346 is also believed to be the very version on which the surviving Arabic commentaries on the text are based, as well as the one used by the early Latin translator of the *Rhetoric*, Hermannus Alemannus, in the mid-thirteenth century. The commentary tradition on the *Rhetoric* was apparently substantial, according to the titles and references preserved in the Arabic bibliographies. A good many of these commentaries are lost.⁵⁹ The commentaries or treatises directly concerning the *Rhetoric* that do come down to us are by Al-Farabi (d. 950), Avicenna (d. 1037), and Averroes (d. 1198); we have two commentative works from each of these important philosophers. Given the classification of rhetoric as a branch of logic, the commentators tend to emphasize the relationship between rhetoric and dialectic, that is, how rhetoric might constitute a form of logic. But at times they also evaluate the emotional and ethical dimensions of Aristotle’s conception of rhetoric, and I turn my attention to those passages.⁶⁰

Of Al-Farabi’s two commentaries, one, the “Great Commentary” was known to the medieval West, and indeed until modern times, only through

the Latin translation of its opening sections by Hermannus Alemannus in 1256, surviving in one manuscript, Paris, Bnf, MS lat.16097 (s. xiv).⁶¹ The “Great Commentary” was originally a vast production that covered books 1, 2, and 3 (up to chapter 9) of Aristotle’s text. It was known in its full form to both Avicenna and Averroes. An abridged form of the partial Latin translation by Hermannus Alemannus was used to accompany the 1481 Venice print of Moerbeke’s Latin translation of the *Rhetoric*, serving as both prologue and table of contents to the text; it was reused as the prologue for the 1515 Venice print of Giles of Rome’s commentary on the *Rhetoric*. Along this route, Al-Farabi’s interpretation of the *Rhetoric* came to be known in learned Latin circles.⁶² Al-Farabi’s fundamental understanding of the mechanics of rhetoric is that it must constitute a kind of logic. Yet, even though he does not have access to the historical context of Athenian politics and law that supported the practice of rhetoric as Aristotle knows it, he engages its public applications:

§1) Inquit Alpharabius: propositum nostrum est explicare quod contextuit Aristoteles in libro suo, quem nominat librum rethorice. Utilitas quippe eius, quod continet iste liber, maior est utilitate eorum, que posuit in ceteris libris suis logicalibus, et necessitas eius urgentior. Numeratur itaque rethorica inter artes nobiles et preclaras et est instrumentum eximium pertinens ad regimina civitatum et necessarium in legum directione. Et plures, i.e. viam sequentes communitatis, amplius se intromittunt de actionibus huius facultatis quam se intromittunt de actionibus reliquarum artium aut potentiarum, que sunt preter eam in logica.⁶³

Al-Farabi said: We propose to explicate what Aristotle treated in his book which he called the book of rhetoric. Certainly the utility that this book contains applies most to the matters that Aristotle set forth in his other books of logic, and its necessity there is the more keen. Thus rhetoric is counted among the noble and celebrated arts, and it is an excellent instrument for governance of states, and necessary for ordering (religious) laws. The majority of men, those who follow the common walk of life, involve themselves more readily in the actions of this faculty than in the actions of the other arts and faculties which precede rhetoric in the science of logic.⁶⁴

Even though rhetoric is positioned beneath the other arts of logic that give certitude or probability, rhetoric still commands serious attention as a “noble and celebrated” art. The idea that rhetoric is important for governing the multitude and propounding law is elaborated later in the *Didascalia*, where Al-Farabi claims that rhetoric on its own terms is not an imperfect art, for it is equipped with its own *potentia* to persuade the public, as it is an instrument of statecraft.⁶⁵

The fact that Al-Farabi works within a framework that accepts the classification of rhetoric under logic enables him, perhaps surprisingly, to explain how the emotions might be instrumentalized in the process of reasoning. He attempts to secure a place for the emotions within rhetorical logic, trying to show exactly (and more explicitly than Aristotle) how the accounts of the passions in book 2 might be delivered up to the process of forming enthymemes.⁶⁶ As a kind of logic, rhetoric for Al-Farabi must be an essentially seamless technical system—something that modern readers are less concerned to ask of the *Rhetoric*, accustomed as we are to understanding Aristotle's conception of rhetoric as both technical, in the sense of its academic teaching about proof, and experiential, in the sense of its fluid rapport with Athenian politics.⁶⁷ At several points in the *Didascalía*, Al-Farabi explains the connection he sees between the mechanics of argumentation and the swaying of audience passions.⁶⁸ For example, he makes explicit how, in a legal case prosecuting an injury, the argument against an opponent would involve recruiting the judge's own emotional dispositions:

§48)...cum probaverimus iudici quod aliquis sit inimicus eius aut quod odiat ipsum aut quod invidet ei, movebimus ipsum facilius ad indignandum ei, de quo proponimus querimoniam; aut si ostenderimus quod nos simus de amicis ipsius et fautores omnium, que ad eum pertinent, movebimus eum per hoc et inclinabimus ad partem nostram.⁶⁹

...when we have proved to the judge that someone is his enemy or that someone hates him or is jealous of him, we will arouse him more easily to feel indignation towards the one whom we are prosecuting with a complaint; or if we have shown [the judge] that, of all those who surround him, we are among the friends and supporters, we will move him by this and incline him to our side.

One emotional field, how the judge feels about his enemies and his friends, is here applied to another emotional field, how the judge might respond to the defendant or to the case made by the orator. Al-Farabi sees that the detailed accounts of emotion have to be activated in the argument if they are to play a meaningful role in the actual mechanics of persuasion, and he imposes a kind of enthymematic form on the emotional dynamics, a kind of equivalence between what the judge feels in other (distant) situations and in this (immediate) situation. Another related discussion brings the two fields closer together, as he shows step by step how the orator would draw upon general notions of what arouses anger against certain kinds of persons to

prove that this particular person ought therefore to arouse the auditor's anger:

§50) Tu enim probas sive firmas de illo homine esse eum in dispositione tali, secundum quam dignus sit ira auditoris, ita quod [tunc] firmaveris apud auditorem illum hominem esse huiusmodi, cuiusmodi homines digni sunt ira. Et induces ipsum auditorem ad dispositionem, per quam aptus sit ad irascendum ei, incipiens ex hoc allegare res, per quas excitabis iram eius super illum hominem. Et tunc erit conveniens ut assequaris propositum tuum quod intendis.⁷⁰

So you prove or establish that this man is of a disposition to merit the anger of the auditor; so you have established, for the auditor, that this man is of the sort who merit anger. And you lead the auditor himself to a disposition in which he is apt to become angry at this man, starting from this point to allege things by which you will excite the auditor's anger towards this man. And then it will be appropriate for you to proceed to the proposition that you want to make.

What this shows us is that Al-Farabi read book 2 of the *Rhetoric* as carefully as he read the more explicitly “logical” contents of book 1, that he understood implicit forms of persuasion in the analytic of the passions (e.g., these are the kinds of people who make us angry, this one is of such a kind), and he has made explicit how the observations about the passions can be rendered formally as arguments. Even though he is interested in how rhetoric constitutes a form of logic sufficient on its own terms, he does not try to diminish the role of emotion in persuasion, but rather tries to integrate it into a technical system. Although we now only have a portion of Al-Farabi's “Great Commentary,” it is easy to see how it could open the reception of the *Rhetoric* for later generations of Arabic commentators and pave the way for Western Christian scholarship on the text. Al-Farabi points to the relevance of Aristotle's definition of rhetoric for the Arabs, who have their own traditions of eloquence, as well as for other peoples (see §14, ed. Grignaschi, p. 172), and he confers a philosophical prestige on rhetoric by making rhetorical concepts part of his system of thought.⁷¹

Early in his career, Avicenna produced a *Compilation* (also known as the *Philosophy for 'Arūḍī*) of the branches of Aristotelian philosophy in which he devotes a chapter to book 1 of the *Rhetoric* and another to book 2.⁷² The “commentary” on book 2 is really a short treatise on “the natural dispositions and affections of the soul” based loosely on Aristotle. We can see the outlines of the *Rhetoric* there; but the brevity of the treatise points to Avicenna's assumption that emotional persuasion is of secondary importance compared to syllogistic reasoning, which he says is the essential aspect of rhetoric. During the mature years of his career, Avicenna produced

a major “compendium,” the *Kitāb al-šifā’* (Book of the Cure), a vast work on all the parts of philosophy which also treats the *Rhetoric*, with a special focus on Aristotle’s introductory analysis of the relationship between rhetoric and dialectic.⁷³ Avicenna’s commentaries on the *Rhetoric* would not contribute substantively to the Christian Latin reception of Aristotle’s text in the direct way that Al-Farabi’s *Didascalia* did, although Hermannus Alemannus occasionally quotes from the *Šifā’* in his attempt to translate the *Rhetoric* from its Arabic version into Latin. More influential on philosophy of emotion in the West was to be Avicenna’s *De anima*, translated into Latin in the mid-twelfth century, which will be considered below.⁷⁴

Averroes’ two commentaries on the *Rhetoric* have received modern editions and translations, although—like Avicenna’s commentaries—neither was substantially influential in the thirteenth-century Latin reception of Aristotle’s text, apart from occasional quotations from the “Middle Commentary” in Hermannus Alemannus’ Latin version of the *Rhetoric* (which itself never reached a large audience).⁷⁵ Averroes was a sensitive interpreter of Aristotle’s text, and it is worth reflecting here on his close reading of the *Rhetoric* and his attention to emotional persuasion in his *Middle Commentary*. Like Al-Farabi (whose “Long Commentary” he knew), but with even greater refinement, Averroes brings to the surface the relationship between emotion and reasoning. In the opening of his commentary on book 2, he makes a distinction between the things or people that provoke passion, which must be the object of a discourse that incites emotion, and knowledge of what predisposes a person to feel that emotion. That knowledge only works to inform the speaker that someone has been so moved, or to let him know the right moment to deploy an emotional discourse. According to Averroes, who spells this out with greater clarity than Aristotle, the discourse that incites emotions is concerned with objective causes (persons, actions) and with formulating the relationship between those causes. The emotions are not the propositions themselves; rather, the means by which emotions are generated or dissipated are the sources of “emotional syllogisms,” and those means, in turn, are the objective causes, which actually supply the premises.⁷⁶ An example of what he calls an “emotional proposition” that he advances (independently of Aristotle) comes from his interpretation of a passage in book 3: “These people are the victims of injustice; therefore you should not be impatient with them.” The enthymematic reasoning that lies behind this is that any

people who have suffered an injustice deserve our pity, and therefore these people who have so suffered should be treated with pity rather than impatience. Here, the condition of people who have been wronged is the objective cause that forms the premise, but the premise relies upon the predisposition to pity on account of injustices suffered, and so the formal reasoning will incite the desired emotion in the audience.⁷⁷ More generally, Averroes makes explicit that the emotions considered here are relevant specifically to rhetorical purposes such as deliberating: we deliberate out of fear, or by extension, we make judgments out of pity or indignation.⁷⁸

4.4 The Latin *Rhetoric* and Its Reception: Moral Philosophy and Giles of Rome's Commentary

Although the *Rhetoric* itself was not seen by Latinate scholars until the middle of the thirteenth century, and did not reach far until Moerbeke's translation at the end of the 1260s, it had already begun to make an impact through the transmission of Arabic philosophies of knowledge.⁷⁹ The "extended *Organon*" had become well known to scholars over the course of the twelfth century, as translators working in Toledo had made Arabic texts on scientific classification, such as works by Al-Farabi and Al-Ghazali, accessible to Christian Latin readers.⁸⁰ For example, between 1150 and 1160, Dominicus Gundissalinus, one of the prolific Toledo scholar-translators, presented the scheme in his *De divisione philosophiae*, his comprehensive account of the sciences. Quoting wholesale from Al-Farabi's *Enumeration of the Sciences*, he sets out the "new" Arabic philosophy, placing rhetoric within the eight parts of logic:

Secundum Alfarabium octo sunt partes logicae: *Categoriae*, *Peri hermeneias*, *Analytica priora*, *Analytica posteriora*, *Topica*, *Sophistica*, *Rhetorica*, *Poetica*. Nomina autem librorum ponuntur pro nominibus scientiarum, quae continentur in illis...Proprium est rhetoricae sermonibus suis persuasibilibus movere animum auditoris et inclinare ad id, ad quod voluerit, ut credatur sibi, quod dicit, et generet in eo cogitationem proximam certitudini.⁸¹

According to Al-Farabi there are eight parts of logic: *Categories*, *Peri hermeneias* [On Interpretation], *Prior Analytics*, *Posterior Analytics*, *Topics*, *Sophistical Refutations*, *Rhetoric*, *Poetics*. The names of books are given for the names of the sciences which are contained in them...The property of rhetoric is to move the mind of the hearer through persuasive speech,

and to incline the hearer to the purpose that the speaker wants, so that what he says is believed, and he produces in the hearer reasoning that is proximate to certitude.⁸²

This locates rhetoric under logic while also recognizing its affective dimensions. The notion that rhetoric is part of a system of syllogistic or investigative logic was known by other twelfth-century scholars who were not part of the Toledo circle, for example, Richard of St. Victor.⁸³ Its impact on thirteenth-century scholars before the earliest Latin translations of the text is traceable. Grosseteste classifies rhetoric as a kind of dialectic that arouses affect; around 1250, an anonymous curricular commentary on philosophy, the “Ut ait Tullius,” places rhetoric alongside of logic as sciences concerned with signification, with the distinction that rhetoric arouses emotion when it signifies, while logic arouses judgment; and also around 1250, Albertus Magnus is already incorporating the notion of rhetoric as a kind of logic into his larger system of thought.⁸⁴ This understanding of the place of rhetoric among the reasoning processes of logic was to become ingrained in scholastic thought, to be found for example in Aquinas and in the interpretive receptions of the *Rhetoric* itself.⁸⁵

Thus, Latin scholars were keen to know the *Rhetoric* when it appeared, and surely felt the need of it long before they actually had it. That urgency to know what is in the text that had formed part of the now-standard epistemology, to fill in the remaining empty spaces of what was considered Aristotle’s *Organon* (most of Aristotle’s logic having been available since late antiquity in the translations by Boethius), is evidenced in the efforts of three translators in different milieux to produce the text in Latin. The two earlier translations had limited success. One of these, known as the *Vetus*, by an anonymous translator, was produced from the Greek text, possibly in the middle of the thirteenth century; it survives in four manuscripts, two of these with certainty from the thirteenth century.⁸⁶ We know somewhat more about the other early translator and the date of his work. Hermannus Alemannus translated the *Rhetoric* from the Arabic version around 1256, during the same period that he translated Al-Farabi’s *Didascalía* and Averroes’ commentary on the *Poetics*. He interspersed his translation of the *Rhetoric* with portions of Averroes’ *Middle Commentary* and with some passages from Avicenna’s *Šifā’*.⁸⁷ This survives complete only in two manuscripts and a third fragmentary one. Nevertheless, it was known to

Aquinas, who used it in his *Summa contra Gentiles*, written around the beginning of the next decade.⁸⁸ In the 1260s, however, Roger Bacon was lamenting that the best books of Aristotle's logic, the *Poetics* and the *Rhetoric*, books which he understood to be "best" in terms of their contribution to the "practical" intellect, were still wanting among Latin readers; the *Rhetoric*, he goes on to say, has been "badly translated and neither can be understood nor put into common use" as it has come into Latin "in a defective and vile translation." By this he was maligning Hermannus Alemannus' version, apparently not knowing of the *Vetus* translation.⁸⁹

William of Moerbeke, the experienced and careful translator of the better part of Aristotelian science and philosophy, and in many cases reviser of earlier translations, produced his authoritative Latin text of the *Rhetoric* in about 1269. On the latest count, the Moerbeke translation survives in 105 copies, more than forty of these from the late thirteenth to the early fourteenth centuries, nearly forty more produced during the middle and later fourteenth century, and the remaining from the earlier through the later fifteenth century.⁹⁰ Many of the earliest manuscripts seem to have been written in Paris and its northern environs, while the later manuscripts reflect the penetration of the work into other European centers of learning.⁹¹ Moerbeke's translation completely superseded the two earlier Latin versions of Aristotle's text. It is a clear and graciously literal translation that finds consistent Latin equivalents for Aristotle's terminology, opening up the difficulties of the Greek syntax to the plain and explicit style that was favored in Latin scholastic writings.

Given its wide circulation, we might expect Moerbeke's translation to have had a powerful impact on the teaching of rhetoric itself, perhaps even to supplant the Ciceronian tradition. But this was not the case. The reasons for this have to do partly with the nature of rhetorical study itself over the thirteenth century. At secondary levels and in the professional schools that taught writing, the emphasis, as we saw in [Chapter 3](#), was on the teaching of composition and eloquent style, and these purposes had long been served by the pragmatic Ciceronian rhetorics and Horace's *Ars poetica*, and the new medieval genres descended from their authority, the *ars poetriae* and the *ars dictaminis*. Thus at this level, the more familiar Roman tradition continued to exert its influence. At the level of the formal university curriculum, on the other hand, the teaching of rhetoric had no clear place

except at Bologna, where dictaminal rhetoric reigned. In northern Europe, at Paris and Oxford, the curricular statutes are at best ambiguous about rhetorical study throughout the thirteenth and even the fourteenth centuries, although students were taught about classifications of the sciences that included rhetoric.⁹² Despite the absence of early statutory obligations to study rhetoric, there was some encouragement to learn about it through reading book 4 of Boethius' *De topicis differentiis*, a work that was already part of the syllabus in dialectic.⁹³ But there is hardly a newly produced university commentary on Ciceronian rhetoric from the thirteenth century, a sharp contrast with the plethora of commentaries on *De inventione* and *Rhetorica ad Herennium* written by and for scholars over the twelfth century.⁹⁴ Thus, it is difficult to judge how far an interest in eloquence and pragmatic rhetoric on the order of the Ciceronian tradition might have penetrated university milieux. Moerbeke's translation of Aristotle's *Rhetoric*, even though widely circulated, hardly ever appears in manuscripts devoted to other kinds of rhetorical writings.

Rather, it was typically accompanied in manuscripts containing moral philosophy, most often (about seventy-five percent) with either Aristotle's *Ethics* or *Politics*; in the better part of those copies it appears with both. The triad *Ethics–Politics–Rhetoric* constituted the basic structure of Aristotelian practical philosophy; this philosophical reception was intimately bound up with the material transmission of Aristotle's works through the *pecia* system at the University of Paris from the late thirteenth century.⁹⁵ The pseudo-Aristotelian *Magna moralia*, *Economics*, and *De bona fortuna* are often also part of these collections. The *Rhetoric* can also appear in various omnibus *Aristoteles latinus* collections (including texts on the natural sciences, the *Metaphysics*, and sometimes the Averroistic *Poetics*). More rarely it appears as the only item in a codex or accompanied by Giles' commentary.⁹⁶

There are some few exceptions to the pattern of moral-philosophical grouping. A fourteenth-century Italian manuscript with a moral philosophy grouping also contains the pseudo-Aristotelian *Rhetorica ad Alexandrum* and a highly abridged *Rhetorica ad Herennium*.⁹⁷ There is also an extraordinary collection made in Italy probably in the late fourteenth century, Paris, Bnf, MS lat. 7695, which has the Moerbeke translation of the *Rhetoric* along with a complement of such classical and late-Latin

rhetorical texts that could at that point be collected, including: Martianus Capella's chapter on rhetoric (excised from the manuscript at some point), *De inventione*, *Rhetorica ad Herennium*, copies—still uncommon—of Cicero's *De oratore* and *Orator*, pseudo-Sallustian invectives against Cicero, Cicero's *Catilines*, *Philippics*, *Pro Quinto Ligario*, *Pro Marcello*, and *De provinciis consularibus*, Boethius' *De topicis differentiis*, and Cicero's *Topica*.⁹⁸ The original compilation seems to have been an attempt to bring an older curriculum of rhetoric together with a new component, Aristotle's text. A similar instance is Biblioteca Apostolica Vaticana, MS Pal. lat. 1589, assembled at the University of Heidelberg in the 1420s, and containing the *Rhetoric* along with an "Aggregatorium Rhetoricae" and a "Compilatio Donati."⁹⁹ But these exceptions, where the *Rhetoric* seems to be received into a rhetorical-grammatical or even belletristic curriculum, serve to prove the more general rule.

The *Rhetoric* was quickly assimilated into the curriculum of Aristotelian studies at university level, but not usually to be read as a rhetoric in the conventional sense. As the manuscript groupings suggest, it was received largely as relating to moral philosophy, along the lines of a practical logic as Roger Bacon had understood the science of rhetoric. In fact, Bacon anticipates the reconceptualization of the *Rhetoric* as a contribution to moral science, seeing it as the appropriate instrument of the practical intellect, as it inclines and moves the mind to belief, consent, pity, and compassion.¹⁰⁰ In other words, if the survival of interest in the *Rhetoric* among Alexandrian, Syriac, and Arabic scholars had been due in great part to its classification as a branch of logic that deals with contingent factors and proximity to certitude, continued interest in the work after its entry into the university culture of the later thirteenth century often entailed a different understanding of its value. If it might still be read on formal terms for its analysis of epistemological operations—its definition of enthymeme as a kind of syllogism specific to persuasion and its treatment of topics of argument—its reach seems to have shifted to emphasize its commonality with moral philosophy.

Thus, Aristotle's *Rhetoric* in its best-known version by William of Moerbeke, was received neither as school rhetoric nor even as a branch of the logics of the *Organon*. How did this come about? In one sense, this event is the subject of the rest of this book, or the turning point in the medieval history of rhetoric and the emotions. Exploring its impact as a

rhetoric is harder than reading the history of the Ciceronian tradition. But we will see how Aristotle's *Rhetoric* was to teach medieval schoolmen, and through them medieval readers and writers, exactly how the emotions may have a moral value in politics and what it means to direct political discourse through emotions. However, the first stage of this transformation, while consequential, was not in itself entirely predictive of the radical outcome. We begin here with the initial impact of the *Rhetoric* in the translation by Moerbeke.

Almost immediately after Moerbeke's translation was available, sometime during the years 1270–2, Giles of Rome (Aegidius Romanus), a member of the new order of Augustinian hermits, produced a substantial and complete commentary on the work while he was still a scholar at the University of Paris. This is the commentary that was to influence generations of readers of the *Rhetoric*, whether known in whole or in part. Produced when the author was no older than thirty, this ambitious commentary survives in twenty-eight copies (both complete and in synopsis or extracts) through the early sixteenth century, and was also printed five times between the late fifteenth and the middle of the sixteenth centuries.¹⁰¹ There are good reasons that Giles' commentary was successful. Because it was early, virtually coeval with Moerbeke's translation itself, it smoothed the way to Aristotle's text, which—despite the anticipation of it in previous philosophical discourse—proved an unfamiliar terrain to medieval readers. It was comprehensive, not simply in its penetration and coverage of Aristotle's text, but also in its efforts to link the ideas there with the range of philosophical knowledge available to the later thirteenth century. It continually puts the *Rhetoric* in dialogue with Aristotle's other works and it imports heuristic frameworks from other fields, including dialectic, natural sciences, metaphysics, and ethics. It also provides a strong overview of the text, explaining at every point how the parts fit together, linking (and reiterating) ideas from one section to the next. In other words, it attempted to render it a teachable text, to impose on it the orderly structure of a scholastic *divisio textus*.¹⁰²

The most important innovation that Giles achieves in his commentary is to place rhetoric squarely in the ambit of ethics and politics. Carrying forward his own scholastic training in dialectic, and sensitive to Aristotle's claim that rhetoric is a “counterpart” of dialectic, he presents rhetoric as a “logic” of ethics and politics.¹⁰³ This has been understood to mark a shift

away, over the course of the thirteenth century, from a conception of rhetoric as a branch of the language sciences concerned with eloquence to an interest in ethics and politics, reflecting the emergent importance of moral science, political theory, and practical theology among university scholars.¹⁰⁴ In relation to the long-dominant Ciceronian tradition of the schools that equated rhetoric with eloquence, this is an appropriate assessment. Indeed, in the commentary Giles evinces no interest in the Ciceronian tradition. Of course, it is not surprising that he would give this short shrift, as the study of eloquence in the Ciceronian vein had no official hold in university curricula; if Giles had studied Ciceronian rhetoric, it would probably have been through book 4 of Boethius' *De topicis differentiis*. Indeed, it was only later, after his commentary was finished, that he registered an awareness of Cicero's rhetoric, in a short treatise known as *De differentia rhetoricae, ethicae, et politicae*, in which he directly compares Ciceronian and Aristotelian approaches, to Aristotle's advantage.¹⁰⁵ But the commentary also marks a shift in relation to the older reception of the *Rhetoric* itself, a history with which Giles would have been very familiar: in Arabic science and the Western philosophy that descended from it, as we have seen, rhetoric was treated not as a theory of eloquence but as a branch of logic. Giles' commentary thus also diverges from this narrower understanding of rhetoric within logic: with the *Rhetoric* itself fully accessible, and its decisively political and social character coming to be appreciated, it could be readily incorporated into the broader values of moral philosophy.

Giles sums up his approach in a well-known statement at the beginning of the commentary after he has expounded the opening sentence of the *Rhetoric*, "Rhetoric is the counterpart of dialectic" (in Moerbeke's translation, "Rethorica assecutiva dialectice est").¹⁰⁶ If rhetoric and dialectic are in some way associated, as Aristotle says, then how are they to be differentiated? Here Giles invokes but also advances upon the inheritance of Arabic and scholastic philosophy, which had distinguished the degrees of certitude that different logical tools offer: only demonstrative reasoning produces certain knowledge; the probable reasoning of dialectic (exemplified by Aristotle's *Topics*) produces opinion, rather than certain knowledge; but persuasion, which addresses itself to the appetitive or desiring side of the intellect, generates belief or assent.¹⁰⁷ Thus fundamentally, according to Giles, rhetoric is different from dialectic and

demonstrative proof with respect to the part of the intellect that it captures. It appeals to the part of the intellect that is moved by the will rather than that part that evaluates in a purely theoretical way. Because it evokes a separate cognitive function, its subject matter will be different from those of the other forms of logical reasoning, and its instrument will be different. As he will go on to show, rhetoric will not be a lower kind of proof, but a different one entirely. Here he offers a sweeping proleptic summary of his understanding of Aristotle's text:

Est ergo signanter notandum differentiam inter opinionem et fidem, sive inter dialecticam et rhetoricam. Nam ex hoc ergo intellectus assentit persuasionibus rhetoricis ut est aptus natus moveri ab appetitu; probationibus vero dialecticis credit, ut movetur secundum modum proprium. Sequitur quincuplex differentiam inter rhetoricam et dialecticam. Prima est: quod rhetor magis descendit in materiam moralem, et dialecticus magis in speculativam. Secunda, quod spectat ad rhetorem determinare de passionibus, non autem ad dialecticum. Tertia est, quod iudex locutionis rhetoricae et eius auditor est simplex et grossus. Auditor vero locutionis dialecticae debet esse ingeniosus et subtilis. Quarta est quod instrumenta rhetoricae sunt enthymema et exemplum, dialecticae vero syllogismus et inductio. Quinta est, quam supra fuit tacta, videlicet quia persuasio rhetorica magis est circa singularia, dialectica vero probatio magis est circa universalia.¹⁰⁸

Let us lay out the difference between opinion and belief, or between dialectic and rhetoric, in very precise terms. As we have seen, the intellect assents to the persuasions of rhetoric as it is apt to be moved by the appetite; it believes the probable arguments of dialectic as it is moved according to its own movement. It follows that there is a fivefold difference between rhetoric and dialectic. First, the rhetorician descends more into moral matter, and the dialectician into speculative matter. Second, it behooves the rhetorician, but not the dialectician, to consider the passions. Third, the audience and judge of rhetorical discourse is simple and unsophisticated, whereas the audience of dialectical discourse ought to be clever and subtle. Fourth, the instruments of rhetoric are the enthymeme and the example; the instruments of dialectic are the syllogism and induction. Fifth, as mentioned above, rhetorical persuasion is more concerned with particular matters, while dialectical proof is concerned more with universal matters.¹⁰⁹

The five principles at stake here—moral matter, the emotions, the general (or non-learned) audience of rhetoric, the enthymeme, and the particularity of rhetorical questions—will form the connecting tissue of the whole commentary. For Giles, rhetoric is not “subalternate to” (that is, dependent upon) dialectic, because it has its own procedures, its own legitimate form of cognition, its own audience, and its own subject concerns.¹¹⁰ It is not a lesser form of dialectic or, as in the Arabic tradition of the *Organon* inherited and deployed by Aquinas, simply a lower form of logical proof. Its involvement with ethics and politics places it on a different footing. Under the system of logic, both rhetoric and poetics may be inferior forms

of proof in absolute terms, but each plays a crucial role in confronting the world of particular matters, human actions in all of their ambiguities and contradictions.¹¹¹

Giles' statement represents a strong understanding of Aristotle's position. Rhetoric and dialectic are similar in that they both can deal with any subject and are not limited to one specific field (unlike, for example, medicine which deals only with medical subjects), but are differentiated according to their interests: universals or probabilities in the case of dialectic and particulars in the case of rhetoric. Early on (commenting at book 1, ch. 1 (1354b 22)), Giles establishes the priority and specificity of politics to rhetoric:

Sic etiam inventi sunt duo modi sciendi, dialecticus et rhetoricus, dialecticus propter scientias doctrinales, rhetoricus vero propter morales. Descendit vero dialecticus qui insistit circa verum in doctrinales, rhetoricus qui circa verisimile in morales. Nam in moralibus verisimiliter et typo omnia determinantur. Ex quo apparet dialecticum magis ordinari ad felicitatem contemplativam, rhetoricum vero magis ad politicam.¹¹²

Thus two scientific methods were invented, dialectic and rhetoric, dialectic for doctrinal knowledge and rhetoric for morals. One is dialectical who insists on truth in doctrinal knowledge; one is rhetorical who looks for likenesses in morals. Now all things concerning morals are determined by likeness and type. Thus it is clear that dialectic is intended more to contemplative felicity, while rhetoric is intended more to politics.

As he goes on to say, the highest felicity of rhetoric consists, not in speculation or theory (as for dialectic) but in the action of prudence, which is supreme among moral virtues and regulates them. Rhetoric, however, is not identical with politics, as he is at pains to show (following Aristotle). Rhetoric is a kind of reasoning that concerns itself with politics and the particular within that realm. But it is neither equivalent to politics as governance nor to politics as theory:

Ideo notandum quod facta singularia ex quibus consurgunt passiones, si comparantur ad materiam civilem universalem secundum quam non convenit amare vel odire, dicuntur propria materia; sed si comparantur ad actus rationis, ut ad persuasiones, sunt quodammodo materia extranea. Propterea possemus distinguere triplicem materiam rhetorice, videlicet materiam omnino propriam, ut actus rationis; quasi omnino extraneam, ut res universales; et medio modo se habentem, ut facta singularia que quodammodo materia propria sunt rhetorice et licet non adeo ut actus rationis.¹¹³

Let us note that particular events, from which emotions arise, are said to be the proper matter of rhetoric when compared with universal political issues in which the emotions of love and hate have no role; but when compared with acts of reasoning, or persuasions, such particular events are in effect matter extraneous to rhetoric. Thus we can distinguish a threefold matter

of rhetoric: matter that is proper to it in every way, as in acts of reason; matter that is extraneous to it in every way, as in universal matters; and matter that it takes for itself in a middling way, for particular events are in effect its proper material, although not so much as acts of reasoning.¹¹⁴

Here we have a powerful, even audacious, interpretation of rhetoric as a science of reasoning independent of dialectic and concerned with the contingencies of morals and politics.

This translates into his appreciation of enthymematic reasoning as the essential tool of rhetoric. On the one hand, Giles was a product of a scholastic university training in which the syllogism was taught as a machine of demonstrative reasoning. Predictably, he defines enthymeme in the narrow sense as a “defective syllogism” (“enthymema est quidam defectivus syllogismus,” Venice 1515, 74vb). He is also at home dissecting at length the differences between affirmative and refutative enthymemes (1396b20–9; 78ra–79vb). But on the other hand, he is quick to absorb Aristotle’s exposition of the enthymeme as an instrument of popular oratory, and he recognizes the openness and situational give-and-take that is appropriate to persuasion beyond the strict governance of logic and speculative thought. Thus, following Aristotle, he underscores the application of the enthymematic method to any political matter (“quodlibet negocium politcum”) in any of the genres of rhetoric (77vb), and its appropriateness as the tool of public affairs where the purpose has to be persuasion (75ra–b). What seems especially to inspire Giles here is Aristotle’s description of the pleasing brevity of the enthymeme: it should not include every step of reasoning, lest the length of the argument cause obscurity. As Aristotle says (1395b 25–31), it is the simplicity and directness of enthymematic reasoning that makes the uneducated particularly effective when addressing crowds and gives them the ability, as the poets tell us, to cast a musical charm over their audiences (in Moerbeke’s Latin, “sicut aiunt poete ineruditos aput populum magis musice dicere” [“according to the poets, the uneducated speak to the populace in more charming cadences”]). In other words, Aristotle defines the enthymeme in terms of its popularizing charm. Thus, Giles elaborates:

Dat causam ex hoc quare ineruditi aliquando magis persuadent quam scientes...Primo ineruditos contingit loqui ad populum “magis musice”...sic loquuntur sicut poetae loquuntur, et quia delectantur aures populares in tali consonantia verborum et sermones proferuntur secundum rithmos, ideo credunt; talem autem consonantiam faciunt. Nam quia nesciunt tales dilatare se in profunditate sententiae, conantur ut demulceant auditum consonantia verborum.

Secunda etiam causa est...quia hi ineruditi dicunt communia universaliter, que magis populus potest capere.¹¹⁵

He states the cause by which the uneducated are at times more persuasive than the educated... First, it is natural to the uneducated to speak to the populace in more charming cadences...so they speak like the poets speak, and because popular ears are charmed by harmonious words and the speeches are delivered rhythmically, the public gives them credence; in this way they produce agreement. Because they do not know how to develop such ideas with profundity, they put their effort into entrancing the audience with harmoniousness of words. The second reason...is that the uneducated use general commonplaces, which more of the populace can understand.

Here he describes the enthymeme as a kind of broad and pleasant speaking, offering familiarity rather than profundity, for what does not please the auditors, he says, does not persuade them. He also recognizes the emotional legitimacy of enthymematic proof. In the discussion on the use of maxims, which can serve as the premises or conclusions of enthymemes, Aristotle says that even the most hackneyed commonplaces are effective, because everyone agrees with them: in Moerbeke's Latin translation, "Uti autem oportet et divulgatis et communibus sententiis, si sint utiles; quia enim sunt communes, tamquam confitentibus omnibus, recte habere videntur..." (We should use trite and common maxims if they are useful; for because they are common, they seem true, as if agreed upon by all...) [1395a 10–13]. Giles' commentary on the passage shows his grasp of the larger dynamic of audience that Aristotle's precept assumes:

Dicit ergo quod oportet uti sententiis divulgatis et communibus...Notandum autem quod potissime infortunatis talibus sententiis debemus uti. Nam homines prae tristitia gravati non nisi dicta communia mente percipiunt.¹¹⁶

Thus he says that we should use well-known and commonplace maxims...Note that it is especially effective to use such maxims in the face of misfortunes. For men who are weighed down on account of sadness are not in a frame of mind to learn except via commonplaces.

In itself this is a small elaboration, but it is significant for its reach into the moral considerations of rhetorical reasoning. Giles recognizes that the tools of rhetoric are designed for emotional impact.

Giles grasps the dynamic of a rhetorical engagement with ethics and politics. But when he confronts book 2 of the *Rhetoric*, he does not seem to extend that dynamism to Aristotle's treatise on emotion. We might be surprised that such a sensitive and close reader does not find here anything like Aristotle's positive, explanatory program for using the emotions in

political or persuasive situations. The reasons for that lie in the philosophical discourse of emotions that he inherited.

4.5 Giles' Commentary in Context: The *Rhetoric* and Medieval Philosophies of the Passions

In order to understand Giles' initial response to Aristotle's presentation of emotions, we have to look back to the contexts of the thirteenth century and earlier that shaped his approach. Giles builds his explanation of the passions in book 2 on the framework that he inherited from his own teacher, Aquinas. This framework, in turn, was a philosophical conception of the *pathē* that grew out of classical sources and Christian intermediaries to construct a psychological taxonomy of emotion. In other words, when Aristotle's *Rhetoric* appeared on the scene and readers first encountered the analytic of emotions in book 2, there were already philosophical systems of emotional psychology in place to direct and form the initial responses. However bold an interpreter Giles was in other respects, he processed the newness of book 2 of the *Rhetoric* into terms that were already familiar to him.

As noted earlier, the disappearance of Aristotle's *Rhetoric* from view after antiquity (along with the virtual disappearance of Cicero's mature writings and Quintilian's *Institutio*) left a lacuna in the theory of rhetoric and emotion. Even Aquinas, who shows knowledge of the *Rhetoric* in its early translation by Hermannus Alemannus and, more importantly, in the translation by Moerbeke during the period when he was writing the *Summa theologiae*, had no established mental place for its teaching on the role of emotion in persuasion. Thus although he invokes the *Rhetoric* at several points in the *Summa* and builds on some of its definitions, its larger terms do not shape his purpose in his elaboration of emotions.¹¹⁷ The tradition from which Aquinas drew his elaboration of the passions, and which was the familiar ground for Giles as well, was a "philosophical anthropology" that had been incorporated into Christian theology.¹¹⁸

The traditions of thought that combined to inform medieval philosophies of emotion are complex, but they are also well known and have been thoroughly surveyed. Earlier in this chapter I gave an overview of the major

ancient systems.¹¹⁹ Here I look to the patristic and medieval developments through the end of the thirteenth century that provide a context for Giles' reception of Aristotle on the emotions. Most importantly, these traditions were either normative, aimed at eradicating some emotions and moderating or redirecting others, or theoretical, producing descriptive schemes or philosophical psychologies of emotion. In certain authors, notably Aquinas, the speculative and normative drives come together. Fundamental terms from Plato that passed through Hellenistic philosophy and continued into use through the later Middle Ages pertain to the faculties of the tripartite soul: the reasoning part, the spirited (*irascibilis*) faculty, and the appetitive (*concupiscibilis*) faculty.¹²⁰ The Stoic notion of *apatheia* was often contested among early Christian theologians even as they might take on Stoic norms of virtue. Jerome, for example, sometimes understands *apatheia* as a degree of sinless perfection that is unachievable among humans.¹²¹ Among important influences for the Latin West was Augustine's account (*De civitate Dei* 9.4) of the debate within Hellenistic philosophy between Stoic *apatheia* and "Peripatetic" *metriopatheia* or moderation. What was known as the "Peripatetic" position was in fact closer to the Neoplatonist understanding of spiritual perfection through moderation and transformation of the passions.¹²² Through the Middle Ages, Stoic and Platonist perspectives were to find their interpretive theological mediation in patristic and later debates about the *primus motus*: a primary source for these was Augustine's analysis of emotions, sin, and the will, which can assent to or resist sinful desire (*De civitate Dei* 14.5–9, 14.19). On Augustine's explanation, the emotional impulses that come from the spirited and appetitive parts of the soul can be controlled by the higher faculty, although the very process of consenting or resisting means that they have been accepted, a sign of original sin to be continually monitored by the will. In Augustine we see the Stoic theory of pre-passions, as well as a strong Platonic psychology of emotion.¹²³ The Stoic model of *primus motus* was to exercise a long influence in Christian monastic traditions of self-discipline; among the early sources of this Stoic-Christian philosophy, in addition to Augustine, were Nemesius and John Damascene, both translated into Latin in the twelfth century. The Neoplatonic notion of freeing the soul from corporeal affections was also to find its place in Cistercian discourses of spiritual ascent.¹²⁴

In the middle years of the twelfth century, Aristotle's *De anima* was translated by James of Venice, and Avicenna's account of the soul from book 6 of his *Šifā'* was rendered in Latin as *De anima* by Avendauth "Israelita" in collaboration with Gundissalinus. The availability of these works heralds a resurgent interest in a philosophical anthropology of the emotions, in contrast with the long-dominant theological approaches to the passions.¹²⁵ The role of emotion in Aristotle's *De anima* is not geared toward practice; although it takes a naturalistic view of emotions, they serve here as a measure of the soul's (or mind's) constitution through and beyond the body and the senses. Like Aristotle, Avicenna understood emotions as natural behavioral and physical products of perception. Also in an Aristotelian vein, he sees soul as an organizing principle for the body. But significant strands of his analysis are also Neoplatonic, notably his belief in the independent subsistence of the soul. His division of the soul is complex, with the human soul sitting atop or organizing various lower faculties, including external and internal powers of apprehension. He considers the emotions of joy, distress, fear, and anger (the traditional Stoic quartet) as reactions to the various powers—concupiscible, irascible, and estimative—of the sensitive soul. But his interest in the emotions was in a broad sense taxonomic, to arrange them into causal sequences and divide and subdivide them into various powers.¹²⁶ The tradition extending forward from the influence of Avicenna represents increasing refinements of philosophical positioning, working toward a core ethical understanding of human behavior in connection with theories of the soul, the will, and good and evil. Around 1235, the Franciscan Jean de la Rochelle produced a newly authoritative classification of the emotions, the *Summa de anima*, which drew a great deal from Avicenna. This gives a careful taxonomy of the emotions as acts of the commanding motive powers, the concupiscible and the irascible, which respond to perception of sensible forms and give rise to physiological changes.¹²⁷

When Aquinas set about his analysis of the passions of the soul in *Summa theologiae* prima secundae qq. 22–48, he was working from a broad inheritance of psychological taxonomy and theological and ethical directive. Aquinas' account of the passions is an intricate and comprehensive anatomy of emotion, a synthesis of psychology and ethics that is central to the larger purpose of the *Summa*. Desire is fundamental to his theological ethics, and the passions are the measure of desire. The scope

and completeness of his anatomy of the passions ensured the long influence of his systematic approach.¹²⁸ Aquinas is selective in what he cites, drawing on those texts that are particularly important for their theoretical interest in the morality of the passions. In the *Summa* and elsewhere, his favorite sources include Aristotle's *Ethics*, Augustine's *De civitate Dei*, John Damascene's *De fide orthodoxa*, Aristotle's *De anima*, *Physics*, and *Metaphysics*.¹²⁹ His philosophical psychology in the *Summa* places the passions within a larger scheme of virtue and vice, that is, within a pedagogy aimed at spiritual health through moral perfection. Aquinas defines emotion as "movement of the sensitive appetite," and distinguishes the emotions of the concupiscible (desiring) and the irascible (spirited) parts of the sensitive soul. Ultimately, Aquinas offers a therapeutic approach, revealing how the soul is partly structured by its passions. Even if emotions are not in themselves good and evil, they involve will and intellect, and thus they can be treated as moral choices (q. 24, art. 1).¹³⁰ The range of emotional responses can be recruited to the ends of ethical and spiritual flourishing.

The power of Aquinas' grasp of the passions, his exploration of the light and shadows of the soul, lies in its sympathetic moral and corrective orientation. It is a normative program, and given the tradition that lay behind it, it is not surprising that when Aquinas does cite the *Rhetoric*, he reads it through the lens of the *Ethics*, seeing the former as a paratext of the naturalistic but also therapeutic approach familiar from the latter. Aquinas studies the passions to provide guidance toward moral and spiritual fulfillment, not, as in the *Rhetoric*, to present a phenomenological knowledge. Rejecting or modifying what he understood as Stoic doctrine, Aquinas does not treat the passions negatively as obstacles to fulfillment.¹³¹ But he does see them as a first-order response of desiring that requires education through reason. Thus also, for Aquinas, the passions are not in themselves a ground of deliberation or proof, as Aristotle sees them in the *Rhetoric*.¹³²

This is the embedded tradition that orients Giles' first encounter with book 2 of the *Rhetoric*. Of course, it would be anachronistic to expect a thirteenth-century Paris theologian to take a non-normative approach to the emotions. But it is also interesting that at this point in his understanding of Aristotle, Giles does not seem to recognize in the account of emotions a

pragmatic program for persuasion, a resource for finding arguments. Aristotle's introductory remarks (1378a19–24) about the need to classify the emotions, because through them people modify their judgments, no doubt suggested to Giles that a classification was appropriate. On the order of learned scholastic practice, Giles devotes four *declarationes* at the start of his commentary on book 2 to a philosophical taxonomy of the emotions. He draws his basic understanding from Aquinas' treatment of the passions of the soul in the *Summa*, modifying and clarifying his teacher's system.¹³³ Like Aquinas, he places the passions in the sensitive parts of the soul; according to appetite they are drawn toward the conditions of the objects to which they respond (49rb). Also like Aquinas and others, he divides the emotions into those of the concupiscible and irascible appetites. He clarifies the logical bases of Aquinas' distinctions among the passions. As they are motions of the sensitive appetite (49vb), they must correspond to various kinds of motion. In the case of the concupiscible emotions, there is a first physical movement (love and hate), the performance of that response (desire or detestation), and a fulfillment or completion of that motion, *mutatum esse*, having been moved, which is manifested in pleasure or pain (sadness). Thus the emotions of the concupiscible appetite are essentially divided according to good and evil and according to movement and having been moved.¹³⁴ The irascible appetite entails *motus animae* as well, but a different kind of opposition between good and evil: the difficulty of attaining a good or avoiding an evil ("secundum quas ferimur in difficile et arduum" [according to what we achieve with difficulty and arduousness], 50ra). Here as well, Giles gives three pairs of emotions: hope and despair, fear and courage (or confidence), and anger and "mansuetude" (*mansuetudo*, *mitiditas*). For this last pair he has departed from Aquinas, who had proposed only eleven emotions, leaving anger without an opposite. Giles supplies "mansuetude" or quiescence from Aristotle's *Rhetoric*, where "growing calm" is the opposite of anger (1380a5–30). This too, according to Giles, can be defined as a "motion" because it is a refraining (e.g., from revenge), a quieting down: it is "more from a motion than [itself] a motion" (50ra).¹³⁵

In these extensive *declarationes*, Giles processes the Aristotelian discussion through a traditional framework that had its own authority, codifying their order according to distinctions that are squarely within a speculative philosophical tradition (50rb). So much is he wedded to this

system that he will even reclassify one of the pairs of emotions given by Aristotle to fit his inherited scheme (and the number of pairs he has set out): he classes shame as a species of fear, and shamelessness as an effect of love (59vb), thus arriving at an even twelve pairs. But his analysis was to establish the groundwork for other scholastic responses to Aristotle's presentation of the emotions.

Two later scholastic commentators who followed Giles of Rome, the fourteenth-century Parisian arts masters Jean de Jandun and Jean Buridan, were similarly philosophical and taxonomic in their approaches, depending greatly on Giles' commentary for their own expositions. They both define rhetoric as a "ratiocinative science," and this largely determines the scope of the issues they address.¹³⁶ It was natural that their interests would fall on the relations between dialectic and rhetoric: this is encouraged by Aristotle's own exposition, especially in book 1; and this would also be the default orientation of the Arts Faculty in which they both taught, where treating rhetoric as a kind of logic would follow in the longer tradition of the extended *Organon*.¹³⁷ When considering the role of emotions in rhetoric, they are especially interested in the question of how emotional appeals may sway the opinions of a judge, building on Aristotle's statements about this problem (1354a15). They tend to pursue this in philosophical or moral terms, posing and answering the question whether the "passions of the soul" pertain to rhetoric. Jean de Jandun, who produced his commentary in two versions between 1310 and 1326 while he was still at Paris, tries to resolve this by assigning emotion to a lesser place among the resources of rhetoric, following what he sees as the implications of Aristotle's initial criticism of rhetoric that is exclusively emotive:

Est tamen intelligendum quod ipsi sermones passionantes aliququaliter possunt considerari a rethorico, non ut eis principaliter et in pluribus utatur, sed ut sciat eos vitare et solvere. Sunt enim aliqui litigantes qui assueti sunt dicere tales sermones iudicibus et per hoc venire ad intentum; unde ne bonus orator ignoret virtutem talium sermonum et ne vincatur per eos, bonum est eos cognoscere aliququaliter.¹³⁸

Nevertheless we should understand that these emotional discourses may in some way be considered by the rhetorician, not so that he should use them principally and in most cases, but that he should know them so as to avoid and neutralize them. There are some lawyers who habitually proffer such discourses to judges so as to achieve their purpose; so in order that a good orator not be naive about the power of such speeches and not be defeated by them, it is good to know something about them.

Buridan similarly reasons that emotional speeches do not pertain to rhetoric according to its primary and principle purpose, which should be producing reasoned proofs:

Prima sit hec: rethoris intentio principalis non est pervertere iudicem sed sermones passionales vel nichil faciunt vel pervertunt iudicem; 2a est, quia principalis intentio rethorice est causam suam ostendere quod non faciunt sermones passionativi. Et confirmat[ur] Aristotiles signo et in aliquibus civitatibus optime legibus ordinatis prohibentur tales sermones et illa debet fieri in parlamento regis aut pape.¹³⁹

First [i.e., according to Aristotle], the principal intention of rhetoric is not to corrupt the judge, but emotional speeches either serve no purpose or they corrupt the judge. Second, the principal intention of rhetoric is to prove its cases, which emotional speeches do not do. Aristotle's reasoning is confirmed by the fact that in certain cities these kinds of speeches are properly prohibited by laws [cf., *Rhetoric* 1354a20], and this ought to be the case in the court of the king and the pope.

Interestingly, Jean de Jandun does recognize the uses of emotional rhetoric in actual speaking situations. While he does not fully approve of appealing to the passions, he sees them as providing levity or distraction:

Expedit etiam aliquando uti sermonibus passionantibus, cum iudex et auditores sint iam fatigati seu fessi de sedendo vel stando et quasi contristati et amplius nolunt audire litigantes, tunc enim bonum est interponere aliqua passionalia, utpote aliqua solaciosa seu risibilia et delectantia vel mirabilia, non ut per hoc iudex inclinetur ad iudicandum pro vel contra per se immediate, sed ut velit audire rationes litigantium bene et diligenter. Et hec videtur esse doctrina Tullii in sua *Nova rethorica*, ubi docet quando non est utendum prohemio, ubi sic dicit: “si defessi audiendo erunt ab aliqua re que risum movere [possit]” [*Rhetorica ad Herennium* 1.6.10], supple incipiendum est, et in *Veteri rethorica* dicit sic: “nam ut [cibi satietas et] fastidium aut subamara [aliqua] re relevatur aut dulci mitigatur, sic animus defessus audiendo aut admiratione integratur aut risu novatur” [*De inventione* 1.17.25].¹⁴⁰

Sometimes it is expedient to use emotional speeches, as when the judge and the audience are tired or worn out from sitting or standing and are fed up and want to hear no more from the lawyers; then it is good to allow in some appeals to emotion, such as something comforting or funny or pleasurable or wondrous, not in order that the judge should shift his judgment pro or con directly on account of that, but so that he should be inclined to hear the reasoning of lawyers with good will and attentively. And this seems to be Tully's teaching in his *New Rhetoric*, where he teaches about when we are not to use an exordium, where he says: “If the hearers are fatigued,” we are to open “with something that may provoke laughter”; and in his *Old Rhetoric* he says “just as lack of appetite or distaste for food is relieved by something spicy or is mitigated by something sweet, so the mind fatigued by listening is refreshed by a surprise or renewed by laughter.”

This is, of course, more Cicero than Aristotle, as Jean de Jandun turns to Ciceronian advice about appeasing a difficult audience in order to resolve the problems posed by Aristotle's initial critique of emotive speech-making.

This is a retreat into the terrain—familiar, for example, from preaching—of *captatio benevolentiae*, capturing the good will of an audience to make it pliable. But on these terms, emotion is extrinsic to the case being argued, in much the way that Martianus Capella theorizes the role of emotion when it is aroused in the peroration.¹⁴¹ The key point about emotion in the *Rhetoric*, that *pathos* is in itself a form of proof, does not find articulation here.

If we were to look only to these two commentaries of the early fourteenth century, we would conclude that readings of Aristotle's *Rhetoric* remained tied to a long-standing scholarly conception of this text as a kind of contribution to logic, wherein rhetoric is primarily a “ratiocinative” science. To some degree, Giles of Rome's commentary, with its investment in explaining the logical instruments of rhetoric, had stamped this view with his authority. Moreover, as we have seen, his first effort to understand the text does not truly capture the cognitive and ethical force of Aristotle's distinctive phenomenology of the emotions in book 2. On this view, the behavioral psychology of emotion that Aristotle lays out was overshadowed by moral suspicions about the role of emotion in persuasion, or it was lost in the more familiar pull of philosophical and normative taxonomies of emotion. Medieval readers would seem to have been unprepared for the pragmatic, social dimension of emotion in Aristotle's analytic.

But at the same time, we must remember how Moerbeke's translation of the *Rhetoric* actually circulated: not with logical texts, but mainly with Aristotle's *Ethics* and *Politics*. The major context of its reception was the expansion of interest in moral philosophy, and on the longer view it was to this outlook that Giles' commentary, with its sensitivity to the ethical concerns of rhetoric, was to contribute significantly. If Giles did not at first fully recognize how emotion can be a social and political concern, this was only his first attempt at understanding the *Rhetoric*. His most important and lasting contribution was just a few years away.

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¹ Cf., Michel Meyer, *Philosophy and the Passions: Toward a History of Human Nature*, trans. Robert F. Barsky (University Park: Pennsylvania State University Press, 2000), p. 3.

² The following discussions will not consider the place of Aristotle's *Rhetoric* in Byzantium, because the focus here is on the traditions that led to its reception in the medieval Latin West. The

evidence for Byzantine interest in the *Rhetoric* between the sixth and the fourteenth centuries is small: on this, see the articles by [Thomas M. Conley](#): “Aristotle’s *Rhetoric* in Byzantium,” *Rhetorica* 8 (1990): 29–44; “The Alleged ‘Synopsis’ of Aristotle’s *Rhetoric* by John Italos and its Place in the Byzantine Reception of Aristotle,” in Gilbert Dahan and Irène Rosier-Catach, eds., *La Rhétorique d’Aristote: traditions et commentaires de l’antiquité au XVIIe siècle* (Paris: Vrin, 1998), pp. 49–64. See also [Pierre Chiron](#), “Les commentaires grec tardo-antiques et byzantins à la *Rhétorique*: hypothèses sur une quasi-absence,” in [Frédérique Woerther](#), ed., *Commenting on Aristotle’s Rhetoric, From Antiquity to the Present/Commenter la Rhétorique d’Aristote, de l’Antiquité à la période contemporaine* (Leiden: Brill, 2018), pp. 1–13.

³ The *artes praedicandi* are justly considered “rhetorics” in that they teach how to compose; but in their technical teaching, especially by their late thirteenth-century apogee, they bear little resemblance to ancient or medieval rhetorical manuals. In confronting Aristotle’s *Rhetoric*, those thirteenth-century scholars who knew only the *ars praedicandi* would have scant framework for apprehending the technical rhetorical doctrine presented by Aristotle.

⁴ On the likely dates and circumstances of Aristotle’s composition of the *Rhetoric*, and details of its construction, see [George A. Kennedy](#), “The Composition and Influence of Aristotle’s *Rhetoric*,” in [Amélie Oksenberg Rorty](#), ed., *Essays on Aristotle’s Rhetoric* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1996), pp. 416–24. A useful account of the nineteenth- and twentieth-century scholarship on the dates and construction of the work is given in [Paul D. Brandes](#), *A History of Aristotle’s Rhetoric, With a Bibliography of Early Printings* (Metuchen, NJ and London: The Scarecrow Press, 1989), pp. 1–7.

⁵ The differences between Aristotle’s approach and those of his contemporaries, especially the teaching and school of Isocrates, are treated at length in the important article by [Friedrich Solmsen](#), “The Aristotelian Tradition in Ancient Rhetoric,” *The American Journal of Philology* 62 (1941): 35–50, 169–90.

⁶ All translations of Aristotle’s Greek text will be based on *Aristotle on Rhetoric: A Theory of Civic Discourse*, trans. [George A. Kennedy](#) (New York: Oxford University Press, 1991). For the Greek text, see the edition by [Rudolf Kassel](#), *Aristotelis, Ars rhetorica* (Berlin: de Gruyter, 1976).

⁷ The enthymeme will be considered in depth later in this chapter, pp. 165–9.

⁸ Cf., [Frédérique Woerther](#), *L’èthos aristotélicien. Genèse d’une notion rhétorique* (Paris: Vrin, 2007), pp. 240–1, 247, 283.

⁹ For this suggestion, see [Jeffrey Walker](#), *Rhetoric and Poetics in Antiquity* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2000), p. 175. However, the apparent association between emotions and enthymemes in book 2 may be an effect of the final form of the text that comes down to us: scholarship has shown how elements of book 2 (as well as other sections of the *Rhetoric*) seem to have been stitched together as Aristotle revised the work at different stages. On the construction of book 2, see [Kennedy](#), “The Composition and Influence of Aristotle’s *Rhetoric*,” pp. 419, 421–2.

¹⁰ On the importance of the discussion in book 1 for considering the larger treatment of the emotions, see [Jamie Dow](#), *Passions and Persuasion in Aristotle’s Rhetoric* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2015), chapter 9, pp. 145–81. See also [Konstan](#), *The Emotions of the Ancient Greeks*, pp. 33–4; [Daniel N. Robinson](#), *Aristotle’s Psychology* (New York: Columbia University Press, 1989), pp. 77–90. Relevant also is the philosophical exploration by [Dorothea Frede](#), “Mixed Feelings in Aristotle’s *Rhetoric*,” in [Rorty](#), ed., *Essays on Aristotle’s Rhetoric*, pp. 258–85.

¹¹ This passage is excised by Kassel although accepted by other editors.

¹² *Sein und Zeit* (Tübingen: Max Niemeyer, 1927), p. 139; *Being and Time*, trans. [John Macquarrie](#) and [Edward Robinson](#) (Oxford: Blackwell, 1962; rpt. 2001), p. 178.

¹³ Martin Heidegger, *Basic Concepts of Aristotelian Philosophy*, trans. Robert D. Metcalf and Mark B. Tanzer (Bloomington and Indianapolis: Indiana University Press, 2009), p. 176. On Heidegger's responses to and recruitment of Aristotelian rhetorical thought, see Joachim Knappe and Thomas Schirren, "Martin Heidegger liest die *Rhetorik* des Aristoteles," in Knappe and Schirren, eds., *Aristotelische Rhetorik-Tradition* (Stuttgart: Franz Steiner, 2005), pp. 310–27; and Daniel M. Gross, "Heidegger's 1924 Commentary on Aristotle's *Rhetoric*, and the Destruction of the *Corpus Aristotelicum*," in Woerther, ed., *Commenting on Aristotle's Rhetoric*, pp. 246–61.

¹⁴ He deals with happiness in *Rhetoric* book 1 (1360b4–30) under ethical topics: what leads to happiness, since this is the general aim; what constitutes the good that produces happiness. At the start of book 2 (1378a1), leading in to the consideration of individual passions, he suggests the amenability of an audience if they feel hope and desire for future good; this appears to be linked to the earlier discussion of pleasure and pain.

¹⁵ Cf., Konstan, *The Emotions of the Ancient Greeks*, p. 39, and on the absence of another basic emotion, grief, from Aristotle's list, pp. 244–7; Michel Meyer, "Aristote ou la rhétorique des passions," in Meyer, trans., *[Aristote] Rhétorique. Des passions* (Paris: Éditions Rivages, 1989), p. 137.

¹⁶ See Woerther, *L'èthos aristotélicien*, pp. 225–9. The two treatments are complementary, but the contexts stress different values in the notion of friendliness.

¹⁷ See Knuuttila, *Emotions in Ancient and Medieval Philosophy*, p. 45; Martha Nussbaum, "Aristotle on Emotions and Rational Persuasion," in Rorty, ed., *Essays on Aristotle's Rhetoric*, pp. 303–23 (at pp. 305–6).

¹⁸ Plato, *Republic* 10, ed. and trans. S. Halliwell (Warminster: Aris and Phillips, 1988), 606d (p. 69). Knuuttila surveys some of the difficulties of attributing this negative view to Plato *tout court*: see *Emotions*, pp. 5–25.

¹⁹ W. W. Fortenbaugh, *Aristotle on Emotion: A Contribution to Philosophical Psychology, Rhetoric, Poetics, Politics, and Ethics* (London: Duckworth, 1975), pp. 12, 21.

²⁰ Fortenbaugh, *Aristotle on Emotion*, pp. 16–18; cf., Nussbaum, "Aristotle on Emotions and Rational Persuasion," and Nancy Sherman, "Emotional Agents," in Michael Levine, ed., *Analytic Freud: Philosophy and Psychoanalysis* (London and New York: Routledge, 2000), pp. 286–326 (at p. 288).

²¹ Fortenbaugh, *Aristotle on Emotions*, p. 11; Knuuttila, *Emotions*, pp. 18–19.

²² Konstan, *The Emotions of the Ancient Greeks*, pp. 34–8.

²³ Stephen R. Leighton, "Aristotle and the Emotions," in Rorty, ed., *Essays on Aristotle's Rhetoric*, pp. 206–37 (at pp. 209–11, 224).

²⁴ For example, see the surveys of opinion in Lloyd F. Bitzer, "Aristotle's Enthymeme Revisited," *Quarterly Journal of Speech* 45 (1959): 399–408 and Thomas M. Conley, "The Enthymeme in Perspective," *Quarterly Journal of Speech* 70 (1984): 168–87; the deeper background of the problem is studied by M. F. Burnyeat, "Enthymeme: Aristotle on the Logic of Persuasion," in David J. Furley and Alexander Nehamas, eds., *Aristotle's Rhetoric: Philosophical Essays* (Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1994), pp. 3–55.

²⁵ 1357a25; William M. A. Grimaldi, S.J., *Studies in the Philosophy of Aristotle's Rhetoric* (Wiesbaden: Franz Steiner Verlag, 1972), p. 58.

²⁶ David C. Mirhady, "Aristotle's Enthymeme, Thymos, and Plato," in David C. Mirhady, ed., *Influences on Peripatetic Rhetoric: Essays in Honor of William W. Fortenbaugh* (Leiden: Brill, 2007), pp. 53–64 (at p. 53).

²⁷ *Basic Concepts of Aristotelian Philosophy*, p. 76. On the importance of enthymeme in Heidegger's ontology and hermeneutics, see Michael J. Hyde, "A Matter of the Heart: Epideictic Rhetoric and Heidegger's Call of Conscience," in Daniel M. Gross and Ansgar Kemmann, eds., *Heidegger and Rhetoric* (Albany: State University of New York Press, 2005), pp. 81–104 (esp. pp. 88–90).

²⁸ The term is found in Sophocles and more relevantly in the rhetorical teaching of Aristotle's contemporaries Isocrates and Alcidamas, although the conceptual value they attach to it is limited: there it is treated more generally as a way of giving expression to ideas and adding ornament to a speech. See Jürgen Sprute, *Die Enthymemtheorie der aristotelischen Rhetorik* (Göttingen: Vandenhoeck & Ruprecht, 1982), p. 143; Solmsen, "The Aristotelian Tradition in Ancient Rhetoric," 39, note 15.

²⁹ See Burnyeat, "Enthymeme: Aristotle on the Logic of Persuasion," esp. pp. 6–10.

³⁰ This is clearly explained by Christof Rapp, "Aristotle's *Rhetoric*," *Stanford Encyclopedia of Philosophy*, section 6, "The Enthymeme" and "Supplement on the Brevity of the Enthymeme," <https://plato.stanford.edu/entries/aristotle-rhetoric/index.html#6.4s> (accessed February 11, 2020).

³¹ Kennedy's translation, "by an identified group," is based on Kassel's conjecture correcting the early manuscript reading of *horismenôn* (gen. plural) as found in Bekker and other modern editions. See Kennedy, *Aristotle On Rhetoric*, p. 187, note 159.

³² Cf., Dow, *Passions and Persuasion*, p. 79, note 6.

³³ Walker, *Rhetoric and Poetics in Antiquity*, pp. 168–84 (esp. pp. 182–3).

³⁴ Mirhady, "Aristotle's Enthymeme, Thymos, and Plato," pp. 56–8, 61.

³⁵ Woerther, *L'èthos aristotélicien*, pp. 285–97 reads the section on the enthymeme as a unit with the treatise on the passions and the treatise on the characters in book 2.

³⁶ Cf., Edward Meredith Cope and John Edwin Sandys, *The Rhetoric of Aristotle with a Commentary* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1877), 2: 272.

³⁷ The history of transmission as relates to the *Rhetoric* is sketched in Jakob Wisse, *Ethos and Pathos from Aristotle to Cicero* (Amsterdam: Hakkert, 1989), pp. 152–8; Brandes, *A History of Aristotle's Rhetoric*, pp. 4–6; Kennedy, "The Composition and Influence of Aristotle's *Rhetoric*," pp. 421–3; and Thomas Zinsmaier, "Aristotelische Einflüsse auf Ciceros Rhetoriktheorie," in Knappe and Schirren, eds., *Aristotelische Rhetorik-Tradition*, pp. 127–40 (at pp. 128–9). For more detail on the transmission of all the works, see Ingemar Düring, "Notes on the History of the Transmission of Aristotle's Writings," *Göteborgs Högskolas Årsskrift* 56 (1950): 37–70 (esp. pp. 64–70).

³⁸ Malcolm Heath, "The Substructure of Stasis Theory from Hermagoras to Hermogenes," *The Classical Quarterly* 44 (1994): 114–29; Kennedy, *A New History of Classical Rhetoric*, pp. 97–101, 208–11.

³⁹ The hypothesis is by Solmsen, "The Aristotelian Tradition," 169–78; cf., Wisse, *Ethos and Pathos from Aristotle to Cicero*, pp. 80–3.

⁴⁰ On the knowledge of Peripatetic rhetoric among the compendiasts, see Solmsen, "The Aristotelian Tradition," 48–50. Solmsen's measure is a broad one: he views any organization of rhetoric according to five canons (invention, disposition, style, memory, and delivery) as an extension of Aristotle's rejection of the Isocratean model of parts of the speech in favor of three overriding functions: invention, arrangement, and style.

⁴¹ W. W. Fortenbaugh, "Cicero's Knowledge of the Rhetorical Treatises of Aristotle and Theophrastus," in W. W. Fortenbaugh and Peter Steinmetz, eds., *Cicero's Knowledge of the Peripatos* (New Brunswick, NJ: Transaction Publishers, 1989), pp. 39–60 (at pp. 40–3).

⁴² In general, see Wisse, *Ethos and Pathos from Aristotle to Cicero*, pp. 145–52; Friedrich Solmsen, “Aristotle and Cicero on the Orator’s Playing upon the Feelings,” *Classical Philology* 33 (1938): 390–404; but for a strongly opposing viewpoint on direct Aristotelian influence here, see Eckart Schütrumpf, “Non-Logical Means of Persuasion in Aristotle’s *Rhetoric* and Cicero’s *De oratore*,” in William W. Fortenbaugh and David C. Mirhady, eds., *Peripatetic Rhetoric after Aristotle* (New Brunswick, NJ: Transaction Publishers, 1994), pp. 95–110.

⁴³ George A. Kennedy, “Peripatetic Rhetoric as It Appears (and Disappears) in Quintilian,” in Fortenbaugh and Mirhady, eds., *Peripatetic Rhetoric after Aristotle*, pp. 174–82; and in the same volume, William W. Fortenbaugh, “Quintilian 62.8–9: *Ethos* and *Pathos* and the Ancient Tradition,” pp. 183–91.

⁴⁴ See Section 4.5, “Giles’ Commentary in Context,” pp. 194–202.

⁴⁵ Knuuttila, *Emotions*, pp. 11–18. Martha C. Nussbaum finds that, in the *Phaedrus*, emotion is given a strong inspirational role in producing philosophical insight: see *The Fragility of Goodness: Luck and Ethics in Greek Tragedy and Philosophy* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1986), pp. 203–27.

⁴⁶ The basic Stoic doctrines are preserved in Cicero, *Tusculan Disputations* 4.6.11–4.9.22, and Diogenes Laertius, *Vitae philosophorum* 7.110–14. See Tad Brennan, “The Old Stoic Theory of Emotions,” in Juha Sihvola and Troels Engberg-Pedersen, eds., *The Emotions in Hellenistic Philosophy* (Dordrecht: Kluwer, 1998), pp. 21–70 (at p. 30).

⁴⁷ Knuuttila, *Emotions*, pp. 63–7; Richard Sorabji, *Emotion and Peace of Mind: From Stoic Agitation to Christian Temptation* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2000), pp. 61–75.

⁴⁸ Brennan, “The Old Stoic Theory of Emotions,” pp. 23–8; cf., Knuuttila, *Emotions*, pp. 71–80.

⁴⁹ Gisela Striker, “Emotions in Context: Aristotle’s Treatment of the Passions in the *Rhetoric* and his Moral Psychology,” in Rorty, ed., *Essays on Aristotle’s Rhetoric*, pp. 286–302 (at p. 295).

⁵⁰ The complex notion of *apatheia* among the early Stoics is clearly laid out in Marcia L. Colish, *The Stoic Tradition from Antiquity to the Early Middle Ages*, 2 vols. (Leiden: Brill, 1990), 1: 42–50.

⁵¹ John Dillon, “*Metriopatheia* and *Apatheia*: Some Reflections on a Controversy in Later Greek Ethics,” in John Dillon, *The Golden Chain: Studies in the Development of Platonism and Christianity* (Aldershot: Ashgate Variorum, 1990), essay VIII (orig. pag. 508–17); on Galen, see Knuuttila, *Emotions*, pp. 94–8. Early Christians, such as Lactantius, also criticized the Stoics for the absence of fellow feeling that their impossible standards implied.

⁵² Eyjólfur Kjalar Emilsson, “Plotinus on the Emotions,” in Sihvola and Engberg-Pedersen, eds., *The Emotions in Hellenistic Philosophy*, pp. 339–63 (at p. 359).

⁵³ Knuuttila, *Emotions*, pp. 98–103. Relevant passages on emotion in the *Enneads* are 1.1.1–7, 3.6.1–5, 4.4.18–21, 28. On the notion of *homoiōsis*, the likening to God, see John Dillon, “Plotinus, Philo and Origen on the Grades of Virtue,” in Dillon, *The Golden Chain*, essay XVIII (orig. pag. 92–105). On the importance of love and the contemplation of Beauty, see Daniele Iozzia, *Aesthetic Themes in Pagan and Christian Neoplatonism: From Plotinus to Gregory of Nyssa* (London: Bloomsbury, 2015), chapter 5, “The Paradoxes of Beauty,” pp. 77–92.

⁵⁴ See pp. 194–8.

⁵⁵ Richard Walzer, “Zur Traditionsgeschichte der aristotelischen Poetik,” in Richard Walzer, *Greek into Arabic: Essays on Islamic Philosophy* (Oxford: Bruno Cassirer, 1962), pp. 129–36 (essay orig. publ. 1934). For detailed discussion of the Alexandrian background, see Paul Moraux, *Les listes anciennes des ouvrages d’Aristote* (Louvain: Éditions universitaires de Louvain, 1951), pp. 177–83;

Deborah L. Black, *Logic and Aristotle's "Rhetoric" and "Poetics" in Medieval Arabic Philosophy* (Leiden: Brill, 1990), pp. 17–51.

⁵⁶ Moraux, *Les listes anciennes*, p. 178.

⁵⁷ Cf., Black's interesting point about how Arabic philosophy accommodates the fideistic and affective aspects of cognition to logic as an ethical dimension of epistemology: *Logic and Aristotle's Rhetoric and Poetics in Medieval Arabic Philosophy*, p. 108. For a significant reevaluation of poetic "ethics" along the cognitive lines of the imaginative syllogism in Arabic philosophy and its scholastic reception, see Vincent Gillespie, "Ethice Subponitur? The Imaginative Syllogism and the Idea of the Poetic," in Philip Knox, Jonathan Morton, and Daniel Reeve, eds., *Medieval Thought Experiments: Poetry, Hypothesis, and Experience in the European Middle Ages* (Turnhout: Brepols, 2018), pp. 297–327.

⁵⁸ Maroun Aouad, "La Rhétorique. Tradition syriaque et arabe," in Richard Goulet, ed., *Dictionnaire des philosophes antiques*, 1 (Paris: CNRS, 1989), pp. 455–72 (esp. pp. 455–60); Uwe Vagelpohl, *Aristotle's "Rhetoric" in the East: The Syriac and Arabic Translation and Commentary Tradition* (Leiden: Brill, 2008), pp. 39–61; Luigi Bottin, *Contributi della tradizione greco-latina e arabo-latina al testo della Retorica di Aristotele* (Padova: Antenore, 1977), pp. 75–85. The *Rhetoric* is edited in Aristotle's "Ars rhetorica": *The Arabic Version*, ed. M. C. Lyons, 2 vols. (Cambridge: Pembroke Arabic Texts, 1982). The probable date of this unique copy of the only extant Arabic translation of the *Rhetoric* is the early eleventh century: see Vagelpohl, *Aristotle's "Rhetoric" in the East*, pp. 40–51. On dating of the translation itself, see Vagelpohl, pp. 45, 150, and (for an earlier date) Lyons, ed., *Aristotle's "Ars Rhetorica" 1*: vi. On the evidence of an early Syriac version, see *Aristotelian Rhetoric in Syriac: Barhebraeus, Butyrum Sapientiae, Book of Rhetoric* ed. John W. Watt (Leiden: Brill, 2005) [an edition of a thirteenth-century Syriac translation], p. 6; John W. Watt, "Syriac Rhetorical Theory and the Syriac Tradition of Aristotle's *Rhetoric*," in Fortenbaugh and Mirhady, eds., *Peripatetic Rhetoric after Aristotle*, pp. 243–60; Aristotle's "Ars rhetorica": *The Arabic Version*, ed. Lyons, 1: ii–iii; Aouad, "La Rhétorique," pp. 456–7.

⁵⁹ For references from the Arabic bibliographers to lost works, and for editions and studies of extant commentaries (up to 1989), see Aouad, "La Rhétorique," pp. 463–72. More recent relevant bibliography will be provided in the notes below. For an overview of the reception history, see Uwe Vagelpohl, "The *Rhetoric* and *Poetics* in the Islamic World," in Ahmed Alwishah and Josh Hayes, eds., *Aristotle and the Arabic Tradition* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2015), pp. 76–91.

⁶⁰ On the political dimensions of their interpretations of rhetoric in their short treatises, see Charles E. Butterworth, "The Rhetorician and his Relationship to the Community: Three Accounts of Aristotle's *Rhetoric*," in Michael E. Marmura, ed., *Islamic Theology and Philosophy: Studies in Honor of George F. Hourani* (Albany: State University of New York Press, 1984), pp. 111–36.

⁶¹ Hermannus' Latin text is edited by Mario Grignaschi in *Al-Farabi: Deux ouvrages inédits sur la "Rhétorique"*, eds. Jacques Langhade and Mario Grignaschi (Beirut: Dar el-Mashreq, 1971). Portions of the Arabic original of the "Great Commentary" have now been identified by Aouad as incorporated in a treatise on logic by Ibn Ridwan (d. 1061 or 1068): see "La doctrine rhétorique d'Ibn Ridwan et la *Didascalía* in *Rhetoricam Aristotelis ex glosa Alfarabii*," *Arabic Sciences and Philosophy* 7 (1997): 163–245 and 8 (1998): 131–60. Al-Farabi's other surviving treatise relating to the *Rhetoric*, the short *Kitáb al-khatâbah*, is edited by Langhade (with French translation) in *Deux ouvrages*, eds. Langhade and Grignaschi. This is translated into English by Lahcen Elyazghi Ezzaher, trans., *Three Arabic Treatises on Aristotle's Rhetoric* (Carbondale: Southern Illinois University Press, 2015).

⁶² William F. Boggess, "Hermannus Alemannus's Rhetorical Translations," *Viator* 2 (1971): 227–50 (esp. p. 235); see also Copeland and Sluiter, *Medieval Grammar and Rhetoric*, p. 737.

⁶³ *Didascalía*, ed. Grignaschi, *Deux ouvrages*, pp. 150–1. On the last point, “those who follow the common walk of life,” cf., *Rhetoric* 1354a2.

⁶⁴ Translation in Copeland and Sluiter, *Medieval Grammar and Rhetoric*, p. 741. On translating the term *leges* as “religious laws,” see *Didascalía*, ed. Grignaschi, *Deux ouvrages*, p. 150, note 3: according to Al-Farabi and Averroes, religious legislators use essentially rhetorical methods in propounding their directives.

⁶⁵ *Didascalía* §31, ed. Grignaschi, *Deux ouvrages*, pp. 199–202.

⁶⁶ This aspect of the *Didascalía* is studied in detail by Frédérique Woerther, “Les passions rhétoriques chez Aristote et Al-Farabi: formes discursives et mécanismes d’induction,” *Organon* (Polish Academy of the Sciences) 36 (2007): 55–74.

⁶⁷ Cf., Jacques Brunschwig, “Rhétorique et dialectique, *Rhétorique et Topiques*,” in Furley and Nehamas, eds., *Aristotle’s Rhetoric: Philosophical Essays*, pp. 57–96 (at p. 86): “La Rhétorique...se réfère constamment à l’expérience oratoire diffuse et variée qu’elle vise à techniciser.”

⁶⁸ See the discussion in Woerther, “Les passions rhétoriques,” 69–71.

⁶⁹ *Didascalía*, ed. Grignaschi, *Deux ouvrages*, p. 231.

⁷⁰ *Didascalía*, ed. Grignaschi, *Deux ouvrages*, p. 237.

⁷¹ See Maroun Aouad and Marwan Rashed, “L’exégèse de la *Rhétorique* d’Aristote: recherches sur quelques commentateurs grecs, arabes et byzantins” (part 1), *Medioevo: Rivista di storia della filosofia medievale* 23 (1997): 43–189 (esp. 82–3, 89); Vagelpohl, *Aristotle’s Rhetoric in the East*, p. 88.

⁷² The chapter devoted to book 1 is translated into English by Ezzaher under the title “Compendium” in *Three Arabic Treatises*; the chapter devoted to book 2 is edited and translated into French by Denise Rémondon, “Al-Aḥlāq wā-l-Infī‘ālāt an-Nafsāniyya (Les traits du caractère et les passions de l’âme),” *Miscellanea, Mémoires Avicenne* 4 (Cairo: Institut français d’archéologie orientale, 1954), pp. 19–30. See also Dimitri Gutas, *Avicenna and the Aristotelian Tradition: Introduction to Reading Avicenna’s Philosophical Works*, 2nd ed. (Leiden: Brill, 2014), pp. 86–93.

⁷³ For detailed analysis and translations, see Renate Würsch, *Avicennas Bearbeitungen der aristotelischen Rhetorik: ein Beitrag zum Fortleben antiken Bildungsgutes in der islamischen Welt* (Berlin: Klaus Schwarz Verlag, 1991). See also Vagelpohl, *Aristotle’s Rhetoric in the East*, pp. 192–5; Gutas, *Avicenna and the Aristotelian Tradition*, pp. 103–15.

⁷⁴ See this chapter, pp. 196–7.

⁷⁵ The “Short Commentary” has been edited and translated by Charles E. Butterworth, *Averroës Three Short Commentaries on Aristotle’s “Topics,” “Rhetoric,” and “Poetics”* (Albany: State University of New York Press, 1977). Butterworth’s edition was based partly on reconstructions from Judeo-Arabic copies: see the discussion in Vagelpohl, *Aristotle’s Rhetoric in the East*, p. 197, note 95. For Averroes’ “Middle Commentary” see the edition and translation by Maroun Aouad, *Commentaire moyen à la Rhétorique d’Aristote*, 3 vols. (Paris: Vrin, 2002). The “Middle Commentary” was translated into Hebrew in 1337 by Todros Todrosi, serving as a basis for Messer Judah Leon’s Hebrew rhetoric of 1475/6, *The Book of the Honeycomb’s Flow*; from the Hebrew translation the “Middle Commentary” was also translated into Latin by Abraham of Balmes at the beginning of the sixteenth century.

⁷⁶ *Commentaire moyen*, ed. Aouad, 2: 140, 206 (§§2.1.7 and 2.11.9); cf., Aouad’s commentary on this, 1: 110–11; 3: 231, 277. See also the detailed discussion in Michael Blaustein, “The Scope and Methods of Rhetoric in Averroes’ *Middle Commentary on Aristotle’s Rhetoric*,” in Charles E.

Butterworth, ed., *The Political Aspects of Islamic Philosophy: Essays in Honor of Muhsin S. Mahdi* (Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1992), pp. 262–303 (at pp. 292–4).

⁷⁷ *Commentaire moyen*, ed. Aouad, 2: 344 (section 3.17.12); Aouad's commentary on this, 1: 111; 3: 433–4.

⁷⁸ *Commentaire moyen*, ed. Aouad, 2: 170 (section 2.5.12); cf., Aouad's commentary, 1: 147.

⁷⁹ The backgrounds of scientific classifications over the twelfth century are summarized in Gilbert Dahan, "L'entrée de la *Rhétorique* d'Aristote entre 1240 et 1270," in Dahan and Rosier-Catach, eds., *La Rhétorique d'Aristote*, pp. 65–86.

⁸⁰ See Muhsin Mahdi, "Science, Philosophy, and Religion in Alfarabi's *Enumeration of the Sciences*," in John Emery Murdoch and Edith Dudley Sylla, eds., *The Cultural Context of Medieval Learning* (Dordrecht and Boston: D. Reidel, 1975), pp. 113–47. For the translation of Al-Farabi by Gerard of Cremona, see *Über die Wissenschaften/De scientiis. Nach der lateinischen Übersetzung Gerhards von Cremona*, ed. and trans. Franz Schupp (Hamburg: Felix Meiner Verlag, 2005). For Gundissalinus' version, see *Domingo Gundisalvo, De scientiis*, ed. Manuel Alonso (Madrid: Escuelas de Estudios Arabes de Madrid y Granada, 1954); *Al-Farabi, De scientiis secundum versionem Dominici Gundisalvi*, ed. Jakob Hans Josef Schneider (Freiburg: Herder, 2007); *Al-Farabi: Catálogo de las Ciencias*, ed. Ángel Gonzalez Palencia (Madrid: Consejo Superior de Investigaciones Científicas, Patronato Menéndez y Pelayo, Instituto Miguel Asín, 1953). For the Latinized Al-Ghazali, see "Logica Algazelis: Introduction and Critical Text," ed. Charles H. Lohr, *Traditio* 21 (1965): 223–90 (esp. 278–80).

⁸¹ *Dominicus Gundissalinus: De divisione philosophiae/Über die Einteilung der Philosophiae*, eds. and trans. Alexander Fidora and Dorothée Werner (Freiburg: Herder, 2007), pp. 152, 156. The older edition of the work remains an important resource: *De divisione philosophiae*, ed. Ludwig Baur (Münster: Aschendorff, 1903).

⁸² Translation from Copeland and Sluiter, *Medieval Grammar and Rhetoric*, p. 482 (and see discussion and references, pp. 461–3, 480–3).

⁸³ Dahan, "L'entrée de la *Rhétorique* d'Aristote," p. 68.

⁸⁴ See Dahan, "L'entrée de la *Rhétorique* d'Aristote," pp. 72–3, 77. See also "Une introduction à l'étude de la philosophie: Ut ait Tullius," ed. Gilbert Dahan, in Claude Lafleur and Joanne Carrier, eds., *L'enseignement de la philosophie au XIIIe siècle: autour du "Guide de l'étudiant" du ms. Ripoll 109* (Turnhout: Brepols, 1997), pp. 3–58.

⁸⁵ See the Preface to Aquinas' *Exposition of the Posterior Analytics* in Copeland and Sluiter, *Medieval Grammar and Rhetoric*, pp. 787–91.

⁸⁶ *Rhetorica, translatio Anonyma sive Vetus et translatio Guillelmi de Moerbeka*, ed. Bernhard Schneider, AL XXXI 1–2 (Leiden: Brill, 1978), pp. xiii, xix; Dahan, "L'entrée de la *Rhétorique* d'Aristote," p. 81.

⁸⁷ Boggess, "Hermannus Alemannus's Rhetorical Translations."

⁸⁸ Dahan, "L'entrée de la *Rhétorique* d'Aristote," p. 81, note 3.

⁸⁹ *Opus maius* III in *The "Opus Majus" of Roger Bacon*, ed. John Henry Bridges, 2 vols. (London, Edinburgh, and Oxford: Williams and Norgate, 1900), 1: 71.

⁹⁰ Ninety-nine codices were known to George Lacombe, Lorenzo Minio-Paluello et al., eds., *Aristoteles latinus codices*, 2 vols. (Rome: La Libreria dello stato, 1939–45), and Minio-Paluello, *Aristoteles latinus codices supplementa altera* (Brussels and Paris: Desclée de Brouwer, 1961). Lacombe #941 (Wolfenbüttel, Herzog August Bibliothek. Cod. Guelf 488 Helmst.) contains two separate copies of the text, bringing the count known to them to 100 copies. Unfortunately, two

manuscripts described in the census, Lacombe nos. 71 and 324, are missing from the index compiled from Minio-Paluello. Moreover, Schneider, the editor of Moerbeke's translation, counted #941 as two items in his list of ninety-nine manuscripts, but he omitted #324 (Oxford, Bodleian Library, MS Canon. class. lat. 174) from his list, thus making his conspectus of copies incomplete. These inconsistencies have led to various confusions. But to the count of ninety-nine manuscripts or one hundred copies of the *Rhetoric* that were known to Lacombe and Minio-Paluello, we can now add at least five further copies (including what is now a fragment) which are listed in the *Aristoteles latinus supplementa tertia* 5.7 accessed at <https://hiw.kuleuven.be/dwmc/al>, <Selective Bibliography> Supplementa tertia draft version. Schneider also listed three manuscripts containing compendia or excerpts. I am most grateful to Pieter Beullens of KU Leuven for providing me with further information about the manuscripts.

⁹¹ Charles F. Briggs, "Aristotle's *Rhetoric* in the Later Medieval Universities: A Reassessment," *Rhetorica* 25 (2007): 243–68 (at 253–4).

⁹² H. Denifle and E. Chatelain, eds., *Chartularium Universitatis Parisiensis*, 4 vols. (Paris, 1891–9; rpt. Brussels: Culture et civilisation, 1964), 1: 78; Strickland Gibson, ed., *Statuta antiqua Universitatis Oxoniensis* (Oxford: Clarendon, 1931), p. 26; Claude Lafleur and Joanne Carrier, eds., *L'enseignement de la philosophie au XIIIe siècle: Autour du "Guide de l'étudiant" du ms. Ripoll 109*, *Studia Artistarum* 5 (Turnhout: Brepols, 1997).

⁹³ These questions are studied by John O. Ward, "Rhetoric in the Faculty of Arts at the Universities of Paris and Oxford in the Middle Ages: A Summary of the Evidence," *Archivum Latinitatis medii aevii (Bulletin du Cange)* 54 (1996): 159–231. The Oxford statutes of 1431 list rhetoric as an obligatory course of study and give Aristotle's *Rhetoric*, Cicero, Ovid, and Virgil as texts; but it is not clear how this statute relates to actual teaching, and its significance as a curricular indicator has been interpreted skeptically as mere humanistic window-dressing to curry royal favor: see J. M. Fletcher, "Developments in the Faculty of Arts 1370–1520," in J. I. Catto and Ralph Evans, eds., *The History of the University of Oxford 2: Late Medieval Oxford* (Oxford: Clarendon, 1992), pp. 315–45 (at pp. 323–4).

⁹⁴ K. Margareta Fredborg, "Buridan's Quaestiones super Rhetoricam Aristotelis," in Jan Pinborg, ed., *The Logic of John Buridan* (Copenhagen: Museum Tusculanum, 1976), pp. 47–59 (at pp. 49–50).

⁹⁵ Pieter Beullens and Pieter de Leemans, "Aristote à Paris: le système de la *pecia* et les traductions de Guillaume de Moerbeke," *Recherches de théologie et philosophie médiévale* 75 (2008): 87–135.

⁹⁶ The major manuscript groupings of the *Rhetoric* were first compiled by Murphy, *Rhetoric in the Middle Ages*, p. 100; see also Briggs, "Aristotle's *Rhetoric* in the Later Medieval Universities," 254–5. It should be noted that the descriptions of the manuscripts in Lacombe and Minio-Paluello, *Aristoteles latinus codices*, can be misleading, as these entries do not always list non-Aristotelian materials that are also in the manuscripts (copied with the text or bound with it). Thus Murphy's grouping (based on Lacombe's descriptions) gives seventeen manuscripts in which the *Rhetoric* appears alone, but that number is smaller if we consider how the *Rhetoric* can also be copied or bound with other kinds of texts. Of the manuscripts known to Lacombe and Minio-Paluello, it appears alone in five: Lacombe nos. 464, 689, 1152, 1437, 1558; and with Giles of Rome's commentary: nos. 723, 726, 758.

⁹⁷ Vatican, Biblioteca Apostolica, MS Vat. lat. 2995, #1882 in Lacombe, *Aristoteles latinus codices* 1/2.

⁹⁸ Lacombe #608. The manuscript cannot be much later than c.1400, because it was already part of an inventory of the Milanese ducal libraries in 1426. It was inventoried again in 1459 without Martianus Capella. See Elisabeth Pellegrin, *La Bibliothèque des Visconti et des Sforza, ducs de Milan, au XVe siècle* (Paris: CNRS, 1955): 1426 inventory, #A 221 (p. 123); 1459 inventory, #B 490

(p. 311). See also M. D. Reeve, "The Circulation of Classical Works on Rhetoric from the 12th to the 14th Century," in Claudio Leonardi and Enrico Menestò, eds., *Retorica e poetica tra i secoli XII e XIV* (Florence: La Nuova Italia Editrice, 1988), pp. 109–24 (at p. 115 and note 5).

⁹⁹ #1795 in Lacombe, *Aristoteles latinus codices* 1/2.

¹⁰⁰ *Opus maius* III in *The "Opus Majus" of Roger Bacon*, ed. Bridges, 1: 71–2. See Irène Rosier-Catach, "Roger Bacon, Al-Farabi et Augustin: rhétorique, logique et philosophie morale," in Dahan and Rosier-Catach, eds., *La Rhétorique d'Aristote*, pp. 87–110.

¹⁰¹ Briggs, "Aristotle's *Rhetoric* in the Later Medieval Universities"; the printed editions are listed in Charles H. Lohr, " 'Medieval Latin Aristotle Commentaries: Authors A–F,' " *Traditio* 23 (1967): 313–413 (at 334–5).

¹⁰² Costantino Marmo, "L'utilizzazione delle traduzioni latine della *Retorica* nel commento di Egidio Romano (1272–1273)," in Dahan and Rosier-Catach, eds., *La Rhétorique d'Aristote*, pp. 111–34 (at pp. 111–15); Briggs, "Aristotle's *Rhetoric* in the Later Medieval Universities," p. 247. See also the introductory section on Giles' commentary in Copeland and Sluiter, *Medieval Grammar and Rhetoric*, pp. 792–6.

¹⁰³ Ubaldo Staico, "Rhetorica e politica in Egidio Romano," *Documenti e studi sulla tradizione filosofica medievale* 3 (1992): 1–75 (esp. 37); cf., P. Osmund Lewry, O.P., "Rhetoric at Paris and Oxford in the Mid Thirteenth Century," *Rhetorica* 1 (1983): 45–63 (at 56).

¹⁰⁴ Briggs, "Aristotle's *Rhetoric* in the Later Medieval Universities"; the early adumbration of this idea is in Murphy, *Rhetoric in the Middle Ages*, pp. 98–101.

¹⁰⁵ Edited in Gerardo Bruni, "The *De differentia rhetoricae, ethicae, et politicae* of Aegidius Romanus," *The New Scholasticism* 6 (1932): 1–18.

¹⁰⁶ *Rhetorica, translatio Anonyma sive Vetus et translatio Guillelmi de Moerbeke*, ed. Schneider, p. 159. All quotations from Moerbeke's translation will be from this edition.

¹⁰⁷ See Costantino Marmo, " 'Suspicio': A Key Word in the Significance of Aristotle's *Rhetoric* in Thirteenth-Century Scholasticism," *CIMAGL* 60 (1990): 145–98. Giles' exposition of this principle of degrees of certitude is translated in Copeland and Sluiter, *Medieval Grammar and Rhetoric*, pp. 797–9.

¹⁰⁸ Aegidius Romanus, *Commentaria in Rhetoricam Aristotelis* (Venice, 1515), 1va.

¹⁰⁹ Copeland and Sluiter, *Medieval Grammar and Rhetoric*, pp. 799–800.

¹¹⁰ Ed. Venice, 1515, 7va–b; Marmo, " 'Suspicio,' " p. 190.

¹¹¹ See Gillespie, "Ethice Subponitur?" on the moral dimensions of poetic as a form of logic: the logical faculty of poetry serves a moral sensibility by allowing readers to test perceptions of reality; see further the contextual discussions of Giles' exegetical work in A. J. Minnis and A. B. Scott, with David Wallace, *Medieval Literary Theory and Criticism, c.1100–1375: The Commentary Tradition* (Oxford: Clarendon, 1988), pp. 201–2, and the commentary on the Song of Songs, pp. 243–7.

¹¹² Ed. Venice, 1515, 4va.

¹¹³ Ed. Venice, 1515, 8ra.

¹¹⁴ Copeland and Sluiter, *Medieval Grammar and Rhetoric*, p. 810.

¹¹⁵ Ed. Venice, 1515, 77va.

¹¹⁶ Ed. Venice, 1515, 76va.

¹¹⁷ Notably he uses Aristotle in his general definition of anger, *Summa* 2.1, q. 47.

¹¹⁸ Mark D. Jordan, “Aquinas’s Construction of a Moral Account of the Passions,” *Freiburger Zeitschrift für Philosophie und Theologie* 33 (1986): 71–97 (at pp. 76, 82, 86).

¹¹⁹ See this chapter, pp. 172–5.

¹²⁰ For background on this terminology in Plato, see Simo Knuuttila and Juha Sihvola, “How the Philosophical Analysis of Emotions was Introduced,” in Sihvola and Engberg-Pedersen, eds., *The Emotions in Hellenistic Philosophy*, pp. 1–21.

¹²¹ Colish, *The Stoic Tradition from Antiquity to the Early Middle Ages* 2: 42–85 (on Jerome, pp. 76–9).

¹²² Simo Knuuttila, “Medieval Theories of the Passions of the Soul,” in Lagerlund and Yrjönsuuri, eds., *Emotions and Choice from Boethius to Descartes*, pp. 49–83 (at p. 52). On Augustine, see also Colish, *The Stoic Tradition* 2: 142–238 especially, 221–25 on *apatheia*.

¹²³ Knuuttila, “Passions of the Soul,” pp. 53–4, and with more detail in *Emotions*, pp. 152–72.

¹²⁴ See the survey in Damien Boquet, “Des racines de l’émotion: Les préaffects et le tournant anthropologique du XIIe siècle,” in Nagy and Boquet, eds., *Le sujet des émotions au moyen âge*, pp. 163–86, and Knuuttila, *Emotions*, pp. 172–212. On the precepts of *apatheia* in relation to virtue and vice in monastic self-discipline going back to Evagrius Ponticus in the fourth century, see Richard Newhauser, *The Early History of Greed: The Sin of Avarice in Early Medieval Thought and Literature* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2000), pp. 47–64.

¹²⁵ Dag Nikolaus Hasse, *Avicenna’s “De anima” in the Latin West: The Formation of a Peripatetic Philosophy of the Soul, 1160–1300* (London: Warburg Institute, 2000), pp. 10–12.

¹²⁶ *Avicenna Latinus: Liber de anima seu sextus de naturalibus* 4–5, ed. S. van Riet (Louvain: Éditions Orientalistes, 1968), 4.4, pp. 54–67; *Psychologie d’Ibn Sina (Avicenne) d’après son oeuvre aš-Šifā’*, ed. and trans. Ján Bakoš, 2 vols. (Prague: Éditions de l’Académie tchécoslovaque des sciences, 1956), 2: 137–42. See also Knuuttila, “Passions of the Soul,” pp. 59–64.

¹²⁷ Jean de la Rochelle, *Summa de anima*, ed. Jacques Guy Bougerol (Paris: Vrin, 1995), 2.104–8, pp. 253–65; Knuuttila, “Passions of the Soul,” pp. 66–9.

¹²⁸ See Nicholas E. Lombardo, *The Logic of Desire: Aquinas on Emotion* (Washington, DC: Catholic University of America Press, 2010), especially chapter 2, “The Structure of the Passions,” pp. 49–74.

¹²⁹ Lombardo, *Logic of Desire*, p. 3; Jordan, “Aquinas Construction of a Moral Account of the Passions,” pp. 75, 83. See also Jordan Loveridge, “Rhetorical Deliberation, Memory, and Sensation in the Thought of Thomas Aquinas,” *Philosophy and Rhetoric* 50 (2017): 178–200.

¹³⁰ On Aquinas’ treatment of emotions in the *Summa*, see Kevin White, “The Passions of the Soul (Ia IIae, qq. 22–48),” in Stephen J. Pope, ed., *The Ethics of Aquinas* (Washington, DC: Georgetown University Press, 2002), pp. 103–15, and the references there. See also Alain Boureau, “Un sujet agité: Le statut nouveau des passions de l’âme au XIIIe siècle,” in Nagy and Boquet, eds., *Le sujet des émotions*, pp. 187–200, and Peter King, “Aquinas on the Passions,” in Scott MacDonald and Eleonore Stump, eds., *Aquinas’s Moral Theory: Essays in Honor of Norman Kretzmann* (Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 1999), pp. 101–32.

¹³¹ See Robert Miner, *Thomas Aquinas on the Passions: A Study of Summa Theologiae Ia2ae 22–48* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2009), pp. 88–92.

¹³² Lombardo, *Logic of Desire*, pp. 40–3; on the relationship to the *Rhetoric*, see also Susan James, *Passion and Action: The Emotions in Seventeenth-Century Philosophy* (Oxford: Clarendon, 1997), chapter 3, “Passion and Action in Aquinas,” pp. 47–64.

¹³³ Costantino Marmo, “ ‘Hoc autem etsi potest tollerari...’: Egidio Romano e Tommaso d’Aquino sulle passioni dell’anima,” *Documenti e studi sulla tradizione filosofica medievale* 2 (1991): 281–315.

¹³⁴ Further details in Marmo, “Hoc autem etsi,” pp. 296–301; J. R. O’Donnell, “The Commentary of Giles of Rome on the *Rhetoric* of Aristotle,” in T. A. Sandquist and M. R. Powicke, eds., *Essays in Mediaeval History Presented to Bertie Wilkinson* (Toronto: University of Toronto Press, 1969), pp. 139–56 (at pp. 151–3).

¹³⁵ Marmo, “Hoc autem etsi,” pp. 301–5; Fiammeta Papi, “Aristotle’s Emotions in Giles of Rome’s *De regimine principum* and in its Vernacular Translations (with a Note on Dante’s *Convivio* III, 8, 10,” *Annali della Scuola Normale di Pisa (Classe di Lettere e Filosofia)*, series 5, 8 (2016): 73–104.

¹³⁶ Jean Buridan, *Questiones in Rhetoricam Aristotelis* 2.q.1, “Utrum ad rhetoricam pertinet determinare de passionibus,” in Fredborg, “Buridan’s Quaestiones,” p. 57. Jean de Jandun’s *Quaestiones* survives in eight manuscripts, Buridan’s *Quaestiones* in two manuscripts.

¹³⁷ Karin Margareta Fredborg, “The Scholastic Teaching of Rhetoric in the Middle Ages,” *CIMAGL* 55 (1987): 85–105.

¹³⁸ *Questiones* 1.q.3, ed. Costantino Marmo, “Retorica e motti di spirito: Una ‘Quaestio’ inedita di Giovanni di Jandun,” in Patrizia Magli et al., eds., *Semiotica: Storia, teoria, interpretazione. Saggi intorno a Umberto Eco* (Milan: Bompiani, 1992), pp. 25–41 (at p. 39).

¹³⁹ Buridan, *Questiones in Rhetoricam Aristotelis*, 1.q.5, quoted by permission from the unpublished transcription by Bernadette Preben-Hansen.

¹⁴⁰ Jean de Jandun, *Questiones* 1.q.3, ed. Marmo, “Retorica e motti di spirito,” pp. 39–40. Corrected quotations from *Rhetorica ad Herennium* and *De inventione* in brackets.

¹⁴¹ See [Chapter 1](#), pp. 39–41.

5

De regimine principum

Emotion, Persuasion, and Political Thought

Aristotle's *Rhetoric* in Moerbeke's translation was known to many Latinate elites, to scholars and scholarly clerics who would receive it in the framework of moral philosophy. But it was to become known to many more people, not only scholars but also lay audiences in Latin and vernacular languages, through the work that Giles of Rome wrote only a few years after his commentary on the *Rhetoric*: his enormously successful mirror of princes, *De regimine principum*. Giles' book was to be the largest medieval conduit for the ideas contained in the *Rhetoric*. Through his incorporation of Aristotle's rhetorical thought, medieval audiences across Europe and in multiple languages were exposed to the Aristotelian emphasis on audience psychology and social ethics, as well as the conception of emotion as a property of politics. In the totality of its design and its message, the *De regimine principum* shows how emotions can be internal to proof, that is, to the mechanisms of persuasion.

It is rare to be able to track a radical innovation in the thought of one medieval intellectual in the course of less than a decade. But this is something that we can claim about Giles of Rome in the years 1271–2, the period when he was first tackling the *Rhetoric* in his extensive commentary, and the years between 1277 and 1281, when he wrote *De regimine principum*. In writing his mirror of princes, he turned from depending on long-established authority about the nature of the soul to embrace a new model of psychological knowledge. Of course, in this transference of allegiance, that “new” model was even older than the late antique and

medieval *auctores* whom he was, in effect, leaving behind. In *De regimine principum* we witness him exchanging a proven and well-oiled medieval tradition of the “affectations of the soul” for the rhetorical knowledge made possible by Aristotle’s text. As we have seen, when writing his commentary and first grappling with the ideas of the *Rhetoric*, Giles did not capture the full cognitive and ethical force of Aristotle’s distinctive phenomenology of the emotions in book 2. Rather, he tried to filter Aristotle’s discussion of emotions through the accepted conventions of scholastic thought and the older traditions it carried with it. But we might imagine that in the years between finishing the commentary and beginning his political treatise, he revisited the *Rhetoric* and digested the fuller implications of its approach to the emotions. In *De regimine principum* he does capture the essence of Aristotle’s distinctive phenomenology of the emotions. In his treatise he understands and represents the passions as a genuinely political force. He achieves this, not by rehearsing what Aristotle said, but by turning Aristotle’s idea of contingent persuasion through the emotions into a program of contingent rule and self-rule for the prince. Here, I will explore how *De regimine principum* inverts Aristotle’s analysis of audience passions which an orator must understand, turning this around to present the passions that the ruler must understand in himself so that he can be persuasive in speech and actions.

At the time that Giles began *De regimine principum*, he was precociously accomplished. Still in his thirties, he was already a seasoned commentator on Peter Lombard and much Aristotelian science and philosophy along with the *Rhetoric*. But he wrote *De regimine principum* under unusual conditions, during an institutional crisis when his own career was imperiled.¹ In 1277 he was forced to retreat from the University of Paris because he was among those censured by the Parisian bishop Etienne Tempier for entertaining certain Aristotelian doctrines that might be heterodox. Although he did not receive the full brunt of Tempier’s condemnations, which were aimed at those decried as “Averroists” in the arts faculty, some of the positions he was thought to have advanced in his commentary on the Lombard’s *Sentences* were censured. He was to endure an eight-year interruption of his university career before his positions were re-examined and he could return to the University of Paris in 1285.² It is not clear where he spent the years immediately following the condemnations. He is known to have been at the Augustinians’ chapter general at Padua by

1281, but it is possible that he remained in Paris until then. A common theory has been that he was employed during this time by the French king Philip III as tutor to his son Philip (the future Philip IV, “the Fair”). The only certainty behind this attractive theory is that he dedicated *De regimine* to the young Philip, who would ascend to the throne in 1285 at the age of seventeen. In presenting the work to the young Philip, Giles says it was written at the prince’s request: he flatters the boy prince by praising his “divine instinct” in seeking out the kind of instruction that will enable him to preserve the justice of his kingdom by “law and intellect” rather than by “passion and will.”³ Perhaps it was the royal father rather than the prince who actually requested the work. But in any case, almost immediately after *De regimine* was finished, King Philip III commissioned Henri de Gauchy to translate it into French; the earliest manuscript of the French text is dated 1282, so that we know that there was a virtually seamless transition from “publication” of the Latin text to its first vernacular appearance.⁴

De regimine principum proved the most popular of all the medieval mirrors of princes, and indeed one of the best known books of any kind. In its Latin version it survives in close to 300 manuscripts.⁵ Giles was associated with three networks of book production, the Augustinians, the Capetian court, and especially the University of Paris, and these connections were early factors in the diffusion of the text.⁶ But while many early fourteenth-century copies can be linked with the University of Paris and its academic book trade, copies from various parts of Europe throughout the fourteenth century to much later show that the text penetrated many milieux beyond the universities, including all kinds of religious foundations and noble households.⁷ Its popularity also extended beyond aristocratic and clerical circles through the proliferation of translations into almost every Western European vernacular. Within a decade or so of its completion it had not only been translated into French (Henri de Gauchy’s translation, which survives in thirty-one manuscripts) but also into the Sienese dialect of Italian (1288).⁸ Over the fourteenth and fifteenth centuries, it was to be translated another six times into French, and five times again into Italian. Multiple versions of it are found in German dialects. It was also translated or adapted, in whole or in part, into Castilian, Catalan, English, Flemish, Hebrew, and Swedish; a Portuguese version is attested but does not survive. Adding the manuscripts of the translated

versions together with those of the Latin text produces a total of nearly 380 copies. The circulation and impact of Giles' *De regimine* was part of the growing dossier of vernacular Aristotelianism.⁹

With such reach it is obvious how *De regimine principum* could become the chief vehicle for the dissemination of Aristotelian rhetorical thought. What became popular when the text reached into so many different circles of readers? In terms of the authorities it draws on by name, the text is almost a digest of the moral philosophy compilations in which Aristotle's *Rhetoric* were commonly circulating. Giles cites Aristotle's *Politics* most often (235 explicit citations), as might be expected in a work dedicated to political theory and action. He cites the *Ethics* 185 times. The *Rhetoric* is third among his cited sources, mentioned ninety times, with concentrated attention in book 1.¹⁰ Other authorities include the *Metaphysics*, Vegetius' *De re militari*, and the pseudo-Aristotelian *Magna moralia*. Thus a reader's experience of the work would be like having a thematic introduction to one of the new omnibus collections containing the *Politics*, *Ethics*, and *Rhetoric*, especially during the decades when audiences were coming to know Aristotle's moral philosophy in its totality. Indeed, readers of the work were aware of its synthesis of Aristotelian moral thought.¹¹ In its internal structure, *De regimine* reproduces a traditional medieval division of moral science or practical philosophy into care of the self, or ethics (book 1), rule of the household, or economics (book 2), and governance of the state, or politics (book 3), a division that reflected a long tradition enfolding Aristotle in the field of the practical sciences.¹² Presenting a kind of Aristotelian moral syllabus no doubt added to the teaching value of *De regimine*; conversely, its success ensured the broadest knowledge of the materials it deftly epitomized or paraphrased, including the *Rhetoric*. In fact, as Janet Coleman has noted, the divisions of *De regimine* book 1 strikingly reproduce the order of themes treated in *Rhetoric* books 1 and 2. Aristotle treats the ethical topic of happiness in *Rhetoric* 1.5, topics concerning the virtues in 1.9, the passions in 2.1–11, and characteristics of youth, old age, prime of life, nobility, wealth, and power in 2.12–17. In its turn, book 1 of *De regimine* is divided into the proper felicities of a prince's *modus vivendi* (1.1.), the twelve virtues (1.2), the passions (1.3), and the characters of young and old, rich and powerful (1.4).¹³

Thus the readers of *De regimine* in its original Latin form as well as many of its vernacular translations would have encountered much of Aristotle's text, including two-thirds of book 2. Although it does not teach the *Rhetoric* in technical detail, *De regimine* conveys the import of much of Aristotelian rhetoric.

But to encounter these ideas, readers had to be drawn to the text in the first place, and had to return to it and recommend it to others. What was it that made *De regimine* unusually attractive among mirrors of princes so that all of the other factors—its Aristotelian content, the experience of reading it, its reiteration of the structure of moral philosophy—could fall into place? Scholars have pointed to various kinds of innovations that fueled its success. In terms of its contents, book 2 anticipates (by more than a decade) the appearance in Latin of the pseudo-Aristotelian *Economics* by treating the domestic economy of any elite household, not just royal families; in so doing it extended its practical relevance to audiences beyond the ruling classes. The work also provides an essence of Aristotelian thought judged in terms of its immediate practical and moral value, without getting bogged down in overly fine distinctions, thus moving Aristotelian philosophy out of narrower academic confines.¹⁴ It is also stylistically distinctive among mirrors of princes. Unlike precedents in the genre, notably John of Salisbury's influential *Policraticus*, Vincent of Beauvais' *De eruditione filium nobilium*, the *Eruditione regum et principum* by the Franciscan Guibert of Tournai, or the sections devoted to princely advice in the widely circulated *Secretum secretorum*, and unlike the later *de casibus* narrative tradition, Giles' *De regimine* does not depend on illustrative exempla about virtue, piety, and wisdom taken from Scripture or classical sources.¹⁵ Apart from its opening dedication to Philip IV it is largely free of historical examples that would tie it to particular circumstances. That these features did not impede its success but seem to have fueled it might appear counter-intuitive, as its preference for exposition at a level of general principles gives it the stylistic effect of a scholastic treatise. Yet in mostly refraining from exempla, homilies, and recent history, it operates at a theoretical level that seems to have made it movable across time, places, languages, institutions, and communities of readers. Even while it loosens the tighter knots of philosophical discourse, it appeals continually to the reasoning powers of its audiences.

While these factors can account in many ways for its success, they are all also functions of the text's deepest purpose, the engine that drives it forward from within. In its core structure and objective, *De regimine principum* is a persuasive oration.¹⁶ The work was overwhelmingly popular because it internalized and actualized Aristotelian teaching about persuasion. Although it describes itself as a book of instruction for princes (“[liber] de eruditione principum,” 1 Prologue, p. 1), it differs from other mirrors of princes because it couches its delivery of rules in a coherent structure of argument that seeks to change minds rather than merely instruct.

Moreover, it frames its instruction of rulers in terms of how they themselves can be persuasive in governing their kingdoms, putting the best case before their advisors and subjects. This is the justification that he makes in book 2 for the special importance of teaching rhetoric to the children of “free men” and nobles (“necessaria est filiis liberorum et nobilium”), and especially to kings and princes, that they should be able to converse with other people and rule the populace (2.2.8, 1607 ed., p. 307).¹⁷ In this way, *De regimine principum* is a persuasive teaching about persuasion. Here lies the most profound explanation for its spectacular reach. It moved readers.

5.1 *Figuralis et grossus*

Giles gives expression to this fundamental purpose in the first chapter of book 1. His intentions are made plain in his pronouncements there. But also important is what guides him implicitly, for he frames the explanation of his project in rhetorical terms that he takes from Aristotle. [Chapter 1](#) lays out what will be the “mode of proceeding” in the whole work. Invoking Aristotle’s *Metaphysics* 7, Giles declares that the parameters of a discussion should be subject to what the matter at hand requires.¹⁸ As his own work will treat “de regimine Principum, sive Regum...artem et notitiam” (the art and knowledge of the governance of princes or kings), the matter at hand is morals, and its *modus procedendi* must be specific to this art.

Citing *Ethics* book 1, Giles goes on to describe this mode of proceeding, in a passage that has become famous for advocating a kind of broad

speaking:

Sciendum ergo, quod in toto morali negotio modus procedendi secundum Philosophum est figuralis et grossus; oportet enim in talibus typo et figuraliter pertransire, quia gesta moralia complete sub narratione non cadunt.

(1.1.1, 1607 ed., p. 2)

We must know, then, that according to the Philosopher [*Ethics* 1094b19, book 1], the mode of proceeding in every moral matter is *figuralis et grossus*; it is necessary to apprehend (*pertransire*) such things in terms of their type and *figuraliter*, because moral acts do not lend themselves fully to narration.

The words “figuralis” and “grossus” (which I have at this point deliberately not translated) are the terms that Grosseteste used in his translation of the cited passage in the *Ethics* to render notions from the Greek *typō* (by sketch, by figure, by archetype) and *pachylos* (coarsely, roughly).¹⁹ In the *Ethics*, Aristotle justifies the comparative imprecision of discussion that the matter of morals requires, for there is “variety and fluctuation” in political and social actions, and this matter cannot be subject to the fine-tuned expositions of demonstrative logic. In ethics, the premises as well as the conclusions drawn are only true for the most part. Such premises will “indicate the truth roughly and in outline” (1094b19–25).²⁰

The philosophical definitions that Giles inherited for the terms *figuralis* and *grossus* are illuminating. In his commentary on the *Ethics* (written between 1248 and 1252), Albertus Magnus had glossed Grosseteste’s *figuraliter* as “through imperfect arguments,” which is a good capturing of the Greek meaning. He had glossed *grosse* as “through examples perceptible to the senses (*per sensibilia exempla*) and through everyday proverbs (*proverbia vulgaria*) which many people use.”²¹ These are both plausible for Aristotle’s meaning, although Aristotle says nothing here about examples and proverbs. Indeed, the definition of *grosse* seems far from Giles’ own method, with its infrequent recourse to *exempla*. Nevertheless, the notion of exemplarity was to catch on among vernacular responses to *De regimine*, as Henri de Gauchy’s influential translation soon rendered the phrase “figuralis et grossus” as “grosse et par essample.”²²

More immediately compelling for thinking about Giles’ conception of his project are Aquinas’ glosses in his commentary on the *Ethics*, written 1271–2, much closer to the time when Giles composed *De regimine*. Aquinas glosses Grosseteste’s *figuraliter* as “verisimiliter.” “Verisimiliter”

in Aquinas' text does not mean "speaking figuratively" in a narrow sense; rather, it suggests "by approximation (to truth)." The term *verisimilis* (or *veri similis*) was closely associated with rhetoric, as in Cicero's influential definition of invention: "excogitatio rerum verarum aut veri similium quae causam probabilem reddant" (a thinking out of things true or like truth which render our case probable) [*De inventione* 1.7.9]. Here "verisimilitude" betokens the probabilities rather than certainties that form the basis of rhetorical arguments. *Similitudo*, the base word, was itself part of the semantic field of metaphor, where it means a likeness or a comparison, as in *Rhetorica ad Herennium* 4.34.45–6 and 4.45.59–4.48.51.²³ Thus, although Grosseteste had used *figuraliter* in a non-literary sense to render the idea of the Greek *typō*, by sketch (cf., a basic meaning of *figura* as a sketch or shape, something rendered "schematically"), Aquinas' gloss *verisimiliter* brings the word within the semantic range of both rhetoric and poetics. This is certainly the sense that John Trevisa took for Giles' term *figuralis* in his English translation of *De regimine principum*, where he renders the word literally as "figural" and then glosses it with "likeness": "the maner of processe, as þe philosofer seith, is figural, þat is to say by liknes...For in suche mater it nedep to passe by figures and liknes."²⁴ Aquinas explains *grosse* as "applicando universalia principia et simplicia ad singularia et composita, in quibus est actus. Necessarium est enim in qualibet operativa scientia ut procedatur modo compositivo" (by applying universal principles to singulars and by proceeding from the simple universal to the complex particular where acts are concerned. For it is necessary in every practical science to proceed in a composite [i.e., deductive] manner).²⁵ This definition takes *grosse* as a structured mode of argumentation in itself, not simply a stylistic device, as in Albertus Magnus' understanding that it means using affective examples and everyday proverbs. In effect, Aquinas treats *grosse* as a kind of shorthand for one kind of enthymematic reasoning, moving deductively from generalized commonplaces to particular circumstances.

Thus, closest to Giles in terms of time and line of influence was an interpretation of "grosse et figuraliter veritatem ostendere" that connects this passage from the *Ethics* with rhetoric (and indirectly with the poetic language of rhetoric). This sense of the proximity of ethics and rhetoric will emerge explicitly when, as we will see, Giles frames his *modus procedendi* by citing the *Rhetoric*. He will write in a manner that is *figuralis et grossus*,

“schematic” and rough, in order to serve three interests: his moral and political subject matter, the purpose or end of the art of governance and politics that *De regimine* teaches, and, just as important, the audience that is to be instructed.

With respect to the first, he stresses that teaching about the governance of princes involves human actions and “materia moralis” (1.1.1,1607 ed., p. 3), and refers to *Ethics* 2.2 and 1.3 to underscore that moral matters are “variable” and carry “great unpredictability” (“magnum incertitudinem”), and that a discipline can be expounded only with as much certainty as the nature of its material permits: therefore the job of the geometer is not to persuade but demonstrate, whereas the job of the rhetorician is not to demonstrate but persuade (cf., *Ethics* 1.3, 1095b25–7). With regard to the second interest, the aims of the art of moral science, he offers further arguments based on the *Ethics*: the end of this art is not contemplation, but becoming good, not knowledge but works, not truth but goodness (*Ethics* 2.2, 1103b27–9). While “subtle reasonings” enlighten the intellect, “superficiales vero et grossae magis moveant et inflamment affectum” (obvious and rough arguments have more power, in fact, to move and inflame the affections). This teaching aims to move the will to desire what is good: thus one must proceed “persuasive et figuraliter” (1.1.1,1607 ed., pp. 3–4).

It is a short step from the ethical motives of inflaming the affections, inculcating love of the good, and proceeding “persuasively,” to the claims of rhetoric, which structure the third of the interests determining his procedure. Here Giles turns to the needs of the audience, “ex parte auditoris” who are the objects of the instruction to be delivered. He builds his contentions with the explicit support of Aristotle’s *Rhetoric*:

Nam licet intitulatus sit hic liber de eruditione principum, totus tamen populus erudiendus est per ipsum. Quamvis enim non quilibet possit esse rex vel princeps, quilibet tamen summopere studere debet, ut talis sit, quod dignus sit regere et principari, quod esse non potest, nisi sciantur, et observentur, quae in hoc opere sunt dicenda; totus ergo populus auditor quodammodo est huius artis, sed pauci sunt vigentes acumine intellectus, propter quod dicitur 3. Rhetoricorum, quod quanto maior est populus, remotior est intellectus. Auditor ergo moralis negotii est simplex et grossus, ut ostendit in I. Rhetoricorum. Cum igitur totus populus subtilia comprehendere non possit, incedendum est in morali negotio figuraliter et grosse. Immo quia (secundum Philosophum in Politicis) quae oportet dominum scire praecipere, haec oportet subditum scire facere; si per hunc librum instruuntur principes, quomodo debeant se habere, et qualiter debeant suis subditis imperare, oportet doctrinam hanc extendere usque ad populum, ut sciat qualiter debeat suis principibus obedire. Et quia hoc fieri

non potest (ut tactum est) nisi per rationes superficiales et sensibiles, oportet modum procedendi in hoc opere, esse grossum et figuralem. (1.1.1,1607 ed., p. 4)

Now although this book is called On the Instruction of Princes, nevertheless the whole people is to be instructed through it. Although not everyone can be a king or a prince, anyone ought to strive intensively so that one may be the kind of person who is worthy to govern and rule, which one cannot be unless the matters to be set forth in this work are understood and heeded. For in a way the whole populace is an audience of this art, but few are empowered with intellectual acumen, on account of which it is said in *Rhetoric* 3 [1414a8–10] that “the bigger the multitude the more understanding recedes.” Therefore the audience of [discourse about] moral matters is simple and unsophisticated, as Aristotle shows in *Rhetoric* 1 [1357a10–12]. Since the populace as a whole cannot understand subtleties, moral teaching must be approached schematically and roughly. Indeed (according to the Philosopher in the *Politics* [1255b34–5]), what befits a lord to know how to command befits a subject to know how to execute. Therefore, since this book instructs princes in how they ought to manage themselves and how they ought to command their subjects, it is fitting to extend this teaching to the whole people, so that they may know in what way they should obey their princes. And since this cannot be accomplished (as has already been touched upon) except through arguments that are obvious and felt by the senses, it is fitting that the mode of proceeding in this work be rough and “schematic.”

Making the capacities of the audience one of the anchors of his *modus procedendi* corresponds directly to Aristotle’s injunctions in the *Rhetoric* about matching discourse to audience. It also recalls Aristotle’s second means of proof, “per auditores autem, cum in passionem per orationem perducti fuerint” (1356a14–15), that is, when they have been led to feel emotion through the speech.

The two citations of the *Rhetoric* here are very telling. In laying out the ambitions and the character of his book, Giles shows how he understood the uses of enthymemes in relation to general audiences who need simplified discourse. The first citation, “quod quanto maior est populus, remotior est intellectus,” is Moerbeke’s translation of Aristotle’s statement in book 3, “the bigger the multitude the more understanding recedes.” Here Aristotle is concerned with the style of deliberative oratory in public assemblies, where one must paint the scene quickly and leave out details that would be lost under such conditions. But in his commentary on the *Rhetoric*, Giles had given that statement a wider pedagogical value, anticipating his pronouncements in *De regimine principum*:

Sufficit enim quod talis locutio in superficie habeat aliquam apparentiam. Non est autem curandum qualis sit in profundo. Nam ille qui concionatur loquitur populo et multis, et “quanto populus fuerit maior, tanto intellectus est remotior”...Tota enim rhetorica circa quaedam grossa et materialia versatur. *Nihil enim aliud videtur esse rhetorica nisi quaedam*

*grossa dialectica; ideo omne negocium, circa quod versatur rhetor, simpliciter et absolute grossum est.*²⁶

It is sufficient that such a speech be accessible at the surface. Profound meaning is not important. For anyone who speaks in an assembly is speaking to the people and to the masses, and “the bigger the crowd the more understanding recedes”...Rhetoric as a whole is oriented toward broad and concrete subjects. *For rhetoric seems to be nothing other than a certain kind of rough (grossa) dialectic. Thus every issue that the speaker addresses is, in a simple and absolute sense, a broad one.*

Here in the commentary, he takes the situation of speaking to crowds in deliberative matters as paradigmatic for rhetoric in general, and repeatedly deploys the adjective *grossus*, which of course goes back to Grosseteste’s phrase *grosse et figuraliter* in his translation of the *Ethics*. *Grossus*, in the sense of “schematic,” or “broad”, describes the subjects of rhetoric (“broad and concrete”). But in this passage it also suggests in a positive way the strong procedure of deduction, which is how Aquinas had glossed the term *grosse* in his commentary on the *Ethics*. Giles uses it to describe the very method of rhetoric: it is a “rough dialectic” (“*grossa dialectica*”). It is not a random use of *exempla* and proverbs, but a method firmly rooted in rhetorical logic. In *De regimine principum*, he borrows the term *grossa dialectica* from his commentary to underscore the value of teaching rhetoric to the sons of princes and nobles, for it is “quaedam grossa dialectica docens modum arguendi grossum et figuralem” (a kind of rough dialectic teaching a mode of argument that is broad and schematic) [2.2.8,1607 ed., p. 307].

These are the terms on which Aristotle presents, and Giles understands, the enthymeme as a tool of persuasion before audiences who are *simplex* and will not be able to follow a long chain of dialectical reasoning. And indeed, in the long passage from *De regimine* quoted above, Giles follows with a second reference to the *Rhetoric*, in this case to book 1 (1357a10–12), invoking the very passage where Aristotle defines the scope of the enthymeme. The words that he uses here in *De regimine*, “Auditor ergo moralis negotii est simplex et grossus,” reprise the language of his commentary on that passage in Moerbeke’s text: “in talibus iudex [id est] auditor, supponatur *simplex et grossus*” (in such [rhetorical discourses], the judge, that is, the audience, is assumed to be *simple and unsophisticated*) [8vb, at 1357a12]. The tool appropriate to the *simplex et grossus* auditor of rhetoric is the enthymeme, which is what renders rhetoric a *grossa dialectica*, a “rough dialectic.” It is a “dialectic” that has opened itself out to

public discourse through the mechanism of the enthymeme. Later on in *De regimine principum*, remembering his wording in his commentary on the *Rhetoric*, he will once again name the art of rhetoric a *grossa dialectica* when he advocates its study by the sons of princes (2.2.8, 1607 ed., p. 307).

Following Giles' mental pathways from Aristotle's *Rhetoric* to his commentary on it, we arrive at *De regimine principum* and his conception of this project. Of course, given its subject matter, the *Politics* and the *Ethics* inevitably claim more citation space in this work. But the *Rhetoric* undergirds the whole of Giles' enterprise. The audience of rhetoric, as characterized by Aristotle, is the kind of *simplex* audience that he imagines for his political treatise. Giles has borrowed the idea of the enthymeme, the tool of persuasion for a general audience, to describe his project as a whole. The sense of that recognition is deepened when he adds that the reasonings must be obvious (*superficiales*) and felt by the senses (*sensibiles*).²⁷ If he does not mention the enthymeme here or anywhere, that is because he does not intend to teach about rhetoric, but rather to use the method of rhetoric to teach. This is the tool that will anchor his teaching of political discourse, and the discourse that his princely student is to deploy in his rule, in a decisive, positive method.²⁸ The audience of *De regimine* is understood as the audience of any oration, especially deliberative rhetoric: it is, as he tells us, the public, both the princes who are the immediate beneficiaries of its teaching, and those ruled by the prince, who must also be persuaded of the mutuality of rulers and subjects.

De regimine principum thus aims to be a *persuasive* art of politics, and here lies the success that it achieved among readers throughout Europe and across social registers. Ubaldo Staico has argued that the *De regimine* enlarges on the methodology that Giles discovered in the *Rhetoric* when he was writing his extensive commentary on it.²⁹ Here I intend to show how Giles internalized and deployed two critical elements of Aristotle's rhetorical thought: the passions as a form of *pistis* or proof, and the importance of enthymematic argument. The persuasiveness of *De regimine principum* is seated in the power of its enthymematic approach. But this in turn depends on the way that it presents emotions.

5.2 A Political *Rhetoric* of the Emotions

All that we know about Giles of Rome's attitude to the passions we owe to two works, his commentary on the *Rhetoric* and *De regimine principum*.³⁰ The treatise on the passions in *De regimine principum* book 1 part 3 is couched in the language of ethics: Giles inaugurates his overview of the emotions with a justification that echoes the *Ethics*, that one cannot rule oneself unless one controls the passions, knowing which ones are good and which ones are detrimental (1.3.2, 1607 ed., p. 156). But this account of the passions must be contextualized in the overall rhetorical-political framework of the *De regimine*. Together, books 3 and 4 of part 1, on the passions and on the characteristics of the young, the old, the nobility, the rich, and the powerful, contain the highest proportion of citations from the *Rhetoric*, all from *Rhetoric* book 2, which drives these related analytics. Here, however, the knowledge derived from the *Rhetoric* is to be converted into action, just as the passions themselves condition actions:

Passiones autem quia diversificant regnum et vitam nostram, ideo necessarium est ostendere quomodo nos habere debeamus ad illas. (1.3.3, 1607 ed., p. 159)

Because the passions effect differences in ruling and in our life, it is necessary to show in what way we ought to conduct ourselves in relation to them.

Si ergo omnes hae passiones diversificare habent omnes operationes nostras, decet nos omnes eas cognoscere. (1.3.10, 1607 ed., p. 183)

If all these passions effect differences in all our works, it behooves us to know them all.

The aim of the knowledge delivered here is not wisdom or even happiness, but a pragmatic recognition of the diversities of social behavior. The notion of “keeping (i.e., conducting) ourselves” in relation to the emotions signals how this account will be on a different footing from the (comparatively) inert or tradition-bound reading of book 2 of the *Rhetoric* in Giles' commentary. And indeed, the reiterated pronouncement that the “passions effect differences” in life and in actions captures the spirit of Aristotle's basic definition of emotional proof as rooted in behavior (1356a15): “non enim similiter reddimus iudicia tristes et gaudentes, vel amantes et odientes” (for the judgments we render are not the same when we are joyful or sorrowful, influenced by love or hate).

In *De regimine*, Giles borrows from his earlier commentary the order and taxonomy of emotions that he had presented in his *declarationes* on *Rhetoric* book 2. There he had laid out twelve emotions, six of the concupiscent appetite—love, hate, desire, abomination, delectation, and

sorrow—and six of the irascible appetite—hope, despair, fear, courage, wrath, and mansuetude. The last of these, mansuetude or calmness as the opposite of anger, had been one of his main additions to the taxonomy of eleven passions that he had inherited from Aquinas' *Summa*. It is natural that in *De regimine* he has recourse to the introductory “essays” or *declarationes* on the passions that he had produced for his commentary, as his fundamental classification of emotions has not changed. He even invokes the commentary (presumably if anyone wanted further details): “De quibus omnibus in Rhetoricis diffusius diximus, haec autem sufficient superficialiter pertransire” (Since we spoke about these matters more extensively in the *Rhetoric* [commentary], it suffices to pass over them lightly) [1.3.1, 1607 ed., p. 155]. But at the same time, he will redirect his earlier understanding of the passions to their place in political life, given that they now occupy so emphatic a place in a treatise on governance. While his reliance on recent philosophical psychology has not ebbed, the pragmatism that characterizes the whole treatise—a mirror of princes in which, as Roberto Lambertini has put it, the prince will see himself not as a *sapiens mundi* but as a politician equipped with the best practical skills—will be in evidence here as well.³¹

In keeping with his earlier understanding, the primary emotion in importance, and thus in order, must be love. Love is the primary expression of the “desiring” (concupiscible) appetite, and because appetite in itself first tends to the good, insofar as it shuns evil it has a notion of good (“appetitus per se et primo tendit in bonum...inquantum fugere malum habet rationem boni,” 1.3.2, 1607 ed., p. 157). This closely echoes some of the language of Aquinas' treatise on the passions in the *Summa* (I–II, qq. 27–8, “ratio boni”). For Aquinas, love is the driving force of action and stands at the beginning of all actions: every agent acts for an end, and the end is the good that is desired and loved.³² But in *De regimine principum* this inherited account of love assumes another value: to place it so prominently at the head of a discourse on the passions in a treatise on governance is to suggest that the basic desire for the good can be harnessed toward persuasive ends. In other words, the desire for the good can also be a deep persuasive mechanism, as the prince is asked to recognize, understand, and act on that fundamental tendency of human appetite. It is not merely information, but the beginning of that program of “conducting ourselves” in relation to the emotions.

This inaugural explanation of love serves as passage into a rich and rather surprising discussion of love of the “common good.” If (following Aquinas) the object of love is always the good, then greater than individual good is that which is invested in God and in the common good. As it says in *Ethics* 1.2, the common good is more divine than the individual good, which is already included in the common good, and thus the common good takes precedence (1.3.3, 1607 ed., pp. 159–60). Here, Giles supplies an illustrative analogy and one of his rare historical examples:

Naturaliter enim videmus partem se exponere pro toto, ut brachium se exponit periculo pro corpore, ex naturali enim instinctu cum quis vult percuti, ne vulnerentur membra a quibus principaliter dependet salus corporis, et ne totum corpus pereat, brachium periculo se exponit. Sic etiam antiquitus si perspeximus civitatem aliquam dominari et tenere monarchiam; hoc erat, quia cives pro re publica non dubitabant se morti exponere. Dilectatio enim quam habebant Romani ad rem publicam fecit Romam esse principantem et monarcham.

(1.3.3, 1607 ed., p. 160)

For according to the laws of nature, we see that a part exposes itself [to danger] on behalf of the whole, as an arm exposes itself to danger on behalf of the body out of natural instinct when we know we’re going to be hurt; lest the other parts on which the well-being of the whole body depends be hurt, the arm exposes itself to danger so that the whole body not perish. In ancient times, as we have observed, a city was ruled and a monarch was master, because the citizens did not hesitate to expose themselves to death on behalf of the “res publica.” For the affection that the Romans had for the *res publica* made Rome a principality and a monarchy.

The analogy of the “body politic” with the members of an organic body is traditional, going back to antiquity.³³ Much more original, and quite complicated in its genealogy, is the invocation of Rome and the Romans who, out of “love” for the *res publica*, willingly transformed their state into a monarchy. What inspired this reference to Rome, especially as a model of felicitous monarchy, and what is its rhetorical effect here in the context of the exposition of love, the most important of the passions?

An intriguing intertext for this may be the work *De regno ad regem Cypri* (On Kingship: to the King of Cyprus), a treatise that circulated under Aquinas’ name.³⁴ *De regno* argues that monarchy best serves the common good, in the same way that in nature multiplicity is best ruled by a principal mover (the heart moves the body, bees are governed by one “king”), and that a good ruler is a bulwark against tyranny either by one person or by an oligarchy (book 1 [chapter 2](#)). The best and the worst kinds of rule are latent in monarchy, and when tyranny manifests itself, monarchy is despised. As a

historical example of this, the author refers to the Romans, quoting from Sallust's *Bellum Catilinae* (possibly via Augustine, *De civitate Dei* 5.12):

Horum quidem exemplum evidenter apparet in Romana republica. Regibus enim a populo Romano expulsis, dum regium vel potius tyrannicum fastum ferre non possent, instituerant sibi consules et alios magistratus per quos regi coeperunt et dirigi, regnum in aristocratiam commutare volentes et, sicut refert Salustius: incredibile est memoratu, quantum, adepta libertate, in brevi Romana civitas creverit.³⁵

A clear example of this comes from the Roman “res publica.” When the kings were expelled by the Roman people, since they could not abide the haughtiness of kings or, better, of tyrants, they set up for themselves consuls and other magistrates by whom they began to be ruled and governed. They willingly turned their kingdom into an aristocracy, and, as Sallust reports, “it is almost incredible how much, once liberty was secured, the Roman state grew strong in a short time.”

(*Bellum Catilinae* 6.7)

The *De regno* goes on to say that such a republican rule under appointed leaders held for a while and Rome prospered under it because the people were keen to strive for the state when everyone could see how the benefits of the common good accrued to each citizen rather than all going to a single ruler. But this did not last, as Rome fell victim to civil wars:

Sed tamen dissensionibus fatigabantur continuis, quae usque ad bella civilia excreverunt, quibus bellis civilibus eis libertas ad quam multum studuerant de manibus erepta est, et sub potestate imperatorum esse ceperunt, qui se reges appellare a principio noluerunt quia Romanis fuerat nomen regium odiosum. Horum autem quidam more regio bonum commune fideliter procuraverunt, per quorum studium Romana respublica et aucta et conservata est; plurimi vero eorum in subditos quidem tyranni, ad hostes vero effecti desides et imbelles, Romanam rempublicam ad nichilum redegerunt.³⁶

But they were exhausted by continual dissensions that grew into civil wars, by which wars their liberty—for which they had striven mightily—was snatched out of their hands, and so they came to be under the power of emperors, who from the start did not want to call themselves kings, since the name “king” was hateful to the Romans. Certainly some of these faithfully tended the common good in kingly fashion, and through their efforts the Roman “res publica” grew and was conserved. But many of them became tyrants over their subjects while being sluggish and feeble towards enemies, and they reduced the Roman “res publica” to nothing.

We can see how Giles’ reference to Rome and the Roman *res publica* is a condensed allusion to the political history related in *De regno*. The condensation in itself is striking. Gone are the historical causes and effects, the critique of bad kings, the rule of consuls and civil war, and the fragility of monarchical rule, which can descend so easily into tyranny. Certainly, tyranny is never a distant subject in *De regimine principum*, and Giles turns

to it later in this chapter and takes it up at length in book 3. But in this passage about the “body politic,” Giles invokes Roman history to highlight the people’s turn to imperial “monarchy.” Giles’ advocacy of monarchy and especially inherited kingship throughout *De regimine* is well known: this is one of the most important changes that he silently effects on one of his major authorities, Aristotle’s *Politics*, tactically selecting and modifying his quotations from Aristotle to produce the opposite conclusion, that kingship is best. This also puts him in ideological sympathy with the position in *De regno*, which is his real source for the defense of monarchy.³⁷

What is surprising, however, is the purpose attached to this impacted allusion. The main point at this moment is not the superiority of monarchy, but the preeminence of love, the context that frames the reference to Roman history. Here a new idea, love of the *res publica*, supplies the true cause for the Roman’s choice of monarchy. Giles invokes the move to monarchy in order to call attention to surpassing love. The Romans turned their state into a monarchy because of their love for the body politic. With this startling pronouncement we are brought back to the main purpose of this chapter in *De regimine*, the exposition of love as the most important of the passions. But love here is a different matter from what it might have been in the speculative approach of his commentary on the *Rhetoric*.

Now love itself is directed to the political: not only the general notion of love for the *bonum commune*, but a historically demonstrated affection for the *res publica* in the example of the Romans. The Romans manifested their love for the *res publica* by choosing to be a monarchy, knowing (as Giles sees it) that kingship was the best kind of rule, and thus sacrificing their individual interests as citizens to the greater common good. Love has become the intimate expression of the political.³⁸ This arresting example of “feeling” the *res publica* takes emotions out of the private sphere and casts them onto the public stage of social behaviors where history can show how love motivated a political judgment. The example of the Romans’ love for the *res publica* is in turn mobilized to persuade the prince of his particular emotional investment in the *bonum commune*.

In this persuasive discourse on governance, the emotions have become a locus of political reasoning. The audience is the prince himself, in two ways. First, the prince must learn about the workings of emotions and know how it is appropriate for him to feel emotions such as love and hate, and in what ways (1.3.3, 1607 ed., p. 159); this makes the prince the object of an

instructive argument, the one to be persuaded. But the prince will also activate the emotions in himself and in others towards constructive ends. This makes the prince the one who will use the emotions persuasively on himself and others, to shape his own judgments and those of his subjects. The activation of emotion in the prince takes us into the heart of Giles' transformation of Aristotelian rhetoric.

The expositions of hatred and anger show Aristotle's *Rhetoric* to be close at hand while also under profound revision. Giles inevitably casts emotions in a morally normative light, but he keeps the social specificity of emotions in clear sight. Hatred is the counterpart of love, an equally strong movement of the concupiscible appetite, expressing itself as aversion to evil just as love is inclination to the good; indeed love is the origin of hate, as it is of the other emotions (1.3.2, 1.3.3, 1607 ed., pp. 157, 162). If love (for the good) gives rise to hate (for evil), then if a man loves justice and virtue, "odit fures qui contrariantur iustitiae, et detractores qui contrariantur veritati" (he hates thieves who controvert justice and defamers who pervert truth) [1.3.3, 1607 ed., p. 162]. Just as kings and princes are responsible to love God and the common good in a special way, so in a special way they must hate what is contrary to those principles: injustice, slander, and all vice. Citing the *Rhetoric*, Giles defines hatred at its essence, and then directs its activation:

Quare cum de ratione odii fit exterminare, et nunquam satiari nisi exterminet, ut dicitur 2 Rhetoricorum, decet reges et principes amare iustitiam et odit vitia, ut non satientur, nisi ea extirpent et exterminet. Per se enim homines non sunt exterminandi et odiendi; sed quia vitia sunt extirpanda et odienda. Si non possunt aliter vitia extirpari, nec potest aliter durare commune bonum, nisi exterminando maleficos homines, extirpandi sunt tales, ne pereat commune bonum.

(1.3.3, 1607 ed., p. 162)

Wherefore, since it is the property of hatred to exterminate [the object of hatred], and never to be satisfied unless it is exterminated, as it says in book 2 of the *Rhetoric* [1382a15], it befits kings and princes to love justice and hate vice so that they are not satisfied unless vices are extirpated and exterminated. Men are not to be destroyed and hated on their own account, but so that their vices should be extirpated and hated. If vices cannot be otherwise extirpated and the common good endure without destroying the malefactors, then these men should be destroyed lest the common good perish.

In the *Rhetoric*, Giles had found a chilling definition of hatred in a pointed comparison with anger: "hic enim contra pati vult eum cui irascitur, hic autem non esse" (someone angry would have the one causing anger suffer;

the [hater] would have them cease to exist) [1382a15]. In his commentary on the *Rhetoric*, Giles had elaborated this principle, adding his own language to fill out the terse suggestiveness of his source:

iratus vult contra pati eum cui irascitur, hic autem id est odiens vult ipsum non esse, vellet exterminare et occidere eum quem odit. (58ra)

The angry one wants to make the one who angers him suffer, but the one who hates wants the other to cease existing: he wants to destroy and kill the one whom he hates.

When he writes about hatred in *De regimine principum* and invokes *Rhetoric* book 2, he is actually remembering his own commentary, taking up the language that he had supplied there (*exterminare*), but reinvesting it in a new argument about the ethics of princely emotion. The hatred that princes harbor must be uncommon in that it should always involve the *res publica*: emotion, as a necessary and inevitable dimension of private life, is to be recast in terms of the public good. As moral agent of the *res publica*, the prince's hatred will be directed to others, not for themselves but for the evils they represent. Giles derives the dynamic of hatred, that it seeks destruction of its object, from Aristotle's *Rhetoric*; in his moral refashioning of this principle he does not try to play down the social power of hatred, but rather argues the vital role it plays on behalf of the common good. The prince has vast power to destroy, and if hatred seeks complete destruction of its object where anger is satisfied with immediate harm, hatred is the more dangerous:

...sufficit enim irato, quod alter contra patiat, donec fiat condigna ultio. Sed odium exterminat, et vult non esse: non enim sufficit odienti, quod alter contra patiat, sed vult eum interimi et non esse. Cum ergo conditiones odii sint multo peiores, quam conditiones irae, magis cavendum est odium quam ira, immo iram transire in odium...Est ergo huiusmodi odium cavendum a quolibet. Magis tamen cavendum est regibus et principibus, quia inferre possunt pluribus nocumentum. (1.3.7, 1607 ed., p. 173)

To the angry one it is enough that the other person suffer until there is fitting revenge. But hate exterminates and wants the other to cease to exist. To the one who hates it is not enough that the other person suffers, for he wants him to be extinguished and cease to be. Since the conditions of hate are much worse than the conditions of anger, one should be more wary of hate than of anger, lest anger cross over into hate...Thus hatred must be shunned by anyone; it is especially to be avoided by kings and princes, because they can inflict harm on more people.

With this, Giles has also supplied the full reasoning behind his earlier argument that hatred should be directed to the vices that people embody rather than to people on their own account. There, the assumed premise was

that the power of hate is so strong that it must not be directed against people whom the prince has infinite capacity to destroy, but against their vices, which ought to be destroyed for the sake of the common good. The structure of his argumentation about emotions is enthymematic, calling upon beliefs (hate the sin not the sinner, common good), dispositions (assuming a general recognition of such emotional truths), and the contingent realities of political life (kings potentially have vast destructive powers). These two arguments comparing hate and anger, one in [chapter 3](#) and the other in [chapter 7](#), can reinforce each other, forming a satisfying sequence of thought without expressly referring back or forward to the completing components.

In dealing with emotional extremes, Giles leaves behind the neat philosophical pairings of his *declarationes* in his *Rhetoric* commentary to grapple with the psychological actualization of emotions. While on philosophical terms anger is the opposite of calmness, and hatred is the opposite of love, Giles finds a more dynamic comparison between anger and hatred. Thus, he generates his whole definition of anger, in the chapter dedicated to that subject, out of a comparison with hatred.³⁹ Here, the *Rhetoric* is close at hand, for Aristotle, too, had actually described hatred or enmity, not in relation to *philia* (with which he pairs it in the same section) but to *orgē*. In a brief but acute passage, Aristotle had shown that to understand the workings of hatred we learn more by differentiating it from its closer kin, anger, than from its putative opposite, *philia*: hatred can be produced by anger, but whereas anger arises from personal offenses, hatred can arise impersonally, merely out of disgust with people's supposed characters; anger is always particular in its objects, while hatred is also directed against classes of people; anger is curable while hatred endures; an angry person aims at giving pain and takes satisfaction in making the other person feel something, while the hater aims at harm and is indifferent to any feeling in the other person; anger is accompanied by pain but hatred is not.⁴⁰ Anger can turn to pity, but hatred never knows pity; and ultimately (as we saw above), anger aims at suffering while hatred seeks annihilation (1382a1–16). As Aristotle says, understanding these differences will enable the speaker to marshal and manage the emotions of an audience:

Manifestum igitur ex hiis quod contingit inimicos et amicos et existentes demonstrare et non existentes facere et dicentes dissolvere, et aut propter iram aut propter inimicitiam vacillantes ad utrumcumque elegerit quis ducere.

From these [distinctions] it is clear how it is possible to demonstrate that people are enemies and friends, and to make them so when they are not and to refute those who claim to be so; and lead those who are wavering because of anger or enmity over to whatever position one chooses.

Following Aristotle's text almost point by point, Giles elaborates eight *differentiae* of anger and hatred (1.3.7, 1607 ed., pp. 172–3). But he puts Aristotle's teaching to a different purpose: the ruler must know such causes and effects in order to marshal the appropriate responses in himself so that he may govern others effectively:

Sic igitur sentiendum est de odio et ira quia odium detestabilius est quam ira; nihilominus tamen ira si inordinata sit, detestabilis est. Ut ergo appareat, quomodo reges et principes se habere debeant circa iram et mansuetudinem. Sciendum quod ira aliquando rationem praecedit, et tunc est inordinata et cavenda. Aliquando sequitur ordinem rationis, et tunc potest esse [ordinata] et imitanda...Ante ergo quam per rationem iudicemus plene quid agendum, debemus esse mansueti. Sed postquam plene visum est quid facturi sumus, possumus assumere iram tanquam servam et ancillam rationis, ut per eam exequamur viriliter, quae ratio iudicabit. Sic ergo se habere circa iram et mansuetudinem tanto magis decet reges et principes quanto magis decet eos non impediri in usu rationis et viriliter exequi quae ratio iudicabit. (1.3.7, 1607 ed., pp. 173–5)

Thus concerning hatred and anger we should understand that hatred is more detestable than anger; nevertheless if anger is inordinate, it is detestable. Thus let it be clear how kings and princes ought to conduct themselves in relation to anger and calmness. We should know that sometimes anger exceeds reason, and in that case it is inordinate and it is to be guarded against. Sometimes it obeys the ordering of reason, and in that case it can be appropriate and an example to be followed...Therefore, before we fully appraise, through reason, what course of action to take, we must be calm. But after we have clearly seen what we have to do, we may take on anger as a kind of servant and handmaid of reason, so that through it we may carry out more vigorously the course that reason has decided. Thus the more it befits kings and princes to manage themselves in relation to anger and calmness, the more it seems it is that they not be hampered in using reason and in vigorously carrying out the course of action that reason has decided.

Giles has turned Aristotle's precepts into a princely self-help program. What, for Aristotle, are the shifting circumstances of audience emotions that the speaker can manage and exploit, have here become a mirror for the ruler himself, the measure of his own emotional fitness to govern others.

Using the phenomenological assessments of anger and hatred found in the *Rhetoric*, he has converted knowledge about audience feelings into a program of action for the prince.

Giles' precepts bring together notions of emotional continence found in the *Ethics* (citing the discussion of anger in *Ethics* 7 [chapter 6](#)), as in this

case the prince must manage his emotions in order to rule properly, with a rhetorical purpose that conditions the whole of *De regimine principum*. The teaching here, as it pertains to the larger rhetorical program, is that a ruler needs to govern a state as if the state were his own argument and he were both producer and audience of that persuasion. The rhetorical control that he would exert over his people will be predicated on the persuasive power he exerts over himself as he makes judgments about the degree of emotional force that will achieve the required ends. Thus policy, the course of action pursued in ruling, is something that the prince produces with precision and intent, like an argument that will persuade its audience. On rhetorical terms, the emotions of the prince are a site of the invention of the state as well as the very content of the proof which is the state.⁴¹

The passions do not just lead to good action but also help to present a case to the people. An obvious example is hope, where the prince's hopefulness is not just salutary for him but a good sign to his subjects. Hope, looking toward a good future, is actualized in making laws:

Possumus autem quadrupliciter ostendere, quod decet reges et principes decenter se habere circa spem, et sperare speranda, et aggredi aggredienda...Spes enim primo est de bono, nam de malo non est spes, sed timor. Secundo de arduo, nam licet circa quodcunque bonum possit esse amor vel desiderium, spes tamen esse non habet, nisi circa bonum arduum; nullus enim sperare dicitur, nisi sibi videatur esse bonum arduum et difficile. Tertio spes habet esse circa bonum futurum; de praesentibus enim bonis non est spes, licet possit esse gaudium et delectatio. Quarto spes habet esse circa bonum possibile, quia circa impossibile nullus sperat, sed desperat. Haec autem quatuor, videlicet bonum, arduum, futurum, et possibile, potissime competere debent regibus et principibus. Nam cum reges et principes sint latores legum, quia secundum Philosophum proprie spectat ad reges et principes leges ponere, spectat ad eos sperare bonum.

(1.3.5, 1607 ed., p. 166)

We may show in four ways how it befits kings and princes to conduct themselves fittingly in relation to hope, and to hope for what is to be hoped, and to attempt what is to be attempted... Hope, first of all, concerns the good, for what concerns evil is not hope but fear. Second, hope involves difficulty, for although in any good there may be love or desire, nevertheless hope does not exist unless in relation to a good that is difficult [of attainment]. No one is said to be hopeful unless the desired good is arduous and difficult of attainment. Third, hope arises in relation to a future good; concerning present goods there is no hope, although there can be joy and delight. Fourth, hope arises in relation to a good that is possible; for one does not hope but rather despairs about what is impossible. These four considerations, the good, the difficult, the future, and the possible, ought to be most relevant to kings and princes. For since kings and princes are proposers of laws (as, according to the Philosopher, it belongs to kings and princes to make laws), it is for them to hope for the good.

Hope is linked with action, making laws that concern future well-being, and the very condition of hope in the prince is a form of proof to his subjects. Hopefulness, by its definition, is a kind of political argument that the prince makes relating to the health of the state. Fear is also an activator, giving discursive shape to the contingencies of political life:

...ut dicitur 2 Rhetoricorum cap. de timore, timor consiliativos facit, ex eo, quod aliquis ei timet, consiliatur, quomodo possit effugere malum quod dubitat. Cum ergo unum totum regnum absque magno consilio debite gubernari non possit, expedit principibus et regibus ut consiliativi reddantur, habere aliquem moderatum timorem. (1.3.6, 1607 ed., p. 169)

...as Aristotle says in *Rhetoric* 2 in the chapter on fear [1383a7–12], fear produces deliberators; for anyone dreading something deliberates how to avoid the evil that is feared. Since a whole kingdom cannot be governed responsibly without considerable counsel, it is valuable for kings and princes, in order that they become deliberators, to have some moderate fear.

The ruler's capacity for hope and moderate fear are ideas that will drive the pragmatic advice in book 3 about governance, lawgiving, and taking counsel. The notion that fear motivates deliberation is important enough to be repeated there (3.2.15, 1607 ed., p. 492).

Aristotle's account of the character types of youth, old age, prime of life, nobility, wealth, and power (*Rhetoric* 2, chapters 12–17) is usually treated under the category of *ēthos*, as advice about how the orator should adapt a speaking character to the most general kinds of groups to be encountered in an audience. On this view it complements the treatment of the passions in 2.1–11, as these types will embody various common emotional behaviors as well as habits and experiences. But it could also be seen as a pragmatic application of the exposition of emotions, an extension of the preceding chapters allowing an orator to envision how different groups could exhibit combinations of passions (the young are hopeful and impulsively angry, the old are prone to be fearful and cowardly). This seems to be exactly how Giles of Rome views the section on character, as his treatment of the vices and virtues of the young, the old, the wealthy, and the powerful in *De regimine principum* 1.4 gives overwhelming attention to the emotional drives of these groups. His citations of *Rhetoric* 2 are especially dense here (it is cited twenty-eight times over the seven chapters of part 4).

Giles elaborates the emotional conditions of each of his social types far beyond the suggestive sketches that Aristotle provides in his short chapters,

for example expanding Aristotle's terse description of the cowardice of old age into an essay on faint-heartedness that draws from humoral theory:

Tertio senes sunt pusillanimes et timidi. Pusillanimes enim sunt, quia sunt humiliati a vita; propter enim multum vivere sunt humiliati, et defecerunt. Sicut ergo deficiunt in eis humores, et vitam, sic deficit in eis cor, et sunt pusillanimes. Sunt etiam timidi, quia (ut dicitur 2. Rhetoricorum) in frigidatio praeparat viam formidini. Nam secundum Philosophum, quicumque naturaliter sic disponitur, prout disponitur existens in aliqua passione, naturaliter passionatur passione illa. Cum ergo timidi efficiantur frigidi, quicumque est naturaliter frigidus, sequitur quod sit naturaliter formidolosus. Sequitur ergo senes esse naturaliter timidos, quia deficit in eis naturalis calor, et habent membra naturaliter frigida.

(1.4.3, 1607 ed., p. 196)

Thirdly, the old are pusillanimous and fearful. They are pusillanimous because they have been humbled by life; for on account of living long they have been brought low and have been disappointed. Just as they grow faint in their humors and in life force, so they grow faint in their hearts, and they are pusillanimous. They are fearful because (as it says in *Rhetoric* book 2 [1389b30–1]), becoming cold paves the way for dread. For according to the Philosopher [cf., *Nicomachean Ethics* 1105b21–9], someone so disposed by nature, inasmuch as he is disposed to be in a certain passion, is naturally affected by that passion. Since fearfulness is caused by cold, if someone is by nature cold, it follows that he will be naturally timorous. It follows therefore that the old are naturally timorous, because heat is lacking in their nature, and their limbs are naturally cold.

Giles resolves Aristotle's character analyses into sets of virtues to be embraced and vices to be eschewed by the ruler: for example, the childlike virtues of liberality, hopefulness and the courage that accompanies it, magnanimity, absence of malice, and pity are fitting to a prince, whereas childlike shame is not suitable (1.4.1, 1607 ed., pp. 191–2). The fearfulness of frigid old age is to be eschewed. These chapters become in themselves rich resources on the passions.

Without reference to the *Rhetoric*, the reasons for this section of *De regimine principum* would perhaps be difficult to explain; but in light of the *Rhetoric* the chapter on characters emerges as a summation of the persuasive project of the whole work. If in the *Rhetoric* the character delineations are intended to orient the orator to the social types present in an audience, in *De regimine* the character types become embodiments of the good and the bad—emotions, behaviors, traits—that the ruler must recognize, cultivate, or monitor in himself. The fact that Aristotle's treatise on character has been taken out of its technical rhetorical context and rendered as advice on princely character does not mean that the discourse has lost its persuasive value. Rather, the prince is now the object of persuasion about himself. The effect is a synthesis of the phenomenological

pragmatism of the *Rhetoric* with the approach to practical wisdom in book 6 of the *Ethics*. But the outlook of the *Ethics*, with its emphasis on *soi-même*, also gives way to the outlook of the *Rhetoric*, with its emphasis on self and other.⁴² The force of rhetorical thinking transforms the prince into a kind of *autre* to himself, a second self with whom he will engage as if charged with delivering convincing arguments. The dramatic embodiments—the old who are cynical and fearful, the young who are hopeful but also impulsively emotional—are intended to help the prince mobilize in himself the capacities that will enable him to act.

5.3 Enthymematic Reasoning

The persuasive discourse on governance affords the language to make the emotions political. Giles had to come very far from his commentary on the *Rhetoric* to get to this point. He also had to travel far from his university training in philosophy to understand the enthymeme as the seat of emotional reasoning and to deploy it as the form of his teaching across *De regimine principum*.

The concept of the enthymeme was no stranger to the Latin West. As Giles' own commentary on the *Rhetoric* shows, it was long familiar from logic. Boethius, Abelard, and others treat it, under various terms, as an “imperfect syllogism”: formally deficient but valid because of a certain relationship between the terms. This remained its value through twelfth- and thirteenth-century logic.⁴³ Through Cicero, Boethius' *De topicis differentiis*, Cassiodorus' *Institutiones*, and Isidore of Seville's *Etymologiae*, it would also have been known as a tool of rhetoric, the device that corresponds with the syllogism in dialectic; sometimes, as in *De inventione* 1.34.57, the concept is called by other names such as *ratiocinatio*, as the terminologies varied between authors and eras, the equivalences being sorted out by later authors, notably Quintilian.⁴⁴ However, as the term entered late Latin rhetoric it often acquired the association of incompleteness, a syllogism from which the middle term has dropped out, to be assumed in a chain of reasoning on the part of judges and audiences.⁴⁵ This was not necessarily a derogatory definition; but placed alongside the epistemic fullness of the dialectical syllogism, the enthymeme would

nevertheless appear a truncated kind of reasoning. In Latin rhetoric it also became identified with the stylistic technique of *contrarium*, a reasoning by contraries marked by brevity, as in *Rhetorica ad Herennium* 4.18.25 and Julius Rufinianus' *De figuris sententiarum et elocutionis*.⁴⁶

As we saw in [Chapter 4](#), Giles' initial response to the Aristotelian concept of the enthymeme was informed by the strict logics of the schools, reflecting his university training in which the syllogism was a machine for articulating necessary truths. Thus, in his commentary on the *Rhetoric* he gives a standard definition of the enthymeme: "enthymema est quidam defectivus syllogismus" (74vb). Yet we also saw that he was open to some of the situational give-and-take that is so important to Aristotle's fluid psychology of reasoning. But the grasp that he shows in his commentary is still preliminary and cautious. It is one thing to read a definition of enthymeme and dutifully comment on it. It is another thing entirely to recognize enthymemes in action and put them to work in an argument destined for a particular audience, to embody the force of enthymemes in one's own persuasive discourse. In order to achieve the transformation of understanding that marks *De regimine principum* as dramatically different from his earlier work, Giles of Rome had, in a sense, to teach himself what a rhetorical situation is.

Of course, Giles wrote his mirror of princes during a period of institutional crisis in Paris in which his own career was seriously imperiled. It may not be surprising that his approach to emotion in his political writing would overturn the structure of speculative inquiry that he deployed in his commentary on the *Rhetoric* in favor of the dynamic appeal of enthymemes. Recognizing that his political pedagogy needed both to effect and teach persuasion, he turns to the technical rhetorical device that is most closely linked with emotional proof.

But how do we account for the shift in understanding that allowed Giles, in the very few years between writing his commentary and producing *De regimine principum*, to embrace the form of enthymematic reasoning so successfully? To get at this primary cause we might think about the double impact of Aristotle's *Rhetoric*: the doctrine of enthymeme that it expresses and the generous exemplifications of enthymematic reasoning that it contains, especially in chapters 22–6 of book 2. In the *Rhetoric*, a reader like Giles would recognize a form of effective argument that he already knew well. In this respect, the *Rhetoric* provided, not a new form, but a

language for identifying and explaining a device already intimately familiar from the emotional power of Scripture and homiletics. Having commented on the *Rhetoric*, Giles would recognize in common religious discourse the procedure that Aristotle calls the enthymeme: appealing to the values of a particular audience, reasoning with premises apt for that audience, speaking broadly and in commonplaces, and drawing on judgment that is not only epistemic, but moral and emotional.

The force of enthymematic reasoning is a focus of much modern rhetorical analysis of Scripture, especially the Gospels and St. Paul. As a practice, ancient rhetoric encouraged audiences to reflect on probabilities and respond to deductive reasoning; the habits cultivated by Hellenistic orators in their audiences resonate in the contemporary writings of the Christian Scriptures, even if the authors were not formally schooled in rhetoric, and even if the questions at stake in preaching were beyond probability. Enthymematic reasoning could serve as a clarifying, elucidating move, or to convey the difficulty of grasping the absoluteness of a sacred idea.⁴⁷ Moreover, it matters little that the direct influence of Aristotle's *Rhetoric* in the later Hellenistic schools is uncertain, for Aristotle describes the enthymeme as a strategy that is part of the fabric of public oratory, and that strategy remains and produces its effects in the absence of high-level theoretical explanations, and even when the definitions and terminology of the technical manuals have shifted.⁴⁸ Each of the eight Beatitudes in Matthew 5:3–10 constitutes the simplest of enthymemes, a conclusion followed by a supporting reason: “*beati pauperes spiritu quoniam ipsorum est regnum caelorum*” (blessed are the poor in spirit for theirs is the kingdom of heaven) [5:3]. The Greek text introduces the supporting reasons with the word *hoti*, rendered in the Latin Vulgate as *quoniam* or *quia* (since or because). The premises connecting the reason with the conclusion—in this example, the blessedness of all who gain the kingdom of heaven and the spiritual necessity that the poor will gain it—are never spelled out but are tacitly accepted as true through Jesus' authority as speaker and the audience's beliefs and emotional identification with the promise of relief from deprivation and suffering.⁴⁹ More complex are the enthymematic structures of the Pauline epistles, notably the highly inferential character of Romans. Romans 1:16–17 is well known for its difficulty: “For I am not ashamed of the gospel. For it is the power of God unto salvation to everyone that believeth: to the Jew first and to the Greek. For the justice of

God is revealed therein, from faith unto faith, as it is written: The just man liveth by faith.” Readings of this passage recognize the powerful effect of syllogistic reasoning: the main argument is that in the gospel lies the power of God for salvation. But the connecting term between these two premises (salvation and the gospel) is not made explicit: it may be the identification of justice with faith, and behind that, an assumption that faith, rather than works, is the key to God’s salvation.⁵⁰ However this is parsed by biblical scholars, its method of proof lies with an emotional appeal to the beliefs of the audience.

Long before the modern academy created the field of rhetorical analysis of Scripture, Cassiodorus remarked the emotional power of the enthymeme to convey a spiritual truth. In his *Expositio psalmorum*, Cassiodorus notes the enthymematic reasoning in Psalm 20:8, “For the king hath hoped in the Lord: and through the mercy of the most High he shall not be moved.” Cassiodorus explains:

Enthymema, quod latine interpretatur mentis conceptio, syllogismus est constans ex una propositione et conclusione, quem dialectici dicunt rhetoricum syllogismum, quia eo frequenter utuntur oratores pro compendio suo. Iste taliter explicatur: Omnis sperans in Domino exsultabit et laetabitur in misericordia eius; ego igitur exultabo et laetabor in misericordia eius. Ista est tertia species syllogismorum per quos dialectici subtilissimis disputationibus quae probare nituntur ostendunt. Nec moveat quod in istis partibus non sunt eadem verba quae dialectici ad instruendos rudes longo post tempore formaverunt; in praedicationibus enim sacris argumentum quidem ipsum ponitur sed sub libertate verborum. (*Exp. ps.* 20, ed. Adriaen, 1: 185)

The enthymeme, which is called in Latin a “mental concept,” is a syllogism consisting of one proposition and a conclusion, which dialecticians call a rhetorical syllogism because orators often use it when aiming for brevity. This one unfolds as follows: “All who hope in the Lord will exult and rejoice in His mercy; therefore I will exult and rejoice in His mercy.” This is a third species of syllogism by which dialecticians show, in their most subtle disputations, what they labor to prove.⁵¹ Do not worry that these passages do not contain the words that dialecticians have fashioned over the years for teaching their young pupils. In sacred preaching the argument itself is set forth, but with a directness of expression.

Cassiodorus acknowledges that the enthymeme can be a rhetorical or a dialectical device. In explaining verse 8 as an enthymeme he wants to show the trail of reasoning between what he takes to be the first premise, the king’s hope in God, and the conclusion, the unshakeable trust that comes from God’s mercy. His method is to offer another enthymeme, with the middle term poignantly suppressed: major premise: all who hope in God will rejoice in his mercy (unstated minor premise: I hope in God);

conclusion: therefore I will rejoice. Setting aside the intimidating technical language of the schools, Cassiodorus explains one enthymeme with another, suggesting its innate power to capture an emotional truth.⁵²

The force of the enthymeme, intimately familiar from Scripture, easily carries over into homiletics. We find this perfectly exemplified in Giles' own preaching, where he exploits the emotional effectiveness of enthymematic form. Whether or not they were all actually preached, it is probable that his sermons were composed while he was archbishop of Bourges, sometime between 1295 and his death in 1316, and thus a decade or more after he completed and published *De regimine principum*. But in his preaching he manifests the acute sensitivity to public persuasion that we see in *De regimine*, and that he would also have internalized through long exposure to homilies. In the prothyme of a sermon for Palm Sunday, his declarations are accompanied by supporting reasons, adopting the form of simple enthymemes:

Ecce rex tuus venit tibi mansuetus [Matthew 21:5] Licet omnibus temporibus anni predicator debeat inducere auditores ut occurrant Christo et ut sequantur ipsum et ut collaudent eum, potissime tamen hoc debet facere tempore isto, cum in hodierno evangelio habeatur quod hodie turba plurima occurrerunt Christo et sequentes eum laudabant eum.

Sunt autem tria, quantum ad presens spectat, propter que aliqui refugiunt ne sequantur aliquem dominum et ne prorumpant in laudem eius. Primum est dominantis debilitas, secundum dominantis infructuositas, ut tertium est dominantis crudelitas. Consueverunt enim homines debilia spernere et infructuosa despicere et fugere seua, et e contrario consueverunt potentia revereri, prosequi proficua et imitari clementia. Et propter hoc in verbis propositis, que leguntur *Matthei* 21 et habentur in evangelio hodierno, Christus nobis tripliciter describitur. Nam primo describitur tamquam potens, ut ipsum revereamur; secundo, describitur tamquam fructuosus et utilis, ut ipsum sequamur; tertio, describitur tamquam mitis et clemens, ut ei adhareamus.⁵³

Behold thy king cometh to thee, meek. Although at all times of the year a preacher ought to motivate his listeners so that they run to meet Christ and follow him and extol him, he ought especially to do that at this time, for it says in today's gospel, on this day the greatest crowd ran to meet Christ, and followed him and praised him.

In terms of what presently concerns us, there are three reasons why people run away from a lord and refuse to follow him and don't rush forth in praise of him. The first is weakness of the lord, the second is worthlessness of the lord, and the third is cruelty of the lord. Men habitually despise weakness, scorn worthlessness, and flee cruelty; by contrast they habitually revere power, follow advantage, and imitate mercy. With respect to the passage quoted, which we read in Matthew 21 and find in today's gospel, Christ is described in three ways. For first he is described as powerful, so that we should revere him; second he is described as worthy and effective, so that we should follow him; third, he is described as gentle and merciful, so that we should cleave to him.

As an opening gambit, this is effective: the audience does not need a careful exposition of why Christ's power commands reverence, why his worthiness merits loyalty, and why his gentleness encourages attachment. The sermon follows up with more detailed arguments, but these are almost ornamentation, as the point has been made. In the protheme, the assertions about Christ are supported by contrasts drawn from political theory. Here, as in some of his other sermons, Giles revisits the political themes of *De regimine principum*: a notable parallel with the sermon can be found in book 3, part 2, chapter 13, where, citing the *Politics*, he had explained that people rise up against tyrants because the latter are weak, despicable, and cruel.⁵⁴ In the opening of the Palm Sunday sermon he recruits general attitudes about tyranny and opposes them to the attributes of Christ. Thus these stark contrasts with the attributes of tyranny serve as the supporting reasons why his audience should cherish and extol Christ. The fine-tuned reasoning (in the form of close exegesis of the passage from Matthew, appropriate enough for a clerical audience) can come later, because he has already sealed his argument with the enthymemes in the protheme.

If the persuasive effects of Scripture and preaching depend upon enthymematic arguments, Aristotle's *Rhetoric* could provide late medieval readers with a conscious theoretical knowledge of the form already deeply familiar through common discourses. The rhetorical enthymeme was not a new form, but actively grasping the principles of its effectiveness marks an important shift in the medieval history of rhetoric. In *De regimine principum*, we see Giles exploiting the principles of the enthymeme gained through close knowledge of the *Rhetoric*. What he approached with a kind of dutiful caution in his commentary on the *Rhetoric* becomes a dynamic instrument of persuasion in *De regimine principum*. We see Giles activating the theoretical language of the enthymeme in his prologue to the work, where he describes his mode of proceeding as "broad," "persuasive," and "schematic," aiming to "move and inflame the affections." In his political treatise he builds upon enthymemes to establish the arguments that will appeal in the broadest possible way.

Some of the passages from *De regimine*, already considered above, function enthymematically. I have noted that the expositions of anger (1.3.2) and hatred (1.3.7) work together enthymematically, with the earlier discussion of anger reinforcing the later case for the more deleterious effects of hatred, which seeks to destroy whole classes of people. The

proposition at 1.3.3, that the “affection that the Romans had for the *res publica* made Rome a principality and a monarchy,” is also structured enthymematically.⁵⁵ The critical term there is the love that instinctively protects the body politic, demonstrated through the sacrifice of individual interests to the *bonum commune*; but the reasoning in favor of the higher good of monarchy is simply assumed at this early point in the treatise. Indeed, this early association of love with the political form of monarchy prepares a premise to serve as background for the development of the theme of monarchy later in the treatise.

When launching his large arguments in favor of monarchy in book 3, Giles opens a new line of thought. This is the question of hereditary compared to elective monarchy in 3.2.5, which he pursues in terms that Coleman has recognized as enthymematic.⁵⁶ Giles divides his argument into three approaches: *ex parte ipsius regis regentis populum*, that is, from the perspective of the reigning king, *ex parte filii, qui debet in haereditatem succedere*, from the perspective of the son who expects to inherit the rule; and *ex parte populi*, on the part of the people who are governed by monarchical rule. This division is telling, because it seems to target the triple audiences of this treatise: King Philip III, under whose reign the work was composed; his son Prince Philip the Fair, the dedicatee and putative commissioner of the work; and the people, recalling Giles’ early promise in his prologue that “the whole populace is an audience of this art.” For his royal patrons, the arguments for hereditary over elective monarchy are naturally advantageous; and for his third audience, the populace, the necessity is to justify what is and has been the political reality of the kingdom of France. Yet if each approach seems to be destined for one of the three audiences—the king, who will be persuaded by the arguments *ex parte regis*, the prince, who will be persuaded *ex parte filii*, and the French populace, who respond *ex parte populi*—the arguments also operate at a non-specific level, seeking assent through common beliefs and emotions.

On the first perspective, the reigning king will be motivated by self-love. On emotional terms this is the strongest claim that Giles will make. Noting Aristotle’s remark in *Politics* 2 (1363a40–b1) that the love of self is natural and that the pleasure taken in what belongs to oneself is *inenarrabile* (inexpressible), Giles proposes that kings, too, are moved by self-love and the love of what belongs to them:

...naturale est igitur tanto regem magis sollicitari circa bonum regni, quanto credit ipsum regnum magis esse bonum suum et bonum proprium; quare si rex videat debere se principari super regnum non solum ad vitam, sed etiam per haereditatem in propriis filiis, magis reputabit bonum regni esse bonum suum, et ardentius sollicitabitur circa tale bonum. (3.2.5, 1607 ed., p. 462)

...it is natural, therefore, that a king will care more about the good of the kingdom the more that he believes that it is his own proper good. Whence, if the king believes that he should rule over his kingdom not only for his lifetime but through hereditary succession in his sons, the more he will consider the good of the kingdom to be his own good, and the more ardently he will care for such a good.

The king's love of self will be transformed into a political good because the kingdom is *suum bonum et bonum proprium*, and he will express his love in good stewardship that will pass to the next generation. But his love will also be a familial one, because it is natural for fathers to love their offspring:

Immo quia tota spes patris requiescit in filiis, et nimio ardore moventur patres erga dilectionem filiorum, ideo omni cura qua poterit movebitur ad procurandum bonum statum regni, si cogitet ipsum provenire ad dominium filiorum.

(3.2.5, 1607 ed., p. 462)

Indeed, because the whole hope of a father reposes in his sons, and fathers are moved by the greatest ardor to take delight in their sons; so the king will be moved to the utmost to attend to the good state of the kingdom if he knows that he is going to be providing it to the dominion of his sons.

It is tempting to link this to the immediate realities of the father-son relationship of Philip III and Philip the Fair. Historians have suggested that it was a strained and certainly a rather distant relationship, as the younger Philip only became heir to the crown, and thereby recognized as the "first born," when his older brother Louis died mysteriously in 1276. Thus it was not until he was eight years old that he would have been the primary focus of paternal attention.⁵⁷ But even if this royal family needed special reminding of the power of parental and filial love, the paradigms that the text offers are general and speak to commonplace notions of paternal affection and stewardship of property. Thus the arguments could apply to virtually any family, royal or not. The language here is notable for its rare emotional tone: fathers are "moved with the greatest ardor" to take "delight" in their sons. The kingdom itself becomes a signifier of parental affection, for here it is not only the *bonum commune* that the king is shepherding, but his own "goods," a property carefully tended, that he will be passing down as legacy to his son.

The appeal to sons is less overtly emotional, appealing instead to beliefs that rest on deeper emotional experience. Giles proposes that the system of hereditary monarchy produces better rulers because royal sons, having grown up around their fathers' power, will not have the brash arrogance of *parvenus*. It is worth quoting the whole passage for its layers of implicit emotional appeal:

Secunda via ad investigandum hoc idem, sumitur ex parte filii, ad quem spectat suscipere curam regni. Nam sicut mores nuper ditatorum ut plurimum peiores sunt moribus eorum, qui fuerunt divites ab antiquo, sic mores nuper potentum et de novo elevatorum per adeptionem civilis potentiae peiores sunt moribus aliorum; nesciunt enim tales fortunas ferre; nuper enim esse exaltatum in regem, est quasi quaedam ineruditio regiae dignitatis; tales quidem ut plurimum tyrannizant, et inflati corde et inerudite regnant. Sed si regale regimen per haereditatem vadat, filii ex hoc non inflantur nec efficiuntur elati, quia non reputant magnum, si illud habeant quod patres possederant; quare ex parte filiorum debentium succedere in haereditatem paternam, expedit regno ne inerudite regatur, et ne regale regimen convertatur in tyrannidem, ut regia dignitas per haereditatem transferatur ad posteros. (3.2.5, 1607 ed., pp. 462–3)

The second path of finding out [a means of proof] is in terms of the son who is expected to take up the care of the realm. Now just as the characters of the newly rich are for the most part worse than the characters of those who have long been rich, so the characters of the newly powerful, and of those newly elevated to civil power by winning it, are worse than the characters of others [who have long known power], as the former do not know how to bear fortune. For to be newly exalted to kingship entails a kind of ignorance of regal authority. Such people quickly descend into tyranny: they are puffed up in spirit and they rule crudely. But if royal rule advances through heredity, the sons are not puffed up by this or made arrogant, because they do not hold it as a great achievement if they should have what their fathers possessed. Whence, with respect to the sons who should succeed to their paternal inheritance: it is beneficial to the kingdom, lest it be ruled unwisely and royal rule turn to tyranny, that the authority of kingship be passed by heredity to descendants.

The enthymematic beauty of this passage is that it appeals not directly to the interests of princes, but to common passions and anxieties: the indignation and envy provoked by the newly rich or powerful who abuse their position through ignorance and pride; and the fear of tyranny. The argument is taken “with respect to sons,” but the persuasion is aimed at the subjects of hereditary monarchy who stand to suffer a ruler’s arrogance and ignorance. The assumptions that those who come new to power through election will be unworthy of it, like the *nouveau riche* and others of recent high status, echoes Aristotle’s description of indignation in the *Rhetoric*: it is caused by the sight of unmerited success, and indeed the newly rich cause more indignation than those of inherited wealth (1387a9–10, 19–20). Envy has similar causes, but is directed at one’s social equals who have done

better (1387b23). The fear of tyranny is based in a sense of injustice: as Aristotle notes, one cause of fear is an unjust wielding of power, especially when the person with power is outraged (1382a34–b3). Obviously, what this reasoning bypasses in favor of emotions is the counter-claim that an elected ruler may have merited election by demonstrating political skill, so that his success would be welcomed. Such objections might be refuted in a lengthy dialectical argument, but the purpose here is persuasion according to probability, not proof of indisputable truths. In this passage we can see Giles executing exactly the kinds of arguments that Aristotle envisages the orator being able to make on the basis of knowing human passions (even though Giles' preference for monarchy is scarcely Aristotelian). It is better to justify inherited monarchy by mobilizing core emotions—indignation, envy, fear—and creating scenarios that would evoke them, than to explain abstract political or philosophical principles. The enthymematic approach will be even more successful if it also persuades the princes of the rightness of their position, but in this case they will be the indirect beneficiaries of a general argument. It is also possible to see this as offering princes the reasonings they themselves must deploy to justify their roles, and on this view the argument serves as persuasive instruction about persuasion.

By contrast, the final argument, *ex parte populi*, seems directed not to the populace, but to the rulers, proposing that the people's expectations can be best managed through custom:

Tertia via sumitur ex parte populi qui debet per tale regimen gubernari; nam consuetudo est quasi altera natura, propter quod regimina ex consuetudine efficiuntur quasi naturalia. Populus ergo si per diuturnam consuetudinem obedivit patribus, filiis, et filiorum filiis, quasi naturaliter inclinatur ut voluntarie obediant; quare cum omne voluntarium sit minus onerosum et difficile, ut libentius et facilius obediat populus mandatis regis, expedit regiae dignitati per haereditatem succedere. (3.2.5, 1607 ed., p. 463)

The third approach is with respect to the people who are bound to be governed by such a rule. For custom is like another nature, for which reason governments based on custom are made, in a sense, natural. Thus as the people have, through long custom, obeyed fathers, sons, and the sons of sons, they are in a sense inclined by nature to obey willingly. Since anything that comes less willingly is onerous and difficult, and therefore since the people would obey the king's mandates gladly and readily, it is advantageous to royal authority to pass through heredity.

The argument here does not evoke extreme emotions such as love or indignation, but rather calls upon beliefs about what makes people pliant subjects, and it implies the forming of judgments based on those beliefs. If custom becomes second nature, and the people are so accustomed to

obeying hereditary monarchs that it would be hard for them to change, then hereditary monarchy is advantageous to ruler and ruled.

The reasoning on behalf of hereditary monarchy is directed to concrete historical conditions.⁵⁸ If in absolute terms, as he concedes at the opening of the chapter, an elected monarch may be better because it ensures that the ruler is made by “art” and the best and most effective person will be chosen, actual circumstances, “*quas experimentaliter videmus*” (what we see through experience), suggest otherwise (p. 461). Appetites are subject to corruption, and therefore what looks good in theory is not the case in practice. Pragmatically speaking, it is better to entrust the kingdom to hereditary succession, as this system is supported by the emotions and common beliefs that he outlines.

Teaching princes how to consider their position in the rough and tumble of daily political life, he draws on extreme emotion and common beliefs rather than high and necessary truths. For example, as Aristotle had remarked, we are most likely to fear retaliation from our enemies when they are secretive about the vengeance they will take:

Potissime autem timentur potentes (ut patet in 2 Rhetoricorum) propter punitiones, quas exercent in subditos. In punitione autem tria sunt consideranda, videlicet punitionem ipsam, personam punitam, et modum puniendi...Tertio timentur reges et principes ratione modi puniendi; quod fieri contingit, cum ad eorum iudices et praepositos latenter et caute se gerunt in punitionibus exequendis, et in iustitia facienda quod mali effugere non possunt, quin puniantur. Ideo dicitur 2 Rhetoricorum quod latitivi magis timentur, quam manifesti.

(3.2.36, 1607 ed., pp. 553–4)

As book 2 of the *Rhetoric* [1382a32, 1382b3–6] makes clear, the powerful are feared especially for the punishment that they may exact on their subordinates. With regard to punishment there are three things to consider: the punishment itself, the person punished, and the mode of punishment...Thirdly, kings and princes are feared by reason of the mode of punishment. This happens when their judges and officers are sly and secretive in punishing and enforcing justice, so that the miscreants cannot escape and avoid punishment. Thus it is stated in *Rhetoric* book 2 [1382b20–3] that those who are secretive are more feared than those who are forthright.

This reasoning about secrecy and retaliation could find decisive syllogistic proof through a long chain of reasoning entailing premises about fear as a future-oriented passion, and the unpredictability of future events so that we fear future unknowns. But the object here is not a necessary truth to be proven in all of its inherent premises. It is a truth that rests in psychological experience, a truth that is felt rather than reasoned, that can be grasped readily and intuitively and as appropriate to certain conditions. It is a truth

to be appreciated by fans of Francis Ford Coppola's *The Godfather* rather than by students of Aristotle's *Posterior Analytics*.

Here and throughout, Giles of Rome puts emotion into persuasive action. He recruits the sensuous form of the enthymeme to convey his teaching about politics. In so doing he also teaches about making strong arguments. As he says at the beginning of *De regimine principum*, teaching about morals must proceed persuasively and thus touch the senses.

We may wonder about the persuasive impact of *De regimine principum* on its immediate audience, its dedicatee Philip the Fair. There are intriguing hypotheses to be drawn from the evidence of Philip's own actions and bearing during his nineteen-year reign. His aloofness and severity both in public dealings (notably his harsh treatment of the Jews and the Templars) and within his family, read through the lens of Giles' advice that the prince be a figure of aloof magnificence and supreme virtue, subject to God but superior to positive law, produce a paradoxical picture: a ruler striving to embody kingly authority and virtue to such a degree that he errs on the side of excess, exhibiting an "unbridled passion for piety and justice," as Elizabeth Brown has elegantly put it.⁵⁹ Famously reserved and taciturn in public, he often communicated through his councillors, as if having taken on Giles' advice about surrounding oneself with trusted and persuasive councillors (3.2.18).⁶⁰ In his criticism of his oldest son and successor Louis for *puerilitas*, we might think we hear echoes of the account of the emotional incontinence of youth—the naiveté of hopefulness, the rashness of immoderate appetites—in *De regimine principum* 1.4.2.⁶¹ These, however, can only ever be conjectural connections, ways of imagining how the judgments of this reader, presumably the first, might have been shaped by the persuasions of the treatise. Farther afield, we might also hypothesize that its teaching about the persuasive eloquence of monarchs was registered in parliamentary cultures, where speakers could find in it a contemporary guide to their duties, reinforcing the traditional Ciceronian teaching on public oratory.⁶²

But the evidence of its impact in its book history and literary circulation is certainly much more secure. Copied and translated widely, *De regimine principum* disseminated its teaching to readers across Western Europe. Even before Philip the Fair became king it was translated into French; very soon afterward, the first of its Italian translations was made based on Gauchy's

French translation. This intra-vernacular trajectory was to be repeated in the following centuries, as several translations were produced from earlier vernacular versions in the same language or another.⁶³ Fiammetta Papi has shown how this intra-vernacular trajectory of translation could emerge into new literary production, tracing how Dante learned from the French and Italian translations to propose vernacular equivalents for Latin scholastic terminology about the virtues.⁶⁴ *De regimine* inspired not only at least twenty-eight different vernacular versions, closely or loosely translated, in ten European languages (as far as currently known), but among those, an interest in expanding the vernacular text with glosses, observations, and additional matter from the Bible, patristics, and ancient philosophers.⁶⁵ It also enabled other kinds of adaptive texts. Some of the works included in the count of translations above could also be considered adaptations (the Flemish and Swedish versions). Not included in the count above is Thomas Hoccleve's *Regiment of Princes*, which places itself in the orbit of *De regimine principum*, drawing much of its own critical conceit from that source, but realizing this on a different plane, as I will explore in [Chapter 6](#).

De regimine principum is remarkable in its rhetorical conception and in the success of its persuasive ambitions. If medieval readers mined its political and ethical doctrine and appreciated its synthesis of Aristotelian moral philosophy, they were above all moved by its argumentative force. Even if its readers could not name the devices that it uses, they were engaged by them, and there lies its extraordinary effectiveness. It captures the fundamental teaching of Aristotle's *Rhetoric* on emotion and deploys enthymematic proofs in conspicuous and concentrated ways. It creates an explicit place for emotion in political discourse and demonstrates *ex arte* how emotion is necessary to proof. It articulates a rhetorical phenomenology of the emotions, a sense of their centrality to political life and the matter of argument. In this way it shows how mobilizing an audience's emotions is an expression of the speaker's political understanding. Here, as in Aristotle, *pathos* is a legitimate tool of rhetorical proof about social behavior, politics, and governance. Emotion has moved from the surface charm of style to the innermost core of rhetorical reasoning. It was *De regimine principum* that was to impart the essence of *pathos* in the *Rhetoric* to the widest possible audience. As a kind of Aristotle's *Rhetoric* for a larger readership, vernacular as well as Latinate, it shows the emotions as a powerfully theorized locus of political argument.

¹ Details of the biography are from Francesco del Punta, Silvia Donati, and Concetta Luna, “Egidio Romano,” in *Dizionario biografico degli italiani* 42 (1993): 319–41; see [http://www.treccani.it/enciclopedia/egidio-romano_\(Dizionario-Biografico\)](http://www.treccani.it/enciclopedia/egidio-romano_(Dizionario-Biografico)).

² On the procedure against Giles in 1277, see *Aegidii Romani opera omnia* III.1, *Apologia: Édition et commentaire*, ed. Robert Wielockx (Florence: Olschki, 1985).

³ *De regimine principum*, proemium. The text used for quotations and translations will be the 1607 Rome edition (rpt. Darmstadt: Scientia Verlag Aalen, 1967). I have sometimes modified the punctuation for clarity, and have silently corrected obvious typographical errors in the 1607 print.

⁴ Dole, Bibliothèque municipale, MS 157: see Gerardo Bruni, *Le opere di Egidio Romano* (Florence: Olschki, 1936), pp. 85, 97. “Ci fine li livres du gouvernement des rois et des princes que frere Gi[l]es de Romme de l’ordre de Saint Augustin a fet. Le quel livre Mestre Henri de Gauchy par le commandement le noble roi Phelipe de France a translaté de latin en franceis”: Henri de Gauchy, *Li livres du gouvernement des rois*, ed. Samuel Paul Molenaer (New York: Columbia University Press, 1899), p. 422.

⁵ Charles F. Briggs, *Giles of Rome’s De regimine principum: Reading and Writing Politics at Court and University, c.1275–c.1525* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1999), p. 3. A census of manuscripts of *De regimine principum* was undertaken as part of the *Opera omnia* critical edition (Florence, 1985–). One projected volume dedicated to this work has appeared: Francesco del Punta and Concetta Luna, eds., *Aegidii Romani opera omnia* I.1/11, *Catalogo dei manoscritti, De regimine principum (Città del Vaticano- Italia)*, (Florence: Olschki, 1993).

⁶ On the books of the Augustinians, see Giorgio Pini, “Le letture dei maestri dei frati agostiniani: Egidio Romano e Giacomo da Viterbo,” in *Libri, biblioteche e letture dei frati mendicanti (secoli XIII–XIV)* (Spoleto: Fondazione Centro italiano di studi sull’alto Medioevo, 2005), pp. 79–113; for later years, see Cécile Caby, “Les ermites de saint Augustin e leurs livres à l’heure de l’humanisme: autour de Guglielmo Becchi et Ambrogio Massari,” in Nicole Bériou et al., *Entre Stabilité et itinérance. Livres et culture des ordres mendiants XIIIe–XVe siècle* (Turnhout: Brepols, 2014), pp. 247–86.

⁷ Briggs, *Giles of Rome’s De regimine principum*, pp. 13–17; Noëlle-Laetitia Perret, *Les traductions françaises du De regimine principum de Gilles de Rome: Parcours matériel, culturel et intellectuel d’un discours sur l’éducation* (Leiden: Brill, 2011), p. 34. On exemplars ofpecia copying demonstrating its presence in university milieux, see del Punta and Luna, eds., *Catalogo dei manoscritti, De regimine principum*, pp. 341–50.

⁸ For the Sienese version, see the study and critical edition by Fiammeta Papi, ed., *Il Libro del governmento dei re e dei principi: secondo il codice BNCF II IV 129*, 2 vols. (Pisa: Edizioni ETS, 2016–18).

⁹ See the survey of the French translations in Perret, *Les traductions françaises du De regimine principum*, pp. 50–91. Perret also surveys the other vernacular versions, pp. 33–4, and gives a list of editions of some of the vernacular versions up to 2005, pp. 433–4. On total manuscripts, see Briggs, “Aristotle’s *Rhetoric* in the Later Medieval Universities,” p. 249. For its role among translations of Aristotle, see Eugenio Refini, *The Vernacular Aristotle: Translation as Reception in Medieval and Renaissance Italy* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2020), pp. 7–16.

¹⁰ According to the counts by Briggs, “Aristotle’s *Rhetoric* in the Later Medieval Universities,” p. 247.

¹¹ Staico, “Retorica e politica in Egidio Romano,” 12–13.

¹² Roberto Lambertini, “The Prince in the Mirror of Philosophy: Uses of Aristotle in Giles of Rome’s *De regimine principum*,” in Carlos Bazán et al., eds., *Les philosophies morales et politiques au moyen âge*, 3 vols. (New York: Legas, 1995), 3: 1522–34.

¹³ Janet Coleman, “Some Relations between the Study of Aristotle’s *Rhetoric*, *Ethics*, and Politics in Late Thirteenth- and Early Fourteenth-Century University Arts Courses and the Justification of Contemporary Civic Activities (Italy and France),” in J. Canning and O. G. Oexle, eds., *Political Thought and the Realities of Power in the Middle Ages* (Göttingen: Vandenhoeck and Ruprecht, 1998), pp. 127–57 (at p. 152). The debt to the *Rhetoric* does not end with book 1, since it is also the chief source for chapters in the second and third parts of book two that treat of the character of wives and daughters (book 2, part 1, chapters 12–13; book 2, part 2, chapters 19–21), and for the chapters of book three, part two whose subject is the proper province of royal councilors and judges (chapters 16–29), and the proper relationship between a ruler and his subjects (chapters 34–6). See Staico, “Retorica e politica in Egidio Romano,” 13.

¹⁴ On these points, see Roberto Lambertini, “A proposito della ‘costruzione’ dell’ *Oeconomica* in Egidio Romano,” *Medioevo: Rivista di storia della filosofia medievale* 14 (1988): 315–70.

¹⁵ See Jean-Philippe Genet, “L’évolution du genre des Miroirs des princes en occident au Moyen Âge,” in Sophie Cassagnes Brouquet et al., eds., *Religion et mentalités au Moyen Âge. Mélanges en l’honneur d’Hervé Martin* (Rennes: Presses Universitaires de Rennes, 2003), pp. 531–41; Matthew Kempshall, “The Rhetoric of Giles of Rome’s *De regimine principum*,” in Frédérique Lachaud and Lydwine Scordia, eds., *Le Prince au miroir de la littérature politique de l’Antiquité aux Lumières* (Mont-Saint-Aignan: Publications des universités de Rouen et du Havre, 2007), pp. 161–90 (esp. pp. 186–7); Larry Scanlon, *Narrative, Authority, and Power: The Medieval Exemplum and the Chaucerian Tradition* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1994), pp. 85–134 (esp. p. 106).

¹⁶ Cf., Janet Coleman, *A History of Political Thought: From the Middle Ages to the Renaissance* (Oxford: Blackwell, 2000), p. 65.

¹⁷ Rudi Imbach, *Dante, la philosophie, et les laïcs. Initiations à la philosophie médiévale I* (Paris: Cerf, 1996), p. 54.

¹⁸ “Oportet ut latitudo sermonis in unaquaque re sit secundum exigentiam illius rei, et non magis neque minus, ut vult Philosophus 7 Metaphysica,” 1.1.1. The language is close to Moerbeke’s translation at 1030a27–8: *Metaphysica recensio et translatio Guillelmi de Moerbeka*, ed. Gudrun Vuillemin-Diem, AL XXV 3.2 (Leiden: Brill, 1995).

¹⁹ 1094b19–20: “Amabile igitur de talibus et ex talibus dicentes, grosse et figuraliter veritatem ostendere,” *Ethica Nicomachea, translatio Roberti Grosseteste Lincolnensis*, ed. R. A. Gauthier, AL XXVI 1–3, fasc. quartus (Leiden: Brill; Brussels: Desclée de Brouwer, 1973). Compare the distinctively literary reading of this passage of *De regimine* in Allen, *The Ethical Poetic of the Middle Ages*, pp. 14–17.

²⁰ Quotations from *Nicomachean Ethics*, trans. W. D. Ross, rev. J. O. Urmson, in Jonathan Barnes, ed., *The Complete Works of Aristotle*, 2 vols. (Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1984).

²¹ *Alberti Magni Opera omnia*, volume 14, part 1, *Super Ethica commentum et quaestiones (libros quinque priores)*, ed. Wilhelm Kübel (Münster: Aschendorff, 1968–72), p. 12.

²² *Li livres du gouvernement des rois*, ed. Molenaer, pp. 4–6. Cf., remarks by Scanlon, *Narrative, Authority, and Power*, pp. 108–9.

²³ On *similitude*, see further, Copeland and Sluiter, *Medieval Grammar and Rhetoric*, pp. 24–6, 30, 607–13 (and within, Gervase of Melkley, *Ars versificaria*, pp. 615, 621–2; Thomas of Chobham, *Summa de arte praedicandi*, pp. 621–3).

²⁴ David C. Fowler, Charles F. Briggs, and Paul G. Remley, eds., *The Governance of Kings and Princes: John Trevisa's Middle English Translation of the De regimine principum of Aegidius Romanus* (New York: Garland, 1997), p. 6, lines 8–10.

²⁵ *Sententia libri Ethicorum*, ed. R. A. Gauthier, Editio Leonina XLVII.1–2 (Rome: ad Sanctae Sabinae, 1969), I: 11 (book 1, lecture 3), <http://www.corpusthomicum.org/ctc0101.html>; translation, with minor changes in punctuation, from C. I. Litzinger, O.P., trans. [St. Thomas Aquinas] *Commentary on Aristotle's Nicomachean Ethics* (Notre Dame, IN: Dumb Ox Books, 1964), p. 12. My reading of the passage is based on this clarifying translation.

²⁶ Ed. Venice, 1515, 108rb, at 1414a 8–10, emphasis added.

²⁷ *Sensibiles* recalls Albertus Magnus' gloss on *grosse*: “per sensibilia exempla.”

²⁸ See also Kempshall, “The Rhetoric of Giles of Rome's *De regimine principum*,” pp. 188–9.

²⁹ Staico, “Rhetorica e politica in Egidio Romano,” 14.

³⁰ As noted by Staico, “Rhetorica e politica in Egidio Romano,” 27.

³¹ Lambertini, “The Prince in the Mirror of Philosophy,” p. 1530.

³² On this, see Lambert Hendriks, *Choosing from Love: The Concept of “Electio” in the Structure of the Human Act According to Thomas Aquinas* (Siena: Cantagalli, 2010), pp. 132–4.

³³ In the later Middle Ages this organic metaphor was often (though not here) used to explain the balance between civil and religious power: see Alain de Libera, “Le sens commun au XIII^e siècle. De Jean de la Rochelle à Albert le Grand,” *Revue de métaphysique et de morale* 4 (1991): 475–96.

³⁴ On attributions to Aquinas, see Matthew Kempshall, *The Common Good in Late Medieval Political Thought* (Oxford: Clarendon, 1999), p. 132 and note. On other similarities between *De regimine principum* and *De regno*, see Roberto Lambertini, “‘Philosophus videtur tangere tres rationes.’ Egidio Romano lettore ed interprete della *Politica* nel terzo libro del *De regimine principum*,” *Documenti e studi sulla tradizione filosofica medievale* 1 (1990): 277–325.

³⁵ *De regno ad regem Cypria* book 1, chapter 4, in Thomas Aquinas, *Opera omnia* 42 (Rome: Editori di San Tommaso, 1979): 453. I have followed the chapter divisions in this edition.

³⁶ *De regno* 1 chapter 4, *Opera omnia* 42: 454.

³⁷ Lambertini, “The Prince in the Mirror of Philosophy,” p. 1524; Lambertini, “‘Philosophus videtur tangere tres rationes.’ Egidio Romano lettore ed interprete della *Politica*,” 296–7, 304–13. See also Matthew Giancarlo, “The Other British Constitution. *Fürstenspiegel* Texts, Popular Constitutionalism, and the Critique of Kingship in the Franco-British *De regimine* Tradition,” in Karina Kellermann et al., eds., *Criticising the Ruler in Pre-Modern Societies—Possibilities, Chances, and Methods* (Göttingen: V&R Unipress; Bonn University Press, 2019), pp. 89–117 (at pp. 92–5).

³⁸ This can be read as a distant restatement of the Ciceronian notion of “love” or *amicitia* as political duty or harmonious consensus; cf., James McEvoy, “De la *philia* païenne à l'*amicitia* chrétienne: rupture et continuité,” in Bazán et al., eds., *Les philosophies morales et politiques au Moyen Âge* 1: 136–47.

³⁹ Cf., Aquinas, *Summa theologiae* II–II q. 29 art. 6 on whether hatred is universal.

⁴⁰ In terms of Aristotle's position, the potential inconsistency is that if hatred is not accompanied by pain, then it must be accompanied by pleasure. See Konstan, *The Emotions of the Ancient Greeks*, p. 192.

⁴¹ Matthew Giancarlo makes a related argument about the simultaneous constitution of the prince and the prince's sovereignty through the genre of the *Fürstenspiegel*: see "Mirror, Mirror: Princely Hermeneutics, Practical Constitutionalism, and the Genres of the English *Fürstenspiegel*," *Exemplaria* 27 (2015): 35–54.

⁴² Pierre Thillet, "Réflexions sur la paraphrase de la *Rhétorique* d'Aristote," in Jean Jolivet, ed., *Multiple Averroès* (Paris: Les Belles Lettres, 1978), pp. 105–15 (at p. 109).

⁴³ Cicero, *Topica* 13.55–6, defines it as an argument from contraries, where an assumption must be drawn from a juxtaposition. On other uses, see the introduction in Boethius's *De topicis differentiis*, trans. Stump, pp. 25–6; Manfred Kraus, "Enthymem," in Gert Ueding et al., eds., *Historisches Wörterbuch der Rhetorik*, 12 vols. (Tübingen: Max Niemeyer, 1992–2015), 2: 1197–22 (at pp. 1210–12).

⁴⁴ *Institutio oratoria* 1.10.37; and 5.10.1–7, addressing the various terminologies associated with the concept and meanings attached to it.

⁴⁵ This is stated clearly, for example, in the *Ars rhetorica* of C. Julius Victor (fourth century): "Enthymeme est imperfectus syllogismus," ed. Giomini and Celentano, 2, 2 (p. 53). Cf., Lausberg, *A Handbook of Literary Rhetoric*, §371.

⁴⁶ Halm, ed., *RLM*, pp. 45, 27. This idea is also in Quintilian (5.14.1), noting that the term can be used in reference to the argument and to the expression of the argument. The fourteenth-century treatise *Tria sunt* invokes the enthymeme as a device of pithiness and brevity in letter-writing: Camargo, ed., *Tria sunt*, 3.51 (pp. 92–3). Conley, "The Enthymeme in Perspective," is helpful on the shifting terminology and definition; and see the historical survey of usages in Paul A. Holloway, "The Enthymeme as an Element of Style in Paul," *Journal of Biblical Literature* 120 (2001): 329–39.

⁴⁷ John D. Moores, *Wrestling with Rationality in Paul: Romans 1–8 in a New Perspective* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1995), pp. 21–8.

⁴⁸ On the burden of proof for rhetorical analysis of Scripture, see, for example, Margaret M. Mitchell, "Rhetorical Handbooks in Service of Biblical Exegesis: Eustathius of Antioch take Origen Back to School," in John Fotopoulos, ed., *The New Testament and Early Christian Literature in Greco-Roman Context; Studies in Honor of David E. Aune* (Leiden: Brill, 2006), pp. 349–67.

⁴⁹ George A. Kennedy, *New Testament Interpretation through Rhetorical Criticism* (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1984), pp. 48–53.

⁵⁰ See Marc J. Debanné, *Enthymemes in the Letters of St. Paul* (London and New York: T. & T. Clark International, 2006), pp. 172–4; cf., Moores, *Wrestling with Rationality*, pp. 33, 38–9.

⁵¹ The other two kinds that he has mentioned are the hypothetical syllogism and the categorical syllogism.

⁵² Cassiodorus also marks an enthymeme at Psalm 140, "Domine, clamavi ad te, exaudi me" (ed. Adriaen, 2: 1262).

⁵³ *Aegidii Romani opera omnia* I.6, *Repertorio dei sermoni*, ed. Concetta Luna, (Florence: Olschki, 1990): 391; on the dates, diffusion, and preaching of the sermons, see the editor's introduction, 28–34.

⁵⁴ 1607 ed., pp. 485–7. For conceptual and verbal parallels between *De regimine* and some of Giles' other sermons, see *Repertorio dei sermoni*, ed. Luna, 33.

⁵⁵ See this chapter, pp. 217–20.

⁵⁶ Coleman, *A History of Political Thought from the Middle Ages to the Renaissance*, pp. 69–71.

⁵⁷ See Elizabeth A. R. Brown, "The Prince is Father to the King: The Character and Childhood of Philip the Fair of France," *Mediaeval Studies* 49 (1987): 282–334.

⁵⁸ Cf., Coleman, *A History of Political Thought from the Middle Ages to the Renaissance*, p. 70.

⁵⁹ Elizabeth A. R. Brown, "Persona et Gesta: The Image and Deeds of the Thirteenth-Century Capetians 3: The Case of Philip the Fair," *Viator* 19 (1988): 219–46 (at p. 235).

⁶⁰ Brown, "Persona et Gesta...The Case of Philip the Fair," p. 228.

⁶¹ *Recueil des historiens des Gaules et de la France*, vol. 21, ed. Martin Bouquet (Paris: Imprimerie impériale, 1855), p. 661, <https://archive.org/stream/recueildeshistor21bouq#page/660/mode/2up>. See also Brown, "The Prince is Father to the King," p. 309.

⁶² Cf., Virginia Cox, "Medieval Rhetoric and Politics," in Michael J. MacDonald, *The Oxford Handbook of Rhetorical Studies* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2017), pp. 329–40.

⁶³ A Castilian translation of the late fourteenth century uses the first Castilian translation of 1345; a German translation that comes down to us in a fragment from about 1400 is indebted to Gauchy; and a French version of the fifteenth century revises the French translation of "Guillaume" from 1330; Perret, *Les traductions française du De regimine principum*, pp. 35, 37, 39–40, 81.

⁶⁴ Fiammetta Papi, "Giles of Rome's *De regimine principum* and its Vernacular Translations: The Reception of the Aristotelian Tradition and the Problem of *Courtesy*," in Luca Bianchi, Simon Gilson, and Jill Kraye, eds., *Vernacular Aristotelianism in Italy from the Fourteenth to the Seventeenth Century* (London: Warburg Institute, 2016), pp. 7–29; and Papi, "Sulla semantica della cortesia. Riflessioni su una definizione dantesca," *Italianistica* 44 (2015): 209–21.

⁶⁵ See Perret, *Les traductions française du De regimine principum*, p. 36 (Castilian glossed version), p. 37 (Catalan glossed version), pp. 66–71 (the French translation of "Guillaume" from 1330), and pp. 87–91 (anonymous fifteenth-century French version amplified with new biblical, patristic, and philosophical matter).

6

Political Poetics and the Aristotelian Turn

Dante, Chaucer, and Hoccleve

In the *Rhetoric*, Aristotle cites the saying of the poets that the unlearned speak to crowds as if “inspired by the Muses.” For Aristotle, this illustrates the charming brevity of the enthymeme. Where the educated reason through axioms and universals, the unlearned convey their meaning through particulars and experience (1395b 25–31). Moerbeke’s translation rendered this: “sicut aiunt poete ineruditos apud populum magis musice dicere” (according to the poets, the uneducated speak to the populace in more charming cadences). In his commentary, Giles of Rome elaborates this pronouncement to mean that enthymematic speech is close to poetry or is like a form of poetry: the uneducated “speak like the poets speak, and because popular ears are charmed by harmoniousness of words [*consonantia verborum*] and the speeches are delivered rhythmically, the public gives them credence; in this way they produce agreement... entrancing the audience with harmonious words” (77va). Giles himself never adopted poetry, with its harmony or *consonantia*, as a medium of persuasion. But his purpose of speaking in a manner that is *figuralis et grossus* gave the persuasive “oratory” of *De regimine principum* a powerful handle on the enthymematic effects that can also be found in poetic speech. From Aristotle’s *Rhetoric*, Giles of Rome absorbed a theoretical language that justified using emotions as part of political reasoning. The *Rhetoric* also provided him with a strategy for accomplishing that reasoning through the “poetic” (or poetry-like) device of the enthymeme.

The new advent of Aristotle's *Rhetoric* in the West did not, of course, create emotional speech or the presence of emotion in reasoning, nor did it inaugurate enthymematic discourse that draws on the passions. But it did introduce the medieval West to a systematic rhetorical theory that could account for why such brevity of argument is emotionally effective. It named and described the reasoning device that places emotion at the center of persuasion, the enthymeme.

We cannot assume that most writers, outside of the relatively elite university and clerical milieux, knew the *Rhetoric*. Two precocious Italian translations from the middle of the fourteenth century are known to us, though they seem to have had little circulation or impact on medieval vernacular readers.¹ There is no comparable translation activity in northern Europe. But with much of its emotional theory mediated through the “oratorical” art of Giles of Rome’s vastly popular *De regimine principum*, the *Rhetoric* could contribute to the formal apprehension of how persuasion achieves its effects. More precisely, the mediation of the *Rhetoric* through *De regimine principum* justified—even indirectly—the role of emotion in political persuasion. In this way, too, what persuasive practice *could* recognize, in the wake of Aristotle’s *Rhetoric*, is how poetry contributes to proof. This is not the same thing as the affecting charm of poetic eloquence, however moving that may be. Rather, it is a poetics at the heart of any good argumentation. The art that Aristotle taught in his *Rhetoric* shows how to harness this power.

If the force of emotion is expressed through the “poetry” of the enthymeme, what are the fields in which we can find this activated? In this chapter I turn to poetry itself, poetry written in the wake of *De regimine principum* and arising from the sphere of political thought. It is possible to say that, to a great degree, *De regimine principum* enabled such poetry: not that it enabled political poetry *tout court* (that is manifestly not true, as there has always been poetry that speaks to political purposes and immediacies), but that it fostered a certain politicization of poetry. By this I mean poetry that internalizes its political moment, that conceives of politics as a poetic matter, and that cannot help but understand emotion as the first order of political reasoning.

Here I will consider how the formal possibilities envisaged in *De regimine principum* could take poetic politics in new directions. This is not to claim that all literary production was transformed in the wake of the

Aristotelian rhetorical turn. Indeed, we have already seen in Petrarch's prose how the old habits of treating emotion as a dimension of style remained firmly in place. But the new possibilities resonate across some of the greatest innovations of fourteenth- and fifteenth-century poetry. I will focus here on three texts that can be read in the light of *De regimine principum*: Dante's *Convivio*, with emphasis on tractate IV and its *canzone*, part IV of Chaucer's *Knight's Tale*, and Hoccleve's Prologue to his *Regiment of Princes*. Two of these, *Convivio* and *Regiment of Princes*, engage directly and explicitly with Giles of Rome's work. Chaucer's *Knight's Tale* carries the accumulated influence of *De regimine* without directly citing it. I have chosen these texts on formal grounds as well, to showcase the enthymematic reasoning that lends its structure to their poetic persuasions. However, in the context of the larger argument here, these texts play indicative or representative roles. Other texts, especially within the vast *oeuvres* of Dante and Chaucer, might answer to this inquiry in other forceful ways. Gower's *Confessio amantis*, especially his account of the sciences in book 7, also resonates with an Aristotelian ethics born of his familiarity with *De regimine principum*.² I use the texts considered below to exemplify how emotion figures as a form of proof in carefully plotted persuasions.

6.1 The Poetry of Enthymeme in the *Convivio*

Dante started but did not finish writing the *Convivio* between 1304 and 1307, not very long after *De regimine principum* began to circulate, and when the earliest French and Italian translations of the 1280's were still fresh. Let us begin here with what is known with certainty about Dante's reading of *De regimine principum*. The *Convivio* yields two obvious encounters with it. One is an explicit citation in tractate IV, chapter 24, a reference to "Egidius the Hermit" in the discussion of the four stages of life—youth, maturity, old age, and extreme old age—corresponding to the last stanza (lines 121–40) of the *canzone* explicated here:

E lasciando lo figurato che di questo diverso processo dell'etadi tiene Virgilio nello Eneida, e lasciando stare quello che Egidio eremita ne dice nella prima parte dello Reggimento de' Principi, e lasciando stare quello che ne tocca Tulio in quello delli Officii... [IV.24.9]³

And leaving aside Virgil's figurative treatment in the *Aeneid* of the different behaviors of each stage of life, and leaving aside also what Egidius the [Augustinian] Hermit says in the first part of his *Regiment of Princes*, and leaving aside what Tully touches on in *De officia*...⁴

Dante's discussions of the ethical outlooks proper to the young, the mature, the old, and the very old (IV.24–8) bear some resemblances to the chapters on the mores of youth and old age in *De regimine principum* 1.4.1–4: for example, his praise of the bashfulness, impressionability, and modesty of youth seems close to the virtues of youth discussed in *De regimine principum* 1.4.1. From these chapters in *De regimine* and those that follow on the nobility, the wealthy, and the powerful, Dante would also have found a fair summary of the chapters on social types in Aristotle's *Rhetoric* book 2.

The second encounter is a buried reference uncovered by recent scholarship. In tractate III, explicating line 57 in the second *canzone*, “dico nelli occhi e nel suo dolce riso” (I mean in her eyes and in her sweet smile), Dante presents a catalogue of the emotions, famously citing as his source Aristotle's *Rhetoric*:

Dimostrasi nelli occhi tanto manifesta, che conoscer si può la sua presente passione, chi bene là mira. Onde, con ciò sia cosa che sei passioni siano propie dell'anima umana, delle quali fa menzione lo Filosofo nella sua Rettorica, cioè **grazia, zelo, misericordia, invidia, [amore]**⁵ e **vergogna**, di nulla di queste puote l'anima essere passionata che alla finestra delli occhi non vegna la sembianza, se per grande virtù dentro non si chiude. (III.8.10)

She shows herself so clearly through her eyes that anyone who knows well how to look may recognize her present passion. Whence, as there are six passions proper to the human soul, which the Philosopher mentions in his *Rhetoric*, that is graciousness, zeal, pity, envy, [love], and shame, the soul cannot become impassioned by any of these without its semblance coming to the window of the eyes, unless hidden within by great strength.

The invocation of Aristotle lends decisive authority to this list of the passions. But as Gianfranco Fioravanti has pointed out, the number and order of the passions most closely resembles *De regimine principum* 1.3.10. Here, Giles first enumerates the twelve passions that he has so far considered (love, hate, desire, repulsion, delight, sadness, hope, despair, fear, courage, anger, and mansuetude, based on his account of these in his earlier commentary), and then notes that beyond these, Aristotle seems to list six further passions:

videlicet, **zelum, gratiam, nemesin** (quod idem est quod indignatio de prosperitatibus malorum), **misericordiam, invidiam, et erubescientiam** sive verecundiam. (1.3.10, 1607)

ed., p. 181)

that is, zeal, graciousness, “nemesis” (which is indignation at the prosperity of wicked people) pity, envy, and modesty or shame.⁶

Of course, Giles’ list of six “extra” emotions bears no relation to the order in which Aristotle analyzed them, as they are leftovers from the account in the *Rhetoric* that Giles did not treat in *De regimine principum* among his twelve major passions. But the order and content of Dante’s list of six passions (grace, zeal, pity, envy, [love], and shame) is close to Giles’ list, and equally far from the order of Aristotle’s text. It suggests that Dante took his information about the passions from this chapter of *De regimine*, not from the *Rhetoric*.⁷ There is also an important point to be made about the term “amore,” as I have indicated (in brackets, above) after “invidia.” Although Dante promises six emotions, most manuscripts of the *Convivio* have simply a blank space between “invidia” and “vergogna”; other manuscripts insert the words “essere l’anima.”⁸ There is a long editorial tradition of supplying the word “amore” (which the critical edition by Ageno follows), presumably deducing from the citation of Aristotle that Dante surely would have included “love” among the main passions, and that the blank space or the other terms are products of scribal misunderstanding. But as Fiammetta Papi argues, “essere l’anima” makes no sense in this context, and more importantly, scribes were not likely to mistake a common word like “amore” if it had been in the archetype. However, the unfamiliar Greek word *nemesis* from Giles’ list might easily be misunderstood by a scribe, and either left blank or rendered mistakenly by such attempts as “essere l’anima.” In other words, given the formal similarity of Dante’s list of passions to Giles’ list of six, there is a strong case for inserting “nemesis” (or “nemesare”) into the lacuna, as Papi and Fioravanti have argued.⁹ That Dante names Aristotle rather than Giles is understandable, given Giles’ continuous references to *Rhetoric* 2 in the section on emotions. It is possible also that he extracts this list of six from Giles’ chapter because it came to him already stamped with the prestige of Aristotle’s name.¹⁰

Significantly, it is in *Convivio*, with its emphasis on character and on ethics in both public and personal senses, that Dante is moved to use *De regimine principum*. We might expect it to figure in Dante’s most overtly political polemic, the *Monarchia*, where it would lend authority to the

extended arguments in favor of monarchy. But in fact *Monarchia* sees Dante relying on the Thomistic *De regno*. By contrast, he cites *De regimine* in *Convivio* IV in a discourse on *ēthos* or character, and he uses it in *Convivio* III to establish the passions that can be known through the eyes of his lady, Philosophy. What these invocations in the *Convivio* and their perhaps surprising absence in *Monarchia* suggest is that he remembers *De regimine principum* as an ethical treatise rather than as political theory per se. It is this memory of *De regimine* and its method of harnessing emotion into the formal terms of argument about political life that we will explore here as it resonates in the *Convivio*. The memory of *De regimine* enabled a vocabulary of ethics;¹¹ in a different way it supported the venturing of new formal possibilities.

* * *

The *Convivio* is incomplete, and thus whatever purpose would have been achieved in the fourteen projected *canzoni* and their explications (see I.1.14) remains unfulfilled. But early on it prepares its readers to receive the persuasions of its ethical teaching, and it builds these rhetorical conditions into place. The persuasive design that it imagines bears comparison with that of the fully achieved *De regimine principum*. Indeed, there is much to suggest that *Convivio* takes apart, distills, and reassembles *De regimine principum* as an argument on ethics in the public sphere.

The introductory tractate clearly situates the work in a rhetorical culture. The question of the speaker's *ēthos* arises early, when Dante invokes his *Vita nuova* in contrast to his present work, *Convivio*, to promise that if the earlier work was "fervida e passionata," the new work must be "temperata e virile" (I.1.16), as befits a work of maturity. Here, he anticipates the discussion of the stages of life in IV.24 (noted above), where he will cite Giles' account of the passions and behaviors associated with the stages from childhood to old age, based in turn on the character types outlined in *Rhetoric* 2, chapters 12–17. The establishment of *ēthos* also points to what Albert Ascoli has explored as a "crisis of authority" around self-representation in the work and self-presentation to the courtly readers that constitute his audience in his exile.¹² The rhetoricians, Dante says, do not permit speaking about oneself except under compelling circumstances: this is because to speak of someone is necessarily to praise or blame them, and

self-blame and self-praise are equally problematic (I.2.3–11). Versions of this theme are sounded in dictaminal teaching about observing proper forms of address, as in Guido Faba’s caution: “nota quod in salutatione non debent poni nomina que pertineant ad laudem mittentis sed tantum recipientis” (note that in the salutation we must not put titles of address that pertain to praise of the sender but only [as pertain to praise of] the recipient).¹³ As Dante elaborates the commonplace, self-praise or censure both involve a form of self-criticism: self-blame is public acknowledgment of a fault, while self-praise is what we now would call defensiveness. Both, moreover, are forms of false testimony, as we can never measure ourselves accurately (I.2.4–9). This self-reflexive examination of the ethics of epideictic rhetoric ends by invoking two examples of the rhetorical mastery of self-narrative, Boethius’ *Consolatio* and Augustine’s *Confessions*. Here, from the retrospect of *Convivio*, the passions that were manifest in *Vita nuova* are revealed to have been motivated by the intellectual force of “active virtue” (*vertù*), which will be evident in the pedagogical purpose of the present text (I.2.15–16). Dante’s own reputation has been hostage to the contingencies of people’s judgment, whether dictated by their senses, their passions, or some knowledge of his own faults; thus to repair the fissures in his public image, this work demands a style of greater gravity and “authority” (I.4.3–13).

Appreciating the rhetorical groundedness of this setting can recondition the way in which we approach the most commented subject of the first tractate, the defense of writing in the *volgare* (chapters 5–13). To be sure, Dante presents a bold (although paradoxically inconclusive) language theory, balancing the noble sovereignty of Latin against counter-claims for the power of the vernacular that derives from intimate usage.¹⁴ But the fundamental themes of intelligibility to the many and usefulness resonate strikingly with Giles of Rome’s rhetorical understanding of purpose as laid out in the preface to *De regimine principum*. The subjects are not the same, but the respective functions correspond.

We have seen how Giles frames his *modus procedendi* as *figuralis et grossus*, because the subject matter of morals requires speaking by approximation, that is, in a manner that is *verisimilis* or schematic and rough.¹⁵ Speaking this way also “inflames the affections.” The audience for discourse about moral matters is the whole public, both princes and their subjects, and the procedure of reasoning must be simple and direct so that

the teaching can be extended to the whole populace through arguments that are “felt by the senses” (*sensibiles*). Rhetoric itself, Giles had explained in his commentary on Aristotle’s work, is a kind of “rough (*grossa*) dialectic” aimed at persuading a large assembly. And the tool that will be most appropriate to such persuasions, as Giles understood, is the enthymeme.

Dante does not speak of a *grossa dialectica*, nor does he promise the ease of understanding a “broad and schematic” style. Indeed, unlike Giles, he does not propose to simplify his material for the benefit of an audience untrained in scholastic detail, insisting rather on the capacity of the vernacular to convey the loftiest and most original ideas (I.10.12). But he does offer a *modus procedendi*. In his discourse on language and on the benefits of using his own *volgare* as the medium of ethical teaching, there is a persuasive purpose that informs his metalinguistic reflections. So sublimated is this rhetorical mechanism that it does not announce itself.¹⁶ But it is present in the reasoning that supports the superiority of the *volgare* as a language of moral philosophy.

The memorable conceit of *canzoni* and the accompanying commentaries as master and servant, which relies on the further conceit of Latin as sovereign and vernacular as subordinate (I.5.5–6), gives rise to one of the work’s abiding metaphors, that the *canzoni* issue “commands” to the “serving” commentaries:

Questo signore, cioè queste canzoni, alle quali questo commento è per servo ordinato, comandano e vogliono essere disposte a tutti coloro alli quali puote venire sì lo loro intelletto, che quando parlano elle sieno intese; e nessuno dubita che s’elle comandassero a voce, che questo non fosse lo loro comandamento.

(I.7.11)

This master, namely the *canzoni* to which this commentary is appointed as a servant, commands and wants to be made accessible to all those whose intellect can surely rise to them, so that when they speak they might be understood. And nobody doubts that, were they to say it aloud, this would be their command.

The sovereign command of the *canzoni*, that they should be made accessible to all through the service of the commentaries, is not only metaphorical. In another sense the command is also quite real, as the *canzoni* are imperatives to immediate readers, those nobles, men and women, whose “bontà dell’animo” (excellence of intellect) makes them eager to learn even though their worldly cares have denied them the leisure to learn Latin (I.9.5). The ethical and philosophical exhortations of the

canzoni can be acted upon only if the audience can understand them properly through the guidance of the commentaries. There is an ambition to comprehend all desiring people:

Onde, con ciò sia cosa che molti più siano quelli che desiderano intendere quelle non litterati che litterati, séguitasi che non averebbe pieno lo suo comandamento come 'l volgare, [che] dalli litterati e non litterati è inteso. (I.7.12)

Whence, since it is the case that of those desiring to understand the *canzoni* many more are non-Latinate than Latinate, it follows that [a Latin commentary] would not have fulfilled the command like a vernacular one, which is understood by Latinate and non-Latinate readers alike.

This is certainly reminiscent of the moral imperative behind Giles' explanation of his *modus procedendi* in *De regimine*:

Quamvis enim non quilibet possit esse rex vel princeps, quilibet tamen summopere studere debet, ut talis sit, quod dignus sit regere et principari, quod esse non potest, nisi sciantur, et observentur, quae in hoc opere sunt dicenda; totus ergo populus auditor quodammodo est huius artis, sed pauci sunt vigentes acumine intellectus...Cum igitur totus populus subtilia comprehendere non possit, incedendum est in morali negocio figuraliter et grosse. (1.1.1.1607 ed., p. 4)

Although not everyone can be a king or a prince, anyone ought to strive intensively so that one may be the kind of person who is worthy to govern and rule, which one cannot be unless the matters to be set forth in this work are understood and heeded. For in a way the whole populace is an audience of this art, but few are empowered with intellectual acumen...Since the populace as a whole cannot understand subtleties, moral teaching must be approached schematically and roughly.

Even the exhortation to be the kind of audience who would strive intensively to understand and heed the ethical lessons contained in *De regimine principum* seems to be implicit in Dante's overtures to "those desiring to understand." But if for Giles this aim of reaching *totus populus* will be accomplished stylistically through a discourse that is *figuralis et grossus et* Dante embeds the accessibility even more deeply, in the choice of language itself, an empowered vernacular that will overcome differences of education to include desiring learners.¹⁷

In the largest sense, Dante's complementary theme of the usefulness of the vernacular recalls the persuasive groundwork of Giles' treatise on rulership:

Tornando dunque al principale proposito, dico che manifestamente si può vedere come lo latino averebbe a pochi dato lo suo beneficio, ma lo volgare servirà veramente a molti. Ché la bontà dell'animo, la quale questo servizio attende, è in coloro che per malvagia disusanza del

mondo hanno lasciata la litteratura a coloro che l'hanno fatta di donna meretrice; e questi nobili sono principi, baroni, cavalieri e molt'altra nobile gente, non solamente maschi ma femmine, che sono molti e molte in questa lingua, volgari, e non litterati. Ancora: non sarebbe lo latino stato datore d'utile dono, che sarà lo volgare. Però che nulla cosa è utile se non in quanto è usata...Lo dono veramente di questo comento è la sentenza delle canzoni alle quali fatto è, la qual massimamente intende inducere il uomini a scienza e a virtù...Questa sentenza non possono [non] avere in uso quelli nelli quali vera nobilità è seminata per lo modo che si dirà nel quarto trattato; e questi sono quasi tutti volgari... (I.9.4-9)

Turning then to my principal proposition, I say that one can see manifestly how Latin would be able to bring its benefit to only a few, but the vernacular will truly serve many. For excellence of mind, which awaits this benefit, is there in those who, through worldly cares, have sadly neglected Latin learning and left it to those who have turned it into a prostitute; and these nobles are princes, barons, knights and many other noble people, not only men but women too, who are many, he and she, in this vernacular language, and are not lettered in Latin. Moreover Latin would not have been the giver of a useful gift as would the vernacular. For nothing is useful except as used. The true gift of this commentary is the meaning of the *canzoni* for which it is made, which intends chiefly to lead men to knowledge and virtue... This meaning can be useful only to those in whom the seeds of true nobility have been planted, according to what will be said in the fourth tractate; and these people are almost all users of the vernacular.

With its potent appeal to the ethical desires of the intended noble readers who can realize their nobility when they read the moral philosophy of book IV, this surely carries a memory of the *modus procedendi* of *De regimine principum*.¹⁸ Giles stresses that the purpose of his strong and simple arguments, presented “persuasive et figuraliter” (persuasively and schematically), is that they should “move and inflame the affections” (“moveant et inflamment affectum,” 1607 ed., pp. 3–4), thus directing the will to desire what is good. Dante’s treatise likewise promises to “lead people to knowledge and virtue” (“inducere il uomini a scienza e a virtù”), appealing also to the emotional and sensual core of their desire. And as I have suggested, Dante’s *volgare*, although it promises no doctrinal simplification, is the functional equivalent of Giles’ *grossa dialectica*, the broad, schematic, and accessible teaching of moral philosophy in the *De regimine*. In like fashion, the *volgare* provides intelligibility. Aristotle’s *Rhetoric* is in the distant background here, felt through the more immediate force of *De regimine principum*, which had activated its rhetorical teaching.

The way has been prepared for the apotheosis of rhetoric in tractate II, unfolding from the invocation of the “third heaven” of *canzone* I, line 1: “Voi che ‘ntendendo il terzo ciel movete” (You who through understanding move the third heaven). In its literal meaning, we are told, the third heaven is that of Venus (II.2.7, 3.7); in its allegorical meaning, it is none other than

rhetoric (II.13.13). His address to those intelligences who move the heaven (lines 9–10), “però vi priego che lo mi ‘ntendiate. / Io vi dirò del cor la novitate” (and so I pray you to attend to what I say / I will speak of the novel state of my heart), is glossed at the literal level as a rhetorical overture, a capturing of attention and good will:

Ma però che in ciascuna maniera di sermone lo dicitore massimamente dee intendere alla persuasione, cioè all’abellire dell’audienza, sì come a quella ch’è principio di tutte l’altre persuasioni, come li rettorici sanno, e potentissima persuasione sia, a rendere l’uditore attento, promettere di dire nuove e grandissime cose; séguito io alla preghiera fatta dell’audienza questa persuasione, cioè, dico abellimento, annunziando loro la mia intenzione, la quale è di dire nuove cose...e grandi cose... (II.6.6)

But since in any kind of discourse the speaker should be focused primarily on persuading, that is, on charming his audience to listen, for as the rhetoricians know, charm is the source of all other persuasions, and since the most powerful persuasion for making the listener attentive is to promise to speak of things that are novel and grand, I have this persuasion—by which I mean charmingly beautiful discourse—follow upon the plea to the hearers, announcing to them my intention, which is to speak of novel...and grand things.

Rhetorical practice here is presented as charm (“abellimento”), the capturing of good will (*captatio benevolentiae*) by promising novelties and grand ideas. On first view this seems a far cry from the intensity of ethical appeal offered in the first tractate. But the argument that develops from this will find in novel expressions a pathway into the grandest considerations of the work: the speaker’s discovery of the love of philosophy through the charming guidance of rhetoric embodied in the writings of Cicero and Boethius, those sweet philosophers whose rhetoric moves the heaven of Venus (II.12.3, II.15.1).¹⁹ Sweetness is a property of rhetoric, but here in particular it is a commanding sweetness that captures the core of affective response and leads to knowledge and understanding.²⁰ This directive characterizes the function of the *Convivio* as a textual event:

...la Rettorica è soavissima di tutte l’altre scienze, però che a ciò principalmente intende; [e] appare da mane quando dinanzi dal viso dell’uditore lo rettorico parla; appare da sera, cioè retro, quando da lettera, per la parte remota, si parla per lo rettorico. (II.13.14)

...rhetoric is the sweetest of all the other sciences, because sweetness is its principal purpose; it appears in the morning when the rhetorician speaks directly before the face of the listener; it appears at night, that is, from behind, when the rhetorician speaks, at a remove, through written words.

As “sweetness,” rhetoric reveals the affective dimension of philosophy itself. Philosophy embodies “pietade” (II.10.5–6), often translated as

“compassion” but much closer to “piety,” as in Dante’s own invocation of Virgil’s “pius Aeneas.” This is not to be understood as “pity” (“misericordia”), which is an emotional effect of “pietade” that can be evoked; it is an abiding virtue. Philosophy is also “cortese” (10.7–8), *cortesia* being a noble virtue that Dante again differentiates sharply from one of its effects, largesse (“larghezza”).²¹ Here the fine-tuned polemic about “cortesia” (a notion which its English equivalent “courtesy” only partially captures) anticipates the critique of the debased value of nobility in tractate IV. It also opens a window onto Dante’s reception—directly and via its vernacular translations into French and Italian—of *De regimine principum*. Here Giles considered at length how the moral virtue of *curialitas* (courtliness) is a counterpart of the moral virtue of *nobilitas*: nobility by birth can maintain nobility “secundum mores” if nobles continually aspire to *curialitas* (2.3.18, 1607 ed., pp. 391–4).²² If tractate IV will attempt to teach the baronial courts about being noble *secundum mores*, then Philosophy, first apprehended through the sweetness of rhetoric, epitomizes the noble virtue of *cortesia*. On the logic of tractate II, the passage to a morally and politically redemptive knowledge of *cortesia* will be through the suasive powers of rhetoric.

* * *

Convivio IV opens on a different note from the previous three tractates, and in a decidedly more somber tone. The opening *canzone* expresses a change of purpose: to leave aside the “dolci rime d’amor” that had previously moved him, with hopes to return to them, but not at present. Where the *canzoni* of tractates II and III trace ascending arcs of love and praise (counterbalanced by fear and humility), this *canzone* is harsh and earthbound. In rhymes that are “aspra e sottile” rather than gentle and accommodating, he will refute the false and base “judgment” purveyed by those who claim that nobility derives from wealth. He will speak about the nature of nobility itself, and in the second stanza enters directly into his refutation of the false commonplaces (I quote stanzas 2–4):

2 Tale imperò che gentilezza volse,
 secondo ’l suo parere,
 che fosse antica possession d’avere
 con reggimenti belli;

ed altri fu di più lieve sapere,
 che tal detto rivolse,
 e l'ultima particola ne tolse, 27
 ché non l'avea fors'elli!
 Di retro da costui van tutti quelli
 che fan gentile per ischiatta altrui
 che lungiamente in gran ricchezza è stata;
 ed è tanto durata
 la così falsa oppinïon tra nui, 33
 che l'uom chiama colui
 omo gentil, che può dicere: "Io fui
 nepote," o "figlio, di cotal valente,"
 benché sia da niente.
 Ma vilissimo sembra, a chi 'l ver guata,
 cui è scorto 'l cammino e poscia l'erra, 39
 e tocca a tal, ch'è morto e va per terra!
 3 Chi diffinisce: "Omo è legno animato,"
 prima dice non vero,
 e dopo 'l falso parla non intero;
 ma più forse non vede.
 Similmente fu chi tenne impero 45
 in diffinire errato,
 ché prima puose 'l falso, e d'altro lato,
 con difetto procede:
 ché le divizie, sì come si crede,
 non posson gentilezza dar né tòrre,
 però che vili son da lor natura: 51
 poi, chi pinga figura,
 se non può esser lei, non la può porre;
 né la diritta torre
 fa piegar rivo che da lungi corre.
 Che siano vili appare ed imperfette,
 ché, quantunque collette, 57
 non posson quïetar, ma dan più cura;
 onde l'animo ch'è dritto e verace
 per lor discorrimento non si sface.
 4 Né voglion che vil uom gentil divegna,
 né di vil padre scenda
 nazione che per gentil già mai s'intenda: 63
 questo è da lor confesso:
 onde lor ragion par che sé offenda
 in tanto [in] quanto assegna
 che tempo a gentilezza si convegna,
 diffinando con esso.
 Ancor, segue di ciò che innanzi ho messo, 69

che siàn tutti gentili o ver villani,
 o che non fosse ad uom cominciamento;
 ma ciò io non consento,
 néd ellino altresì, se son cristiani!
 Per che a 'ntelletti sani
 è manifesto i lor diri esser vani;
 e io così per falsi li riprovo,
 e da lor mi rimovo;
 e dicer voglio omai, sì com'io sento,
 che cosa è gentilezza, e da che vène,
 e dirò i segni che 'l gentile uom tène.

75

(lines 21–80)

2. There was a ruler of the Empire who maintained that in his view nobility consisted in long-standing possession of wealth together with pleasing manners; and someone else, of shallower wit, reconsidering this dictum, dispensed with the last little detail—lacking it perhaps himself! In his wake follow all those who count a man as noble for belonging to a family which has been very rich for a long time; and so ingrained has this absurd opinion become among us, that people call a man noble who can say: “I am grandson, or son, of such and such a great man,” while in himself he’s a nonentity. But to those who look at the truth, a man seems doubly base, who, having been shown the right path, then goes astray—so far astray that he’s a dead man walking!

3. If anyone says: “Man is an animate tree”: first what he says isn’t true, and then, after the falsehood, he is leaving the definition incomplete—but perhaps he can see no further. Mistaken in just this way was he who ruled the Empire: for, first he has stated a falsehood and then, this apart, what he goes on to say is deficient. For—contrary to what is generally believed—riches cannot either confer or take away nobility, being themselves base by nature: thus he who paints a form, if he cannot “be” it, cannot set it down; nor is an upright tower made to lean by a stream that flows at a distance. That riches are based and defective is clear from this, that in whatever quantity they are amassed, they bring no peace but only increasing anxiety: hence the mind that is upright and truthful is not shattered by their loss.

4. Now my opponents maintain that a base man can never himself become noble, and that the offspring of a base father can never be reckoned noble: this is what they say. Clearly then their position is self-contradictory, inasmuch as they make time a factor in nobility, including it in their definition. Again, it follows from the foregoing that either we are all noble or all plebeian, or else that mankind didn’t have one beginning; but this alternative I do not admit, and neither do they if they are Christians. Consequently it is clear to every healthy mind that their statements are groundless; and so, having refuted them as false, I turn away from them. And now I for my part will say what I think about nobility—what it is, whence it comes, and the distinctive features that a noble person possesses.²³

This *canzone*, as Dante reiterates in the tractate that follows, is straight-talking and austere, where the previous *canzoni* were allegorical and ornate. As such, Dante says, there will be no need to expound an allegory: the commentary will take as literal speech the words of the poem and will proceed to a careful demonstration of the propositions voiced there.

In key respects this poem resembles many other poems from the contemporary and older genres of satire and complaint, and its general themes are familiar to us now from some of its best-known derivatives and borrowings, including the loathly lady's discourse on true nobility in the *Wife of Bath's Tale*.²⁴ In the framework of the *Convivio*, what makes this poem notable is that it is a powerful but also provisional argument: it advances claims that it does not attempt to demonstrate logically or philosophically because those demonstrations will come later, in the long prose tractate that accompanies the *canzone*. Yet it is presented as if it should be convincing in itself.²⁵ The assertions that wealth does not equal nobility, that such an engrained view is patently false, and that baseness masquerades as nobility—all of these claims depend on the audience sharing certain beliefs and more importantly emotions about the undeserving rich or high-born who have manufactured a myth about their own moral superiority.

The poem is an enthymematic proof. The premises—that nobility is a moral virtue, that wealth and lineage are not the bearers of virtue—could all be demonstrated (and will be later). But here the premises are just assumed (allowing Dante to smuggle in what he presents here as a radical idea, to decouple inherited rank from nobility).²⁶ The *canzone* can stand on its own as an argument that is useful for persuading a particular public which might share or be receptive to these ideas. As a compressed form of reasoning, it relies on the audience *supplying* the necessary connections between stated and unstated premises, and the audience does this from its store of beliefs, values and, especially, emotions. In this case, the stated propositions about true merit are expected to tap into a reservoir of anxiety or indignation about the nature of nobility and produce conviction in the truth of the arguer's case.

While we may not think of the enthymeme in sensuous formal terms, we encounter it here in a literary guise, with its “harsh and difficult rhymes,” driven by the outrage of the speaker which demands to be met by a comparable response in the reader. The method exemplified in *De regimine principum* imprints itself on this text as a kind of memory to be amplified in poetic terms. In *De regimine*, the enthymematic proofs summon the presumed values of the reader, as in the proofs laid out in book 3 about the arrogance of the newly rich compared to royalty who are already habituated to power.²⁷ By contrast, in the third *canzone* of the *Convivio* the poetic form

opens a further space for the passionate indignation of the speaker to capture the reader's attention, even as the proofs speak directly to the reader's values and experience.

The enthymematic movements of the *canzone* invite closer rhetorical analysis. Here I will exemplify how this dynamic emerges by reading the rhetorical movements of stanzas 2–4. Lines 21–9 set forth two versions of the proposition to be demolished: the erroneous view, attributed to the emperor Frederick II (as revealed in IV.3.6), that “nobility” consists in old money and “fine manners” (“reggimenti belli”);²⁸ and the even more erroneous view that only old money matters to produce “gentilezza” (the word carrying the sense here of a form of moral perfection).²⁹ But the refutation at this critical early moment rests on nothing but assertion and a sharp disparagement of the source of the second opinion (that only old money counts) as someone of “più lieve sapere” (25). How does this bald assertion find its receptive target? How is the audience made ready to accept it as a truth? The turn to an appeal comes immediately after the assertion: “Di retro da costui van tutti quelli / che fan gentile per ischiatta altrui, / che lungiamente in gran ricchezza è stata” (There follow in his wake all those / Who count a man as noble if his stock / Has had great wealth for quite some time, 29–31). If, as he goes on to say, this notion has become entrenched common opinion (32–3), then potentially his own audience is guilty of this misguided and ignoble belief. But that cannot be, because such an audience would be impervious to his reasoning. And indeed the text swiftly tacks in another direction by naming its desired audience, those whose beliefs must be reflected in the polemic: his audience must be “anyone who sees the truth” (“chi ’l ver guata,” 38) and thereby can discriminate between baseness and virtue. The *canzone* has created its morally receptive audience (in the third person) by peremptorily excluding vulgar opinion and perforce incorporating its readers into a higher value system. If the imagined “public” of the *Convivio* was the actual ranking nobility mentioned in book I.9.5 (see above), the princes, barons, and knights chided directly at IV.17.13 for wasting resources in internal conflict and competition, how to secure their agreement here except by treating them as if they already agree?³⁰ In other words, it identifies them with values to be desired, appealing to the appetite for social and emotional well-being. The proposition assumes an audience that would like to believe its own nobility, or that of others, to be deserved inherently rather than by

accident. It is a tactical flattery, intended to persuade in the absence of detailed proofs and to define and capture the “uncommon opinion” that the audience ought to hold.

Stanza 3 takes apart the erroneous declaration attributed to Frederick II that is founded on false common opinion: “ché le divizie, sì come si crede, / non posson gentilezza dar né tòrre, / però che vili son da lor natura...Che siano vili appare ed imperfette, / ché, quantunque collette, / non posson quïetar, ma dan più cura” (49–51, 56–8). There are two enthymemes here. The first, that riches have no power to give or strip away nobility because they are base, depends on an assumed equivalence between riches and baseness, without a definition of what baseness is. The second enthymeme is more complex: riches are both base and imperfect, because they cannot bring satisfaction (or peace), but only greater care. This may seem a complete argument, but what is missing is the middle premise that would define imperfection (and the chain of supporting reasons that would define perfection), which would explain why an imperfect entity cannot be the basis for a state of perfection (peace or satisfaction). This chain of careful argumentation about the nature of perfection will be supplied later in tractate IV (chapters 10–11, 13–14, and 16). But the efficacy of the enthymeme in the *canzone* comes from its emotional appeal: riches bring worry in their wake (58). The *canzone* also assumes a reader schooled in Boethius’ *Consolatio* and in the gospels: the loss of riches does not faze someone of true and upright mind.

Stanza 4 declares the contradiction inherent to the premise that nobility is founded on lineage, for this assumes that time confers nobility: “che tempo a gentilezza si convegna” (67). The reasons behind this are complex, but they are not unraveled at this point. The refutation of this assumption and of the errors that follow from it is only performative, the illocutionary “e io così per falsi li riprovo, / e da lor mi rimovo” (76–7). The arguments set forth in the final three stanzas (lines 81–140) are not simple: they establish the governing definitions of virtue and nobility, and the nature of the soul in which these qualities make their true home. The line of reasoning identifying virtue with happiness, virtue with goodness, and thus virtue with nobility is abbreviated and distilled, invoking Aristotle’s *Ethics* to ground the authority of the propositions. These final stanzas preview succinctly, and with condensed emotional force, the arguments that will unfold in explicative detail over the thirty prose chapters of tractate IV. In

Convivio IV, the greatest power of enthymematic speech is distinctive to its poetry. The inverse of this is also true: enthymemes afford this harsh and austere *canzone* its surprising poetic power. Through its enthymematic structure and straightforward emotional appeals, the poem is meant to have succeeded in landing its argument on its own terms.

Yet it can be reinforced with more precise proofs. The prose tractate that follows will have a different kind of relationship to this *canzone* than what the previous prose commentaries have claimed for their respective poems. For this tractate will not even pretend to be exegetical, as the other prose tractates have promised, but demonstrative, offering the very kinds of proofs and chains of reasoning that are conspicuously absent in the enthymematic movements of the *canzone*.³¹ The tractate has no need to promise exegetical unveiling, because the song has proclaimed itself to be of a different order from the previous allegories. This order is “aspra e sottile,” the first term referring to sound and style (harshness) and the second to content (intellectual subtlety or difficulty).³² Appended to this is the suggestion of another *modus procedendi*, that of satire, which does not speak “sotto alcuna figura” (under any figure, IV.1.10), but reveals itself plainly through the “naked” letter without recourse to figurative obscurity.³³ The notion of satire as non-figurative and nakedly literal, rendering the classical satirists somehow appropriate reading for unsophisticated children, has a long medieval tradition.³⁴ But if Dante’s song is harshly literal, without “alcuna figura,” the other side of his formula is that it is “sottile,” difficult: it is not the superficial satirical poetry of childish schoolrooms. Rather, it has the urgency of moral teaching, and must be delivered quickly like a medicine to an ailing patient:

E però che in questa canzone s’intese a rimedio così necessario, non era buono sotto alcuna figura parlare, ma convennesi per via tostana questa medicina [dare], acciò che fosse tostana la sanitate. (IV.1.10)

And since this *canzone* is to be taken as a very necessary remedy, I did not think it useful to speak under any figure; rather it was appropriate to deliver this medicine through the quickest means, by which means health would be quickly recovered.

In its moral urgency this explanation of procedure recalls the *modus procedendi* of *De regimine principum*, which, as we have seen, is “figuralis et grossus,” a style appropriate to the subject of ethics. As we have seen, *figuralis* there does not mean “figurative language,” but rather signifies a

sketching out through approximations, as the science of ethics produces probabilities rather than positive demonstrations.³⁵ Both texts emphasize, albeit in somewhat different theoretical language, the importance of the moral teaching to be conveyed to an audience made receptive by the direct style of the discourse. If Giles differentiates the *figuralis et grossus* style of ethics from the thorny complexity and positive exactitude of demonstrative proofs, Dante distinguishes his “aspra e sottile” style of argument from the “soave stile” (*Canzone* 3, line 10) of love songs which conceal their meaning under allegorical veils.

Critics have noted how tractate IV proceeds in the manner of a *quaestio*, consolidating the capacities of the *volgare* to achieve a robust philosophical language appropriate to the level of learned philosophy. Its central arguments (chapters 3–20) defining the true nature of nobility, with preliminary premises on imperial authority and the historical claims of the Roman imperium, are dense and technically adept in their propositions, objections, and determinations.³⁶ Of course, this is the chain of exact and complex demonstrative proofs that is absent in the *canzone*, where we are presented simply with the declarations of truth that would issue from the lengthy reasoning. But as strong and austere as the proofs of tractate IV are, their presentation is also often marked by oratorical devices and a continuous sense of *ēthos* and *pathos*. In this way, tractate IV is a scholastic *quaestio* brought forth to meet a public, forming a persuasive supplement to the affective political poetry of the *canzone*.

Such emotive cues are not restricted to tractate IV, but the satirical pressure of that book gives way often to invective and polemical outburst. The characteristic stylistic devices—abrupt apostrophes addressing the objects of his satire, exclamations, and sequences of *interrogatio*, as well as expressive or disruptive figures of speech and prose rhythms—would have been known from the dictaminal and poetic *artes* of the thirteenth century, and are all easily traceable to Guido Faba, Bene da Firenze, Boncompagno da Signa, Geoffrey of Vinsauf, and others.³⁷ As stylistic effects they are commonplace, as we saw in Chapter 3. What makes their use distinctive in *Convivio* is that the text does not rely upon them as the chief sources of emotional arousal because it has already achieved that appeal in the highly emotional *canzone*. These devices rest on a reasoning structure that is supplying the full proofs for the enthymematic arguments of the song. Even the shocking apostrophe calling out the “wretched who rule now,” naming

Charles II (king of Naples) and Frederick II of Aragon (king of Sicily), functions as the answer to the reasoning that precedes it, in which philosophy and imperial power, the authority of Aristotle and that of Emperor Frederick, have been shown to be mutually necessary and in harmony (6.17).³⁸

E però si scrive in quello di Sapienza, “Amate lo lume della sapienza, voi tutti che siete dinanzi a’ populi,” cioè a dire: congiungasi la filosofica autoridade colla imperiale, a bene e perfettamente reggere. Oh miseri che al presente reggete! e oh miserissimi che retti siete! ché nulla filosofica autoridade si congiugne colli vostri reggimenti né per proprio studio né per consiglio...Ponetevi mente, nemici di Dio, a’ fianchi, voi che le verghe de’ reggimenti d’Italia prese avete—e dico a voi, Carlo e Federigo regi, e a voi altri principi e tiranni—; guardate chi a lato vi siede per consiglio, e annumerate quante volte lo die questo fine dell’umana vita per li vostri consiglieri v’è additato! (IV.6.18–20)

Thus as it is written in the Book of Wisdom (cf., Ecclesiastes 10:16–17), “Love the light of wisdom, all you who are before the people,” which is to say, join the authority of philosophy to imperial authority, that there may be good and perfect rule. O wretched, you who rule now! And, O most wretched those who are ruled! for there is no authority of philosophy joined to that of your rule neither through right study nor through counsel....Give thought, you enemies of God, to those who flank you, you who have seized the rods of government in Italy—I mean you, King Charles and King Frederick, and all you other princes and tyrants; consider who is at your side giving counsel, and count up how many times a day your counsellors point you to this end of human life.

The immediate background of *De regimine principum*, with its considered advice about counsellors in book 3, can only deepen the effect of this strategically impassioned outburst.

Awareness of rhetorical conditions—indeed, of the dynamic of oratory—is never far below the surface. The extraordinary, self-reflexive digression at IV.8.10, meant to quell potential criticism of digressiveness, incorporates its audience into a lesson about the techniques of argumentation while simultaneously reinforcing the authorial *ēthos*:

Ma però che, dinanzi dall’aversario se ragiona, lo rettorico dee molta cautela usare nel suo sermone, acciò che l’aversario quindi non prenda materia di turbare la veritate; io, che al volto di tanti avversarii parlo in questo trattato, non posso lievemente parlare; onde, se le mie digressioni sono lunghe, nullo si maravigli. (IV.8.10)

But since, when speaking before an adversary, the rhetorician must take great care in his words so that the adversary will not take from it any material for distorting the truth; I, who speak in this treatise before a great many adversaries, cannot speak briefly. Whence if my digressions are long, no one should be surprised.

Such digression, of course, represents exactly the kind of expansive and detailed argument that the enthymeme is meant to short circuit. But if the

canzone, with its pithy enthymematic force, has accomplished its aim of targeting and managing the emotions of readers, revealing to them their own values and desires, the tractate can enhance and complete that work at length and without apology. The prose treatise offers a persuasive lesson in ethics that can supplement the persuasive appeals of poetry.

6.2 Enthymematic Oratory in the *Knight's Tale*

Chaucer never mentions Giles of Rome or Aristotle's *Rhetoric*. The absence of the latter among Chaucer's named sources is not surprising. In fourteenth-century England, the *Rhetoric* was probably not well known outside of academic and clerical circles, although Chaucer might have seen it alongside of other works of Aristotle, more likely during one of his periods on the Continent.³⁹ But a writer of Chaucer's capacious interests, working in metropolitan centers of courts, government, and learning, in both England and on the Continent, would certainly have encountered Giles' *De regimine principum*, either in the Latin original or in Henri de Gauchy's translation, perhaps in England or during one of his periods abroad. By the late fourteenth century there were at least twenty-four copies of the Latin text in England, many of these available since early in the century, and some of London and Oxford provenance. Some of these earlier manuscripts would also have contained other works of moral philosophy which would draw a reader to the volume.⁴⁰ This is a likely channel for the indirect influence of Aristotle's *Rhetoric* itself. It must remain unprovable, though circumstantially extremely likely, that Chaucer read *De regimine principum*.

But on the other hand, we can say with certainty that he had a keen knowledge of its formal and thematic mediation through the *Convivio*. The discourse of the loathly lady in the *Wife of Bath's Tale*, mainly lines 1109–64, engages *Convivio* IV, as Chaucer paraphrases and distills the arguments in *canzone* 3 about *gentilezza* and calls upon some of the explanatory prose of tractate IV. It was long ago suggested also that Chaucer's short poem "Gentilesse" is a further condensation of premises from *canzone* 3.⁴¹ If not directly, then through its most powerful literary reembodyment, Chaucer

apprehended the Aristotelian teaching in Giles' *De regimine* about the role of emotion in political argument.

Chaucer's likely acquaintance with *De regimine principum* has been considered in terms of the influence of its Aristotelian ideas about governance, the manifestations of secular power, and the virtues necessary to good rulership.⁴² My interest, however, is in what Chaucer learned in connection with it about the literary form of political discourse, and how its effects are registered in some of Chaucer's most overtly political poetry. To put it plainly, I suggest that this line of influence was fundamentally a formal one, a way of envisioning emotion as a deep structure of rhetorical proof. What did Chaucer absorb from *De regimine principum* or its Dantean reception about the affective force of enthymemes as a kind of "poetry" of political argument? I will consider this here through the political persuasions of Theseus in the *Knight's Tale*.

We have already seen (in [Chapter 3](#)) how Chaucer responds with acute formal sensitivity to the emotional appeal of heightened style. In the *Nun's Priest's Tale*, he invokes the teaching of Geoffrey of Vinsauf to call attention to stylistic excess in the service of emotional effect. The *Nun's Priest's Tale* reaches dizzying parodic heights to point up the contingency of using style to achieve emotional impact. As Chaucer shows, the same style can be applied to bewail the death of Richard I and the near-death of a rooster. Here the effects are funny, but this can also be a matter for serious reflection. We have also seen how Chaucer questions comparable effects of style in Petrarch's retelling of the Griselda tale. Petrarch had applied a "heighe stile" in *Seniles* 17.3 to amplify the emotional grip of Boccaccio's *Decameron* 10.10; Chaucer's critical response in his English version is to have his narrator heap up emotive figures such as *interrogatio*, *ratiocinatio*, and *exclamatio* in a gesture of impotence in the face of Walter's gratuitous cruelty and Griselda's impossible suffering. Style itself becomes gratuitous in Chaucer's reading of Petrarch, as if to express ethical misgivings about entrusting emotional appeal to stylistic augmentation. Walter's torture of Griselda exceeds the capacities of style alone to convey its outrageousness, reducing the narrator to hapless linguistic flailing.

The stylistic exaggerations of the *Nun's Priest's Tale* and the *Clerk's Tale* provide a counterpoint to emotion internalized to the formal structure of proof. Before turning to the *Knight's Tale*, let us consider briefly how enthymematic appeal works in the *Wife of Bath's Tale*, where Chaucer

explicitly notes a debt to Dante and reworks passages from *Convivio* IV. The loathly lady's disquisition on *gentillesse* (Fragment III, 1109–64), which inaugurates her speech to her new husband, the unwilling young knight of Arthur's court (an audience resembling the nobility and *cavalieri* whom Dante addresses), is a tissue of ideas and commonplaces from moral literature, not just Dante but also Seneca, Boethius, and Jean de Meun. But its argument follows the lines suggested in Dante's *canzone* 3.⁴³ The opening lines are especially striking for the way that they encompass not only some of Dante's words and ideas but the persuasive movement of *canzone* 3:

“But, for ye speken of swich gentillesse As is descended out of old richesse, That therfore sholden ye be gentil men, Swich arrogance is nat worth an hen. Looke who that is moost vertuous alway, Pryvee and apert, and moost entendeth ay To do the gentil dedes that he kan; Taak hym for the grettest gentil man. Crist wole we clayme of hym oure gentillesse, Nat of oure eldres for hire old richesse. For thogh they yeve us al hir heritage, For which we clayme to been of heigh parage, Yet may they nat biquethe for no thyng To noon of us hir vertuous lyving, That made hem gentil men ycalled be, And bad us folwen hem in swich degree.”	1110 1115 1120
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(III. 1109–24)

The similarities with stanza 2 of *canzone* 3 are clear:

Di retro da costui van tutti quelli che fan gentile per ischiatta altrui che lungiamente in gran ricchezza è stata; ed è tanto durata la così falsa oppiniõn tra nui, che l'uom chiama colui omo gentil, che può dicere: “Io fui nepote,” o “figlio, di cotal valente,” benché sia da niente.	33
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In his wake follow all those who count a man as noble for belonging to a family which has been very rich for a long time; and so ingrained has this absurd opinion become among us

that people call a man noble who can say: “I am grandson, or son, of such and such a great man,” while in himself he’s a nonentity.

Chaucer renders Dante’s phrase “gran ricchezza” as “old richesse” (1110, 1118); but Dante has also used the phrase “antica ricchezza” several times in *Convivio* 1V.3 and in chapters 9 and 10 as well. In this way Chaucer is consolidating different aspects of the same concept, moving back and forth between the *canzone* and the commentary. But more significant is the force of the loathly lady’s unpremised assertion that this is just “arrogance...nat worth an hen” (1112): in Dante the same insistence on the patent falsity of inherited “gentilezza” is expressed at greater length as a “falsa oppiniõn” that is enduring (“durata”), although the roots of its long duration may be—as Chaucer suggests—because it is repeated through the generations with arrogance. If Dante’s equally unpremised but powerful refutation of this and the other debased contradictions—

Per che a ’ntelletti sani
è manifesto i lor diri esser vani;
e io così per falsi li riprovo,
e da lor mi rimovo;

75

Consequently it is clear to every healthy mind that their statements are groundless; and so having refuted them as false, I turn away from them.

—comes only in stanza 4, thirty-seven polemical lines later, Chaucer lobs in the refutation immediately, in the homely idiom “nat worth an hen.” The following twelve lines in the loathly lady’s speech are a radical condensation of the arguments in stanzas 3, 4, and 6 of the *canzone*, including the idea in stanza 6 that it is God, not family line, that confers *gentilezza*. These are also arguments that are elaborated throughout the accompanying commentary (for example, IV.20).⁴⁴ What in Chaucer’s text is a swift redefinition of “gentillesse” (1117–18) from human possession to divine gift distills the long chain of proofs about temporality and *gentilezza* in the prose commentary of *Convivio* IV. Briefly leaving the precincts of *Convivio* IV, Chaucer turns to a quotation from *Purgatorio* 7.121–3 clearly suggested to him by his assimilation of the arguments from *Convivio*, exploiting Dante’s own ability to compress a complex process of argument into a few lines of poetry:

“Wel kan the wise poete of Florence,
That highte Dant, speken in this sentence.

Lo, in swich maner rym is Dantes tale:
'Ful selde up riseth by his branches smale
Prowesse of man, for God, of his goodnesse,
Wole that of hym we clayme oure gentillesse.' "

(III.1125–30)⁴⁵

This theme advances in the following lines through compressions of the arguments in *Convivio* IV.15.1–10, where Dante explains the reasons why *gentilezza* is not connected to ancestry, culminating in his quotation from *canzone* stanza 4: “Per che a ’ntelletti sani / è manifesto i lor diri esser vani” (Consequently it is clear to every healthy mind that their statements are groundless) [lines 74–5], where through sheer illocutionary force he had pronounced the proof complete. In similar fashion the loathly lady appeals to the force of what must be obvious to any “healthy mind,” although commencing rather than concluding her explanation with the pronouncement of proof:

“Eek every wight woot this as wel as I,
If gentillesse were planted naturelly
Unto a certeyn lynage doun the lyne,
Pryvee and apert thanne wolde they nevere fyne (cease)
To doon of gentillesse the faire office;
They myghte do no vileynye or vice.”

(III.1133–8, emphasis added)

After illustrating the persistence of *gentillesse* as a gift of God and nature by comparison with the inherent properties of fire, the loathly lady returns to *canzone* 3 to borrow some of its wording:

“Heere may ye se wel how that genterye
Is nat annexed to possessioun”

(III.1146–7)

Tale imperò che gentilezza volse,
secondo 'l suo parere,
che fosse antica possession d'avere...

21

There was a ruler of the Empire who maintained that in his view nobility consisted in long-standing possession of wealth...

Her discourse on *gentillesse* concludes with a last borrowing from *canzone* 3 (lines 115–18):

“Thy gentillesse cometh fro God allone.

Thanne comth oure verray gentillesse of grace;
It was no thyng biquethe us with oure place.”

(III.1162–4)

In fifty-five long lines Chaucer has rendered the essence of the *canzone* and its prose exposition, abstracting from Dante’s poetry its enthymematic movement: appeal to common values and feelings, implied but unarticulated premises, and brevity that is both urgent and pleasing. The emotional eruptions serve here, as in Dante’s poem, as punctuating proofs. Chaucer has inhabited the enthymematic structure of *Convivio* IV, absorbing the persuasive rhythms of the *canzone* and assimilating to that the chain of fully demonstrative proofs in the prose tractate.

* * *

It is just such absorption of the poetic form of political argument that finds expression in the *Knight’s Tale*. Unlike the *Wife of Bath’s Tale*, the *Knight’s Tale* does not offer obvious verbal links with the *Convivio*, which carries forward the rhetorical principles of *De regimine principum*. Of course, the ideas in the *Knight’s Tale* about kingship and virtuous rule have been traced to the influence of Giles’ treatise.⁴⁶ But I am interested here in a deeper formal imperative that links it with the Aegidian and Aristotelian tradition: an understanding of how emotion works as proof at the core of an argument through the form of the enthymeme. This is what shapes Theseus’ “First Mover” speech at the end of the tale.

Theseus’ speech has become a magnet for scholarly commentary on the literary and learned sources that are elaborated and then frustratingly truncated, on the absolute and yet unsatisfying political solution it imposes, and on its consolatory gestures, at once comprehensive and incomplete.⁴⁷ Its own immediate literary source, Teseo’s speech in Boccaccio’s *Teseida*, has occasioned nothing like the debates that rage about Theseus’ much more Boethian speech in the *Knight’s Tale*. One recurrent theme of that debate has concerned whether the speech works philosophically. Has Theseus the noble pagan captured the providential outlook of the Boethian sources that his speech paraphrases? Does bowing to the will of the deity and the inevitability of divinely moved natural forces, or recognizing honor in the face of mutability, offer sufficient consolation? And what might any of this have to do with marrying Emelye to Palamon or subduing Thebes to

Athens? My purpose here is not to eradicate these doubts. Rather, I want to keep the contradictions in play to consider how the text sustains them in tension at a formal rhetorical level. As philosophical disquisition and indeed even as political theory, the speech may well not work. But it works as a speech, a piece of public persuasion delivered to a particular audience under particular circumstances within the diegetic frame. While it has not always satisfied critical readers, it is allowed to work for its listeners within the narrative.

As public oratory, Theseus' speech is the culminating event in the chain of expressly public occasions that make up Part Four of the *Knight's Tale*. Compressing virtually the whole second half of Boccaccio's *Teseida*, Part Four builds steadily from one public arena to the next, never losing sight of the crowded *polis* before which its events are played out. From the tournament held in the "noble theatre" (I.1885) that Theseus has built for the occasion of the formal battle between Palamon and Arcite, the vast crowds that assemble to view the tournament and the foreign companies that come from afar to join in the combat, the magnificence and noise of the festivities before the tournament and the formal entrances of all the main actors, to Theseus proclaiming (to "stynten alle rancour and envye") that both sides have won (2731–4), the feasting of the companies before they take their leave, and finally to the funeral of Arcite, his monumental sepulchre constructed on the site of the cousins' first private battle—and here even the harvesting of resources for building the sepulchre conjures a natural world itself busily populated (2913–66)—the narration intensifies the moods and rhythms of its public scenes. Even the medical and private existential drama of Arcite's death days after he is borne away from the battle field (2743–815) is introduced through the triumphant return of Theseus and his entourage to Athens, where public opinion holds that "Arcite shal nat dye; / He shal been heeled of his maladye" (2705–6).

It is in this emphatically public framework that Theseus delivers his speech at the end of the poem. The speech itself is the direct outcome of an event that is tied in a singular way to the public sphere: a parliament (2970). This is a small but interesting change that Chaucer makes on his source in Boccaccio. In the *Teseida*, the survivors Palamone and Emilia are summoned by Teseo, and arrive, presumably to Teseo's court, together with aristocratic companies:

Ma poi che furon più giorni passati
 dopo lo sventurato advenimento,
 con lui essendo li Greci adunati,
 parve di general consentimento
 che' tristi pianti omai fosser lasciati,
 et il voler d'Arcita ad compimento
 fosse mandato: cioè che l'amata
 Emilia fosse ad Palemon sposata.
 Per che Teseo, chiamato Palemone,
 con molti di quei re accompagnato,
 non sappiend'esso però la cagione,
 di ner vestito et così tribolato
 com'era, lui seguì in quella stagione;
 et esso con quanti era se n'è entrato
 dove con molte donne si sedea
 Emilia, la quale ancor piangea.

(XII.3–4)⁴⁸

But when a number of days had gone by following that unhappy event, Teseo and the Greeks gathered with him seemed of one mind that this deep mourning should now be brought to an end, and that Arcita's wish for Palemone to marry the beloved Emilia should be put into effect.

Hence Palemone, summoned by Teseo but not knowing why, attended upon him then in the company of those kings, dressed in black and dejected as he was. And Teseo himself, accompanied by as many as were with him, entered the place where Emilia, still weeping, sat together with a number of ladies.⁴⁹

Teseo has been taking counsel with his Greek subjects “gathered” (“adunati”) there, and out of this session of private advising, a general sentiment emerges that it is time to put aside mourning and see to Emilia's marriage to Palemone, as Arcita had wished. This seems to be the kind of taking counsel that is recommended for rulers in *De regimine principum* (book 3 part 2), although Boccaccio does not show the process of speaking and offering different viewpoints. All the parties—Teseo, Palemone, Emilia, and their entourages—seem then to assemble at the court after Theseus has conferred with his advisors. The royal court is also, of course, a social space with its specific forms: what we see in the *Teseida* is a gathering of nobles around the king to determine a matter of social convention, that mourning for Arcite should end, and then the announcement of the decision, also at court. But Chaucer shifts the scene of private council in a royal court to a parliament, the kind of stage that in

fourteenth-century England would have been marked as broadly public. Here a debate takes place:

By processe and by lengthe of certeyn yeres,
Al stynted is the moornyng and the teres
Of Grekes, by oon general assent.
Thanne semed me ther was a parlement
At Atthenes, upon certein pointz and caas;
Among the whiche pointz yspoken was,
To have with certein contrees alliaunce,
And have fully of Thebans obeisaunce.
For which this noble Theseus anon
Leet senden after gentil Palamon,
Unwist of hym what was the cause and why,
But in his blake clothes sorwefully
He cam at his comandement in hye.
Tho sente Theseus for Emelye.

(I.2967–80)

An unspecified “general assent” has brought mourning the death of Arcite to a close after some years, but the more general political decisions that remain must be deliberated in a parliament. These are decisions of state policy, the kinds of concerns that come under the aegis of deliberative (political) rhetoric where future actions are to be decided; such scenes of deliberative rhetoric would be familiar from classical epic. The mourning for Arcite, which is both a private and a public matter, has long since concluded, but the new considerations, to make alliances and to bring Thebes fully under the control of Athens, are entirely public concerns. The *Knight's Tale* offers little technical detail about how the public debate in this parliament at Athens was conducted, although we can gather some sense of this from other parliamentary scenes in Chaucer's works, notably the Trojan parliament in *Troilus and Criseyde* 4. Here Hector speaks forcefully against giving up Criseyde to the Greek forces but is shouted down by the “noyse of peple” who want to agree the exchange of Criseyde for the Trojan prisoner Antenor and whose will becomes the “substaunce of the parlement” (*Troilus and Criseyde* 4.176–216). The notion of public debate, of course, is not to be equated with that of egalitarian participation, and even a notion of collectivity comes under strain when ranged against the established social hierarchies of the medieval English parliament.⁵⁰ But the critical distinction between the scene in the *Teseida* and Chaucer's

rendering of it is that of a private council among the king and his noble advisors deciding a matter of behavioral affect (to cease mourning) and a parliament involving public deliberation and the attendant political agency of those assembled to decide a matter of state policy.

In the *Teseida*, Teseo emerges from his council to proclaim a decision through his sovereign prerogative:

...però da mo' ìn avanti
ciascun festeggi, e 'l piangerè et l'omei
si lasci star, se piacer mi volete,
ché 'n questo tanto pur far lo dovete.

(XII.17)

...so from now on let everyone be cheerful and leave off weeping and wailing if you wish to please me, as you should seek to do at all times.

By contrast, the *Knight's Tale* imagines a setting of civic discourse in which the sovereign does not simply issue a command, but rather attempts to persuade the assembly. Where Boccaccio's Palemone is summoned apparently to court, Chaucer's Palamon and Emelye are summoned to the scene of the parliament, and Theseus will not so much command as advise: "I rede" (3068, 3071). Theseus' purpose is larger than Teseo's: Chaucer's sovereign has no need to cast off mourning, as that has already occurred, but must convince his audience of the benefits of a strategic marriage between potential ally states. Theseus begins, much as had Boccaccio's Teseo, with impressive silence. But whereas Teseo silently awaits the humble attention of his auditors (XII.5), Theseus draws himself up in preparation:

Whan they were set, and hust was al the place,
And Theseus abiden hadde a space
Er any word cam fram his wise brest,
His eyen sette he ther as was his lest.
And with a sad visage he siked stille,
And after that right thus he seyde his wille.

(2981-6)

His survey of the audience (2984) could reasonably be read as a sovereign gesture of control; but in this context it may also be seen as a visual assessment of his hearers, a judgment of their dispositions in advance of his speech. Following from this, the phrase, "right thus he seyde his wille"

(2986) can suggest simply speaking what he desired to say rather than imperiously pronouncing his royal will.⁵¹

Chaucer's incremental modifications of the scene in the *Teseida* show how differently from his source he registers the occasion of Theseus' speech. Chaucer presents it as a performance of political oratory in a setting that calls for public persuasion. In form it is an enthymematic argument relying on audience beliefs and emotional dispositions to bring the several parts of the argument together, the cosmological perspective, mortality, and the practical ends of a politically strategic marriage. On one axis, it draws upon beliefs about the universe and life and death; on the other axis, it targets emotion, the waning grief of the community about the death of Arcite. It combines these two understandings of the audience disposition to conclude that a marriage is in order.

As enthymematic argument the speech moves through several premises to a conclusion: there is a powerful order in the universe binding all elements and matters together with a chain of love (2986–3026); humans are part of that cycle of life and death, and we must make a virtue of that necessity without complaining and accept Arcite's death for what it was (3027–66); therefore let us make a marriage between the survivors (3067–89). A subtheme (but not in any form a minor premise) is that it is better to die in the full flower of glory as Arcite did (3047–56). As many scholars have pointed out, the relations among these parts are quite problematic: the discourses on cosmological eternity and mortal mutability do not obviously support the statement of conclusion ("What may I conclude of this longe serye," 3067), that the Theban Palamon should be married to Emelye, ward of the Athenian king. When read textually and not as a piece of living oratory appropriate to its occasion within the narrative, it is difficult to accept the links between the premises and the conclusion. Much of the speech is a tissue of close paraphrase from Boethius' *Consolatio* book three and especially the providential dialectic of book 4. As literary text, the speech invites reading through the lens of Boethian providential philosophy, seeking a careful demonstration of the relationship between the premises. But the text contains no such definitive demonstration, and even more, it appears to truncate the providential conclusions of the Boethian arguments that ultimately insist on faith in a transcendent good. Here, some have seen an ironized gap between eternal cosmology and worldly implication, revealing a distance between Chaucer's sympathetic presentation of pagan

natural wisdom and his recognition of its insufficiency from a Christian providential perspective.⁵²

But as a piece of deliberative oratory arguing what is to be done in the political sphere, it seems to achieve its aims very nicely. It equates cosmological love and unity with friendship, alliance, and marriage, without actually arguing those equations. In a way, the narrative itself has anticipated these equations, lending them an even greater air of natural inevitability. The fact that the opportunity to marry Emily to Palamon (or to turn Thebes into a client state of Athens) does not follow necessarily from the previous premises about cosmic order does not diminish the situational power of Theseus' conclusion. Its persuasive power lies in the emotional satisfaction that it delivers on the terms of the narrative. The intense shock around the death of Arcite, the enervating denouement as the people put aside their mourning by "processe and by lengthe of certain yeres" (2967), and the emotional quiescence that seems to take the place of grief, has rendered this public receptive to future-oriented arguments. Theseus' speech takes account of their recent sorrow, putting it in a cosmic framework that seems incontrovertible; it then absorbs this into a more accessible account of mortality, and finishes with a call to pragmatic action that engages the desire for deliberative agency. The culminative advising ("I rede that we make of sorwes two / O parfit joye," 3071–2) is almost superfluous, as the persuasive oratory has by now achieved its purpose. Thus Theseus can end his speech by discounting the necessity of further persuasions: "I trowe," he says to Palamon, "ther nedeth litel sermonyng / To make yow assente to this thyng" (1391–2). The "assente to this thyng" lies not only with Palamon and Emelye: it was approved by the parliament (3076), and the conviction is lodged in "al the conseil and the baronage" (3096). If Theseus' argument does not hold together in the way that we would expect of a sustained dialectical exposition, that is irrelevant to its function as living oratory; moreover, such precision—as Aristotle explained and as Giles of Rome in turn understood—would diminish its force as a persuasive argument aimed at a public assembly. It works as enthymematic argument, involving no long, tiring chain of proofs.

As critics have justly noted, Theseus' speech opens no dialogic space.⁵³ But as an oration, it does not need to brook dialogic difference or invite conversation. As a piece of living oratory it is seen to arise from and contribute to a process of deliberation. The duty of a speaker is to find and

apply the best means of persuasion about a matter that is under debate. The actual effect of persuasion takes place outside the parameters of any given speech, although the successful speeches of record—those speeches that were known historically to have changed policy or swayed a jury—also become part of the pedagogical arsenal of what techniques are known to have worked best. Orations can be unsuccessful, but persuasion and failure to persuade are the contingent conditions of rhetoric as it plays out in actual social life. The conditions of literary narrative, governed by the necessities of plot, foreclose such contingencies: the speech will either succeed in persuading the diegetic audience, as Theseus' speech does in the *Knight's Tale*, or fail in that aim, as Hector's speech to the assembled Trojans in *Troilus and Criseyde* must fail. If Theseus' speech is seen within the narrative to bring about the assent that it seeks, the narrative is attributing that outcome to certain features of the speech—its internal composition, or its appropriateness to the occasion and the receptivity of the audience. Even if Chaucer's implied reader knows that Theseus is wrong when he claims that mundane events are governed for the best by "Juppiter, the kyng" (3035), as we have only just seen how Saturn's arbitrary intervention robbed Arcite of his triumph, the narrative audience of Theseus' speech can be moved by his appeal to a more beneficent order.⁵⁴

If Chaucer drew directly upon the political thought of *De regimine principum* for an understanding of governance, as some have argued, those connections between Giles' treatise and the *Knight's Tale* do not come about through some kind of osmosis of political theory. The political thought is embedded in and carried by discursive form, and Chaucer's reception of *De regimine principum* is in the first instance a formal one, his embrace of the enthymeme as the signature form of rhetorical argument. In this respect, Dante's *Convivio*, which Chaucer clearly knew, directly mediates the rhetorical principles that had shaped the political argument of *De regimine*. Chaucer, like Dante before him, recognized in the enthymeme the intuitive and inferential reasoning that is so compatible with poetic reasoning. Whether Chaucer or Dante could name the enthymeme as a device of rhetoric, they absorbed multiple examples of its emotional operations.

6.3 Emotion and Political Argument in Hoccleve's *Regiment of Princes*

Let us take seriously Thomas Hoccleve's invocation of *De regimine principum* as one of his sources for the *Regiment of Princes* (c.1411), just as we must take seriously Dante's reference to *De regimine* in the *Convivio*, and Chaucer's obvious knowledge of the Dantean intermediary. What did Hoccleve get from *De regimine principum*?

Hoccleve announces a debt to Giles of Rome in his Prologue, citing the three sources of his work:

Aristotle, moost famous philosophre,
His epistles to Alisaundre sente ...
The tendre love and the fervent cheertee (fondness)
That this worthy clerk ay to this kyng beer, (bore)
Thristyng his welthe durable to be, (desiring; well-being; lasting)
Unto his herte stak and sat so neer (pierced; remained)
That by wrytyng his conseil gaf he cleer
Unto his lord to keepe him fro nusance, (harm)
As witnessith his book of governance;
Of which, and of Gyles of Regiment
Of Princes, plotmeel thynke I to translate ... (piecemeal)
Now to my mateere as that I began.
There is a book Jacob de Cessolis
Of the ordre of prechours maad, a worthy man,
That the Ches Moralyse clepid is,
In which purpos I eek laboure ywis; (also; indeed)
And heere and there, as that my litil wit (as far as)
Affoorthe may, I thynke translate it (suffice)
(2038–54, 2108–14)⁵⁵

The first source mentioned is the ever-popular *Secretum secretorum* (the “epistles to Alisaundre” often attributed to Aristotle), the third is Jacobus de Cessolis’ *De ludo scacchorum*, a work of about 1300 in which governance and statecraft are allegorized according to the design of a chess game. In terms of its voice and construction, *De regimine principum* is the odd text

here. Most scholars have assumed that *De regimine* provided some general ideas about virtuous and temperate kingship, although there is little agreed sense of what those ideas were. Hoccleve's *Regiment* is hardly a translation of *De regimine*, although the ordering of themes across Hoccleve's long poem owes something to Giles' text.⁵⁶ But Hoccleve certainly did not get his own practice of exemplification from Giles, as *De regimine principum* has almost no exempla, but rather, as we have seen, maintains a nearly strict scholastic method of argument. In its exemplary and non-scholastic presentation, Hoccleve's *Regiment of Princes* is at the other end of the spectrum from Giles' *De regimine principum* and its vernacular offshoot in Dante's *Convivio* IV. Hoccleve's method of exemplification has most in common with his other two sources, the *Secretum secretorum* and Jacobus de Cessolis' *De ludo scacchorum*.

Yet among most vernacular poets of the later Middle Ages, including Dante and Chaucer, Hoccleve was best equipped to recognize, at least intuitively, the rhetorical structures that govern Giles' text. As a professional bureaucrat, a clerk of the Privy Seal who lived by dictaminal formularies and who himself produced a substantial one for his own and his colleagues' use, Hoccleve would have been intimate with the principles of rhetoric that one could learn from the *ars dictaminis*.⁵⁷ The dictaminal sources available to him would have been not only the more famous works by continental masters such as Guido Faba, but treatises produced in England, such as the *Formula moderni et usitati dictaminis* by Thomas Merke (d. 1409), whose career rose under the direct patronage of Richard II and declined under Henry IV, and whose rhetorical work had some circulation in the fifteenth century.⁵⁸ Hoccleve's professional knowledge of rhetoric would have made him especially sensitive to the rhetorical structure of argument in *De regimine principum*. This is not to suggest that Hoccleve knew Aristotle's *Rhetoric* in a direct way—there is no evidence that he did—but rather that his professional work and training made him especially attuned to the deployment of principles that are, at their heart, Aristotelian.⁵⁹

Hoccleve's *Regiment of Princes* is addressed to Prince Henry, soon to be Henry V, clothing the mirror of princes form in petitionary garb. Having cited his sources for his own version of a *speculum principis*, Hoccleve flatters his royal addressee on his wisdom and wide reading while

insinuating that the prince may have need of a further compendium of advice:

I am seur that tho bookes alle three	(I am sure that these books)
Red hath and seen your innat sapience;	(has read; innate intelligence)
And as I hope, hir vertu folwen yee.	
But unto yow compyle I this sentence	
That, at the good lust of your excellence,	(at your pleasure)
In short yee mowen beholde heer and rede	(i.e., in a short summary)
That in hem thre is scatered fer in brede.	(what in these three [books] is scattered far and wide)
	(2129–35)

There is good evidence that Henry read *De regimine principum*, perhaps in a French version that may also have served Hoccleve. By the early fifteenth century, Giles' work, in its Latin version as well as in French, was becoming widely circulated in England.⁶⁰ Contemporary sources invoke Giles' discussion of warfare as inspiration for Henry's military tactics: the *Gesta Henrici Quinti* (written 1416–17) cites *De regimine* as an authority for Henry's attack at the siege of Harfleur in 1415, one of the most successful English campaigns in the Hundred Years War; and in 1420 an Oxford inception disputation praises Henry for following the military advice in *De regimine* part 3.⁶¹ Ian Doyle speculated that the manuscript containing the only surviving copy of Trevisa's translation of *De regimine principum* as well as an English version of Vegetius' *De re militari*, Oxford, Bodleian Library MS Digby 233 (produced around 1408), was intended as a gift for Henry V from Thomas, Lord Berkeley, who commissioned both English texts.⁶²

But Henry would have read Giles' *De regimine principum* for its content, perhaps going directly to its advice on warfare. Hoccleve, I suggest, read it just as much for its rhetorical form. That formal apprehension is writ across the *Regiment of Princes*, not simply (or even chiefly) in the arrangement of themes, but in the way Hoccleve structures the political argument. As in *Convivio* and the *Knight's Tale*, the proof is constituted through emotion, and the movement of *Regiment* is enthymematic, inviting the reader to supply premises and reason through emotional suggestion. This is a form of proof that Hoccleve would not have

derived from his other sources, the exemplum-rich *Secretum secretorum* and the allegorical and exemplum-strewn *De ludo scacchorum*. Hoccleve's text refracts Giles' transformation of emotion into a political force. This is not through conscious borrowing. Rather, Hoccleve partakes in a language of rhetorical understanding that has been sharpened through contact with the enthymematic reasoning of *De regimine principum*. What Hoccleve found in the prose arguments of *De regimine* was the engineering of poetic reasoning.

Of the 5,463-rhyme royal lines of the *Regiment of Princes*, the first 2,016 are taken up with an extraordinary prologue, beginning with the narrator's thoughts about his financial distress and leading to an exchange between the Hoccleve persona and an unnamed Old Man whom he meets in the fields outside of the city and who serves as a confessor-figure. The prologue has attracted considerable attention for its autobiographical and confessional elements, its account of Hoccleve's scribal labor in the Office of the Privy Seal, its invocations of Chaucer, and of course the poet's ironized self-abnegation as he directs his petitionary verses to the prince.⁶³ The *Regiment* proper follows with sections on a king's dignity and the keeping of his coronation oaths, on speaking truth but also speaking carefully, on justice and abiding by laws, on pity, mercy, patience, chastity, and magnanimity, on the true nature of happiness, on generosity, prodigality, avarice, and prudence, on seeking counsel, and on peace. These thematic sections are studded with exempla drawn especially from *De ludo scacchorum* as well as from the *Secretum secretorum* and other sources.

Across the text, however, there are also at least twenty substantial paraphrases or borrowings from Giles' *De regimine principum*. Many of the borrowings are explicitly attributed to Giles in the authorial Latin glosses that accompany the text in most of its forty-six surviving manuscripts.⁶⁴ These abridgements and paraphrases carry forward the basic thematic structure mainly of book 1 of *De regimine principum*, and in Hoccleve's poem they serve as a connective tissue of arguments that are then supported by the addition of exempla. Thus Hoccleve's popular text also mediated much of the matter of Giles' treatise to a wide English audience over the course of the fifteenth century.⁶⁵ Hoccleve draws largely from book 1 part 2 of *De regimine principum*, on princely virtues, at times staying remarkably close to the Aegidian text, especially when Giles lays out a proof with distilled clarity. A good example of this is Giles' proof, based on *Ethics* 4,

that prodigality is better than avarice (*De regimine principum* 1.2.18; *Regiment of Princes*, lines 4607–62). Giles, of course, is following the “broad and schematic” argumentation that Aristotle used to treat morals in the *Ethics*, and his reasoning is straightforward, appealing to experience rather than absolute (demonstrable) truths: it is better to have an evil that is curable than one that is not, and prodigality can be cured by age or need; prodigality is closer to the virtue of liberality than avarice; an avaricious prince is evil unto himself and profits no one else in the realm, while a prodigal ruler at least profits those in the kingdom. It is obvious that Hoccleve found his way to this explanation in Giles because it is both clear and appealing:

The Philosophre preeveth avarice
 Wel werse than is prodigalitee.
 By thre causes he halt it gretter vice:
 First, he seith, it is bettre seek to be (sick)
 Of a seeknesse or an infirmitee
 Of which a man may have rekeverynge (recovering)
 Than of swich oon as ther is noon helynge. (healing)

The second cause is, prodigalitee
 Is more ny to vertu many del (much more)
 Than avarice, and why yee shul wel see.
 He that is liberal nat list so wel (cares not so much)
 For to receyve any good or catel (chattel)
 As geve, but what man that is fool large (as to give; prodiga
 To take and geve, geveth he no charge ...

The thridde skile is, for a kyng is set (reason)
 In his reme for his peples releef, (realm)
 For they sholden for him fare the bet;
 But the streit chynche qwenchith nevere greef; (mean miser)
 His gold is nevere salve to mescheef;
 Oonly to gadere and keepe he him delitith;
 But the fool large many a man profitith.

(4607–20, 4635–41)

Hoccleve elegantly preserves the line of reasoning even as he amplifies some phrasing for meter and rhyme.⁶⁶ Yet he has to some degree also condensed the Aegidian prose, tightening the explanations as if to highlight the key enthymematic impact of their “broad and schematic” presentation. The poetic form delivers the original arguments with even more precision.

In working so closely with *De regimine principum*, Hoccleve thus also actualized a formal response to its rhetorical principles. While there is no evidence that Hoccleve knew the technical names of the formal strategies that he uses, those strategies are marvelously deployed in his poem, both because they are so much on view in Giles’ text and because they are natural to poetry. They are manifest in the innovative and often surprising features of the poem, especially in its famous prologue.

We can find this at the granular level of narrative, the exchanges between the depressed narrator and the unnamed Old Man who proposes to persuade him out of his anxiety. Initially the narrator is a resistant target, brushing off the Old Man’s advances with a “go away”: “Voide fro me, me list no compaignie. / Encresse nat my greef, I have ynow” (“I desire no company. Do not increase my grief, I have enough,” 141–2). But the Old Man persists, beginning by evaluating his audience and then providing—enthymematically—a maxim which his particular audience is likely to accept as a universal truth:

"If that thee lyke to been esid wel,	(<i>relieved</i>)
As suffre me with thee to talke a whyle.	(<i>allow me</i>)
Art thou aght lettred?" "Yee" quod I, "sumdel."	(<i>educated; somewhat</i>)
"Blessid be God, than hope I, by Seint Gyle,	
That God to thee thy wit shal reconsyle	(<i>restore</i>)
Which that me thynkith is fer fro thee went	
Thurgh the assaut of thy grevous torment.	
 "Lettred folk han gretter discrecion	
And bet conceyve konne a mannes sawe,	(<i>comprehend; speech</i>)
And rather wole applie to reson,	(<i>sooner; conform</i>)
And from folie sonner hem withdrawe,	
Than he that neithir reson can ne lawe,	(<i>knows</i>)
Ne lerned hath no maner letterure.	
Plukke up thyn herte—I hope I shal thee cure."	

(148–61)

This is obviously flattery—or meta-flattery, since it is Hoccleve the poet-clerk who conspicuously flatters the fictive projection of himself. Less obviously, it is also enthymematic: there is no necessary truth in the premise that learned people are best disposed to take comfort and regain their senses. Indeed, the contingency of this proposition is exposed later in the text when the Hoccleve persona laments his own clerical failures, his lack of learning and his intellectual limitations (1982–6).⁶⁷ But at this moment there is an immediate, situational validity. The claim stages a successful appeal to the interests of the Hoccleve character, and perhaps extra-diegetically as well, to the sensibilities of Hoccleve's circle of readers. Although the Hoccleve persona is no easy audience for the Old Man's persuasions, this preliminary argument seems to open the door and make him receptive to the flood of maxims and exempla that the Old Man produces over the next 200 lines. This includes the historical exemplum of the recent burning of the Lollard John Badby in 1410 and Prince Henry's conspicuous compassion for the heretic's melancholia (281–329). This exemplum is about the persuasive force of emotion on emotion: the prince's compassion (an appropriate emotion for a ruler) motivates him to try to rouse the heretic out of the paralyzing melancholy that has made him oblivious to his theological error, and return him to the social fold. The fact

that Hoccleve cannot change recent history and make Henry's argument successful (a difficulty inherent in using a historical exemplum) requires the strategy of making the exemplum serve another, extra-diegetic purpose: legitimating Henry himself, the next Lancastrian king, as a prince who embodies the emotional and moral values of a good ruler.

The Old Man's discourse thus calls upon ethical, emotional, and epistemic judgment. The success of these arguments on the Hoccleve persona is critical for the outcome of the narrative, as the narrator must be roused from his melancholic paralysis (in a way that Badby could not be) to take positive action. The building impact is staged for us, as at one point the Old Man breaks out of his incantatory monologue to ask whether his persuasions are working:

“Hast thou in me any gretter savour (pleasure)
Than that thou haddest first whan thou me sy,
Whan I opposid thee of thy langour? (questioned)
Seye on the soothe”

to which the Hoccleve persona answers a reluctant “yee, sumdel” (393–6).

At the narrative level, such enthymematic appeals to the narrator's interests locate the text in a powerful rhetorical discourse. But there is a much larger project in the *Regiment of Princes* that points to the Aristotelian synthesis in Giles' *De regimine*. Hoccleve's *Regiment* is conceived and structured on emotion, not the emotion of the prince, but the intrusive emotional condition of the narrator. One of the most puzzling and yet attractive features of the work is that this mirror of princes commences, not with grand ideas about the prince, the state, or even education and citizenship, but with the Hoccleve narrator's account of his own depression. The narrator's private depression and its implications occupy the whole of the prologue, that is, over one-third of the poem. As well known as the opening is to English literary scholars, it merits further reflection here.

Musynge upon the restlees bysynesse	(restless worry)
Which that this trouby world hath ay on honde,	(troubled; always)
That othir thyng than fruyt of bittirnesse	(bitter fruit)
Ne yildith naght, as I can undirstonde,	(yields nothing)
At Chestres In, right faste by the Stronde,	(Inn; the Strand)
As I lay in my bed upon a nyght,	
Thoght me byrefte of sleep the force and might.	(bereft me)
And many a day and nyght that wikkid hyne	(cruel fellow)
Hadde beforn vexed my poore goost	(before; spirit)
So grevously that of angwissh and pyne	(pain)
No rycher man was nowhere in no coost.	(any region)
This dar I seyn, may no wight make his boost	(say; person; boast)
That he with thoght was bet than I aqweynted,	
For to the deeth he wel ny hath me feynted.	(exhausted)
	(1–14)

These afflictions of “Thought” (anxiety) come from without precisely because they are a disturbance, a *perturbatio* or *affectio* that he must suffer.⁶⁸ The Hoccleve persona goes on to consider insecurity and social class: insecurity (Fortune) has recently struck down the royal estate (23–5), a reference to the fall of Richard II and his allies in 1399. But there is no more security in the “mene” or middling estate, and in poverty only does security dwell, because from there the only further descent is to death itself (26–32). The narrator would not want to opt for poverty, because poverty presents a new kind of affliction (43–6). There follows a Boethian turn, a quotation from *Consolatio philosophiae* 2 pr 4: “The werste kynde of wrecchidnesse is / A man to han be weleful or this” (the worst kind of misery is for a person to have been happy before this) [55–6]. This turn, promising to direct the narrator’s reflections out to the mutability of the human condition or at least to the polity, only serves here to take the narrator back to himself, to his musings on his own, as yet unidentified, worries, and his own sleepless night when he is annoyed by “Thought” and thus accompanied in his bed by the stings of this unwelcome but familiar guest (the “smert of thoght,” 106). Unlike Boethius, however, whose personal crisis is a terrifying sign of the spiritual evils and worldly corruption of the state that he served so intimately, Hoccleve’s despair is

unfortunate but essentially personal: as we will discover some 700 lines later (lines 820 ff.), his are the financial worries of a petty bureaucrat working in a badly organized government office with an inefficient payroll system.⁶⁹ Hoccleve may be worried about money, but he is not anticipating Boethius' fate.

Why does Hoccleve commence his rule for princes with a story of his own despair (that cross between what the Stoics knew as sadness and fear, and which moderns call "anxiety")? Of what relevance is private emotion, especially on such mundane terms, to public statecraft? The thematic relations have been well stated: in political terms, Hoccleve's personal afflictions mirror the larger problems of the realm; more narrowly but equally important, the petitionary framework of the poem comes into sharp perspective, as Hoccleve's autobiographical narrative (the payments that he does not receive, his expectation of his annuity) exposes his dependence on Henry.⁷⁰ But seen in formal terms, Hoccleve's opening manifests an understanding of the conversion that Giles had achieved in *De regimine principum*, through his own apprehension of Aristotle: in *De regimine*, emotional conditions and the passions themselves are primary and legitimate grounds of proof, whether it is the proof of the state in the prince, or the proof of his effective rule through his knowledge of his own and other people's emotions. The emotional condition of the Hoccleve persona, his indulgent account of melancholy tied to his own social well-being, provides a heuristic for his appeal to the prince, and links the prologue to the *speculum principis* of the *Regiment* proper. In the course of the exchange between the narrator and the Old Man, private despair is elevated to the status of public matter because the very cause of the narrator's misery is institutional mismanagement, the withholding of payment for his work in the Privy Seal. In the exchange with the Old Man, he stages the process of grappling with emotional affliction. The solution will, he hopes, lie in getting the Prince's attention with a poem on statecraft. Writing the poetic argument on good rule will act as a social release for the private emotional paralysis. As a kind of argument for Hoccleve's own well-being as well as a political argument to the prince, the movement of the whole poem can be read as enthymematic. Here emotion is the inventional ground or topos for political understanding.

The autobiographical dimension of *Regiment of Princes* has long drawn critical comment, especially when read against his earlier *Male Regle* and

his later *Complaint and Dialogue*. On my reading of the poem as both an expression of and testing ground for an Aristotelian turn in the medieval history of rhetoric, the interest of autobiography should not mask the formal political value that emotional discourse can assume. Where some have seen an “uncomfortable sense of selfhood,” a self riven by unstable historical conditions,⁷¹ we can also read the dysfunction of the Hoccleve persona as inventional, a ground for the larger argument of the poem, as private emotional struggle is turned structurally to a larger and public political purpose. This is not the same as saying that his personal crisis reflects the broader crisis of the realm, although that can also be true. Rather, it is to suggest that Hoccleve’s *Regiment* represents a stage in the assimilation of a rhetorical development (indeed a radical turn in the history of rhetoric) still new for vernacular writers in the early fifteenth century.

This was a way of understanding the role of emotion in proof that Dante and Chaucer also took on, each in their own way. All three poets engaged either directly or indirectly with Aristotelian rhetoric as mediated by Giles of Rome. All were to have large readerships (although the readership for Dante’s *Convivio* did not fully materialize until the end of the fourteenth century). In their political poetics, they represent key activators of a new model of rhetorical thought. Their innovations, or perhaps their acute responses to Aristotelian thought, do not signify a universal change in rhetorical culture: old traditions of stylistic teaching can have a momentum of their own and are not easily dislodged in favor of a new kind of rhetorical argumentation that places emotion at the center of proof. The *Convivio*, the *Knight’s Tale* (with its Dantean intertext, the *Wife of Bath’s Tale*), and Hoccleve’s *Regiment of Princes* are experimental works that find a place for emotional discourse as a proving ground for public political argument. I have chosen them to discuss here because they are directly in the line of an Aristotelian–Aegidian reception. In the rhetorical form of passionate appeal that they adopt, they disclose the identity between what is natural to poetics and to political persuasion. Beyond these exemplary texts, the literary consequences of the Aristotelian turn may be refracted across the later medieval poetics of political reasoning.

¹ One of these translations of the *Rhetoric*, known in two manuscripts, is attributed to Nicolò Anglico, active in the Neopolitan court around 1330. Anglico's translation survives in one fourteenth-century manuscript and in another from the fifteenth century: see Refini, *The Vernacular Aristotle*, pp. 82–3. The other translation is anonymous, surviving in one manuscript of the fourteenth century, Vatican City, Biblioteca Apostolica Vaticana, MS Chig. M.VI.126; this manuscript was owned by the humanist Jacopo Corbinelli and the translation was also printed in the sixteenth century. See Paul Oskar Kristeller, *Iter Italicum*, 6 vols. (London: Warburg Institute, 1963–97), 2: 477b. Information is also compiled in the *Vernacular Aristotelianism in Renaissance Italy Database*, <https://vari.warwick.ac.uk/>.

² Elizabeth Porter, “Gower’s Ethical Microcosm and Political Macrocosm,” in Alastair Minnis, ed., *Gower’s Confessio Amantis: Responses and Reassessments* (Cambridge: D. S. Brewer, 1983), pp. 135–62. More broadly on Gower and Aristotelian ethics, see James Simpson, *Sciences and the Self in Medieval Poetry: Alan of Lille’s Anticlaudianus and John Gower’s Confessio amantis* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1995), chapters 7 and 9.

³ Dante Alighieri, *Convivio*, ed. Franca Brambilla Ageno, 2 vols. (Florence: Casa Editrice le Lettere, 1995). Text in volume 2. All quotations will be from this edition. Except where necessary for emphasis, I have removed the editor’s emendation marks.

⁴ Unless otherwise noted, translations from *Convivio* are my own.

⁵ On what is actually a lacuna, which I have indicated here in brackets, see below.

⁶ Giles goes on to explain that these six additional passions are simply subsets of the twelve main passions: zeal (emulation) is a form of love; shame is a form of fear; envy, pity, and indignation fall under sadness; graciousness falls under love.

⁷ See the notes by Fioravanti in Dante Alighieri, *Opere 2: Convivio, Monarchia, Epistole, Egloge*, ed. Gianfranco Fioravanti et al. (Milan: Mondadori, 2014), p. 435.

⁸ See Ageno’s introduction, *Convivio* 1: 251–2; and apparatus at III.8.10 (*Convivio* 2: 198).

⁹ Fiammetta Papi, “Aristotle’s Emotions in Giles of Rome’s *De regimine principum* and in its Vernacular Translations (with a Note on Dante’s *Convivio* III.8.10),” *Annali della Scuola Normale Superiore di Pisa (Classe di Lettere e Filosofia)* ser. 5, 8 (2016): 73–104 (at pp. 101–2); cf., Fioravanti, *Opere* 2, pp. 435–6.

¹⁰ While it is possible that Dante read the *Rhetoric* or perused it in an omnibus collection of Aristotle’s philosophy, the only other reference to it in his works is in the *Epistle to Can Grande* (if we accept all of that text as Dante’s own); but this reference, to *Rhetoric* book 3, 1414b20, equating the proemium in oratory with the prologue in poetry, might also be traced to a contemporary source, Pace of Ferrara’s quotation of that passage in his early fourteenth-century commentary on Geoffrey of Vinsauf’s *Poetria nova*. See Woods, *Classroom Commentaries*, p. 121.

¹¹ As shown by Papi, “Sulla semantica della cortesia,” esp. p. 214.

¹² Albert Russell Ascoli, *Dante and the Making of a Modern Author* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2008), pp. 85–97.

¹³ *Summa dictaminis*, ed. Gaudenzi, p. 298. Guido Faba goes on to cite biblical wisdom literature (Proverbs 27:2). See the notes in Dante Alighieri, *Il Convivio*, ed. G. Busnelli, G. Vandelli, and Antonio Enzo Quaglio, 2nd ed., 2 vols. (Florence: Felice le Monnier, 1964), 1: 12–13. Cf., Valerius Maximus, *Facta et dicta memorabilia* 7.2. ext. 11b, who attributes to Aristotle a related idea about self-praise as vanity and self-censure as folly.

¹⁴ For background on the language theory see, for example, Cecil Grayson, “‘Nobilior est vulgaris’: Latin and Vernacular in Dante’s Thought,” in [Oxford Dante Society], *Centenary Essays*

on Dante (Oxford: Clarendon, 1965), pp. 54–76; Zygmunt Baranski, “Il trionfi del volgare: Dante e il plurilinguismo,” in *“Sole nuovo, luce nuova”: Saggi sul rinnovamento culturale in Dante* (Turin: Edizioni Scriptorium, 1996), pp. 41–77; Ascoli, *Dante and the Making of a Modern Author*, pp. 93–6 (and notes there). See also Mirko T. Tavoni, “Volgare e latino nella storia di Dante,” in Sara F. Fortuna et al., eds, *Dante’s Plurilingualism: Authority, Knowledge, Subjectivity* (London: MHRA/Maney Publishing, 2010), pp. 52–68.

¹⁵ See Chapter 5, pp. 211–14.

¹⁶ I borrow the notion of a “sublimated” rhetoric from David Marshall, who describes a process of rhetoric’s progressive “sublimation” in Vico’s late work; see *Vico and the Transformation of Rhetoric in Early Modern Europe* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2010), pp. 3–8.

¹⁷ Another conceit in *Convivio* I, that a servant must know its master intimately, and for that reason a conventional commentary written in Latin could not serve its vernacular “master” with the requisite knowledge (I.6.2–5), perhaps also echoes a theme that Giles advertises in his preface: “it is fitting to extend this teaching to the whole people, so that they may know in what way they should obey their princes” (1607 ed., p. 4; see Chapter 5, p. 212). Giles’ *De regimine* teaches both rulers how to rule and subjects how to know the princely rules that they should obey, giving *totus populus* an intimate knowledge of the motivations of princes. Dante, specifying an audience of noble courtiers (I.9.5, princes, barons, knights, and ladies) who may not be not bound to programs of service, sets the theme of obedience into the textual structure of the work itself, thereby illustrating the formal properties of obedience.

¹⁸ We may also recall that Giles, like Dante, is not addressing a generic popular audience; when he recommends the particular importance of rhetoric in the teaching of the liberal arts, he specifies the sons of “gentlemen” and nobles, as well as kings and princes; *De regimine principum* 2.2.8, 1607 ed., p. 307.

¹⁹ A classic reading of this passage in book II is Marianne Shapiro, “On the Role of Rhetoric in the *Convivio*,” *Romance Philology* 40 (1986): 38–64.

²⁰ On the avatars of *suavitas* in rhetoric and more broadly aesthetic theory, see Mary Carruthers, “Sweetness,” *Speculum* 81 (2006): 999–1013.

²¹ On these terms, see the commentary on II.10.6–8 in Fioravanti’s edition of *Convivio*, pp. 291–3.

²² See the semantic analysis in Papi, “Giles of Rome’s *De regimine principum* and its Vernacular Translations: The Reception of the Aristotelian Tradition and the Problem of *Courtesy*,” and Fiammetta Papi, “Il *De regimine principum* di Egidio Romano nella biblioteca di Dante,” in Domenico de Martino, ed., “*Significar per verba*”: *Laboratorio dantesco* (Ravenna: Longo Editore, 2018), pp. 155–200 (esp. pp. 175–81). See also Raffaella Zanni, “Tra *curialitas* e *cortesia* nel pensiero dantesco. Una ricognizione e una proposta per DVE I, xviii, 4–5,” in Carlota Cattermole et al., eds., *Ortodossia ed eterodossia in Dante Alighieri* (Madrid: Ediciones de la Discreta, 2014), pp. 233–49.

²³ Translation from *Dante’s Lyric Poetry*, ed. and trans. K. Foster and P. Boyde, 2 vols. (Oxford: Clarendon, 1967), 1: 131–5.

²⁴ On the poetic lineage of *cortesia* leading up to Dante, see Kristina M. Olson, *Courtesy Lost: Dante, Boccaccio, and the Literature of History* (Toronto: University of Toronto Press, 2014), pp. 8–14 and notes there; and Papi, “Sulla semantica della *cortesia*,” pp. 212–13. On the *Wife of Bath’s Tale*, see below in this chapter, pp. 262–6.

²⁵ The argumentative character of the poem is considered in terms of the general Ciceronian principle of *probatio* in *Dante’s Lyric Poetry*, eds. Foster and Boyde, 2: 210–28.

²⁶ This was already a commonplace idea; see e.g., Boethius, *Consolatio philosophiae* 2 pr 6, and *Roman de la rose*, 6579–92, 11607–96. See also G. M. Vogt, “Gleanings for the History of a Sentiment: *Generositas virtus non sanguis*,” *JEGP* 24 (1925): 102–24; Jaeger, *Envy of Angels*, pp. 87–94 and notes.

²⁷ See Chapter 5, pp. 235–7.

²⁸ The phrase actually descends from Aristotle’s *Politics* book 6, chapter 8 (1294a21), in Moerbeke’s translation: “*ingenuitas enim est virtus et divitiae antiquae*” (nobility is virtue and ancient wealth): *Aristotelis Politicorum libri octo cum vetusta translatione Guilelmi de Moerbeka*, ed. F. Susemihl (Leipzig: Teubner, 1872) [AL XXIX.2]. Dante correctly attributes it to Aristotle in *Monarchia* II.3.4. On the ascription to Frederick II in *Convivio*, see Ascoli, *Dante and the Making of a Modern Author*, pp. 97–108.

²⁹ G. Briguglia, “‘Lo comun’ di Cicerone e la ‘gentilezza’ di Egidio Romano. Alcune considerazioni su pensiero politico e lingue volgari nel tardo Medioevo,” *Il pensiero politico*, 37 (2004): 397–411. See also Papi, “Giles of Rome’s *De regimine principum* and its Vernacular Translations: The Reception of the Aristotelian Tradition and the Problem of Courtesy.”

³⁰ On the imagined public, see Gianfranco Fioravanti, “Il *Convivio* e il suo pubblico,” *Le forme e la storia* n.s. 8 no. 2 (2014): 13–21.

³¹ Zygmunt Baranski argues that all the accompanying commentaries present an unconventional relationship to their *canzoni*, managing to free themselves from the songs they intend to clarify; “Il *Convivio* e la poesia: problemi di definizione,” in Francesco Tateo and Daniele M. Pegorari, eds., *Contesti della Commedia. Lectura Dantis Fridericiana* (Bari: Palomar, 2004), pp. 9–64 (at pp. 17, 21).

³² Cf., *Dante’s Lyric Poetry*, eds. Foster and Boyde, 2: 214.

³³ Ambrogio Camozzi Pistoja, “Il quarto trattato del *Convivio*. O della satira,” *Le tre corone* 1 (2014): 27–53, esp. pp. 32–4 on the suggestive allusion of “sotto alcuna figura” to the naked (non-figural) *modus* of satire.

³⁴ The false etymology of “satire” from “satyr” known for its nakedness, transmitted through Isidore of Seville, is given in Conrad of Hirsau, *Dialogus super auctores*, ed. R. B. C. Huygens, *Accessus ad auctores, Bernard d’Utrecht, Conrad d’Hirsau* (Leiden: Brill, 1970), lines 157–62 (p. 76). For other examples, see Suzanne Reynolds, *Medieval Reading: Grammar, Rhetoric, and the Classical Text* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1996), pp. 144–9.

³⁵ See Chapter 5, pp. 209–11.

³⁶ On the originality of this as a vernacular *quaestio*, see Fioravanti, “Il *Convivio* e il suo pubblico,” esp. pp. 16–17 (with an outline of the form and arguments of Dante’s *quaestio*); and Ascoli, *Dante and the Making of a Modern Author*, p. 82 and notes.

³⁷ See, for example, the *interrogationes* at IV.7.12, IV.12.8–10, IV.14.12–13, IV.28.15. On the doctrinal sources of the key devices found in *Convivio* and for extended stylistic analysis, see Andrea Mazzucchi, “Strategie patetiche ed emotive nella prose scientifico-dottrinale del *Convivio*,” *Rivista di studi danteschi* 3 (2003): 3–27.

³⁸ See the stylistic analysis of this passage (which runs the gamut of prose rhythms, *colores*, and other figures) in Mazzucchi, “Strategie patetiche,” 24–5.

³⁹ A case has been made for Gower’s knowledge of Giles’ commentary on the *Rhetoric* or possibly of Moerbeke’s translation of the *Rhetoric* itself: see Georgiana Donavin, “Rhetorical Gower: Aristotelianism in the *Confessio Amantis*’s Treatment of ‘Rethorique,’” in Malte Urban, ed., *John Gower: Manuscripts, Readers, Contexts* (Turnhout: Brepols, 2009), pp. 155–73. Direct influence of

Giles' rhetoric commentary on an English author may be difficult to prove at least in terms of manuscripts now known; it survives in whole or part in only twenty-eight extant manuscripts, and of these only one complete copy is of medieval English provenance (Cambridge, Peterhouse College, MS 82, of the late thirteenth century). It would also be frustratingly hard to pin down direct knowledge of Moerbeke's *Rhetoric* among educated vernacular writers in England.

⁴⁰ See Charles F. Briggs, "Manuscripts of Giles of Rome's *De regimine principum* in England, 1300–1500: A Handlist," *Scriptorium* 47 (1993): 60–73. For Oxford or possible Oxford associations, see nos. 23, 33, 37, 40; for London, see nos. 36, 43. For dates and origins of all the known manuscripts of English provenance, see Briggs, *Giles of Rome's De regimine principum*, table 2 (pp. 23–4).

⁴¹ John Livingston Lowes, "Chaucer and Dante's *Convivio*," *Modern Philology* 13 (1915): 19–33; on "Gentilesse," see also Piero Boitani, "What Dante Meant to Chaucer," in Piero Boitani, ed., *Chaucer and the Italian Trecento* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1983), pp. 115–39.

⁴² Stephen H. Rigby, *Wisdom and Chivalry: Chaucer's Knight's Tale and Medieval Political Theory* (Leiden: Brill, 2009); Stephen H. Rigby, "Aristotle for Aristocrats and Poets: Giles of Rome's *De regimine principum* as Theodicy of Privilege," *Chaucer Review* 46 (2012): 259–313; Alastair Minnis, "'I speke of folk in seculer estaat': Vernacularity and Secularity in the Age of Chaucer," *Studies in the Age of Chaucer* 27 (2005): 25–58.

⁴³ The verbal parallels between *Convivio* and the *Wife of Bath's Tale* given here are based on those noted at length in Lowes, "Chaucer and Dante's *Convivio*," as well as the notes in *Riverside Chaucer*, p. 874.

⁴⁴ Stanza 6 is not quoted above: Boyd and Foster translate it as follows: "Nobility is wherever virtue is, but virtue is not wherever nobility is...Hence each virtue...derives from nobility as perse from black. And therefore let no one boast saying: 'I am noble because of my birth'; for those who have this grace without any flaw are almost godlike, for it is God alone who gives it to a soul which He sees to be in perfect harmony with her body. Hence it is clear to some that nobility is the seed of happiness placed by God in a well-disposed soul" (*Dante's Lyric Poetry* I: 137).

⁴⁵ Cf.,

Rade volte risurge per li rami
l'umana probitate; e questo vole
quei che la dà, perché da lui si chiami.

(Purgatorio 7.121–3)

Rarely does human worth rise through the branches, and this He wills who gives it, in order that it may be asked from Him.

Text and translation from Dante Alighieri, *The Divine Comedy*, translated with a commentary by Charles S. Singleton, 3 vols. (Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1970–5).

⁴⁶ In addition to Minnis, "'I speke of folk in seculer estaat,'" and Rigby, *Wisdom and Chivalry*, see also John A. Burrow, *The Ages of Man: A Study in Medieval Writing and Thought* (Oxford: Clarendon, 1986), pp. 9–11, and John A. Burrow, *Ricardian Poetry* (London: Routledge and Kegan Paul, 1971), pp. 116–17. On the influence of *De regimine* on Boccaccio's *Teseida*, see Barbara Nolan, *Chaucer and the Tradition of the Roman Antique* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1992), pp. 166–9, and David Anderson, *Before the Knight's Tale: Imitation of Classical Epic in Boccaccio's Teseida* (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 1988), pp. 174–7.

⁴⁷ The critical trajectories on the "First Mover" speech are summarized in Nolan, *Chaucer and the Tradition of the Roman Antique*, pp. 278–82, and p. 359, note 82. On older discussions, see *Riverside Chaucer*, p. 841.

⁴⁸ Giovanni Boccaccio, *Teseida delle nozze d'Emilia*, eds. Advige Agostinelli and William Coleman (Florence: Edizione del Galluzzo, 2015).

⁴⁹ Translation based on N. R. Havely, ed. and trans., *Chaucer's Boccaccio: Sources of Troilus and the Knight's and Franklin's Tales* (Cambridge: D. S. Brewer; Woodbridge: Rowan & Littlefield, 1980), pp. 147–8. I have made some modifications to Havely's translation.

⁵⁰ On Chaucer's knowledge of parliamentary procedures, see, among older studies, John P. McCall and George Rudisill Jr., "The Parliament of 1386 and Chaucer's Trojan Parliament," *JEGP* 58 (1959): 276–88; a critically astute recent study is Marc S. Guidry, "The Parliament of Gods and Men in the *Knight's Tale*," *Chaucer Review* 43 (2008): 140–70 (esp. p. 157). On collectivity, see Emily Steiner, "Commonalty and Literary Form in the 1370s and 1380s," *New Medieval Literatures* 6 (2003): 199–221.

⁵¹ *Riverside Chaucer*, p. 841, quoting the suggestion by Traugott Lawler, *The One and the Many in the Canterbury Tales* (Hamden, CT: Archon Books, 1980), p. 87.

⁵² On the pagan outlook of Theseus within the tale's "imaginative moment in time," see V. A. Kolve, *Chaucer and the Imagery of Narrative: The First Five Canterbury Tales* (Stanford: Stanford University Press, 1984), pp. 140–5; on the unresolved Boethian thought about transcendence, see A. J. Minnis, *Chaucer and Pagan Antiquity* (Cambridge: D. S. Brewer, 1982), pp. 121–31 (esp. p. 128). Such views are responses to the positive assessment of other critics, notably D. W. Robertson, that the distilled Boethian thought in Theseus' speech infers the fulfillment of a providential vision (*A Preface to Chaucer* (Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1962), p. 270).

⁵³ Guidry, "The Parliament of Gods and Men in the *Knight's Tale*," p. 158; David Wallace, *Chaucerian Polity: Absolutist Lineages and Associational Forms in England and Italy* (Stanford: Stanford University Press, 1997), p. 118, although, as Wallace notes, Theseus' inner debates are strikingly dialogic.

⁵⁴ On Saturn's intervention, see Paul Strohm, *Social Chaucer* (Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1989), pp. 132–3.

⁵⁵ Quotations are from Thomas Hoccleve, *The Regiment of Princes*, ed. Charles R. Blyth (Kalamazoo, MI: Medieval Institute Publications, 1999). Most of the glosses are also from this edition.

⁵⁶ Nicholas Perkins, *Hoccleve's Regiment of Princes: Counsel and Constraint* (Cambridge: D. S. Brewer, 2001), pp. 93–9, 122–5.

⁵⁷ Ethan Knapp, *The Bureaucratic Muse: Thomas Hoccleve and the Literature of Late Medieval England* (University Park: Pennsylvania State University Press, 2001), pp. 29–43, 182–3; J. A. Burrow, *Thomas Hoccleve* (Aldershot: Variorum, 1994), pp. 4–6, 30–1.

⁵⁸ Martin Camargo, ed., *Medieval Rhetorics of Prose Composition: Five English Artes Dictandi and Their Traditions* (Binghamton, NY: Medieval & Renaissance Texts and Studies, 1995), pp. 105–47.

⁵⁹ It is telling that in one of his eulogies of Chaucer (*Regiment of Princes*, lines 2077–93) he says that Chaucer was in rhetoric a Cicero ("Tullius"), in philosophy an Aristotle, and in poetry a Virgil; as his frame of reference indicates, his formal knowledge of rhetoric was Ciceronian.

⁶⁰ See Briggs, "Manuscripts of Giles of Rome's *De Regimine Principum*: A Handlist," especially items 1, 3, 36, copies of the work in French that seem to have been in England by the early fifteenth century; and see also Charles F. Briggs, "MS Digby 233 and the Patronage of John Trevisa's *De regimine principum*," *English Manuscript Studies 1100–1700* 7 (1997): 249–63 (note 35).

⁶¹ Briggs, *Giles of Rome's De regimine principum*, p. 64; Briggs also cites an Epiphany sermon preached before Henry in 1414, which encourages its audience to follow the advice of the last part of *De regimine principum* when deliberating matters of war. Cf., Derek Pearsall, "Hoccleve's *Regement of Princes: The Poetics of Royal Self-Representation*," *Speculum* 69 (1994): 386–410 (at 393).

⁶² A. I. Doyle, "English Books In and Out of Court from Edward III to Henry VII," in V. J. Scattergood and J. W. Sherborne, eds., *English Court Culture in the Later Middle Ages* (London: Duckworth, 1983), pp. 163–81 (at p. 173); Pearsall, "Hoccleve's *Regement of Princes*," 394; Briggs, "MS Digby 233." The fundamental study of books commissioned by Berkeley is Ralph Hanna, "Sir Thomas Berkeley and His Patronage," *Speculum* 64 (1989): 878–916.

⁶³ In addition to Perkins, *Hoccleve's Regiment of Princes* and Knapp, *The Bureaucratic Muse*, see Elisabeth Kempf, *Performing Manuscript Culture: Poetry, Materiality, and Authorship in Thomas Hoccleve's Regement of Princes* (Berlin: De Gruyter, 2017), esp. chapters 1 and 2; J. A. Burrow, "The Poet as Petitioner," *Studies in the Age of Chaucer* 3 (1981): 61–75; Malcolm Richardson, "Hoccleve in his Social Context," *Chaucer Review* 20 (1986): 313–22; Scanlon, *Narrative, Authority, and Power*, pp. 299–322; James Simpson, "Nobody's Man: Thomas Hoccleve's *Regement of Princes*," in Julia Boffey and Pamela King, eds., *London and Europe in the Later Middle Ages* (London: Centre for Medieval and Renaissance Studies, Queen Mary and Westfield College, University of London, 1995), pp. 149–80; Paul Strohm, "Hoccleve, Lydgate, and the Lancastrian Court," in David Wallace, ed., *The Cambridge History of Medieval English Literature* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1999), pp. 640–61; Lee Patterson, "'What is Me?' Self and Society in the Poetry of Thomas Hoccleve," *Studies in the Age of Chaucer* 23 (2001): 437–70.

⁶⁴ *The Regiment of Princes*, ed. Blyth, Introduction pp. 11–12, and Explanatory Notes pp. 201–52. On the number of manuscripts, see David Watt, "Thomas Hoccleve's *Regement of Princes*," in Julia Boffey and A. S. G. Edwards, eds., *A Companion to Fifteenth-Century English Poetry* (Cambridge: D. S. Brewer, 2013), pp. 47–57.

⁶⁵ Hanna, "Sir Thomas Berkeley and His Patronage," speculates that the great success of Hoccleve's *Regiment* was the reason why Trevisa's literal translation of Giles' *De regimine principum* failed to circulate, surviving only in one manuscript.

⁶⁶ For the corresponding Latin text, see *De regimine principum*, 1607 ed., pp. 103–4; or Trevisa's translation, ed. Briggs and Fowler, p. 77.

⁶⁷ See Kempf, *Performing Manuscript Culture*, pp. 1–3.

⁶⁸ The external pressure of the emotions here is not a sign of alienation, as Patterson suggests ("What is Me?" p. 442); Hoccleve's description is consistent with much ancient and medieval theory of strong emotion as a disturbance suffered or experienced "passively."

⁶⁹ Knapp, *The Bureaucratic Muse*, pp. 20–9; Richardson, "Hoccleve in his Social Context," stresses Hoccleve's ineptitude at advancing his career through the channels available to clerks like him.

⁷⁰ Sheila Lindenbaum, "Thomas Hoccleve," in Boffey and Edwards, eds., *A Companion to Fifteenth-Century English Poetry*, pp. 35–45 (at p. 35); Larry Scanlon, "The King's Two Voices: Narrative and Power in Hoccleve's *Regement of Princes*," in Lee Patterson, ed., *Literary Practice and Social Change in Britain, 1380–1530* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1990), pp. 216–47 (at p. 226); cf., Pearsall, "Hoccleve's *Regement of Princes*," 408–9.

⁷¹ Patterson, "'What is Me?'" esp. 439–40, 466.

7

Preaching, Emotion, and the Aristotelian Turn

Medieval poetics has a pragmatic knowledge of emotional reasoning. This innate capacity could meet its theoretical expression in Aristotelian rhetoric, which emphasizes the legitimacy and necessity of emotion as a basis of proof. This comes into relief when we see how poets reflect their own encounters with Aristotelian theories of persuasion: in Dante, Chaucer, and Hoccleve, we can chart the passage from political to poetic argument through the signal device of emotional persuasion common to both forms, the enthymeme.

Preaching, like poetry, was a repository of pragmatic knowledge about emotions. Indeed, this rhetorical dynamic is what most links poetry with the affective mission of preaching. Preaching, like poetics, provides a phenomenological access to emotion. Aristotle had assigned the phenomenology of emotion a critical place in rhetorical theory. But even without knowledge of the *Rhetoric*, medieval preachers had always deployed a pragmatic psychology of emotion. This knowledge, which preachers possessed intuitively, is what they found articulated in a systematic way when they encountered Aristotle's *Rhetoric*. They would also have found the theory exemplified in manifold ways if they came to Aristotelian rhetoric through its popular intermediary, *De regimine principum*. And like poetry, preaching found in enthymemes a natural form of emotional proof.

But unlike poetics, preaching was institutionally tied to centers of Latinate learning, libraries, and book production. This makes it relatively easy to trace patterns of encounter with the *Rhetoric* and its intermediary

De regimine principum, and to gauge their impact on the rhetorical practices of homiletics after these works were in circulation. By comparison, we can usually only guess at the libraries of medieval poets—especially vernacular poets—from the learning that reveals itself in the poetry through reference, allusion, and the apparent influence of ideas, even if some poets, such as Dante, Chaucer, Gower, and Christine de Pizan, tend to display their reading conspicuously. For preachers, however, we have reasonably consistent records of the holdings of the religious houses and schools that prepared students for pastoral careers. Thus it is possible to see what communities or kinds of communities owned Aristotle's *Rhetoric* and Giles' *De regimine*, and from there to consider how the professional influence of these books left its mark on pastoral rhetorical culture.

It is inevitable that we should follow the trail of Aristotelian rhetoric into preaching uses. Clerical houses and individuals with pastoral careers are a distinctive and large group among owners of both the *Rhetoric* and *De regimine principum*. Preaching was the expressive channel for the study of moral philosophy among these groups, and it was through moral philosophy that preachers would have encountered the new turn in rhetoric. Even if preachers did not always comment on or perhaps even recognize these texts as contributions to what they understood as rhetorical theory, the impact on their conceptions of argument is critical. Preaching is the field that most directly activates emotional reasoning.

The impact of the Aristotelian turn was not revolutionary in any standard sense of the term. First, the older rhetorical model of seeking emotion in style did not suddenly fall away at the end of the thirteenth century. That rhetorical understanding remains a constant because of the basic and ongoing training in style that students received in their grammatical and early rhetorical educations. Moreover, Aristotelian thought about emotional reasoning could interact with older stylistic principles in fruitful ways. Second, and more important, the principles outlined in Aristotelian rhetoric were not new to preaching: like any public speakers, preachers intuitively knew how to appeal to emotion and make arguments that captured the values and opinions of their audiences. Indeed, as Aristotle notes at the beginning of the *Rhetoric* (1354a2), all speakers put forth, test, and defend arguments. Of course, preachers did not need Aristotle to know that they must appeal to the passions: as the Franciscan John Ridewall put it, invoking not the *Rhetoric* but Cicero's *De inventione*: "Audiences are

moved and impassioned through this power of eloquence: sometimes to pity and sometimes to contentment, sometimes to penitence and sometimes to liking or dislike, and so with all the other passions by which orators and preachers of God's word customarily move audiences through the power of verbal fluency, that is, eloquence."¹ The eloquence necessary to preaching will harness and move the emotions to good. Yet the medieval *artes praedicandi*, which represent the main body of theoretical precept on how to preach, contain very little discussion of emotion, little systematic advice about the passions and passionate appeals. I shall consider this aspect of the *artes praedicandi* in more detail later in this chapter.² Thus the systematic theory that Aristotle's *Rhetoric* offered was new to medieval readers, and could explain in a newly sophisticated way the efficacy of such appeals.

7.1 The *Rhetoric* and *De regimine principum* in Clerical Hands

The early provenances of the manuscripts containing Moerbeke's translation of the *Rhetoric* cannot always be ascertained. But of the ninety-nine codices known to George Lacombe and Lorenzo Minio-Paluello, at least forty-one can be associated with religious houses or churches, colleges training future clergy, and individuals who had pastoral careers.³ Thus slightly more than forty percent are of known religious provenance; the figure would surely be much higher if we knew the early owners or users of more of the manuscripts. Over half of the manuscripts of religious provenance are from the fourteenth century, some of them from the earlier years but most from the middle decades of the century. This suggests how much pastoral interest contributed to the diffusion of the *Rhetoric* within the generation or two after its appearance.⁴ Of these forty-one codices of clear religious provenance, eleven were owned by Benedictine houses, six are associated with theology study at universities (Paris, Oxford, and Cambridge), five with Cistercian houses, five with Dominicans, two each with Augustinians, cathedral libraries, and metropolitan churches, one each with Franciscan, Victorine, and Premonstratensian libraries, two with canons, and one with a bishop; a remaining two are of unspecified but apparent religious provenance.

Many of the forty-one manuscripts that we can trace to religious houses or other pastoral environments are standard collections of Aristotelian moral philosophy, joining the *Rhetoric* to some combination of the *Ethics*, *Politics*, the *Magna moralia*, or the pseudo-Aristotelian *Economics* as well as sometimes the *Secretum secretorum*. Some others are more ambitious collections of natural, logical, and moral sciences, such as Munich, Staatsbibliothek, Clm 8003 (c.1300) from the Cistercian abbey at Kaiserheim, an omnibus of Aristotelian and pseudo-Aristotelian works that contains *De sensu*, *De memoria*, *De somno*, *De iuventute et senectute*, *De respiratione*, *De longitudine et brevitate vitae*, *De pomo*, *De motu animalium*, *De lineis indivisibilibus*, *De Nilo*, *De mundo*, *Epistola ad Alexandrum*, *Vita Aristotelis*, *De progressu animalium*, *Physiognomia*, *Magna moralia*, *Rhetoric*, and *Politics*. Another Cistercian volume, Berlin, Staatsbibliothek, MS lat. fol. 662 (s. xiv) which belonged to Ten Duinen Abbey, is similarly ambitious. These Cistercian volumes are some of the more comprehensive of the collections, although collections associated with other orders had comparable scope: for example, an Augustinian collection, Toulouse, Bibliothèque municipale, MS 733 (s.xiii–xiv), comprising the *Metaphysics*, *Ethics*, *Politics*, *Rhetoric*, *Physics*, *De generatione*, *Meteora*, *De anima*, *De sensu*, *De memoria*, *De caelo*, and more works of the *Parva naturalia*, as well as the pseudo-Aristotelian *De bona fortuna* and *De causis*. The Benedictines, too, owned a variety of texts, from ordinary moral science collections (*Ethics*, *Magna moralia*, *Economics*, *Rhetoric*, *Politics*) to more varied omnibus anthologies, such as that in Florence, Biblioteca Laurentiana, MS conv. soppr. 95 (s.xiv), which contains Aristotle's *Ethics*, *Politics*, and *Rhetoric*, the *Moralium dogma philosophorum* attributed to William of Conches, the pseudo-Aristotelian *Magna moralia*, *De pomo*, *Vita Aristotelis*, and *De bona fortuna*, Seneca's *De clementia*, the pseudo-Senecan *De moribus* and *De remediis fortuitorum*, and the *Secretum secretorum*. The Dominicans, too, could have a variety of collections, from moral science to combinations of moral and natural science (Venice, Biblioteca Marciana, MS lat.vi. 39, s.xiv). Three manuscripts, all associated with Paris or northern France, contain only the *Rhetoric* and Giles' commentary on the work: Paris, Bnf, MS nouv. acq. lat. 1876 (s.xiv), a Cistercian book; Troyes, Bibliothèque municipale, MS 912 (s.xiv), another Cistercian book that was the property of the abbey at Clairvaux; and Paris,

Bibliothèque de la Sorbonne, MS 120 (s.xiii), a book that was owned by the Collège de Cholet in Paris.

Early book inventories can add marginally to the list of pastoral ownership of the *Rhetoric*. For example, the library of the Franciscan convent of St. Francis at Pisa had a copy by 1355 in one of the chained books in its reference collection; it appears among the books of the conventual libraries at Assisi in the catalogue drawn up in 1381. In the 1530s, John Leland mentioned finding a copy of the *Rhetoric* among the relatively few books of the Carmelite convent at Norwich; and there are lost copies of the *Rhetoric* (or *sententiae* from it) that once belonged, mainly through donations, to Cambridge and Oxford colleges, to English Benedictine foundations, to Syon Abbey, and to the Austin friars of York.⁵ Among these last the names of pastoral donors often come down to us. These include Thomas of Findon, abbot of St. Augustine's, Canterbury from 1283 to 1310, who gave many books to the abbey, including probably the *Politics* and the *Rhetoric*; ⁶ the priest John Bracebrigge, who joined Syon Abbey in the 1420s after teaching grammar at Lincoln Cathedral as well as probably preaching in Lincolnshire, and who gave a large donation of books to Syon, including a volume containing the *Ethics*, *Politics*, *Rhetoric*, and *Magna moralia*;⁷ and the respected preacher John Pynchbek, bachelor of theology at Oxford and doctor at Cambridge, chantry chaplain in London between 1453 and 1457, rector of Saint Mary Abchurch in London by 1459, who entered Syon Abbey in 1459 and a few years later joined a mendicant order, leaving Syon an omnibus volume of logical, ethical, and political writings by Aristotle and other authorities, including the *Rhetoric*.⁸

Overall, the evidence suggests that interest in the *Rhetoric* was fairly consistent across different milieux, from monastic houses to mendicant convents to universities or churches, in that they mostly read it as a contribution to moral philosophy, although in three cases it appears on its own with Giles' commentary. On this list (limited by what can be known of provenance) the Cistercian houses have a few more distinctive volumes (encompassing multiple scientific interests or focused on the *Rhetoric* and its influential exposition), although this is not always the case: for example, one Cistercian manuscript, also at Ten Duinen Abbey (Bruges, Bibliothèque publique, MS 480, s.xiv) is a standard moral philosophy collection. But on the other hand, the holdings of Benedictines, Dominicans, other religious

orders, university colleges, and individuals are relatively similar, tending to place the *Rhetoric* among other Aristotelian works that taught morals and social science. Thus from monastic orders to preaching orders, the contents associated with the *Rhetoric* are fairly stable. We can see this attitude even apart from the text of the *Rhetoric* itself. For example, from about 1300 Peterhouse College in Cambridge owned a copy of the *Rhetoric* in a standard collection with the *Metaphysics*, *Ethics*, and *Politics* (Cambridge, Peterhouse College, MS 57); but it also possessed, from about the same period, a volume containing Giles' commentary on the *Rhetoric* along with his commentary on the pseudo-Aristotelian *De bona fortuna*, Aquinas' commentary on the *Ethics*, and the commentary by Aquinas and Peter of Auvergne on the *Politics* (Peterhouse College, MS 82). In other words, the influential commentary on the *Rhetoric* was seen as thematically connected with other commentaries on Aristotelian ethics and politics.

The thematic similarities of volumes containing the *Rhetoric* should not, however, suggest a drab homogeneity of response. Rather, the similarities can invite us to generalize from a few distinctive uses to a more prevailing sensitivity to the nature of the text. In other words, where we find a heightened awareness of Aristotle's teaching in one place, we can assume that this represents the tip of an iceberg, so to speak, that there are many more unrecorded responses of like sensitivity. Nor should we assume that the power of the *Rhetoric* as a new theory of public discourse was diluted by the company of Aristotelian moral philosophy that it kept. We should consider, rather, how its placement among other Aristotelian moral treatises kept it alive in the minds of its readers as an authoritative and perhaps even transformational resource on the ethical dimensions of speaking and persuading. Along with the variety of other ethical (and sometimes scientific) works, the *Rhetoric* was valued by its pastoral readers for its application to preaching. A well-known example of such penetration is an Oxford graduation sermon from the last decades of the thirteenth century. In this elite university context, the preacher opens with a quotation from book 1 chapter 9 in Moerbeke's translation, "laus est sermo elucidans magnitudinem virtutis" (praise is speech that makes clear the greatness of virtue [of the one being praised]) [1367b27–8]. This allows him to draw a distinction between moral and intellectual virtue based on the *Ethics*. Apparently, this preacher saw the discussion of topics appropriate to the epideictic genre as a theoretical complement to the purpose of his exercise,

praising the virtue of a new graduate.⁹ But the *Rhetoric* seems also to have interested non-pastoral readers: one intriguing outlier is a Vatican manuscript containing the *Ethics*, *Economics*, *Politics*, and *Rhetoric*, a “testus moralis phylosophie Aristotilis” owned early in its history by one Francesco, a doctor “in medicina et artibus” (Biblioteca Apostolica Vaticana, MS Pal. lat. 1016).¹⁰ No doubt such ethical study, especially understanding the bases of human behavior and society, was also deemed valuable to physicians.¹¹

Pastoral collections may also invoke Giles’ *De regimine principum*. One example is a Dominican volume, Basel, Universitätsbibliothek, MS F.I.30 (s. xiv), which has chapter titles of *De regimine*, along with the *Rhetoric*, *Ethics*, and questions and notes on the *Ethics*.¹² The passage from moral and ethical treatises, including the *Rhetoric*, to Giles’ *De regimine* is a natural one, although Giles’ text is hardly ever found in volumes containing complete Aristotelian works.¹³ Perhaps the very size of *De regimine principum* discouraged including it in collections of Aristotle’s works, and it is often found on its own. But religious houses were avid collectors of *De regimine principum*. Two censuses of *De regimine* copies, one of manuscripts in the Vatican and mainly of Italian provenance, and one of manuscripts of English provenance, can give us a good picture of clerical ownership.¹⁴ The census by del Punta and Luna of seventy-four manuscripts of *De regimine principum* contained in the Vatican and other Italian libraries yields twenty-two copies of the fourteenth and fifteenth centuries that can be traced with certainty to ownership by religious houses (or sometimes clerical individuals), mostly in Italy. The preaching orders are represented in over half of these, but there are also Benedictine houses, metropolitan churches, and in one case the Abbey of Citeaux (Del Punta and Luna #1068). Medieval English manuscripts give us an even sharper picture of clerical ownership of *De regimine principum*. Of sixty manuscripts of medieval English provenance containing all or part of the text or abridgements, twenty-six can be securely linked with religious houses or with pastoral training in university colleges or with individual clergy. Eight of these were at Oxford and Cambridge colleges, but monastic foundations (particularly Benedictines, who sent their members to study at their house in Oxford), cathedrals, and mendicant convents together make up another fifteen texts. Several collections include *De regimine principum*

among other contents that are clearly directed to preaching use.¹⁵ This is the case, for example, with London, British Library, MS Royal 4.D.iv, a large volume of the early fifteenth century that belonged to the Franciscan convent in London. This has not only *De regimine*, taking up the last quarter of the volume, but also the *postillae* by the Franciscan theologian Bertrand de la Tour on the Gospel lections for the year and two pastoral works by the English Franciscan John of Wales, his *Tractatus de septem viciis* and his *Tractatus de penitentia*. There are also several versions of an alphabetical index of the contents of *De regimine*, beginning “abstinentia,” or “abhominacio,” or “avarus,” which are strongly associated either with the English Augustinian friars or with the English Benedictines. While such indices could have various applications, they are readily comparable to better-known alphabetical sources books used as preaching aids.¹⁶ Early inventories of English books that are now lost or unidentified can add as many as eighteen further copies of *De regimine principum* owned by religious foundations and theological students: in addition to Cambridge and Oxford colleges (nine lost copies), there were copies at Benedictine and Augustinian houses, at Syon Abbey, and at the convent of the Austin friars of York.¹⁷

One way in which the *Rhetoric* and *De regimine* might pass through many pastoral hands was in the form of extracts and notabilia. An important pastoral collection that brought the two works together is London, British Library, MS Royal 5.C.iii, a miscellaneous volume of originally separate works, owned in whole or in part by the London rector Thomas Eborall. Eborall was one of a circle of orthodox London rectors (mainly Cambridge graduates) who in 1447 actively opposed Bishop Reginald Pecock for defending absentee bishops and minimizing the obligation to preach in one’s parish.¹⁸ Pecock had argued controversially that educated clerics were not obliged to preach in their parishes and that bishops were perfectly justified in being absent from their sees (just as Pecock himself was). By contrast, Eborall’s career was defined by a dedication to preaching, something he had in common with many of his contemporary rectors in London, who committed themselves to serving their parishes rather than being absentee holders of livings seeking higher office. The vigilant defense of parish preaching was part of a campaign, begun in the earlier fifteenth century, to contain heterodoxy by keeping intellectual clergy in purposeful contact with their communities.¹⁹

Eborall was an Oxford graduate and by 1443 a doctor of theology. His early preaching at parishes in York and Sussex had been praised by orthodox dignitaries, and by 1444 he was master of Whittington College in London (succeeding Pecock), a position he held for twenty years before becoming rector of All Hallows, Honey Lane in London until his death in 1471.²⁰ Whittington College had been founded in the early fifteenth century out of the parish church of St. Michael Paternoster Royal as a collegiate church in which a small group of secular priests along with clerks and choristers were to live in a house on the grounds and maintain their residency there in order to perform the parish duty of preaching.²¹ During that time Eborall preached at a visitation of the London clergy, and although none of Eborall's sermons have survived, John Bale noted that a copy of his visitation sermons was in the library of St. Paul's Cathedral.²² Eborall was among the London rectors noted approvingly in Thomas Gascoigne's contemporary account of the Church for fulfilling their obligations to preach, in sharp contrast to Pecock's support of absenteeism.²³ He was still preaching late in his career, at a convocation at St. Paul's and several times before the king, including Passion Sunday in 1465.²⁴

In addition to his pastoral collection, two other books belonging to Eborall survive: London, Lambeth Palace, MS 541 containing a copy of *Pore Caitif* and other Middle English tracts and poems giving devotional instruction, and Oxford, St. John's College, MS 137 containing Pierre Bersuire's *Ovidius moralizatus*.²⁵ The devotional works in the Lambeth manuscript show a reader committed to vernacular teaching. Marginal identifications of scriptural passages might suggest that the manuscript was intended for homiletic use. Eborall was apparently quite concerned that at least some of his books should be legacies to other clerics. He bequeathed the book containing the *Ovidius moralizatus* to Robert Elyot, a fellow of All Souls and vice-provost of Eton College, with the provision that it not be sold after Elyot's death but pass "to others wishing to preach."²⁶ He was similarly directive about the fortunes of his pastoral miscellany. At the end of MS Royal 5.C.iii there was once an inscription, now lost but noted in the eighteenth century, which read: "Liber T. Eyburhale, emptus a Iohanne Pye pro 27s.6d. Do Henrico Mosie, quondam scolari meo, si contingat eum presbyterari; aliter erit Liber Domini Iohannis Sory, sic quod non vendatur, sed transeat inter cognatos meos, si fuerint aliqui inventi; sin autem, ab uno

presbytero ad alium” (The book of T. Eborall, bought from John Pye for 27s 6d. Give it to Henry Mosie, formerly my student, if he should be ordained a priest; otherwise it will belong to Mr. John Sory, so that it not be sold but pass among my kinsmen, if there are any found; otherwise from one priest to another).²⁷

Eborall’s composite pastoral volume is imposing: 384 folios, measuring 32.5 cm by 25cm by 7.5cm. The contents, consisting of twenty-seven different items (nearly all written in double columns), are telling. It opens with an extract from Vincent of Beauvais’ *De eruditione filiorum nobiliorum*.²⁸ Next is a table of chapters of *De regimine principum* and a version of the alphabetical index of topics in the work beginning “abhominicio” and ending “zelotopus” (*sic* for *zelotipia*).²⁹ Following this is an index of the physician Urso of Salerno’s *Liber aphorismorum*. With the fourth item we meet *De regimine principum* again, this time the text itself: book 1 condensed but with all the chapters therein represented; book 2 somewhat abridged; and book 3 considerably truncated, with extensive annotations and a list of the abridged chapters, both in a hand different from the main text. Item 5 contains propositions taken mainly from Aristotle’s works, including the *Rhetoric* (see below) with an alphabetical list of topics at the end. The following items, numbers 6–27, mostly leave moral and natural philosophy behind in favor of materials with explicitly pastoral content: a compilation of biblical materials for preaching, with an alphabetical index; Prosper of Aquitaine’s *sententiae* on Augustine; propositions extracted from the works of Augustine; a compendium of theology attributed to Aquinas; substantial materials by Grosseteste; a highly abbreviated *Consolatio philosophiae*; extracts from Bonaventure’s *Breviloquium* and *Soliloquium*; a portion of the pseudo-Bonaventuran *Meditationes vitae Christi* (in a different layout from the other items in the manuscript); the *Horologium sapientiae* of Henry Suso; a number of short pieces related to the Church as well as devotions; a portion of Richard Rolle’s *Incendium amoris*; a short *forma praedicandi*; some short homiletic paragraphs; the first thirty-two of St. Bernard’s sermons on the Song of Songs; and four epistles of Jerome.³⁰

MS Royal 5.C.iii does not reveal anything fresh about the apprehension of the *Rhetoric* as a theory of discourse, as the *notabilia* are taken almost verbatim from a popular work known as the *Auctoritates Aristotelis* (or *Parvi flores*). The *Auctoritates Aristotelis* was a collection of *sententiae*

from the Aristotelian texts and supplementary works in logical, natural, and moral sciences. It was compiled by a Franciscan, Jean de Fonte, in the years around 1300 and widely diffused, although not in a stable form. At its largest it contained up to thirty-seven separate groups of *sententiae* on the entire corpus of Aristotelian texts as well as Boethius, Plato's *Timaeus*, Porphyry, and others.³¹ But Eborall's book imposed a distinctive framework on this available material. It presents *sententiae* only of the *Metaphysics*, *Physics*, *De anima*, *Ethics*, *Politics*, *Rhetoric*, *Poetics* (i.e., the Averroistic commentary), and Seneca's *Epistulae morales*, all in the space of twelve double-column folios (some of the selections further truncate their abbreviated source). This indicates a process of selection, choosing eight of the possible thirty-seven items to be found among the *Auctoritates Aristotelis*, and favoring works associated with moral philosophy. In the context of a compilation overwhelmingly dedicated to pastoral materials, this selection has an obvious logic. This is especially clear for the *auctoritates* of the *Rhetoric*, which are non-technical, concentrating on general behavioral observations extracted from Aristotle's text.³² The analytic of the emotions in book 2 would prove especially congenial for this kind of moral summation: the *Auctoritates* epitomizes book 2 by commemorating the chief signs of emotions, for example, "Amicus gaudet de bonis et dolet de tristibus sui amici" (A friend rejoices in the joys and laments the sorrows of his friend).³³ Such are the kinds of extracts from Aristotle that would be most practical and relevant for preaching. The selections are not meant to deliver academic expertise on details of Aristotelian psychology, but rather to distill valuable insights from already condensed material. Yet at the same time the selections include the basic scholastic triad of the *Ethics*, *Politics*, and *Rhetoric*, and there seems to be an effort to provide a working background in philosophy.³⁴

For a reader of this composite volume, the Aristotelian works on moral philosophy would be placed in some kind of conversation with the previous materials representing *De regimine principum*: the chapter titles and alphabetical contents list, and then the abridgment of the text itself. The matter of *De regimine principum* in the manuscript makes an impression. The detailed table of chapters toward the beginning of the volume uses the headings that were standard in copies of the text, so that any reader could use them, much as we would today, as a guide to the contents. But the volume also contains *De regimine principum* itself, including a condensed

text of book 1, where Giles follows Aristotle's *Rhetoric* book 2 quite closely. Parts 3 and 4 of *De regimine* book 1 deal with the emotions and the character types much as Aristotle does, showing how a prince needs to put such information to use when ruling his kingdom and compelling the attention and favor of his subjects. Thus even though the summary of the *Rhetoric* taken from the *Auctoritates Aristotelis* does not convey much technical information, a user of this manuscript would learn something more about the appeal to emotion and to character from the way that Giles deploys Aristotelian thought in his own political treatise. One reader thoughtfully annotated the abridged version of *De regimine principum* that came to him in the volume, adding passages that the abbreviator had left out (thus restoring some of the matter of book 1 on rule of the self, chapters missing from book 2 on rule of the family, and even more of the chapters missing from book 3 on the state), as if to make this epitome more responsive to preaching purposes.³⁵ Whether these extensive annotations might be Eborall's own remains a question. However, there are at least interesting suggestions about how a reader of Eborall's era evaluated those materials, apparently making cross-references between the bound booklets. As well as adding further matter to the abridgment of *De regimine principum*, the same reader made use of the alphabetical index from the previous section to provide cross-references to missing passages in the abbreviated version.³⁶ In other words, there was a clear desire to apprehend those parts of *De regimine* that were deemed most relevant to a pastoral mission. In fact, the condensation of book 1 part 3, on the emotions, omits much abstract philosophical discussion in favor of practical observations about emotional behavior. The text of *De regimine principum* is followed by another checklist of chapters. Thus *De regimine* is used in many ways across the manuscript. The chapter lists provide guides to the whole book. The alphabetized lists of topics were definitely made for preaching, as similar alphabetical topic lists of *De regimine* are found in copies owned by the Augustinian friars as well as Benedictines.

This compilation, with its abridged *De regimine* along with *notabilia* and indices, its coverage of Aristotelian moral philosophy, and much other reference material of obvious pastoral use, speaks to the needs of a busy rector and preacher like Eborall. It shows how these materials became standard resources for pastoral teaching and practice. We cannot be sure that the now-lost inscription at the end of the volume recording Eborall's

purchase of the book from John Pye and his precise wishes for its legacy applied to the whole volume that has come down to us or just to a part of it, that is, how much of the miscellany Eborall actually owned (although the placing of the note at the end might suggest that all of it was owned by Eborall). We also cannot know whether or how much the compilation was “made to order,” that is, if the first owner (Eborall?) requested certain texts which Pye then procured and assembled.³⁷

A preacher like Eborall would have appreciated the “figuraliter et grosse” method of exposition favored in Aristotelian and Aegidian moral philosophy, because he would have valued effective preaching over the niceties of rational demonstration. This was the substance of the London rectors’ opposition to Pecock. Pecock disdained parish preaching, claiming that teaching through evidentiary reasoning was an activity superior to preaching through homiletic declaration. An important theme of his sermon in 1447, occasioning the rectors’ disapproval, was that there were higher offices for intellectual clergy than preaching.³⁸ Thus Pecock would have seemed to disparage the “broad and schematic” approach to moral reasoning that was at the heart of homiletics, and that was theorized so effectively in Aristotelian rhetoric, with its emphasis on appeal to emotional reasoning. Even though the actual objections to Pecock were formulated in apostolic and patristic terms, hearkening back to the evangelical mission of the early Church, Aristotelian moral and rhetorical teaching would have lent strong theoretical support to the “pastoral imperative” expressed by Pecock’s orthodox opponents. Thus collections such as Eborall’s were not merely practical resources or the conventional equipment of professional preachers. They should be seen as providing strong theoretical directives to a culture of preaching that valued rhetoric. It is likely that Eborall read Aristotelian moral philosophy while a student at Oxford. The epitomes of those texts in his pastoral collection would allow him to recall that heady doctrine and apply it now to the practical purpose of moving the minds of his parishioners.

7.2 Emotional Appeals and the Arts of Preaching

It is clear that the *Rhetoric* was considered relevant to preaching, and it is obvious why it would be. But apart from the fact that preachers owned and used it, how can we trace its impact? Preachers already had a pragmatic understanding of the role of emotion in persuasion—how could they not? So what could the *Rhetoric* have told them about moving minds and eliciting feelings that they did not already know from their practice?

Certainly the idea that emotion is part of preaching was nothing new. The oldest resources on preaching show strong sensitivity to eliciting emotion. We have already seen how Augustine dwells on emotion in *De doctrina christiana* book 4.³⁹ For Augustine, the effects of the grand style are manifested in the hearers' groans and tears. But Augustine's is a stylistic account of emotion in which he demonstrates the sonic devices, verbal and rhythmic, that can produce the effect of strong feeling. Similarly influential in its treatment of the passions is the catalogue of thirty-six audience types in book 3 of Gregory the Great's *Regula pastoralis*. This is far more than simply a catalogue: it is a vibrant realization of social types and the "pastoral tactics" required to reach different audiences.⁴⁰ This includes emotional characteristics along with social and institutional classes. But although it distinguishes carefully among types of listeners according to their moral and spiritual needs, Gregory's typology is far from the systematic analytic of Aristotle's *Rhetoric*. Gregory treats emotions as self-evidently given: the joyful and the sad are already joyful or sad (we do not learn why they are so); so also the proud and the meek, the patient and the impatient. Gregory's precepts seem to verge on a social phenomenology, but they do not fully achieve that because they do not convey a knowledge of how emotions come about. The *Regula pastoralis* recognizes that different conditions of mind require different approaches, but the emphasis is on what admonishments correspond to what existing conditions. Comparing Gregory's treatment of envy to what a later medieval reader would find in Aristotle acutely illustrates the difference between them. Here is Gregory:

Ammonendi sunt invidi, ut perpendant quanta caecitatis sunt, qui alieno propectu deficiunt, aliena exultatione contabescunt. Quanta infelicitatis sunt, qui melioratione proximi deteriores fiunt; dumque augmenta alienae prosperitatis aspiciunt, apud semetipsos anxie afflicti, cordis sui peste moriuntur. (3.10)⁴¹

The envious are to be admonished so that they consider how blind they are who feel deprived before another's progress, who wither before another's joy. How great is their unhappiness

who are made worse in the face of a neighbor's improvement. When they see the increase of another's prosperity they are afflicted with distress in themselves and they die of the infection of their own heart.

Compare this with the Aristotelian analysis of envy:

...invidibunt quidem enim tales quibus sunt aliqui similes aut videntur; similes autem dico secundum genus, secundum cognationem, secundum staturam, secundum habitum, secundum opinionem, secundum ea que existunt. Et quibus in modico deficit quod non omnia existunt (propter quod magna agentes et bene fortunantes invidiosi sunt); omnes enim putant sua ferre. Et qui honorantur in aliquo differenter, et maxime in sapientia aut felicitate. Et amatores honoris magis invidiosi quam non amatores honoris. Et opinati sapientes; sunt enim amatores honoris in sapientia. Et universaliter amatores fame circa aliquid invidiosi circa hoc. Et pusillanimes; omnia enim magna videntur ipsis esse.

(1387b25–35)

People feeling envy are those among whom there are others similar to them or who seem similar. I mean similar in terms of birth, family, status, disposition, opinion, and material goods. And to whom there is some shortfall in terms of all that they do not own (on this account those who do great things and are quite fortunate are envious). They think that everyone is going to take away what is theirs. And those who are distinctively honored for something, especially in wisdom or happiness. And those who are desirous of honor are more envious than those who are not seekers of honor. And those who think themselves wise, for they are ambitious for wisdom. And in general those who desire fame about something are envious on that score. And the fainthearted, for all things seem to them great.

Aristotle's description of envy is not without value judgment: the envious may be pusillanimous, petty, or even paranoid. But the purpose of Aristotle's description is to give the orator tools to recognize these characteristics and harness them toward another purpose—in other words, to draw on the emotion of envy. By contrast, Gregory directs his account of envy toward correction. This may also register some of the shifting circumstances of envy: resentment at another's advancement, distress at another's joy. But those are details added to color in the reigning denunciation of envy as a bad impulse to be acknowledged and extirpated. We might find much the same approach as Gregory's among later medieval models of preaching. *Ad status* sermons offer further social classifications without developing the psychological analysis. For example, Jacques de Vitry divides the potential audiences for sermons into twenty-eight groups, covering all clerical orders, secular professions and estates, and circumstances. The focus is on correction, exhorting different social estates to fulfill their obligations.⁴²

The other distinctive element of the *Rhetoric* is the attention that it gives to the enthymeme as the device that effects persuasion through *pathos*. As we have seen, enthymematic argument was also hardly new. Indeed, Aristotle was simply describing in detail the many strategies that enthymematic discourse makes available. Enthymemes feature in the oldest preaching, from Christ's Sermon on the Mount (where the Beatitudes are simplified enthymemes) to St. Paul's letters, which target their appeals to the beliefs and emotions of particular audiences. As we saw, Giles of Rome uses enthymematic argument to great effect, not only in the "oratory" that is his *De regimine principum*, but in his own sermons.⁴³ A preaching manual by Jacobus de Fusignano (d. 1333) calls attention to the enthymeme as a form of reasoning that will appeal to the listener's judgment, even making reference to one of Christ's parables as an example of enthymematic reasoning.⁴⁴ Aristotle's contribution is to give a highly systematic account of how rhetorical enthymemes should work. This suggests how preachers might recognize their own practices in Aristotle's technical discussion.

Yet despite the congeniality of Aristotle's *Rhetoric* with the purposes of preaching, there was nothing like it in the medieval *ars praedicandi*. Pastoral discourse certainly recognized affective appeal, especially in ways that are consonant with poetics and the power of poetry to elicit emotion. But the guides to preaching and to composing sermons, which achieved an almost industrial rate of production over the thirteenth and fourteenth centuries, do not provide breakdowns of how particular emotions actually work or of how a speaker or writer effects emotional change in the audience. Perhaps surprisingly, given that preaching will rely upon various kinds of emotional appeal, the *artes praedicandi* offer little reflection on tactics of emotional persuasion, less even than what is offered in the *artes poetriae* and *artes dictaminis*, which focus on technical virtuosity but also supply emotional currents through the stylistic examples that they recruit.⁴⁵ There is, of course, ample evidence of pastoral sensitivity to moving emotions, and arts of preaching can at times even rise to affective heights in their presentation. For example, the influential Dominican Humbert of Romans uses a rousing style in his treatise *De eruditione praedicatorum*, encouraging his students to take up the spiritual and emotional challenge of preaching. The emotion that the preacher inspires in his audience can make them burst into pious prayer, and that surge of pious love can be transferred back to the preacher himself in the form of a devoted following.⁴⁶ But

Humbert does not investigate emotion. Among the earlier arts of the thirteenth century, Thomas of Chobham's *Summa de arte praedicandi* (c.1220) models the sermon on Ciceronian teaching of oratory, with attention to language, style, and composition. Like his near contemporary Geoffrey of Vinsauf, Thomas shows great sensitivity to the emotive force of similitudes which may "move the hearts of listeners."⁴⁷ But as in the *artes poetriae*, here the nature and motive of emotion is presented as a given without further comment. Even later arts that follow on the appearance and wide diffusion of the *Rhetoric* do not seem to incorporate its rhetorical teaching on proof and emotions. This is not remarkable in itself, as the later *artes praedicandi* grew highly standardized and technical. Their purpose was to fulfill an aim that had become specific to this medieval rhetorical genre, to outline the possible forms of the scholastic sermon and map its design around the scriptural theme.⁴⁸ Nevertheless, these technical handbooks do address concerns that are congruent with Aristotelian rhetorical teaching. For example, the *artes* by the fourteenth-century Englishmen Robert of Basevorn and Ranulf Higden stress the necessity of concreteness and relative simplicity: people are best led by similitudes, but the sermon should not be overcrowded with figures.⁴⁹ This in turn resonates with earlier *artes*, such as Richard of Thetford's popular thirteenth-century treatise, which recognizes the effectiveness among the laity of "examples appealing to the senses," treating this as a legitimate mode of reasoning.⁵⁰ Although the treatises do not capitalize on the relevant discussions in the *Rhetoric*, they are giving expression to the same pragmatic concerns that Aristotle treats more systematically and in depth. This would afford opportunities for readers to recognize the compatibility of Aristotelian rhetorical thought with their own needs, predisposing them to be receptive to the ideas treated in the *Rhetoric*.⁵¹

Thus the preachers who read the *Rhetoric*, as many of them did, would find that it voiced the theory behind what was already lodged in their practice but which the preceptive traditions they had inherited did not articulate. It affirmed, in theoretical terms, what no medieval art of preaching articulated so systematically: the behavioral psychology of emotion and the strategies for appealing to emotions through argument.

This means also that the effects of the *Rhetoric* on preachers are not to be proven by studying sermons in and of themselves. Such practices are

already inherent in homiletics. In fact it would be impractical and even something of a fool's errand to try to establish a precise before-and-after "Aristotle effect" in medieval sermons, because in preaching, as in poetry, the essence of Aristotelian rhetorical thought about emotion was already rooted in the practice. Virtually any sermon will be congenial to a retrospective rhetorical reading on Ciceronian or Aristotelian terms.⁵² My question is different: what makes such practice rise to a level of theoretical articulation?

7.3 Two Readers of the *Rhetoric*: Engelbert of Admont and Mathias of Linköping

It is more meaningful to consider the records that preachers have left us of their own theoretical understanding of the *Rhetoric*. By this I mean going beyond the academic commentaries by Giles of Rome, Jean Buridan, and Jean de Jandun to explore how the *Rhetoric* figured explicitly in the practical interests of preaching and to understand how it was valued by pastoral readers. We have already looked at Eborall's book, which says a great deal about his preaching career. In Eborall's book there is an implicit record of a pastoral response to the theory. But we also have two explicit accounts from preachers who read the *Rhetoric* and registered its practical value as a theory of persuasion: a late thirteenth-century "compendium" of Aristotle's *Rhetoric* from Admont Abbey, and from the next century a strategic précis of the *Rhetoric* written by the Swedish priest Mathias of Linköping, who is most famous as the first confessor of Birgitta of Sweden. Such explicit theoretical receptions help us understand what the work might have meant to preachers who owned and read it. Since copying or owning a book is not necessarily the same thing as digesting its contents, we can learn much from the evidence of "intentional" use. The decisions by two clerics, distant from each other in time and place, to focus on the *rhetorical* teaching of Aristotle's text, can show us how preachers could be drawn to the *Rhetoric*, recognizing in its theory a reflection of their own practice.

* * *

Admont, Stiftsbibliothek, MS 608 is a late thirteenth-century manuscript from Admont Abbey, a Benedictine foundation in the duchy of Styria (in what is now Austria). It is a collection representing moral philosophy and Aristotelian texts and themes, although its contents are more idiosyncratic than a typical academic corpus of texts.⁵³ Some of the matter in MS Admont 608 is also found in two later manuscripts, Eichstätt, Staatliche Bibliothek, MS 628, a Dominican manuscript of the late fourteenth century, and Oxford, Bodleian Library, MS Canon. class. lat. 271, a fifteenth-century manuscript probably from Italy. A lost manuscript from a Dominican convent in Vienna, listed in a catalogue of 1513, seems also to have been a copy of the Admont manuscript.⁵⁴ Apart from many smaller items and notes on themes related to moral philosophy, the contents of the Admont manuscript include the opening epistle of the *Rhetorica ad Alexandrum* together with a compendium of Aristotle's *Rhetoric*; compendia of the *Politics* and the *Secretum secretorum*; *De Nilo* and *De bona fortuna*; a compendium of the *Eudemian Ethics*; a compilation of moral *sententiae* derived from various sources (including Aristotle, Cicero, Seneca, Isidore of Seville, Pliny, Apuleius, and Macrobius); and the *Summa Alexandrinorum* (an epitome of the *Nicomachean Ethics*).

The manuscript has long been associated with the polymath Engelbert of Admont (c.1250–1331). Engelbert's scholarly career traces a north–south corridor between central Europe and the Dominican studia of northern Italy. He joined Admont Abbey in his youth, and studied first at the cathedral school of St. Vitus in Prague (1271–4) and then with the Dominicans in Padua and Bologna from 1278 until about 1287. When he returned to his native land he was appointed abbot first of St. Peter's in Salzburg, and then in 1297 of Admont Abbey, where he served until 1327, just a few years before his death.⁵⁵ Engelbert was a prolific writer on a remarkable range of topics, from theology and pastoralia, music, education, and Aristotelian natural philosophy to the political treatises for which he is best known to modern scholarship, *De ortu et fine Romani imperii* and his *Regimen principum*.⁵⁶ The contents of Admont 608 certainly reflect the Aristotelian influences of his time studying in Padua and Bologna, scholarly interests that he carried back with him, intellectually and materially in books, upon his return to the Benedictine house in Styria. The manuscript also contains evidence of his reading or supervision, including rubrics and notes in his hand.

The extent to which Engelbert was responsible for the compendium of rhetoric that opens the collection (fols. 2a–6b) will probably not be decided to anyone’s satisfaction. George Fowler, who edited the contents of the manuscript as part of a project of understanding the intellectual career of Engelbert, claimed that many items in Admont 608 were compiled, composed, or dictated by him either during his last years in Padua or upon his return to Admont, leading some scholars to accept that this applies to the rhetoric compendium.⁵⁷ Others have questioned Engelbert’s authorship at least of the rhetoric compendium, especially on the grounds of its stylistic differences from Engelbert’s other work. On that argument, if Engelbert typically aimed at an open comprehensibility in his own writings, the compendiatist’s language in this text is closer to the famously terse style of Aristotelian writings.⁵⁸ But the authorship of this compendium is not essential to understanding its use-value to a public figure as active and intellectually prolific as Engelbert (whose association with the manuscript as a whole is not in doubt), and more broadly its relevance to Benedictine and other clerical milieux. The rhetoric compendium and the “Conpendium Libri polyticorum Arystotelis” that follows it are the only two works of the Admont manuscript that were transmitted as a unit in Eichstätt MS 628 and Bodleian MS Canon. class. lat. 271, the two later manuscripts that represent partial copies of Admont 608. This suggests that later readers recognized the two compendia together as a contribution to the moral philosophy that was relevant to pastoral needs.⁵⁹

But while the rhetoric compendium, with its companion *Politics*, invites reading as an overview of moral philosophy, we lose a great deal if we do not also recognize its design as a rhetoric. The structure of the “Conpendium” is unusual. It begins with what the rubric calls a “prohemium in rethoricam Arystotilis.” This preface consists of an “Epistola Arystotilis ad Alexandrum,” that is, the dedicatory letter of the *Rhetorica ad Alexandrum*, which in turn—as handed down from antiquity—purports to be a work by Aristotle, although it is now commonly ascribed to his contemporary, Anaximenes. The opening epistle, which makes the work appear to be a treatise written by Aristotle for his student Alexander, was probably attached to the treatise itself at a later date. The attribution of the treatise to Aristotle was only challenged in 1531 by Erasmus.⁶⁰ As the unifying rubric in the Admont manuscript suggests, these two items, the “Epistola Arystotilis” and the “Conpendium Rethorice Arystotilis,” are seen

to constitute one work, an introduction to Aristotle's *Rhetoric*, the epistle serving as a prologue to the *Rhetoric* proper.

The *Epistola ad Alexandrum*, along with the treatise to which it was attached, has a complicated reception history in the Latin Middle Ages.⁶¹ As a work attributed to Aristotle, it was among the many pseudo-Aristotelian works translated into Latin from the Greek. There are two translations of virtually the whole text (the *Epistola* and *Rhetorica ad Alexandrum*), both anonymous and each surviving in only one manuscript.⁶² The only Latin translation that was more widely transmitted was a partial one, probably the work of William of Moerbeke. It survives in at least fifty copies. This translation contains the *Epistola* and the opening sentences of the treatise proper (to 1421b16), which set out the genres of oratory: political, epideictic, and forensic, and the seven species that subtend these: proposition, opposition, praise, criticism, prosecution, defense, and investigation, which are used in public debates, legal pleading, and private discussions. In nine of the manuscripts, the Moerbeke version was accompanied by other works of moral philosophy, including two copied with the *Rhetoric*: one of these two, a thirteenth-century manuscript, is also associated with Admont Abbey (Admont, Stiftsbibliothek, MS 676). The *Epistola ad Alexandrum* (the epistle only) is also represented in the *Auctoritates Aristotelis*.⁶³

The *Epistola ad Alexandrum* naturally lends itself to the purposes of introducing the principles of persuasion, and could easily be taken by a medieval reader as a conceptual scheme for the in-depth discussions found in Aristotle's *Rhetoric*.⁶⁴ It gives advice about the moral and civic value of persuasion and the necessity of a leader to be able to speak well on matters concerning the law. Law itself is defined as speech that reflects the common consensus about what is to be done. It insists upon wise reasoning as the necessary partner of speech (a commonplace theme of classical rhetorical culture), and presents reasoning as the divine mark of humanity, what differentiates humans from merely appetitive animals. The ideas in the letter are hardly original, but as a summation of the ethical power of persuasion, here in the guise of advice to an imperial prince, the *Epistola ad Alexandrum* addresses the questions and even doubts that readers might have about the value of rhetoric.

In Admont 608, the “Conpendium Rethorice Arystotilis” opens with what was transmitted of the *Rhetorica ad Alexandrum*, that is, the epistle and opening lines of the treatise, and then proceeds to the *Rhetoric* itself with the rubric “Incipit compendium libri primi rethorice Aristotilis.”⁶⁵ What is curious about the structure of the compendium is that the technical aspects of rhetoric are supplied by the information available from the opening lines of the *Rhetorica ad Alexandrum* that had come down with this version of the translation:

Tria sunt genera sermonum. Hoc quidem concionale, hoc autem exclamativum, hoc vero disceptativum. Species autem horum sunt septem: adhortativum, dehortativum, laudativum, vituperativum, accusativum, defensivum, et exquisitivum, aut quodlibet ipsorum secundum se autem ad aliquid.

Species quidem igitur sermonum civilium tot sunt ponere, utimur autem ipsis et in communibus concionibus et in disceptacionibus circa iudicia et in singularibus colloctionibus. Et hoc sermonicandi genus circa talia est solummodo sapientum et eruditorum in rethorica.⁶⁶

There are three genres of speeches: deliberative, epideictic, and forensic. Of these there are seven species: proposition, opposition, praise, censure, accusation, defense, and investigation, any of these either according to itself or to anything.

This is how the species of political speech are to be enumerated. We use them in public debates, in disputes about laws, and in private discussions. This kind of speaking about such matters is only for those who are wise and learned in rhetoric.

From here the Admont compendiatist turns to Aristotle’s *Rhetoric* itself. The coverage of that extends only through books 1 and 2. This coverage has puzzled scholars who have attempted to understand the purpose and scope of the compendium.⁶⁷ The compendiatist leaves aside vast swaths of book 1 and book 2, and skips around Aristotle’s text, plucking passages and *sententiae* from it.⁶⁸ While we can trace parallels with book 1 and some fewer with book 2, these Aristotelian passages seem to serve as scaffolding for the medieval compendiatist’s expansive reflections on the nature of civic and judicial discourse and on ethics in the civic sphere. The remaining technical coverage of rhetoric is at best perfunctory. The topics of invention, which occupy most of book 1 of Aristotle’s *Rhetoric*, receive here the most compressed of treatments, a few sentences with skeletal information supplied from Ciceronian rhetoric (the attributes of the person and the act, as in *De inventione* 1.24.34–1.39.44).⁶⁹ Almost none of the key Aristotelian terms—*exemplum*, *enthymema*, *sillogismus*, *locus*, *dialectica*—occur in the compendium.⁷⁰ The three genres of rhetoric are the only

technical elements of the *Rhetoric* that have a stable presence here, and they are used to structure broader ethical discussions: the nature of good character and action, which are relevant to epideictic (*commendatio*); the knowledge of justice, utility, and honor, which is the foundation of political persuasion (*quid sit persuasio*); and the nature of law.⁷¹

Thus, in what does the compendium actually consist? First, there is great emphasis on the duty of all rhetorical discourse in the public sphere to stand for what is just, useful, and honorable: “Oportet ergo rethorem scire quid iustum et iniustum, utile et inutile, honestum et inhonestum et universaliter in moralibus bonum et malum” (The speaker must know what is just and unjust, useful and useless, honorable and dishonorable, and in general what is good and evil in matters of morals).⁷² Second, there is an understanding that the three genres of rhetoric give shape to moral discourse according to the purpose at hand. Thus there is a great deal of attention to the nature of law and its foundation in a notion of justice.⁷³ But most important, there is an overwhelming interest in Aristotle’s treatment of pleasure and pain (*Rhetoric* book 1, chapters 10–11) as motivators of action. This in turn leads to an account of appetite, emotions as expressive of appetites, and character. These two related discussions occupy more than half of the treatment of Aristotle’s *Rhetoric*. It is in these last elements that the compendiarist reveals his own remarkable conception of Aristotelian rhetorical thought.

Understanding the treatise requires that we read it on its own terms: expecting it to be a summary of the *Rhetoric* obscures its purpose as an exercise in rhetorical thought. Even though the compendiarist does not seem very interested in the technical matter of book 1, he reads the *Rhetoric* as a rhetoric, using the *Epistola ad Alexandrum* as a natural introduction to Aristotle’s text, and recognizing that, together with some information gleaned from Ciceronian sources, they can teach the principles of persuasion. Unlike scholastic commentators such as Jean Buridan and even Giles of Rome, he does not get caught up in the finer disciplinary distinctions between rhetoric and dialectic or rhetoric and politics. And even though he is interested in the ethical dimensions of rhetoric, he does not treat it merely as another contribution to moral philosophy, as Giles does in his small treatise *De differentia rhetoricae, ethicae, et politicae*. Rather, he recognizes that Aristotle’s treatise pertains to the active business of persuasion. The compendiarist’s perspective is active too: to equip a speaker with essential knowledge about human affairs and motivations.

As noted earlier, he allows the beginning of the *Rhetorica ad Alexandrum* to do the technical work for him, as if to say that it sufficiently covers the mechanics of composition. This leaves him free to develop other themes that are inspired by Aristotle's *Rhetoric*, such as the classification of just and unjust actions (chiefly *Rhetoric* 1.13; 1373b1), which occasions some paraphrase and quotation enfolded into his own interpretations.⁷⁴ The compendiatist's discussion sometimes progresses independently of Aristotle's text, although it uses the text as both anchor and platform. The exposition takes two main directions: rhetoric and civic responsibility to what is just, useful, and honorable, and the psychological foundations of character and good and bad actions.⁷⁵

The second and longer of these thematic expositions is close to Aristotle's discourse on pleasure and pain as the motives of unlawful or harmful actions (*Rhetoric* 1.10–11; 1368b25–1372a1). The compendiatist traces the thematic paths that are found in the *Rhetoric*, beginning with the seven causes of actions: fortune, compulsion, nature, habit reasoning, anger, and desire (cf., *Rhetoric* 1369a5). His treatment of pleasure as a motive of voluntary action follows the exposition in Aristotle's text (*Rhetoric* 1369b33 ff.), exploring the psychological contours of pleasure. Pleasure is what is free from compulsion: "Nichil enim horum fit ex necessitate aut violentia. Et generaliter cuiuscunque rei inest concupiscentia illa delectabilis. Concupiscentia enim est appetitus delectabilis" (None of these pleasures come about from any necessity or compulsion. And anything for which there is an inner desire is pleasant. For desire is the appetite for pleasure) [cf., *Rhetoric* 1370a16–18]. The memory of drink to one who has a fever is pleasant; honor and winning are pleasant; to be admired is pleasant (cf., *Rhetoric* 1370b15–1371a24).⁷⁶

As in Aristotle's text, so in the compendium of Admont 608, this theme of pleasure (and its opposite, pain) is what undergirds the turn to the emotions. That turn is accomplished more swiftly, with greater compression, in the Admont compendium than in Aristotle's text. But this compression actually reveals the compendiatist's sensitivity to the thematic connections across the arc of the Aristotelian exposition. In the *Rhetoric*, the account of pleasure and pain occurs in book 1 at some distance (three intervening chapters) from the analysis of emotions in book 2. Yet Aristotle has set up the definitions of pleasure and its opposite, pain, as preliminary to understanding how emotions are experiences of distress or pleasure that

affect judgment: “Sunt autem passiones propter quascumque commoti differunt ad iudicia ad quas sequitur tristitia et delectatio” (1378a21–2). The emotions are necessarily accompanied by pleasure and pain, a theme that Aristotle pursues in other contexts (e.g., *Nichomachean Ethics* 1105b19–28).⁷⁷ The compendiatist of Admont 608 has grasped that key connection and highlights it in his highly condensed treatment of the emotions that follows immediately on the account of pleasure, for example:

Contristabilia vero sunt puta: ira, parvipensio, timor, erubescencia. Ira est appetitus vindicte cum tristitia apparente. Ira autem est ex hiis que ad se ipsum patitur a se ipso unusquisque et est semper circa singula, puta: Calliam vel Socratem. Odium autem est ad genera et species, puta ad furem et adulterum et alios tales quos lex dicit esse malos...Contristat eciam magis malum quod inopinatum evenit sicut a converso multum delectat bonum eveniens inopinatum. Quodam de populo irato ad Phylocratem quidam dixit: “Cur sibi non respondes?” ait, “Non iam, sed cum prius alium videro criminatum.”⁷⁸

Distresses are such as anger, being slighted, fear, shame. Anger is an appetite, accompanied by distress, for conspicuous revenge. Anger arises from those pains which anyone suffers oneself as regards himself, and it is always about particular things: for example, Callias or Socrates. Hatred is directed to kinds of things (genera and species), for example to a thief or adulterer or others whom the law proclaims to be wicked...An unforeseen evil that happens causes great distress, just as, by contrast, we delight in a good thing that happens unexpectedly. Hence Phylocrates, at a time when the people were angry with him, was asked by someone: “Why don’t you respond?” He said, “Not now, but when I will see someone else denounced.”

The condensing of ideas and examples drawn from across [chapters 2, 3, and 4](#) of *Rhetoric* book 2 is obvious. These elements (such as the exemplum of Phylocrates, illustrating vengeance, from [chapter 3](#), 1380b8–10) may be plucked out of context and rearranged to form a slightly different argument; but in its totality, the exposition responds to the basic idea that emotions represent the experience of pleasure and pain.

The compendiatist of Admont 608 sees the psychology of emotion as intrinsic to the ethical impact of rhetoric. Here the psychology of social behavior is a means of understanding the nature of unlawful acts: the compendiatist does not formally apply this knowledge, as Aristotle had done, to proof through *pathos*. But in a critical sense he has captured the spirit of the *Rhetoric*: the explanation of pleasure, pain, and emotion (as well as character) has a social focus: why people do wrong and how they can be persuaded otherwise. This is given immediate relevance to the genre of forensic speaking and legal pleading, to which the compendium devotes considerable attention.

The “Conpendium Rethorice Arystotilis” does not attempt to summarize Aristotle’s work, and would not serve as a review text. But the compendiast has understood rhetoric, as Aristotle did, as behavior, ethics, and psychology. In its basic autonomy from the *Rhetoric*, the treatise is in truth a meditation on the themes of Aristotle’s work, recasting them for a new purpose. It is an essay on the civic obligations of rhetoric and the psychology of motivation, equipping a speaker to understand the motivations of unlawful and sinful acts. As a free-standing essay on rhetoric, informed by Aristotle but not bound to that master-text, the compendium does not need to rehearse the whole analytic of emotions in book 2. The compiler has absorbed what is needed for his purposes. Far from being an academic commentary or set of *notabilia*, it constitutes its own contribution to a larger pastoral project along with the other ethical and scientific knowledge compiled in Admont 608. It is a pastoral response to the essence of Aristotle’s *Rhetoric*, a kind of *vademecum* for the public speaker and the writer on moral philosophy. Whether or not Engelbert produced the compendium himself, or oversaw its production, its themes resonate through his attested and more famous writings. The *Rhetoric* figures among his sources in *De ortu et fine Romani imperii*.⁷⁹ He opens his *Regimen principum* with Aristotle’s discussion of the possible and the impossible (*Rhetoric* 2.19) to indicate the contingent field of human behavior that belongs to ethical reasonings, and he uses the *Epistola ad Alexandrum* to underscore the intimate relation between law and public discourse.⁸⁰ Peter von Moos has studied the deep impress of Aristotelian rhetoric and ethics on Engelbert’s *Speculum virtutum*, a treatise on morals and courteous behavior written for the young princes of the Hapsburg royal family.⁸¹ It would not be wrong to see the “Conpendium Rethorice Arystotilis” as a kind of *ars* created in response to Aristotle’s *Rhetoric*, not a technical treatise but an ethical assessment of Aristotelian rhetoric that could stand independent of the ancient master text.

* * *

The career of Mathias, diocesan canon of Linköping and the earliest known confessor of Birgitta of Sweden, extends on an axis from Paris to Southern Sweden; and his influence leads from there to Rome and ultimately the establishment of the Brigittine order throughout late-medieval Europe. We

might say that there have been two parallel historical narratives of Mathias of Linköping. The dominant one has concerned Mathias the priest and the most distinguished and prolific of Sweden's medieval theologians, who conferred authority on the visions of Birgitta and heralded her international reputation. The lesser narrative has treated Mathias as a late, very interesting, but rather obscure figure in the medieval traditions of rhetoric and poetics. Remarkably, these parallel lines of inquiry have not intersected with each other.

We do not know enough about the early biography of Mathias (Mathias Ovidi, in Swedish, Matts Övidsson). He was born toward the end of the thirteenth century, perhaps just before 1300 or in the previous decade, and died about 1350.⁸² The earliest records of him are from 1333, and his name is found in various documents up to 1345. In these he is called "magister," referring to the academic title *magister in artibus*, and "canonicus," referring to his role at the cathedral of Linköping. In some manuscripts of his work he is called "doctor magister"; petitions of 1343 to the Avignon Pope Clemens VI, recommending him for a rectorship, refer to him as "magister in artibus" and "baccalarius in sacra theologia."⁸³ His name is not found in the registers of the University of Paris, but there is consensus that he first studied arts and later theology at Paris, where many Swedes went to study and where there were colleges for students from Upsal, Linköping, and Skara.⁸⁴

Mathias is known to students of medieval rhetoric and poetics as the author of a *Poetria* in which he attempts to reconcile Aristotle's *Poetics*, which he knew through the Averroistic *Middle Commentary* translated in 1256 by Hermannus Alemannus, with Horatian poetics, some ideas from Ciceronian rhetoric, and the practical precept of Geoffrey of Vinsauf's *Poetria nova*; it is perhaps more accurate to say that he attempts to graft the newer Aristotelian perspective onto the familiar Latin poetics tradition.⁸⁵ The *Poetria* has attracted attention for its reception of the Aristotelian–Averroistic theory of tragedy, its complex theoretical balances between rhetoric and poetics, its attempt to merge Aristotelian philosophy with literary practice, and its sophisticated critique of Geoffrey of Vinsauf's *Poetria nova*.⁸⁶ But Mathias' *Poetria* seems to have found only limited readership in its own time: it survives in just one copy, in Uppsala,

University Library, MS C 521. Its apparent failure to gain ground as an innovative *ars poetriae* is also part of its mystery.

In the same manuscript, also extant only in one copy, is a fragment of a work called *Testa nucis* (The Nutshell), a distillation and astute recombination of some critical principles in Aristotle's *Rhetoric*, augmented with ideas borrowed from Ciceronian rhetorics. The *Testa nucis* breaks off in mid-sentence at the end of three columns of text (fol. 173r). It was certainly written before the *Poetria*, as Mathias quotes from the *Testa nucis* and alludes to it in his *Poetria*. The manuscript is misleading in this respect, for it places *Testa nucis* after the *Poetria*, even though the latter was obviously dependent upon the former.⁸⁷ *Testa nucis* may even have been longer than the *Poetria* (which takes up seven double-column pages, 169r–172r). We can gauge something of its missing contents from the references in the *Poetria* to parts of the *Testa nucis* that are not extant. Perhaps because it is a fragmentary work, the *Testa nucis* has attracted even less attention than the *Poetria*. It has not been the subject of a study in its own right, but is treated in the shadow of its intact companion in the manuscript.

Mathias is best known to modern scholars for his contributions to theology and pastoralia. These writings, which are probably all from the mature years of his career, have been the focus of the dominant narrative about Mathias, not only because they provide a theological picture but also because they can be seen as continuous with his ministry to Birgitta. The most substantial of these are *Alphabetum distinccionum*, a preaching concordance preserved in many fragments and partially reconstructed; *Copia exemplorum*, an alphabetized collection of homiletic *exempla* that seems to have been profoundly informed by two Parisian Dominican collections of preaching *exempla*;⁸⁸ *Homo conditus*, a theological *summa* intended for preaching; and his important commentary on the Apocalypse, which was known to Bernardino of Siena and Nicholas of Cusa.⁸⁹

All of these writings, from his early forays into rhetoric and poetics to his mature theological and pastoral works, are certainly enough to make Mathias of Linköping interesting for a history of rhetoric, as there are some intriguing connections to be drawn between his early encounter with Aristotelian rhetoric and the later homiletic materials. But there is one more thing that Mathias did for posterity that elevates all this from just interesting to spectacular: Mathias is the one who introduced Birgitta of Sweden to the world.

Mathias became Birgitta's confessor at some point during her marriage to Ulv Gudmarsson. He continued in that role until about 1348. In 1349 she left Sweden to go to Rome, from where her influence was to radiate across Europe during her life and after her death in 1373. In 1344, when Birgitta, newly widowed, began to receive her major revelations, Mathias also became her confidant, apologist, and leading promoter. This is the period during which his contact with Birgitta can be known with greatest certainty.⁹⁰ In the so-called "summoning revelation" of 1344, reported in her canonization *Vita*, she was commanded by God to speak to "Magister Mathias" and tell him, as God tells her, that she will be God's "spouse" and "conduit" (*canale*) who will hear and see "matters of the spirit" (*spiritualia*).⁹¹ This was the impetus, reported retrospectively, for Mathias' most famous contribution to theology and ecclesiology. The work bearing his name is part homily and part *apologia* on behalf of Birgitta: the *Stupor et mirabilia*, his authentication of the divine origins of Birgitta's revelations.

Mathias wrote *Stupor et mirabilia* (so called from its initial words), his defense of Birgitta's revelations, around 1346 as part of an early process of examination of her visions. The first editor of her *Revelations*, Alfonso Pecha de Vadaterra, whom Birgitta commissioned in about 1370 to assemble her revelations and have them prepared for publication, considered Mathias' *Stupor et mirabilia* a prologue to the first book of the *Revelations* as well as to the whole of the *Liber celestis* (i.e., *Revelations* 1–VII). It was Alfonso who placed the *Stupor et mirabilia* at the very beginning of the first book of the *Revelations*, under the heading *Prologus magistri Mathie*, an editorial convention that was maintained throughout all of the subsequent Latin editions, both in manuscript and in print.⁹² Thus Mathias' apology not only introduced and validated Birgitta's visionary experience in her own time, but continued to be the point of access to her visions for all readers, even up to the present day. The early textual prominence of *Stupor et mirabilia* also gave rise to the veneration of Mathias himself as a figure of near sanctity whose literary offices ushered Birgitta's divine revelations into the world. In a woodcut at the front of a 1492 edition of the *Revelations* printed in Lübeck, Mathias is shown opposite Birgitta, magisterially writing her visions while she reposes in inspired prayer.⁹³

Mathias' defense of Birgitta had to be a hard hitting exercise in persuasion. His subject was controversial. Her revelations were

theologically problematic, as the veracity of her message of divine mercy seemed to depend on the word of a secular noblewoman of no particular religious pedigree; they were also socially unwelcome, as her critiques were often directed at the members of the elite classes among whom she herself moved by virtue of her parentage and her marriage. From Mathias' text it is clear that the defense had to overcome skepticism and hostility. In terms of its more immediate impact, the *Stupor et mirabilia* may also have convinced King Magnus Eriksson and Queen Blanche to set aside the royal demesne of Vadstena for the establishment of a convent.⁹⁴ Viewed retrospectively, Mathias' defense was nothing less than a catalyst for one of the greatest cultural movements of the late Middle Ages.

I want here to follow the line from Mathias' first engagement with Aristotle's *Rhetoric* in the *Testa nucis* and its imprint in the *Poetria* to his persuasive successes as a homilist and apologist—something about which surprisingly little has been said in the scholarship on Mathias and his connections to Birgitta. Mathias' treatise is a rare explicit record of a medieval reader who responds to Aristotle's *Rhetoric* as an active and activating rhetoric. As we have seen, even Giles of Rome's massive early commentary on the *Rhetoric* did not quite capture that it is a work first and foremost about composing persuasive arguments in public oratory. In his commentary, Giles was far more interested in the philosophical and disciplinary placement of rhetoric than in the equipment for making a speech—although his *De regimine principum* and his sermons embody the principles that he came to recognize in Aristotle's text. But Mathias' *Testa nucis* reveals directly how a homilist might appreciate the theoretical realization of rhetorical practice. Thus it is especially rewarding to consider how, in his later homiletic practice, Mathias deploys to great effect some of the very devices that he drew attention to in his own earlier theory text.

But this should not be taken to mean that the presence of such persuasive devices is particular to Mathias, as if his close reading of the *Rhetoric* made it possible for him to use certain persuasive techniques. We would find similar techniques in nearly any sermon produced at any time before or after the availability of the *Rhetoric*, and whether or not the preacher left us a record of how he read Aristotle. However, in Mathias' *Testa nucis* we have an unusual record of a symmetry between practice and theory, where the theory puts a name to and possibly shapes an intuitive knowledge of how arguments are made. Indeed, it is more helpful to see the

practice as preliminary to the theory. Mathias recognized and called attention to certain devices in Aristotle's *Rhetoric* because he *already had a pragmatic understanding of them*, and that pragmatic knowledge accompanied him to the end of his career, when he wrote *Stupor et mirabilia*. Whether or not he was conscious of his early theoretical encounter with Aristotle when he wrote *Stupor et mirabilia* is not only unprovable but somewhat beside the point. Our interest is in what he found *already* relevant in the *Rhetoric*, and how that relevance signifies in his later and spectacular writing. Moreover, we should not assume that Mathias was alone in reading the *Rhetoric* as a rhetoric. His *Testa nucis* is simply a rare access into that reception history. If Mathias was reading the *Rhetoric* when he was a student in Paris, as is most likely, he would probably have found it in a moral philosophy collection along with at least the *Ethics* and the *Politics*. Yet he read it distinctively as a rhetoric, even trying to synthesize it with the more familiar preceptive rhetorics of the Ciceronian tradition, *De inventione* and *Rhetorica ad Herennium*. He also linked it with his *Poetria*, based on the Aristotelian–Averroistic *Poetics*, which he may also have found in the same manuscript with the *Rhetoric*.⁹⁵ The fact that Mathias leaves a substantial response to the *Rhetoric* is unusual, but it suggests that readers could and did recognize its theory as rhetorical and not only as part of a larger program of moral philosophy.

A brief outline of what remains of the *Testa nucis* will be helpful here.⁹⁶

1–6 Rhetoric is the faculty of considering all possible means of persuasion. Three genres of rhetoric: judicial, deliberative, epideictic. The five canons of rhetoric.

7–10 Invention; inartistic (atechnic) and artistic proofs.

11–15 Kinds of artistic proofs. One is based on the orator's character, *per mores*. The second is based on the listener, which is called *passionale*: *passio* is a movement of the sensitive soul (*motus anime sensitive*), and a speech that produces this movement is called *passionalis*; the emotions are love, hatred, desire, abomination, joy, sorrow, meekness, wrath, audacity, hope, and despair. The hearer will judge in accordance with the emotion he feels. The third kind of persuasion is based on the controversy (*res*) itself, and this kind is called "factual" (*reale*). This last adopts two devices: the enthymeme and the example.

16–22 The example: a device by which something less known is pointed out by its resemblance to some other thing better known. Examples may be drawn from history, from parable, and from *fabula*.

23–31 The enthymeme: “is a syllogism concerning our contingent actions about which we deliberate but for which we have no systematic rules” (23). Although formally it has only one premise, it should be understood as having two (and thus is syllogistic). “The enthymeme will thus be a syllogism concerning things things within our capacity for action and proceeding from probabilities and signs” (26). Enthymemes based on signs might include: “Socrates is wise but also diligent; therefore wise people are diligent” (28). Enthymemes based on probabilities might include: “Every thief wanders about in the night; this man wanders about in the night, therefore he is a thief” (30).

32–50 (to end) The topics from which enthymemes are drawn: who, what, where, by what means, why, how, when. Attributes of the person (defining “who”): name, nature, maner of life, position, habit, emotion, interest, purpose, achievements, fortune, speeches. Attributes of the action. (From #32 to the end Mathias has shifted his source, taking his matter mainly from Cicero’s *De inventione* with some parallel echoes of Cicero in Matthew of Vendôme’s *Ars versificatoria*.)

This matter covers the opening chapters of book 1 (1354–9), which includes discussion of the enthymeme, and the chapters on enthymeme and example in book 2 (1393a22–1394a19).

The extent of the coverage of the *Rhetoric* in *Testa nucis* beyond the surviving fragment may be gauged by references in the *Poetria*. Early in the *Poetria* (§11, ed. Bergh, p. 49) Mathias describes the technique of *representatio*, putting something “before our eyes” (“ante oculos”), as creating a certain presence (“presencialiter operans”), adding that he had discussed that already in detail in *Testa nucis*, where he drew his information from Aristotle. A few lines later in the *Poetria* (§16) Mathias refers again to his discussion of metaphor in *Testa nucis*. These references suggest that the coverage in *Testa nucis* had extended to the discussion of metaphor and vivid description in *Rhetoric* book 3 (1410b6–1413b2). Later (§95) he refers to a discussion in *Testa nucis* of the *stilus triplicus* or threefold style, which is too general to be traced to a specific part of the

Rhetoric, although it may have concerned the discussion in book 3 of the styles associated with the three genres of rhetoric (1413b3–1414a29).⁹⁷ Another indication of how long *Testa nucis* might have been is the promise, in the opening sentences, to treat each of the five canons of rhetoric at length (§6, ed. Bergh, p. 29); the surviving text does not extend beyond a partial coverage of invention.

Mathias' exposition begins with book 1, [chapters 2](#) and [3](#) of the *Rhetoric*, following the definitions of proofs and the genres of rhetoric relatively closely. He also borrows from *De inventione* and *Rhetorica ad Herennium* for quick definitions of invention and the five canons of rhetoric, information which he obviously thought necessary for a complete view of rhetoric but which he would not have found in Aristotle. His treatment of the three forms of proof (his equivalents to *ēthos*, *pathos*, and *logos*) does not depart significantly in substance from Aristotle. However, we can see the influence of scholastic Aristotelianism in the definition of emotion as a *motus animae sensitivae*, and in the listing of eleven emotions (after Aquinas' influential taxonomy in *Summa theologiae* prima secundae qq. 22–48). Mathias' explanation for the third means of proof, through *logos* or speech (in Moerbeke's translation, *per orationes*, 1356a19) seems to be a departure, because he transfers the source of proof from the speech (verbal argument) to the controversy and facts (*realia*) being debated. But this can be seen as an equivalence to what he would have found in Moerbeke: “per orationes...quando verum aut apparens ostenderimus ex probabilibus circa singula” (through speeches when we have shown a truth or apparent truth by means of probabilities about a particular case). Substituting the word *res* for *oratio* shows the influence of Ciceronian terminology, where the speech concerns a “case” or “controversy” (*res*). It also makes sense that he attaches the devices of proof, example and enthymeme, to this last, for (as in Aristotle) this would be the domain of the verbal devices of reasoning. But although enthymemes (along with examples) belong to *logos* as forms of discursive reasoning, they draw on human dispositions and circumstances. To provide the sources for enthymemes and examples, Mathias has taken a shortcut. Rather than summarize Aristotle's lengthy account of the topics for enthymemes and examples in book 2 of the *Rhetoric*, he has supplied what apparently seemed to him a simpler scheme, Cicero's discussion of the *circumstantiae* from *De inventione* 1.24.34–1.39.44 (*Testa nucis* §§32–50).

Of all the possible ideas in the *Rhetoric*, especially books 1 and 2, that Mathias could have chosen to highlight in the exposition of his *Testa nucis*, his attention is drawn especially to Aristotle's account of example and enthymeme. These are the backbone of rhetorical argumentation, the two main forms, inductive and deductive, that it can take. Aristotle treats them in book 1, [chapters 1 and 2](#), and book 2, chapters 20, 22, and 24–5. Mathias moves adeptly around these books of the *Rhetoric* in order to find exactly what he wants to extract from them. For Aristotle, the example or induction is the foundation of reasoning (1393a26, 2.20) even though by itself it might be logically insufficient. Examples can be taken from history, from comparisons—or in Moerbeke's Latin, *parabola*—and from *fabula* (1393a27–30). Their appeal to popular tastes ensures their ubiquity as forms of reasoning. Mathias takes his information about the example from the discussion in book 2. The enthymeme is a more complicated form, and Mathias devotes more space to its definition (§§23–31), supplementing that with a long discussion of the topics from which enthymemes can be drawn (§32 to the end). According to Aristotle, both the example and the enthymeme deal with things that are capable of being otherwise, that is, contingencies open to debate and deliberation (1357a14–15, 25). This is exactly what Mathias chooses to stress, especially with regard to the enthymeme:

23. [E]nthimema est sil[l]ogismus de contingentibus operabilibus a nobis, de quibus consiliamur et artes non habemus. 24. Dico autem, quod est sillogismus, quoniam quamvis quo ad vocem et sermonem non habeat nisi unam propositionem, tamen quo ad intellectum duas habet propositiones, ex quibus sequitur una conclusio. 25. Nec propter hoc quilibet sillogismus ent[h]imema est, quoniam enthimema est circa ea, que a nobis sunt operabilia, et sub arte eadem (nisi [syllogismus persuasionis] inartificialis est) per ycota et signa. 26. Erit igitur enthimema sillogismus ex ycotibus et signis procedens circa operabilia a nobis.⁹⁸

23. The enthymeme is a syllogism concerning our contingent actions about which we deliberate but for which we have no systematic rules. 24. I say that it is a syllogism, for although in terms of expression (vox) and language it has just one premise, it should nevertheless be understood as having two premises, from which one conclusion follows.

25. This does not imply that any syllogism is an enthymeme; for the enthymeme concerns things within our capacity for action and, using probabilities and signs, is governed by the same (syllogistic) method (unless [the syllogism] belongs to a non-technical [persuasion]).⁹⁹ 26. The enthymeme will thus be a syllogism concerning things within our capacity for action and proceeding from probabilities and signs.

In other words, as Mathias emphasizes, the enthymeme is appropriate to moral affairs that are to be treated *grosse et figuraliter*, according to contingencies that cannot be resolved by the stricter norms of dialectical proof. Thus also, as Mathias goes on to show, the enthymeme will find its material, or topics, from the conditions attached to human affairs.

Why does Mathias dwell at some length on these subjects, especially the enthymeme? Looking at his career retrospectively, it is obvious why these concepts would arrest his attention. Although preaching theological doctrine involves instruction about absolute truths (principles, such as the immortality of the soul, that are not considered debatable), preaching about moral behavior involves recognizing the contingencies of human actions and desires. As Mathias paraphrases Aristotle, “the enthymeme will [concern] things within our capacity for action” (§26), and the preacher is interested in moving the audience to act in the ways that are possible for them, that is, to make certain choices.

Can we see Mathias writing his *Testa nucis* as a kind of *ars praedicandi*, a preacherly response to his encounter with Aristotelian rhetoric? There are strong arguments for this. If Mathias studied in Paris, which is likely, he would surely have been there to prepare for a clerical vocation. One of his other literary products, the *Copia exemplorum*, is very clearly based on the Dominican *exempla* collections that were available in Paris within the first decade of the fourteenth century, indicating his close contact with the preaching of the friars in Paris.¹⁰⁰ The very themes that he draws out of his reading of Aristotle’s *Rhetoric* resonate in his *Copia exemplorum*, which ranges in content from amusing or cautionary *exempla* to declarative (deductive) pronouncements (enthymemes). We can also glimpse pastoral concerns in Mathias’ *Poetria*, the companion piece to the *Testa nucis*, in the kinds of details that he supplies to illustrate points, such as poetic praise that can be used to incite an audience to virtue: “It is therefore necessary to add words that generate such emotions as are conducive to the achievement

of virtues...For example, those who are not motivated by the delight prepared in Heaven because they have a weak love for it...should at least strive after virtue in order to avoid the insoluble misery and afflictions of Hell” (*Poetria* §§47–8); or Mathias’ concluding poetic eulogy on the virtue and piety of Olaf Björnsson, archbishop of Uppsala. All of these can suggest that writing the *Testa nucis* and the *Poetria* served as a kind of exercise in bringing the relatively new Aristotelian theories of discourse—rhetoric and poetics—to bear on pastoral concerns. However fragmentary it is in its surviving form, the *Testa nucis* is testimony to the pastoral impact of Aristotle’s *Rhetoric*. Here we see Mathias drawing out the theory that was relevant to preaching, finding in the *Rhetoric* an articulation of how preachers shape their arguments when they set out to persuade. The *Rhetoric* did not teach preachers like Mathias to use examples and enthymemes, because they did that already; but as Mathias’ interests show, Aristotle helped to put names on these devices and explained why they are effective, especially with popular audiences. A preacher like Mathias would recognize in the *Rhetoric* the very practices that were essential to his preaching, and would be drawn to those elements in Aristotle’s theory that most resonated with his practice.

The expertise that he acquired in practice, as well as the theoretical understanding that he demonstrates in *Testa nucis*, were put to the test in the high stakes of his apology for Birgitta, the *Stupor et mirabilia*. From Mathias’ polemic we get a sense of the kinds of doubts that were raised or at least expected about the authenticity of Birgitta’s visions: is she mad? is she a vain attention seeker? is she a liar? and why should she—a pious but ignorant widow from a privileged family—have divine revelations? According to Birgitta’s *Vita*, after her first revelation, fearing that she was hearing the words of the devil and not Christ, she approached her confessor Mathias, seeking in him someone who was proven in the “discernment of spirits” (“qui expertus est duorum spirituum discrecionem”).¹⁰¹ The same approach is reported in Mathias’ own apology, but the reasons given are perhaps more tactical: she brought her first revelation to him so that he could make it known to others.

Inicium autem huius revelacionis facte ad predictam dominam, transmissum ad me, qui hunc prologum premisi, ut ceteris illud notum facerem...¹⁰²

This first revelation [the so-called Prologue revelation] that was given to this lady was transmitted to me, who provided this prologue, so that I might make it known to others...¹⁰³

In other words, she depended for her mission on his reputation not just as a pious theologian who could verify the spiritual truth of her revelations, but as a preacher who would convey and frame her message expertly. And indeed, Mathias' prologue was so successful in framing her visions as she reported them to a succession of confessors that within thirty years it was the authoritative apparatus accompanying her complete *Revelations*.

Mathias' tactics in the *Stupor et mirabilia* are often surprising, even outrageous. It opens with an exemplum, a historical comparison that turns scriptural history on its head:

Stupor et mirabilia audita sunt in terra nostra. Mirabile siquidem erat, quod zelator legis, Moyses, igneam legem in ulcionem peccatorum de medio ignis zeli Dei audiret. Sed stupendius est, quod hodie humiles et mansueti spiritu vocem Iesu Christi, Dei et hominis, audiunt, ut olim Helias in sibilo aure tenuis audivit.¹⁰⁴

Astonishing and miraculous things have been known on this earth of ours. It was surely miraculous that Moses, zealot of the law, heard the fiery law for punishment of sinners issuing from within the fire of God's zeal. But more astonishing is it that in our time the humble and mild of spirit should hear the voice of Jesus Christ, God and man, just as Elijah once heard in the whistle of a gentle breeze.

As wondrous as was the apotheosis on Mount Sinai when Moses heard God's voice through fire, it is even more extraordinary that in our own day ("hodie") the meek and mild should hear the voice of Jesus Christ in the whistling of a gentle wind ("in sibilo aure tenuis") as the prophet Elijah did (3 Kings 19:11–12). But if Mathias suggests that Birgitta's theophany is as great as Elijah's, and that both are greater than that of Moses, he goes on to make an even more audacious claim: as something wondrous, her vision of Christ exceeds even the Incarnation:

O vere stupenda et superadmiranda apparicio et gracia et certe omni nationi, que sub celo est, revelanda, qua Christus...misericordiam exhibet ingratiss et reos allicit ad veniam flagitandam! Sane stupendior est hec apparicio illa, qua se per carnem monstravit. Illa carnis superficiem carnalibus oculis ingessit, hec Deum et hominem spiritualibus oculis ingerit. Per illam moriturus mortalibus loquebatur, per hanc semper victurus morituris, ut immortales fiant, loquitur. Per illam ambulans in terra in humanis divina monstrabat, per hanc regnans in celo humana divinis reconciliat. In illa debitum iusticie moriendo pro nobis solvit, in hac indebite nobis peccatoribus misericordie munus largiri promittit.¹⁰⁵

O astonishing and awesome vision and grace, surely to be revealed to every nation under heaven, through which Christ...shows mercy to the ungrateful and induces the accused to beg

forgiveness. Indeed this manifestation is more astonishing than that by which God showed himself in flesh. In that instance he presented the external body of flesh to fleshly eyes; but in this instance he presents God and man to spiritual eyes. In that instance one who was going to die spoke to morals; in this instance one who will live always speaks to those who will die, that they may be made immortal. In that instance, while walking on the earth he showed the divinity of the human; but in this instance, while ruling in heaven he brings the human together with the divine. In that instance by dying for us he loosed the debt of justice; in this one, where there is no debt, he promises to grant the gift of mercy to us sinners.

Birgitta's revelations, seen only with the spiritual eye, know no temporal or material limits: they extend but also surpass the work of the historical Incarnation by unfolding into an endless future of mercy.¹⁰⁶ They bring Christ's voice into present time, both Bridget's and Mathias' own historical moment and the time of all of her future adherents. These comparisons are certainly more daring and novel than what Aristotle would recommend for the use of exempla. They are not easy to accept, as Mathias himself declares: "Nam et ego ipse, qui hec scripsi...vix tamen ispe capio" (For even I myself, who have written this, can hardly conceive it) [§25]. They do not appeal to the ordinary emotions of pragmatic political debate, but rather to extreme fear born of shock and ecstatic joy born of surprise.

But even dressed up in potent and fearful imagery, many of Mathias' arguments are simple enthymematic declarations. Thus, for example, one of the many reasons why Birgitta cannot be a liar or an instrument of the devil:

Quis talem vitam existimet ludibriis patere demonum Christumque tante impietatis arguere audebit, ut non tueretur in se sperantem et non se sed ipsum ex dileccionis eius plenitudine glorificantem? Vel numquid bonus sponsus castam coniugem et fidelem exponit adultero illudendam?¹⁰⁷

Who could conceive a life such as hers suffering the ridicule of demons, and who will dare to accuse Christ of such impiety that he would not watch over one who hoped in him, who glorified not herself but him out of the fullness of her love? Does a good husband abandon his chaste and faithful wife, making her a plaything for an adulterer?

The argument is that no good husband would hand his wife over to the shameful seductions of an adulterer. But this rests on an implied premise: that Christ's love for Birgitta is that of a good husband. That premise is not argued, but rather left to the power of a suggestive analogy. The preparation for the analogy has been so intensive that it needs no explicit proof. There is also enthymematic proof by signs: Birgitta must be believed because she is *iusta* or righteous, and this must be so because she bears no signs of greed, pride, lust, or cowardice (ed. Undhagen, §9, pp. 231–2). While not binding

or necessary, the evidence of such signs can be persuasive if deployed well. In fact, Mathias also feels the need to augment these probable proofs or enthymemes with some hard facts worthy of a canonization process, and so in his conclusion adduces a list of six facts to corroborate the case for Birgitta: she was too unlearned, simple and humble, as well as noble and honest, to have concocted such visions; the *religiosus* who wrote down the revelations (i.e., Mathias himself) initially demurred in the face of so profound a task, but was compelled by Christ, through fear of death, and only consented when he was dying, at which point he was cured; at the words of the *religiosus* who was communicating Birgitta's revelations, a man in Östergötland was released from diabolic possession before two witnesses; another man in Sweden was similarly released from possession; a prostitute was converted through the intervention of the Virgin who appeared to Birgitta along with Christ; various leading men in the realm were also converted, as they will testify (ed. Undhagen, §§41–6, pp. 239–40). Giving this list of facts as confirmation of the case is tantamount to acknowledging that the foregoing proofs were based on probabilities, that they were enthymematic appeals to values and emotions.

Mathias' apology for Birgitta was to find its enduring success in these techniques. Through the sheer luck of textual survivals, we can trace his preacherly interest in these devices from his early encounter with Aristotle to the defensive strategies of his apology. His *Stupor et mirabilia* conferred on Birgitta the authority that she was to bring from Sweden to Rome. Her order founds itself on the validity of the Revelations and the rules of conventual living that are linked with them: thus what became the prologue to the Revelations is part of a continuous loop of authorizing and introducing the foundational text of the Brigittine order. What the arc of Mathias' interest in these persuasive techniques shows is the relevance of Aristotle's rhetorical theory to anyone charged with preaching. Mathias is unusual among medieval preachers, not in deploying such devices—that is universal—but in having produced an analytical response to the *Rhetoric* in which he picks out and examines the devices that are of most use to pastoral persuasion. It is not surprising to find him using such devices to stunning success in the high-stakes performance of the *Stupor et mirabilia*: he used them, not because he learned them from Aristotle, but because they were the most effective persuasive resources available to any preacher. As a preacher he was already invested in such techniques, and he latched onto

Aristotle's discussion of them. Aristotle gave an explicit and lucid account of how such appeals to emotion and belief work, and this is what Mathias emphasizes in his resumé of the work. His apology for Birgitta is not an effect of his early encounter with Aristotle's *Rhetoric*: rather, the two are equal expressions of his intuitive understanding of enthymematic appeal. As Mathias' career shows, the *Rhetoric* was relevant as a theoretical expression of pastoral practice.

The compendium of rhetoric in Engelbert of Admont's manuscript and Mathias' *Testa nucis* are uncommon and thus precious records of pastoral responses to Aristotle's *Rhetoric*. What we are tracing here is not cause and effect (from Aristotle's *Rhetoric* to the presence of certain persuasive devices in homilies), nor a sharp departure from what was done before the *Rhetoric* was known in the West, but rather a process of recognition of what had always been known. In providing a systematic language for describing what had previously rested in pragmatic intuition, the *Rhetoric* changed, not what preachers did, but how they could theorize their practice. In the case of Mathias of Linköping, it is true, the textual results are spectacular, as his homiletic apology for Birgitta prepares the way for one of the last great cultural phenomena of the Catholic Middle Ages. But whatever his particular talents in deploying them, the rhetorical tools that he used were not unique to him. While Mathias and the compendiarist of MS Admont 608 are the rare surviving examples of explicit pastoral theorizing about the *Rhetoric*, they must be taken as representative of many similar responses that have been lost or gone unrecorded.

7.4 Piers the Plowman Meets the *Rhetoric*: Pastoral Readers and Emotion

Aristotelian rhetoric gave preachers a theoretical language in which to explain their familiar practices: how they deployed a psychological understanding of motivation, and how they elicited emotion through enthymematic appeals. But beyond the process of recognition, could reading the *Rhetoric* also spark other connections for them, encouraging them to see their own practices anew? Here we can return to the claim made at the beginning of this chapter: both preaching and poetry were repositories

of pragmatic knowledge about audience emotions, and this links poetry with the affective mission of preaching. How might encounters with the *Rhetoric* have cued pastoral readers to see the commonalities of poetry and preaching?

Medieval preachers, especially when addressing vernacular audiences, were intuitively drawn to poetry for its capacity to activate emotions, to mobilize them for persuasion. The extraordinary presence of poetry in sermons—indeed the high proportion of vernacular religious verse that survives through sermons and pastoral miscellanies—reflects preachers' sensitivity. They recognized the rhetorical potential of poetry. But how would they have registered this at a critical level?

Although the *artes praedicandi* rarely speak analytically of the emotions, other genres of pastoral literature—penitentials and confessors' handbooks, preachers' handbooks, and treatises on the vices and virtues—offer an array of strategies for recognizing the emotional dispositions of audiences. Such texts, preparatory and parallel to preaching itself, can give complex treatments of emotions. But such sensitivity at a theoretical level is most often paired with the aim of extirpating the negative emotions, such as envy and anger, and cultivating the positive ones, such as calmness and compassion. As we saw in [Chapter 4](#), these programs can trace a relation back to Stoicism. From the Stoic notion of *primus motus* or initial affective impulse to be extirpated in order to achieve peace of mind, early Christian asceticism derived a panel of eight bad thoughts to be controlled. These eight thoughts were soon reconfigured in Christian theology as seven sins to be remedied. The canonical order of the seven cardinal sins first appears with Gregory the Great.¹⁰⁸ Later medieval penitential and confessional literature, as well as treatises on the vices and virtues designed for preaching, also often focus on an emotional act or deed, or on indulgence of an emotion as a kind of deed, that requires penance. Such texts may have in common with Aristotle's *Rhetoric* a pragmatic and persuasive concern with specific, lived situations, but their interests will be corrective, to show how negative emotion must be overcome, rather than, as in Aristotle, to explain and harness the social force of emotion.

The *Fasciculus morum*, a fourteenth-century Franciscan handbook covering the seven sins and their remedial virtues, exemplifies this corrective outlook. The approaches here to wrath and envy are inevitably moral and extirpative. The exposition of wrath considers its nature, its evil

consequences, its components, and why it should be fully repudiated. The nature of wrath occupies a few sentences: it can be a form of zeal (righteous indignation) or a vice, the desire to seek vengeance without pity. There is nothing about the psychological causes of anger; the exposition dwells instead on the deleterious effects of sinful anger: it destroys the soul, it obstructs grace from flowing into the soul, and the wrathful are worse than the devil, because they wreak damage indiscriminately not just on one person but on a whole family. Hate and revenge are the components of anger: those who hate are like serpents, those who seek revenge are like Herod; wrath attracts more wrathful violence like a magnet, and cannot be extinguished. Following this are instructions for repudiating and extirpating wrath through patience and the virtues of compassion, pity, and peacefulness. The exposition of envy takes a similar shape: it is defined initially as sadness about someone else's felicity, for which it is "diabolical." Its effects are described through arresting *exempla* about local rivalries (between neighbors, merchants and townspeople, rapacious lords and prosperous abbeys).¹⁰⁹ The *Summa virtutum de remediis anime*, a treatise on the vices and virtues from the first half of the thirteenth century similarly illustrates the normative approach to negative emotion: one who is wrathful hurts those who correct him, just as a boar wounds the dogs that chase it; the remedial virtues are meekness and patience.¹¹⁰ Such "moral inventories" of sin exercise a significant influence on vernacular literary culture. The *Summa virtutum de remediis anime* stands behind the account of the virtues and vices in Chaucer's *Parson's Tale*. Christine de Pizan's very popular *Épître d'Othéa*, for all its elaborate garb of classical mythography, betrays its dependence on the *Manipulus florum*, a preaching aid compiled in first decade of the fourteenth century by Thomas of Ireland. Christine treats the painful emotions of anger, envy, hatred (vengeance), and ingratitude (a form of unkindliness) as vices to be extirpated by corresponding virtues.¹¹¹ The influence of Thomas of Ireland extends to Chaucer's *Melibee*, via the dependence on the *Manipulus florum* of his French intermediary, Renaud de Louens' *Livre de Melibee et Prudence*.¹¹² The moral inventories of emotion in such preaching aids acknowledge the inevitable frailty of human nature, describing the experience or manifestation of negative emotion as part of the larger fabric of sinful behavior. But in these texts the interest is in reforming behavior and inducing contrition rather than in mobilizing emotions on the spot, that is,

in understanding them so as to exploit an audience's propensity to feel a certain way and thereby change effect a change of mind. In these contexts the emotions are not cognitive mechanisms of persuasion.

Yet preachers did care about this rhetorical dimension of the emotions, and knew well that they must arouse the passions of an audience, even in the service of enjoining them to repudiate the strong, negative feelings. Penitential works aimed at lay audiences, such as the Anglo-Norman *Manuel des Pechez* by William of Wadington and its English version, Robert Mannyng's *Handlyng Synne*, the expansive *Prick of Conscience*, or the compilation *Somme le Roi* by the Dominican friar Laurent, rely on vivid story-telling to mobilize the emotions of hearers and readers. Using proverbs, fables, and narrative *exempla*, they aim to evoke pity, laughter, kindness or good will, fear, and indignation or anger in order to move audiences to contrition. The *Fasciculus morum* also deploys many such devices that are meant to find their ways into vernacular sermons.¹¹³ The psychological repertoire of stories serves the examination of conscience, and so could be said to provide a material basis for the rhetorical analysis of the passions. We also see affective potential in the *distinctiones* of alphabetical handbooks for preachers, which provided capacious and well-organized archives of materials (practical and doctrinal) for amplifying any moral theme, including matters of behavior and temperament, such as patience and humility.¹¹⁴ We glimpse this understanding in the recorded sermons themselves, insofar as they capture the oral and social "event" of preaching, that is, its performance.¹¹⁵ And of course we see this in the way that preachers recruited poetry within their sermons for its immediate generative power, not just to reinforce moral lessons but to cue passionate responses and change minds. Meditative lyrics on the Passion that cue or "script" emotional responses such as tears and the "sweetening" of the heart, sorrowful exclamations of regret, fearful evocations of mortality and the signs of death, have their places among more austere penitential exhortations.¹¹⁶ We find similar effects in Richard Rolle's *Ego dormio*, which famously bursts into alliterative verse at emotional highpoints; while *Ego dormio* is not a sermon, it points to the formal alliances between devotional writing and preaching.¹¹⁷ But none of these genres or practices of pastoral literature provides a system dedicated to analyzing the causes of emotions for themselves and showing how to elicit them from an audience.

In other words, while the genres of preaching imply that speakers will have an intuitive rhetorical understanding, they do not offer a rhetorical theory.

Thus it is significant to find a pastoral reader interpreting Aristotle's analytic of the emotions as a cue for the rhetorical power of poetry. The moment of making such a connection between practical knowledge and new theory is registered in one otherwise ordinary manuscript containing Aristotle's works, Cambridge, Peterhouse College, MS 57. This presents a fairly typical grouping: the *Metaphysics*, *Ethics*, *Politics*, and *Rhetoric*. The book was copied in England about 1300.¹¹⁸ There is glossing throughout the manuscript, some on the *Metaphysics* and much more on the *Ethics*, as would be expected. The glossing on the *Rhetoric* occurs mainly in book 1. From early in its existence the manuscript was in the possession of Peterhouse College, as indicated by a note on the antefolio: "Iste liber est communitatis scholarium domus s. Petri Cantebrigiensis [sic] ex legato M. Walteri de Blacollisley, quondam vicarii Wisebeeche, cuius anime propicietur deus. Amen" (This book belongs to the community of scholars of the house of Saint Peter in Cambridge from the bequest of Master Walter of Blacollisley, formerly of the vicarage of Wisbech, may God keep his soul. Amen). Walter of Blacollisley incepted for the Cambridge master of arts in 1291–2 and was vicar of Wisbech, in Cambridgeshire, by or before 1318. In June of that year he resigned the post to become rector of Sudborne, in Suffolk.¹¹⁹ It is not clear when the book was donated to Peterhouse, whether during his lifetime or after his death, although the note seems to have been written after he was dead. It seems likely that, like other rectors, he maintained a personal library of texts relevant to preaching which he then bequeathed to a clerical institution.

Various readers in the milieu of Peterhouse College left their interpretive marks on the copy of the *Rhetoric* in this manuscript. None of the commentators has made significant use of the commentary by Giles of Rome, or at least made inroads into its more profound aspects, even though by at least the early fifteenth century Peterhouse also had a copy of the commentary.¹²⁰ Notably, there is little glossing on the opening chapters of book 2 on the emotions, sections which claim an important place in Giles' commentary. Any imports from Giles' commentary on book 2 would certainly have pushed later readers of the manuscript in the direction of scholastic taxonomies of the emotions. But there is no evidence of that here. In Peterhouse 57, the glossing on the *Rhetoric*, both marginal and

interlinear, occurs most densely at the beginning of the text, covering book 1, chapters 1–10, which represent the most technical passages. There is a great deal of interlinear notation, and on the first page is a list of the main points that follow from the opening statement, “Rethorica assecutiva est dialectice.” This annotator is staying close to Aristotle’s exposition, paraphrasing the ideas about the differences between rhetoric and dialectic and between syllogisms and enthymemes, the definitions and genres of rhetoric, and the invention of arguments out of topics. Superficial commonalities with Giles’ commentary lie with the opening sections of the text, where Giles also paraphrases the technical discussion. But the interests of this annotator extended no further than the introductory chapters. It is clear that he was trying to master an unfamiliar treatment of a subject that he might have thought he already knew well, that is, topical argumentation, which he would have learned through Ciceronian rhetoric or—more likely—the Aristotelian logic that had long been on the arts faculty curriculum. Perhaps this is why the close glossing in the Peterhouse manuscript wanes after the middle of *Rhetoric* book 1, continuing only lightly to the end of the book. The annotator was probably better prepared to deal with this section because the study of rhetorical topics was often used to supplement the study of dialectical topics, as the continuing curricular use of Boethius’ *De topicis differentiis* book 4 shows.

But the attention of a different annotator has fixed on other matters deep inside of *Rhetoric* book 2, at chapter 21, where Aristotle is showing how maxims (*sententiae*) can be used to form arguments. As Aristotle explains here, a maxim is a generalized assertion, and in rhetoric it is the conclusion of an enthymeme, coming after the proposition. But it can be used on its own, and if it is a well-known idea it needs no demonstration (1394a19–b15). This annotator of Peterhouse 57 has found something of interest in the pithy maxims that Aristotle quotes for illustration, and has extracted five of them, which he has copied out on a blank folio at the end of the volume: “Non est vir qui in omnibus felicitet” (No man may be happy in all ways) [1394b1]; “cognosce te ipsum” and “nichil valde” (Know thyself; Nothing to excess) [1395a20–1], which Aristotle considers to be trite maxims derived from popular wisdom; “ne invidiam pati oportet” and “ne otiosum esse” (One should not be the object of jealousy; Do not be idle) [1394b30], which Aristotle actually presents as parts of an enthymeme (since it is not good to be the object of envy or to be idle, it is not necessary to be

educated). The annotator does not pause over the technical advice about how maxims relate to a larger statement. Rather, he is arrested by the maxims themselves, copying them out neatly on a blank page at the end of the volume as a kind of ready reference for future use.

Without doubt, that future use is preaching. The strong links during the fifteenth century between English university graduates and careers dedicated to orthodox parish preaching underscore the signs of professional pastoral interest in the Peterhouse manuscript.¹²¹ Here the annotator seems to be compiling a list of ready-made *sententiae* as a resource. The maxims extracted are those that offer basic moral advice, and the annotator has stripped away all the surrounding complexities and qualifications, even taking some of the maxims out of context as if to repurpose them. The same hand that copied the maxims has also copied out from book 3 a short phrase that we have already encountered in Giles of Rome's *De regimine principum*, "quanto enim maior fuerit populus, remotius intellectus" (the bigger the multitude the more understanding recedes) [fol. 80v/188v, 1414a9–10].¹²² Probably on the authority of Giles' *De regimine*, where the phrase appears in a prominent position in the prologue, the idea had come to stand for the challenges of conveying arguments to a broad public.¹²³ The application of this idea to preaching is obvious. From another section of book 3, the discussion of metaphor by analogy, the annotator has also copied the phrase "intellectum deus lumen accendit in anima" (God illuminated the understanding as a light in the soul) [fol. 79v/187v, 1411b10], and recopied it on the end blank folio with the other maxims. This could also serve as a homiletic *sententia*.¹²⁴ The use of maxims, like proverbs, to punctuate and divide sermons was a basic technique of both Latin and vernacular preaching, hardly theorized but sometimes mentioned, as in the *artes praedicandi* of Robert of Basevorn and Thomas Waleys.¹²⁵ In themselves these annotations in Peterhouse 57 are mundane. They record simplified moral commonplaces, almost certainly to use in sermons. Yet this is continuous with Aristotle's own advice (1395b1) about quoting maxims for simple effects to reach uncultivated minds. We should therefore read these annotations as more than a general and simplistic moral response to the *Rhetoric*: they represent a rhetorical response, turning Aristotle's teaching to homiletic persuasion.

But deep within the text of the *Rhetoric* in Peterhouse 57 also lies another kind of pastoral rhetorical response, witnessing a preacher's insight into the dynamics of emotional appeal. This is an annotation in English, the only one in this manuscript, and certainly a rarity in any Latin Aristotle manuscript. It is in a hand contemporary with the one that copied out the maxims; it may well be the same hand. It is a poem, a rhymed couplet (or a quatrain written as two rhyming long lines), apparently composed by the annotator. It occurs within the analytic of the emotions of *Rhetoric* book 2, in the margin next to the section where Aristotle is describing the emotion of *amicitia* (*philia*), friendship or friendly feeling: the characteristics of friendliness, that is, the kinds of people we like to like, and the conditions that produce it.

Here from the *Rhetoric* is the context in which the marginal English verses appear:

Quos autem amant et odiunt, et propter quid, amicitiam et amare diffinientes dicamus.

Sit itaque amare velle alicui que putat bona, illius gratia, sed non sui, et secundum posse activum esse horum...Et eos qui fecerunt bene amant...et quoscumque putant velle bene facere. Et amicorum amicos et amantes quos ipsi diligunt. Et dilectos a dilectis sibi...Adhuc beneficos in pecunias et salutem; propter quod liberales et fortes honorant et iustos; tales autem putant non ab aliis viventes; *tales autem qui ab operando, et horum qui ab agricultura, et aliorum qui ipsimet operantur maxime.* (1380b35–1381a25; emphasis added)

Let us declare whom people like and whom they hate, and for what reason, once we have defined “friendship” and “to be friendly.” Let “to be friendly” mean wanting what one thinks are good things for someone for his sake but not for one's own sake, and as much as one can, to be the means of bringing these things about...And people are friendly to those who have treated them well...also to those whom they think want to treat them well. And people are friendly to the friends of their friends and to those who show friendship to those whom they themselves like. And [they are friendly to] those who are liked by those whom they themselves like...Moreover [they like] those who are beneficent in matters of money and safety; for this reason people honor those who are generous and strong and just. They hold this opinion of those who do not depend for their livelihood on others; *such are those, moreover, who live by their labor, especially those who live by working the land and others who do manual labor.*

As we have seen, this is typical of Aristotle's approach throughout the section on the emotions. On his analysis, which is distinctive among classical and medieval treatments of the subject, emotions come about through social behavior because they are responses to people. In the case of *amicitia*, Aristotle also assumes human reciprocity: in the *Ethics* he notes that *philia* is not a disposition towards inanimate things, for there has to be some return of regard and an altruistic desire for good things on the other's

behalf (1155b27–34). Thus in the *Rhetoric*, *amicitia* is defined and analyzed according to the way it is socially exhibited. There is a definition, followed by the causes of the emotion, the state of mind as it applies to social interactions (here, wanting to do good for one’s friends for their sake), and the characteristics of those who are the objects of the emotion. The social causes and expressions of the emotion of *amicitia* are useful knowledge for the orator. There is nothing normative or corrective in this account: the analysis is not recommending or promoting the disposition of friendliness. But at the same time, Aristotle recognizes that people will hold a high opinion of those they consider generous, strong, fair, just, and self-reliant. Thus the emphatic example of people who live by their labor working on the land acknowledges the appeal of agricultural labor to the popular moral instincts of ancient Greek audiences.¹²⁶

It is this last example of people’s regard for agricultural laborers that has caught the attention of this annotator. In the margin next to the last sentence, “tales autem qui ab operando, et horum qui ab agricultura, et aliorum qui ipsimet operantur maxime,” the following verses appear, written out as two long rhyming lines:

O pers plwman, iust is thi life
thw livist of thi labor with owt ani strife

(fol. 65r/173r)¹²⁷

In one rhyming verse, Peripatetic rhetoric meets Middle English poetry with an electric charge.

What does this English verse mean here, in this manuscript of Aristotle’s *Rhetoric*? It is not a quotation from *Piers Plowman* or any other poem: it seems to register a spontaneous reaction to something in the text.¹²⁸ But even if improvised on the spot, its poetic effects and thematic import are in no way accidental. The verse responds to Aristotle’s exemplifications of *amicitia* with pointed poetic equivalents. The English word “just,” in a prominently accented position, mirrors the Latin “iustos.” The alliteration of “livist” and “labor” condenses “tales [videntes] autem qui ab operando” into characteristically English metrical phrasing, with the alliterated words in strong positions. The words “life/strife,” a rhyming pair common in Middle English, are used here as ethical contraries to sum up the opposition between friendliness and hatred (“quos...amant et odiunt”): it is a “just life”

without the enmity of strife.¹²⁹ Aristotle's example of those regarded as decent and just because they work for their living "ab agricultura" is made to resonate with a common English pastoral tradition of the honest plowman. The example of the decent plowman could be put to use in a sermon along with pithy moral maxims such as those copied out at the end of the manuscript. Aristotle's treatment of *amicitia* is explanatory rather than morally directive, but as we see in the example of the self-reliant agricultural laborer, his explanation rests on the assumption of common values to which any rhetorical argument must appeal. The English annotation has taken this only one step further, translating the exemplification into an acute and passionate appeal to the example of a laborer who leads the "just life." Poetically this captures the essence of Aristotle's analysis of *amicitia* and the conditions that produce it. Certain social types will strike a chord with common beliefs and values, mobilizing the appropriate emotion in the audience. Vividly illustrating the Latin text "liberales et fortes honorant et iustos," the gloss praising the "just life" of the honest plowman draws a preacherly moral from the explanation of *amicitia* as friendly feeling for those who are self-reliant.

But why was the annotator impelled to invoke the name "Piers Plowman"? Of course, the apostrophe to Piers the Plowman conjures a name and a vivid presence for the object of friendly feeling, giving another dimension of poetic effect. But was the annotator invoking the poem itself, or was he simply calling on a social effect, an epiphenomenon of the so-called *Piers Plowman*-tradition, signaling what Ralph Hanna sees as the poem's absorption by a general English literary public?¹³⁰ The invocation may strike us as reminiscent of the "Piers Plowman" character in the rebel letters of 1381, where the figure of Piers is remembered as a worker.¹³¹ As an apostrophe to "Pers," the gloss even seems to perform something like the exhortatory preaching attributed to John Ball. But is the annotator's invocation as specific to the poem *Piers Plowman* as some have argued John Ball's reference might have been?¹³² Why the specificity of the name Piers Plowman? If Piers the Plowman, the character or the social effect, had become something of a rallying cry for dissent (for the rebels of 1381 or in the anticlericalism professed in the late fourteenth-century poem *Piers the Plowman's Crede*), is there any hint of that here, in the context of Aristotle's account of proof by *pathos*—his analysis of finding and exploiting emotions in an audience? Or was the idea of Piers the Plowman—the figure

of the righteous plowman—a folkloric commonplace available to anyone without knowledge of specific texts?¹³³ The simplest answer is that the name was a way to make Aristotle’s *Rhetoric* intelligible to this English annotator, serving as a familiar topos in a field of unfamiliar references to ancient Athenian culture and politics. On this view, the figure Piers the Plowman would be the point of mediation between Aristotle’s *Rhetoric* and the English Middle Ages. For this annotator, the name “Piers Plowman” may have opened a window into the intellectual world of the *Rhetoric*.

Yet, however fascinating and felicitous for us, the phenomenon of Piers the Plowman is surely accidental to the fifteenth-century annotator’s primary purpose. That reader is asking how the treatment of emotions in the *Rhetoric* applies to his practical concerns, and he answers this with the English verses. The passage on *amicitia* seems to have sparked a connection between two familiar fields: the emotional appeals of preaching and the emotional power of poetry. Here, the surprising annotation on *amicitia*, with its rhyming and alliterative apostrophe to Piers the Plowman as exemplar of the “just life,” embodies the affective intersection of poetry and preaching. The annotator’s “poetry” bears a striking resemblance to the kinds of vernacular verses used in sermons to evoke strong feelings and drive home an argument. From this perspective, the analytic of emotions in the *Rhetoric* is the point of mediation between pastoral discourse and poetic practice. In *Rhetoric* book 2, pastoral readers would find something that was missing as a theoretical element from the *artes praedicandi*. In Aristotle’s text, they would encounter a pragmatic psychology of the emotions that came closest to what they already knew experientially from preaching. Poetics, too, was a repository of such knowledge. The *Rhetoric* has acted as the catalyst to reveal their common ground.

There is no definitive way to recover how the figure “Piers the Plowman” was culturally familiar to this clerical annotator. There are few named clerical owners of the work, although manuscript evidence has pointed to pastoral readership especially among lower clergy.¹³⁴ But without putting too much referential pressure on the invocation of either the name “Piers Plowman” or the poem itself, we can place these on the horizon. Why would someone who had encountered Langland’s poem or just the figure Piers the Plowman be reminded of either when reading Aristotle’s *Rhetoric*? At the outermost parameters of the poem’s influence, the figure Piers the Plowman simply embodies the agricultural laborer who

is just and decent, as suggested above. Chaucer's nameless Plowman, a "trewe swynkere" who tells no tale but who lives "in pees and parfit charitee" (I.531–2) and rides with his brother the equally righteous Parson, could almost as easily be a referent. In fact Chaucer's description linking the Plowman and the preaching Parson opens a secondary passage to the clerical annotation in Peterhouse 57: the long tradition associating preaching with plowing, that is, preparing the ground for spiritual seed.¹³⁵ The metaphorical connection between preaching and plowing would make the poetic annotation not only useful for a sermon but self-reflexive for the one preaching. But a reader need not have known Langland's *Piers Plowman* (or Chaucer's *General Prologue*) directly to make such connections.

Moving closer into the textual orbit of *Piers Plowman*, the poem might have suggested itself to a reader of the *Rhetoric* because its protean character is like a rhetorical laboratory of the emotions. Lines and passages of the poem seem to answer the call of a clerical gloss on *amicitia*, "love." Piers the Plowman, we are told by the figure Clergy, knows better what is "Dowel" than Clergy himself, for Piers "set alle sciences at a sop save love one" (B.13.125), that is, Piers knows the "science" of love, which is the highest knowledge.¹³⁶ The active emotions in the poem, from the righteous anger of Piers to the penitent weeping of Haukyn, and indeed the tears of contrition throughout the poem, would find their theoretical correlatives in the systematic account of emotions in *Rhetoric* book 2.¹³⁷ As Nicolette Zeeman has noted, the poem's affective teaching, through the figure of Will, is in most ways a "traditional pastoral emotion therapy," illustrating polarized extremes of emotions that can also be exemplary and conversionary through a corrective dynamic.¹³⁸ Perhaps this very traditionalism was what rendered the poem or the figure of Piers an obvious candidate for interpreting a perspective on emotions that would still have been new to most late medieval readers accustomed to a diet of Christianized Stoic and Neoplatonic theory that made the emotions objects of moral correction rather than forces of cognitive change. In its movement from confession to true penitence and virtue, as Katharine Breen has described it, the poem produces a self-commentary on the emotional efficacy of preaching, a theme that may have carried beyond the poem's circle of close and attentive readers.¹³⁹ More mundanely, perhaps the kinds of maxims that the annotator of Peterhouse 57 deemed memorable—such

commonplaces as “Be not idle” and “No man is happy in all ways”—resonated with themes immanent in *Piers Plowman* and in the moral-polemical tradition beyond the poem.

From another angle, however, we can ask a different kind of question: what might a clerical reader of Aristotle’s *Rhetoric*, informed by its application to the emotive appeal of preaching, learn from encountering the poem *Piers Plowman*? To address this we must back away from the poem, to consider not its content or its themes but what it achieves formally: it embodies the confluence of poetry and preaching. Not only does it contain substantive sermons that structure the narrative, but it builds on—makes poetry out of—the topics, themes, and even language of contemporary sermons.¹⁴⁰ But its reciprocity with the culture of sermons can be found as well at deeper formal and “ethical” levels, in the “mobility” and “compositional flexibility” that characterize both Langland’s poem and preaching.¹⁴¹ Preaching, in turn, avails itself of poetic modes to intensify its emotional proofs, to “bring about a reorientation of the existential outlook of those who experienced it.”¹⁴² The verse annotator of Peterhouse 57 apparently knew this well. Thus if sermons are integral to the poetry of *Piers Plowman*, poetry was integral to sermons. Such verses survive in recorded sermons or in collections and handbooks awaiting their activating role in a sermon. And stylistically, vernacular sermons can assume the forms associated with poetry, notably, in English, deliberate alliterative effects that inhabit the prose like metrical phrasing, or a densely macaronic prose reminiscent of the syntactical fabric of much vernacular verse.¹⁴³ The verse invoking a “Piers Plowman” in a manuscript of Aristotle’s *Rhetoric* read by a Cambridge cleric thus points to something beyond the poem: it apprehends the likeness and reciprocity of preaching and poetry. It does not have to refer positively to *Piers Plowman*. But it can suggest how any poem of such power could resonate with the very kinds of rhetorical appeals that would be familiar to a preacher. The name “Piers Plowman” need not lead us back to the poem, but it does lead us back to poetry.

Aristotle’s *Rhetoric* provided not emotion itself, but a systematic account of the psychology and the social causes and effects of emotional behavior. It gave pastoral readers a powerful articulation of the social conditions behind emotional responses, something that they knew intuitively but that their arts of preaching did not address. In this way it was a new force. It brings the emotions out of the abstractions of philosophy and

theology, and even out of the corrective taxonomies of penitential instruction. In practical rhetorical terms it lays out the real knowledge of affective motivation to be understood through human appetite, to be harnessed in enthymematic appeals, and to be expressed through poetic language. Preaching itself did not radically change in the wake of Aristotle's *Rhetoric*. But the consistent presence of the *Rhetoric* in pastoral collections, where it was read both as a work of moral philosophy and as a rhetoric, shows how its theoretical teachings found an appreciative audience among those dedicated to preaching.

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¹ “Solent enim audientes moueri et passionari per istam virtutem modo ad misericordiam, modo ad complacenciam et modo ad penitenciam et modo ad acceptacionem et modo ad detestacionem, et sic de alijs passionibus, quibus oratores et predicatorum verbi Dei solent audientes mouere per virtutem istam facundie et eloquencie.” Ridewall, *Fulgentius metaphoralis* 1.9 (unedited section of the work), Oxford, Bodleian Library, MS Bodley 571, fol. 111vb. I thank Ralph Hanna for calling my attention to this reference and supplying it.

² See Section 7.2, “Emotional Appeals and the Arts of Preaching,” pp. 297–302. On penitential compilations, see below pp. 325–7.

³ On manuscript counts, see Chapter 4, pp. 184–5, note 90. My information here is derived from Lacombe and Minio-Paluello, eds., *Aristoteles latinus codices* vols. 1 and 2 and *supplementa altera*.

⁴ Cf., Briggs, “Aristotle’s *Rhetoric* in the Later Medieval Universities,” 254.

⁵ K. W. Humphreys, *The Book Provisions of the Medieval Friars 1215–1400* (Amsterdam: Erasmus Booksellers, 1964), pp. 104, 107, 127; Charles F. Briggs, “Moral Philosophy in England after Grosseteste: An ‘Underground’ History,” in George Hardin Brown and Linda Ehrsam Voigts, eds., *The Study of Medieval Manuscripts of England: Festschrift in Honor of Richard W. Pfaff* (Tempe: Arizona Center for Medieval and Renaissance Studies, 2010), pp. 359–88 (at pp. 382–8). See also the relevant volumes of the Corpus of British Medieval Library Catalogues: K. W. Humphreys, ed., *The Friars’ Libraries* (London: British Academy, 1990); Vincent Gillespie, ed., *Syon Abbey*, with A. I. Doyle, ed., *The Libraries of the Carthusians* (London: British Library, 2001); Peter D. Clarke, ed., *The University and College Libraries of Cambridge* (London: British Library, 2002); B. C. Barker-Benfield, ed., *St Augustine’s Abbey, Canterbury*, 3 vols. (London: British Library, 2008).

⁶ Barker-Benfield, ed., *St Augustine’s Abbey, Canterbury*, 2: 1059–60, no. BA1.1050; 1: lxxx–lxxxii.

⁷ Gillespie, ed., *Syon Abbey*, pp. xxxix, lvii–lviii, 570; A. B. Emden, *Biographical Register of the University of Oxford [henceforth BRUO]*, 3 vols. (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1957–9), 1: 239–40; Marios Costambeys, “Bracebridge, John (fl. c.1420),” ODNB, <http://www.oxforddnb.com/view/article/3286>.

⁸ Gillespie, ed., *Syon Abbey*, pp. 53–5, no. SS1.145 ee, and pp. 584–5. The copy of the *Rhetoric* was probably extracts. On book donations to Syon Abbey, see also Vincent Gillespie, “The Mole in the Vineyard: Wyclif at Syon in the Fifteenth Century,” in Helen Barr and Ann M. Hutchison, eds., *Text and Controversy from Wyclif to Bale: Essays in Honour of Anne Hudson* (Turnhout: Brepols, 2005), pp. 131–62 (at p. 138).

⁹ P. Osmond Lewry, O.P., “Four Graduation Speeches from Oxford Manuscripts (c.1270–1310)”, *Mediaeval Studies* 44 (1982): 138–80 (at pp. 157–8, 168). The manuscript, Oxford, Bodleian Library MS Digby 55, also contains a set of *notabilia* covering some of book 1 of the *Rhetoric*. In these *notabilia* Lewry saw some parallels with Giles’ commentary on the *Rhetoric*, suggesting that the scribe had access to Parisian materials: see Lewry, “Rhetoric at Paris and Oxford,” 60, note 55.

¹⁰ Lacombe #1783; see AL 2: 1193.

¹¹ See, for example, Na’ama Cohen Hanegbi, *Caring for the Living Soul: Emotions, Medicine and Penance in the Late Medieval Mediterranean* (Leiden: Brill, 2017).

¹² Lacombe #1133. A Benedictine book, Admont Abbey, MS 676 (s.xiv; Lacombe #37) which contains the *Rhetoric*, appends at the end an extract from a “*De regimine principum*,” but this is from the work of the same name by Engelbert of Admont, abbot until shortly before his death in 1331. See this chapter, pp. 305–6.

¹³ Two rare instances are Klausterneuberg, Bibl. Monasterii, MS 748 (s. xiii–xiv, Lacombe #47), which contains *De regimine principum*, the *Magna moralia*, *De laudabilibus bonis*, and various short texts; and Konstanz, Universitätsbibliothek, MS H56/1 (s. xv¹), which has *De regimine principum*, *Ethics*, and *Rhetoric* (information from *Aristoteles latinus supplementa tertia*, <https://hiw.kuleuven.be/dwmc/al> <Selective Bibliography> Supplementa tertia draft version).

¹⁴ My information is based on del Punta and Luna, eds., *Aegidii Romani opera omnia* I.1/11, *Catalogo dei manoscritti, De regimine principum* (Città del Vaticano Italia); and Briggs, *Giles of Rome’s De regimine principum* (“Descriptive list of manuscripts of medieval English origin/provenance”), pp. 152–71; cf., Briggs, “Manuscripts of Giles of Rome’s *De regimine principum* in England 1300–1500.”

¹⁵ Briggs, *Giles of Rome’s De regimine principum*, p. 51.

¹⁶ Briggs, *Giles of Rome’s De regimine principum*, pp. 101–6, 180–7; see also Homer Pfander, “The Medieval Friars and Some Alphabetical Reference-Books for Sermons,” *Medium Aevum* 3 (1934): 19–29.

¹⁷ See Briggs, “Moral Philosophy in England after Grosseteste,” pp. 382–8.

¹⁸ R. M. Ball, “The Opponents of Bishop Pecok,” *Journal of Ecclesiastical History* 48 (1997): 230–62 (esp. 231–37). See also J. I. Catto, “Theology after Wycliffism,” in Catto and Evans, eds., *The History of the University of Oxford* 2: 263–80.

¹⁹ This is studied in depth by Sheila Lindenbaum, “London after Arundel: Learned Rectors and the Strategies of Orthodox Reform,” in Vincent Gillespie and Kantik Ghosh, eds., *After Arundel: Religious Writing in Fifteenth Century England* (Turnhout: Brepols, 2011), pp. 187–208.

²⁰ Ball, “The Opponents of Pecock,” 235; Emden, *BRUO* 1: 622–3.

²¹ William Page, ed., *A History of the County of London, Volume 1: London within the Bars, Westminster, and Southwark* (London: Victoria County History, 1909), pp. 578–80. Its charter of foundation provided that all of the chaplains should be well-educated in letters. On Whittington College, see Amy Appleford, *Learning to Die in London 1380–1540* (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2015), Chapter 2 (esp. pp. 71–6).

²² Reginald Lane Poole, with Mary Bateson, eds., *Index Britanniae scriptorum...John Bale's Index of British and Other Writers* (Oxford: Clarendon, 1902) [reissued with introduction by Caroline Brett and James P. Carley (Cambridge: D. S. Brewer, 1990)], p. 437. On praise of his and his eminent colleagues' preaching, see Lindenbaum, "London after Arundel," p. 192.

²³ James E. Thorold Rogers, ed., *Loci e Libro veritatum: Passages Selected from Gascoigne's Theological Dictionary Illustrating the Condition of Church and State, 1403–1458* (Oxford: Clarendon, 1881), p. 189.

²⁴ Ball, "The Opponents of Pecock," 235; Emden, *BRUO* 1: 622–3.

²⁵ Emden *BRUO* 1: 623 and 3: xxii. The latter is misattributed in the manuscript to Nicholas Trevet. On the St. John's manuscript, see Ralph Hanna, *A Descriptive Catalogue of the Western Medieval Manuscripts of St John's College, Oxford* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2002), pp. 200–1.

²⁶ Hanna, *A Descriptive Catalogue of St John's*, p. 201. The inscription seems to have been written after Eborall's death: "Liber quondam Magistri Thome Eyburhale datus Magistro Roberto Elyot Anno domini 1471 Ad terminum vite sic quod non vendatur sed post eius mortem detur alteri volenti predicare Orate igitur pro anima eius" (fol. 1v).

²⁷ George F. Warner and Julius P. Gilson, eds., *British Museum Catalogue of the Western Manuscripts in the Old Royal and King's Collections*, 4 vols. (London: Longmans, Green, 1921), 1: 107. John Pye was a London stationer who seems to have specialized in selling second-hand theological books: see C. P. Christianson, *A Directory of London Stationers and Book Artisans, 1300–1500* (New York: Bibliographical Society of America, 1990), pp. 145–8. On the "reticence" apparent in such a bequest, see Lindenbaum, "London after Arundel," p. 204, note 36.

²⁸ I am grateful to Sheila Lindenbaum for this identification.

²⁹ On this, see Briggs, *Giles of Rome's De regimine principum*, p. 161.

³⁰ Warner and Gilson, *British Museum Catalogue of the Western Manuscripts in the Old Royal and King's Collections*, 1: 105–7. The booklets bound together to comprise the volume contain different numbers of items (and multiple hands appear): article 1 (one booklet); articles 2 and 3 (one booklet); article 4; articles 5–8; article 9; articles 10–11; articles 12–15; article 16; articles 17–22 (containing some leaves of earlier items misbound); articles 23–6; article 27.

³¹ Jacqueline Hamesse, ed., *Les Auctoritates Aristotelis: Un florilège médiéval* (Louvain: Publications universitaires; Paris: B atrice-Nauwelaerts, 1974), pp. 17–43; see also Jacqueline Hamesse, "Johannes de Fonte, compilateur des 'Parvi flores.' Le t moignage de plusieurs manuscrits de la Biblioth que Vaticane," *Archivum Franciscanum Historicum*, 87 (1995): 515–31. Cf., London, British Library, MS Royal 8.A. xviii, an Oxford Cistercian volume of the fifteenth century, which contains a version of the *Auctoritates*: Antonia Fitzpatrick, "London, British Library Royal MS. 8 A. XVIII: A Unique Insight into the Career of a Cistercian Monk at the University of Oxford in the Early Fifteenth Century," *Electronic British Library Journal* (2010), <http://www.bl.uk/eblj/2010articles/article13.html>.

³² For the *Rhetoric* section in the Royal manuscript, cf., Hamesse, *Les Auctoritates Aristotelis*, pp. 263–8, with seventy-one *sententiae*.

³³ Royal 5.C.iii, fol. 49vb; cf., Hamesse, ed., *Auctoritates Aristotelis*, p. 266.

³⁴ It may be tempting to see the inclusion of the *Rhetoric* among those extracts chosen for MS Royal 5.C.iii as part of a larger response to the curricular broadening at Oxford where Eborall himself had studied: as noted above (see Chapter 4, p. 185, note 93), the 1431 statutes listed rhetoric as a subject and included Aristotle among the texts to be read. But it is more likely that the

momentum of the scholastic triad *Ethics*, *Politics*, *Rhetoric* determined the selection in Eborall's collection.

³⁵ There are extensive additions in the margins from half-way through to the end, fols. 31–7; Briggs, *Giles of Rome's De regimine principum*, pp. 121–7.

³⁶ Briggs, *Giles of Rome's De regimine principum*, p. 127. In one case, the marginal notes to *De regimine* also contain a reference to a related idea in the *Rhetoric*. The abbreviator includes [chapter 2.2.20](#), where Giles remarks that all people must have honest work in which they can take pleasure, since it is impossible to live without pleasure; this is especially important for women. In the margin, there is a reference to a missing chapter, 2.1.13, which is about seeking wives who are good of mind and heart. Along with this there is an intriguing note: “Et rhetorica” (fol. 33v). This seems to refer to Giles' own invocation at the start of 2.1.13 of *Rhetoric* 1.5 (1361a8–9) on the excellences of women in body, soul, and industry. This idea may be implicit in the passages of the *Auctoritates Aristotelis* following in the volume (fol. 49v col. A) that correspond (loosely) to [chapter 1.5](#) of the *Rhetoric*, though more likely it came from a reading of the complete *De regimine principum*.

³⁷ One text in the volume, the *Meditationes vitae Christi* extract, in an obviously different layout from all the others, suggests perhaps that this text was requested and sought out and that the same might be said of the other bound fascicules.

³⁸ Ball, “The Opponents of Pecock,” 234. The original sermon of 1447 does not survive, but there is an epitome printed in the edition of Pecock's *Repressor of Overmuch Blaming of the Clergy*, ed. Churchill Babington, 2 vols. (London: Longman, Green, Longman, and Roberts, 1860), 2: 615–19.

³⁹ See [Chapter 2](#), pp. 59–69.

⁴⁰ Nicolette Zeeman, “Pastoral Care by Debate: The Challenge of Lay Multiplicity,” *Journal of Medieval and Early Modern Studies* 48 (2018): 435–59 (at p. 437). Zeeman considers the “pastoral challenge” of multiple audiences in the context of debate and contest within pastoral poetry, especially *Piers Plowman*.

⁴¹ Gregory the Great, *Règle pastorale*, ed. and trans. Floribert Rommel and Charles Morel, Introduction and notes by Bruno Judic, 2 vols., *Sources chrétiennes* 381–2 (Paris: Éditions du Cerf, 1992), 2: 310.

⁴² See the overview in Carolyn Muessig, “Audience and Preacher: *Ad status* Sermons and Social Classification,” in Carolyn Muessig, ed., *Preacher, Sermon, and Audience in the Middle Ages*, (Leiden: Brill, 2002), pp. 255–76; Nicole Bériou, *L'avènement des maîtres de la Parole: La prédication à Paris au XIIIe siècle*, 2 vols. (Paris: Institut d'études augustinienes, 1998), 1: 293–383, “La société sous le regard des prédicateurs (1272–1273)”; G. R. Owst, *Preaching in Medieval England: An Introduction to Sermon Manuscripts of the Period c.1350–1450* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1926), pp. 247–65.

⁴³ See the discussions in [Chapter 5](#).

⁴⁴ The parable of the husbandmen, Matthew 21:33–43; Mark 12:1–9. See also Jacobus de Fusignano, *Libellus artis predicatorie*, ed. and trans. Siegfried Wenzel, *The Art of Preaching: Five Medieval Texts and Translations* (Washington, DC: The Catholic University of America Press, 2013), pp. 3–95 (at pp. 92–5).

⁴⁵ See [Chapter 3](#) for discussion.

⁴⁶ Humbert of Romans, *Treatise on Preaching*, trans. Dominican Students, Province of St. Joseph, ed. Walter M. Conlon (London: Blackfriars Publications, 1955), chapter 1, part 4, pp. 18–19. On the active dynamics of Dominican preaching, see Anne Holloway, “Performance Management: Creating Order in Thirteenth-Century Dominican Preaching,” in Cornelia Linde, ed., *Making and*

Breaking the Rules: Discussion, Implementation, and Consequences of Dominican Legislation (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2018), pp. 299–319.

⁴⁷ “quia similitudines rerum quasi quedam novitates facilius ut delectabilius movent animam”; Thomas of Chobham, *Summa de arte praedicandi*, ed. Franco Morenzoni, CCCM 52 (Turnhout: Brepols, 1988), p. 10.

⁴⁸ The teaching of *artes praedicandi* on structuring a sermon is conveniently summarized in Siegfried Wenzel, *Medieval Artes praedicandi: A Synthesis of Scholastic Sermon Structure* (Toronto: Medieval Academy of America and University of Toronto Press, 2015), pp. 45–86. See also Margaret Jennings, ed., *The Ars componendi sermones of Ranulph Higden, O.S.B.* (Leiden: Brill, 1991), pp. xxxv–xlix, 73–80.

⁴⁹ Robert of Basevorn, *Forma praedicandi*, ed. Th.-M. Charland, *Artes praedicandi. Contribution à l’histoire de la rhétorique au moyen âge* (Paris: Vrin; Ottawa: Institut d’études médiévales, 1936), p. 314; Higden, *Ars componendi sermones*, ed. Jennings, p. 69.

⁵⁰ George Englehardt, ed. and trans., “Richard of Thetford: A Treatise on the Eight Modes of Dilatation,” *Allegorica* 3 (1978): 77–160 (at pp. 92–3).

⁵¹ It is useful to note that authors of *artes praedicandi* often invoke the *Ethics*: see the indices in Charland, *Artes praedicandi* and Wenzel *Art of Preaching*.

⁵² There is no lack of rhetorical readings of sermons. Among attempts to bring Aristotelian rhetoric to bear on homilies, see Geoffrey D. Dunn, “Rhetoric in the Patristic Sermons of Late Antiquity,” *Preaching in the Patristic Era: Sermons, Preachers, and Audiences in the Latin West*, ed. Anthony Dupont et al. (Leiden: Brill, 2018), pp. 103–34.

⁵³ The manuscript is described and the contents printed by George B. Fowler, “Manuscript Admont 608 and Engelbert of Admont (c.1250–1331),” *Archives d’histoire doctrinale et littéraire du moyen âge* [part I] 44 (1977): 149–242; [part II] 45 (1978): 225–306; [part III] 49 (1982): 195–252; [part IV] 50 (1983): 195–222.

⁵⁴ On the copies of MS Admont 608, see Fowler, “Manuscript Admont 608,” part I, 158–61.

⁵⁵ On his education, see the summary in Karl Ubl, *Engelbert von Admont: Ein Gelehrter im Apannungsfeld von Aristotelismus und christlicher Überlieferung* (Vienna and Munich: R. Oldenbourg Verlag, 2000), pp. 12–16.

⁵⁶ E. Chiti, “Engelbertus Admontensis abbas,” *Compendium auctorum latinorum Medii Aevi 500–1500* (Florence: SISMELE—Edizioni del Galluzzo, 2009), 3.2: 220–4; George B. Fowler, “A Chronology of the Writings of Engelbert of Admont, O.S.B. (ca. 1250–1331),” in [H. G. Fletcher and M. B. Schulte, eds.] *Paradosis: Studies in Memory of Edwin A. Quain* (New York: Fordham University Press, 1976), pp. 121–34; George B. Fowler, *Intellectual Interests of Engelbert of Admont* (New York: Columbia University Press, 1947), esp. pp. 183–221.

⁵⁷ Fowler, “Manuscript Admont 608,” part I, 151; cf., Franz Josef Worstbrock, “Die Rhetorik des Aristoteles im Spätmittelalter. Elemente ihrer Rezeption,” in Knappe and Schirren, eds., *Aristotelische Rhetorik-Tradition*, pp. 164–96 (esp. pp. 185–90), and Briggs, “Aristotle’s *Rhetoric* in the Later Medieval Universities.”

⁵⁸ Karl Ubl, “Zur Entstehung der Fürstenspiegel Engelberts vom Admont (gest. 1331),” *Deutsches Archiv für Erforschung des Mittelalters* 55 (1999): 499–548 (at p. 515). Cf., Pieter de Leemans, “*Reductio ad auctoritatem*: The Medieval Reception of Pseudo-Aristotle’s *Epistola ad Alexandrum*,” *Recherches de théologie et philosophie médiévales* 84 (2017): 245–83 (at p. 250).

⁵⁹ Fowler, “Manuscript Admont 608,” part I, 152–61; Worstbrock, “Die Rhetorik des Aristoteles,” pp. 189–90.

⁶⁰ Jill Kraye, “Erasmus and the Canonization of Aristotle: The Letter to John More,” in Edward Chaney and Peter Mack, eds., *England and the Continental Renaissance: Essays in Honour of J. B. Trapp* (Woodbridge: The Boydell Press, 1990), pp. 37–52 (at p. 48); on the attribution to Anaximenes (as in the 1966 Teubner edition by Manfred Fuhrmann), see Pierre Chiron, “Pseudo-Aristote, *Rhétorique à Alexandre* (340–300^a),” in Richard Goulet, Jean-Marie Flamand, and Maroun Aouad, eds., *Dictionnaire des philosophes antiques. Supplément* (Paris: CNRS, 2003), pp. 554–74.

⁶¹ See de Leemans, “*Reductio ad auctoritatem*: The Medieval Reception of Pseudo-Aristotle’s *Epistola ad Alexandrum*,” 247–51, and the references there.

⁶² One of these, in Vatican, Biblioteca Apostolica, MS Vat. lat. 2995, was edited by Martin Grabmann (who attributed it to Moerbeke), *Eine lateinische Übersetzung der pseudo-aristotelischen Rhetorica ad Alexandrum aus dem 13. Jahrhundert* (Munich: Bayerischen Akademie der Wissenschaften, 1932 [*Sitzungsberichte der bayerischen Akademie der Wissenschaften, phil.-hist. Abt.* 1931/32.4]); the other, in Urbana, University of Illinois Rare Book and Manuscript Library, Pre-1650 MS 0008, was edited by Patricia Alice Stapleton, “A Latin Translation of the *Rhetorica ad Alexandrum* from the Thirteenth Century,” PhD thesis, University of Illinois, Urbana, 1977. The two anonymous translations have been dated by their editors to the thirteenth century.

⁶³ De Leemans, “*Reductio ad auctoritatem*,” 252–53; Hamesse, ed., *Auctoritates Aristotelis*, pp. 270–1.

⁶⁴ The original work can be found in Aristotle, *Problems; Rhetoric to Alexander*, ed. and trans. Robert Mayhew and David C. Mirhady (Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 2011).

⁶⁵ Fowler, “Manuscript Admont 608,” part I, 179. A preliminary edition of the *Epistola ad Alexandrum* prepared for the *Aristoteles Latinus* by Pieter de Leemans can be found in the online *Aristoteles Latinus Database*, AL XXXII.3 (Anonymous saec. <XIII translator Pseudo-Aristotelis> *Epistola ad Alexandrum*). De Leemans notes that the copy of the *Epistola* and opening lines of the *Rhetorica ad Alexandrum* in Admont 608 are a slightly reworked version of the Moerbeke translation (“*Reductio ad auctoritatem*,” 250).

⁶⁶ Fowler, “Manuscript Admont 608,” part I, 179. The last sentence does not correspond to any text of the *Rhetorica ad Alexandrum* as it was transmitted, although it echoes ideas in other parts of the *Conpendium Rethorice*.

⁶⁷ Worstbrock, “Die *Rhetoric* des Aristoteles im Spätmittelalter,” pp. 186–7; Ubl, “Zur Entstehung der Fürstenspiegel Engelberts vom Admont,” pp. 515–16; Manfred Fuhrmann, *Untersuchungen zur Textgeschichte der pseudo-aristotelischen Alexander-Rhetorik. Der Τέχνη des Anaximenes von Lampsakos* (Wiesbaden: Akademie der Wissenschaften und der Literatur, Franz Steiner Verlag, 1965), pp. 182–4.

⁶⁸ The rubrics—possibly in the hand of Engelbert—are also confusing, dividing the *Rhetoric* into four books, even though the material extends at best only through book 2. Parallels with most passages in the *Rhetoric* are noted by Worstbrock, “Die *Rhetoric* des Aristoteles im Spätmittelalter,” pp. 186–7.

⁶⁹ Fowler, “Manuscript Admont 608,” part I, 181, under the rubric *De elementis commendationis*.

⁷⁰ Cf., Worstbrock, “Die *Rhetorik* des Aristoteles,” p. 187. It is worth noting that the complete *Rhetorica ad Alexandrum* (which most medieval readers, including the compendia of Admont 608, seem not to have had available), does deploy much of the technical terminology found in Aristotle’s *Rhetoric*, although often with different applications or definitions.

⁷¹ Fowler, “Manuscript Admont 608,” part I, 181–2.

⁷² Fowler, “Manuscript Admont 608,” part I, 182. On this aspect of the compendium and its relationship with Engelbert of Admont’s political writings, see Worstbrock, “Die *Rhetorik* des Aristoteles,” pp. 187–9.

⁷³ Fowler, “Manuscript Admont 608,” part I, 182–3.

⁷⁴ Fowler, “Manuscript Admont 608,” part I, 189–90.

⁷⁵ Fowler, “Manuscript Admont 608,” part I, 181–3, 184–90.

⁷⁶ Fowler, “Manuscript Admont 608,” part I, 184–5.

⁷⁷ See Dow, *Passions and Persuasion in Aristotle’s Rhetoric*, pp. 146–55.

⁷⁸ Fowler, “Manuscript Admont 608,” part I, 186.

⁷⁹ Engelbert of Admont, *De ortu et fine romani imperii*, ed. Herbert Schneider, MGH, Staatsschriften des späteren Mittelalters 1/3 (Wiesbaden: Harrassowitz, 2016): 147, line 14; cf., 151, line 3 and note; on the emotions, see 132, lines 7–8 and note.

⁸⁰ Engelbert of Admont, *De regimine principum*, ed. Johannes G.T. Huffnagl (Regensburg: Johannes Conradus Peezius, 1725), proemium, pp. 3–6. There is not yet a modern critical edition of this work.

⁸¹ Peter von Moos, “Du miroir des princes au *Cortegiano*. Engelbert d’Admont (1250–1331) sur les agréments de la convivialité et de la conversation,” in Marie Anne Polo de Beaulieu, ed., *Formes dialoguées dans la littérature exemplaire du moyen âge* (Paris: Champion, 2012), pp. 103–60.

⁸² Bengt Strömberg, *Magister Mathias och Fransk Mendikantpredikan* (Stockholm: Svenska Kyrkans Diakonistyrelses Bokförlag, 1944), p. 180, puts his year of birth at about 1281. Others put the date toward or around 1300: see “*Poetria och Testa nucis* av Magister Matthias Lincopensis,” ed. Stanislaw Sawicki, *Sammlaren: Tidskrift för Svensk Litteraturhistorisk Forskning*, n.s. 17 (1936): 109–52 (at 126); Gottfried Carlsson, “Mäster Mattias från Linköping. Ett bidrag till hans biografi,” *Sammlaren: Tidskrift för Svensk Litteraturhistorisk Forskning*, n.s. 29 (1948): 1–9 (at 6).

⁸³ Carlsson, “Mäster Mattias,” 1–6 (for the documents of 1343, see 2–4).

⁸⁴ Summarized in *Magister Mathias Lincopensis. Expositio super Apocalypsim*, ed. Ann-Marie Billing-Ottosson (Uppsala: Svenska Fornskrift-Sällskapet ser. II, Latinska skrifter, IX-3, 2003), p. 11; Strömberg, *Magister Mathias*, p. 180.

⁸⁵ *Magister Mathias Lincopensis. Testa nucis and Poetria*, ed. and trans. Birger Bergh (Uppsala: Svenska Fornskrift-Sällskapet ser. II, Latinska skrifter, IX-2, 1996). This has superseded the edition by Sawicki (see note 82 above).

⁸⁶ Henry Ansgar Kelly, “Aristotle-Averroes-Alemannus on Tragedy: The Influence of the ‘Poetics’ on the Latin Middle Ages,” *Viator* 10 (1979): 161–209 (at 181–6); Kelly, *Arts of Poetry and Prose*, pp. 38, 42–3, 56, 68, 107, 116; Alastair Minnis, “Acculturizing Aristotle: Matthew of Linköping’s *Translatio* of Poetic Representation,” *Zeitschrift für deutsche Philologie* 124 (2005): 238–59; Päivi Mehtonen, “Essential Art: Matthew of Linköping’s Fourteenth-Century Poetics,” *Rhetorica* 25 (2007): 125–39; Martin Camargo, “A Good Idea, in Theory: Why Mathias of Linköping’s *Poetria* Fell Short in Practice,” *Rhetorica* 35 (2017): 239–58.

⁸⁷ Noted by Camargo, “A Good Idea, in Theory,” p. 250, note 40.

⁸⁸ As demonstrated by Strömberg, *Magister Mathias*; see the summary, pp. 182–3.

⁸⁹ “*Mathie canonici Lincopensis Alphabeti distincionum sive Concordanciarum fragmenta selecta*,” ed. Anders Piltz, in Monika Asztalos and Claes Gejrot, eds., *Symbolae septentrionales: Latin Studies Presented to Jan Öberg* (Stockholm: Sällskapet runica et mediævalia, 1995), pp. 137–71; *Magister Matthias. Copia exemplorum*, ed. Lars Wåhlin (Uppsala: Universit t Uppsala, Institut

für Klassische Philologie, 1990); *Magister Mathias. Homo Conditus*, ed. Anders Piltz (Uppsala: Svenska Fornskrift-Sällskapet ser. II, Latinska skrifter, IX-I, 1984); *Expositio super Apocalypsim*, ed. Billing-Ottosson, pp. 14–15. On the formal theological writings, see Anders Piltz, “Magister Mathias of Sweden in his Theological Context: A Preliminary Survey,” in Monkia Asztalos, ed., *The Editing of Theological and Philosophical Texts from the Middle Ages* (Stockholm: Almqvist & Wiksell International, 1986), pp. 137–60.

⁹⁰ *Sancta Birgitta Revelaciones Lib. I cum prologo Magistri Mathie*, ed. Carl-Gustaf Undhagen (Stockholm: Almqvist & Wiksell International, 1977), p. 9. On his influence on Birgitta during that period, see Claire L. Sahlin, “Submission, Role Reversals, and Partnerships: Birgitta and her Clerical Associates,” *Birgittiana* 3 (1997): 9–41 (esp. p. 15) and references there.

⁹¹ *Sancta Birgitta Revelaciones I*, ed. Undhagen, p. 43; Isak Collijn, ed., *Acta et processus canonizacionis beate Birgitte* (Uppsala: Svenska Fornskrift-Sällskapet, ser. II, Latinska skrifter, I, 1924–31), p. 81.

⁹² *Sancta Birgitta Revelaciones I*, ed. Undhagen, pp. 11–13, 38–9.

⁹³ Image in Strömberg, *Magister Mathias*, p. 26.

⁹⁴ *Sancta Birgitta Revelaciones I*, ed. Undhagen, pp. 44–5, 47.

⁹⁵ Such a collection is exemplified in Saint-Omer, Bibliothèque municipale, MS 598 (AL #426), copied around 1300, and containing the *Politics*, *Magna moralia*, *Rhetoric*, the *Averroistic Poetics*, *Problemata*, *Economics*, *sententiae* on *De animalibus*, and the *Ethics* in several recensions.

⁹⁶ The numbers refer to the short section divisions in the edition by Bergh; translations are based on Bergh’s.

⁹⁷ There are also allusions to discussions in extant parts of the *Testa nucis*: distinguishing poetry from rhetoric, which uses enthymemes (*Poetria* §34); and the *circumstantiae* (*Poetria* §74).

⁹⁸ *Testa nucis*, ed. and trans. Bergh, pp. 34–6.

⁹⁹ The manuscript is corrupt at this point; the meaning of the clauses “et sub arte eadem (nisi [syllogismus persuasionis] inartificialis est)” is obscured by a lacuna. The bracketed terms “[syllogismus persuasionis]” are Bergh’s hypothesis for the lacuna. My understanding of “sub arte eadem” differs from Bergh’s and I have modified his translation.

¹⁰⁰ Strömberg, *Magister Mathias*, p. 183, notes that the two Dominican sources for *Copia exemplorum*, the *Tabula exemplorum* and the *Alphabetum narrationem*, were available in Paris by 1304 and 1308, respectively.

¹⁰¹ Collijn, ed., *Acta et processus canonizacionis beate Birgitte*, p. 81; for other sources of this, see *Sancta Birgitta Revelaciones I*, ed. Undhagen, p. 44, note 38.

¹⁰² *Sancta Birgitta Revelaciones I*, ed. Undhagen, Prologus Magistri Mathie §32 (p. 237).

¹⁰³ See Undhagen’s note, p. 237: “Inicium huius revelacionis” should be taken as “this first revelation.”

¹⁰⁴ *Sancta Birgitta Revelaciones I*, ed. Undhagen, Prologus Magistri Mathie §1 (p. 229). On the comparison of Moses and Elijah, cf., Gregory the Great, *Moralia in Job* 5, pp. 65–6.

¹⁰⁵ *Sancta Birgitta Revelaciones I*, ed. Undhagen, Prologus Magistri Mathie, §§20–3 (pp. 234–5).

¹⁰⁶ Piltz, “Magister Mathias of Sweden in his Theological Context,” p. 138; Roger Ellis, “Text and Controversy: In Defence of St. Birgitta of Sweden,” in Barr and Hutchison, eds., *Text and Controversy from Wyclif to Bale*, pp. 303–21 (at pp. 312–13); Sahlin, “Submission, Role Reversals, and Partnerships,” 24–5.

¹⁰⁷ *Sancta Birgitta Revelaciones I*, ed. Undhagen, Prologus Magistri Mathie, §17 (p. 234).

¹⁰⁸ Sorabji, *Emotion and Peace of Mind*, pp. 357–71; Morton Bloomfield, *The Seven Deadly Sins: An Introduction to the History of a Religious Concept, with Special Reference to Medieval English Literature* (East Lansing: Michigan State University Press, 1952), pp. 43–75. See also this volume, Chapter 4, pp. 173–4, 195–6.

¹⁰⁹ *Fasciculus morum: A Fourteenth-Century Preacher's Handbook*, ed. and trans. Siegfried Wenzel (University Park: Pennsylvania State University Press, 1989), pp. 116–47, 148–55.

¹¹⁰ *Summa virtutum de remediis anime*, ed. and trans. Siegfried Wenzel (Athens: University of Georgia Press, 1984), p. 154.

¹¹¹ *Épître d'Othéa*, ed. Gabriella Parussa (Geneva: Droz, 1999): #17, anger; #18, envy; #54 ingratitude; #82 cold-heartedness (equivalent to unkindliness). See also Richard H. Rouse and Mary A. Rouse, *Preachers, Florilegia, and Sermons: Studies on the Manipulus florum of Thomas of Ireland* (Toronto: Pontifical Institute of Mediaeval Studies, 1979), pp. 213–14; P. G. C. Campbell, *L'Épître d'Othéa. Étude sur les sources de Christine de Pisan* (Paris: Champion, 1924), pp. 160–8. See also the appendix listing sources in Christine de Pisan, *Othea's Letter to Hector*, ed. and trans. Renate Blumenfeld-Kosinski and Early Jeffrey Richards (Toronto: Iter, 2017), pp. 131–54.

¹¹² Rouse and Rouse, *Preachers, Florilegia, and Sermons*, p. 215.

¹¹³ Siegfried Wenzel, *Verses in Sermons: Fasciculus morum and its Middle English Poems* (Cambridge, MA: The Mediaeval Academy of America, 1978), pp. 50–9. See also *La Somme le roi par frère Laurent*, eds. Édith Brayer and Anne-Françoise Leurquin-Labie (Paris: SATF, 2008), pp. 46–8.

¹¹⁴ See Christina von Nolcken, “Some Alphabetical Compendia and How Preachers Used Them in Fourteenth-Century England,” *Viator* 12 (1981): 271–88, which prints a useful example of such a *distinctio* from the Middle English version of the *Rosarium theologie* under the topic *ieiunium* (pp. 285–8). See further, Rouse and Rouse, *Preachers, Florilegia, and Sermons*, pp. 188–29.

¹¹⁵ See H. L. Spencer, *English Preaching in the Late Middle Ages* (Oxford: Clarendon, 1993), pp. 91–108; Mary E. O'Carroll, SND, *A Thirteenth-Century Preacher's Handbook: Studies in MS Laud Misc. 511* (Toronto: Pontifical Institute of Mediaeval Studies, 1997), pp. 156–61. See also Bériou's study of the professional activity of one Parisian preacher, Raoul de Châteauroux, over the course of one year, as documented in the sermons conserved in two Paris manuscripts: *L'avènement des maîtres de la Parole*: 1: 215–91, “Une année de prédication à Paris (1272–1273).” On performative dimensions of preaching among the Dominicans, see also Holloway, “Performance Management,” esp. pp. 313–19.

¹¹⁶ See, for example, Wenzel, *Verses in Sermons*, pp. 128–32 (passion lyric, “Þe minde of þi passiun, suete ihesu / þe teres it tollid / þe heine it bolled / þe neb it wetth / þe herte sueteth,” Carleton Brown, ed., *English Lyrics of the Thirteenth Century* (Oxford: Clarendon, 1932), no. 56), pp. 187–8 (regret), and pp. 197–9 (*memento mori*). For the notion of “scripting” such emotions to foster a pious disposition, see McNamer, *Affective Meditation and the Invention of Medieval Compassion*, chapter 4.

¹¹⁷ See Rita Copeland, “Richard Rolle and the Rhetorical Theory of the Levels of Style,” in Marion Glasscoe, ed., *The Medieval Mystical Tradition in England* (Cambridge: D. S. Brewer, 1984), pp. 55–80.

¹¹⁸ See the description and dating of the hands in R. M. Thomson, *A Descriptive Catalogue of the Medieval Manuscripts in the Library of Peterhouse* (Cambridge: D. S. Brewer for Peterhouse, Cambridge, 2016), pp. 32–3; cf., Lacombe and Minuo-Paluello, AL 1, #249 and M. R. James, *A Descriptive Catalogue of the Manuscripts in the Library of Peterhouse* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1899), pp. 76–7.

¹¹⁹ A. B. Emden, *A Biographical Register of the University of Cambridge to 1500* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1963), p. 64; E. R. Chapman, ed., *Sacrist Rolls of Ely*, 2 vols. (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1907), 2: 8.

¹²⁰ Peterhouse MS 82, noted in the Peterhouse Library catalogue of 1418. See James, *Descriptive Catalogue*, pp. 14 (table for the “Old Catalogue” of 1418, no. 196) and 99. A fifteenth-century collection of *notabilia*, Peterhouse MS 208, which contains notes on the *Rhetoric* and Giles’ commentary, was recorded in the Thomas James catalogue of 1600 but not in the earlier catalogue of 1418; see James, *Descriptive Catalogue*, pp. xi (table of the 1697 and 1600 Peterhouse Library catalogues, as no. 33 in the Thomas James catalogue), and 249–50.

¹²¹ Lindenbaum, “London after Arundel: Learned Rectors and the Strategies of Orthodox Reform,” and see above in this chapter, pp. 292–3.

¹²² See Chapter 5, pp. 211–13. I give both the old and the new foliation of the manuscript.

¹²³ The phrase is used, for example, by the Franciscan William Butler to buttress the case against lay reading of vernacular Scripture. See Margaret Deanesly, *The Lollard Bible and Other Medieval Biblical Versions* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1920), p. 406.

¹²⁴ Similar mining of the *Rhetoric* for homiletic maxims is found in Lincoln, Cathedral Chapter Library, MS 234 (English, late fourteenth century), a compilation of sermons and sermon materials probably bound together at some later point; see R. M. Thomson, *Catalogue of the Manuscripts of Lincoln Cathedral Chapter Library* (Cambridge: D. S. Brewer, 1989), pp. 193–4. One section contains miscellaneous homiletic materials, including (fols. 163–7) notes toward a sermon on the commandment “honor thy father and thy mother.” The writer cites many sources, including English verses from the *Fasciculus morum*, the pseudo-Boethian *De disciplina scholarium*, and Seneca. At fol. 166r there is a paraphrase from *Rhetoric*, book 1 (topics for epideictic rhetoric) on who is to be honored (“those who have conferred benefits, for that is just”) [1367a5]: “dicit aristoteles p^o retorice. illi maxime iuste honorandi sunt qui beneficia parant...et parentes maxime dant filiis beneficia.” Here the interest lies not with Aristotle’s discussion of epideictic topics but with a commonplace on honoring parents that the preacher can use as a moral maxim.

¹²⁵ Robert of Basevorn, *Forma praedicandi*, in Charland, *Artes praedicandi*, p. 282; see also Thomas Waleys, *De modo componendi sermones*, in Charland, p. 357. See Franco Morenzoni, “Les proverbes dans la prédication du XIIIe siècle,” in Hugo O. Bizzarri and Martin Rohde, eds., *Tradition des proverbes et des exempla dans l’Occident médiéval/Die Tradition der Sprichwörter und exempla im Mittelalter: Colloque fribourgeois 2007/Freiburger Colloquium 2007* (Berlin: de Gruyter, 2009), pp. 131–49; Claude Buridant, “Les proverbes et la prédication au moyen âge: De l’utilisation des proverbes vulgaires dans les sermons,” in François Suard and Claude Buridant, eds., *Richesse du proverbe*, 2 vols. (Lille: Université de Lille III, 1984), 1: 23–54.

¹²⁶ On favorable attitudes of the Greeks toward farmers, see Kenneth Dover, *Greek Popular Morality in the Time of Plato and Aristotle* (Oxford: Blackwell, 1974), pp. 40, 110, 113–14, 173, 225, 277; see also Stephen Halliwell, “Popular Morality, Philosophical Ethics, and the Rhetoric,” in Furlley and Nehamas, eds., *Aristotle’s Rhetoric*, pp. 211–30.

¹²⁷ The same couplet is written out again at the bottom right margin of the page. In 2003, I called this verse to the attention of Linne Mooney, who added it to her online *Index of Middle English Verse*, <http://www.dimev.net/record.php?recID=4025>. It has since also been transcribed by Thomson, *Descriptive Catalogue of Peterhouse*, p. 33.

¹²⁸ As a vernacular poetic gloss on a learned text, calling upon a range of connections to elucidate the philosophical point, this is not unique. See, for example, Ralph Hanna, “Jolly Jankin Meets Aristotle,” *Journal of the Early Book Society* 11 (2008): 223–9.

¹²⁹ For examples of the “life” and “strife” rhyme, see the *Corpus of Middle English Prose and Verse*, <https://quod.lib.umich.edu/cgi/t/text/text-idx?page=proximity&c=cme>. Many of these rhymes can be found in *Cursor mundi*; some are also found in *Pricke of Conscience*.

¹³⁰ Ralph Hanna, *Pursuing History: Middle English Manuscripts and Their Texts* (Stanford: Stanford University Press, 1996), p. 240.

¹³¹ Henry Knighton, *Knighton's Chronicle, 1337–1396*, ed. and trans. G. H. Martin (Oxford: Clarendon, 1995), p. 222 (Jack Carter's mention of “Peres the Plowman”); Thomas Walsingham, *Historia Anglicana*, ed. H. T. Riley, 2 vols. (London: Longman, Green, Longman, Roberts, and Green, 1864), 2: 33–4 (John Ball's mention of “Peres Ploughman”).

¹³² The boldest case for Ball's reference to the poem itself is made by Steven Justice, *Writing and Rebellion: England in 1381* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1994), pp. 102–39; see also Anne Hudson, “The Legacy of *Piers Plowman*,” in John A. Alford, ed., *A Companion to Piers Plowman* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1988), pp. 251–66 (at pp. 251–2).

¹³³ Lawrence Warner suggests that the figure “Piers Plowman” is so much part of scriptural and folkloric fabric that Langland and John Ball are both invoking a common cultural referent: “Plowman Traditions in Late Medieval and Early Modern Writing,” in Andrew Cole and Andrew Galloway, eds., *The Cambridge Companion to Piers Plowman* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2014), pp. 198–213. Cf., Lawrence Warner, “Chaucer's Non-Debt to Langland,” *YLS* 32 (2018): 351–72; Edward Wheatley, “A Selfless Ploughman and the Christ/Piers Conjunction in Langland's *Piers Plowman*,” *Notes and Queries*, n.s. 40 (1993): 135–42.

¹³⁴ Three names of clerics who are known to have been owners come down to us. On William Palmer, a London rector without university connections who died in 1400, see Robert A. Wood, “A Fourteenth-Century London Owner of *Piers Plowman*,” *Medium Aevum* 53 (1984): 83–90; Marie-Hélène Rousseau, *Saving the Souls of Medieval London: Perpetual Chantries at St Paul's Cathedral, c.1200–1548* (Farnham: Ashgate, 2011), p. 116. On Walter de Bruge, a canon of York Minster who bequeathed a copy of the poem in 1396, and on John Wyndhill, a Yorkshire rector who bequeathed a copy in 1431, see Anne Middleton, “The Audience and Public of *Piers Plowman*,” in David Lawton, ed., *Middle English Alliterative Poetry and its Background: Seven Essays* (Cambridge: D. S. Brewer, 1982), pp. 101–54 (at pp. 103 and 147–8). A copy was also owned by the Austin Friars. On these known clerical owners, see Kathryn Kerby-Fulton, *The Clerical Proletariat and the Resurgence of Medieval English Poetry* (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2021), chapter 6. On manuscripts of the work that seem (from their plain execution and their didactic contents) to have circulated among the lower clergy, see John Burrow, “The Audience of *Piers Plowman*,” *Anglia* 75 (1957): 373–84; Middleton, “Audience and Public,” p. 104; and Kerby-Fulton, *The Clerical Proletariat*, who notes that vicars, choral, and cathedral chantry scholars represent a segment of the audience for *Piers Plowman*.

¹³⁵ For example, John 15:1, 20:15; 1 Corinthians 9:10; cf., Wenzel, ed., *Fasciculus morum*, pp. 548–9.

¹³⁶ A. V. C. Schmidt, ed., *William Langland: The Vision of Piers Plowman. A Critical Edition of the B-Text*, 2nd ed. (London: J. M. Dent, 1995). On this line, see James Simpson, “Religious Forms and Institutions in *Piers Plowman*,” in Cole and Galloway, eds., *A Companion to Piers Plowman*, pp. 97–114 (at p. 107).

¹³⁷ On weeping in and across the poem, see Stephanie Trigg, “Langland's Tears: Poetry, Emotion, and Mouvançe,” *YLS* 26 (2012): 27–48.

¹³⁸ Nicolette Zeeman, *Piers Plowman and the Medieval Discourse of Desire* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2006), chapter 2, “Powers of Knowledge and Desire,” esp. pp. 85–9, 100–8, and Zeeman, “Pastoral Care by Debate,” pp. 440–1, 447–55.

¹³⁹ Katharine Breen, *Imagining an English Reading Public, 1150–1400* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2010), pp. 209–21.

¹⁴⁰ These building blocks have been well documented. See G. R. Owst, *Literature and Pulpit in Medieval England*, 2nd ed. (Oxford: Blackwell, 1966), pp. 210–470; cf., Siegfried Wenzel, “Medieval Sermons,” in Alford, ed., *A Companion to Piers Plowman*, pp. 155–72; Ralph Hanna, *The Penn Commentary on Piers Plowman, Volume 2* (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2017), pp. 48–72.

¹⁴¹ Alan J. Fletcher, “The Essential (Ephemeral) William Langland: Textual Revision as Ethical Process in *Piers Plowman*,” *YLS* 15 (2001): 61–98 (at pp. 75–6).

¹⁴² Alan J. Fletcher, “The Lyric in the Sermon,” in Thomas G. Duncan, ed., *Companion to the Middle English Lyric* (Cambridge: Boydell and Brewer, 2005), pp. 189–209 (at p. 189).

¹⁴³ On alliterative phrasing in English sermons possibly of Lollard provenance, see Shannon Gayk, “‘As Plou3men han Preued’: The Alliterative Work of a Set of Lollard Sermons,” *YLS* 20 (2006): 43–65; on macaronic phrasing, see Alan J. Fletcher, “‘Benedictus qui venit in nomine Domini’: A Thirteenth-Century Sermon for Advent and the Macaronic Style in England,” *Mediaeval Studies* 56 (1994): 217–45; Patrick J. Horner, ed., *A Macaronic Sermon Collection from Late Medieval England* (Toronto: PIMS, 2006), and further references there.

Epilogue

Mixed Rhetorics

Emotional reasoning is essential to rhetorical proof. As I have shown throughout this book, rhetoric does not always theorize emotion as a part of proof, nor does it always articulate the ethics of emotion as a value shared between writer (or speaker) and audience. The most familiar, practical systems of rhetoric in the High Middle Ages did not develop an explicit theory of emotion, although they associated the production of emotion with the power of literary style. The link between an affective style and an ethics of response shared by writer and audience (teacher and student, speaker and hearer), witnessed in early monastic and spiritual rhetoric, attenuated over the centuries in favor of professional, pragmatic rhetorics that gave prominence in their teaching to stylistic virtuosity. The long Western Middle Ages had to reinvent the rhetorical wheel of emotion out of a truncated Ciceronian inheritance that did not include a strong theoretical discourse, and teachers of rhetoric turned to verbal style as the most obvious and attractive resource. Aristotle's *Rhetoric*, for those who came under its broad influence, offered a new way to articulate the role of emotional appeal, presenting emotion as a form of proof. As we have seen, the *Rhetoric* was absorbed by learned preachers, a few of whom record their encounters with its theory; and it was mediated to vernacular poets mainly through the critical channel of Giles of Rome's political theory, affording a template for enthymematic poetic argument. The *Rhetoric* provided, not a new practice, but a new descriptive system to explain the fundamental role of emotion.

But the reception of Aristotelian rhetoric was gradual and often partial. It did not overthrow established rhetorical theory; it did not displace the school rhetorics that foregrounded stylistic facility as the main source of emotional appeal. Indeed, we might characterize much late medieval rhetorical thought and practice as hybrid, balancing—sometimes nervously

—between older systems that were learned consciously and theoretical models that were absorbed through later cultural influences. At times we might see a struggle between old and new rhetorical language to recover an authenticity of emotional persuasion that seemed to be lost in the professional machinery of the *ars poetriae*, *ars dictaminis*, and *ars praedicandi*. Here, as a coda, I consider some later medieval experiments with the rhetorical vocabulary of emotion before looking forward to the canonical expansions and more synthetic directions of early renaissance rhetoric.

* * *

A profound example of the struggle to recapture the ethical authenticity of emotional expression is the *Rethorica nova* by the Catalan polymath Ramon Llull. This work was finished, according to the colophon, in 1301, and translated into Latin in 1303. Even though the work was produced a few decades after the appearance of Moerbeke's translation of the *Rhetoric* and Giles of Rome's commentary and his *De regimine principum*, there is no clear connection between his rhetoric and the then new Aristotelian theory, and I do not treat the *Rethorica nova* here in light of Aristotelian thought. In the broadest terms we might consider that Llull was moved to produce his own version of a rhetoric based on emotion in the wake of Aristotelian reevaluations of emotional expression. Given Llull's vast and eclectic reading, his considerable travels and contacts with preachers, academics, and political leaders, and his access to some well-equipped libraries, it is likely that he encountered at least *De regimine principum*, the original text or one of its early translations. But Llull scholars point out that, while he often appeals to tradition writ large and recombines available ideas, he rarely cites authorities for his arguments apart from his own intricate system of *rationes necessariae*.¹ Moreover, his work can legitimately be seen as a reaction against the professional philosophical schools of his day, and thus it goes against the grain of his thinking to identify specific scholastic strains in his thought.² As Llull's influences are not definitively traceable, we must find other ways to position the work in relation to the traditions that informed it. What is remarkable about the *Rethorica nova* is the way that it ventures to find a language for anchoring rhetoric to emotion.

Llull's *Rethorica nova*, his most concentrated treatment of communication, registers a picture of emotional persuasion under the most extreme interpretation of Ciceronian rhetoric. The treatise is very far from its contemporary standard of rhetorical thought: it is brilliantly idiosyncratic, referring to a network of principles in Llull's own symbolic, dialectical, exegetical, and mnemonic system.³ But where it is in dialogue with an established rhetorical program, that is the Ciceronian system, which is what Llull most likely would have absorbed and which has left its marks on the theory of communication that he develops in *Rethorica nova* and elsewhere. The *Rethorica nova* divides rhetoric into four parts, "order," "beauty," "knowledge," and "love."⁴ These do not correspond in any predictable way with the five canons of Ciceronian rhetoric, but he incorporates the thought patterns behind the canons into the larger tissue of his own restructuring of rhetoric.⁵ "Order" is based on the form, matter, and end of speech, derived from the nature of words themselves (essential forms, accidental forms), their referents, and the ranking of the things they stand for. The second division, "Beauty" (*pulchritudo*), is not strictly an analysis of stylistic principles, but rather of the virtues that lend beauty to words. The third division of his rhetoric, "Knowledge" (*scientia*), would seem to want to correspond with invention, but its purposes derive from Llullian terms of knowing the forms of rightness that issue from God's wisdom, forms that nevertheless can relate to rhetorical virtues. All of these notions are supported by understanding (on Llull's particular terms) the ontology of speech itself as a sixth sense, *affatus*, that exists in the mind, the mouth, and the ears, and that constitutes the voice of mental discourse.⁶

The last division is "Love" (*caritas*). Although this element occupies its own section in the treatise, *caritas* as a virtue or power underscores the whole of Llull's theory of persuasion. The very term used, *caritas*, recalls Augustine rather than Giles of Rome or the Aquinas of the treatise on the passions in the *Summa*, who both treat love in human terms as *amor*. *Caritas* as eternal virtue adorns and beautifies speech, it directs the will, and is the virtue that subsists beneath all successful speaking. Love as a virtue, as both a moral quality and a Christological value, is the overarching theme here, and, as some would say, throughout Llull's philosophy: *agentia* is *amantia*, God's absolute power is absolute love.⁷ Love as a virtue (*caritas*) is not to be confused with love (*amor*) as an ordinary emotion. But what is extraordinary about Llull's exposition of *caritas* is how he embodies

that virtue in the social behaviors of emotional bonds: friendship, compassion, kindness, and benevolence.

This is the function of the ten *exempla* that occupy almost the whole of the exposition of *caritas* in part 4 of *Rethorica nova*. Each *exemplum* is preceded by a proverb about the supreme power of love which the *exemplum* then illustrates, suggesting how Llull imagined these being deployed in preaching. Preaching (like all discourse) should participate in *caritas*, as “speaking in *caritate* beautifies speech” (4.0).⁸ Each proverb and *exemplum* is accompanied by a *moralitas* showing the situations in which such speech is useful: when seeking mercy for mistakes, when seeking favors, when offering consolation. Like biblical *exempla*, these are homespun, centering on familiar and often domestic situations: a loving wife who, although abused by her jealous husband, never succumbs to the temptation of adultery; a kindly mother whose love reforms an arrogant son; a wrathful knight who learns to spare his squire a beating. In other words, *caritas* as transcendent principle is best understood, rhetorically, through the social behaviors that are linked with ordinary human emotional experience. An excellent example of this is *exemplum* 6, which begins with the proverb: “*Caritas loquentis est materia auditoris ad amorem utriusque*” (A speaker’s love [*caritas*] is for the listener the ground [*materia*] of their love [*amor*] for each other). In the word choices (*caritas*, *amor*) we see the intended slippage from love as eternal virtue to love between friends. The *exemplum* tells of a man about to go on pilgrimage who entrusted to his comrade a chest of gold coins and precious goods, saying this proverb in the act of handing over his treasure to the friend’s care. While the owner was away, a fire broke out in the caretaker’s house. The caretaker, remembering the words by which his friend entrusted the treasure to his care, ran into the house and saved the friend’s chest first; but by that time the fire had destroyed his own property. “Thus he demonstrated the faithfulness prompted by love (*caritas*) of his comrade, because he cared more for the property of his friend (*amicus*) than for his own.”⁹ Friendship (*amor*) is the enactment and experience, at the human level, of the guiding principle of *caritas*, and at that level it achieves its persuasive value. The *exempla* are emotionally strategic.

Llull’s rhetoric is unconventional, indeed radical. Yet it is also a response to traditional medieval Ciceronianism. Rather than foregrounding technical virtuosity, as in the *artes poetriae* and the *artes dictaminis*, it

seeks to anchor beautiful speech to a communion of feeling that is at once Christological (we all share God's love) and social (we should act upon kindness and feelings of friendship). Llull's recasting of rhetoric to seek out its inner ethical import is as radical as Augustine's reevaluation of *sublimitas* as an aesthetic property that affects speaker and audience alike, holding them together in the same ethical bond. He represents a strong look back to the late antique paradigm, which we saw in Augustine, Macrobius, and Cassiodorus, that links style with ethics, where cultivating love of the text (Scripture, Virgil) means also affirming one's own moral and spiritual being. In this respect, Llull's *Rethorica nova* is not eccentric to the rhetorical tradition, but a return to the outlook of the patristic period and the vigorous ethical claims made for style in Christian and literary rhetoric. Llull attempts to fashion an emotional vocabulary for rhetoric beyond style, to anchor rhetoric in an ethics that can be the basis for emotional knowledge. For Llull, as for Augustine and Cassiodorus, style that triggers emotion embodies a truth beneath the surface.

* * *

Llull as theorist struggles to find an absolute language for emotional authenticity, looking beyond the Ciceronian tradition but not to Aristotelian rhetoric. Certain literary practices, however, can give us a more hybrid picture of rhetorical influences. Here we would encounter a mixed rhetoric, carrying both a standard schools approach to form in terms of genre, structure, and style, and an ethical-emotional dimension of argument that is indebted to the assumptions of Aristotelian rhetoric. The *Rhetoric* never became a system to be consciously learned through pedagogical exercise and practice, nor would it supplant the long-engrained Ciceronian notion of the orator as a master of *artificiosa eloquentia*, moving audiences through verbal facility and compositional ingenuity. But the teaching on emotion as a form of reasoning and as a political value that the *Rhetoric* offers could be absorbed culturally through the popular *De regimine principum*. This understanding of emotion could be deployed as supplement to the "master" systems of the *artes poetriae* or Ciceronian *artificiosa eloquentia* without the writer necessarily recognizing that it represents a different strain of rhetorical thought. The texts considered in [Chapter 6](#), Dante's *Convivio* tractate 4, Theseus' "First Mover" speech in Chaucer's *Knight's Tale*, and

Hoccleve's *Regiment of Princes* might also be considered "mixed rhetorics" in that the writers do not acknowledge that they are engaging with a different rhetorical program. But as I argued, those texts are profoundly enthymematic in the structure of their arguments, and can be read as deeply enfolded in the influence of Aristotelian rhetoric. The texts that I want to consider now have a looser although still significant relationship with Aristotelian rhetoric, turning to the teaching on the emotions (which they derive from *De regimine principum*) because it offers something to broaden the ethical dimensions of their narratives.

I begin with a text that proclaims its adherence to established literary tradition, in other words, that does not immediately announce its novelty. The *Eschéz d'amours* (also called *Les Eschez amoureux*), an allegorical poem written c.1377, was not a well-circulated text. It comes down to us only in two copies, a fragmentary version of about 13,000 lines, and a long version of about 30,000 lines. At least two more copies were once known.¹⁰ Its authorship remains uncertain. Slightly better known was the prose commentary on the *Eschéz d'amours* by Evrart de Conty, which I will consider later.¹¹ Evrart's commentary, from the end of the fourteenth century, survived into the modern age in seven manuscripts (of which six are now extant).

The *Eschéz d'amours* adds another layer to the reception history of the *Roman de la Rose*, a good portion of its action involving mythological figures, a series of personifications in an idealized *jardin de deduit*, and a narrator-lover who progresses through the stages of an erotic quest. It is a recasting that does not hesitate to answer the complex allegorical challenges of the *Rose*.¹² The work cloaks itself in literary tradition: not only is it an obvious response to the erotic allegory of the *Roman de la Rose*, but it continues another established convention, the chess-game allegory which was given its authoritative didactic stamp in Jacobus de Cessolis' widely disseminated *De ludo scacchorum*.¹³ The *Eschéz* maps the contest of love onto the game of chess. But the game of love and the rules of chess in the *Eschéz* are not quite in sync, and neither proves satisfactory as a standard of conduct.¹⁴ At its experimental extremes, the *Eschéz* uses the courtly erotic allegory of seduction and the game of chess as pretexts to lead, in the second part of the narrative, into another subject that unmasks the preceding game of love: the civic or public responsibility of a prince. The *Acteur*—

lover protagonist and “author”—who reaffirms the judgment of Paris and chooses the voluptuous path of Venus, is frustrated in his erotic pursuit when he is vanquished by a beautiful lady in a ritualistic chess game. He finds himself the object of another kind of lesson in love as the goddess Pallas (Minerva) takes over the poem with a monumental speech about the superlative virtues of the contemplative life lived according to virtue and reason, and its nearly as salutary alternative, the active life.

The hierarchy established between the contemplative life, which brings wisdom and true felicity, the active life, through which princes can accomplish the highest moral goals on the political stage, and the life of sensual pleasures, which consists of transient goods, derives from the tradition of Aristotle’s *Ethics*, including literary responses to Aristotelian ethics after the work became well known in its entirety around 1260 in Moerbeke’s revised translation.¹⁵ But the *Eschéz* is also responding to more immediate political–legal circumstances that shape its rejection of sensual pleasures like gaming and that also seem to direct its advice toward political values. In 1369, the French king Charles V issued a ban on chess, table games, and dice, while encouraging the military sport of archery and other games testing prowess. Charles was reacting to terrible French defeats in the earlier phases of the Hundred Years War, and was imitating a ban that Edward III of England had first imposed in 1337 on all games except archery so as to promote battle-readiness among English bowmen. Edward renewed the ban in 1365 in preparation for another phase of fighting, and a few years later Charles copied this to give the training of the French infantry a boost. The *Eschéz* is thus incorporating its own political moment, using the game of chess and other idle pursuits to repudiate idleness and encourage its elite readers to embrace more worthy activities. The poem does not follow the historical law so closely as to order its readers to take up archery, but it does give its protagonist other productive options. He is advised to study philosophy or to pursue a conscientious political life. As Gregory Heyworth notes, the poem “alienates itself gradually from its own allegory.”¹⁶

However gradually it unfolds, that alienation is ultimately decisive. As if by sleight of hand, the poem transmutes erotic love into civic love, love for one’s political subjects, love as a political emotion. Pallas’ speech (lines 9327 ff.) has initially taken a rather conventional route to distancing the lover from his passionate obsession. First the lover hears thirty-five

precepts against love (lines 11137–3466) based on Ovid’s *Remedia amoris*. But the love to be renounced here is still erotic desire. The conversion of one love into another kind occurs at the point when the erotic allegory becomes a *speculum principis* to advise the *Acteur*, who is now seen as embodying the needs of the state.¹⁷

At a turning point in her lecture, after admonishing the the *Acteur* to forsake the voluptuous life and painting the attractions of the contemplative life, Pallas begins to lay out the path of the active life (lines 15653 ff.).¹⁸ Here the poem conscripts Aegidian and Aristotelian ethical themes of governance and self-governance, domestic rule, military defense, and economy and wealth.¹⁹ The advice that Pallas dispenses first goes through predictable stages that correspond to matter that Giles of Rome also treats: the prince is a leader who governs and protects his subjects and who rules a stable kingdom through just and reasonable laws (lines 15698–703; cf., *De regimine principum* 3.2.16–19); the prince properly relies on counselors and judges who will supply advice and judgments based on reason (lines 15704–15; cf., *De regimine principum* 3.2.20–3); and the obedient people constitute the fourth element of the polity (lines 15716–23; cf., *De regimine principum* 3.2. 34–6). Then, as if moving backward through the order of Giles’ *De regimine*, Pallas’ discussion turns to self-governance. The prince ought to maintain in himself the virtues of diligence, humility, and prudence (lines 15874–901; cf., *De regimine* 1.2.6–9, 25–6). But the prince must also know and manage his emotions, and must especially know how to direct his love:

“Soyez fermez; soyez estables;	15928
Soyes justes et veritables...	
Soyez courtois et attemprés,	15931
Et si nez de cuer et de bouche	
Que, pour chose amere ne douche,	
Tu ne soyez passionés...	
Sans faille, c’est bien mez accors	15942
Que tu soyes misericors	
Et piteux raisonnablement...	
[Comment li princhez se doit ordonner quant a sez subgiéz]	
“Tu doiz, d’autre part, regarder	15948
Le peuple que tu doiz garder	
Et mettre ton entendement	
A amer le parfaitement	
Et a vouloir, sur toute rien,	

Son preu, son salu et son bien.
Et si doiz vouloir ensement
Qu'il t'aime tres entierement,
Car en ce gist et se parfait
Le droit fondement de ton fait...

[Comment li princez doit amer le bien commun]

"Pour ce doiz tu, de l'autre part,
Avoir especial regart
Au bien et au prouffit commun,
Car bien qui prouffitte a chascun
Est de moult precieux affaire.
Se tu veulx dont ton devoir faire
Si bien qu'on ne t'en puist blasmer,
Tu doiz le bien commun amer,
Le bien du peuple et du paÿs,
Plus que ton propre bien naÿs..."

15996

Be firm, be stable, be just and true. Be courteous and temperate, and so pure of heart and mouth that you do not become inflamed about anything bitter or sweet...In truth, it is good, I think, that you be tender and pitying in a reasonable way...[Rubric: "How the prince must conduct himself towards his subjects."] On the other hand you must consider the people whom you are meant to protect and make sure to love them perfectly and above all else to want their success, their safety, and their welfare. And thus you should want that they love you completely, for in this resides and is perfected the fundamental justice of your deeds... [Rubric: "How the prince must love the common good."] For this reason, moreover, you must have a special regard for the common good and the common profit, for the good that profits everyone is a most precious thing. If you want to achieve your duty in this way so that no one can blame you on that score, you must love the common good, the good of the people and the realm more than your own good.

These directives follow generally on *De regimine* book 1 part 3 on the emotions. The section on love of the *bien commun* echoes Giles' account of the common good:

In bonis autem divinis, et in bonis communibus, magis reperitur ratio bonitatis, quam in bono privato. Modus ergo, quo quilibet debet esse amativus, est ut primo et principaliter diligat bonum divinum et commune....Et quia commune bonum est divinius quam singulare, ut dicitur 1. Ethica, et quia in communi bono includitur bonum privatum semper bono privato praeponendum est commune bonum....Hoc ergo modo quoslibet homines decet esse amativos, ut primo et principaliter diligant bonum divinum et commune...maxime tamen hoc decet reges et principes. (De regimine principum, 1607 ed., 1.3.3, pp. 160–1)

A greater basis of good is found in the goodness that belongs to God and in the common good than in the private good. Therefore, the way in which anyone ought to be inclined to love is that first and foremost one should love the divine good and the common good...And because the common good is more divine than the individual good, as it says in *Ethics* 1, and because the private good is included in the common good, the common good always takes precedence over the private good...Since any men should be so inclined to love in this way, that they love

first and foremost the divine good and the common good...this especially applies to kings and princes.

The advice in the *Eschéz* resonates especially with Giles' examples of the arm that sacrifices itself for the good of the body and the love that the Romans had for their *res publica*.²⁰ Later on, the poem argues that it is greater for the ruler to inspire love in his subjects, strongly echoing Giles' discussion of that principle in book 3 (3.2.36).²¹

None of these ideas, including those about love of the common good, would be surprising in a treatise on rulership. But the *Eschéz d'amours* has been a poem about courtly love and its all-consuming passion. Thus the emphasis here on love directed to the "common good," and the love between a ruler and his people, is startling.²² The effect of this is to controvert the courtly and erotic premises, that love is the best *matière* of poetry, that set the poem on its initial course.²³ Of course Pallas has already tried to distance the lover from love with her *Remedia amoris* in miniature. But that does not redefine love: it merely argues its liabilities. And in proposing that the *Acteur* take up the contemplative life of philosophy as an alternative to erotic gratification, Pallas is not changing what we understand of love, but merely directing the protagonist's attention elsewhere. It is only here, at the beginning of the Aegidian turn of the poem, that love is completely redefined as a *political* emotion. In a sense, then, the poem has been an argument leading through one kind of love to another kind, from the suffering of the lover to love for *res publica* (*le bien commun*), thus revealing an unexpected political dimension of courtly emotion. Even *courtoisie* can be redefined in terms of polity: it is *courtois* to guard and preserve "la chose publique" (16033, 16102, 16154, 16205). The argument does not simply replace one love with another: it transforms the one into the other, just as the narrating *Acteur* seems to become a prince and the object of a lesson in statecraft. The narrative uses *amours*, with its shading from appetitive desire to political will, as an inventional platform.

The *Eschéz* author may not be conscious of deploying a rhetorical program that treats the emotions as a form of proof in political argument: that Aristotelian thought has been mediated through the influence of the analysis of the passions in *De regimine principum* and the shape of argumentation in Giles' treatise, a work which the poet obviously knows

and uses. But later commentators on the *Eschéz d'amours* noticed the connection of the arguments to their primary rhetorical source.

The fragmentary version of *Eschéz d'amours* in Venice, Biblioteca Marciana, MS fr. app. 23, from the early fifteenth century, is accompanied by many Latin glosses in the margins, in three hands. These glosses provide interpretations of the chess allegory in the first long section of the poem, give parallels from classical and medieval literature and philosophy, and supply Ovid's Latin text of *Remedia amoris* next to the French adaptation in Pallas' speech to the *Acteur*. Apparently, these Latin glosses (or at least some of them) circulated with other copies of the text now lost, suggesting also that they may have been part of the fourteenth-century transmission of the text.²⁴ This manuscript only takes us up through the early sections of Pallas' long speech, but it happens to extend through the part of that discourse that includes love of the common good. One of the commentators at the end of the manuscript was keen to identify the philosophical sources of, or parallels with, Pallas' statements about princely emotions and behavior. In the course of the last 160 lines of the poem in the Venice manuscript, the Latin glosses refer four times to Aristotle's analytic of the emotions in book 2 of the *Rhetoric* as a source of or parallel with the ideas in the poem. The glosses indicate a readership attuned to a mode of thought latent in the vernacular text. In other words, a reader recognized that the political discourse on emotions here has its origin in the moral philosophy of rhetoric.

The most relevant glosses and the corresponding passages in the French text are as follows:

Soyez larges et liberaulx, 16239

Et fay bien a pluseurs personnes...

Be generous and liberal, and do well toward many people.

GLOSS:

Populus amat et honorat beneficos et liberales in pecuniam. Secundo Rethoricorum.

People love and honor those beneficent and liberal in regard to money, in the second book of the *Rhetoric* [*Rhetoric* 2.4, 1381a21].²⁵

Soyes aussy toute saison 16263

Justez et plain de grant raison,
Et fay a toute creature,
Sanz faillir, justice et droiture...

Be at all times just and entirely reasonable, and without fail show justice and righteousness to every creature.

GLOSS:

Iustos etiam maxime diligimus, secundo Rethoricorum.

We greatly cherish the just, in the second book of the *Rhetoric* [2.4, 1381a21].

Soyes aussy a ce vueillans 16273

Que tu soyes preux et hardis...

Make sure of this too, that you be brave and bold.

GLOSS:

Diligimus beneficos in salutem, id est fortes at audaces qui possunt bene facere nos saluando, ibidem.

We cherish those who are beneficent in regard to safety, that is to say, the brave and bold who are able to benefit us by saving us. In the same book [*Rhetoric* 2.4, 1381a20–1].

Interestingly, all these glosses derive from the same passage in *Rhetoric* 2.4, the analytic of *amicitia* or friendliness, understood here as love: “Adhuc beneficos in pecunias et salutem; propter quod liberales et fortes honorant et iustos” ([People feel love] toward those who are beneficent in matters of money and well being; for this reason people value those who are liberal and strong and just). It may be that the vocabulary and themes of virtue in the French text—liberality, bravery, justice—reminded the glossator of Aristotle’s succinct formulation. But that formulation is part of Aristotle’s larger account of what emotional dispositions exist in a public to shape its reasoning and judgments. That the glossator relates these ideas back to the *Rhetoric* rather than to the more immediate influence of *De regimine principum* suggests an awareness of the emotions as a persuasive force in public life. The glossator’s references to the same passage on *amicitia* in the *Rhetoric* reveal a sensitivity to the behavior that would condition love, the knowledge that a prince needs in order to elicit the appropriate response

from his subjects. While the rhetorical or persuasive dimension of such emotional knowledge is not at the surface of the *Eschéz d'amours*, the glossator seems to draw out that moral connection.

The *Eschéz amoureux moralisés* by the royal physician Evrart de Conty is a prose commentary composed c.1390–1400 (about a generation or so after the *Eschéz* poem itself). It does not extend past the chess game and its outcome to Pallas' colossal speech, as Evrart himself points out at the very end of his commentary, noting however that her speech is full of *belles choses*.²⁶ Even by this point, the *Eschéz amoureux moralisés* has taken on the massive bulk of an encyclopedia (in some manuscripts accompanied by miniatures reflecting the incidents of the poem).²⁷ But the second part of the poem, which he did not gloss, may still have lent Evrart ideas about the rule of princes. He brings to his glosses on the poem an awareness of the political dimension and the rhetorical context of emotional thought. He derives his ideas from *De regimine principum* and its discourse on the passions of the ruler.²⁸

Around 1380 (perhaps somewhat later), Evrart had produced a French translation of the pseudo-Aristotelian *Problemata* together with the early fourteenth-century commentary on the text by Pietro d'Abano, expanding both at considerable length with his own learning.²⁹ He had undertaken this initially at the request of Charles V, who died at about the point that it was completed. It is in his version of the *Problemata* that Evrart first incorporates an account of the passions manifestly dependent on *De regimine principum*. He links his treatment of the passions (not found in either of the texts he is translating) to *Problemata* book XXVII on problems of fear and courage. Virtually the same passage appears ten or so years later in his commentary on the *Eschéz d'amours*.³⁰ In the poem, the *Acteur* arrives at the *vergier de deduit*, which he recognizes from its description in the *Roman de la Rose*. On the wall outside the garden, as in the *Rose*, are images of ten dispositions and characteristics excluded from courtly love: hate, felony, villainy, covetise, avarice, envy, sadness, old age, hypocrisy, and poverty (3799–809). The mention of hate (*hayne*) prompts Evrart to a brief distinction between love and hate. But then he follows with an account of the emotions:

Pour quoy nous devons savoir que Aristote fait mencion en sa *Rethorique* de xii manieres de passions ou affections d'ame, que moult souvent aussi sont appelees mouvement de courage

ou accident de l'ame, pour ce que elles nous esmeuvent moult souvent les courages en diverses manieres. Et sont ces passions, ou ces mouvemens de couraige, amour et hayne, desir et abhominacion, delectation et tristece, esperance et desesperance, paour et hardiesce, et yre aussi et debonnaireté. Sanz faille, avec ces passions fait encore Aristote mencion de vi autres qui sont a devant dites ramanees, et sont ces vi nommees grace, jalousie, desdaing, misericorde, et envie, et vergoigne.³¹

Therefore we should know that in his *Rhetoric* Aristotle mentions twelve kinds of passions or affections of the soul which are often called a motion of spirit or an accident of the soul, because these passions often move us in spirit in diverse ways. And these passions or motions of spirit are love and hate, desire and abomination, delight and sadness, hope and despair, fear and courage, and also anger and kindliness. Moreover, along with these passions Aristotle mentions six others which are linked to the aforesaid ones, and these six are called graciousness, jealousy, disdain, pity, envy, and shame.

This is, of course, based on *De regimine principum* 1.3.1 and 1.3.10. The source is recognizable not only from the mention and order of twelve passions, but also the secondary list of six further emotions. These are the Aristotelian “extras” that did not fit the system of primary passions that Giles had inherited from Aquinas but which, out of deference to Aristotle’s authority, he had to mention and which he subordinates to the primary emotions.³² The list of six “secondary” emotions is nearly identical with that in the *De regimine*, although it appears that the term *zelus* (emulation) was new to Evrart and that he found only a loose equivalent in *jalousie*. Even the reference to Aristotle as the source of this information about twelve passions is derived from Giles, who cites Aristotle liberally throughout *De regimine* part 1 book 3 (and we saw earlier that Dante makes the same mistake, attributing to Aristotle what is actually Giles’ reformulation).

We might ask, first, why he applies this system to the discourse on fear and courage in the *Problemata*. The answer might be simply that the Aristotelianism of *De regimine principum* was a natural resource for a writer and intellectual like Evrart. He was a member of the royal circle with access to the king’s library where *De regimine* (in its Latin version as well as in the version by Henri de Gauchy and the later one commissioned by Charles V himself in 1372) had pride of place.³³ It is an obvious strategy to fill out the terse matter in *Problemata* on fear and courage with a philosophical analysis of emotions from an authoritative book. Evrart was interested in emotions as properly psychic phenomena as well as ethical dispositions, and the synthesis supplied by Giles of Rome could support that understanding.³⁴ The more difficult question is what function this

serves when he imports it to his commentary on the *Eschéz d'amours* and the figures painted on the outer wall of the garden of love. Exactly why Evrart returned to his earlier borrowing from *De regimine principum* may be unanswerable, but we can speak to the textual effect of this addition. It certainly forges a connection with Pallas' speech on love of the *bien commun*, love as a political emotion. Its impact here is to read courtly behaviors in terms of civic behaviors, and uncourtly dispositions such as hate, felony, and envy as antithetical to the *bien commun*.

This transformation seems to be at least latent in his agenda. He takes each disposition or characteristic and for a further twenty folios gives an expansive discourse on each one, invoking various authorities including occasionally Aristotle's *Rhetoric* (probably from a florilegium or a list of *propositiones*).³⁵ His exposition of hate is especially telling:

Il fait aussi contre toute raison, car raison ne desire que paix et amour et concorde dont haine n'a cure, ainz est de sa droite nature commencement de noise et de toute discorde; et de ce n'est il mie doubte que hayne est la plus grant ennemie qui soit ne qui puist estre a la bonne union et a la bonne amisté qui doit estre en toute policie et en toute communauté bien ordenee, car autrement les homes ne pourroient en la communicacion humaine paisiblement ensamble demourer ne souffisaument vivre, c'est assavoir s'ilz n'estoient d'acort et bien unis ensamble.³⁶

It is counter to all reason, for reason desires nothing but peace, love, and concord, for which hate has no concern, for in its very nature is the start of tumult and all discord. And there is no doubt that hate is the greatest enemy there ever was or could be to the good unity and to the good fellowship which must exist in every polity and in every well-ordered community. For otherwise men would not be able to function together peacefully in human interaction or live fittingly. For it is certain that they would not be in accord or well united together.

Hate is no longer simply uncourtly: it is decivilizing, both in terms of rule of any meaningful social interaction. It disrupts persuasive communication ("la communicacion humaine") and it destroys the polity along with any well-ordered community. It is not merely the opposite of erotic love or good courtly behavior, but the enemy of good governance. The appeal to communal peace as the foundation of policy is in line with thirteenth- and early fourteenth-century notions of the common good as an *ordo caritatis* from Thomas Aquinas and Giles of Rome to Godfrey of Fontaines and Remigio dei Girolami.³⁷ Thus, even though Evrart de Conty does not formally comment on Pallas' speech about the *bien commun*, in a sense he completes the rhetorical effect of her reasoning by bringing love of the common good directly to the *vergier deduit* itself. Even before the *Acteur-*

lover enters the garden, and long before Pallas' intervention, hate and its opposite, love, have been redefined in civic terms. These emotional dispositions of a courtly ritual are now grounds of a different proof, the value of an ordered polity. In this we see, of course, the conventional procedure of a moralizing commentary, where an image or idea in the text is given a new extra-textual meaning: in this case, hate as an obstacle to courtly desire is refigured as the undoing of any kind of polity. In terms of his commentative moves, Evrart is doing nothing new. But the content of his commentary, using hate and love to argue an ethical obligation to the *bien commun*, is distinctive in its ultimate reliance on the rhetorical thought about emotion in Giles' *De regimine principum*.

Far more conventional in conception and construction than the *Éschez d'amours* and Evrart de Conty's commentary is Christine de Pizan's *Livre des fais et bonnes meurs du sage roy Charles V*, written in 1404. The *Livre des fais* situates itself squarely in the Ciceronian tradition of epideictic. It is less biography than panegyric, an extended oration in praise of the king who had died in 1380, more than two decades before the work was composed. Its epideictic conception is one of its most visible features.³⁸ In this it is adopting a traditional rhetorical framework, continuous with the epideictic rhetorical culture of the High Middle Ages. The oratorical ambition of the work is mirrored in the presentation of Charles himself as a supremely gifted orator who can marshal the confidence of his subjects through his eloquence. At the same time the work is a *speculum principis* commissioned most likely to instruct a future king, the Dauphin Louis de Guyenne, in the sovereign virtues that had attended his grandfather's exemplary rule.³⁹ Two of Christine's later works, *Livre du corps de policie* and *Livre de paix*, were specifically written for the Dauphin Louis. In *Livre des fais*, as in these other works, she relies closely on the thematic organization and matter of *De regimine principum*, which she knew through Henri de Gauchy's French translation.⁴⁰

Within these traditional parameters of a Ciceronian rhetorical framework and the Aegidian thematic source lies something more distinctive that has been remarked: the emotional currency that she uses.⁴¹ Her biographical and ethical treatment of Charles dwells on his emotional disposition, his love for his family and subjects, and their love for him. This in turn elicits her own emotional identification with his family: Charles engenders or elicits love in his subjects, a love that Christine shares as a subject and

conveys as a writer. Thus as writer of the panegyric, she intends to touch the emotions of her readers. This level of emotional investment sets the *Livre des faits* apart from other French royal biographies.⁴²

Given its dependence on a Ciceronian model of *artificiosa eloquentia*, the obvious rhetorical tradition that Christine would have recognized in her classical or classicizing literary models (“le stille des premierains et devanciers”),⁴³ is it possible also to trace the emotional dimension of the work to an Aristotelian influence? While *De regimine principum* is fully incorporated into her thought, Christine does not cite or draw directly on its analytic of the emotions. Indeed, she uses that source so widely (notably, for example, book 1 part 4 on the *mores* of youth) that we would expect that she would draw specifically on its emotion theory. If she does not, however, its effect is still present, absorbed and diffused at a deep didactic and persuasive level.

Emotion forms a ground of her persuasive appeal to her princely readers. Charles is not simply a model king in virtue, nor are the emotional attributes of model kingship left as abstractions. We are shown Charles’ daily activities, the rounds he makes with his household and subjects as a set-piece *exemplum*. Just as the goddess Aurora brings joy to those who see the dawn, so Charles brought joy on his waking to his chamberlains and other servants tasked with his personal care, always affecting good humor no matter what his worries; he received visitors and petitioners with “benigne chiere,” treating them with such amiability and respect that all left feeling pleased and satisfied (book 1, chapter 16). Elsewhere, we see how his generosity and kindness to his household, rather than shows of anger, made them fear annoying him and elicited their sincere love (1.28). The narrative remarks his affection for his wife and the joys he had in his children, creating an almost ordinary picture of a contented and loving family (1.20–1), an image that seems to touch the writer as much as it is meant to move the reader.⁴⁴ This corresponds to his largest political interactions, where his love for his subjects is perfectly reciprocated (3.8). Thus Charles does not simply embody good emotions in a vacuum: he is shown in continual social interaction, where his feelings generate positive responses in others, moving them to political good will. In this way, he is what Giles had described as a *figura* to inflame the affections and encourage rectitude of the will in those who encounter it (*De regimine principum* 1.1.1). Charles is also himself an effective orator, “qui en son

entendement avoit science et rethorique souveraine en language” (3.43) and who would captivate his audience by appealing to their beliefs and feelings, much as his encomiastic biographer does. He is shown speaking to a large international assembly in Paris, persuading his own nobles and the Holy Roman emperor of the justice of the French cause in the ongoing war with the English. He offers not only evidence of English perfidy and disrespect (a move designed to stir indignation), but of his own long pursuit of peaceful negotiations and of his friendly alliance with the emperor and others in the face of a common enemy (3.43).⁴⁵ This is, of course, intended as a perfect example of the deliberative genre: but it is framed within Christine’s larger project of demonstrative or epideictic rhetoric.

Thus the king is not simply a model for imitation, but an affective presence who can appeal to the emotional disposition of the princely reader. Christine persuades by proving the emotional content of his life. The narrative voice that she constructs achieves the mimetic effect of one who has been touched by Charles’ emotional power. The reader will respond, not only to the example of Charles, but also to the voice that responds. This dynamic may also recall the exegetical voices of Augustine and Cassiodorus, who represent themselves reacting affectively to scriptural style even as they teach its emotional power. In other words, Christine’s narrative voice is as susceptible to the emotional “proofs” of Charles’ life as the reader is expected to be. As encomium, the *Livre des fais* is fundamentally and pervasively Ciceronian in its rhetorical understanding; but we can also glimpse here its absorption of an Aristotelian conception of emotion as a ground of proof. Christine most likely did not know the *Rhetoric* directly.⁴⁶ But she was an attentive reader of Giles’ treatise on governance, and carried away from that a grasp of emotion as a legitimate basis of proof.

The hybridities of reception can also take us to polarized extremes. Invoking Aristotle’s *Rhetoric* or borrowing directly from Giles’ *De regimine principum* does not always lead to a more powerful understanding of emotion as an instrument of rhetorical proof. Conversely, we can recognize the resonances of such rhetorical knowledge where there is no reference to the Aristotelian framework. I conclude this survey of hybrid forms with examples from two fifteenth-century texts that respond, from different political vantage points, to the Hundred Years War.

The later of these two texts is also the less inventive one in terms of its argumentation. The *Tractatus de regimine principum ad regem Henricum sextum* is an anonymous work in Latin written c.1436–7 when the English king was still an adolescent. As the title given to it in the unique manuscript suggests, it is a work designed to draw prestigious comparison with Giles' *De regimine principum*, from which it derives much of its matter.⁴⁷ It takes up 131 folios in London, British Library, MS Cotton Cleopatra A.xiii, a deluxe manuscript otherwise given over to devotional works. In its length alone, but also in its detail, coverage, and complex organizational conceit, the *Tractatus* presents itself as a reinscription of Giles' *De regimine* for an English king facing his own momentous historical challenges. The fawning and ornate flattery of its dedication to Henry is exorbitant compared to Giles' restrained (if also ceremonial) address to Philip IV. But it loses no time in foregrounding the immediate circumstances that call for a custom-made regiment of princes: the siege of Calais by the duke of Burgundy's Flemish solders, the Scottish attack on Roxborough (both in 1436), and the threats to English holdings in France.⁴⁸

Despite the text's dependence on Giles' *De regimine* and its many citations of the *Rhetoric* (most of which it gets from Giles),⁴⁹ and its obvious familiarity with the sections of the Aristotelian and Aegidian texts that treat emotion as a way of understanding and appealing to motivations, the *Tractatus* is deaf to the dynamics of persuasion, whether persuading the king or showing the king as a persuader. Rather, it is didactically inert, relying on a mnemonic of biblical symbolism that it proceeds to explain. It begins with an image of Solomon's throne (1 Kings 10:18–19), which had six steps. Each step represents a kingly virtue: humility, charity, peace, a virtuous order (*ordinatio*) in ruling, perseverance, and a consciousness of the mortal body and the immortal soul. Each of these is worked out over part 1 in minute detail, in the fashion of scriptural exegesis, and no doubt drawing upon homiletic sources. Parts 2 and 3 follow with the six material elements of the throne and the four gems in the royal crown, and exposition of their meaning. The governing mnemonic allows for movement through standard topics such as anger and mildness or the people's love and fear of their king, and inevitably in the course of this we find borrowings and extensive quotations from Giles' *De regimine* (unattributed) or invocations of the *Rhetoric*.⁵⁰ But adhering to this didactic structure and following through the manifold levels of exposition renders the work static, and its

royal audience a passive student receiving instruction on virtue, piety, and preparedness. Even the florid exclamations and occasional exhortations, intended to signify passion, do not relieve the didactic heavy-handedness. Moreover, unlike Giles' *De regimine*, this is barely even a philosophical argument, as the proofs are hardly ever self-standing (which would show their probability and suggest that readers could harness them for further deliberations), but instead rely on a continuous stream of authorities. Obviously, the presence of an innovative rhetorical method does not always produce a new kind of understanding. That the work survives in only one manuscript, at a time of prolific professional copying in London of works deemed to be of wide value, suggests that its teaching had no traction and could be of interest only to its young royal dedicatee.

By contrast, Alain Chartier's *Quadrilogue invectif*, written in 1422 when he was secretary and notary to the Dauphin Charles, survives in fifty-one manuscripts as well as incunables and early printed books, and was translated into other vernaculars, including twice into Middle English. It was also a source of the *Complaynt of Scotland* over one hundred years later.⁵¹ This is a work aimed at a specific historical and political context, France's suffering brought on by its external enemy, England, and by the internal power struggles between royal factions. While *Quadrilogue invectif* has generic affinities with laments on the abuses of the age, the ills that it recounts are not readily generalizable, as they relate to particular historical causes. Why, then, was it not only supremely successful in France but interesting enough to be exported and translated? Of course, it bore Chartier's prestigious name, which preceded his works at home and abroad. But another answer is that it projects an urgency transcending original political context and even generic boundaries.

The *Quadrilogue invectif* is framed as a stormy debate sparked by an emotional appeal to the conscience of the French. In his prologue and epilogue, Chartier invokes the ancient orators as an inspiration, calling attention to the public-facing nature of the disputation to follow.⁵² In a dream, the author sees a disheveled lady in a "wasted country" ("païs en fresche"),⁵³ showing unmistakable signs of fear and distress, her face covered with tears, seeking relief from her misery. This is France personified, who first gives the reasons for her despair and then turns to the three estates (her "enfants"), People, Knight, and Clergy. She appeals to them indignantly ("de cuer couroucié"),⁵⁴ reproaching them for their

cowardice and inaction in the face of the country's terrible state. She gives specific reasons for inflaming their hearts with anger and confidence: their land and country are threatened; if defeated by the English they would lose their liberty; their wives and children, whom naturally they want to love and safeguard, would be the victims of such violence; and their rightful ruler will be deposed under a new reign of tyranny.⁵⁵ The specificity of her rebuke is important: France's speech is not a static complaint, but a targeted call to action based on the immediacy of emotional experience—fear, anger and pride, familial love. It embodies the Aristotelian idea that fear rouses people to deliberation and decision.

Each of the estates in turn responds. First the figure of Peuple launches a bitter complaint about his abjection at the hands of the other estates, especially criticizing the nobility for not defending the land; the Chevalier replies angrily, denouncing the insubordination of the people and deploring their behavior during times of peace. After a further heated exchange between Peuple and Chevalier, Clergé—who has been attacked on all sides—enters the debate, and delivers a kind of sermon which offers a way forward: all members of society must unite around the principles of *savance* or understanding of France's predicament, *chevance* or preparedness, and *obeissance* to the interests of *la chose publique*.⁵⁶

In the charged atmosphere of this debate there are many audiences: the *acteur*-dreamer who wrote this down, the three estates in contesting with each other, the allegorized France, and, of course, the reading public that conferred such success on the work. The *Invectif* commands a response from all of these audiences, both within and outside the fictional frame. The characters, especially the allegorized France, perform emotional scripts.⁵⁷ But as a staged debate this text asks more than spectatorship of its readers (and its characters who personify the readers of all estates). It asks not for emotional imitation or internalization, or even aesthetic response, but for judgment. Audiences of the text are also active judges of the argument, objects of its mobilizing call, and participants in its impassioned reasoning. It channels the array of emotions on display into one common purpose, converting them all to love of “*la chose publique*.”⁵⁸

The *Quadrilogue invectif* is a demonstrably successful argument that builds its proof on the emotions of its audience. But there is no invocation here of either Aristotle's *Rhetoric* or of *De regimine principum*. A royal

secretary as learned and networked as Chartier would surely have known at least Giles' *De regimine*.⁵⁹ Yet the *Invectif* bears no direct trace of this relevant authority on the *bonum commune*, and in fact Chartier keeps mentions of other sources except for the Bible to a minimum.⁶⁰ Whether or not this source figured in Chartier's mental library, however, the arguments of the *Quadrilogue invectif* exemplify the force of the Aristotelian framework for understanding and drawing on emotion and proved enormously persuasive to readers in France and beyond. What Chartier seems to have understood, without needing to use a prestigious authority, is that the emotions are the foundation of strong rhetorical reasoning. He was able to foreground emotion not only as a form of proof but also as a cognitive mechanism by which audiences can make judgments for the good.

* * *

The *Eschéz d'amours* and Evrart de Conty's commentary, Christine de Pizan's *Livre des fais et bonnes meurs*, and Chartier's *Quadrilogue invectif*, as well as texts considered in earlier chapters, all show how emotional values are to be found in the structure of arguments. This does not mean that style has no value in affirming appeals to passion, but rather that the reasoning at the heart of their rhetorical persuasions already validates emotion as proof. Aristotle's *Rhetoric* and its Aegidian intermediary articulated this principle in theoretical terms, making it visible to rhetorical thought, and often, as I have argued, elevating it to primacy in persuasive practice. Of course, even the latest of the texts considered here deploy rhetorical systems inherited from previous centuries. They rely on a combination of medieval Ciceronianism (teaching about rhetorical form) and the more recent and politically charged Aristotelian framework. In the brief matter that follows, I will suggest how this hybrid inheritance was also to inform the reception of new additions to the traditional toolbox as well as reevaluations of its earlier components.

This has been a book about the long Middle Ages and what it could contribute to rhetorical thought on emotion. We have seen how, over the course of more than a millennium, medieval rhetoricians and writers reinvented critical discourses out of the resources that were available. It is an extraordinary story, a rich history of creative adaptation and innovation, from extending the scope of style to superintend emotional appeal, to

highlighting emotion as a form of proof, expressed in enthymematic reasoning. These developments take different forms, according to genre (poetics, preaching and exegesis, political discourse), and according to the various pressures exerted by traditional teaching, as we see among what I have called “mixed rhetorics.”

To a great extent it is also a “mixed rhetoric” that develops along the busy highway of renaissance rhetorical thought. Defining any precise boundary line between medieval and renaissance is not my purpose here, and, indeed, in rhetoric, as in many other fields, that border is hard to draw. The medieval Ciceronian inheritance, especially the complete art presented in the *Rhetorica ad Herennium*, remained a staple of reference in both southern and northern Europe. Moerbeke’s quintessentially scholastic translation of Aristotle’s *Rhetoric* continued to be copied and used through the fifteenth century as part of the teaching in moral philosophy. What we might see as new humanist readings of the *Rhetoric* were fairly slow to develop. Its entry into the next stage of rhetorical consciousness came only with George Trebizond’s Latin translation of 1443–5, in which he promises that the *Rhetoric* will offer much about “the ways of men, in the variety of their ages and fortunes...even the hidden minds and private emotions of men.” This warm reception was echoed shortly afterward by Aeneas Silvius Piccolomini.⁶¹ But even such insights did not bear immediate fruit for considering the role of emotion in persuasive proof. Making sense of the *Rhetoric* did not prove easy. Fifteenth-century writers wanting to incorporate it into their own teaching systems, including Trebizond, initially tried to bring it into line with what they had inherited from medieval ethics and newer Platonism as well as Ciceronian doctrine. Even though further Latin translations, multiple prints of the Greek text, and vernacular translations were to follow, it was only in the sixteenth century that readers began to come to grips with the emotional content of the work.⁶² While its authority was acknowledged by renaissance scholars, Aristotle’s text was a long time in reestablishing itself in European teaching. Its reemergence was a late development, and the medieval framework in which it was first known would persist long into the fifteenth century.

One reason for this may be that the early humanist library was shifting to make room for new rhetorical texts to which the Middle Ages had had least access, notably (in terms of emotions theory) the *Institutio oratoria* (known in its complete form from 1416) and Cicero’s *De oratore* (its

complete text discovered in 1421). Both of these provide sustained analysis of the role of emotion in oratory, the very topic that the Middle Ages had to reinvent for itself in the absence of authoritative classical resources. If Aristotle's *Rhetoric* had to wait until the sixteenth century to begin to be fully appreciated for its teaching on emotional proof, readers lost no time in absorbing the Quintilianic pedagogy in which humanists found an ethical comprehensiveness that was absent in the legal and formalistic teaching of the inherited Ciceronian rhetorics, the *De inventione* and *Rhetorica ad Herennium*. Quintilian's *Institutio* offered a teaching that was, in Virginia Cox's words, "formative of the entire person—less a discrete competence to be exercised at will, than a habitus, a culture, an ethos."⁶³ It provided a more complete and explicit understanding of rhetoric as a preserve of the *vir bonus* than the *Rhetorica ad Herennium*, which it increasingly rivaled for scholarly and didactic attention over the fifteenth century, starting with Lorenzo Valla's philological studies.⁶⁴ What Quintilian as well as Cicero's *De oratore* taught about emotion was very different from what Aristotle taught, but readily engaging: both these works taught orators to find emotion, not in their audiences (as Aristotle taught), but in themselves, to find an ethical anchor for their appeals in their own experience, to identify with those who suffer (*Institutio oratoria* 6.2.26). This teaching could resonate with the powerful example of patristic and later Christian rhetoric, including the profound ethical claims made for stylistic appeal that we saw in Augustine and Cassiodorus.

Something of the quick embrace and assimilation of Quintilianic teaching may be seen in Poggio Bracciolini's early writing. In the late summer of 1416, Poggio made his discovery of a complete eleventh-century manuscript of the *Institutio oratoria* in the cellar of the monastic library at St. Gall. He wrote about this in a famous letter dated December 15, 1416 to his friend Guarino da Verona, describing it as a dramatic rescue of classical rhetoric itself from a dank dungeon. Over the course of almost two months Poggio copied the manuscript (and others that he found).⁶⁵ Thus we know that he had to have engaged closely with Quintilian's text, not only what was previously known in *mutili* but those passages previously inaccessible, including book 6 prologue and [chapters 1–2](#) on the emotions of the orator.

In the spring of 1416, that is, before he made the discovery of the Quintilian manuscript, he was in attendance at the Council of Constance and witnessed the trial and execution of Jerome of Prague, the Hussite

theologian charged with heresy.⁶⁶ Clearly affected by this event, Poggio wrote a letter to Leonardo Bruni, dated May 30, 1416, the day that Jerome was burned at the stake. Of course, the date of this event and his well-known letter precede his discovery of Quintilian's text by several months. But in later life Poggio collected his letters to circulate them among his friends and an interested public. In the edition of his collected letters in 1445, these two letters from 1416 are paired together out of chronological order with other letters; and the letter of December 15 (on the discovery of Quintilian) is placed before the letter to Bruni on Jerome's ordeal. Of course, we cannot put too much meaning on the order of letters in his collection, as the manuscript history is complicated.⁶⁷ But we may wonder how he would have viewed his letter about Jerome of Prague in the light of what he absorbed over the following decades. His treatment of Jerome's trial seems saturated by a sensibility that corresponds to Quintilian's teaching on strong emotion. The very passion of the letter sets it apart from the other eyewitness accounts of the trial and ordeal.⁶⁸

Poggio pleads the case for Jerome as a humanist, as if elegant learning is itself on trial.⁶⁹ He also speaks with and through the strong emotions that he wants the judges at the Council to have felt: the zealous admiration for Jerome's erudition and eloquence, the grief at seeing the waste of such an intellect:

Mirum est vidisse, quibus verbis, qua facundia, quibus argumentis, quo vultu, quo ore, qua fiducia responderit adversariis ac demum causam peroravit, ut dolendum sit tam nobile ingenium, tam excellens ad illa heresis studia divertisse.⁷⁰

It was extraordinary to see with what words, what eloquence, what arguments, what countenance, what expression, and what confidence he responded to his adversaries and at last delivered the peroration of his defense. It is painful that so noble and outstanding an intellect should have been diverted to this pursuit of heresy.

Poggio is an orator after the fact; his affective assimilation to his subject is so complete that it is difficult to tell what is the source of emotion here, the noble, dignified Jerome chastising his accusers for refusing him the opportunity to speak directly against the charges, or Poggio's impassioned expression of grief at the fortunes of one so admirable. For as Poggio constructs the scene, he himself is Jerome of Prague's true audience; Jerome's appeals to his opponents' sense of justice are really appeals to Poggio's sense of learned decorum and stylistic power. Of course, Jerome's

rhetoric was not persuasive. He lost his case with the judges, and Poggio's hagiographical intensification of the scene points this up with sharp irony. But that failure seems to matter less to Poggio than the fact that, like himself, people were moved at the sight of someone who, after nearly a year in a dark prison cell, could marshal coherent, learned, and eloquent discourses: "Commote erant omnium mentes et ad misericordiam flectbantur...Magnus erat circumstantium animi dolor; cupiebant enim virum tam egregium salvari" (All minds were moved and they were bent to mercy...Great was the spectators' grief of spirit; they were wishing that such a remarkable man might be saved).⁷¹ But even as he finds his own affective response reflected in that of the crowd, Poggio conveys a private, personal sense of emotion. It is an argument for the orator finding his own powers of emotional response equal to the emotion he wants to convey. In the spring of 1416, when he witnessed the trial and wrote about it, Poggio was ripe for Quintilian's forceful teaching about the personal ethics of emotional persuasion. Decades later, when he included this letter in his second collected edition of 1445, he had found in Quintilian an ideal theoretical model for his own practice.

Poggio's education up to about 1400 had been a rich one in grammatical study of the *auctores* and Ciceronian rhetoric, as well as in Greek letters and then in the notarial arts. But there is no reason to assume that he would have read Aristotle's *Rhetoric* in that context. There is also little indication from his later writings that he knew the *Rhetoric* specifically: he does not seem to cite it and it is not listed by name in the inventories of his books, although he did know other Aristotelian works.⁷² If, during his long career as a secretary at the papal Curia, he encountered Giles of Rome's *De regimine principum*, he might not have derived a rhetorical understanding compatible with the inherited Roman-Latin tradition that he knew so well. His absorption of Quintilianic and Ciceronian rhetoric would give him a perspective on emotions that was ethical but not behavioral or political in Aristotle's sense of knowing the social motivations of an audience.

But the *Rhetoric* was to enter into its own moment as a resource for rhetorical thought, ultimately beyond the mediation of Giles' *De regimine principum*. Of course, the ethical themes that Quintilian explores about the orator's emotion have some resonance with the fuller renaissance reception of Aristotle's *Rhetoric*, which would be read as part of a moral science of communication, a practical philosophy of human character. While the

medieval Aristotelian rhetorical framework did not teach eloquence in the explicit and compendious way that Cicero and Quintilian do, it did teach a conception of persuasion based on the needs of an audience, whether that audience is the public, as in the *Rhetoric*, or oneself and one's subjects, as in Giles' *De regimine principum*. In important studies of renaissance rhetoric, Peter Mack and Lawrence Green have demonstrated how humanist teaching gave new prominence to the purpose of arousing emotion, in large part because Aristotle's text was increasingly part of the pedagogical dossier.⁷³ Over the course of the sixteenth century, the humanist scholar Juan Luis Vives, the Jesuit Francisco Benci, and the Lutheran humanist Nathan Chytraeus, were to emphasize the understanding of audience emotions in persuasion, finding in Aristotle's *Rhetoric* a source of psychological knowledge about the passions.⁷⁴ Such direct emphasis on Aristotle's text was somewhat unusual. But a number of other teachers and commentators, including Philipp Melanchthon in the early sixteenth century, Daniele Barbaro in the 1540s, and Bartholomaeus Keckermann in 1607, sought a more common path of reconciling the approach in Aristotle's *Rhetoric* with inherited Ciceronian rhetoric or Platonic and Christian perspectives on the soul.⁷⁵ The English culmination of this spirited engagement with Aristotle's *Rhetoric* is the abbreviated translation by Thomas Hobbes in 1637, his *Brief of the Art of Rhetorick*, which imprinted itself especially on his account of emotions in *Leviathan* (1651).⁷⁶ Like their late medieval literary predecessors, many theorists of the early and later Renaissance achieved a mixed rhetoric, synthesizing traditional structures of thought with new influences and newly reclaimed understandings.

I have been concerned here with the long history anterior to this, a teaching about emotional persuasion that we may now take for granted because it became a hallmark of renaissance rhetoric and has been a fixture of rhetorical training ever since. I have shown the long, complex, and often arduous process of getting to the point where emotional persuasion could once again be an articulated theoretical concern. Medieval writers engaged seriously and intensively with this subject, building over the course of one thousand years a rich dossier comprised of Ciceronian and then Aristotelian influences. As we have seen, emotion does not figure in the same way across all rhetorical doctrine. As central as it is to any kind of rhetorical persuasion, it is not assigned the same value from one system to the next

and it is not taught uniformly. It may be considered as a reaction to stylistic cues, just as poetry may elicit emotion through the mimetic effects of language. Or it may be conceived as a layer of ethical identification between the speaker and the matter of the speech. And finally, the aim of arousing emotion may be understood as a political recognition between speaker and audience. Emotion is always political, but finding a systematic conception of that and applying it to discourse needed a new set of tools that was supplied by the return of Aristotelian rhetoric to Western Europe. In the Middle Ages, Renaissance, Enlightenment, and the copious expansions of modern rhetorics, the role of *pathos* as a form of proof rises to theoretical prominence wherever the full history of rhetorical thought gains a secure foothold. Here I have tried to envision the full course of Western medieval rhetoric, not only its original foundations or its late refurbishments and additions. The history of rhetoric can be written through its continual engagement with the emotions, and from this perspective we see the scope of medieval rhetoric in a new way. Medieval rhetoricians and writers grappled with the challenge of emotional appeal, rebuilding from old authorities and innovating on more recent resources. In this, the Middle Ages enabled the future of rhetorical thought from the Renaissance to modernity.

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¹ Ramon Llull's *New Rhetoric: Text and Translation of Llull's Rethorica nova*, ed. and trans. Mark D. Johnston (Davis, CA: Hermagoras Press, 1994), p. xv; Mark D. Johnston, *The Evangelical Rhetoric of Ramon Llull: Lay Learning and Piety in the Christian West around 1300* (New York and Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1996), pp. 4–11.

² Alain de Libera, *Penser au Moyen Âge* (Paris: Seuil, 1991), p. 135.

³ On Llull's Great Universal Art of Finding Truth (comprising *Ars compendiosa inveniendi veritatem* and other works), see Johnston, *Evangelical Rhetoric*, pp. 12–33 and also the overview in Mark D. Johnston, *The Spiritual Logic of Ramon Llull* (Oxford: Clarendon, 1987), pp. 15–27.

⁴ Summary based on the text in *Ramon Llull's New Rhetoric*, ed. and trans. Johnston.

⁵ On the relations with medieval rhetorics, see Ramon Llull, *Retòrica nova*, ed. Josep Batalla, Lluís Cabré, and Marcel Ortín (Turnhout: Brepols; Santa Coloma de Queralt: Obrador Edèndum, 2006), pp. 53–8; cf., Johnston, *Evangelical Rhetoric*, p. 63, on the (at best) distant affinity with the canons of rhetoric in Llull's *Libre de contemplació*.

⁶ Johnston, *Evangelical Rhetoric*, pp. 66–8 and *Ramon Llull's New Rhetoric*, p. xxiv.

⁷ Louis Sala-Molins, *La philosophie de l'amour chez Raymond Lulle* (Paris and The Hague: Mouton, 1974), pp. 68, 221–77.

⁸ Quotations from *Ramon Llull's New Rhetoric*, ed. and trans. Johnston. I have modified some of Johnston's translations.

⁹ Johnston, ed., *Ramon Llull's New Rhetoric*, p. 51.

¹⁰ The long version is found in Dresden, Sächsische Landesbibliothek, MS Oc 66, a Burgundian manuscript of c.1480. The fragment comprising just over 13,000 lines (missing the beginning and much of what comprises the longer version) survives in a French manuscript of the first decade of the fifteenth century: Venice, Biblioteca Marciana, MS fr. app. 23. The Venice manuscript also contains Latin glosses on the text, some of which will be considered below. The Venice manuscript has been partially edited by Gianmario Raimondi, "*Les eschés amoureux*: studio preparatorio ed edizione (I. vv. 1-3662)," *Pluteus* 8–9 (1990–8): 67–241, and "*Les eschés amoureux*: studio preparatorio ed edizione (II. vv. 3663–5538)," *Pluteus* 10 (1999–2000): 67–239. The Dresden manuscript, which had been studied but not completely edited, was severely damaged in the bombing of 1945, rendering the latter portion of the long text (about 14,000 lines or 65 folios) barely legible. Gregory Heyworth and Daniel O'Sullivan have been able to read and transcribe most of the latter section of the poem. The first volume of their edition of the poem is based on a collation of Dresden up to line 16,293 (fols. 1–78) and the corresponding lines from the Venice fragment: *Les Eschéz d'Amours: A Critical Edition of the Poem and its Latin Glosses*, eds. Gregory Heyworth and Daniel E. O'Sullivan, with Frank Coulson (Leiden: Brill, 2013); see therein the chapter by Heyworth, "Manuscript History," pp. 41–7, and on the lost copies Heyworth, "General Introduction," p. 3, note 2. The second volume of their edition, presenting the rest of the poem from the Dresden manuscript, fols. 79–144, is forthcoming.

¹¹ On the claims for Evrart's authorship of the poem itself, see the summary in Gregory Heyworth's chapter "Author," in *Les Eschéz d'Amours*, eds. Heyworth and O'Sullivan, pp. 31–9 (esp. p. 35, note 14). Much modern scholarship has accepted that attribution (as reflected in the online resource *Archives de littérature du Moyen Âge*), but Heyworth gives significant reasons for disputing it.

¹² Pierre-Yves Badel, *Le Roman de la Rose au XIV siècle: étude de la réception de l'oeuvre* (Geneva: Droz, 1980), pp. 263–90.

¹³ See Chapter 6, pp. 275, 277–8. On the influence of this text see Oliver Plessow, with Volker Honemann and Mareike Temmen, *Mittelalterliche Schachzabelbücher zwischen Spielsymbolik und Wertevermittlung. Der Schachtraktat des Jacobus de Cessolis im Kontext seiner spätmittelalterlichen Rezeption* (Münster: Rhema, 2007), especially pp. 46–95; Jenny Adams, *Power Play: The Literature and Politics of Chess in the Late Middle Ages* (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2006), pp. 15–56.

¹⁴ Cf., Daniel E. O'Sullivan, "Changing the Rules in and of Medieval Chess Allegories," in Daniel E. O'Sullivan, ed., *Chess in the Middle Ages and Early Modern Age: A Fundamental Thought Paradigm of the Premodern World* (Berlin and Boston: De Gruyter, 2012), pp. 199–220.

¹⁵ The matter of the three kinds of living presented in the *Ethics* could be derived from *De regimine principum* 1.1.4. On the uses of Giles' text in the *Eschéz*, see Amandine Mussou, "'Car che seroit trop longue chose': les traductions des *Remedia amoris* et du *De regimine principum* insérées dans *Les Eschés amoureux*," in Joëlle Ducos and Michelle Goyens, eds., *Traduire au XIVe siècle: Evrart de Conty et la vie intellectuelle à la cour de Charles V* (Paris: Champion, 2015), pp. 223–42. On the impact of the complete *Ethics* on the *Roman de la Rose* and its reception, see Jessica Rosenfeld, *Ethics and Enjoyment in Late Medieval Poetry: Love after Aristotle* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2010), esp. pp. 1–13, 45–73.

¹⁶ “Historical Context and Audience,” in *Les Eschéz d’Amours*, eds. Heyworth and O’Sullivan, pp. 11–20 (quotation at p. 17).

¹⁷ Whether the *Acteur* is meant to be understood as a prince remains ambiguous: see Heyworth, “Historical Context,” pp. 18–19.

¹⁸ The Venice manuscript breaks off after 600 lines of the discussion of the active life. The damaged part of the Dresden manuscript continues this material for another 14,000 lines, although its ending is missing. I will quote here from Heyworth and O’Sullivan’s partial edition of Dresden collated with the Venice manuscript, up to line 16,293. Before the Dresden manuscript was damaged, the whole poem as it appears there was summarized with selected transcriptions by Stanley L. Galpin, “*Les eschez amoureux: A Complete Synopsis with Unpublished Extracts*,” *Romanic Review* 11 (1920): 283–307. An earlier account of the poem in the Dresden manuscript is Gustav Körting, *Altfranzösische Uebersetzung der Remedia amoris des Ovid (ein Theil des allegorisch-didactischen Epos “Les échecs amoureux”) nach der Dresdener Handschrift herausgegeben* (Leipzig: Halle, 1871). I rely on Galpin and Körting for information about the later sections.

¹⁹ The following summary of the later sections, fols. 79–144, is based on Galpin, “*Les eschez amoureux: A Complete Synopsis*.”

²⁰ See Chapter 5, pp. 216–20. The *Eschéz* may even have borrowed the allusion to the Romans (lines 16116–20), although without quite understanding its point, substituting an example of how the Romans kept their subject peoples in check with kindness or severity.

²¹ The rubric at folio 79 (from the now damaged portion of the manuscript), transcribed by Körting, *Altfranzösische Uebersetzung der Remedia amoris*, p. 84, reads: “comment le prince doit desirer plus l’amour de sez subgiez que la cremour” (or possibly “clamour”).

²² Cf., *Les Eschéz d’Amours*, eds. Heyworth and O’Sullivan, note to lines 16237–8, “Se tu veulz don’t bien labourer / Et acquerre amours generaulx”: “This passage is designed to shift the notion of love from an individual to a communal ideal, a fact undercored in D [Dresden MS Oc 66], perhaps by the capitalization of the word ‘Amours.’ ”

²³ See Nicolette Zeeman, “The Lover-Poet and Love as the Most Pleasing “Matere” in Medieval French Love Poetry,” *The Modern Language Review* 83 (1988): 820–42.

²⁴ Frank Coulson, ed. and trans., “The Latin Glosses of Venice Fr. App. 12,” in Heyworth and O’Sullivan, eds. *Les Eschéz d’Amours*, pp. 95–104 (esp. p. 98). See also in this book the description of the manuscript by O’Sullivan, *Chess in the Middle Ages and Early Modern Age*, pp. 83–4.

²⁵ Quotations of the Latin glosses and translations are from Frank Coulson and Gregory Heyworth, “The Latin Glosses of Venice Fr. App. 123,” in *Les Eschéz d’Amours*, eds. Heyworth and O’Sullivan, p. 672. *De regimine principum* treats *liberalitas* at 1.2.17.

²⁶ “Et lui dist dame Pallas et moustra moult d’enseignemens beaulx et moult de belles choses... qui seroient belles a declairier, maiz...je m’en tairay atant quant a present” (And Lady Pallas spoke to him and related many fine teachings and many good principles...which it would be nice to expound, but...I will stop with as much as I have done now). Evrart de Contry, *Le livre des eschez amoureux moralisés*, eds. Françoise Guichard-Tesson and Bruno Roy (Montreal: CERES, 1993), pp. 765–6.

²⁷ On the manuscripts, see *Livre des eschez amoureux moralisés*, eds. Guichard-Tesson and Roy, pp. xiii–xxviii. The miniatures in Paris, Bnf MS fr. 9197 of the late fifteenth century, along with a few images from other manuscripts, are reproduced in Anne-Marie Legaré, *Le livre des échecs amoureux* (Paris: Chêne, 1991). On his enclopedism and his sources, see Françoise Guichard-Tesson, “La Glose des échecs amoureux. Un savoir à tendance laïque: comment l’interpréter?” *Fifteenth*

Century Studies 10 (1984): 229–60. Badel, *Le Roman de la Rose au XIV siècle*, pp. 313–14, lists many of his sources.

²⁸ On the political–ethical dimensions of this as an early vernacular academic commentary with its roots in Aristotelian thought, see Alastair Minnis, “Reconciling *amour* and *yconomique*: Evrart de Conty’s Ambition as Vernacular Commentator,” in Ducos and Goyens, eds., *Traduire au XIVe siècle: Evrart de Conty et la vie intellectuelle*, pp. 199–221.

²⁹ Michèle Goyens, “Le développement du lexique scientifique français et la traduction des *Problèmes d’Aristote* par Evrart de Conty (c.1380),” *Thélème. Revista Complutense de Estudios Franceses* [número extraordinario] 2003: 189–207 (at 193). Certain themes and passages from the poem are echoed in his additions to the *Problemata*: see Françoise Guichard-Tesson, “Évrart de Conty, auteur de la *Glose des Echecs amoureux*,” *Le moyen français* 8–9 (1982): 111–48 (at 136). An edition of Evrart’s version of the *Problemata* is in progress.

³⁰ Guichard-Tesson, “Évrart de Conty, auteur de la *Glose*,” pp. 123–4; Françoise Guichard-Tesson, “ ‘Évrart de Conty, poète, traducteur et commentateur,’ ” in Pieter de Leemans and Michèle Goyens, eds., *Aristotle’s Problemata in Different Times and Tongues* (Leuven: Leuven University Press, 2006), pp. 145–74 (at pp. 168–73).

³¹ *Livre des eschez amoureux moralises*, eds. Guichard-Tesson and Roy, pp. 441–2.

³² See Chapter 6, p. 244 for the further six emotions given in *De regimine principum*: zeal, graciousness, “nemesis,” pity, envy, and modesty or shame.

³³ Leopold Delisle, *Recherches sur la librairie de Charles V*, 2 vols. (Paris: Champion, 1907), 2: 87–8.

³⁴ For his views on the passions, see Béatrice Delaurenti, “Emotional Contagion: Évrart de Conty and Compassion,” in Andreea Marculescu and Charles-Louis Morand Métivier, eds., *Affective and Emotional Economies in Medieval and Early Modern Europe* (New York: Palgrave Macmillan, 2018), pp. 107–26.

³⁵ For references to the *Rhetoric* (with or without the title mentioned), see *Livre des eschez amoureux moralises*, eds. Guichard-Tesson and Roy, pp. 444, 448–9, 461, 466–7. The *Rhetoric* is among the Aristotelian works he draws on throughout the commentary, e.g., p. 102. On his use of florilegia, see Guichard-Tesson, “Évrart de Conty, auteur de la *Glose des Echecs amoureux*,” p. 144, and Guichard-Tesson, “La *Glose des échecs amoureux*. Un savoir à tendance laïque.”

³⁶ *Livre des eschez amoureux moralises*, eds. Guichard-Tesson and Roy, p. 447.

³⁷ On Godfrey of Fontaines, see Kempshall, *The Common Good in Late Medieval Political Thought*, pp. 204–34, and on Remigio dei Girolami, pp. 293–315.

³⁸ Daisy Delogu, *Theorizing the Ideal Sovereign: The Rise of the French Vernacular Royal Biography* (Toronto: University of Toronto Press, 2008), p. 158.

³⁹ Editor’s introduction, *Livre des fais et monnes meurs du sage Roy Charles V* par Christine de Pisan, ed. S. Solente, 2 vols. (Paris: Champion, 1936–40), 1: xxviii; Delogu, *Theorizing the Ideal Sovereign*, pp. 153–9; Jean Devaux, “De la biographie au miroir du prince,” *Le Moyen Age* 116 (2010): 591–604.

⁴⁰ Daisy Delogu, “Christine de Pizan lectrice de Gilles de Rome: le *De Regimine principum* et le *Livre des fais et bonnes meurs du sage roy Charles V*,” *Cahiers de recherches médiévales et humanistes* 16 (2008): 213–24; Joël Blanchard and Jean-Claude Mühlethaler, *Écriture et pouvoir à l’aube des temps modernes* (Paris: PUF, 2002), pp. 16–25.

⁴¹ Charles-Louis Morand Métivier, “Émotions politiques, politiques émotionnelles: Christine de Pizan et Charles V,” *The French Review* 90 (2017): 13–24; Delogu, “Christine de Pizan lectrice.”

⁴² Métivier, “Émotions politiques,” esp. pp. 14–16; Jacques Le Goff, “Mon ami le saint roi: Joinville et Saint Louis (réponse),” *Annales histoire et science sociales* 56 (2001): 469–77.

⁴³ *Livre des fais et monnes*, ed. Solente, book 1, chapter 1.

⁴⁴ See Métivier, “Émotions politiques,” 17–18.

⁴⁵ On the speech, see Delogu, *Theorizing the Ideal Sovereign*, pp. 73–4.

⁴⁶ The *Rhetoric* was not among the translations of Aristotle that Charles commissioned: his interests ran to the immediate utility of the major works of moral philosophy, the *Politics*, *Ethics*, and *Economics*.

⁴⁷ Jean-Philippe Genet, ed., *Four English Political Tracts of the Later Middle Ages*, Camden Series 18 (London: Royal Historical Society, 1977), p. 40.

⁴⁸ Genet, ed., *Four Political Tracts*, pp. 53–4. On its generic relationship with other English mirrors of princes, see Matthew Giancarlo, “Mirror, Mirror: Princely Hermeneutics, Practical Constitutionalism, and the Genres of the English *Fürstenspiegel*,” p. 46.

⁴⁹ See the table of citations in Genet, ed., *Four Political Tracts*, pp. 170, 172.

⁵⁰ See, for example, Genet, ed., *Four Political Tracts*, pp. 58–9, 72.

⁵¹ Alain Chartier, *Le Quadrilogue invectif*, ed. Florence Bouchet (Paris: Champion, 2011), pp. xxv–xxxix; Margaret S. Blayney, ed., *Fifteenth-Century English Translations of Alain Chartier’s Le Traité de l’Esperance and Le Quadrilogue Invectif*, 2 vols., EETS 270, 281 (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1974, 1980); Julia Boffey, “The Early Reception of Chartier’s Works in England and Scotland,” in Emma Cayley and Ashby Kinch, eds., *Chartier in Europe* (Cambridge: D. S. Brewer, 2008), pp. 105–16; M. S. Blayney and G. H. Blayney, “Alain Chartier and the *Complaynt of Scotland*,” *Review of English Studies* n.s. 9 (1958): 8–17. On Chartier’s biography, see C. J. H. Walravens, *Alain Chartier, études biographiques* (Amsterdam: Meulenhoff-Didier, 1971), esp. pp. 21–6.

⁵² *Le Quadrilogue invectif*, ed. Bouchet pp. 1, 83.

⁵³ *Le Quadrilogue invectif*, ed. Bouchet, p. 10.

⁵⁴ *Le Quadrilogue invectif*, ed. Bouchet p. 26.

⁵⁵ *Le Quadrilogue invectif*, ed. Bouchet, p. 24.

⁵⁶ *Le Quadrilogue invectif*, ed. Bouchet, pp. 58, 61, 63.

⁵⁷ See Daisy Delogu, “Performance and Polemic: Gender and Emotion in the Works of Alain Chartier,” in Daisy Delogu, Joan E. McRae, and Emma Cayley, eds., *A Companion to Alain Chartier (c.1385–1430)* (Leiden: Brill, 2015), pp. 121–40.

⁵⁸ On “political emotion” in the *Quadrilogue*, see Lucas Wood, “Dreaming the Divided Nation: Alain Chartier’s Oneiropolitics,” in Daniel Davies and R. D. Perry, eds., *The Hundred Years War and European Literary History* (Manchester: Manchester University Press, forthcoming). Wood considers the persuasive force of a “genuinely passionate patriotic feeling” (beyond the merely “regulative ideal” of love in feudal politics) that elevates the work from simple invective to coherent critique.

⁵⁹ Readers, however, seem to have made the connection. In one mid-fifteenth-century codex containing *Quadrilogue invectif*, Paris BnF, fr. 126 (the oldest copy of the text), this along with two of Chartier’s other moral works is bound with the Jean Golein version of *De regimine* and Premierfait’s translations of Cicero’s *De senectute* and *De amicitia*. See *Le Quadrilogue invectif*, ed. Bouchet, p. xxxi.

⁶⁰ See Florence Bouchet, “Vox Dei, vox poetae: The Bible in the *Quadrilogue invectif*,” in Cayley and Kinch, eds., *Chartier in Europe*, pp. 31–44.

⁶¹ Lawrence D. Green, “The Reception of Aristotle’s *Rhetoric* in the Renaissance,” in Fortenbaugh and Mirhady, eds., *Peripatetic Rhetoric after Aristotle*, pp. 320–48 (at pp. 329–30).

⁶² On translations of the *Rhetoric*, see Pierre Lardet, “Les traductions de la *Rhétorique* d’Aristote à la renaissance,” in Geneviève Contamine, *Traduction et traducteurs au Moyen Âge* (Paris: CNRS, 1989), pp. 15–30. On circulation of the Greek text as well as translations, see Peter Mack, *A History of Renaissance Rhetoric 1380–1620* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2011), pp. 24–6, 30–2, 169–71. See also *Vernacular Aristotelianism in Renaissance Italy Database*, <https://vari.warwick.ac.uk/>.

⁶³ Virginia Cox, “Quintilian in the Italian Renaissance,” in Marc van der Poel, Michael Edwards, and James J. Murphy, eds., *The Oxford Handbook to Quintilian* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, forthcoming).

⁶⁴ On Valla, see Cox, “Quintilian in the Italian Renaissance”; on rivalry with the *Rhetorica ad Herennium*, see Ward, “Quintilian and the Rhetorical Revolution of the Middle Ages,” 245–51.

⁶⁵ Poggio Bracciolini, *Lettere*, ed. Helene Harth, 3 vols. (Florence: Olschki, 1984–7), 2: 153–6; Michael Winterbottom, “Fifteenth-Century Manuscripts of Quintilian,” *The Classical Quarterly* 17 (1967): 339–69 (at 340).

⁶⁶ On the cultural intersections of the Council, see David Wallace, “Constance,” in David Wallace, ed., *Europe: A Literary History 1348–1418*, 2 vols. (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2016), 2: 655–79, and on Poggio’s letter on Jerome of Prague’s trial, pp. 675–6.

⁶⁷ On the emergence of Poggio’s *epistolario* and its manuscript history, see the clear account in Martin C. Davies, “Friends and Enemies of Poggio: Studies in Quattrocento Humanist Literature,” PhD thesis, Oxford, 1986, pp. 9–14, https://ora.ox.ac.uk/objects/uuid:d9b0db71-a5ec-426f-8ddf-ba7d05a15ab7/download_file?safe_filename=602328584.pdf&file_format=application/pdf&type_of_work=Thesis. The most recent editor of the letters sees the reorderings as aiming for stylistic effect: *Lettere*, ed. Harth, 1: cvi–cviii and for the two letters given in the order found in manuscripts, see 2: 153–63 (items 5 and 6 in the volume). Davies (“Friends and Enemies of Poggio”) is skeptical of attaching much meaning to the order of the letters.

⁶⁸ For other accounts of Jerome’s death, see Thomas A. Fudge, *Jerome of Prague and the Foundations of the Hussite Movement* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2016), pp. 334–7.

⁶⁹ Wallace, “Constance,” p. 676.

⁷⁰ *Lettere*, ed. Harth, 2: 157.

⁷¹ *Lettere*, ed. Harth, 2: 161.

⁷² Ernst Walser, *Poggius Florentinus. Leben und Werke* (Berlin: Teubner, 1914), pp. 6–11 (on education), 228, 418–23. Item #78 in the inventory is a *Moralia Aristotelis*.

⁷³ Mack, *A History of Renaissance Rhetoric*, p. 311; Lawrence Green, “Aristotle’s *Rhetoric* and Renaissance Views of the Emotions,” in Mack, ed., *Renaissance Rhetoric*, pp. 1–26 (at pp. 19–20), and those works cited in notes above and below. See also Ekkehard Eggs, “Die frühneuzeitliche Rezeption der aristotelischen Rhetorik in Frankreich und Italien,” in Knappe and Schirren, *Aristotelische Rhetorik-Tradition*, pp. 197–272.

⁷⁴ On Vives (1492–1540), see Green “Aristotle’s *Rhetoric* and Renaissance Views of the Emotions,” pp. 1–7; Mack, *A History of Renaissance Rhetoric*, pp. 129–31. On Benci (1542–1594) and Chytraeus (1543–1598), see Green, “The Reception of Aristotle’s *Rhetoric* in the Renaissance,” pp. 336–7.

⁷⁵ Peter Mack, “Aristotle’s *Rhetoric* and Northern Humanist Textbooks: Agricola, Erasmus, Melancthon and Ramus,” in Dahan and Rosier-Catach, eds., *La Rhétorique d’Aristote*, pp. 299–313

(at pp. 308–9); Lawrence D. Green, “Aristotle’s *Rhetoric* and Renaissance Conceptions of the Soul,” in Dahan and Rosier-Catach, 283–97 (at pp. 286–9); Mack, *A History of Renaissance Rhetoric*, pp. 169–71, 186–92.

⁷⁶ See Rita Copeland, “When did the Emotions become Political? Medieval Origins and Enlightenment Outcomes,” in Ardis Butterfield, Ian Johnson, and Andrew Kraebel, eds., *Literary Theory and Criticism in the Later Middle Ages* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, forthcoming 2022). Eileen Sweeney, “Restructuring Desire: Aquinas, Hobbes, and Descartes on the Passions,” in Stephen F. Brown, ed., *Meeting of the Minds: The Relations between Medieval and Classical Modern European Philosophy* (Turnhout: Brepols, 1998), pp. 215–33.

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